

Negation in the world's languages I

Africa

Edited by

Matti Miestamo

Ljuba Veselinova

With

Héloïse Calame

Research on Comparative Grammar 7



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Chapter 1

Introduction

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This book consists of 43 chapters describing the negation system of one language following a typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire. The questionnaire is organized according to functional subdomains of negation and pays most attention to aspects of negation that have been found salient in typological research. The introduction first discusses the background and aims of the book. The questionnaire and the conventions adopted are then introduced. Finally, the selection of languages and their areal and genealogical distribution are addressed and the organization of the book is explained.

1 Background and aims

The goal of this book is to achieve typologically-informed, multifaceted and comprehensive descriptions of the negation systems of languages from different families and geographical areas. The publication is a follow-up from a workshop organized by the editors at the Syntax of the World's Languages 8 conference in Paris in 2018. The greater part of the contributions are based on presentations in that workshop. Negation is a topic that has been widely studied in various branches of linguistics and there is an extensive body of literature devoted to it. Nevertheless, detailed and accurate descriptions of the domain of negation exist for a small minority of the world's languages.

Large-scale typological studies of negation include Dahl (1979), Dryer (2013a,b,c) and Miestamo (2005) for standard negation, van der Auwera et al. (2013), Van Olmen (2024) for negative imperatives, Veselinova (2013, 2015) for the negation of existential and other stative predications, Haspelmath (2013), Van Alsenoy (2014) and van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy (2018) for the negation of indefinite pronouns, and Miestamo (2014) for case marking under negation (for an overview



of the whole domain, see Miestamo 2007, 2017, Dahl 2010 and van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova 2020).¹ However, there are several aspects of negation that have not been systematically studied from a cross-linguistic perspective. This is partly due to the fact that not enough data from particular languages are available on these subdomains. There have been few systematic efforts to collect data from a wider variety of individual languages. This is a gap that needs to be filled both for the benefit of linguistic typology and for the detailed description of individual languages. One systematic attempt saw the light in Kahrel & van den Berg (1994). In that volume, the negation systems of 16 languages from different parts of the world were described on the basis of a unified questionnaire that addressed the domain of negation with a set of questions derived from typological research done by the late 1980s. The volume has been very useful for typologists and for descriptive linguists as a source of data and as inspiration for systematic and unified collection of data from different languages with very diverse expressions of negation. However, no similar projects have been conducted since the publication of the volume 30 years ago.

A similar effort was undertaken for one specific family, namely Uralic, by Miestamo et al. (2015). For that volume, a functionally oriented questionnaire drawing from the current state-of-the-art knowledge of the typology of negation was developed. The 17 Uralic languages included in the volume were described in a similar way following one and the same template, thereby greatly improving the descriptive situation of negation in Uralic languages. However, this approach was yet to be applied to other languages and language families.

Organizing the Paris workshop and editing this book was our response to this demand. Our primary goal was to produce comprehensive and detailed descriptions of negation systems in a diverse body of languages from different parts of the world. The chapters in this book are based on a revised version of the questionnaire used in Miestamo et al. (2015). “Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language” is published as Chapter 2 in this volume. It is discussed in more detail in §2 of this introduction.

The book authors were recruited initially following their participation in the Paris workshop and, after that, by approaching other specialists in specific areas and families to ensure the genealogical and areal balance of the project, see §3 for further discussion. Each language-specific description of negation constitutes one chapter in the book. The book contains 43 chapters; some of them are co-authored by several people, so all in all, there are 56 authors participating in

¹The references mentioned here are not meant to be an exhaustive list of large-scale typological studies on negation in the literature.

this book. Each chapter follows the guidelines detailed in the questionnaire. Our goal has been to cover the subdomains of negation that we deem as typologically salient. Additionally, authors have been encouraged to focus specifically on issues that, in their respective languages, are most distinctive or especially interesting for cross-linguistic studies. These domains may, for instance, pertain to properties that are cross-linguistically rare or may be problematic to describe.

By describing languages on the basis of the questionnaire, the chapters in this book have produced comparable datasets of the negation systems of a wide variety of languages from different families and areas. The contributions are also good examples of the fruitful cooperation between typologists and descriptive linguists in the context of diversity linguistics. Typological knowledge is crucial for language description as it helps descriptive linguists to see their data in a broader perspective, to ask new questions, and to come up with new analyses. Typologists are dependent on work done by descriptive linguists for their data collection. A typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire thus helps descriptive linguists to find relevant questions to focus on and to structure the description of negation in their respective languages, and in turn, these descriptions feed back to typology as more high-quality data that are comparable across languages.

The book is divided into three parts according to geography, following the macro-areal divisions in the Glottolog (Hammarström et al. 2024). The first part includes languages from Africa, the second part covers languages from Eurasia, and the third part brings together languages from Papunesia, Australia, North America and South America. As will be seen in §3, the grouping of macro-areas into three parts relates to the number of authors we were able to recruit for each area.

2 Questionnaire and conventions

In this section, we address first the logic and the structure of the questionnaire in §2.1, then we discuss some issues that have come up during the editing process regarding the use of the questionnaire in §2.2, and finally we explain the glossing conventions adopted in the book in §2.3.

2.1 Logic and structure of the questionnaire

The idea of a typologically and functionally based questionnaire for the description of negation was originally presented in the Uralic Typology Database Conference in Vienna in 2008 and the first draft was produced for the Symposium

on Negation in Uralic languages at the 2010 Congressus Internationalis Fenno-Ugristarum in Piliscsaba (Miestamo 2010). The questionnaire was published as an appendix to the introduction of the volume on *Negation in Uralic languages* (Miestamo et al. 2015), in which negation in 17 Uralic languages was described based on the questionnaire. A revision appeared in the TulQuest questionnaire repository² in 2016 and was distributed to the participants before the Paris workshop. For the present book, a further revision (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) was done with additional input from both editors, and this revised version is published as Chapter 2 in the present book. Note that some needs for development and revision have been identified by us in the process of editing and suggested to us by colleagues. However, as we have to show the questionnaire to our readers as it was sent to the authors and as it was used by them in preparing their contributions, it has been reproduced in this book in its 2019 version. Only the formatting has been changed to conform to the style sheet of this book. Some of the ideas for future development are discussed in §2.2.

The questionnaire has a functional-typological basis. It is organized according to different subdomains of negation, paying special attention to such domains that are typologically salient, i.e. likely to show variation across languages and to differ from basic declarative-clause negation (standard negation). The questionnaire is divided into three main sections: clausal negation, non-clausal negation and other aspects of negation. The first two parts target negative expressions (morphemes, constructions), whereas the third one is about phenomena that are related to negation and happen in connection with negation, but are not themselves expressions of negation; we admit that it is not always easy to draw the line and there will be some variation as to how things are distributed between the sections in different chapters (we will come back to this in §2.2).

The section on clausal negation is divided into 1. standard negation, i.e. the basic way(s) the language has for negating declarative main clauses with a verbal predicate, 2. negation in non-declaratives (mainly imperatives and interrogatives), 3. negation in stative predications (identity, class inclusion, property, existence, location, possession), 4. negation in non-main clauses, and 5. negative lexicalizations (lexically idiosyncratic negation). There is a final subsection, where clausal negation constructions that do not fit under any of the preceding subheadings can be discussed.

The section on non-clausal negation is divided into 1. negative replies, 2. negative indefinites and quantifiers, and 3. negative case marking and derivation. Again, there is a final subsection for non-clausal negation constructions not fitting in any of the preceding subsections.

²<http://tulquest.huma-num.fr>

Finally, the section on other aspects of negation has subsections on 1. the scope of negation, 2. negative polarity, 3. marking of NPs under the scope of negation, 4. reinforcing negation, and 5. negation, coordination and complex clauses. A final subsection addresses miscellaneous phenomena that may also be taken into account in the description, such as negative transport, metalinguistic negation, diachronic aspects of negation, etc.

In this introduction, we do not explain the contents of the questionnaire in more detail, as that would create overlap with what is explained in the questionnaire. At this point, the reader is thus referred to the questionnaire itself (Chapter 2 in this book). Note further that, for similar reasons, i.e. to avoid overlap, the questionnaire does not offer a detailed overview of the typology of the different subdomains of negation. There are many published overviews of the typology of negation, e.g. Dahl (2010), van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova (2020) and Miestamo (2007, 2017), that do this and also cite further relevant literature. We advise to consult them parallel to the questionnaire. Especially the two last-mentioned ones, which have a similar structure and focus as the questionnaire, provide a typological introduction to the subdomains and aspects of negation mentioned in the questionnaire.

Some further notes on the structure of the chapters are in order. Every chapter starts with an introductory section (Section §1) that situates the language in its genealogical and areal context, describes its sociolinguistic status and provides a brief typological characterization of the language to serve as a background for the description of negation. It also informs the reader about the methods and material that the description is based on. The three main parts of the questionnaire constitute Sections §2–§4 in the chapters, and each chapter has the same second-level subheadings and numbering under these sections. Exceptions to this are the final subsections in each section (§2.6, §3.4 and §4.6, respectively), which need to be there only in case there are further negative constructions or negation-related phenomena to report that could not be discussed in the preceding sections. Third-level subheadings are generally not present in the questionnaire and they are thus not unified across the chapters; they can be freely added by authors if need be. However, the questionnaire does have third-level subheadings under subsection §4.6, but these are mere suggestions and need not be present if the authors do not have anything to report under them. Thus even in this case, the authors are bound by the second-level subheadings only. Each chapter is closed by a summary, Section 5, which contains a table that puts together the main negative expressions in the language. We have asked the authors to organize the table from form to function, so that it does not merely summarize the functionally-oriented questionnaire but rather lets a language-specific perspective take precedence.

The reader will notice that there is quite a lot of variation as to the length of the chapters, so the following explanation is in order. We had originally aimed at chapters of 20–25 pages. At some point we received information from the publisher that there are no length restrictions. At that stage, we did not actively encourage authors to expand their chapters, but for authors whose chapters had become longer for different reasons, we no longer imposed strict length restrictions, hence the varying length of the chapters.

2.2 Observations on the use of the questionnaire

In this section, we present some issues that surfaced during the process of editing this book. We are not going through the questionnaire and its application section by section, but we focus on aspects that may have been interpreted in different ways by different authors, on questions/domains of the questionnaire for which data have been difficult to obtain or elicit, and on possible overlaps between different sections and how to solve them. Therefore the reader should not expect a discussion of the most central aspects of negation that the questionnaire targets, but a less systematic collection of issues that require some clarification.

One central aspect of negation addressed in the questionnaire does however require a comment. The questionnaire encourages authors to pay attention to asymmetry between affirmation and negation, i.e. structural differences that negatives show vis-à-vis affirmatives in addition to the presence of negative markers (see Miestamo 2005), in connection with all subdomains of negation. In typological literature, it is mainly standard negation that has been discussed in terms of symmetry and asymmetry, but it is possible to extend it to other subdomains as well (see e.g. Van Olmen 2024), as also suggested by the questionnaire. The chapters differ in how much weight they put on asymmetry. This is naturally also partly dependent on how much asymmetry a given language shows, i.e. how much the structure of negatives differs from the structure of affirmatives. Some chapters address (a)symmetry in many subsections whereas others only mention it briefly in connection with standard negation. As editors, we have encouraged the authors to pay close attention to how negatives differ from affirmatives in the various subdomains of negation, and pointed out that a given structure in a given language could be characterized in terms of asymmetry and the subtypes proposed by Miestamo (2005), but we have not insisted on using this typological classification as such in describing negation in the language. This book is about describing the negation systems of languages in a typological perspective, and therefore, we have encouraged authors to pay attention to questions arising

from typological knowledge. However, the main point is to describe the structures of each individual language in its own terms rather than characterizing them in terms of typological classifications. Thus, regarding asymmetry, it is important to explicate how negatives differ from affirmatives in their structure, but it is secondary to the descriptive goals of the book to label these differences as one or another subtype of asymmetric negation proposed in typological work. A similar principle has been applied to other typological classifications in specific subdomains of negation.

Some of the subsections of the questionnaire are closely related to each other, and it is not always clear where to discuss a particular phenomenon. Two very closely related sections are §2.4 on non-main clauses and §4.5 on coordination and complex clauses. Section §2.4 looks at how non-main clauses are negated, but there may be phenomena related to negative non-main clauses that are not expressions of negation, and these may be better discussed in §4.5. On the other hand, if there is a negative coordinator (such as *neither... nor*) that is itself a marker of negation, it should be discussed in Section §2 or §3 depending on whether it is considered a clausal or a non-clausal negator. There is no dedicated section for such negative coordinators in the questionnaire, and in §2 and §3 their right place would be §2.6 or §3.4 addressing other (non-)clausal negation constructions. In many chapters they have been discussed in §4.5 as that is the place where they are easiest to find. This is one point of development for future versions of the questionnaire.

Another pair of subsections that address issues which are related in many languages are §3.2 on negative indefinites and quantifiers and §4.2 on negative polarity. Furthermore, §4.2 is closely related to other subsections of Section §4 addressing the scope of negation and reinforcing negation. Indefinite pronouns that appear under negation are negative polarity items in many languages, i.e. *any(body/thing)* in English. These would be primarily addressed in the section on negative indefinites, but should be mentioned and cross-referenced under negative polarity as well. Similarly, elements that express the scope of negation or emphasis under negation are often the same elements and they may be negative polarity items, so they may end up being mentioned in several subsections. What is always important is that the subsections are cross-referenced, so that the reader who is following the questionnaire can easily find what they are looking for.

While it is often pointed out that data on negation are easy to find in grammars and likewise easy to elicit, some aspects of this questionnaire have proven challenging in this respect. For instance, it has not always been clear that predication of location and existential predication are different predication types.

A locative predication asserts the location of a specific referent. An existential predication introduces a new entity into the discourse. Not all languages have a special grammaticalized existential construction (see detailed discussion in Creisels 2014, 2019; Haspelmath 2025; Veselinova & Hamari 2022). In many languages, there is a special strategy for negating predications of existence, which is, in fact, better described as a separate functional domain, the domain of absence or negative existence. On the other hand, predication of location is often encoded by several strategies, either standard negation or the negative existential, depending on the intended meaning and perspective of the speaker. The negation of predication of identity and class inclusion is often encoded by a separate strategy, different from both standard negation and the negative existential; such strategies have typically been reported. Negation strategies in the latter predication types are not always systematically covered in grammatical descriptions, which is why special attention was paid to them here.

We now turn to domains that have an intermediate status as regards lexicon and grammar. Phasal polarity is a functional domain which is typically understood to cover a system of concepts such as ‘already’, ‘no longer’, ‘still’, ‘not yet’ (see van der Auwera 1998; van Baar 1997). These concepts have to do with the existence or the non-existence of a situation at specific points in time related to other points in time. Thus *ALREADY* is usually defined to encode that a (possibly expected) situation has come to exist; *NO LONGER* expresses that a situation has ceased to exist; *STILL* is used to indicate that a situation continues (despite possible expectations that it should have stopped), and *NOT YET* encodes that a situation has not come into existence (despite possible expectations that it would). In the context of this book, *NOT YET* expressions, also referred to as *NONDUM* when clearly grammaticalized, following Veselinova & Devos (2021), have been of special interest. Their discussion would be placed differently in the questionnaire, depending on their status in the language but also following editorial guidance. Thus, fully grammaticalized *nondums* may appear in the discussion of standard negation as they would appear as full-fledged clausal negators, which in some languages constitute a tense-aspect category specific to the domain of negation. However, they might be also mentioned in the section on negative lexicalizations (more on this below). It should be noted that both in the pertinent literature and in this book, there is much fewer, if any, data on the encoding of the concept *NO LONGER* and the status of the respective expressions in specific languages. This is a gap yet to be filled by future research.

Negative lexicalizations are introduced in the questionnaire as expressions that combine lexical meaning with negation, as in Kalamang *komahal* ‘not know’ or *eranun* ‘cannot, not be possible’; they stand in an antonymy relationship with

their positive counterparts *gonggin* ‘know’ and *bisa* ‘can’ (Visser, this book). The most prototypical cases to be discussed under negative lexicalizations are ones where a particular concept has an idiosyncratic negative counterpart that cannot combine with grammatical expressions of negation. However, the limits of this definition need to be clarified. We need to ask: 1. whether or not a negative lexicalization is the only option to negate a given positive concept; 2. whether a negative lexicalization may itself be negated by more general negation markers. Consider the English verbs *fail* and *forget* – do they count as negative lexicalizations when interpreted as ‘not succeed’ and ‘not remember’, respectively? Even if languages do not always have negative lexicalizations in the strict sense, examples that loosely meet the definition, similar to the English verbs just quoted, may also be discussed in the section on negative lexicalizations. The Kalamang verbs cited above are the only options for negating the corresponding positive expressions and they cannot themselves be negated by standard negation. On the other hand, in Aguaruna (Overall, this book), there are expressions such as *dakitu-* ‘refuse, not want’; *tuhintu-* ‘be unable’; *kanina-* ‘not fit’ which can be negated by the standard negation expressions in this language. In this sense, and in a more stringent definition, they should be considered borderline cases of negative lexicalizations, just like the English verbs cited above.

Another issue relevant for the discussion of negative lexicalizations relates to our delimitation of lexical and grammatical meaning. This is relevant for expressions such as the negative existential or negative copulas, often glossed ‘not.be’, discussed in several different sections due to their numerous uses. Likewise, to come back to phasal polarity, there are expressions such as *jēn* ‘not yet/nondum’ in Kam (Lesage, this book) which often have an intermediate status between lexical and grammatical markers. In addition, nondums differ from what we see as the most prototypical negative lexicalizations in that they are not idiosyncratic negative counterparts of positive concepts but can freely combine with verbs and are in that sense (similar to) grammatical markers. This brief discussion on negative lexicalizations demonstrates that this subdomain of negation, yet to be explored, is another venue for further development of the questionnaire.

Perhaps it bears pointing out again that the questionnaire used here is based on our current knowledge about important subdomains of negation. Like everything in science, it is open to improvement. The discussion in this section has shown that we have already identified some points in need of revision. We hope that this questionnaire can be developed further in the future.

2.3 Glossing conventions

In addition to unity in the structure of the chapters, we strive to achieve unity in other respects as well, including the conventions regarding the presentation of examples. In glossing the examples, we follow the Leipzig Glossing Rules (LGR).³ This means strictly adhering to the LGR in the “morphosyntax of glossing”, i.e. aligning the items on the example and gloss lines and using symbols such as the hyphen and the dot according to the rules. Additionally, it means that we base our “lexicon of glossing” on the list of grammatical category abbreviations recommended in the LGR. Obviously, in a book containing chapters on more than 40 languages, many more abbreviations are necessary than what is provided in the rather short LGR list. Each chapter has a list of abbreviations in the end, and the abbreviations are unified across chapters.

In choosing the abbreviations, we have been guided by a few important principles. One of these is brevity, and we try to use abbreviations that are not unnecessarily long, so that examples will take as little space as possible. However, due to the principle of transparency, longer abbreviations may sometimes be preferred. Transparency means that the letters used in the abbreviation actually reflect the term that is being abbreviated. Thus in order to abbreviate terms like declarative negator and imperative negator, we use the abbreviations DECL.NEG and IMP.NEG, rather than NEG1 and NEG2 even if the descriptive tradition of a specific language group might prefer the latter. This also conforms to the principle that the terms and abbreviations used should relate to the semantics/function of the categories they refer to. This means that numbers are used in glossing only when they refer to meanings like person and noun class, not merely to distinguish between categories without any reference to function (e.g. using numbers to differentiate between different negators NEG1 and NEG2 as above). This is in line with the functional-typological orientation of the book. The final principle to be mentioned here is unity, so we use the same abbreviation for the same term in different chapters and the same abbreviation will always refer to the same term across the chapters. This is a further reason to avoid abbreviations such as NEG1 and NEG2 as these could refer to declarative and imperative negation in one language and standard/verbal negation and negative existence in another. It should be emphasized that using a unified set of abbreviations is not in conflict with the theoretical position that categories are language-particular (see Lazard 1992; Dryer 1997; Haspelmath 2007, 2010). The use of a unified set only means that common principles are applied in abbreviating the terms that each author uses for the descriptive categories in their respective language.

³<https://www.eva.mpg.de/lingua/resources/glossing-rules.php>

3 Languages presented in this book

As the topic is very broad in nature and, at the same time, rendered very detailed by the questionnaire, the project attracted a lot of interest. At the start of this book project we had as many as 58 interested contributors, 36 of whom also participated in the workshop at the Syntax of World's Languages conference in Paris. The workshop participants were invited to author a chapter for this book. In the course of this project, some authors dropped out and some came in after the workshop and the subsequent call soliciting participation in the book project.

While strict sampling stratification is not possible in a collective enterprise like this, our ambition as editors has been to achieve a balanced representation of all linguistic macro-areas as given in the Glottolog: Africa, Eurasia, Papunesia, Australia, North and South America. We targeted languages which lack detailed descriptions of their negation systems. The inclusion of lesser studied and endangered languages was encouraged but the main criteria have been to highlight the genealogical and geographic diversity of human languages as well as to bring in high-quality contributions. Thus the reader will find descriptions of some well-studied languages, and likewise descriptions of languages whose documentation and study are just beginning, many of them severely endangered. We also tried to break the divide between the scholarship of spoken and signed languages by including a study of the Sign Language of the Netherlands.

A general breakdown of the distribution of phyla and languages according to macro-area is shown in Table 1. A detailed listing of the languages is shown in Tables 2 and 3, and their geographic distribution is displayed on the map in Figure 1. The order of languages in Tables 2 and 3 as well as in the book follows, to the extent possible, a direction from north to south for Africa, North America and South America; west to east for Eurasia and Papunesia.

Some comments on the presentation of the language list in Tables 2–3 are in order. The terms *top-level family*, *phylum* and *language stock* are used interchangeably in this section. The classification in the table follows the Glottolog. We are fully aware of the fact that the Glottolog may not always conform with the views of experts on specific families. The classification in the table may thus differ from what the authors say in their chapters. The choice to use the Glottolog here is solely motivated by the need for consistency within a single table, and we do not claim that the Glottolog would overrule the expert views of the authors. Those cases where the Glottolog deviates from the author's view have been indicated with an asterisk in Tables 2–3 (except in cases of mere orthographic variation). The 43 languages featured in the book represent 27 phyla. As discussed above, due to the interplay of different criteria – achieving adequate

Table 1: Quantitative overview of the genealogical coverage offered in this book

Macro-area	Phyla	Languages
Africa	5	13
Eurasia	9	13
Papunesia	2	3
Australia	2	2
North America	6	7
South America	5	5
	29 ^a	43

^aThe actual number of phyla is 27. Indo-European occurs both in Africa, via Afrikaans, and obviously, in Eurasia. Similarly, Afro-Asiatic is found both in Africa, via Beja, Kambaata and Siwi, and in Eurasia, via Hebrew.

representation of language diversity, encouraging the study of smaller and endangered languages, specifically with regard to negation, quality of scholarship, and the availability of authors – a balanced representation of the macro-areas has not been achieved as is evident from Table 1.

As indicated in Table 1, there are five phyla represented in the African macro-area. Four of them are native to Africa: Atlantic-Congo and Afro-Asiatic cover large parts of the continent while Nilotic and Mande are more localized. Indo-European as a colonial newcomer is represented as well. As is well known, Atlantic-Congo is a major language stock that branches out into numerous and very diverse subgroups. Bantu is among the largest subfamilies and for this reason it is justified that it is represented here by several languages that also reflect the west-east divide in the family. The Atlantic-Congo phylum is further represented by other subgroups in Central and West Africa which contribute to the more adequate representation of this wide-spread phylum. As shown in Table 1, four out of five possible subfamilies of the Afro-Asiatic phylum are included. Smaller families in both East and West Africa are also covered. Given the overall number of languages included in this book, we consider the African macro-area relatively well represented.

A similar observation can be made about Eurasia. In the context of this book, its diversity is presented by including both large stocks such as Indo-European, Uralic and Sino-Tibetan but also by featuring some smaller families and isolate language clusters. They include Nakh-Daghestanian, Mongolic-Khitan

Table 2: Detailed listing of the languages in volumes I and II

Phylum	Subgrouping(s)	Language	Glottocode	Author(s)
AFRICA				
Afro-Asiatic	Cushitic, Beja*	Beja	beja1238	M. Vanhove
	Cushitic, East Cushitic*	Kambaata	kamb1316	Y. Treis
Nilotic	Berber	Siwi	siwi1239	V. Schiattarella
	Eastern Nilotic	Lopit	lopi1242	J. Moodie
	Narrow Bantu*	Gyeli	gyel1242	N. Grimm
		Ngoreme	ngur1263	A. Laine, R. Bernander, H. Gibson
Atlantic-Congo		Ruuli	ruul1235	E. Ruppert, S. Namyalo, A. Witzlack-Makarevich
		Cuwabo	chuw1238	R. Guérois
	North-Volta-Congo, Kam	Kam	kamm1249	J. Lesage
	North-Volta-Congo, Gbaya-Manza-Ngbaka	Northwest Gbaya	nort2775	P. Roulon-Doko
	Central Atlantic	Mankanya	mark1251	A. Montébran
	South-eastern Mande*	Mano	mann1248	M. Khachatryan
	Germanic	Afrikaans	afri1274	D. Van Olmen, A. Breed, E. Kotzé
EURASIA				
Sign Language	Dutch-Belgian Sign	Sign Language of the Netherlands	dutc1253	U. Klomp, M. Oomen, R. Pfau
Indo-European	Slavic	Bulgarian	bulg1262	L. Veselinova
	Iranian	Pashto	pash1269	H. Lijegren, M. K. Khan
Afro-Asiatic	Semitic	Modern Hebrew	hebr1245	O. Amiraz
	Saami	Lule Saami	lule1254	J. Ylikoski, O. Kejonen
Nakh-Dagestanian	Finnic	Veps	veps1250	R. Grünthal
	Avar-Andic-Tsezic*	Andi	andi1255	T. Maisak
	Nakh	Tsova Tush	bats1242	F. Anker
Mongol-Khitani	Eastern Mongolic	Khalkha Mongolian	halh1238	B. Brosig
	Kuki-Chin-Naga*	Amri Karbi	amri1238	N. Philippova
Sino-Tibetan	Gyalrongic [...] Horpa	Geshiza	gesh1238	S. Honkasalo
	Khasi-Palaung*	Rumai Palaung	ruma1248	R. Weymuth
Austroasiatic		Nivkh	nivk1234	E. Gruzdeva, M. Fedotov

Table 3: Detailed listing of the languages in volume III

Phylum	Subgrouping(s)	Language	Glottocode	Author(s)
PAPUNESIA				
Austronesian	Malayo-Polynesian	Sundanese	sund1252	M. Butters
West Bomberai*	Oceanic [...]	Dorig	weta1242	A. François
	Kalamang	Kalamang	kara1499	E. Visser
AUSTRALIA				
Southern Daly	Murrinh Patha	Murrinhpatha	murr1258	R. Nordlinger
Worrorran	Ngarinyin	Ngarinyin	ngar1284	S. Spronck
NORTH AMERICA				
Siouan	Mississippi Valley	Nakoda	asi1247	V. Collette
Iroquoian	Northern Iroquoian	Mohawk	moha1258	M. Mithun
	Northern Iroquoian	Oneida	onei1249	J. P. Koenig, K. Michelson
Pomoan	Southern Pomoan-Kashaya	Kashaya	kash1280	B. Olsson
Muskogean	Alabaman-Koasati	Koasati	koas1236	J. B. Martin
Otomanguean	Zapotec	Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec	teot1238	A. Gutiérrez
Mixe-Zoque	Mixe	Chuxnabán Mixe	quet1239	C. Dagostino
SOUTH AMERICA				
Chibchan	Arhuacic	Kogi	cogu1240	D. Knuchel
Arawakan	Japura-Columbia	Yukuna	yucu1253	M. Lemus Serrano, F. Rose
Chicham	Aguaruna	Aguaruna	agua1253	S. Overall
Nuclear-Macro-Je	Je	Panará	pana1307	B. Bardagil
Araucanian*	Mapundungun	Mapudungun	mapu1245	F. Zúñiga

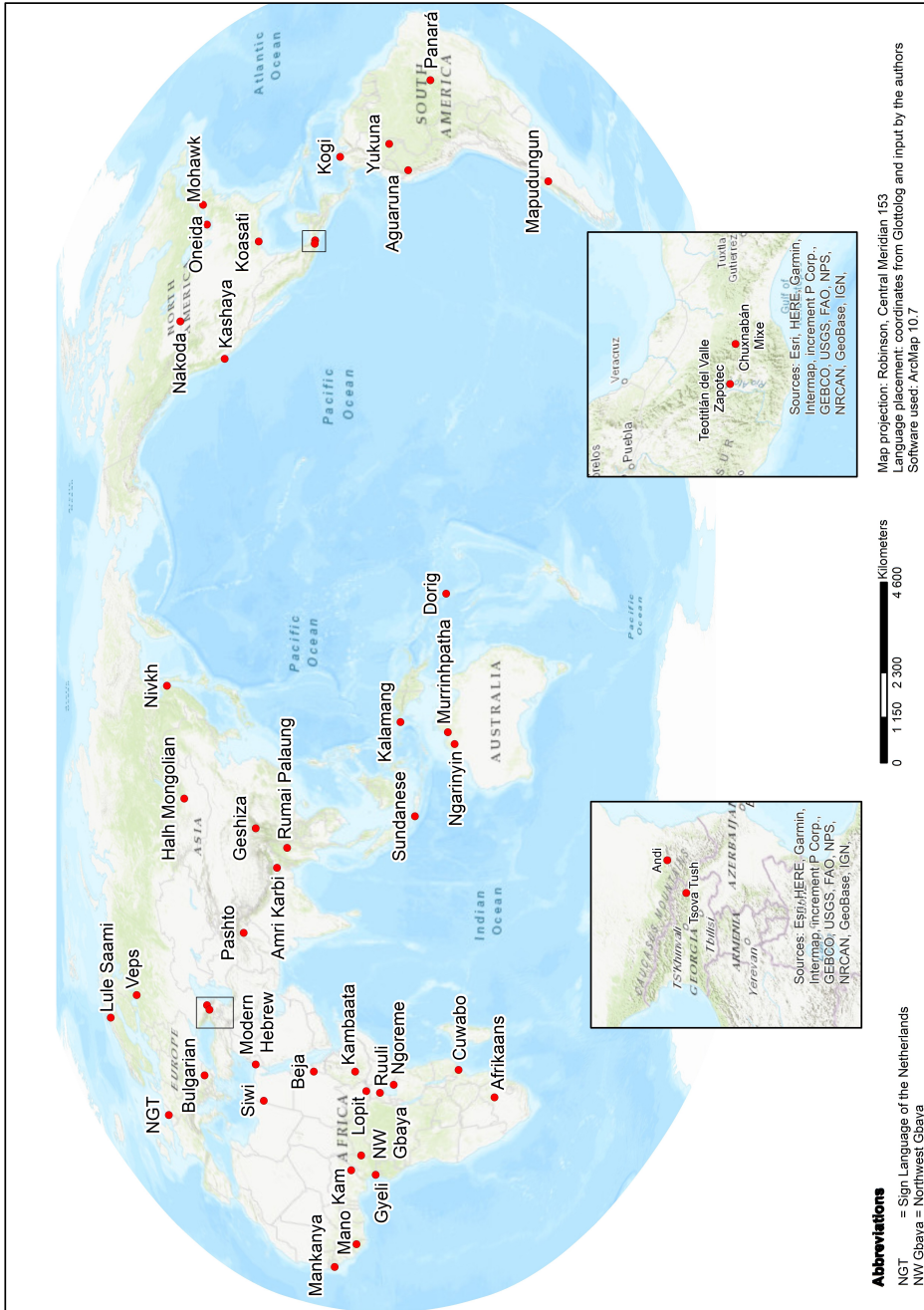


Figure 1: Geographic distribution of the languages covered in these volumes

and Nivkh, spread from the Caucasus to the Russian Far East. The Nakh-Daghestanian family is represented by two languages, which belong to two distinct branches of the family and are also geographically separated by the Caucasian Mountains: Andi (Avar-Andic-Tsezic) spoken in the Botlikhsky District of the Republic of Daghestan, in the northern part of the Caucasian mountains, and Tsova Tush, a Nakh language, spoken in a village in Eastern Georgia, in the southern part of the Caucasian mountain chain. The inclusion of Nivkh adds to the genealogical and geographic coverage of the volumes, and it also adds depth in that both of its main varieties are described.

As stated above, the genealogical diversity of Papunesia is not well covered in this book. However, it should be noted that the two phyla from this area are of very distinct character. One is Austronesian, which is geographically the most wide-spread family in the world. It is represented by two languages which are far apart both geographically and genealogically within the phylum: Sundanese, spoken primarily in West Java and Banten, Western Indonesia, and Dorig, an Oceanic language from the Torres Banks linkage, Northern Vanuatu. The other family from Papunesia is Greater West Bomberai⁴ located in East Timor and West Papua. It is represented by Kalamang, considered to form a branch on its own within this family. This language is spoken on the biggest of the three Karas Islands, West Papua province, Eastern Indonesia.

The Australian languages featured in the book are Murrinhpatha (Southern Daly) and Ngarinyin (Worrorran). They are both spoken in the Northern Territory, linguistically the most diverse region of the continent. As indicated above, Murrinhpatha and Ngarinyin belong to distinct families with very different morpho-syntactic characteristics; the locations where they are still used are far apart. We have to acknowledge that the coverage of Australia would have been more adequate if at least one Pama-Nyungan language were included in the book. We hope that this can be picked up and remedied in future publications.

North America is represented by six different phyla spread across the continent, thus it can be considered relatively well represented in this book. The Iroquoian languages Oneida and Mohawk included here represent one and the same subgroup, Northern Iroquoian. While this contradicts the goal of including as diverse languages as possible, having the possibility to contrast two very closely related languages is usually very instructive for building up informed and comprehensive typologies.

As is well known, in South America we observe few very large phyla and a huge number of smaller families and isolates. Languages from three of its geographically and genealogically diverse families are represented here: Yukuna

⁴West Bomberai in Glottolog.

(Arawakan), Panará (Nuclear Macro-Je) and Kogi (Chibchan). In addition, we have also included Aguaruna, a language from a tightly knit family, Chicham (formerly known as Jivaroan), spoken in the south of Ecuador, and Mapundungun, a language isolate⁵ of southern Chile. While the inclusion of more smaller families from South America would have been desirable to achieve a better genealogical representation, it has to be pointed out that the languages included here are geographically wide apart (see Figure 1) and spread across the entire continent. In this sense, the coverage of South America is acceptable.

As stated in the beginning of this section, the selection of languages presented here does not constitute a properly stratified sample. Still, we hope that the studies in this book provide a diverse enough picture of the complexities of negation as manifested in natural languages. We also hope that they will inspire future studies and new perspectives on this fascinating domain that has been and continues to be the focus of many works, in linguistics and beyond.

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⁵Araucanian in Glottolog.

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Chapter 2

Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language

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[February 2019, revisions done together with Ljuba Veselinova]

General remarks and instructions

This questionnaire¹ explicates the different aspects of negation that should be covered in the description of the domain of negation in a language. To keep the length of the questionnaire in reasonable proportions, the questionnaire itself does not explain very deeply the typology of the different subdomains of negation, or give examples, and typological literature is meant to be consulted while working with the questionnaire. Some pointers to relevant literature are given in the questionnaire, but this is not done systematically, and the user of the questionnaire is advised to make use of typological overviews such as Miestamo 2007, 2017, and further typological literature cited in these.

The questionnaire starts from function and asks what the formal constructions expressing these functions are in each language.

¹As explained in the introduction to this book, the questionnaire is reproduced here in the version in which it was distributed to the authors in early 2019. The only changes are the formatting following the LSP style sheet and some very small corrections. These are mainly limited to correcting typographic errors, and changes to the content are limited to a couple of instances of replacing a word with a more fitting one and making a necessary clarification to clause structure. The history and the underlying logic of the questionnaire is discussed in the introduction. This 2019 version results from revisions done together with Ljuba Veselinova and her input is gratefully recognized.



Note that depending on the language, some forms and constructions may fall under more than one subsections.

In Sections §2 Clausal negation and §3 Non-clausal negation, describe all the different constructions used to express negation in the language, paying attention to:

- Negative marker(s) (see Dahl 1979; Payne 1985; Dryer 2005, 2011a, 2011b):
 - type: particle, clitic, affix, verb, noun, ...
 - position: preverbal, postverbal, clause-initial, clause-final...
 - number: one marker, two markers (discontinuous), or even more...
- Structural differences between positives vs. negatives (see Miestamo 2005: 51ff, 2007, 2017)
 - Are negative markers simply added to a corresponding positive, or does the structure of the clause differ from the affirmative in other ways, too (constructional asymmetry)? Describe the structural differences.
 - Are the same grammatical categories available in the negative as well, or are some distinctions that are made in the affirmative lost in the negative (paradigmatic asymmetry)? Describe the differences in the paradigms available in the negative vs. affirmative.
- What are the more specific functions of these negative constructions – which environments are they used in, i.e. what do they negate?
 - Note specifically which categories/environments use the same negative construction.

Languages often have different negative constructions for negation in different environments (clausal negation, different clause types, constituent negation, negative indefinites, etc.). In Sections §2 and §3, the different negative constructions should be described: clausal negation in §2 and non-clausal negation in section §3. The subsections deal with different clause types and environments, in which negation may show dedicated constructions, different from the negation of other clause types / environments.

In the description of each negative construction, please take into account the points discussed above (negative markers, structural (a)symmetry, functions). Please also give illustrative examples (both the negative and its non-negative counterpart whenever possible).

1 The language

Give a general characterization of the language in terms of geography, genealogy, contacts, sociolinguistic status, dialectal variation etc. Please, provide also the ISO and Glottolog codes identifying the language.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation (SN) refers to the (basic) way(s) a language has for negating declarative verbal main clauses (see especially Payne 1985; Miestamo 2005). For example, in Spanish (1), SN is expressed by a construction in which the negative marker *no* precedes the verb. In Finnish (2), standard negation is expressed by a construction in which the negative auxiliary *e-* appears as the finite element of the sentence, carrying the verbal person-number markers, and the lexical verb is in a non-finite form (uninflected present connegative in the present and past participle in the past tense).

(1) Spanish (constructed examples)

- a. *El perro está ladrando.*
DEF dog be.3SG bark.PTCP
'The dog is barking.'
- b. *El perro no está ladrando.*
DEF dog NEG be.3SG bark.PTCP
'The dog is not barking.'
- c. *El perro ladró.*
DEF dog bark.PST.3SG
'The dog barked.'
- d. *El perro no ladró.*
DEF dog NEG bark.PST.3SG
'The dog did not bark.'

(2) Finnish (constructed examples)

- a. *Koira haukku-u.*
dog bark-3SG
'The dog is barking.'

- b. *Koira ei hauku.*
dog NEG.3SG bark.CNG.PRS
'The dog is not barking.'
- c. *Koira haukku-i.*
dog bark-PST.3SG
'The dog barked.'
- d. *Koira ei haukku-nut.*
dog NEG.3SG bark-PST.PTCP.SG
'The dog did not bark.'

As explained above, pay attention to the type and position of the negative marker(s) as well as to any structural differences between the negatives and the corresponding affirmatives. Are negative markers simply added to a corresponding positive, or does the structure of the clause differ from the affirmative in other ways, too (constructional asymmetry)? Are the same grammatical categories available in the negative as well, or are some distinctions made in the affirmative lost in the negative (paradigmatic asymmetry)? Which types of asymmetry identified by Miestamo (2005) do these differences instantiate? For the relationship between aspectual categories and negation, see also Miestamo & van der Auwera (2011).

Languages may have different standard negation constructions, e.g., in different TAM categories, in different person/number/gender categories, etc. For example in Komi, the present and the past use negative verb constructions with a different stem of the negative verb (3a–3d), and the perfect and the pluperfect use a completely different construction with a negative particle (3e–3h).

(3) Komi-Zyrian (Rédei 1978: 105–109)

- a. *Šet-e.*
give-3SG.PRS
'(S)he gives.'
- b. *O-z šet.*
NEG-3 give
'(S)he does not give.'
- c. *Šet-i-s.*
give-PRET-3SG
'(S)he gave.'

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- d. *E-z šet.*
NEG.PRET-3 give
'(S)he did not give.'
- e. *Šet-əm-a.*
give-PERF-3SG
'(S)he has given.'
- f. *Abu šet-əm-a.*
NEG give-PERF-3SG
'(S)he has not given.'
- g. *Šet-əm-a veli.*
give-PERF-3SG be.PRET.3SG
'(S)he had given.'
- h. *Abu šet-əm-a veli.*
NEG give-PERF-3SG be.PRET.3SG
'(S)he had not given.'

Describe all the different constructions used in different standard negation environments (declarative verbal main clauses). One temporal meaning that very often has its own dedicated negative construction are the so-called 'not yet' or *nondum* tenses (Comrie 1985: 54; Veselinova 2017), and special attention should be paid to the existence of such negative tenses.

Languages may have clausal negation constructions differing from standard negation in different clause types. There may be a dedicated negative construction for imperatives, non-verbal clauses, etc. Sections §2.2–2.4 should describe negation in each of these clause types. In case a clause type does not have a dedicated negative construction, it should be briefly noted which negative construction, already described, is used to negate it, giving also an illustrative example.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Do imperatives have a dedicated negative construction different from standard negation (or show special behaviour with respect to standard negation in some way at least)? Describe the dedicated construction (special behaviour) according to the instruction given above (neg-markers, (a)symmetry, functions) and give examples. You may also characterize negative imperatives in terms of the typological classification proposed by van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013); for differences between negative and positive imperatives, see also Miestamo & van der Auwera 2007 and Aikhenvald 2010.

What about other non-declaratives (questions, (other) non-declarative mood categories)? If there are any special constructions, describe them here, too. For negative questions, it is especially interesting to comment on their function/use – e.g., is there an expectation of a positive or negative answer or are they neutral in this respect?

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predications (aka non-verbal predications) can be divided into different types following Payne (1997: 111ff), see also Veselinova (2014):

- equation, e.g., *She is my mother.* – *She is not my mother.*
- proper inclusion, e.g., *Kurumaku is a hunter.* – *Kurumaku is not a hunter.*
- attribution, e.g., *She is intelligent.* – *She is not intelligent.*
- locative predication, e.g., *The cat is on the mat.* – *The cat is not on the mat.*
- existential predication, e.g., *There are wild cats.* – *There are no wild cats.*
- possessive predication, e.g., *Tom has a car.* – *Tom doesn't have a car.*

As Veselinova (2015) notes, attribution can be further divided into permanent and temporary property assignment: *Luna is tall* vs. *Luna is happy*, and under existential predication, we can further identify locative-presentative constructions such as *There are wild cats in Africa*.

Note that the distinction between existentials and locatives lies in that locatives have a definite subject and they do not introduce new participants in the discourse, whereas existentials do introduce new participants. The subjects of existential predications are generic; they typically appear in bare form or if marked, their marking will be different from that of subjects in other kinds of predications, cf. also Dryer (2007), Veselinova (2013a), McNally (2016).

How are these clause types negated? Do any of these clause types have a dedicated negative construction different from standard negation or from the other non-verbal clause types (or show special behaviour with respect to standard negation or the other non-verbal clause types in some way at least)? Which types are negated similarly and which ones differently? Is there a difference between temporary and permanent property assignment as regards negation? Do generic vs. specific predicates behave differently as regards negation? Describe the dedicated construction (special behaviour) according to the instruction given above (neg-markers, (a)symmetry, functions) and give examples.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

How is negation in dependent/subordinate clauses expressed – standard negation or dedicated constructions? Describe the constructions according to the above instructions. Pay attention to both finite and non-finite dependent clauses. Can non-finite clauses be negated? Are they negated with the standard negator, a special negator or are there special negative non-finite forms?

In Finnish, for example (4), finite subordinate clauses are negated by standard negation but non-finite dependent clauses such as (4c) cannot be negated. In English, on the other hand, the equivalent of (4d) ‘I saw her/him not come’ would be grammatical.

(4) Finnish (constructed examples)

- a. *Näin että hän tule-e.*
see.PST.1SG that 3SG come-3SG
‘I saw that (s)he’s coming.’
- b. *Näin että hän ei tule.*
see.PST.1SG that 3SG NEG.3SG come.CNG.PRS
‘I saw that (s)he’s not coming.’
- c. *Näin häne-n tule-va-n.*
see.PST.1SG 3SG-GEN come-PTCP.PRS-GEN
‘I saw her/him come.’
- d. **Näin häne-n ei tule-va-n.*
see.PST.1SG 3SG-GEN NEG come-PTCP.PRS-GEN
‘I saw her/him not come.’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Lexical meanings may combine with negation to form lexically idiosyncratic negatives. Cross-linguistically common lexicalizations include ‘not yet’, ‘not exist’, ‘not be of identity’, ‘not know’, ‘cannot, not be able to’, ‘not want’, ‘not talk’, ‘not need’, ‘not enough’, ‘not like’, and ‘not see’ (cf. Veselinova 2013b). Describe the form and behaviour of any such items in the language.

Note that some of these may be better treated in other sections, e.g. ‘not exist’ and ‘not be of identity’ under stative predications, and ‘not yet’ under standard negation in case it can be seen as part of the tense system rather than as a more independent lexical item.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

If there are other clausal negation constructions, not covered in sections §2.1–§2.5, section §2.6 can be added to discuss them. One possible example would be clausal negation constructions appearing in special pragmatic contexts or showing special pragmatic effects.

3 Non-clausal negation

This section deals with constructions/elements expressing negation other than clausal negation.

3.1 Negative replies

How are negative replies to polar questions expressed? Are there one-word negative replies like English *no*? Relate them to the corresponding affirmative replies.

What is the semantics of negative replies – do they disagree with the content or with the polarity of the question, i.e. do both of the replies in (5–6) mean that the dog is not barking or does the latter mean that the dog is barking?

(5) A: Is the dog barking?

B: No!

(6) A: Isn't the dog barking?

B: No!

Particles that disagree with the polarity of the question are called polarity-reversing particles by Holmberg (2015). The Guaraní particle *tove* is a polarity-reversing particle that can occur as reply to both positive and negative questions, while French *si* or German *doch* can only function as positive answers to negative questions. Please comment also on (the semantics of) affirmative replies to negative questions.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Describe the negation of indefinite pronouns and adverbs in the language, e.g. *nobody*, *no-one*, *nowhere*, *never*, *none*, *no*; *anybody*, *anyone*, *anywhere*, *ever*, *one*, *any*.

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- How are these related to indefinites in non-negatives? What is the range of use of these indefinites in non-negative contexts (e.g., English *nobody* is negative only but *anybody* has non-negative uses as well); these functions can be described in terms of the semantic map proposed by Haspelmath (1997), cf. also Van Alsenoy (2014).
- How are they used in clauses: Are they used together with clausal negation or not (English *I saw nobody* vs. *I didn't see anybody*)? (cf. Haspelmath 2013 [2005]). In which positions can they occur in the clause?
- In case the language does not have indefinites or cannot use them in negatives, how are the equivalent meanings expressed, e.g., 'I didn't see anybody', 'Nobody came', 'The dog never barked', 'You didn't go anywhere'?
- Note that this subsection is related to negative polarity which is also a topic in §4 below. Try to find a balance between what is treated here and what is treated in §4.

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking (abessives/caritives/privatives)

How are meanings of absence, opposition and antonymy, such as 'without', '-less', or 'un-', expressed on the lexical/phrasal level, e.g., *without a book*, *book-less*, *unread*, *unreadable*?

- Do verbs, nouns and adjectives behave similarly or do they have different markers?
- Are the markers adpositions, inflectional case markers, or derivation; if it is a primarily nominal marker, how does it combine with verbs?
- If the language has several of these, what is their division of labour, i.e. which functions does each marker express and what is its distribution?
- NB! If these markers are used in clausal negation constructions, these functions should be described in §2.

3.4 Other negative constructions/expressions

Describe and illustrate any other negative constructions/expressions that are not covered above. E.g. negative coordinators such as English *neither... nor*.

4 Other aspects of negation

This section pays attention to various morphosyntactic, semantic and pragmatic phenomena that are not negative constructions/expressions themselves, but arise in connection with negation.

Note that some of the topics overlap with each other or with points raised in Sections §2–3. Please give careful thought to how to relate the topics in different sections to each other so that the same information is not repeated but that the readers can easily see the connections.

4.1 The scope of negation

How is the scope of negation narrowed to a specific constituent (e.g., Foc Neg-Verb vs. Neg-Foc Verb)? What is the role of intonation and stress in coding the scope of negation? Prosodic prominence may be indicated, e.g., by underlining.

Scope-related questions more generally? Note that examples discussed under different topics of the questionnaire may be discussed here in terms of their scope properties.

4.2 Negative polarity

List negative polarity items, their form/meaning/use (licensing conditions). Note that this overlaps to some extent with section §3.2.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Is case marking affected under negation (e.g., partitive/genitive objects or subjects)? Any other effects negation might have on the marking of NPs, such as change or loss of determiners, effects on the marking of focus, etc? Cf. Miestamo (2014).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Describe and illustrate the means used for reinforcing negation. Prosody should also be paid attention to here. To the extent that emphatic negatives involve elements forming separate negative constructions/expressions, they can also be treated or at least mentioned at relevant points in Sections §2 or §3.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

How is the coordination of positive+negative clause or two negative clauses expressed? Are there special negative coordinators, such as *neither, nor* ? Are there special constructions for contrastive negation (e.g. *This is a dog, not a cat*; *This is not a cat but a dog*); this is also related to the scope of negation and can be taken up in §4.1 as well?

What about subordination? Are there negative conjunctions, such as *lest*? Note that this is related to section §2.4.

To the extent that the negative coordinators and conjunctions are elements forming separate negative constructions/expressions, they can also be treated or at least mentioned at relevant points in Sections §2 or §3.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

Here you can take up further aspects of negation to the extent that you have been able to find data on them. It is advisable to try to cover as many as possible of the phenomena that have been given a separate subsection below. Any other aspects of negation can also be addressed in case they are of special interest in the language described.

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (neg-raising) means that a higher-clause negative is interpreted as negating a lower-clause predicate, e.g. *I don't think they're coming* meaning *I think they're not coming* (see Horn 1978, 1989). Does neg-transport occur? Which predicates allow it and which ones do not?

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation means that what is negated is not the content of the proposition but rather the way it is expressed – “a device for objecting to a previous utterance on any grounds whatever, including the conventional or conversational implicata it potentially induces, its morphology, its style or register, or its phonetic realization.” (Horn 1989: 363)

- Some examples of metalinguistic negation (from Horn 1989):
 - *He doesn't have three children, he has four.*
 - *Around here we don't like coffee – we love it.*

- *He didn't call the [pólis], he called the [polís]*
- *Phydeaux didn't shit the rug, he soiled the carpet.*
- Metalinguistic negation may lead to different behaviour of negative polarity items:
 - *John didn't manage to solve {some/*any} problems – they were quite easy for him to do.* (Horn 1985: 130)

How does the language treat metalinguistic negation? Does it show special behaviour different from ordinary (“descriptive”) negation? How does metalinguistic negation relate to contrastive negation, which may or may not be metalinguistic?

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

Are there any interesting non-negative uses of negative constructions or constructions resembling negative constructions in the language? One particular phenomenon to pay attention to here is the so-called expletive negation in complements to predicates such as ‘fear’ or ‘doubt’, e.g. in French *Je crains qu'elle ne vienne*. ‘I’m afraid she will come’, or in subordinate clauses introduced by conjunctions meaning ‘until’ or ‘before’, e.g. in French *...avant qu'il ne vienne*. ‘...before he comes.’ If this phenomenon is found in the language, which contexts trigger it?

4.6.4 Summary of what can be negated in the language

According to the instructions at the beginning of this questionnaire, the description of each negative construction should pay attention to whether some grammatical categories are lost in the negative. Here, you can still come back to the question of what is negatable in the language? Can, e.g., quantifiers be negated – which ones can and which ones cannot? What about clauses with indefinite subjects?

4.6.5 Diachronic notes and observations

The questionnaire aims at a synchronic description of negation in a language. Notes on diachronic issues, such as Jespersen Cycles (van der Auwera 2009, 2010) or the Negative Existential Cycle (Croft 1991; Veselinova 2014, 2016), may be made here in this final section or in the relevant sections that they concern.

4.6.6 Any other phenomena

Any other phenomena that should be taken into account in describing the system of negation in your language but that has not been covered above? Anything that is of special interest in the negation system of the language but does not fit under any of the headings above.

Abbreviations

1	first person	PERF	perfect
3	third person	PRS	present
CNG	connegative	PRET	preterite
DEF	definite	PST	past
GEN	genitive	PTCP	participle
NEG	negative	SG	singular

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Chapter 3

Negation in Beja

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This chapter presents the negative constructions of Beja, a North-Cushitic (Afroasiatic) language, which are basically asymmetrical. It discusses in turn (i) standard negation in declarative main clauses with A/Cat/TAM asymmetry; (ii) the two negative types in non-declaratives, one of which does not use a negator but stem alternation and specific inflection; (iii) negation in non-main clauses (even more asymmetrical than declaratives); (iv) privatives, which include one case of clause chaining instead of a negator; (v) phasal polarity expressions; (vi) negation in stative predications; (vii) negative replies and their pragmatics. It also discusses the absence of negative transport, as well as of negative indefinites and the strategies used instead.

Keywords: declarative, non-declarative, clausal, non-clausal, grammaticalization.

1 The language

Beja (ISO: bej, Glottocode: beja1238), locally named *biḏawije:t*, is the sole language of the North-Cushitic branch of the Afroasiatic phylum. It is lexically and grammatically quite distant from its closest Lowland East and Central Cushitic relatives, Afar-Saho and Agaw, and is considered as peripheral within the Cushitic family. It is spoken in the northernmost part of the Cushitic-speaking area, mainly in Eastern Sudan between the Red Sea and the river Atbara by some 2,000,000 speakers, and in Northern Eritrea (approx. 60,000 speakers). It used to be spoken in Southern Egypt, but it seems speakers have now shifted to Arabic.

Beja dialectology is ill-known, but dialects do not seem much differentiated. Three main dialectal zones are identified (Morin 1995): North, Centre and South, which have further local and tribal-based subdivisions (Wedekind 2012). Dialects



are differentiated on the basis of isoglosses based on vowel variation, pronominal sets, morphological use of pitch accent for plural formation, accommodations of Arabic borrowings and some lexical peculiarities.

Beja has had intensive contacts with Arabic (Central Semitic) and Tigre (North Ethiosemitic branch of South Semitic), probably also with Nubian (Nilo-Saharan). Today, in Sudan, where I did my fieldwork, bilingualism with Sudanese Arabic is widespread and expanding. However, this is less so for women who lead a cloistered life. Only a minority of the Bejas have knowledge of Tigre (mostly in Eritrea).

In Sudan, formal education is increasing among young villagers and city dwellers, but girls seldom go further than primary level. The sole language of education is classical Arabic, with a mixture of colloquial Sudanese Arabic, and more recently also with some oral explanations in Beja (Onour 2015). In addition, Quranic Arabic is taught in Quranic schools to young boys and girls alike.¹

The typological profile that follows is a brief summary of Vanhove (2017). Beja has a rich and complex morphology, inflectional and derivational, both in the nominal and verbal domains. It is partly templatic for verb inflection and derivation, noun formation, verb-noun derivation, adjective and plural formation. Beja is also partly agglutinative-fusional. Suffixes and enclitics form the majority of the inflectional and derivational devices. Prefixes and proclitics are also used. In all cases, they are often portmanteau morphemes, as e.g. the definite articles.

Beja is a marked nominative language with four nominal cases, two for the verb's core arguments, nominative and accusative, and two for noun phrases, genitive and vocative. The case of core arguments is marked on determiners by vocalic ablaut (or a consonant in one marginal case); the genitive and the vocative are marked by vocalic suffixes on nouns. Pronouns have in addition dative and ablative sets, but no vocative form.

Verbs can be finite or non-finite. Finite forms are organized along a three-term aspectual system. It distinguishes, through inflectional morphemes and apophony in the stem, Perfective, Imperfective and Aorist, which index also person, number and gender (only in 2 and 3 sg) of the subject. These verb forms are enriched by auxiliaries or a copula to form other TAM forms, among them the Perfect. There are two morphological verb classes. V1 contains the majority of verbs (57%), and has prefixed paradigms for monosyllabic stems, and an infix for disyllabic stems (plural indices are suffixes). This is historically the oldest class. V2 verbs have only suffixes, and represent a common Cushitic innovation. There

¹The sociolinguistic situation described here is that which prevailed before the current war in Sudan between rival armed groups, which broke out in April 2023.

is in addition a rich system of semantic and voice derivation involving ablaut, reduplication and affixal devices (pluractional, intensive, middle, passive, reciprocal, causative, and marginally double causative and double pluractional). The non-finite forms amount to four converbs labelled General, Sequential, Simultaneity and Manner. They are invariable, except for the Manner converb, which may vary for gender in specific syntactic environments. The converbs are used in deranked subordinate clauses and the Manner and General converbs also as auxiliated forms in complex predicates.

Syntactically, Beja is predominantly head-final; the canonical constituent order is (X)(S)(O)V, and dependent clause – main clause. Constituent order is not particularly rigid and may vary for pragmatic reasons.

The data used for this paper come from semi-spontaneous oral texts that I recorded in Sudan, mainly in Sinkat and Wagar, between 2000 and 2011. Part of them are available online at <http://corporan.huma-num.fr/Archives/>. The structure of the paper follows the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo (2025 [this volume])).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

In declarative verbal main clauses aspect is neutralized. The five indicative tenses of declarative utterances, Imperfective, Perfective, Aorist, Perfect and Future are reduced to three in the negative polarity: the Perfective, Aorist and Perfect use the paradigm of the Perfect for the core verb and a negated auxiliary (2). Beja thus exhibits a paradigmatic asymmetry which corresponds to Miestamo's (2005) A/Cat/TAM type. In addition, there is also a constructional asymmetry: the Imperfective negative stem and paradigm are based on the Perfective (1b). This is because during the course of the general evolution of the verb system, a new Imperfective paradigm was introduced, which resulted in a dramatic change in the aspectual system: the former Perfective became an Aorist while the former Imperfective became a Perfective.²

Although all three negative forms share the same proclitic negative particle *ki=* (*ka=* in 1SG because of vowel harmony), the position of the negator is different: The negator directly precedes the verb in the Imperfective (1), but it precedes an auxiliary in the Perfective form for the other four TAM forms: *di* 'say' for the Future (3), *ak* 'become' for the other three paradigms (2). In the affirmative,

²A detailed discussion of this evolution is found in Cohen (1972, 1973).

the Perfect goes back to a complex predicate with a Manner converb and a non-verbal copula. In the negative, the copula is replaced by the verb *ak* ‘become; be’ which hosts the negator. The Future affirmative is also a complex predicate with an auxiliary: The core verb originates from a frozen form of the Aorist (which still varies for number in the central dialect), followed by the verb *di* ‘say’ (whose plural forms have a short *-a-* in the stem of the Imperfective instead of a long *-a:-*). Compare examples (1)-(3).³

(1) Imperfective

a. Affirmative

handi wari=b *ha<n>ri:w*
tree other\PL=INDF.M.ACC seek<IPFV>[3SG.M]
‘He looks/is looking for other pieces of wood.’

b. Negative

handi wari=b *ki=hariw*
tree other\PL=INDF.M.ACC NEG.IPFV=seek\PFV.[3SG]
‘He does not look/is not looking for other pieces of wood.’
[NARR_54_AA_gazelle_15-16]⁴

(2) Perfective, Perfect, Aorist

a. Perfective affirmative

lawwa:w-ani
prowl.INTS-PFV.1SG
‘I prowled around him.’

b. Perfect affirmative

lawwa:w-a:-b-i
prowl.INTS-PRF-M-1SG
‘I have prowled around him.’

c. Aorist affirmative

lawwa:w-i
prowl.INTS-AOR.1SG
‘I used to prowled around him.’

³The transcription follows the IPA except for geminated consonants which are written as a double consonant. Africanists and Cushitists, who are used to other transcription systems, should be aware that *j* transcribes the semi-consonant, not an affricate (noted as *č*).

⁴Examples extracted from my online corpus are referred to by text number (54), genre (NARR), short title (gazelle), and the number of the intonation unit(s) (15-16). Elicited examples have no specific mention.

d. Perfective/Perfect/Aorist negative

lawwa:w-a:-b ka=a-ki

prowl.INTS-PRF-M NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV⁵

‘I did not prowl around him.’ / ‘I have not prowled around him.’ / ‘I did not use to prowl around him.’ [NARR_04_djinn_184]

(3) Future

a. Affirmative

jam g^w?a-s-i=ho:k a-<n>di

water drink-CAUS-FUT.SG=OBJ.2SG 1SG-say<IPFV>

‘I will give you water.’

b. Negative

jam g^w?a-s-i=ho:k ka=a-di

water drink-CAUS-FUT.SG=OBJ.2SG NEG.IPFV=1SG-say\PFV

‘I won’t give you water.’ [NARR_39_Bafalib_26]

Beja has no dedicated marker or paradigm for negation of phasal polarity expressions. It may use instead the standard negation, together with adverbs. None of them is obligatory, and they are indeed quite rare in my data.

Three adverbs, *w=?agija* ‘anew’ (4), *fa:wi* ‘again’ (5), and *mhasi* ‘still, again, yet, ever’ may be used in the negative polarity. Only *fa:wi* can be postposed to the verb. Note that *w=?agija* behaves morphologically as a noun and hosts the definite article.

(4) Phasal polarity expression with *w=?agija*

t?a w=?agija i:-bqan ka=a-di

now DEF.SG.M=anew FUT.SG-forget\INTS NEG.IPFV=1SG-say\PFV

‘Now, I won’t forget him anymore!’ [NARR_13_grave_080]

(5) Phasal polarity expression with *fa:wi*

ani=wa baru:k=wa ki=n-am-da-d?ar

1SG.NOM=COORD 2SG.M.NOM=COORD NEG.IPFV=1PL-RECP-PLAC~marry\PFV

fa:wi

again

‘Me and you, we are not husband and wife anymore.’

[NARR_23_lezard_075–076]

⁵For the sake of glossing consistency, the enclitic negator *ki=* / *ka=* is systematically glossed as NEG.IPFV, even when occurring in periphrastic tenses that do not express the Imperfective aspect.

Another type of phasal polarity expression expressed with the standard negation is ‘not yet’, and Beja has no special ‘not yet’ tense. Such a meaning is very rarely overtly expressed in my data. Below (6) is an example with the negative Imperfective followed by the adverb *nu:n* ‘only’.

- (6) ‘Not yet’
e:ra-m-a:-b *winne:t ki=i-ki* *nu:n*
 white-MID-CVB.MNR-INDF.M plenty NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV only
 ‘It is not broad day light yet.’ (lit. ‘It is not becoming very white only.’)
 [NARR_05_eritrea_387]

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Prohibitive

Imperatives have a dedicated negative construction, different from standard negation. The Prohibitive is formed with the negative proclitic particle *ba:=* (2SG.M, 2PL) / *bi:=* (2SG.F). Inflectional morphemes are all suffixes, even for the verb class conjugated with prefixes in the indicative (V1). They differ slightly between V1 and V2, and are similar (with one minor difference for V2 2SG.F) to those of the Imperative, as shown in Table 1.

Table 1: Imperative vs Prohibitive

	V1		V2	
	IMP	PROH	IMP	PROH
SG.M	-a	<i>ba:=V1-a</i>	-a	<i>ba:=V2-a</i>
SG.F	-i	<i>bi:=V1-i</i>	-i	<i>bi:=V2-aj</i>
PL	-na	<i>ba:=V1-na</i>	-a:na	<i>ba:=V2-a:na</i>

One further difference between Imperative and Prohibitive concerns the stem of V1 (i.e. the verbal base without inflectional morphemes), which is similar to that of the Imperfective for monosyllabic stems, Ci:C, and partly similar to the singular stem of the Imperfective for disyllabic stems, minus the aspectual inflectional infix <n>: CaCi:C (vs Ca<n>Ci:C in the Imperfective). The resulting opposition between the Imperative and Prohibitive stems is a difference in vowel length in the stem of V1 verbs: Short in the Imperative, long in the Prohibitive

(7). There is thus also a paradigmatic asymmetry between the Imperative and the Prohibitive for V1.

The Prohibitive of V2 belongs to the most common cross-linguistic strategy described by van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013) as using “the verbal construction of the second singular imperative and a sentential negative strategy not found in (indicative) declaratives”. On the other hand, V1 Prohibitive belongs to the second next most common strategy where “the prohibitive uses a verbal construction other than the second singular imperative and a sentential negative strategy not found in (indicative) declaratives”.

Below are examples of the Prohibitive for V1 (7) and V2 (8).

(7) V1 Prohibitive

ba:=hari:d-a

NEG.PROH=slaughter-IMP.SG.M

‘Don’t slaughter it!’ [NARR_50_fox_hunt_235]

(cp. Imperative *harid-a!* ‘slaughter it!’)

(8) V2 Prohibitive

ti-bari=je:=na

ba:=ra:t-a

2SG.M-have\IPFV=REL=thing NEG.PROH=ask-IMP.SG.M

‘Don’t ask for what you have!’ [NARR_04_djinn_156]

(cp. Imperative *ra:t-a* ‘ask!’)

2.2.2 Negative Optative

Beja has a second mood paradigm, that of the Optative. It is also asymmetrical in terms of polarity. The Optative, affirmative and negative, is marked by the proclitic particle *bi=* (which harmonizes with the 1sg inflectional prefix *a-*). For both V1 and V2, the paradigms are different. In the affirmative Optative *bi=* cliticizes to the Aorist paradigms of V1 and V2. In the negative Optative, *bi=* / *ba=* cliticizes to other inflectional morphemes. V1 verbs have in addition a different stem. Both V1 and V2 have prefixed personal indices, identical to those of the indicative Perfective of V1. For V2, the stem, which I recall is invariable, is in addition followed by specific suffixes, except 2PL and 3PL, which have the same plural suffixes as the Aorist. The stems of V1 are identical to the Prohibitive stems. Thus, what distinguishes polarities in the Optative is not a negative proclitic as with other TAM, but the stem difference for V1, and the inflectional affixes for V2.

Compare Tables 2 and 3, which provide the full paradigms of the Optative, affirmative and negative respectively.

Table 2: Affirmative Optative paradigms

	V2 'eat'	V1 monosyllabic 'leave'	V1 disyllabic 'arrive'
1SG	<i>bi=tam-i</i>	<i>bi=i:-dif</i>	<i>bi=i:-ktim</i>
2SG.M	<i>bi=tam-tija</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif-a</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim-a</i>
2SG.F	<i>bi=tam-ti:</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif-i</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim-i</i>
3SG.M	<i>bi=tam-i</i>	<i>bi=i:-dif</i>	<i>bi=i:-ktim</i>
3SG.F	<i>bi=tam-ti</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim</i>
1PL	<i>bi=tam-ni</i>	<i>bi=ni:-dif</i>	<i>bi=ni:-ktim</i>
2PL	<i>bi=tam-ti:n(a)</i>	<i>bi=ti:-dif-na</i>	<i>bi=ti:-ktim-na</i>
3PL	<i>bi=tam-i:n(a)</i>	<i>bi=i:-dif-na</i>	<i>bi=i:-ktim-na</i>

Table 3: Negative Optative paradigms

	V2 'eat'	V1 monosyllabic 'leave'	V1 disyllabic 'arrive'
1SG	<i>ba=a-tam-aj</i>	<i>ba=a-di:f</i>	<i>ba=a-kati:m</i>
2SG.M	<i>bi=t-tam-aja</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f-a</i>	<i>bi=t-kati:m</i>
2SG.F	<i>bi=t-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f-i</i>	<i>bi=t-kati:m</i>
3SG.M	<i>bi=i-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=i-di:f</i>	<i>bi=i-kati:m</i>
3SG.F	<i>bi=t-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f</i>	<i>bi=i-kati:m</i>
1PL	<i>bi=n-tam-aj</i>	<i>bi=n-di:f</i>	<i>bi=n-kati:m</i>
2PL	<i>bi=t-tam-i:na</i>	<i>bi=t-di:f-na</i>	<i>bi=t-kati:m-na</i>
3PL	<i>bi=i-tam-i:na</i>	<i>bi=i-di:f-na</i>	<i>bi=i-kati:m-na</i>

Below are examples of the negative Optative (9–10). Note that the Optative also expresses deontic modalities with 3rd persons, such as ability (11) or obligation (12).

(9) V2

ti=dir?a han ba=a-faga-am-aj

DEF.F=field also OPT=1SG-work-MID-NEG.OPT

'Let me not work in the field anymore!' [NARR_02_farmer_143]

(cp. affirmative Optative *bi-faga-am-i* 'let me work!')

- (10) V1
o:n i=k^wi:ri bi=n-hari:d
 PROX.SG.M.ACC DEF.M=ostrich OPT=1PL-slaughter\NEG.OPT
 ‘Let’s not slaughter this ostrich!’ [NARR_38_ostrich_040–041]
 (cp. affirmative Optative *bi-ni:-hrid* ‘let us slaughter!’)
- (11) Deontic ability (V2)
bani ʔa:dam han bi=i-hass-aj
 son Adam also OPT=3SG.M-pass-NEG.OPT
 ‘A human being could not even pass!’ [NARR_05_eritrea_178]
 (cp. affirmative Optative *bi-hass-i* ‘let him pass!’)
- (12) Deontic obligation (V2)
harʔi:=si:si bi=t-jʔ-a=he:b⁶
 after=POSS.3SG.ABL OPT=3SG.F-come-NEG.OPT=OBJ.1SG
 ‘She must not come to me from behind it.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_329]
 (cp. affirmative Optative *bi-ʔe:-ti* ‘let her come!’)

2.2.3 Negative questions

Negative questions have the same morphological and constructional properties as standard negation. They are used to force a positive answer in a polemical situation, which is not the case with positive questions. Like in English, they need not be answered positively.

In (13) a rich and proud man is angry because a young boy did not bow in front of him. In (14) two persons are arguing about moral behaviour and rules of honour: One speaker tries to force the other to agree with him, which he does not.

- (13) Negative question with positive reply
ane:b ki=t-kan=he:b han
 1SG.ACC NEG.IPFV=2SG.M-know\MID.PFV=OBJ.1SG Q.PLR
 ‘Don’t you know ME?’ [NARR_31_king_40]

⁶The final *j* of the negative Optative suffixes of V2 drops before object enclitics.

- (14) Negative question with negative reply

w=hagg=o: ho:j i-jaj-n=e:t
 DEF.SG.M=right=POSS.3SG.ACC LOC 3-take\IPFV-PL=REL.F
to:=na ki=t-ti han [...]
 DEF.SG.F.ACC=thing NEG.IPFV=3SG.F-become\PFV Q.PLR

‘Should they not stand for their rights?’ (lit. ‘Is it not that they take from him their rights?’) [CONV_01_rich_sp1_214–215]

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Stative predications have no special negators. They are the same as the ones in standard and non-declarative negations. Nevertheless the constructional entities and the type of asymmetry differ.

2.3.1 Equational, proper inclusion and attribution clauses

In the affirmative, equational, proper inclusion and attribution clauses are all expressed with a non-verbal copula, enclitic to its host, which varies for person, gender and number (with some conflation), but not for TAM, as shown in Table 4.

Table 4: Paradigm of the copula

	SG	PL
1 & 3	= <i>i</i> / = <i>u</i>	= <i>a</i>
2	= <i>wa</i> / = <i>u:j</i>	= <i>a:na</i>

The negative polarity shows constructional asymmetry, since the copula is replaced by *ak*, an irregular verb meaning ‘be, become’.⁷ The TAM used with *ak* depends on the clause type: Indicative paradigms in main and independent clauses (16–17), but Optative in dependent clauses ((15); see §2.4). Note that there is no overtly marked difference between permanent and temporary property assignment.

⁷The verb *ak* is also used in independent affirmative clauses, as in (39) below.

(15) Equational

a. Affirmative

t=hiku:ma ?araw=e:=ja

DEF.F=power friend\PL=POSS.1PL.ACC=COP.3PL

‘The policemen are my friends.’ [NARR_08_drunkard_064]

b. Negative

w=?ara:w=o: ba=a-kaj=e:t

DEF.SG.M=friend=POSS.3SG.ACC OPT=1SG-become\NEG.OPT=REL.F

to:=na ti-kan=he:b

DEF.SG.F.ACC=thing 3SG.F-know\MID.PFV=OBJ.1SG

‘She knew that I was not her boyfriend.’ [NARR_01_shelter_133–137]

(16) Proper inclusion

a. Affirmative

t=?ano:=t=a

DEF.F=sheep=INDF.F=COP.3PL

‘They are ewes.’ [NARR_02_farmer_119]

b. Negative

tak ka=a-ki

man NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV

‘I am not a man.’ [NARR_25_orphan_263]

(17) Attribution

a. Affirmative

u:=tak ama:g=i

DEF.SG.M.NOM=man bad=COP.3SG

‘The man is bad.’ [CONV_01_rich_sp2_049]

b. Negative

fawa:j ka=a-ki

free NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV

‘I am not free.’ [NARR_18_Adam_devil_285]

2.3.2 Existential and locative predications

Existential and locative predications are expressed with three locative verbs *faj*, *haj* and *da*: ‘be there’, depending mainly on the dialect and on morphological

constraints. They are marked for TAM with some restrictions: *haj* has no affirmative Perfective, no Imperative and no 1SG Imperfective; *faj* has no Perfective. These predications have only two functions: existential and locative. None can be used as a privative, or as a short answer.

Existential and locative negative predications belong to the second most frequent type of Veselinova (2013a), i.e. there is no special existential negator. However, *faj* cannot be negated. Only the two other verbs can be negated, as in (18) and (19). Moreover, in my data, the use of *da:* is restricted to abstract notions in existential and locative constructions (20–21). These two verbs, although borderline cases, nevertheless show that negation of existence is not completely symmetrical to the affirmative.

- (18) a. *haj* existential affirmation
ʔe:tni:=t=u:k *na t-ha=e:k*
 come_IPFV.3SG.F=INDF.F=POSS.2SG.NOM thing 3SG.F-be_there_IPFV=if
 ‘If there is something that happens to you ...’ [CONV_01_rich_sp2_216]
- b. *haj* existential negation
mʔari=t han o:=do:r be:b
 food=INDF.F also DEF.SG.M.ACC=time DIST.SG.M.ACC
ki=t-ha:j=it
 NEG.IPFV=3SG.F-be_there\PFV=CSL
 ‘Since there is no food at that time either..’ [NARR_46_tirik_062]
- (19) a. *haj* locative affirmation
ama:g darab=i:b t-haj-a
 bad road=LOC.SG 2SG-be_there_IPFV-M
 ‘You are going astray.’ (lit. ‘You are in a bad road.’)
 [NARR_08_drunkard_029]
- b. *haj* locative negation
su:r jiwa:f ho:j ki=ha:j
 before dirt LOC NEG.IPFV=be_there_PFV.[3SG.M]
 ‘Before, there was no dirt in it.’ [NARR_27_goat_172-173]
- (20) a. *da:* existential affirmation
w=ʔifa han da:-ji:ni
 DEF.SG.M=evening_prayer also be_there-IPFV.3SG.M
 ‘There is also the evening prayer.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_195]

- b. *da*: existential negation
ittifa:g bi=i-da:-aj=e:t
 agreement OPT=3SG.M-be_there-NEG.OPT=REL.F
to:=na:=t=i
 DEF.SG.F.ACC=thing=INDF.F=COP.3SG
 ‘There should not be an agreement.’ (lit. ‘The thing is that there is no agreement.’) [CONV_01_rich_sp1_192]

- (21) a. *da*: locative affirmation
kho:r?arab=wa mari: da:j-i:ni
 Khor_Arab=COORD from_the_direction be_there-IPFV.3SG.M
 ‘It is in the direction of Khor Arab.’ [NARR_03_camel_110]
- b. *da*: locative negation
mi-rk^waj ho: ka=da-ja nu:n
 ACN-fear 1SG.DAT NEG.IPFV=be_there-PFV.3SG.M only
i=gin?=i:b
 DEF.M=heart=LOC.SG
 ‘Nevertheless I am not afraid in my heart.’ (lit. ‘fear is not in my heart to me’ = ‘I am courageous.’) [NARR_05_eritrea_220]

2.3.3 Possessive predication

Possessive predication is expressed with a ‘have’ verb, *biri*, which is defective and, like a handful of verbs such as *faj* in §2.3.2, shows traces of the previous aspectual system: It has no Perfective, and the Aorist (historically the former Perfective) is used instead. Consequently, the Imperfective negative, with the same negators as in Sections §2.1 and §2.2.1, is built on the Imperfective paradigm and stem (instead of the Perfective for regular V1 verbs), as shown in (22) below.

- (22) Possession
- a. Affirmative
n?a:j=t i:-bri tak har?i:=isaj
 goat=INDF.F 3SG.M-have\AOR man after=POSS.3SG.ABL
?e:ja
 come\PFV.3SG.M
 ‘A man who had a goat came from behind him.’
 [NARR_28_pear1_21-23]

b. Negative

ahamad i=ragad-a ki=i-bari
 Ahmed DEF.M=leg-PL NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-have\IPFV
 ‘Ahmed has no legs.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_022]

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In all balanced subordinate clauses with finite verb forms in whatever TAM, be they relative, complement or adverbial clauses, only the non-declarative construction with the negative Optative paradigm can be used, one more case of asymmetry in the polarity system. In contrast, their positive counterparts also license an Indicative TAM. The TAM interpretation of the non-main negative clauses can only be deduced from the context, as shown in (23–26).

(23) Relative clause

na:=t bi=t-kati:m=i mhi:n
 thing=INDF.F OPT=3SG.F-arrive\NEG.OPT=REL place
 ‘[The donkey stopped in] a place where nothing (can in general) arrive.’
 [NARR_05_eritrea_183]

(24) Complement clause

qa:b-i bi=i-di:=je:b hi:s-an
 run-FUT.SG OPT=3SG.M-say\NEG.OPT=REL.M think-PFV.1SG
 ‘I thought it would not be able to run.’ [NARR_03_camel_153]

(25) Conditional clause

na:=t ho:k bi=i-d?i:-n=e:k
 thing=INDF.F 2SG.DAT OPT=3-do\NEG.OPT-PL=if
 ‘If they don’t do anything to you [we are going to complain to God.]’
 [NARR_08_drunkard_067]

(26) Temporal clause

bi=i-m-tak^wa:k^w-n=ho:b
 OPT=3-RECP-repair\INTS.NEG.OPT-PL=when
 ‘[There was a man, and he had a wife, and they did not get along well.]
 As they were not getting along well...’ [NARR_24_chief_010]

Negation may also occur in one type of deranked subordinate clause, that with the simultaneity converb.⁸ Used with the Prohibitive negator *ba:=*⁹, the construction with this converb marks the absence of an event, with the scope of negation on the predicate (27–28). The clause gets a privative meaning.

- (27) Privative with scope over predicate

ba:=sina:kir-e: fidin-ti da:b-e:ti:t
 NEG.PROH=listen-CVB.SIM move_away-CVB.GRL run-CVB.SEQ
 ‘Without paying attention, she runs away and...’
 [NARR_36_hunchback_443]

- (28) Privative with scope over predicate

?ala:l=i:b simha-ti da<nn>?i
 duststorm=LOC.SG get_rid_of-CVB.GRL do<IPFV>.[3SG.M]
ba:=g^wab-e:
 NEG.PROH=overturn-CVB.SIM
 ‘It makes a whirl of dust without overturning.’
 [NARR_51_camel_stallion_116–117]

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Among the nine semantic domains of negative lexicalizations attested crosslinguistically (Zeshan 2004; Veselinova 2013b), Beja has only one, namely cognition, represented by the cognition verb *gam* ‘ignore, not know’ (29a) which does not also mean ‘neglect, not pay attention to’ which is expressed by other lexical items in idiomatic constructions. Unlike other verbs with negative content, such as ‘forget’ or ‘die’, *gam* cannot be negated. It is itself a negator of the positive verb *kan* ‘know’. *gam* can be used for related cognitive domains, namely absence of understanding (29b) and recognition (29c), and, in a polysemous manner, also for the expression of the incapacity modality (29d).

Note that in (29) *gam* could be replaced by the regular negation of *kan* ‘know’.¹⁰ But Beja has no capacity modal verb (apart from the recent and infrequent loan from Arabic *agdar*) and the cognitive verb *kan* could not be used in a modal sense of capacity instead of *gam* in (29d).

⁸Note that the other three converbs cannot be negated. Negation is formed with balanced subordinate clauses with a verb in the negative Optative, another type of asymmetry.

⁹The reasons for the use of the Prohibitive negator with the simultaneity converb are unclear.

¹⁰See (13) for the negation of *kan*.

(29) *gam* ‘not know’

- a. *o:n* *i=mhe:l=o:*
 PROX.SG.M.ACC DEF.M=medicine\ACN=POSS.3SG.ACC
e:-t-gi:m
 3SG.M-MID-not_know\IPFV
 ‘He does not know the appropriate treatment.’
 [NARR_53_pregnant_man_14]
- b. *w=ʔo:r-i* *bhali=je:b* *na:=t*
 DEF.SG.M=child-GEN word=LOC.PL thing=INDF.F
e:-t-gi:m
 3SG.M-MID-not_know\IPFV
 ‘He does not understand anything about the boy’s words.’
 [NARR_31_king_74–75]
- c. *i=mhaj* *ragad-a e:=raw* *a-gam*
 DEF.M=three leg-PL DEF.PL.M.ACC=other\PL 1SG-not_know\MID.PFV
 ‘I did not recognize the other three legs.’ [NARR_27_goat_159]
- d. *qa~qib-ti=je:k* *wari=t* *hariw-a*
 PLAC~fall-ACN=POSS.2PL.ACC other\PL=INDF.F seek-IMP.SG.M
na:=t *te:-t-gi:m=e:k*
 thing=INDF.F 2SG.F-MID-not_know\IPFV=if
 ‘Look for another job, if you can’t do anything else!’
 [NARR_04_djinn_162]

Note that non-utterance negation is not lexicalized in Beja, but in addition to several verbs of saying which are regularly negated, there is also an affirmative construction consisting of the noun *his* / *hus* ‘voice’ in a light verb construction with *ak* ‘become, be’ meaning ‘not talk, shut up’ (30).

(30) Non utterance

- u=ja:s-i=d* *hus ak-a* *i-jad-na*
 DEF.SG.M.ACC=dog-GEN=DIR voice become-IMP.SG.M 3-say\IPFV-PL
 ‘They tell the dog: Shut up!’ [NARR_18_Adam_devil_221]

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Beja has three ways to form negative replies.

A frequent one in everyday interactions is a dental click for ‘no’. It can be used in replies to negative and positive questions, and rarely in reaction to affirmative or negative statements. Its affirmative counterpart is a lateral click. As far as I could observe, they are only used among close relatives and friends, in informal settings.

In narratives, as well as more formal conversations, the most common construction to express negative replies to positive and negative polar questions is a verbal strategy, using the full paradigm of the negative Imperfective of *ak* ‘be, become’, which functions in this case as a dummy verb.

The negation with *ak* in reply to a positive polar question disagrees with its contents (31).

(31) Negative reply with *ak* to a positive polar question

- a. *ti=jʔa na:=t ho:j t-ʔif-a k^{wi}:k^{wʔ}aj*
 DEF.F=milk thing=INDEF.F LOC 2-let\PFV-SG.M crow
 ‘Did you leave some milk from it, Crow?’
 [NARR_16_Prophet_Fox_332–333]
- b. *ka=a-ki*
 NEG.IPFV=1SG-become\PFV
 ‘No.’ [NARR_16_Prophet_Fox_334]

In replies to negative polar questions, the verbal negation with *ak* agrees with the negative polarity of the question and means ‘no’, as in (32) below. It does not function as a polarity-reversing particle; *awo*: ‘yes’ is used instead.

(32) Negative reply with *ak* to a negative polar question

- a. *Ahmed nʔir-a:-b ki=i-ki han*
 Ahmed cure-PRF-M NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV Q.PLR
 ‘Has not Ahmed healed?’
- b. *ki=i-ki*
 NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV
 ‘No, he has not.’

The third possibility is to use the negative particle *aʔa*: ‘no’. The only examples I have are answers to negative questions, as a sign of disagreement, not as a polarity-reversing particle. In (33), *aʔa*: occurs in a strong polemical context, reinforced by the Arabic loan *abadan* ‘never’.

(33) Negative question with negative reply

- a. *w=hagg=o: ho:j i-jaj-n=e:t*
 DEF.SG.M=right=POSS.3SG.ACC LOC 3-take\IPFV-PL=REL.F
to:=na ki=t-ti han [...]
 DEF.SG.F.ACC=thing NEG.IPFV=3SG.F-become\PFV Q.PLR
 ‘Should they not stand for their rights?’ (lit. ‘Is it not that they take from him their rights?’) [CONV_01_rich_sp1_214–215]
- b. *abadan a?a:*
 never no
 ‘Never! No!’ [CONV_01_rich_sp2_249–250]

3.2 Negative indefinites

Beja has no category of indefinite pronouns. For human entities one may use the numeral *ga:l* ‘one’, and its plural form *ga:li* ‘ones’ (34a), in an affirmative utterance. But *ga:l* cannot be used in negative utterances, and the generic noun *na:* ‘thing’ (34c) or *tak* ‘man’ (34b) are used instead, together with a negative predicate.

(34) Animate indefinite

- a. Affirmative
ga:l dha:j j?i
 one DIR come-AOR.3SG.M
 ‘Someone was coming towards him.’ [NARR_11_coffee_03]
- b. Negative
tak ba=a-sak^whi:
 man OPT=1SG-follow\NEG.OPT
 ‘Let me not be followed by anyone!’ [NARR_55_tanduuy_114]
- c. Negative
w=ha:f=i:b han na:=t ki=i-ke:-n
 DEF.SG.M=land=LOC.SG also thing=INDF.F NEG.IPFV=3-become\PFV-PL
 [The people in this country flew away from her.] ‘There is even no one in the country.’ (lit. ‘They are not a thing.’)
 [NARR_33_teeth_31–32]

Note that the use of *ga:l* or *tak* is not obligatory, and a finite verb form can simply be used instead, without an independent subject pronoun as in (35) which is the very beginning of an anecdote.

(35) No overt indefinite

tam-i:ni

eat-IPFV.3SG.M

‘Someone is eating.’ [NARR_07_cold_01]

For indefinite inanimates, and non-human animates as in (36), the generic noun *na:* ‘thing’ is used for the expression of ‘something’ in affirmative utterances and ‘nothing’ with a negative predicate. In accordance with morphological rules of indefiniteness marking, the generic noun bears no indefinite article in subject position (36) – except in relative clauses, see (23) – but does in object position (37).

(36) Inanimate subject

a. Affirmative

*ti-fik**na: ti:-fi*

3SG.F-hunt\PFV thing 3SG.F-be_there\AOR

‘There was something that hunted it.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_261]

b. Negative

na: dha:j ka=?e:ta

thing DIR NEG.IPFV=come\PFV.3SG.F

‘Nothing came to it.’ [NARR_16_Prophet_Fox_071]

(37) Inanimate object

a. Affirmative

*na:=t**he:=ho:n*

thing=INDF.F give\IMP.[SG.M]=OBJ.1PL

‘Give us something!’ [NARR_50_fox_hunt_171]

b. Negative

*na:=t**ho:k**bi=i-d?i:-n=e:k*

thing=INDF.F 2SG.DAT OPT=3-do\NEG.OPT-PL=if

‘If they don’t do anything to you...’ [NARR_08_drunkard_067]

Apart from the Arabic loan *abadan* ‘never’ used as a strong refutation or disapproval to a statement (see (33b) above), Beja uses standard negation or non-declarative negation to express an event that does not occur at any moment.

As for ‘nowhere’, one simply uses the noun *mhi:n* ‘place’ in its indefinite form in a negative utterance (38).

- (38) Nowhere
lhi:t mhi:n ba:-baj-a
 tomorrow place NEG.PROH-go-IMP.2SG.M
 ‘Tomorrow, you go nowhere!’

3.3 Privative

The absence of an entity is marked by three types of non-clausal constructions. Two of them are different from the ones used for the privative of events (cp. (27–28) §2.4).

The first construction contains the dedicated postposition *anu* ‘without’. It has scope over a noun or an overt pronoun as in (39).

- (39) Scope on (pro)noun with postposition *anu*
kibir anu a:di tak i-ka
 pride without normal man 3SG.M-become\PFV
 ‘He became a normal man without pride.’ [NARR_31_king_94]

As for the privative of events, it is also possible to use the negative simultaneity converb. For the privative of entities, only the simultaneity converb of *ak* ‘become’ is licensed, placed after a noun or an overt pronoun (40). This construction is rare in my data.

- (40) Scope over noun with negative simultaneity converb of *ak*
i=nawa=wwa ti=mi:tat=wa ba:=ka:j
 DEF.M=sinew=COORD DEF.F=bone\PL=COORD NEG.PROH=become\CVB.SIM
 ‘Without the sinews and the bones.’ [NARR_41_Emirab_leopard_085]

If the scope is a covert 3rd person pronoun referring to animate or inanimate entities, and if the predicate of the utterance is a motion verb, absence is marked with the general converb of *ʔif* ‘let’ (41).

- (41) Scope over covert pronoun with motion verb
ʔif-ti gi:g-i:ni
 let-CVB.GRL leave-IPFV.3SG.M
 ‘He leaves without (them).’ [NARR_18_Adam_devil_289]

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

At this stage of research, generalizations about the scope of negation cannot be made.

4.2 Negative polarity

There are no negative polarity item per se in Beja (see §3.2), apart from the recent loan from Arabic *abadan* ‘never’. Prosody does not seem to play a role, but further research is needed.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Case marking on NPs is not affected by the scope of negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Ordinary clausal negations are often used rhetorically as understatements (see below §4.6.3). To make clear that a statement is truly negative, and contrasts with an expected event or state, speakers use a complex predicate, only grammaticalized in the Perfective. It is built with a verbo-nominal form of the core verb with the suffix *-at* / *-it*¹¹ and the auxiliary verb *rib* ‘refuse’ (42) (for details, see Hamid Ahmed & Vanhove (2002)).

- (42) *rib* as reinforcing negation
t=?aba=t=i *dh=i* *t?i-it*
 DEF.F=wadi=INDEF.F=POSS.1SG.NOM DIR=POSS.1SG.ACC resemble-VN
ti-rib
 3SG.F-refuse\PFV
 ‘To me, my wadi did not look like it at all.’ [NARR_05_eritrea_309]

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Beja has no special negative coordinators, no special constructions for contrastive negation of NPs, and no negative conjunction.

¹¹This verbo-nominal form only occurs in some complex predicates. See Vanhove (2017: 141 and 148) for further details.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport does not occur in Beja. In complement clauses, whatever the semantic category of the predicate of the main clause, negation only has scope over its host. This means that if the main predicate is negated, the complement clause in the affirmative has an affirmative interpretation (43), and that negative complement clauses are always marked with a negator (44).

- (43) Scope over main predicate

t=ho:j=t=e:b *na:jlo:=b* *hi:s-i=je:k*
 DEF.F=belly=INDF.F=LOC.PL plastic=INDF.M.ACC think-AOR.1SG=if
ka=a-kan
 NEG.IPFV=1SG-know\MID.PFV
 ‘I don’t know if I had thought of a plastic bag in its belly.’
 [NARR_27_goat_176]

- (44) Scope over complement clause

qa:b-i *bi=i-di:=je:b* *hi:s-an*
 run-FUT.SG OPT=3SG.M-say\NEG.OPT=REL.M think-PFV.1SG
 ‘I thought it would not be able to run.’ [NARR_03_camel_153]

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

At this stage of data collection, I don’t know how metalinguistic negation works in Beja, or even if it is at all possible.

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

The data did not provide a single example of expletive negation similar to French *je crains qu’elle ne vienne* ‘I am afraid she will come’.

However Beja makes extensive non-negative uses of negative constructions. This is associated with highly positive values, in compliance with Beja social rules of politeness and honour, in order to soften statements and their social or psychological impact (45).

- (45) Negation used as understatement

a. *winne:t ho:j qib-a-b* *ki=i-ki*
 plenty LOC fall-PRF-M NEG.IPFV=3SG.M-become\PFV
 ‘He is really angry at him.’ (lit. ‘He has not fallen a lot in him.’)
 [NARR_38_ostrich_143–144]

- b. *dijar-an=e:k* *ka=a-kan*
 be_tired-PFV.1SG=if NEG.IPFV=1SG-know\MID.PFV
 ‘I am really exhausted.’ (lit. ‘I don’t know if I am tired.’)
 [NARR_18_Adam_devil_165]

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

Beja shows no trace of the Jespersen’s & Meillet’s Cycle, nor of the Negative Existential Cycle as described by Croft (1991) and Veselinova (2014).

5 Summary

To sum up, the negative system of Beja clearly distinguishes constructions in declarative and non-declarative utterances, and within declaratives and non-declaratives, it has a reduced asymmetrical TAM system and uses different negators. TAM is even more reduced and asymmetrical in non-main clauses, where only the negative Optative or the negative Simultaneity converb occurs, whereas all affirmative declarative verb forms and converbs are possible in balanced and deranked clauses respectively.

What is especially noteworthy is the fact that, unlike other tenses, the negative Optative does not use an enclitic negator, but has recourse instead to stem alternation (V1) and specific inflectional morphemes (V2).

Regarding stative predications, Beja shows different polarity systems depending on the type of predication. Possessive predication, expressed with a dedicated possessive verb, has the same negator and construction as standard negation in main and independent clauses, and as non-standard negation in non-main clauses. Negation is asymmetrical for equational, proper inclusion and attributive predications with the replacement of the copula by a negative ‘be/become’ verb, but there is no difference between permanent and temporary property assignment. For existential and locative predications, which cannot be used as privatives nor as short answers, the asymmetry concerns the restriction on the use of one of the three verbs.

In addition to the basic negative system, Beja has grammaticalized an auxiliated construction to reinforce negation, but only in the Perfective aspect, which is where TAM reduction occurs in ordinary negation. It is possible that social reasons are behind this restriction, since the Perfective aspect is less committing for speakers, and since it is considered as impolite to state loud and clear one’s opinion.

Privatives are marked with four constructions, one clausal and three non-clausal. One of the non-clausal constructions, that with motion verbs, is historically based on clause chaining with a converb denoting abandonment ('let'). It does not use a negator.

Phasal polarity expressions are rarely overtly expressed and are usually left to contextual interpretation. Nevertheless three adverbs denoting addition or repetition ('also', 'anew', 'again') can be added to negative utterances. One of these adverbials ('only') may be used for the expression of 'not yet'; however, it is rarely overtly expressed.

Beja has no indefinite pronouns, but may use either the numeral *ga:l* 'one', the generic noun *na*: 'thing', the noun referring to a male *tak* 'man'. Only the latter two occur in negative utterances.

The language has only one negative lexicalization in the domain of cognition (polysemous with modality) competing with an affirmative verb, and very marginally a non-utterance one based on a light verb construction.

As regards other aspects of negation, Beja does not show negative transport and does not seem to have recourse to expletive negation. On the other hand, it makes extensive non-negative uses of negative constructions, up to the point that a reinforcing strategy with an auxiliary verb has been grammaticalized.

Finally, negative replies use different strategies, from a simple dental click, to an adverb meaning 'no', or a dummy negative verb. Their use largely depends on pragmatics.

Table 5 summarizes the various functions of the negators and negative constructions.

Table 6 provides an overview of the various roles played by the verb *ak* 'be, become' (together with a negator) in negative constructions.

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Table 5: Negative strategies in Beja

Type		FORM
Clausal negation		
Standard		<i>ki=</i> (/ka=) + verb (IPFV) verb + <i>ki=</i> (/ka=) + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ (PFV, PRF, AOR) verb + <i>ki=</i> (/ka=) + <i>di</i> ‘say’ (FUT)
Non-declarative	Prohibitive	<i>ba:=</i> / <i>bi:=</i> + verb
	Optative	PNG of PFV + V1 stem of PROH PNG of PFV of V1 + V2 + suff. of AOR
	Question	<i>ki=</i> (/ka=) + verb (IPFV) verb + <i>ki=</i> (/ka=) + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ (PFV, PRF, AOR) verb + <i>ki=</i> (/ka=) + <i>di</i> ‘say’ (FUT)
Stative predication	Possession	<i>ki=</i> + <i>biri</i> ‘have’
	Equational, proper inclusion, attributive	verb + <i>ki=</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ or verb + <i>ba:=</i> / <i>bi:=</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’
	Existential, locative	<i>ki=</i> or <i>ba:=</i> / <i>bi:=</i> + <i>haj</i> or <i>da:</i> ‘be there’
Non-main clause		Negative Optative in balanced clause; <i>ba:=</i> + CVB.SIM in deranked clause
Negative lexicalization		<i>gam</i> ‘not know’
Privative		non-utterance: <i>his</i> ‘voice’ + <i>ak</i> ‘become’ <i>ba:=</i> + CVB.SIM
Non-clausal		
Reply		dental click, <i>ki=</i> + <i>ak</i> ‘become’, <i>aʔa:</i>
Indefinite		<i>tak</i> ‘man’ + negative verb, <i>na:(t)</i> ‘thing’ + negative verb, <i>mhi:n</i> ‘place’ + negative verb
Privative		NP + <i>anu</i> ‘without’, NP + <i>ba:=</i> + CVB.SIM, <i>ʔif-ti</i> CVB.GRL of ‘let’ + motion verb
Other		
Reinforcing		verb + <i>-at/ -it</i> + <i>rib</i> ‘refuse’

Table 6: *ak* ‘be, become’ in negative constructions in Beja

Standard neg.	PFV, PRF, AOR
Interrogative neg.	PFV, PRF, AOR
Stative neg.	equational, proper inclusion, attributive existential locative
Non-clausal	privative
Neg. lexicalization	non-utterance
Negative reply	‘no’

Abbreviations

1	first person	MID	middle
2	second person	MNR	manner
3	third person	NEG	negation
ABL	ablative	NOM	nominative
ACC	accusative	NP	noun phrase
ACN	action noun	OBJ	object
AOR	Aorist	OPT	Optative
CAUS	causative	PFV	Perfective
COORD	coordination	PL	plural
COP	copula	PLAC	pluractional
CSL	causal	PNG	person, number, gender
CVB	converb	POSS	possessive
DAT	dative	PRF	Perfect
DEF	definite	PROH	Prohibitive
DIR	directional	PROX	proximal
DIST	distal	Q.PLR	polar question
F	feminine	RECP	reciprocal
FUT	Future	REL	relative marker
GEN	genitive	SEQ	sequential
GRL	general	SG	singular
IMP	imperative	SIM	simultaneity
INDF	indefinite	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
INTS	intensive	V1	verb class 1
IPFV	Imperfective	V2	verb class 2
LOC	locative	VN	verbo-nominal
M	masculine		

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Chapter 4

Negation in Kambaata

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The Ethiopian language Kambaata (Cushitic) has five distinct negative inflectional suffixes that negate (i) declarative main verbs and non-verbal predicates, (ii) imperatives, (iii) jussives and benedictives, (iv) converbs and (v) relative verbs. Affirmative and negative verb forms often do not match each other in a one-to-one relation, but paradigmatic and constructional asymmetries can be observed. Depending on the verb type, aspectual and modal distinctions are neutralized under negation, the number of different subject indexes is reduced, the distinction between same subject and different subject forms is lost, and changes occur in the morphological makeup of verb forms. Finally, not all affirmative paradigms have dedicated negative counterparts. Most noteworthy from a typological point of view are Kambaata's negative relative verbs. Unlike affirmative relative verbs, which have exclusively verbal morphology, negative relative verbs are almost perfect verb-adjective hybrids with their combination of verbal and adjectival inflection. They index the person, gender, number and honorificity of their subject, and agree in case and gender with their head noun. Apart from inflectional means of negation, Kambaata has a productive caritive derivation *-beel* 'less' that generates adjectives from nouns.

Keywords: Cushitic, inflectional negation, derivational negation, asymmetry, negative participle.

1 The language

1.1 General information

The Kambaata language (ISO: ktb, Glottocode: kamb1316) is spoken by the Kambaata, Xambaaro and Donga people, who are settled around the Hambarrichcho massif in southern Ethiopia, about 300 km southwest of the Ethiopian capital Addis Ababa. According to the last published census, Kambaata (endonym:



Kambaatissáta) has more than 600,000 speakers (Federal Democratic Republic of Ethiopia Census Commission 2010: 91), the large majority of whom live in the Kambaata-Xambaaro Zone of the Southern Nations, Nationalities and Peoples' Region. Kambaata belongs to the Highland East Cushitic branch of the Cushitic family (Afroasiatic phylum). There are possibly slight regional differences in prosody, grammar and lexicon (whose exact nature is still to be explored) across the Kambaata-speaking area, but these do not impact mutual intelligibility. The immediate neighbors of the Kambaata are speakers of other Highland East Cushitic languages (Hadiyya and Alaaba) and Omoto languages of the Omotic family (Wolaitta and Dawro). Amharic, the Ethiopian lingua franca, is the most important second language of Kambaata speakers. Kambaata is used as a medium of instruction in public primary schools and is taught as a subject up to grade 12. In 2018, Wachamo University started a Kambaata language BA program on its Duuraame campus. Despite having been taught in schools since 1997, Kambaata remains an overwhelmingly oral language, while Amharic is the written language in private and official contexts. Overall, Kambaata is still linguistically vital. Intergenerational transmission seems stable in rural areas yet threatened in towns. Amharic is dominant in certain communication contexts, such as social media, TV, religious services, political meetings, offices, courts, schools, and parts of the retail and gastronomic industries. Kambaata is increasingly being restricted to communication within the family, with friends and neighbors.

The official Kambaata orthography is based on the Roman script (Treis 2008: 73–80; Alemu 2016) and follows the spelling conventions of the Oromo Qubee orthography. The official Kambaata orthography is adopted for all data transcription in this contribution with one important addition: Phonemic stress is marked by an acute accent. The following Kambaata graphemes are not in accordance with IPA conventions: <ph> /p'/, <x> /t'/, <q> /k'/, <j> /dʒ/, <c> /tʃ'/, <ch> /tʃ/, <sh> /ʃ/, <y> /j/ and <'> /ʔ/. Geminate consonants and long vowels are marked by doubling the grapheme, e.g. <shsh> /ʃ:/ and <ee> /e:/. Nasalization is marked by a macron, e.g. <ā> /ã/. The data for this paper comes from my recorded corpus of narratives and conversations (marked by the recorded speaker's initials, the date, and the file number or name), my field notes of volunteered or elicited data as well as a corpus of locally published written Kambaata texts. The structure of the paper follows the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]).

1.2 Typological profile

Kambaata is agglutinating-fusional and strictly suffixing. Its constituent order is consistently head-final; hence all modifiers precede the noun in the NP, and all dependent clauses precede independent main clauses. The last constituent in a sentence is usually a fully finite main verb or a copula. The following open word classes are defined on morphosyntactic grounds: nouns, adjectives, verbs, ideophones, and interjections.

Kambaata is a nominative-accusative language. The nominative is the subject case; the accusative marks direct objects and certain adverbial constituents, and also serves as the citation form of nouns and adjectives. Nouns are marked for gender (masculine vs. feminine); the assignment of grammatical gender is mostly arbitrary, with the exception of nouns referring to human beings and higher animals, where it is sex-based. Nouns distinguish nine case forms (nominative, accusative, genitive, dative, ablative, instrumental, locative, oblique, predicative), all of which are marked by a segmental suffix and a specific stress pattern.

Adnominal adjectives, numerals and demonstratives agree with their head noun in case and gender. The case system of adnominals is reduced to three forms, namely nominative, accusative and oblique, with the oblique form marking agreement with non-nominative/non-accusative head nouns.

All verbs, with the exception of verbal nouns, carry simple or bipartite subject indexes, as exemplified by the structures of an affirmative declarative main verb in Figure 1 and a jussive main verb in Figure 2.

Stem		Inflection			(-Object)	(ikke) PST
Root	(-Derivation)	-Subject index (slot 1)	-Aspect	-Subject index (slot 2)		

Figure 1: Affirmative declarative main verb with bipartite subject marking

Stem		Inflection		(-Object)
Root	(-Derivation)	-Subject index (slot 1)	-Jussive mood	

Figure 2: Affirmative jussive main verb with simple subject marking

Verbs inflect for aspect (imperfective, perfective, perfect, progressive), mood (declarative, imperative, jussive, benedictive, apprehensive), polarity (affirmative, negative) and dependency status (main verbs, relative verbs, converbs, pur-

positive verbs); the morphemes realizing these grammatical categories are placed in the slot after the first subject index. Inflectional morphemes tend to fuse into inseparable portmanteau morphemes and are therefore often unsegmented in the examples. Direct and indirect objects can be expressed by suffixed pronouns at the right edge of the inflected verb. The use of these pronominal object suffixes is partly pragmatically determined and depends on the referential prominence of the object. If a declarative verb is marked for past tense, the free morpheme *ikke* is the last element of the verbal complex (Figure 1). Derivational morphemes (passive, causative and middle morphemes, or combinations of these) are found between root and inflection. The inflectional potential of dependent clause verbs is less rich than that of main verb forms: certain person/gender and aspectual distinctions are neutralized, they cannot be marked for mood, and only some of them allow for object suffixes.

Ideophones and interjections are morphologically invariant. Interjections constitute utterances of their own. Ideophones are integrated into the clause through light verbs, *y-* ‘say’ or *ih-* ‘be(come)’ in intransitive clauses and *a’-* ~ *ass-* ‘do’ in transitive clauses.

1.3 Earlier research on negation

Borelli’s linguistic data appendix (1890: 463–482) is the earliest published source on the Kambaata language. Though the section on negative verbs remains empty in his questionnaire, there are five negative verb forms in his list of common phrases (*phrases usuelles*), e.g. the negated imperfective *ossaamba* [ossa’áamba’a] ‘I don’t sleep’, the negated non-imperfective *amé timba* [ameetimbá’a] ‘I did not go, have not gone, am not going’, and the negated imperative *agoti* [ággooti] ‘don’t drink’.¹ Leslau (1952) gives the first coherent presentation of negative paradigms. Some relevant examples in Korhonen et al. (1986: 90–108) demonstrate slight morphological differences in the non-imperfective negation of Kambaata (proper) and Xambaaro as well as the closely related language Alaaba. As far as more recent publications are concerned, Treis (2012a) is a detailed discussion of the negation of relative verbs, Treis (2012c: 86–90) deals with negative converbs, and Treis (2012b) analyzes clausal negation in Kambaata from a comparative Highland East Cushitic perspective.

¹English translations mine.

2 Clausal negation

As in many languages in the world, the affirmative and negative verb forms and paradigms do not neatly match each other in a one-to-one relation. Rather, paradigmatic and constructional asymmetries (Miestamo 2013) can be observed: Not all affirmative paradigms have dedicated negative counterparts, aspectual and modal distinctions may be neutralized under negation, and negation may trigger changes in the morphological makeup of verb forms. Kambaata has five inflectional negation suffixes (Table 1), which will be treated in the following subsections (§2.1–§2.4). Negative morphemes are always located after the subject indexes and aspectual morphology, and before tense marking; their position relative to mood and object marking depends on the type of verb they combine with. Information on the order of morphemes will be given in the respective sections below.

Table 1: Inflectional negation morphemes

<i>-ba('a)</i>	NEG	Declarative main verbs, existential verb <i>yoo-</i> , non-verbal predicates
<i>'-oot</i>	NEG.IMP	Imperatives
<i>'-ka</i>	NEG.JUSS	Jussives
<i>-u'nnáachch</i>	NEG.CVB	Converbs
<i>-umb</i>	NEG.REL	Relative verbs

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation is marked with the suffix *-ba('a)* (NEG). Two declarative negative constructions need to be kept apart in the following presentation: negative imperfective and negative non-imperfective. As shown in Table 2 and Table 3, affirmative declarative main verbs distinguish four aspectual categories: imperfective, perfective, perfect and progressive, all of which are marked by an aspect morpheme (printed in bold in the tables) wedged between the bipartite subject index.² Under negation, the aspectual distinctions are reduced to two: imperfective (1) vs. non-imperfective (2).

²Illustrations of the use of affirmative declarative main verbs are found in the following examples: The last verb of (1) is an imperfective main verb, the reporting clause of (5) contains a perfective main verb, the last verb of (27) is a perfect main verb, and the last verb of (21) is marked for the progressive.

- (1) *Af-óon áff-ee waas-á it-áno-ba'a,*
 mouth-M.LOC seize-3M.PRF.REL enset.food-M.ACC eat-3M.IPFV-NEG
tú=y-í agúrr=ke'éechh waal-áno.
 spit.IDEO=say-[3M.]PFV.CVB³ leave.[3M.]PFV.CVB=SEQ come-3M.IPFV
 (Somebody hears about the death of a loved one.) 'He does not swallow
 (lit. eat) the food that he has in his mouth, he spits it out (and) then
 comes (to the house of the deceased).' (Recorded conversation,
 EK2016-02-23_003)
- (2) *Hikkanneeni-i teesuhá-a bajig-g-im-bá'a.*
 PRO.MED.M.LOC-ADD again-ADD be(come).happy-3F-NIPFV-NEG
 'Even with this, she was still not happy.' (Recorded conversation,
 TD2016-02-11_001)

In the imperfective aspect, the affirmative and negative paradigms are largely symmetrical (Table 2); they only differ in the presence of the standard negator.⁴ In contrast, we observe the following paradigmatic and constructional asymmetries in negative non-imperfective verbs (Table 3): (i) the second subject slot of the affirmative counterpart is dropped under negation, which leads to a reduction of the number of distinct subject indexes from seven to five, with 1SG=3M and 2SG=3F/3PL; (ii) a dedicated aspect morpheme, the non-imperfective suffix *-im'*,⁵ is used in the negative but not in any affirmative verb paradigm; (iii) the palatalization and gemination of stem-final consonants in certain 1SG and 3M affirmative verb forms is absent in the domain of negation; and (iv) the stress pattern of the negative non-imperfective paradigm is unlike the patterns of its affirmative counterpart.

If one compares the two declarative negative paradigms in Table 2 and Table 3 with each other, differences in the relative position of the object morpheme (OBJ) and the negator become apparent: The negator follows the object suffix in the imperfective (3) but precedes it in the non-imperfective (4).

- (3) (...) *isso'óot kaa'll-itáa xa'mm-úta hór-a-n*
 3PL.NOM help-3F.IPFV.REL question-F.ACC all-F.OBL-EMPH
xa'mm-itáa-'nne-ba'a.
 ask-3F.IPFV-2PL.OBJ-NEG
 '(...) they never ask you any useful questions.'⁶ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 19)

³Subject indexes that are realized as $\emptyset$ are glossed in [square brackets] in the examples.

⁴Ignoring certain morphophonological changes triggered by the standard negator.

⁵In the Xambaaro-variant of Kambaata, the corresponding aspect marker is *-um* (Korhonen et al. 1986: 101).

Table 2: Negation of the imperfective

	Affirmative Imperfective ^a	Negative Imperfective ^b
1SG	-Ø- áa - <i>m(m)</i> ^c -(OBJ)	-Ø- áa - <i>m</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
2SG	- <i>t</i> - áa - <i>nt(i)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>t</i> - áa - <i>nti</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
3M	-Ø- á - <i>no</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø- á - <i>no</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
3F/3PL	- <i>t</i> - áa -('u)-(OBJ)	- <i>t</i> - áa -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
3HON	- <i>éen</i> -Ø- <i>no</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>éen</i> -Ø- <i>no</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
1PL	- <i>n</i> - áa - <i>m(m)</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>n</i> - áa - <i>m</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>
2PL/2HON	- <i>teen</i> - á - <i>nta</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>teen</i> - á - <i>nta</i> -(OBJ)- <i>ba'a</i>

^aMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), subject index 2 and (optional) object.

^bMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), subject index 2, (optional) object and negator. In this and in all following tables, the negator is given in gray.

^cElements in round brackets are added or left out depending on what follows.

- (4) (...) *teesuuhá-a hikkuuní-i duus-im-bá-se.*
 again-ADD PRO.MED.M.NOM-ADD satisfy-[3M.]NIPFV-NEG-3F.OBJ
 ‘(But) this still did not satisfy her either.’ (Recorded conversation,
 TD2016-02-11_001)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Main verbs in non-declarative sentences are marked for imperative, jussive/benedictive or apprehensive mood. Imperatives and jussives/benedictives have dedicated negation strategies. The apprehensive, a paradigm of main verb forms expressing warnings and threats (Treis forthcoming), has no corresponding negative paradigm.

2.2.1 Negation of imperatives

Affirmative imperatives are the simplest verb forms in Kambaata, as they lack the expected first subject index slot. Under negation (Table 4), however, the subject indexes 2SG *-t* and 2PL/2HON *-teen* do occur.⁷ After the subject slot follows the

⁶Examples from de Saint-Exupéry (2018) are translated literally from the Kambaata version.

⁷As in other verb forms, the subject indexes of the first slot undergo regular morphophonological changes (Treis 2008: 60–72).

Table 3: Negation of non-imperfective aspects

	Affirmative ^a Perfective	Affirmative Perfect	Affirmative Progressive	Negative ^b Non-imperfective
1SG ^c	[-C_{PAL/GEM}:] [-CC:]	'-Ø- óo -m(m)-(OBJ) -Ø- ée -m(m)-(OBJ)	-Ø- áyyo -m(m)-(OBJ)	-Ø- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
2SG		'-t- ee -nt(i)-(OBJ)	-t- áyyo -nt(i)-(OBJ)	-t- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
3M	[-C_{PAL/GEM}:] [-CC:]	'-Ø- o -(OBJ) -Ø- ée -('u)-(OBJ)	'-Ø- ee -('u)-(OBJ) -Ø- ée -('u)-(OBJ)	-Ø- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
3F/3PL		-t- óo -('u)-(OBJ)	'-t- ee -('u)-(OBJ)	-t- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
3HON		-éem-Ø- ma -(OBJ)	-éem-Ø- maa ('u)-(OBJ)	-éem- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
1PL		-n- óo -m(m)-(OBJ)	'-n- ee -m(m)-(OBJ)	-n- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)
2PL/2HON		-téen-Ø- nta -(OBJ)	-téen-Ø- ntaa ('u)-(OBJ)	-teen- im - bá('a) -(OBJ)

^aMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), subject index 2 and (optional) object.^bMorpheme order: subject index 1, aspect (in bold), negator (in gray) and (optional) object.^cIn the perfective and perfect paradigms (but not in the progressive and negative paradigm), the realization of the 1sg and 3m forms depends on whether the verb stem ends in a single consonant (C) or cluster (CC). The 1sg and 3m perfective and perfect forms of verb stems ending in a consonant cluster (CC) seem identical, but they can be shown to follow different stress rules under relativization.

imperative negator ‘-oot (NEG.IMP) – which is realized palatalized and geminate (‘-oochch) in the plural –, the respective singular (5) or plural (6) imperative morpheme, and, if present, an object suffix.⁸

Table 4: Affirmative and negative imperative endings

	Affirmative imperative V-IMP-(OBJ)	Negative imperative V-SBJ ₁ -NEG.IMP-IMP-(OBJ)
2SG	‘-i-(OBJ)	‘-t-oot-i-(OBJ)
2PL/2HON	[-C _{PAL/GEM} :] -é-(OBJ) [-CC:] -iyyé-(OBJ)	-téen-oochch-e-(OBJ) ~ -téen-oochch-iyye-(OBJ)

- (5) “*Bux-ichch-í min-í aag-ís-s-oot-e-’e*”
 poor-SGV-M.GEN house-M.ACC enter-CAUS-2SG-NEG.IMP-2SG.IMP-1SG.OBJ
y-ée’u buur-í hoof-íchch-u.
 say-3M.PFV butter-M.GEN wrapping.material-SGV-M.NOM
 “Don’t make me enter a poor man’s house!” said the butter wrapping.
 (Proverb, Alamu & Alamaayyo 2017: 33⁹)

- (6) *Mikk-mill=y-itéen-oochch-e.*
 move-move.IDEO=say-2PL-NEG.IMP-2PL.IMP
 (Police to robbers:) ‘Don’t you (PL) move!’ (Volunteered¹⁰ 2016)

For information on the apprehensive, whose second person form is in many contexts considered functionally equivalent to the negative imperative, see §4.6.1.

Kambaata has a handful of indexical imperative-only verbs (Table 5), which can neither be negated nor be inflected in a non-imperative mood. The entirely invariant directive interjections, of which Kambaata has several dozen (Table 6), cannot be negated either.

⁸In the Xambaaro-variant of Kambaata, the negative 2PL imperfective form is -tóon-oochch-e (Korhonen et al. 1986: 99).

⁹I have segmented, glossed and translated examples from published sources and added stress marks.

¹⁰Examples that are labelled “volunteered” were either provided by consultants as further illustrations during the transcription and translation of recorded texts, or they originate from illustrative dialogues dictated to me by native speakers. Volunteered examples do not originate from translation elicitation.

Table 5: Imperative-only verbs

2SG	2PL/2HON	Translation
<i>ám-i</i>	<i>amm-é</i>	‘Come (to me for an instant)!’
<i>ī</i>	<i>i-yyé</i>	‘Take (what I have in my hands)!’
<i>mée</i>	<i>mee-yyé</i>	‘Give (me what you have in your hands)!’
<i>ashshám-i</i>	<i>ashshamm-é</i>	‘Hang in there!’ (Greeting to people working)
<i>kárag-i</i>	<i>káragg-e</i>	‘Listen up!’
<i>híkkarag-i</i>	<i>híkkaragg-e</i>	‘Listen up!’

Table 6: Some examples of directive interjections

Interjection	Translation
<i>ná''a</i>	(to children:) ‘Eat!’
<i>gá''a</i>	(to children:) ‘Drink!’
<i>sá</i>	‘Shush!’
<i>hág</i>	(to donkeys:) ‘Keep going, go away!’
<i>kút</i>	(to chicken:) ‘Go away!’
<i>háa</i>	(to cattle:) ‘Stay calm!’
<i>hirká</i>	(to cattle:) ‘Go into the pen!’
<i>sú</i>	(to dogs:) ‘Catch!’

2.2.2 Negation of jussives and benedictives

The jussive is used for first and third person directives and expresses what should or may be done (Table 7). The first person singular jussive is predominantly used in questions, e.g. *ág-u* ‘May I come in?’. Whereas the imperative (§2.2.1) can be used to bless and curse second persons, e.g. *lé'-oot-i át* (grow-[2SG.])¹¹NEG.IMP-2SG.IMP 2SG.NOM) ‘Don’t (you) grow!’, blessings and curses of first and third persons are expressed by a dedicated verb form, the benedictive (7).

- (7) *Magán-u áass-u.*

God-M.NOM give-[3M.]BDV

‘May God give (to you in return)!’ (i.e. ‘Thank you.’) (Blessing, overheard)

¹¹The 2SG subject index *-t* is predictably omitted after a glottal stop.

Table 7: Affirmative and negative jussive/benedictive endings

	Affirmative Jussive	Affirmative Benedictive ^a	Negative Jussive/Benedictive
1SG	-Ø-ó ~ ' -Ø- <i>u</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø-ó	-Ø-ún- <i>ka</i> -(OBJ)
3M	' -Ø- <i>un</i> -(OBJ)	' -Ø- <i>u</i> -(OBJ)	-Ø-ún- <i>ka</i> -(OBJ)
3F/3PL	' - <i>t-un</i> -(OBJ)	' - <i>t-u</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>t-ún- ka</i> -(OBJ)
3HON	- <i>éen-un</i> -(OBJ)	- <i>éen-u</i>	- <i>een-ún- ka</i> -(OBJ)
1PL	- <i>n-ó</i> ~ ' - <i>n-u</i> ~ ' - <i>n-un</i> -(OBJ)	(n.a.)	- <i>n-ún- ka</i> -(OBJ)

^aOnly two benedictive forms with object pronouns are attested in my database so far.

Under negation (Table 7), the distinction between jussive and benedictive is neutralized. The morpheme ' -*ka* (NEG.JUSS) is the negator of both verb types; it follows the subject index and mood morpheme -*un* and precedes the object suffix (8).

- (8) *Lankaann-í* *híil-u*, *land-í* *kotím-u*,
 paternal.uncle-M.GEN bad-M.NOM leather.dress-M.GEN short-M.NOM
Laadd-í *gíd-u* *gambá=y-ún-ka-he!*
 PN-M.GEN cold-M.NOM encounter.IDEO=say-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-2SG.OBJ
 'May a bad uncle, a skimpy leather dress, (and) the cold of Laadda (= windy place) not catch up with you!' (Blessing, Alamu & Alamaayyo 2017: 101)

As Table 7 shows, the negative jussive/benedictive is almost entirely based on the affirmative jussive (with the exception of the 1SG form). However, the addition of the jussive negator triggers a shift of stress from the stem to the mood morpheme.

2.2.3 Negation of questions

Negated polar questions are built on negative declarative main clauses. They are marked by the interrogative suffix -*ndo*; see the negated non-verbal and verbal predicates in (9) and (10), respectively. The speaker suspects the answer to their question to be affirmative and asks the addressee to confirm this expectation. Negative questions are also seen in (34) and (35).

- (9) *Hikkúun qaláall-a-a xáh-a-ba-ndo?*
 PRO.PROX.M.NOM easy[Amh.]-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC issue-M.PRED-NEG-Q
 ‘Isn’t this an easy problem?’ (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-12_003)
- (10) *Cii’-áta sharr-itaantí=g-a ik-k-im-bá-ndo?*
 birds-F.ACC chase-2SG.IPFV.REL=SIMV-M.OBL be(come)-2SG-NIPFV-NEG-Q
 ‘Haven’t you reached the bird-chasing stage (yet)?’ (lit. ‘Haven’t you become like you chase birds?’) (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-23_001)

For information on the use of negative questions for strongly assertive statements, see §4.6.3.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

The standard negator *-ba’a* (NEG) (§2.1) is used with all types of non-verbal predicates, irrespective of whether the predicate expresses equation (11), proper inclusion (12),¹² attribution (13), location (14) or possession (15), and irrespective of the type of copula used. The following examples illustrate the use of the non-verbal copulas *-ha(a)/-ta(a)* (M/F.COP.ASC) and *-Vt* (COP.ID); for information on their intricate distribution, see Treis (2008: 397–436).

- (11) *Isú agud-áyyoo[’u] bagáan (.) iso-oti-ba’a.*
 3M.ACC resemble-3M.PROG CNTR 3M.NOM-COP.ID-NEG
 ‘He resembles him, but it’s not him.’ (John 9: 9; lit. translation from the Kambaata version) (The Bible Society of Ethiopia 2023)
- (12) *Od-éet asúss-a-ta-ba’a.*
 tree.sp-F.NOM seedling-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC-NEG
 (Speaker correcting interlocutor’s word choice:) ‘Sycamore fig trees are not (i.e. do not qualify as) “seedlings”.’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 21)
- (13) *“Húj-it hór-a<n>t baréed-a-ta”*
 work-F.NOM all-F.NOM<EMPH> good-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC
y-aanó-na “Hór-a<n>t húj-it
 say-3M.IPFV.REL-COORD all-F.NOM<EMPH> work-F.NOM

¹²See also (57).

baréed-a-ta-ba'a *y-aanó* *boq-ó* *xaw-í*
 good-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC-NEG say-3M.IPFV.REL head-F.GEN topic-M.GEN
al-éen (...) *lámuanne* *beeh-an-téen* *oodamm-iyyé.*
 top-M.LOC in.two.groups divide-PASS-2PL.PFV.CVB discuss-2PL.IMP
 ‘Split into two groups and discuss the hypotheses “All (kinds of) work are respectable (lit. good)” and “Not all (kinds of) work are respectable (lit. all work is not good)”!’ (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.: 7.102)

- (14) (...) *kook-í* *lálal-ut* *re'-aa'i-ihu*
 peach-M.GEN fruit-F.NOM be(come).edible-3F.IPFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM
haqq-í *al-éene-et* *bagáan* (.) *giir-áane-eb-ba'a.*
 tree-M.GEN top-M.LOC-COP.ID CNTR fire-F.LOC-COP.ID-NEG
 ‘It is on the tree and not on the fire that a peach becomes edible.’¹³
 (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.: 4.49)

- (15) *Tí* *maccoo-teenantá* *láag-a<n>t* *ées*
 ADN.PROX.F.NOM hear-2PL.IPFV.REL word-F.NOM<EMPH> 1SG.ACC
sokk-ó *Ánn-i-ta* *bagáan* (.)
 send-3M.PFV.REL father-M.GEN-F.COP.ASC CNTR
ii-taa-ba'a.
 1SG.GEN-F.COP.ASC-NEG
 ‘The word which you hear is the Father’s who sent me but not mine.’
 (John 14: 24; lit. translation from the Kambaata version) (The Bible Society of Ethiopia 2023)

The negator is found at the right edge of the non-verbal predicate. It is preceded by the copula (11–15) or, if the copula is realized as zero or has shifted to a modifier,¹⁴ it directly follows the predicative or other case suffix (16).

- (16) (...) *hittiin* *ii-taa* *lúus-a-ba'a.*
 PRO.MED.F.NOM 1SG.GEN-F.COP.ASC fault-F.PRED-NEG
 ‘This is not my fault.’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 12)

¹³The Kambaata verb *re'-* is polysemous and can mean ‘ripen’ and ‘be cooked, become done’.

¹⁴As explained in Treis (2008: 414–420), the copula *-ha(a)/-ta(a)* (M/F.COP.ASC) is mobile and its position depends on the internal syntax of the nominal predicate. If the predicate is modified by an adjective, genitive noun or relative clause, it shifts to the modifier, see (16). If the modifier of the nominal predicate is a numeral or a demonstrative, the copula is zero. Kambaata’s other identificational-attributinal copula, *-Vt* (COP.ID), is not mobile.

The standard negator is also used for the negation of the defective verb *yoo-* (COP.EX) ‘exist, be (located), be (for a possessor)’, which is used in existential (17), locative-presentative (18) and possessive (19) predication. In possessive constructions, the negator follows the object suffix referring to the possessor (19).

- (17) *Arráb-i-se ful-táa=b-eechch-u*
 tongue-F.NOM-3F.POSS come.out-3F.IPFV.REL=PLC-SGV-M.NOM
yóo-ba’a.
 COP.EX.3F-NEG
 ‘There was no place for her tongue to come out.’ (lit. ‘A place at which her tongue comes out does not exist.’) (Recorded conversation, TD2016-02-11_001)
- (18) *Hall-eechch-óon lám-it gár-it yóo-ba’a.*
 shade-SGV-F.LOC two-F.NOM truth-F.NOM COP.EX.3F-NEG
 ‘There are no two truths in the shade (i.e. the elders under a shady tree always work out the (one) truth and pass a judgment).’ (Proverb, Alamu & Alamaayyo 2017: 71)
- (19) A: *Qenéf-u me’-íqqi-a bár-i?*
 birth.ceremony-M.NOM how.many-ORD-M.COP.ASC day-M.PRED
 ‘The *qenefa*-ceremony is (on) which (lit. the how-many-eth) day?’
 B: *Bár-u yóo-si-ba’a, isíi.*
 day-M.NOM COP.EX.3M-3M.OBJ-NEG 3M.DAT
 ‘It doesn’t have a (fixed) day.’ (lit. ‘A day is not for him (= *qenefa* m.).’) (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-23_002)

All negative examples presented in this section differ from their affirmative counterparts only in the presence of the negator, which is most evident in (13). So, at first sight, the negation of stative predications does not seem to differ from standard negation (§2.1). However, §2.4.2 shows that negated existential predicates do not follow the relativization strategy of other verbal predicates.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In complex sentences only the last verb is usually a fully finite main clause verb (or a copula),¹⁵ while verbs in preceding clauses are either based on converbs,

¹⁵Exceptions to this rule are sentences with coordinated final main verbs and with non-final main verbs in embedded reported speech. Furthermore, contrastive clauses with *bagáan* ‘but’

relative verbs, purposive verbs or verbal nouns. Negation strategies in non-main clauses differ significantly from those in main clauses (§2.1–§2.3): A dedicated negative converb is used for converb clauses (§2.4.1), a negative participle for relative and purposive clauses (§2.4.2, §2.4.3), and a periphrastic strategy for the negation of verbal nouns (§2.4.4).

2.4.1 Negation of converb clauses

Kambaata makes a distinction between perfective (general) and imperfective (explicitly simultaneous) converbs; both affirmative converb types are obligatorily marked for switch-reference (-*yan* DS)¹⁶ if the subject changes between the converb and the superordinate clause (Treis 2012c). In the converb paradigms, five persons are distinguished (in contrast to main verbs, which distinguish seven) (Table 8). Perfective converbs consist essentially of a verb stem and the first subject index; in addition, the 1SG/3M form is marked by the palatalization and gemination of single stem-final consonants or – after stem-final clusters – by a stressed vowel suffix -*í*. Imperfective converbs consist of a verb stem, the indexes of the first subject index slot and an ending -*án*. The parentheses in the top half of Table 8 indicate that affirmative converbs can only receive object suffixes in their different subject form.¹⁷

Converbs are negated with a dedicated converb negator, which is realized by three allomorphs in free variation: -*u'nnáachch* (20), -*u'nnáan* (21) or -*ú'nná* (22) (NEG.CVB) (for reasons of space only the first allomorph is given in Table 8 and Table 1). The converb negator is positioned after the subject index. Under negation, the distinction between imperfective and perfective converbs is neutralized. Negative converbs are not sensitive to and, consequently, not marked for switch-reference. They take object morphemes either as suffixes or infixes (20) to the converb negator.¹⁸ Negative converb clauses express events posterior to the event in the superordinate clause ('before VERB-ing') or the absence of accompanying events ('without VERB-ing').

(§4.5) and the apodosis of hypothetical and counterfactual conditional clauses contain main verb forms.

¹⁶In (22), for instance, the switch from a 1PL to a 2SG subject is marked by the DS marker on the imperfective converb.

¹⁷An exception is that same subject converbs may be used as final verbs in questions; in this function, they can carry object suffixes.

¹⁸The first allomorph, -*u'nnáachch*, takes object infixes or suffixes (Table 8); the second allomorph, -*u'nnáan*, takes only suffixes. On the third allomorph, -*ú'nná*, the object can be realized as a suffix, even though this is rarely attested in my database and not accepted by all speakers.

Table 8: Affirmative and negative converb endings

	Perfective converb (PFV.CVB)	Imperfective converb (IPFV.CVB)
1SG/3M	[-C _{PAL/GEM} :] 'Ø-(DS-(OBJ)) [-CC:] Ø-í-(DS-(OBJ))	-Ø-án-(DS-(OBJ))
2SG/3F/3PL	'-t-(DS-(OBJ))	-t-án-(DS-(OBJ))
3HON	-éen-(DS-(OBJ))	-een-án-(DS-(OBJ))
1PL	'-n-(DS-(OBJ))	-n-án-(DS-(OBJ))
2PL/2HON	-téen-(DS-(OBJ))	-teen-án-(DS-(OBJ))
Negative converb (NEG.CVB)		
1SG/3M	-Ø- u'nnáachch (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
2SG/3F/3PL	-t- u'nnáachch (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
3HON	-een- u'nnáachch (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
1PL	-n- u'nnáachch (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	
2PL/2HON	-teen- u'nnáachch (<OBJ> or -OBJ)	

- (20) (...) *mexx-uhú-u kaa'll-u'нна<'ée>chch*
 single-M.NOM-ADD help-[3M.]NEG.CVB<1SG.OBJ>
 (= *kaa'll-u'nnáachchi-'e*) *dág-u has-íshsh-o-'e*.
 = help-[3M.]NEG.CVB-1SG.OBJ know-M.NOM want-CAUS-3M.PFV-1SG.OBJ
 '(...) I was obliged to find (a solution) without anybody helping me.'
 (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 22)

The negative converb is also used in two complex verb forms: (i) in combination with the defective verb *yoo-* (COP.EX) 'exist' (21), it expresses 'not yet' (see Treis 2021 for details), (ii) in combination with the verb *fa'-* 'remain' (22), it serves as a periphrasis for a morphologically negated verb.¹⁹ The semantic difference between a morphologically and periphrastically negated verb is not yet clear and remains to be investigated.²⁰

¹⁹See also (30).

²⁰Deginet Wotango Doyiso (personal communication) tends to translate the periphrastic construction with *fa'-* as 'not have the occasion to VERB, miss the opportunity to VERB'. Banti (2010: 62, 64–65) shows that the combination of a negative converb plus a negated superordinate verb 'remain' expresses a strong assertion ('certainly VERB' = 'not remain un-VERB-ing') in the Lowland East Cushitic languages Saho and Afar.

- (21) (...) *sú'mm-u-s* *xáll-u* *ba'-u'nnáan* *yóo*
 name-M.NOM-DEF only-M.NOM be.lost-[3M.]NEG.CVB COP.EX.3M
bagáan (.) *húj-i-s* (...) *tees-ó* *qalanch-áan*
 CNTR work-F.NOM-DEF now-F.GEN generation-F.LOC
fa'-án *hab-an-t-án* *waal-táyyoo'u*.
 remain-[3F.]IPFV.CVB forget-PASS-3F-IPFV.CVB come-3F.PROG
 (Speaking about the customs on the *masaala*-holiday:) '(...) only the
 names (of these customs) are not yet lost, but (...) the work is being
 forgotten in the young generation.' (Volunteered 2003)
- (22) *Kank-áta* *j-eechch-úta* *barg-ám-m*
 that.much-F.ACC time-SGV-F.ACC add-PASS-1PL.PFV.CVB
he'-nn-áni-yan *káan* *dag-g-ú'nná*
 live-1PL-IPFV.CVB-DS PRO.PROX.M.ACC know-2SG-NEG.CVB
*fa'-oontí-ihu*²¹ *íi* *luus-áane-et*.
 remain-2SG.PFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM 1SG.GEN mistake-F.ICP-COP.ID
 'It is my fault (lit. by my fault) that you have not learned (lit. known) this
 in the whole time that we have been living together.' (de Saint-Exupéry
 2018: 34)

2.4.2 Negation of relative clauses

Affirmative relative verbs are based on declarative main verbs and differ from them, as far as the segmental realization is concerned, only minimally – note only that if the inflectional complex ends in *-u* (see e.g. *-táa-u* 3F.IPFV in Table 2) this element is dropped. There are regular stress differences between perfective and imperfective main vs. relative verbs; in contrast, the stress pattern is identical for perfect and progressive main and relative forms (see Treis 2012a for details). Relativization is ubiquitous in Kambaata. Many subordinate clauses – e.g. temporal (63), causal, conditional (25), concessive, similitive (10) – are relative-based. Cleft sentences are a common focusing device; here, the focused information is expressed in a non-verbal predicate, the backgrounded information in a headless relative clause (22). While affirmative relative verbs – like declarative main verbs – distinguish between four aspectual values (imperfective (3), perfective (64), perfect (23), progressive), these values are neutralized under negation. The relative

²¹The morphologically negated verb equivalent of *daggú'nná fa'oontíihu* in (22) would be *dag-g-umb-úu* (know-2SG-NEG.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM).

negator is *-umb* (NEG.REL) and its position in the verb is illustrated in Figure 3. Note the absence of an aspect morpheme.

		Verbal Inflection		Adjectival inflection	
Stem		-Subject index (slot 1)	<i>-umb</i>	Case/Gender	(-Object)
Root	(-Derivation)				

Figure 3: The structure of negative relative verbs

Unlike affirmative relative verbs, which only have verbal morphology, negative relative verbs are almost perfect verb-adjective hybrids with their combination of verbal and adjectival morphemes (Treis 2012a, 2017). They index the person, gender, number and honorificity of their subject, and agree in case and gender with their head noun. The case/gender inflection is shown in Table 9.

Table 9: Endings of negative participles (= negative relative verbs)

	-M.ACC	-M.NOM	-M.OBL
1SG/3M	-Ø- <i>umb</i> -ú	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -u	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -Ø- <i>úmb</i> -ua
2SG/3F/3PL	-t- <i>umb</i> -ú	-t- <i>úmb</i> -u	-t- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -t- <i>úmb</i> -ua
3HON	-een- <i>umb</i> -ú	-een- <i>úmb</i> -u	-een- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -een- <i>úmb</i> -ua
1PL	-n- <i>umb</i> -ú	-n- <i>úmb</i> -u	-n- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -n- <i>úmb</i> -ua
2PL/2HON	-teen- <i>umb</i> -ú	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -u	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -teen- <i>úmb</i> -ua
	-F.ACC	-F.NOM	-F.OBL
1SG/3M	-Ø- <i>umb</i> -úta	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-Ø- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -Ø- <i>úmb</i> -uta
2SG/3F/3PL	-t- <i>umb</i> -úta	-t- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-t- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -t- <i>úmb</i> -uta
3HON	-een- <i>umb</i> -úta	-een- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-een- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -een- <i>úmb</i> -uta
1PL	-n- <i>umb</i> -úta	-n- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-n- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -n- <i>úmb</i> -uta
2PL/2HON	-teen- <i>umb</i> -úta	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -ut	-teen- <i>úmb</i> -o ~ -teen- <i>úmb</i> -uta

In (23), the nominative head noun is modified by a numeral and two juxtaposed relative modifiers; the first relative clause ends in a negative participle, the second in an affirmative relative verb. The negative participle agrees in nominative case and feminine gender with the head noun; it is indexed for an honorific/impersonal subject. The affirmative relative verb does not agree with the head noun; it is indexed for a third person masculine subject (referring to the unexpressed stimulus of confusion), marked for perfect aspect and carries an object suffix (referring to the target of confusion, i.e. the grammatically feminine beetle).

- (23) [[*mát-it*] [*hann-óochch waal-tóo-ndo dag-een-úmb-ut*]_{Relative 1}
 one-F.NOM where-F.ABL come-3F.PFV-Q know-3HON-NEG.REL-F.NOM
 [*zahh-ée-se*]_{Relative 2} [*boomb-éechch-ut*]_{Head noun (...)}
 confuse-[3M.]PRF-3F.OBJ.REL beetle.sp-SGV-F.NOM
yaaran-áta gaffár-ti-yan (...)
 loud.sound-F.ACC release-3F.PFV.CVB-DS
 ‘(...) when a confused beetle (F), which came from goodness knows
 where, released a loud noise (lit. when a beetle, (of) which one does/did
 not know where she came from and which (something) had confused,
 released a loud noise) and (...)’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 45–46)

In (24), the locative noun *hixéen* ‘over grass’ is modified by a negative participle, which agrees with it in feminine gender and case – note that the oblique case of modifiers shows agreement with non-nominative/accusative head nouns. As the head noun is coreferent with the subject of the participle clause in this particular example, the 3F subject index of the participle also points to the grass.

- (24) [[*Kaa'll-it-úmb-o-ssa*]_{RELATIVE CLAUSE MODIFIER} *hix-éen*]_{HEAD NOUN}
 help-3F-NEG.REL-F.OBL-3PL.OBJ grass-F.LOC
ba'án-t goof-fóo'u.
 quarrel(.PASS)-3F.PFV.CVB finish-3F.PFV
 ‘They²² quarreled over grass that had no use for them.’ (i.e. It was a
 needless fight.) (Volunteered 2019)

Example (24) shows that negative participles, like affirmative relative verbs (23), can carry object morphology, which in this case is *-ssa* ‘them’ (3PL.OBJ). Interestingly, the (verbal) object morphemes are located at the right edge of the participle, still after the adjectival case/gender morphology.

Only a single verb follows a different negative relative strategy: The defective existential verb *yoo-* (COP.EX) ‘exist, be (located), be (for a possessor)’ (§2.3) uses the standard negator *-ba('a)* in relative clauses. The negator is realized as *-ba'í* in its relative form (25).

- (25) *Mateemínn-it yoo-ba'í=dda*
 shortage.of.manpower-M.NOM COP.EX.3F-NEG.REL=COND
shool-uhá-a iill-itáa'u.
 four-M.ACC-ADD reach-3F.IPFV
 ‘If there is no shortage of manpower, she (= the young mother) is
 confined (indoors) for as long as (lit. she reaches) four (months).’
 (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02_23_002)

2.4.3 Negation of purposive clauses

Kambaata has two purposive paradigms, i.e. dependent verb forms used in purpose and certain complement clauses and marked for switch-reference (Treis 2010). The verb forms in *-óta* are used in same subject contexts, e.g. *hab-óta* (forget-[3M.]PURP.SS) ‘so that he (= ss) forgets’; the verb forms in *’-unta* in different subject contexts, e.g. *bá’-unta* (spoil-[3M.]PURP.DS) ‘so that he (= DS) is spoilt’. There is no negative purposive paradigm. Instead negative purpose clauses are based on negative relative clauses (§2.4.2) plus the similitive marker =g ‘manner; like’ (see Treis 2017 on the multifunctionality of =g). The distinction between ss and DS purposive is neutralized under negation; see (26–27), where the same verb form is used in same and different subject contexts.

- (26) “(…)” *y-ée’u* *qakk-íchch-u* *láah-u,* *barg-í*
 say-3M.PFV small-SGV-M.NOM prince-M.NOM add-[3M.]PFV.CVB
zákk-o *ká* *xah-á*
 later-M.OBL ADN.PROX.M.ACC words-M.ACC
hab-úmb-o=g-a.
 forget-[3M.]NEG.REL-M.OBL=SIMV-M.OBL
 ““(…)”, said the Little Prince again so that he (= ss) wouldn’t forget these words later.’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 74)

- (27) *Zuug-gaa-sí=r-u* *boq-o-ssá* *múumm-u*
 scrape-3F.IPFV-DEF.REL=NMLZ-M.NOM head-F.GEN-3PL.POSS hair-M.NOM
hoog-óon *ba’-úmb-o=g-a*
 enset.juice-F.ICP spoil-[3M.]NEG.CVB-M.OBL=SIMV-M.OBL
shom-úta *wo’rr-ítee’u.*
 type.of.headgear-F.ACC put.on.MID-3F.PRF
 (Description of a picture:) ‘Those of them who are scraping (the enset sheaths) are wearing headgear (made from enset leaves) so that their hair (= DS) is not damaged by the (acidic) enset juice.’ (Volunteered 2003)

2.4.4 Negation of verbal noun clauses

Verbal nouns consist of a verbal stem plus a case/gender marker *-ú* (M.ACC) in the citation form, e.g. *ta’mm-ú* ‘using’ (28), and inflect like any other noun (Treis 2012a). They may function as arguments and as adverbial constituents, and are used, among other things, as final verbs in purpose, manner and complement clauses. Verbal nouns cannot be negated morphologically but require

a periphrastic negation with *hoog-* ‘not do’. The negative verb takes the verbal noun as a direct object (28).

- (28) *Mát-e Kambaata-iss-á laag-á goof-óon i-hé*
 one-F.OBL Kambaata-GLOT-F.GEN word-F.GEN end-M.LOC i-F.GEN
tá'mm-uhu-u ta'mm-ú hóog-uhu-u
 use-M.NOM-ADD use-M.ACC **not.do**-M.NOM-ADD
qood-am-anó-ohu láag-a-s
 decide-PASS-3M.IPFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM word-F.NOM-3M.POSS
anabbab-[an-táa=g-iine-et].
 read-PASS-3F.IPFV.REL=SIMV-M.ICP-COP.ID
 ‘The use of “i” (lit. using and not using “i”) at the end of a Kambaata word is determined by the way it is pronounced (lit. read).’ (Maatewoos 1992: 16 [corrected by Deginet Wotango Doyiso])

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The use of the inherently negative verb *hoog-* ‘not do; miss, lack, not have; be tired’ as periphrastic negator has already been exemplified in (28). Alemu (2022) makes ample use of the verb in his monolingual definitions of idiomatic expressions (29–30); note that verbal head entries of his dictionary are given in their accusative verbal noun form.

- (29) *wozán-u saqal-am-ú = fooloocc-ú hoog-ú.*
 heart-M.NOM hang-PASS-M.ACC rest-M.ACC **not.do**-M.ACC
 [Entry] ‘of heart, to be hung’ = [Definition] ‘not to rest’ (Alemu 2022)
- (30) *godáb-u mool-ú = il-áta hinát-e-n*
 belly-M.NOM be(come).dry-M.ACC progeny-F.ACC totality-M.OBL-EMPH
il-ée'nna²³ fa'-ú; il-ú hoog-ú.
 give.birth-3HON.NEG.CVB remain-M.ACC give.birth-M.ACC **not.do**-M.ACC
 [Entry] ‘(of) belly, to be(come) dry’ = [Definition] ‘to never have (lit. to remain totally without bearing) children; not to bear (children)’ (Alemu 2022)

See §4.6.3 for information on the use of the converb form of *hoog-* ‘not do’ as a disjunctive.

Kambaata’s second inherently negative verb, *waayy-* ‘probably not do’, is often used in its perfective converb form as an adverbial modifier to another verb (31).

However, my fieldwork corpus also shows instances of main verb use (32), if it is clear from the context what probably does not happen. Note that the following examples contain no morphological negators.

- (31) *Kabár xeená ubb-ó=da ba'-nn-óta-at!*
 today.M.OBL rain-M.ACC fall-3M.PFV.REL=COND be.lost-1PL-PURP.SS-COP.ID
Ati-sí-i daanxil-á waayy-ít
 2SG.NOM-DEF-ADD umbrella-M.ACC **probably.not.do**-2SG.PFV.CVB
af-fáant.
 seize-2F.IPFV
 ‘We are going to be in trouble (lit. lost) if it rains today. You probably don’t have an umbrella with you either.’ (Volunteered 2019)

- (32) *Kám, waayy-áno.*
 oh.no **probably.not.do**-3M.IPFV
 (A states that Duuballa is not as rich as Handiso. B, however, thinks that they are equally rich. He replies:) ‘Come on, this is probably not (true).’
 (Volunteered 2014)

Kambaata does not have a lexicalized negative verb ‘not exist’. Among Highland East Cushitic languages, negative existential verbs are only attested in Hadiyya and Libido (Treis 2012b: 32).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Positive questions are answered positively with *áá* ‘yes’ or, as seen in (33), negatively with *ā’ā’ā* ‘no’.

- (33) A: *Át núr Ameerík-a-a*
 2SG.NOM last.year.M.OBL PN-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC
mar-toontí-ihu?
 go-2SG.PFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM
 ‘Did you go to America last year?’
 B: *Ā’ā’ā, ĵermán-a-a.*
 no PN-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC
 ‘No, to Germany.’ (Elicited 2019)

The negative interjection *ā'ā'ā* 'no' is not attested as a polarity-reversing particle in reply to a negative question. Interestingly, the positive interjection *āā* 'yes' is found both in replies that confirm (34) or disconfirm negative questions (35). In (34), *āā* 'yes' signals agreement with the (negative) polarity of the question. In (35), in contrast, it signals agreement with the speaker's implicit assumption of the negative question (§2.2.3), namely that the addressee can see the people on the horizon.

- (34) A: *Shariif-á dag-gáanti-ba-ndo?*
 PN-M.ACC know-2SG.IPFV-NEG-Q
 'Don't you know Shariifa (= a place)?'
 B: *Āā, án waayy-í márr*
 yes 1SG.NOM probably.not.do-[1SG.]PFV.CVB go.[1SG.]PFV.CVB
kas-áamm.
 do.ever-1SG.IPFV
 'No (lit. yes), (I don't know it,) I have probably never been there.'
 (Volunteered 2019)
- (35) A: *Kóo, (...) ká'e qée'rr-a*
 2M.VOC PRO.CNTR.M.OBL far-M.OBL
lall-it-im-bá-he-ndo?
 occur-3F-NIPFV-NEG-2SG.OBJ-Q
 'Hey, (...) can't you see them (lit. don't they occur to you) far over there?'
 B: *Āā, híkkada xíshsh=á'-nn maram-moommí=da*
 yes then strongly.IDEO=do-1PL.PFV.CVB walk-1PL.PFV.REL=COND
iill-ináan-sa.
 reach-1PL.IPFV-3PL.OBJ
 'Yes, (I can see them,) so we can (still) catch up with them if we walk fast (lit. strongly).' (Volunteered 2016)

A frequent negative reply to questions in natural conversation is *kám* 'oh no, come on, far from it, forget it, don't worry'. The word class categorization of *kám* is difficult. It originates from the 2SG imperative form *kám[i]*²⁴ of the full verb *kam-* 'hold back, not give, forbid, remove, protect from, deprive of', the corresponding 2PL form being *kammé*. As a negative reply, however, *kám* is no

²⁴The bracketed vowel of the imperative is not pronounced word-finally but resurfaces when other morphemes are added.

longer sensitive to the addressee's number, so the singular imperative could be said to have fossilized into an invariant interjection. *Kám* is used to disconfirm or, better still, to refute, positive questions (36) and the implicit assumption in negative questions, e.g. the assumption in (37) that the addressee has just eaten. *Kám* can also signal disagreement with a previous statement; recall (32).

- (36) A: *Mat-e-’ée* *uull-áta* *Sabir-óochch ker-á*
 one-F.GEN-ASSOC.F.GEN land-F.ACC PN-M.ABL lease-M.ACC
aphph-íti-ndo, *núr?*
 take.MID-2F.PFV.CVB-Q last.year.M.OBL
 ‘Did you lease one of Sabiro’s (plots of) land last year?’
- B: *Kóo kám, m-á* *aphph-áammi-la?*
 2M.VOC **oh.no** what-M.ACC take.MID-1SG.IPFV-MIT
 ‘Far from it! I did not take anything at all (lit. what do I take?).’
 (Volunteered 2015)
- (37) A: *Téma abb-am-a-kkí=b-aan* *hooshsh-ú*
 now great-mother-F.GEN-2SG.POSS=PLC-M.LOC lunch-M.ACC
ít-t *ke’-im-bá-ndo?*
 eat-2SG.PFV.CVB do.completely-[2F.]NIPFV-NEG-Q
 (Mother (A) sees that her son (B) is serving himself in the kitchen.)
 ‘Haven’t you just eaten lunch at your grandma’s place?’
- B: *Kám, it-im-bá-be,* *m-á* *it-áammi-la,*
oh.no eat-[1SG.]NIPFV-NEG-PRAG what-M.ACC eat-1SG.IPF V-MIT
it-íi *ih-een-áni-yan* *Shaameeb-i*
 eat-M.DAT be(come)-3HON-IPFV.CVB-DS PN-M.NOM
sókk-i-ya’nne *mar-im-bá-ndo?*
 send-[3M.]PFV.CVB-DS<1SG.OBJ> go-[1SG.]NIPFV-NEG-Q
 ‘Far from it! I haven’t eaten (anything). I haven’t eaten anything at all
 (lit. what do I eat?). Didn’t I (have to) go (where) Shaameebo sent me
 when (people) were just about to eat?’ (Volunteered 2019)

Examples (36–37) demonstrate another common Kambaata strategy for giving negative replies, namely by means of a rhetorical question of the type ‘What do(es) SBJ VERB?’, with VERB being a copy of the verb used in the preceding sentence.

Finally, instead of using ‘yes’, ‘no’, or ‘far from it!’ as answers, speakers also often simply repeat the final verb of the question (in the same or opposite polarity) to (dis)confirm a question (38).

- (38) A: (...) *agan-áan agan-áan mám-maté áa'll-u*
 month-M.LOC month-M.LOC RED-one-MULT wash-M.NOM
ih-áno-ba-ndo?
 be(come).enough-3M.IPFV-NEG-Q
 'Isn't it enough to wash once a month?'
 B: *Ih-áno-ba'a.*
 be(come).enough-3M.IPFV-NEG
 'No.' (lit. 'It isn't enough.') (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.: 4.118)

For another type of negative reply, see (50).

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Kambaata does not have any inherently negative indefinites. If interrogative pronouns are combined with the additive suffix ('also, even'),²⁵ they can serve as free-choice indefinite pronouns ('WH-ever', 'any-WH') in affirmative contexts and be translated as negative indefinite pronouns under negation ('nobody', 'nothing', 'nowhere', 'never', etc.) (Treis 2015); see the additive-marked interrogative phrases in (39–40).²⁶

- (39) *Fanqashsh-ú-s ay-í-i dag-áno-ba'a.*
 answer-M.ACC-DEF **who-M.NOM-ADD** know-3M.IPFV-NEG
 'Nobody (lit. even who) knows the answer.' (Elicited 2019)
- (40) (...) *háтта j-aatá-a méxx-o min-í*
which.F.ACC time-F.ACC-ADD single-M.OBL house-M.GEN
aaz-éen gag-á iitt-uhú-u gar-ití-i
 interior-M.LOC self-M.ACC love-M.NOM-ADD truth-F.NOM-ADD
hanqaphph-án-t he'-íiha dand-itáa-ba'a.
 embrace.MID-PASS-3F.PFV.CVB live-M.DAT be.able-3F.IPFV-NEG
 '(...) self-love and truth (i.e. selfishness and justice) can never live together in one and the same house (lit. cannot live together even (at) what time).' (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.: 6.124)

²⁵Dependent on the quality of the final vowel and the stress pattern of the host, the additive suffix is either realized as a lengthening of the final vowel or as *-nii*.

²⁶As predicted by the semantic map in Haspelmath (1997: 64), who was pointed out to me by an anonymous reviewer, Kambaata's additive interrogative pronouns are also used in indirect negation (e.g. 'I don't think that anyone (lit. even who) knows the answer') and in comparatives (e.g. 'She knows about it more than anyone (lit. than even who)').

Alternatively, additive-marked noun phrases with *mexx-ú* (M)/*mexx-íta* (F) ‘single’, used either as the head or the modifier of the phrase, express ‘nothing’, ‘nobody’, ‘no N’ etc. under negation; see (20) and (41). See also the noun phrase *mexx-e-nú* (single-MULT-ADD), literally ‘also/even a single time’, which would express ‘never’ under a negative predicate.

- (41) (...) *ká* *heess-á* *méxx-o* *man-ch-iihá-a*
 ADN.PROX.M.ACC story-M.ACC single-M.OBL people-SGV-M.DAT-ADD
ku’ll-im-bá’a.
 tell.MID-[1SG.]NIPFV-NEG
 ‘(...) I have not told this story to anybody (lit. to even a single person).’
 (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 91)

3.3 Negative derivation

Kambaata has a caritive derivational morpheme *-beel*, which generates denominal adjectives with the meaning ‘[N]-less, [not having] N’. It either attaches to the nominal stem or the genitive form and is followed by the case and gender markers *-ú* (M)/*-íta* (F) in the citation form (accusative). Treis (2008: 277) has too hastily characterized the caritive derivation as “seldom used”,²⁷ whereas Alemu’s (2016) dictionary shows that it is in fact fairly productively applicable – at least in a certain genre, namely written texts (including schoolbooks) (42).²⁸

- | | | | | | |
|------|------------------------|----------------------------|---|----------------|-------------|
| (42) | <i>bonx-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘leafless, without leaves’ | < | <i>bonx-á</i> | ‘leave(s)’ |
| | <i>muum-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘hairless, without hair’ | < | <i>muumm-í</i> | ‘hair’ |
| | <i>seer-beel-ú(ta)</i> | ‘illegal, without rules’ | < | <i>seer-á</i> | ‘rule, law’ |

The use of the caritive derivation in speech remains little attested, and clausal constructions of the type ‘which does not have N’ are clearly preferred. Furthermore, most caritive adjectives attested in my written corpus are best considered semantically transparent adhoc creations and the result of the generalization of a hitherto only weakly productive derivational schema. Examples of caritives that are not adhoc creations but widely shared across the speech community are given in (43). Note that many of these established caritives are lexically idiosyncratic derivations.

²⁷In Treis (2008), the label “privative” rather than “caritive” is used for the derivation with *-beel*.

²⁸Alemu (2016) alone contains 128 different caritive adjectives, most of which are used in the monolingual definitions.

(43)	<i>wol-beel-ú(ta)</i>	‘countless’	<	<i>woll-úta</i>	‘counting, number’
	<i>wozan-beel-ú(ta)</i>	‘forgetful’ (lit. heartless)	<	<i>wozan-á</i>	‘heart’
	<i>su’mm-beel-é²⁹</i>	‘first week of July’ (lit. nameless)	<	<i>su’mm-á</i>	‘name’
	<i>maq-ee-beel-úta</i>	‘pregnant’ (lit. powerless)	<	<i>maq-ée F.GEN</i>	‘of power’
	<i>hagar-beel-ú(ta)</i>	‘indescribable, uncategorizable, ugly’ (lit. without type)	<	<i>hagar-á</i>	‘type’
	<i>man-beel-(ch)³⁰-ú(ta)</i>	‘foreign, without relatives in the area’ (lit. without people)	<	<i>mann-á</i>	‘people’

Kambaata does not have an adposition or a case marker expressing ‘without’. Hence absence is expressed in a negative converb clause or a circumstantial relative clause as ‘not having seized N’ (44) or as ‘N not being present’.

- (44) *Meqqéerr-at úull-a úb-b huur-á*
 afterbirth-F.NOM ground-F.OBL fall-3F.PFV.CVB dirt-M.ACC
af-f-ú’нна ke’-áa-ba’a.
 seize-3F-NEG.CVB get.up-[3F.]IPFV-NEG
 ‘When the afterbirth falls to the ground, it does not get up without dirt
 (lit. without having seized dirt).’ (Proverb, Alamu & Alamaayyo 2017: 113)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The negation of a final main or relative verb generally has scope over a preceding same subject general converb – e.g. *beeqq-am-éen* in (45).

- (45) (...) *nugguss-áan-ch-u he’-áni-yan maal-á*
 circumcise-AGT-SGV-M.NOM live-[3M.]IPFV.CVB-DS meat-M.ACC
beeqq-am-éen it-éenno-ba’a.
 share.MID-PASS-3HON.PFV.CVB eat-3HON.IPFV-NEG
 ‘(...) if there is a (newly) circumcised (boy in the household), one (does

²⁹The case/gender-morpheme *-é* is the accusative morpheme of the largest declension of feminine proper nouns (Treis 2008: 103).

³⁰The *-ch*-morpheme marks the singulative.

not) share the meat among (the family members) and does not eat it (together).’ (Recorded conversation, EK2016-02-23_001)

The scope of negation is often narrowed down to a specific constituent (an NP, a clause etc.) through a cleft construction (46); see also (66). The focussed constituent is the non-verbal predicate (marked by a copula), which is negated by *-ba(’a)* (NEG); the backgrounded part of the sentence is expressed in a headless, nominative-marked relative clause.

- (46) *Lag-áakk-at kaa’ll-ittaa’i-i(hu) maranch-áa*
 river-PLV-F.NOM be.used-3F.IPFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM transport-F.DAT
xall-íiha-ab-ba’a.
 only-M.DAT-COP.ID-NEG
 ‘The rivers are not only used for the transport (of goods).’ (lit. ‘It is not only for the transport that the rivers are used.’) (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.: 3.54)

Whereas all the examples presented so far in this chapter show that the inflectional negators are affixed to the predicate, an ellipsis construction from a recorded conversation and elicited data triggered by this natural example prove that the standard negator can also directly attach to (pro)noun phrases in order to restrict the scope of negation (47).³¹

- (47) *Antab-eechch-úta min-í aag-ís-i, gamball-áb-ba’a,*
 chicken-SGV-F.ACC house-M.ACC enter-CAUS-2SG.IMP black-F.ACC-NEG
wojj-úta!
 white-F.ACC
 ‘Bring the hen into the house; not the black one, the white one!’ (Elicited 2019)

4.2 Negative polarity

The additive-marked indefinite pronouns discussed in §3.2 can count as negative polarity items, as they cannot be used in affirmative, non-free choice contexts, e.g. in reference to specific individuals, as in *Someone was looking for you*.

³¹As pointed out to me by an anonymous reviewer, languages are often more liberal in the placement of negative markers in ellipsis constructions than in independent clauses, e.g. *I invited John but not Bill* vs. **I invited not Bill*.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Case marking (§1.2) is not affected under negation. Other effects that negation may have on the marking of NPs, e.g. the possible interaction between negation and the use of various pragmatically determined focus and attitude morphemes, have not yet been examined and would make an interesting subject for future research.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation is reinforced by the adverbials *hór-a(-n)* (48) or *hór-a-nii* (49), which are oblique case forms of the adjective *hor-á* (M)/*hor-áta* (F) ‘all’. The bracketed *-n* is a focus morpheme (EMPH) whose functional range is yet to be investigated; *-nii* is an allomorph of the additive morpheme. The adverbials are used in positive contexts to express ‘all, completely’; under a negative verb, they are translatable as ‘not at all, really not, definitely not, never’. Alternatively, the synonymous *hinát-e-n* (totality-M.OBL-EMPH) ‘at all’ can be used (30).

- (48) *Hór-a-n dag-g-im-bá’a (...). Hór-a hór-a*
 all-M.OBL-EMPH know-2SG-NIPFV-NEG all-M.OBL all-M.OBL
dag-g-im-bá’a.
 know-2SG-NIPFV-NEG

(One player to another in a riddling session:) ‘You have no clue (...), so so wrong!’ (lit. ‘You don’t know at all, at all!’) (Recorded conversation, TH2003-06-04_xinkuta)

- (49) *Aat-teenantá=r-u hór-a-nii*
 give-2PL.IPFV.REL=NMLZ-M.NOM all-M.OBL-ADD
kot-ún-ka-’nne.
 lack-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-2PL.OBJ

‘May you never/not at all lack the means to give (food, support etc. to people)!’ (Blessing on the *masaala*-holiday, Volunteered 2003)

There is one context in which the adverbial *hór-a-nii* is attested as inherently negative, namely as a one-word answer to a question (50).

- (50) A: *Hoosáan-u Halaab-íichch qée’rr-a-a-ndo?*
 PN-M.NOM PN-M.ABL far-M.PRED-M.COP.ASC-Q
 ‘Is Hosaina more distant than Halaaba?’

B: *Hór-a-nii!*

all-M.OBL-ADD

‘Not at all!’ (Volunteered 2015)

A negated verb can also be reinforced through a verbal noun copy, as in (51). The verbal noun is marked for the accusative case, which does probably not mark it as a direct object in this particular example but rather as an adverbial adjunct (§1.2).³²

- (51) (...) etar-îin-tâ-s yóo Sabir-ó dag-ú<n>ka
behind-M.ICP-LNK-3M.POSS COP.EX.3M.REL PN-M.ACC notice-M.ACC
dag-im-bá'a.
notice-[3M.]NIPFV-NEG
'(...) it (= the leopard) did not at all notice Sabiro (lit. did not notice
noticing Sabiro), who was standing behind it.' (Kambaata Education
Bureau 1989 E.C.: 8.23)

Kambaata's third strategy to reinforce a negative clause is through an experiential perfect construction (Treis 2021: 327–331), which expresses 'have (n)ever (once) VERB-ed' (52). The construction consists of a perfective converb plus a phonologically independent, non-inflecting element *kása* 'ever', or plus an inflected verb *kas-* 'do ever'. The converb and the adjacent 'ever' constitute a periphrastic verb form that cannot be separated by an intervening constituent.

- (52) *Hitt gaararéem-at kará xúud-d*
 ADN.PROX.F.NOM chameleon-F.NOM PRO.PROX.M.PL.ACC see-3F.PFV.CVB
kása-ba'a.
 ever-NEG
 'The chameleon had never seen these (animals).' (Recorded conversation,
 TD2016-02-11_001)

The positive construction is predominantly used in questions ('Has SBJ ever VERB-ed?'), as in the first part of (53); it is rarely attested in declarative clauses, where it stresses that SBJ has as only VERB-ed once, as in the second part of (53).

- (53) A: *Ajjoor-í faam-á xúud-d kása?*
 PN-M.GEN waterfalls-M.ACC see-2SG.PFV.CVB ever
 ‘Have you ever seen the Ajjoora falls?’

³²Even intransitive verbs can take verbal noun copies, which suggests that the latter is not a direct object.

- B: *Áā, xúujj kása.*
 yes see.[1SG.]PFV.CVB **ever**
 ‘Yes, I have seen them (only) once.’ (Volunteered 2021)

The negative construction is most common in declarative clauses (‘SBJ has never/not once VERB-ed’) (52). The time in which the subject never VERB-ed is usually the span of their existence (‘never (in SBJ’s life time)’) (52), but may also be a period from a given starting point onward, e.g. the time when the addressee in (54) promised to call.

- (54) *Mexx-é dawwal-tóont, dawwal-áamm y-ít*
 single-MULT call-2SG.PFV call-1SG.IPFV say-2F.PFV.CVB
ba’-óont hikkannúichch ka=b-á
 disappear-2SG.PFV PRO.MED.M.ABL PRO.PROX.M.ACC=PLC-M.ACC
dawwál-t kása-ba’a.
 call-2F.PFV.CVB **ever-NEG**
 ‘You called (me) once; (then) you said “I will call (again)”, (but) you disappeared, and up to now you have never called (again).’ (Volunteered 2017)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Kambaata does not have any special negative coordinators. Main, complement and adverbial clauses are coordinated with the additive morpheme (ADD) irrespective of their polarity; see the coordinated benedictive clauses in (55) and the coordinated verbal noun clauses in (56). In the same way as other modifiers in the noun phrase, relative clauses are coordinated with *-na* (COORD), irrespective of their polarity; in (56), the gods are modified by a negative and an affirmative relative clause in coordination.³³

- (55) *Maadd-u-’né-e horajj-áata*
 eating.place-M.NOM-2PL.POSS-ADD all.times-F.ACC
haráar-u-nii gáa’nn-u-nii.
 be(come).wide-[3M.]BDV-ADD be(come).fat-[3M.]BDV-ADD
hór-a-n xuqq-ún-ka-nii
 all-F.OBL-N be(come).narrow-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-ADD

³³Compare with the coordination of two affirmative relative clauses in (13).

qac-ún-ka-nii.

be(come).thin-[3M.]JUSS-NEG.JUSS-ADD

‘And may your eating place always be wide (i.e. with many family members) and fat (i.e. with plenty of food); may it never be narrow and thin.’
(Blessing on the *masaala*-holiday, Volunteered 2003)

- (56) (...) *it-iihá-a* *hansuus-iihá-a* *dand-it-umb-ú³⁴-na*
eat-M.DAT-ADD smell-M.DAT-ADD be.able-3F-NEG.REL-M.ACC-COORD
(...) *mann-í* *ang-áan* *wez-eemmá* *kiil-á*
people-M.GEN hand-M.ICP make-3HON.PFV.REL sorcery-F.GEN
magan-n-aakk-áa *saggad-deen[án]ta.*
god-PLV-PLV-F.DAT prostrate-2PL.IPFV

‘(...) you will prostrate before gods that cannot (...) eat and smell, and that were made by human hands (...)’ (Deuteronomy 4: 28; lit. translation from the Kambaata version) (The Bible Society of Ethiopia 2023)

Contrastive negation is expressed by two main clauses conjoined with the conjunction *bagáan* ‘but’ (CNTR), which belongs prosodically to the first clause. The possible pause is indicated by (.) in (57) and similar examples. Mostly, the second clause is negated (‘p but not q’), as in (57)³⁵ – note, however, that in an idiomatic English translation the order of clauses is reversed (‘not q but p’). The conjunction *bagáan* is not inherently negative and also used to contrast two affirmative clauses.

- (57) *Kúun* *búud-u* *yóo-si-a*
PRO.PROX.M.NOM horn-M.NOM COP.EX.3M-3M.OBJ.REL-M.COP.ASC
hambúl-a ***bagáan*** (.) *hóol-ch-u-ta-ba’a.*
ram-M.PRED CNTR sheep-SGV-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC-NEG
‘This is not a ewe but (this is) a ram with horns.’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 14)

Kambaata does not have inherently negative subordinators. See §2.4 for information on the negation of subordinate clauses.

³⁴It is unclear why the masculine marker is used here, although the head of the NP is feminine.

³⁵Cf. (11), (14) and (15). See, however, (21) for a contrastive example in which the first clause is negative.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negation through inference

There are (at least) two constructions that regularly invite a negative inference even in the absence of an overt negative morpheme. The first construction contains the equative demonstrative (and by extension: intensifier) *kank-á* ‘that much/many; very much/many’. If used predicatively (lit. ‘it is that/very much’) (58), the demonstrative often invites a negative interpretation (‘it is not that/very much’) (see also Treis 2019: 195).

- (58) *Gíir-at katam-í mann-íi aass-itáa tám-it*
 fire-F.NOM town-M.GEN people-M.DAT give-3F.IPFV.REL use-F.NOM

kánk-a-anta.

that.much-F.PRED-F.COP.ASC<EMPH>

‘The use that fire has (lit. gives) for townspeople is not that much (lit. is that much).’ (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.: 4.56)

The apprehensive verb form (Treis forthcoming) is a fully grammaticalized main verb paradigm that is used in warnings of looming dangers and in threats (59a-59c).

- (59) a. *bu<m>bókkoomm*
 burn<1PL>APPR
 ‘(take care, otherwise) we might burn’
 b. *eeb-bókkooont*
 bring-2SG.APPR
 ‘(take care, otherwise) you might bring/cause (something)’
 c. *ag-ókkoo-kke*
 drink-3M.APPR-2SG.OBJ
 ‘(take care, otherwise) (it) might drown (lit. drink) you’

Whereas the second person apprehensive can be used as a warning of an imprudent realization of an undesirable event, as in (59b), it is also very common to employ the second person apprehensive as a negative command and thus as synonymous to the negative imperative (§2.2.1). See (60), where the second person apprehensive and the negative imperative occur in the same context, and Treis (forthcoming: §3.3) for details.

- (60) *Bookk-íta it-téen-oochch-iyye; (...) resh-á-ssa-n*
 pigs-F.ACC eat-2PL-NEG.IMP-2PL.IMP carcass-M.ACC-3PL.POSS-EMPH
ul-teenókkooonta.
 touch-2PL.APPR
 ‘Don’t eat pork; (...) don’t touch their carcasses.’ (Deuteronomy 14: 8; lit. translation from the Kambaata version) (The Bible Society of Ethiopia 2023)

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Kambaata does not have a dedicated strategy for metalinguistic negation. Instead, as (61) proves, the contrastive construction (cf. 57) is employed. The disputable word choice is negated in clause 2.

- (61) *Wóm-m-at gashsh-itáa bagáan (.) mát-ua=rr-íi*
 king-PLV-F.NOM reign-3F.IPFV CNTR one-M.OBL=NMLZ-M.GEN
ann-á ik-káa-ba’a.
 owner-M.ACC be(come)-3F.IPFV-NEG
 (The businessman interrupts the little prince mid-sentence and corrects his word choice:) ‘They rather “reign over” (their kingdom); kings do not “own” anything.’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 47)

A different conversational pattern equivalent to metalinguistic negation is illustrated in (62). A does not negate B’s word choice, as in (61), but first quotes it in a question. The preferred wording is then expressed in an isolated *bagáan*-clause.

- (62) *Árr-u fúll-ee’u y-áano-ndo? Hór-a buss-áyyoo*
 sun-M.NOM come.out-3M.PRF say-3M.IPFV-Q all-M.OBL burn-3M.PROG
bagáan.
 CNTR
 (A says: ‘The sun is shining (lit. has risen).’ – B corrects A’s word choice.)
 ‘The sun is not shining but really burning.’ (lit. ‘Does one say “The sun has come out”? Rather “(It) really burns.”’) (Elicited 2019)

4.6.3 Non-negative use of negative constructions

This section discusses two non-negative uses of negative constructions. Firstly, the fossilized 3M perfective converb form, *hóogg* lit. ‘(he) not being’, of the lexically negative verb *hoog*- ‘not do’ (§2.5) serves as a disjunctive between phrases and clauses (‘or’), especially in locally produced written material (63), where it is

possibly triggered by the need to find a handy translation for Amharic *wäy* ‘or’ in Kambaata.

- (63) (...) *mán-ch-u-s* *shuma'-anó* *j-áata*
 people-SGV-M.NOM-DEF pee-3M.IPFV.REL time-F.ACC
hóogg *wól-e* *gajaajj-óon* *mal-á-s*
 not.do.[3M.]PFV.CVB other-F.OBL reason-F.ICP pustule-F.ACC-DEF
úll (...)
 touch.[3M.]PFV.CVB
 ‘(...) when the person pees or when he touches the pustules for another
 reason (...)’ (Kambaata Education Bureau 1989 E.C.: 6.133)

Kambaata has a construction that bilingual speakers regularly translate as a negative question in English. It is marked by question intonation and the morpheme *-bay* (64). However, questions marked by *-bay* are not intended to solicit an answer. They are possibly best characterized as rhetorical questions and are, as such, also found in the middle of monologues. They can express (i) a strong expectation on the side of the speaker that the addressee will fully agree, (ii) the speaker’s surprise that the addressee has expressed the opposite, forgotten about something or not realized something obvious (64), or (iii) the speaker’s comment about a surprising encounter or discovery (65). So even though the construction comes in the form of a negative question, it is a strongly non-negative assertive statement.

- (64) *Ayichch-é=b-a* *mán-n* *shaf-an-tóo*
 Mum-F.GEN=PLC-M.ACC go-1PL.PFV.CVB churn-PASS-3F.PFV.REL
az-úta *a<n>gim-báy?!*
 milk-F.ACC drink<1PL>NIPFV-*bay*
 (A asks B to explain to her what “churned milk” is. B is surprised by the
 question and says:) ‘Remember, we drank churned milk when we went to
 Mum’s place!’ (lit. ‘Didn’t we drink churned milk when we went to
 Mum’s place?!’) (Volunteered 2019)
- (65) A: *Xáh-u* *waal-áyyoo-bay?!*
 issue-M.NOM come-3M.PROG-*bay*
 ‘Oh, (here/now) comes the problem!’
 B: *Āā* (...).
 yes
 (Comment from the audience during a recording of a narrative) ‘Yes,
 (...)’ (B explains the turning point of the story again.) (Recorded
 conversation EK2016-02-12_003)

The morpheme *-bay* is possibly segmentable into the standard negator *-ba* (§2.1) plus an undetermined *-y*. However, even though speakers tend to translate it as a negative interrogative in English or provide it as a rough equivalent of the *-ba-ndo*-form in (9–10), the categorization of *-bay* as a negator is not entirely certain. On the one hand, it is attested after the non-imperfective morpheme *-im* (64), which is an aspect category exclusive to negative polarity (recall Table 3), and thus this combination is an argument in favor of interpreting *-bay* as a negator. On the other hand, *-bay* is also attached to progressive verbs (65), where the standard negator never occurs. Furthermore, *-bay* can combine with an already negated verb, the result being a double negative question (lit. ‘Wasn’t it not by chance?’), which serves as a strongly assertive negative statement (66), often after a surprising discovery (e.g. ‘Oh, it was not by chance!’). If the standard negator (NEG) in (66) were dropped, the sentence would again be an assertive affirmative statement (lit. ‘Wasn’t it by chance?’ for ‘Oh, it was by chance!’).

- (66) (...) *qée’rr-aa=bb-aan maran-t-áni-yan*
 far-M.OBL=PLC-M.LOC walk-2SG-IPFV.CVB-DS
gambá=y-inoommí-i(hu) áda
 meet=say-1PL.PFV.REL-NMLZ.M.NOM DM
dangítt-a-ne-eb-ba-bay?!
 chance-M.OBL-LNK-COP.ID-NEG-*bay*
 (Speaker realizes that he was mistaken:) ‘So it was not by chance that you were walking along in this remote place (...)?!’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 82)

There are two possible positions of *-bay*: It can be suffixed to the main predicate (64–66) or a focused constituent (67). In the latter case, the sentence-final predicate undergoes final vowel-lengthening whose functional motivation is not yet clear.

- (67) *Tá abbabbáann-uta mann-aakk-á=g-a-bay*
 ADN.PROX.F.ACC grown.up-F.OBL people-PLV-F.GEN=SIMV-M.OBL-*bay*
haasaaww-itáyyoonti-i?!
 talk-2SG.PROG-VV
 (Speaker surprised:) ‘You talk *like the grown-ups!*’ (de Saint-Exupéry 2018: 28)

4.6.4 Diachronic notes and observations

The diachrony of the Kambaata negative morphology is still unexplored. A study of verbal negation in Highland East Cushitic (Treis 2012b) has shown that the languages apply fairly divergent means of standard negation. There are four non-cognate standard negators: (i) Hadiyya -*yyo*, Libido -*ssho*, (ii) Kambaata and Alaaba -*ba'(a)*, K'abeena -*ba*, Gedeo -*baa* and -*bo'*, (iii) Sidaama *di=*, and (iv) Burji -*ey'i*. Given that the Highland East Cushitic languages are closely related, some standard negators must be fairly recent innovations. Negators with initial *b* are found in the standard negation of Kambaata, Alaaba, K'abeena and Gedeo as well as in Hadiyya and Libido, which have a dedicated negative existential verb *bee'e* 'not exist'. *Bee'e* is probably cognate with Kambaata -*ba'(a)* (NEG). Sasse (1982: 22) expresses the tentative hypothesis that the Highland East Cushitic negators with initial *b* are "borrowed from Omotic" – but without providing any supporting evidence.

5 Summary

The five negative inflectional suffixes of Kambaata are summarized in Table 10.

Table 10: Summary of inflectional negators in Kambaata

Negator	Function	Section
- <i>ba'(a)</i>	Negation of declarative main verbs	§2.1
	Negation of non-verbal predicates	§2.3
	Constituent negation	§4.1
'- <i>oot</i>	Negation of imperatives	§2.2.1
'- <i>ka</i>	Negation of jussive and benedictives	§2.2.2
- <i>u'nnáachch</i> ~ - <i>u'nnáan</i> ~ - <i>ú'nná</i>	Negation of perfective and imperfective converbs	§2.4.1
- <i>umb</i>	Negation of relative verbs	§2.4.2
	Negation of purposive verbs	§2.4.2

Non-morphological means, i.e. periphrases with a lexically negative verb, are needed to negate verbal nouns. As shown in §2.1 and §2.3, only negated imperfective main verbs and non-verbal predicates are fully symmetrical to their affir-

mative counterparts. Everywhere else the following paradigmatic asymmetries are observed:

- Reduction or neutralization of aspectual distinctions – see non-imperfective main verbs (§2.1), converbs (§2.4.1) and relative verbs (§2.4.2).
- Reduction of the set of subject indexes – see non-imperfective main verbs (§2.1) and relative verbs (§2.4.2).
- Neutralization of a modal distinction – see jussives/benedictives (§2.2.2).
- Neutralization of the same subject/different subject distinction – see converbs (§2.4.1) and purposive verbs (§2.4.3).

The following constructional asymmetries are observed:

- Different means of subject indexing:
 - Type 1: Bipartite subject indexing is reduced to simple subject indexing – see non-imperfective main verbs (§2.1) and relative verbs (§2.4.2).
 - Type 2: Covert subject indexing in the affirmation vs. overt subject indexing in the negation – see imperatives (§2.2.1).
- Optional object marking in the negation, but incompatibility of object marking in the affirmation – see converbs (§2.4.1).
- Fully verbal morphology in the affirmation, but verb-adjective hybrids in the negation – see relative verbs (§2.4.2).
- Neutralization of the distinction between relative-based and purposive-based purpose verb forms (§2.4.3).

Apart from inflectional means of negation, Kambaata has a productive caritative derivation *-beel* ‘-less’ that generates adjectives on the basis of nouns (§3.3). Kambaata has no negative indefinite pronouns and instead uses additive-marked interrogatives and quantifiers to express ‘nobody, nothing, nowhere etc.’ under negation (§3.2).

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Abbreviations

1	first person	IPFV	imperfective
2	second person	JUSS	jussive
3	third person	LNK	linker
ADN	adnominal	LOC	locative
ABL	ablative	M	masculine
ACC	accusative	MED	medial
ADD	additive	MID	middle
AGT	agentive	MIT	mitigator <i>-la</i>
APPR	apprehensive	MULT	multiplicative
ASC	ascriptive (copula -(h)a(a) (M)/-ta(a) (F))	n.a.	not attested
ASSOC	associative plural	NEG	negator
BAY	rhetorical question	NIPFV	non-imperfective
BDV	benedictive	NMLZ	nominalizer
CAUS	simple causative	NOM	nominative
CNTR	contrastive	OBJ	object
COND	conditional	OBL	oblique
COP	copula	ORD	ordinal
COORD	coordinative	PAL	palatalization
CVB	converb	PASS	passive
DAT	dative	PFV	perfective
DEF	definite	PL	plural
DS	different subject	PLC	place
E.C.	Ethiopian calendar	PLV	plurative
EMPH	emphasis	PN	proper noun
EX	existential (copula)	POSS	possessive
F	feminine	PRAG	<i>-be</i> -suffix (function yet to be determined)
GEM	gemination	PRED	predicative
GEN	genitive	PRF	perfect
GLOT	glottonym	PRO	pronominal
HON	honorific (impersonal)	PROG	progressive
ICP	instrumental- comitative-perlative	PROX	proximal
ID	identificational (copula -Vt)	PST	past
IDEO	ideophone	PURP	purposive converb
IMP	imperative	Q	question
		RED	reduplication
		REL	relative

SBJ ₁	first subject index	SS	same subject
SEQ	sequential	STD	standard (negator)
SG	singular	VOC	vocative
SGV	singulative	VV	vowel lengthening
SIMV	similative, manner nominalizer		

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Chapter 5

Negation in Siwi

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The paper focuses on the description of negation in Siwi, a Berber (Afroasiatic) language spoken in Siwa (Egypt). The Siwi negative system in declarative main clauses is strikingly symmetric, if compared to other Berber languages. Symmetry is also found between declaratives and non-declaratives, as they share the same negative marker. The paper explores many aspects of the system, including negation in non-main clauses and non-verbal predications. The final part presents some diachronic notes and a short comparison with some other Berber languages.

Keywords: Siwi Berber, Egypt, Afroasiatic, negation, typology.

1 The language

Siwi (ISO: siz, Glottocode: siwi1239) belongs to the Berber language family (Afroasiatic phylum). Berber languages are spoken in Morocco, Algeria, Tunisia, Libya and Egypt, as well as in Mauritania, Mali, Niger and Burkina Faso. Siwi is the only Berber language spoken in Egypt. Its speakers are concentrated in two oases: Siwa and El Gara. These two oases are located in the Western Desert and are very close to the Libyan border. The main oasis, Siwa, is inhabited by over 30,000 people, including Siwi, Bedouins and Egyptians who have come from other parts of the country, and settled in the oasis mainly for work. Siwi people are almost all bilingual, as the vast majority of the population speaks Bedouin and/or Egyptian Arabic as well as Siwi.

There is almost no dialectal variation between the different parts of the oasis. Small differences can be found between the Siwi spoken in Siwa and the one in El Gara, though data on the latter are scarce (Schiattarella 2017: 102–109). The



language is influenced by different strata of Arabic in many parts of its grammar (Souag 2013).

Internal classification is still a matter of debate among Berberologists, but Siwi is oftentimes considered a language which shares many aspects with Sokna and El Fogaha (Libya), as well as with the Zenatic group (Souag 2013; Kossmann 2020). A description of some aspects of Siwi's negation system can be found in the first grammar of Siwi by Laoust (1931: 48–49), but also in Leguil (1986), Vycichl (2005: 224, 230, 244), Souag (2013: 209–214) and Schiattarella (2015).

Some grammatical features of Siwi are particularly important – as unique within Berber – and others are also typologically rare. Among them, the stress shift¹ on nouns as a means to code – together with other functions – definiteness and indefiniteness, and the presence of a special series of suffixes for demonstratives that agree in gender and number with the addressee. Unlike most Berber languages, there is no state distinction on nouns in Siwi. The language has a distinct class of adjectives. Its verbal system is based mainly on three stems: perfective, imperfective and aorist. The perfect of result, based on the perfective, is absent in most Berber languages. More details are given in §2.1. Subject affixes are obligatory on verbs, and lexical subjects co-referent with those affixes are rarely present. No postpositions are synchronically attested. In order to modify a noun, the genitive preposition *n* 'of' can be used before a noun (possessor), an adjective and a relative clause in adnominal, adjectival and relative clause constructions, respectively. Relative clauses are postnominal, and the presence of a relativizer depends on the nature of the relative clause (descriptives require no relativizer, restrictives do). Word order is syntactically and pragmatically determined when only one noun is present. When two nouns are lexically expressed in constructions with transitive verbs, the only attested order is AVO (Mettouchi & Schiattarella 2018).

There are two ways negation can be marked in Siwi: the prefix *la-* negates verbs and members of several other grammatical categories and is also found in the negative nominal coordination (*la... la*), while the negative marker *ačči/ qačči* (Laoust 1931; Vycichl 2005: 244; Souag 2013: 210) is used for some non-verbal clauses and for contrastive/metalinguistic negation. *ula* is the pro-sentential negation marker, but it can also be found in other contexts. The functions of these markers in different domains will be analysed in detail in the following sections. Diachronic and comparative notes will be given in §4.6.3 and concluding remarks in §5.

¹Stress ['] will only be marked in examples taken from spontaneous discourse. A stress that falls on a long vowel will be marked only by [ː].

The data for this article were collected by the author over the course of several fieldwork trips and through online sessions between 2011 and 2022; collection methods mainly included recordings of spontaneous data (monologues and dialogues of variable length) and elicitation sessions with both male and female speakers of different ages.

The paper is based on the negation questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). All examples come from my corpus.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Aspectual forms relevant for verbs in Siwi (as in all other Berber languages) include the perfective, the imperfective and the aorist. Two additional verb forms based on the perfective and the imperfective stems, but featuring a suffix *-a* that follows all other suffixes (subject, object and dative indexes when present), are also attested.

Without going into many details, it can be useful to recall here that, irrespective of the time frame (it can have present and past reference), the perfective is mainly used in narratives, for processes that only take place once or are seen as completed, and with stative verbs. The imperfective is used for habitual, iterative and frequentative actions, while the aorist is mainly found for the hypothetical, future, irrealis, potential and optative, but also for actions repeated in block (see example (8) below). The perfect of result (based on the perfective) focuses on the result and establishes a pragmatic link with what precedes it. The imperfective *-a* in the affirmative is rare and is used when the event or process expressed by the verb is concomitant with another (see Souag 2013: 197–199; Schiattarella 2019).

Negation is conveyed by the addition of the negative prefix *la-* only, see (1) for perfective, (2) for imperfective, (3) for perfect of result and (6) for aorist. Negation of the imperfective *-a* (4) is not attested.

When *la-* is prefixed to the verb and it precedes a vowel, some phonetic changes take place: it is reduced to *l-* or it triggers an assimilation between the *a-* of the negative prefix and the following vowel or semi-vowel (*i*, *u* and *y* only). Both possibilities are exemplified with the perfective stem in (1).

(1) Perfective

Affirmative		Negative	
		a + u > o	
a.	usi-x come\PFV-1SG 'I came.'	*la-usi-x > l-usi-x / lo-si-x NEG-come\PFV-1SG 'I did not come.'	
		a + i > e	
b.	if-ax find\PFV-1SG 'I found.'	*la-if-ax > l-if-ax / le-f-ax NEG-find\PFV-1SG 'I did not find.'	
		a + y > ey	
c.	yə-čča 3SG.M-eat\PFV 'He ate.'	*la-yə-čča > l-yə-čča / le-yə-čča NEG-3SG.M-eat\PFV 'He did not eat.'	

(2) Imperfective

- a. *əttasi-x*.
come\IPFV-1SG
'I am coming.'
- b. *l-əttasi-x*.
NEG-come\IPFV-1SG
'I am not coming.'

(3) Perfect of result

- a. *usi-x-a*.
come\PFV-1SG-PRAG
'I have come.'
- b. *l-usi-x-a*.
NEG-come\PFV-1SG-PRAG
'I have not come.'

(4) Imperfective -a

- əttasi-x-a...*
come\IPFV-1SG-PRAG
'(While) I was coming...'

Negative imperfective-*a* is not found in my corpus and rejected by the speakers in elicitations.

The aorist stem is always preceded by the irrealis marker *ga-*. Souag (2013: 187) mentions the occasional variant *?a-*, which “may be a retention of *a(d)*,² or just a shortening of *ga-*”. This form is not attested in my corpus, probably because of its low frequency. The prefixation of *ga-* involves the same phonological changes seen before with *la-*, see (5). Both forms are attested in my corpus.

- (5) a. **ga-usi-x* > *g-usi-x* / *go-si-x*
 IRR-come\AOR-1SG
 ‘I will come.’
 b. **ga-if-ax* > *g-if-ax* / *ge-f-ax*
 IRR-find\AOR-1SG
 ‘I will find.’
 c. **ga-yə-čč* > *g-yə-čč* / *ge-yə-čč*
 IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR
 ‘He will eat.’

The aorist with *ga-* in the affirmative corresponds to two negative forms, both featuring the prefixation of *la-*. Examples in (6) show them both: the first example in the negative is where *la-* precedes *ga-*, the second where *la-* precedes the prefix *a-* only (dropping of *g*). In contrast to those seen before, the latter form entails more phonetic changes (vowel lengthening).

(6)	Affirmative	Negative	
			<i>la- + a- + C = lā</i>
a.	<i>ga-t-usəd</i> IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR ‘She will come.’	<i>la-ga-t-usəd</i> NEG-IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR ‘She will not come.’	<i>lā-t-usəd</i> NEG\IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR
			<i>la- + a- + u = lō</i>
b.	<i>g-usi-x</i> IRR-come\AOR-1SG ‘I will come.’	<i>la-g-usi-x</i> / <i>la-go-si-x</i> NEG-IRR-come\AOR-1SG ‘I will not come.’	<i>lō-si-x</i> NEG\IRR-come\AOR-1SG
			<i>la- + a- + i = lē</i>
c.	<i>g-if-ax</i> IRR-find\AOR-1SG ‘I will find.’	<i>la-g-if-ax</i> / <i>la-ge-f-ax</i> NEG-IRR-find\AOR-1SG ‘I will not find.’	<i>lē-f-ax</i> NEG\IRR-find\AOR-1SG
			<i>la- + a- + y = lēy</i>
d.	<i>g-yə-čč</i> [<i>ge-yə-čč</i>] IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR ‘He will eat.’	<i>la-g-yə-čč</i> / <i>la-ge-yə-čč</i> NEG-IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR ‘He will not eat.’	<i>lē-yə-čč</i> NEG\IRR-3SG.M-eat\AOR

²The prefix *a(d)* is the most widespread preverb for the aorist in Berber.

Perfective and aorist stems are, synchronically, not distinguished morphologically in both the affirmative and negative domains – except for a restricted class of verbs, such as CəC (*fəl* ‘leave’, *wən* ‘mount’), əCC (*əčč* ‘eat’) and VC (*uš* ‘give’). When the irrealis marker *ga-* is dropped in the negative, the vowel lengthening is the only way of distinguishing the perfective form from the aorist, compare (7a) and (7b).

- (7) a. *la-t-usəd*.
 NEG-3SG.F-come\PFV
 ‘She did not come.’
 b. *lā-t-usəd*.
 NEG\IRR-3SG.F-come\AOR
 ‘She will not come.’

Following Miestamo’s (2005) terminology, it can be said that the Siwi negative system in declarative main clauses only shows a slight paradigmatic asymmetry: while most verbal clauses form their negative by prefixing the negative marker only, there is no one-to-one correspondence as far as the imperfective *-a* and the aorist are concerned. The former is indeed not attested in the negative and the latter corresponds to two different forms in the negative.

Other paradigmatic asymmetries are also found in terms of distribution. Although the negation of the *ga*-aorist is attested, its semantic functions in the negative domain are not the same as in the affirmative. As mentioned above, the aorist can be used in the affirmative in the domain of the irrealis (future, possibility, probability, hypothetical, etc.), but also for a series of actions that repeat in blocks (Leguil 1986: 100) (i.e. in recipes, where each step takes place once, but the whole procedure needs to be repeated in its entirety every time one wants to prepare the same dish again). Often, the referent is generic: see example (8) in which the speaker explains what everybody does every year during the Eid celebration.

- (8) *kull əğğān g-yá-yṛəs* *iyéd* / *g-yá-čč-ən*
 every one\M IRR-3SG.M-slaughter\AOR male_goat\SG.M / IRR-3-eat\AOR-PL
 / *g-yá-sw-ən*.
 / IRR-3-drink\AOR-PL
 ‘Everyone slaughters a male goat, (then) they eat and they drink.’

When the aorist is used in the negative, it never expresses this latter function (the imperfective is used instead). The *ga*-aorist in the negative domain is

only used when the speaker wants to express his/her evaluation that something hypothetical could be realized, or for the future, as in (9).

- (9) *kan t-om t-uṭá / əlmušklát / aḥəḡḡáḡ*
 if DEM\F-2SG.F 3SG.F-fall\PFV / problem\SG.F / pilgrim\SG.M
g-yá-ṛṛmut / múmken lō-səd / aštáqəd
 IRR-3SG.M-die\AOR / maybe NEG\IRR.(3SG.M)-come\AOR / belief\SG.M
yáʔni / aḥəḡḡáḡ daw-óm hánta / g-yá-ṛṛmut.
 I_mean / pilgrim\SG.M DEM\M-2SG.F what / IRR-3SG.M-die\AOR
 ‘If it [the stick] falls, it is a problem (i.e. bad luck). The pilgrim might die,
 he may not come back. I mean, it is a belief. What [happens] to the
 pilgrim? He might die.’

Nevertheless, the *ga*-aorist is obligatory, in both the negative and affirmative domain, when it follows the complementizer *anni* introducing a purpose clause (see §2.4).

Contrary to many other Berber languages (see §4.6.3), in Siwi, object and dative indexes always follow the verb (and its subject affixes), even in the presence of the negative marker *la-*, as in (10).

- (10) *la-t-uš-as-t.*
 NEG-3SG.F-give\PFV-DAT\3SG-DO\3SG.M
 ‘She did not give it to him/her.’

As far as frequency is concerned, there is a much higher percentage of verbs in the affirmative domain than in the negative, which is not at all surprising, as the negative is not merely the opposite counterpart of the affirmative, but differs from it in a number of ways. Affirmatives are usually pragmatically different from negatives: affirmatives are considered to be present as background knowledge and negatives take longer to process (Givón 1978, Horn 1989, Miestamo 2005).

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

As in declarative clauses, *la-* is used also to mark negation in non-declarative ones. Imperative uses the aorist (11a), while prohibitive uses the imperfective stem (11b).

- (11) a. *əffay!*
 go_out\AOR.IMP
 ‘Go out!’

- b. *la-təffay!*
 NEG-go_out\IPFV.IMP
 ‘Do not go out!’

In this respect, there is symmetry between declaratives and imperatives in marking negation, because they both use the negative marker *la-*, but there is asymmetry between affirmative and negative imperatives, because, besides *la-*, the prohibitive uses a different aspectual stem (see Miestamo & van der Auwera 2007 for different types of (a)symmetries between declarative and imperative clauses in other languages).

The function of the prohibitive is to prevent something from happening or to ask for something that is already happening to stop, see (12).

- (12) *tə-bdú* *aglás.* / *yə-ṛṛṛ-ás* *lá-gəlləs.*
 3SG.F-start\PFV cry\VN / 3SG.M-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG-cry\IPFV.IMP
 ‘[The woman] started to cry. [The Christian] said to her: “Don’t cry.”’

The hortative uses the first person plural form of the *ga*-aorist as in (13).

- (13) *gá-n-fəl!*
 IRR-1PL-leave\AOR
 ‘Let’s leave!’

The negation of the hortative is made through the prefixation of *la-* only, see (14).

- (14) *lá-ga-n-fəl!*
 NEG-IRR-1PL-leave\AOR
 ‘Let’s not leave!’

The jussive is a rare form which uses the aorist stem and the prefix *ədda-*, see (15).³ It is used mainly with first and third persons. This form cannot be negated.

- (15) *ədda-t-úsəd* *ssra* *bádri / áčči dəgyát.*
 JUSS-3SG.F-come\AOR morning early / NEG evening
 ‘Let her come in the morning, not in the evening.’

³This form is called by Souag (2013: 192–193) “suggestative”, because it is also found in contexts where the speaker suggests something, but at the same time asserts their indifference to the action being accomplished. See also Prasse (1973: 13) on the Tuareg jussive (*injonctif* in French) and references to forms with similar functions in other Berber languages.

There are no special constructions for negative interrogatives, as shown by (16a) and (16b).

- (16) a. *xsi-t?*
 want\PFV-2SG?
 ‘Do you want?’
 b. *lá-xsi-t?*
 NEG-want\PFV-2SG?
 ‘Don’t you want?’

Oftentimes, negative interrogatives are used when the speakers rather aim at an affirmative interpretation, as in (17).

- (17) *lá-zri-t* *agg^wíd* / *yə-flá* *s* *əgdá*.
 NEG-see\PFV-2SG man\SG.M / 3SG.M-leave\PFV from here
 ‘Didn’t you see a man, he left from here...?’ (meaning ‘Did you see a man...’)

In cases where the question is a way to ask for the addressee’s attention, the question tag *nola*, which is a merger of *na* ‘or’ and *ula* ‘no’, is used.

In example (18), the speaker, after listing different kinds of food in Siwa, asks me if I am happy with what she is telling me and then continues her narration.

- (18) *ssn-át-a* *aksúm* *yə-qqúr-a?* /
 know\PFV-2SG-PRAG meat\SG.M 3SG.M-be_dry\PFV-PRAG /
i-ħállay-am *nóla?* / *g-yə-ŋmár-ən-t*
 3SG.M-be_happy\IPFV-DAT\2SG.F or_not / IRR-3-do\AOR-PL-DO\3SG.M
yə-qqúr-a.
 3SG.M-be_dry\PFV-PRAG
 ‘Do you know the dried meat? Are you happy or not? They make it dry.’

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Affirmative equative and proper inclusion predications in Siwi simply feature juxtaposition of the subject and the predicate. Their negative counterparts (examples (19) and (20)) feature the insertion of the negative marker *ačči/qačči*, which is used also for negative contrastive focus with nouns, adjectives and verbs (see §4.1).

- (19) *šəm áčči wəltmá.*
IDP.2SG.F NEG sister\SG.F
'You are not my sister.'
- (20) *nátta áčči limám.*
IDP.3SG.M NEG imam\SG.M
'He is not an imam.'

Similarly to equative and proper inclusion predication, attributive predication also features juxtaposition of the subject and the adjective. The adjective can be in its basic form (21a) or followed by the suffix *-a* (22a). Negative attributive negation is achieved in both cases through the prefixation of *la-*, as in (21b) and (22b).

- (21) a. *bass ənnhárdin əddbáš kwayysən.*
but in_the_past thing\SG.M good\PL.M
'But in the past things were good.'
- b. *əlgaw lá-kwayyəs.*
weather\SG.M NEG-good\SG.M
'The weather is not good.'
- (22) a. *ənnhárdin / isiwan taḥkikt-a.*
in_the_past / Siwa small\SG.F-PRAG
'In the past, Siwa was small.'
- b. *asúni n şýārən la-sahíl-a.*
lift.up.VN of wood\PL.M NEG-easy\SG.M-PRAG
'Lifting up the wood is not easy.'

A third possibility is for adjectives to be combined with the genitive preposition *n* 'of' (see Schiattarella 2020 for the different functions of these three possibilities). In those cases, the referent having the property expressed by the adjective is in contrast with referents which do not have that property (or have a different one) or the property is considered as being exceptional or unexpected. In example (23), the speaker talks about different types of houses, pointing at the big one and mentioning, afterwards, that smaller ones exist as well.

- (23) *agbən daw-om n azəwwar.*
house\SG.M DEM-2SG.F of big\SG.M
'This house is big.'

In both attribution and predication, adjectives combined with *n* ‘of’ cannot be negated.

Locative predication features the juxtaposition of the subject and the locative phrase. The negative counterpart inserts the negative marker *ačči/qačči*, as in (24).

- (24) *šəm áčči g ágbən.*
IDP.2SG.F NEG in house\SG.M
‘You are not in the house.’

Existential predication is expressed through the invariable particle *di/di-(y)a* ‘there is’. The suffix *-(y)a* is used when the speaker wants to intensify the actuality of the predication (Schiattarella 2019: 173), as shown in (25).

- (25) *di inuwán / al ámra dí-ya.*
EX well\PL.M / until now EX-PRAG
‘There are some wells... Until now there are, indeed (two which still have water).’

Possessive predication uses the preposition *yur* ‘at’ to which a pronoun indicating the possessor is suffixed, as in (26).

- (26) *agbán-sən n azáwwar yúr-əs sátti n tiyárfə.*
house\SG.M-POSS/3PL of big\SG.M at-3SG six of room\PL.F
‘Their big house has six rooms.’

Negative existential (27) and possessive predication (28) use *la-* (*la-di*; *la-yur-*), when negated:

- (27) *lá-di šal l-í-rah.*
NEG-EX country\SG.M NEG-3SG.M-go\PFV
‘There was no place he did not go.’
- (28) *ənšní g əddáffa / la-yúr-i ankán.*
IDP.1PL in desert\SG.M / NEG-at-1SG place\SG.M
‘(Talking to someone in search for a place to hide) “We are in the desert, I don’t have any place...”’

Negative existential predication is used mainly to express the absence of an entity (of something *la-di šra*, or someone *la-di hədd*) (Veselinova 2013), as in (29).

- (29) *tyára nnúba i-rəḃbát-ən / lá-di tyára*
 bread\PL.F all 3-be_wet\PFV-PL / NEG-EX bread\PL.F
yə-qquṛ-ín-a.
 3-be_dry\PFV-PL-PRAG
 ‘The pieces of bread were all wet, there were no dry pieces of bread.’

la-di-(y)a is not attested. The function of the negative existential predication (absence) is incompatible with the function of *-(y)a* after *di*. This suffix, which can be attached to several grammatical categories, including verbs and adjectives, as seen in examples (3) and (22), is used to mark pragmatic relevance (Schiattarella 2019): in the case of existential predications, it marks the actuality of the predication. It is indeed often used in replies, when someone asks if something is present or when the fact of something being present is questioned and needs confirmation. By contrast, negative existential predications are used to assert the absence of an entity, with no presupposition of their existence in mind.

Reinforcing negative existential and possessive predication will be dealt with in §4.4.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In Siwi, subject and non-subject relative clauses use the same verbal form as independent clauses (compare (30a) and (30b)), and no change is involved in the negation, apart from the addition of the negative marker. This differs from most Berber languages, see §4.6.3.

- (30) a. *tálti tən t-sáwal*
 woman\SG.F REL 3SG.F-speak\IPFV
 ‘the woman who speaks’
 b. *tálti tən lá-t-sawal*
 woman\SG.F REL NEG-3SG.F-speak\IPFV
 ‘the woman who does not speak’

The complementizer *anni* introduces complement clauses. Some verbs allow non-finite complement clauses, but only when the subject of the main and the complement clauses is the same (for instance, *xəs* ‘want’ allows finite and non-finite complement clauses, while *bdu* ‘start’ allows non-finite complement clauses, preceded or not by the preposition *i* ‘to’).

Negation of non-finite complement clauses is not attested in my corpus, and the finite form of the verb is used instead (31c). Both finite (31b) and non-finite

(31a) complement clauses are allowed in the affirmative, but only finite ones in the negative (31c).

- (31) a. *xsi-x aččú.*
 want\PFV-1SG eat\VN
 ‘I want to eat.’
 b. *xsi-x gá-čč-ax.*
 want\PFV-1SG IRR-eat\AOR-1SG
 ‘I want to eat.’
 c. *xsi-x lá-ga-čč-ax.*
 want\PFV-1SG NEG-IRR-eat\AOR-1SG
 ‘I don’t want to eat.’

It is nevertheless more common to negate the verb in the main clause, as in (32).

- (32) *lá-xsi-x gá-čč-ax.*
 NEG-want\PFV-1SG IRR-eat\AOR-1SG
 ‘I don’t want to eat.’

When the complementizer *anni* introduces purpose clauses, the *ga*-aorist form is obligatory, in both the affirmative and the negative (33).

- (33) *i-ħaṭṭú-n-as tisánt dabb anni lá-g-yə-ʕfən.*
 3-put\IPFV-PL-DAT\3SG salt\SG.F a_lot COMP NEG-IRR-3SG.M-putrify\AOR
 ‘They will add a lot of salt, so that (the meat) will not putrify.’

The negative form of the aorist preceded by *a-* only (dropping of *g*) is often attested in the negative in the context of purpose clauses, as in (34).

- (34) *ga-ħaṭṭ-ax ssukkár kóm-a msabb šahín n ttáni /*
 IRR-put\AOR-1SG sugar\SG.M a_lot-PRAG because tea\SG.M of second /
anni lē-yə-ʕmaṛ azáy.
 COMP NEG-IRR-3SG.M-do\AOR bitter\SG.M
 ‘I will add a lot of sugar, because it is the second tea, so that it does not become bitter.’

Example (33) is one of the very few cases in my corpus where the preverb *ga-* is used after *la*, when the complementizer *anni* introduces purpose clauses. Nevertheless, since both forms are attested in this environment, it is not possible to talk about asymmetry.

2.5 Negative lexicalization

Examples of negative lexicalizations are treated in different sections of this chapter, especially §3.2, §3.3 and §3.4.

The verb *ugay* is translated as ‘refuse, forbid’, see (35).

- (35) *fátk-i* *a* *bénti* / *t-ugáy.*
open\PFV.IMP-DAT\1SG VOC my_girl / 3SG.F-refuse\PFV
‘“Open up for me, girl.” She refused.’

The verb *yləb* is translated as ‘cannot, not be able to’, see (36).

- (36) *nə-yləb* *ga-nə-hhəl* *ləmšakəl-ənnax*.
 1PL-cannot\PFV IRR-1PL-solve\AOR problem\PL.M-POSS\1PL
 ‘We could not solve our problem.’

Lubah 'it is unlikely, probably not' is formally a negative third person singular perfective (*l-(y)-ubah*), and it is invariable in its adverbial function, see (37).

- (37) A: *di teni g aṭil*
 EX date\SG.F in garden\SG.M
 ‘Are there dates in the garden?’
 B: *lubah ya-ṣṣy-ən-tit-a.*
 probably_not 3-take\PFV-PL-DO\3SG.F-PRAG
 ‘Probably not, they took them.’

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Polar questions in Siwi feature final vowel lengthening and higher pitch. The negative reply uses the pro-sentential marker *ula*, while the positive uses *ah*, or *aywa* (Arabic) or the lateral click ⟨l̥⟩. Negative replies are also conveyed by *aʔa*, also used to ask someone to stop doing something and by the dental click ⟨ɭ⟩, often repeated twice.

A negative reply can confirm a negative question or reverse the content of an affirmative question, see (38) and (39).

- (38) Q: *lá-sawal-at* *isiwan?*
NEG-speakIPFV-2SG Siwi
'Don't you speak Siwi?'

A: *ulá.*

NEG

‘No, (I don’t)!’

(39) Q: *sáwal-aṭ isíwan?*

speak\IPFV-2SG Siwi

‘Do you speak Siwi?’

A: *ulá.*

NEG

‘No, (I don’t)!’

There is no need to confirm through the verb a positive reply to an affirmative question (40) or a negative reply to a negative or affirmative question (38–39).

(40) Q: *sáwal-aṭ iṭáli?*

speak\IPFV-2SG Italian

‘Do you speak Italian?’

A: *ah.*

yes

‘Yes.’

In order to reverse the content of a negative question, one can reply with both the affirmative or negative marker, but confirmation must be added through the affirmative form of the verb (41–42).

(41) Q: *lá-ḥḥi-ṭ i təṭ?*

NEG-go\PFV-2SG to source\SG.F

‘Didn’t you go to the source?’

A: *ah ḥḥi-x-a.*

yes go\PFV-1SG-PRAG

‘Yes, I went!’

(42) Q: *lá-ḥḥi-ṭ i təṭ?*

NEG-go\PFV-2SG to source\SG.F

‘Didn’t you go to the source?’

A: *ulá ḥḥi-x-a.*

NEG go\PFV-1SG-PRAG

‘No, I went!’

If the speaker confirms the negative content of the question, the affirmative *ah* ‘yes’, rather than *ula*, can be used, but it needs to be followed by a negative form of the verb, as in (43).

- (43) Q: *lá-sawal-aṭ* *iṭáli?*
NEG-speak\IPFV-2SG Italian
‘Don’t you speak Italian?’
A: *ah lá-sawal-ax.*
yes NEG-speak\IPFV-1SG
‘(Yes), I don’t speak (it).’

Contrary to (41), when reversing the content of an affirmative question, only *ula* (as in (39)) can be used and/or the verb in its negative form (as in (44) and (45)).

- (44) Q: *ḥḥi-t* *i tət?*
go\PFV-2SG to source\SG.F
‘Did you go to the source?’
A: *ulá la-ḥḥi-x-a.*
NEG NEG-go\PFV-1SG-PRAG
‘No, I did not go.’
- (45) *ḥḥi-t-a* *yən ágg^wid dawá / n wíhin / wən*
go\PFV-2SG-PRAG to man\SG.M DEM\SG.M / of whatsit / REL
i-zánzu ləqmáš / agg^wid la-kwayyás? /
3SG.M-sell\IPFV fabric\PL.M / man\SG.M NEG-good\SG.M /
tə-ṁṁ-as la-ḥḥi-x-a. /
3SG.F-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG-go\PFV-1SG-PRAG /
‘“Did you go to the man, whatsit, the one who sells the fabric, the untrustworthy man?” She said to him: “I did not go.”’

When the negative marker is repeated several times, *la* is used instead of *ula*, as shown in example (46).

- (46) *yə-ṁṁ-as la la la ḥḥi-t-a. /*
3SG.M-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG NEG NEG go\PFV-2SG-PRAG /
tə-ṁṁ-as la-ḥḥi-x-a. //
3SG.F-say\PFV-DAT\3SG NEG-go\PFV-1SG-PRAG //
‘He said to her: “No, no, no, you went (there)...” She replied: “I did not go.”’

3.2 Negative indefinites, adverbs and quantifiers

The numeral *əḡḡən* ‘one’ functions as an indefinite pronoun in Siwi. It can also be used in the negative, preceded by the morpheme *la-* (apart from my corpus, an example of this is also found in Walker 1921: 80). In example (47), both the indefinite pronoun and the verb are negated by *l(a)-*.

- (47) *l-əḡḡən l-yə-ssən hánta i-tṣāra.*
 NEG-one\M NEG-3SG.M-know\PFV what 3SG.M-happen\IPFV
 ‘No one knew what happened.’ (lit. ‘No one did not know what happened.’)

Otherwise, in the preverbal position, the negative existential construction is used (Haspelmath 1997; Veselinova 2013), followed by *ḥədd*, as in (48). This is a borrowing from Arabic ‘one, person’ widely used in both Berber and Arabic in negative contexts (Chaker & Caubet 1996).

- (48) *lá-di ḥədd g-í-rah i šáli / lá-di*
 NEG-EX person\SG.M IRR-3SG.M-go\AOR to citadel\SG.M / NEG-EX
ḥədd g-í-rah i mmraqíyət.
 person\SG.M IRR-3SG.M-go\AOR to Maraqui
 ‘Nobody would go to the citadel, nobody would go to Maraqui.’ (lit. ‘There is no one who would go...’)

Alone (without the existential predication), it cannot appear in preverbal position, meaning ‘nobody’: if the indefinite pronoun follows the verb (49), the negative marker *la-* on the verb is required, and *ḥədd* appears without any negative exponent (in line with the NegEarly principle, see van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy 2016, which is also the case of example (48), where *la-* is on the existential *di* ‘there is’, rather than on the noun).

- (49) *lā-fətk-f-as albáb i ḥədd.*
 NEG\IRR-open\AOR-1SG-DAT\3SG door\SG.M to person\SG.M
 ‘I will not open the door to anyone.’

The element *ḥədd* can also be used in affirmative contexts (see example (50) and §4.2). In the affirmative, the indefinite pronoun *əḡḡən* can be used as well, and in some cases it can be referential (51).

- (50) *ənnhárdin / makənni yə-ṛṛmút hədd / g isíwan /*
in_the_past / when 3SG.M-die\PFV person\SG.M / in Siwa /
təltáwen i-šərrx-ən / d i-háttu-n iyád g
woman\PL.F 3-yell\IPFV-PL / and 3-put\IPFV-PL ash\SG.M in
əşşbaḥ-ənsən.
face\SG.M-POSS\3PL
 ‘In the past, when/if somebody died in Siwa, women yelled and used to put ash on their faces.’

- (51) *afənni tə-zwár / tə-ŋǵáf əǧǧən sǝg líbya.*
when 3SG.F-grow\PFV / 3SG.F-marry\PFV one\M from Libya
 ‘When she grew up, she married a guy from Libya.’

When the speaker wants to emphasize the negation, *hidda* is used instead of *hədd*, as in (52).

- (52) *lā-fətk-ŋ-as i hidda!*
NEG\IRR-open\AOR-1SG-DAT\3SG to nobody\SG.M
 ‘I will not open (the door) to anyone!’

Differently from *hədd* which can be used also in the affirmative, *hidda* is only used in negative contexts (after a negative marker or in elliptical answers) (minimal-unit expression, Haspelmath 1997: 227–228), see (53).

- (53) Q: *báttin yə-ččá tyára?*
who 3SG.M-eat\PFV bread\PL.F
 ‘Who ate the bread?’
 A: *hidda.*
nobody\SG.M
 ‘Nobody.’

The elements *hədd* and *hidda* are both negative indefinites, as pointed out by van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy 2016, who consider this kind of pronouns as negative despite the fact that 1) the negation is conveyed also by other negative exponents, and 2) *hədd* can appear (and actually is more frequent) in affirmative contexts. Elliptic answers, like (53), have special features that make it possible to express a negative meaning, even if the pronoun is not *per se* negative, and there is no other negative exponent (van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy 2016: 476–478). The only difference, in Siwi, is that in the case of elliptical answers, only the emphatic negative indefinite *hidda* can be used.

‘Nothing’ is formed through the negative marker *la-* and the word *šra* or, rarely **ħhila* ‘thing’: *la-šra* / *la-ħhila*. Contrary to *šra*, **ħhila* is not attested anymore and only appears with the prefix *la-* (or *ula-*, see §3.4).

When *šra* follows a negative clause (verbal or non-verbal), it may (54b and 54d) or may not (54a and 54c) be preceded by the negative marker *la-*. In the former case, *la-* translates as ‘not even’.

- (54) a. *lá-di šra.*
 NEG-EX thing\SG.M
 ‘There is nothing.’
 b. *lá-di lá-šra.*
 NEG-EX NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘There is not even a single thing.’
 c. *lá-xsi-x šra.*
 NEG-want\PFV-1SG thing\SG.M
 ‘I don’t want anything.’
 d. *lá-xsi-x lá-šra.*
 NEG-want\PFV-1SG NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘I don’t even want a single thing.’

The same applies to ‘nowhere’ which uses the word *ankan* ‘place’ after another negative exponent (in example (55a), the negative form of the verb). In parallel to what happens to *šra*, if *ankan* is preceded by *la-*, it translates as ‘not even’. In example (55b), the allative preposition *i* ‘to’ is also omitted.

- (55) a. *lá-ħhi-x i ankán.*
 NEG-go\PFV-1SG to place\SG.M
 ‘I did not go anywhere.’
 b. *lá-ħhi-x l-ankán.*
 NEG-go\PFV-1SG NEG-place\SG.M
 ‘I did not even go to a single place.’

In general, the same distinction is found with nouns, as we will see in §4.4. The negative marker is nevertheless obligatory in elliptic answers, see (56).

- (56) Q: *ta yúr-əm?*
 what at-2SG.F
 ‘What do you have?’ (i.e. ‘What is wrong with you?’)

A: *lá-šra!*
 NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘Nothing!’

‘Never’ is expressed through the Arabic loan *abdan* or with the verb in its negative form and *əx^wra* ‘again’ and/or *xaləš* ‘extremely’, see (57), which can also be used in affirmative contexts.

- (57) *lā-zɾ-a-šəm* *xələš* *əx^wrá.*
 NEG\IRR-see\AOR-1SG-DO\2SG.F extremely again
 ‘I will never see you again.’

‘Never’ can also be expressed by the Arabic loanword *marrawahda* ‘ever’ (Souag 2013: 127).

The Arabic loanword *mazal* is used in both negative (58) and affirmative contexts (59). This is cross-linguistically common (Veselinova & Devos 2021; Veselinova & Asplund 2020), as they are both continuative of an existent (‘still’, positive polarity) or non-existent (‘not yet’, negative polarity) situation (van Baar 1997; van der Auwera 1998).

- (58) *n wən yə-nɾ-ín-a* *d n wən mazál l-yə-nɾ-ín-a.*
 of REL 3-bake\PFV-PL-PRAG and of REL yet NEG-3-bake\PFV-PL-PRAG
 ‘those which were baked and those which were not baked yet’
- (59) *šəm mazál / tləččá n slátɿin.*
 IDP.2SG.F yet / girl\SG.F of yesterday
 ‘You are still a young girl (lit. a girl of yesterday).’

The prefix *la-* is also used to negate the quantifiers *kom* ‘a lot’, *dabb* ‘many’ and *ħabba* ‘a bit’. It must be noted that *la-dabb* and *la-ħabba* are present in my corpus only in elicitations.

3.3 Privative marking

Privative marking uses the preposition *bla* ‘without’, see (60). It is widely considered to be Arabic in origin: Classical Arabic *bi-lā* = Egyptian Arabic *bala* (Souag 2013: 170).

- (60) *tə-mməál* *əngr-ax* *əğğət n ssənt* *bla tarwá.*
 3SG.F-say\PFV live\PFV-1SG one\F of year\SG.F without give_birth\VN
 ‘She said: “I stayed one year without giving birth.”’

3.4 Other negative constructions/expressions

Two expressions use the negative marker *ula* instead of *la*, when negating a noun: *af ula-ħħila* ‘for no reason’ (Souag 2013: 210) and *af ula-šra* ‘for nothing’ (Schiattarella 2015), as in (61).

- (61) Q: *tádi fātma t-gálləs?*
 why fatma 3SG.F-cry\IPFV?
 ‘Why is Fatma crying?’
 A: *af ulá-šra.*
 on NEG-thing\SG.M
 ‘For no reason.’

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

When the scope of negation has to be narrowed to a specific constituent, the negative marker *ačči/qačči* is used, for both contrastive focus or metalinguistic negation. The latter will be dealt with in §4.6.1. This negative marker can be placed before verbal (62), nominal (63), pronominal, adverbial or adjectival (64) predicates: in all such cases, its function is to oppose the presuppositions that may be held by the speaker and/or the addressee.

In example (62), the speaker talks about the role of old women, who also act as teachers to small children.

- (62) *qáčči ət-təmm-əsən tanfás w xlaš.*
 NEG 3SG.F-say\IPFV-DAT\3PL tale\PL.F and stop
 ‘It was not only about telling them stories (she also transmitted a pedagogical message).’

The same notion of contrast can be found when this negative marker precedes a noun or an adjective, see (63) and (64).

- (63) *w-om əlfattát / ačči ənnhás.*
 DEM-2SG.F silver\SG.F / NEG copper\SG.M
 ‘This is silver, not copper.’
 (64) *tálti tat-óm áčči tašmált.*
 woman\SG.F DEM\F-2SG.F NEG bad\SG.F
 ‘This woman is not bad.’ (Replying to someone who thinks she is)

Example (65) is taken from a recording in which the speaker is talking about the role of women in Siwa and claims that Siwi women do not need to work, according to their customs. At the same time, she comments that it would be better to reconsider this assumption, given that Siwi women actually do work, even if their occupation concerns house chores and childcare.

- (65) *tálti t-xáddəm / qáčči lá-t-xáddəm /*
 woman\SG.F 3SG.F-work\IPFV / NEG NEG-3SG.F-work\IPFV /
t-xáddəm g ágbən.
 3SG.F-work\IPFV in house\SG.M
 ‘The woman works, it is not that she does not work, (because) she works
 at home (taking care of the house, of the children...).’

4.2 Negative polarity

The indefinite pronoun *ħədd* ‘one, person’, see §3.2, can be identified as a negative polarity item as it is found mostly in negative contexts or in conditional clauses introduced by *kan* or *mak(-ənni)* ‘if’, as in (66). The variant *hidda* is only used in negative contexts.

- (66) *kan ħədd yə-xsá aħáṭṭi mági / g-yə-ħħaṭṭ.*
 if person\SG.M 3SG.M-want\PFV put\VN stock\SG.M / IRR-3SG.M-put\AOR
 ‘If anyone wants to put in a stock cube, he will.’

For the negative polarity item *qatṭ/qəṭṭ* ‘ever, at all’ of Arabic origin (Souag 2009), see §4.4.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

No special marking of NPs in the scope of negation is attested in my data.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The verb *ṣmaṣ* ‘do’ has several grammatical functions in Siwi, among which the possibility of encoding emphasis on what follows: a verb, an existential or a possessive predication. In this case, the verb is a third person singular masculine imperfective.

In order to reinforce the existential or possessive predication, the negative form of this verb is used, see (67) and (68).

- (67) *kan fəkk-r-āt-a* / *l-i-fəmmar* *di ššyul* *g*
 if remember\PFV-2SG-PRAG / NEG-3SG.M-do\IPFV EX job\SG.M in
áššef.
 summer\SG.M
 ‘If you remember, there is no work (at all) during summer.’

The elicited example in (68) shows the difference between the reinforced possessive predication and the simple negative possessive predication. Indeed, the speaker points out that greengrocers do not sell olive oil and that regular grocery shops do not sell meat. The difference between the two is that in the first case, the impossibility of buying olive oil is categorical, while in the second case, one might be able to buy some sort of meat, such as minced meat (though meat is regularly sold at the butcher’s shop).

- (68) *əddəkkan n ləxɖar* *l-i-fəmmar* *yur-əs*
 shop\SG.M of fruit_and_vegetable\PL.M NEG-3SG.M-do\IPFV at-3SG
əddhan / kəllamənni əddəkkan la-yur-əs aksum.
 oil\SG.M / on_the_contrary shop\SG.M NEG-at-3SG meat\SG.M
 ‘The greengrocer definitely does not have oil, while the grocery shop does not have meat.’

The negative polarity item *qatt/qətt* ‘ever, at all’ is used to reinforce negative statements, see (69).

- (69) *l-yə-xsa* *asiwəl* *did-i* *qatt.*
 NEG-3SG.M-want\PFV speak\VN with-1SG at_all
 ‘He does not want to talk to me at all.’

As seen in §3.2, the indefinite pronoun *hidda* is used instead of *hədd* as an emphatic negative pronoun and differently from the latter, it can only be used in negative contexts. Example (52) is repeated in (70) for practical reasons.

- (70) *lā-fətk-f-as* *i hidda!*
 NEG\IRR-open\AOR-1SG-DAT\3SG to nobody\SG.M
 ‘I will not open (the door) to anyone!’

A noun can be preceded by *la*, mainly with negative existential predications (as in (71)), but also after a negative verb. In this case, *la* functions as a scalar particle ‘not even’. Sometimes, *hətta* ‘even’ from Arabic, also used in affirmative contexts (Souag 2013: 214, 220) is used instead.

- (71) *lá-di la əlməsɾəb / ənni g-yə-ħħ-ən í zdat.*
 NEG-EX NEG road\SG.F / COMP IRR-3-go\AOR-PL to in_front_of
 ‘There was not even a road in order for them to go in front (of it).’

If more than one noun is present, *la* is used for negative coordination, see §4.5.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negative verb coordination uses the morpheme *ul(a)-* (Schiattarella 2017: 54), see example (72).

- (72) *ħħi-x i əʃɾuʃ / ul-əčč-i-x d ul-əswi-x.*
 go\PFV-1SG to wedding\SG.M / NEG-eat\PFV-1SG and NEG-drink\PFV-1SG
 ‘I went to the wedding, I did not eat, nor did I drink.’

Negative nominal coordination (as in example 73) uses *la*.

- (73) *yə-ħlay-anáx-a / lá-di la aṭṭáw / la*
 3SG.M-be_happy.PFV-DAT\1PL-PRAG / NEG-EX NEG light\SG.M / NEG
əntərnét / la əddbáš n w-i-(y)ók.
 internet\SG.M / NEG thing\SG.M of DEM-PL-2SG.M
 ‘We were happy (because) there wasn’t any electricity, or internet, or any other such things.’

While *la* is the most common marker of negative coordination (74a), *ula* is not excluded. It can, indeed, precede the second nominal item of the coordination (74b) or both of them (74c). All three sentences in (74) have the same reading.

- (74) a. *la-təčč-ax la aksum la ġġəbnət.*
 NEG-eat\IPFV-1SG NEG meat\SG.M NEG cheese\SG.F
 b. *la-təčč-ax la aksum ula ġġəbnət.*
 NEG-eat\IPFV-1SG NEG meat\SG.M NEG cheese\SG.F
 c. *la-təčč-ax ula aksum ula ġġəbnət.*
 NEG-eat\IPFV-1SG NEG meat\SG.M NEG cheese\SG.F
 ‘I eat neither meat nor cheese.’

Alternatively, (*la*)... *wala* (*wa* ‘and’ in Arabic + the negative marker *la*), can be used. More details about the distribution of *la* and *ula*, not only in the context of negative coordination, in both Berber and Arabic is given in §4.6.3.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation uses the negative marker *ačči/qačči* to correct a wrong statement or the way it is expressed by the speaker or by his/her addressee.

In example (75) the speaker clarifies what his addressee has just said, objecting to how he has presented the situation.

- (75) A: *ámra dáwa kan aṇṇí-t-as i ḥadd asíli*
 now DEM\SG.M if say\PFV-2SG-DAT\3SG to person\SG.M load\VN
agəğǧí n syáran / l-yá-qḍar.
 bundle\SG.M of wood\PL.M / NEG-3SG.M-be_able\PFV
 ‘Nowadays, if you ask somebody (a young boy) to load a bundle of wood, he is not able (to do it).’
 B: *áčči l-yá-qḍar / l-yá-ssan māmək.*
 not NEG-3SG.M-be_able\PFV / NEG-3SG.M-know\PFV how
 ‘It is not that he can’t, he doesn’t know how.’

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives

The negative marker *ačči/qačči* found in most stative predications and in contrastive/metalinguistic negation occurs in one context where it takes a non-negative meaning. It can, in fact, be used when the speaker wants to confirm or agree with what the addressee is saying. It roughly translates ‘Indeed!’, ‘Right!’, ‘Exactly!’.

With this function, it is always followed by the sentence-final discourse particle *ya* ‘you know’, see example (76).

- (76) A: *ásfa dáw-om ləhmú kom!*
 today DEM\SG.M-2SG.F heat\SG.M a_lot
 ‘It is hot today!’
 B: *áčči ya!*
 NEG you_know
 ‘Indeed!’

4.6.3 Diachronic and comparative notes

Laoust (1931: 265) argues that the negative marker *la-* comes from Arabic. In several Arabic varieties, *la* is the negative pro-sentential marker, but can be used

also for the prohibitive (with or without the post-verbal negation, depending on the variety), for oaths, and for negative coordination with nouns or verbs (Caubet 1996: 88–90, Taine-Cheikh 2000). Sometimes, the second term of the coordination is *u la* or *wa la*, where *u/wa* is the Arabic conjunction ‘and’.

Souag (2009, 2013) defends the hypothesis of the Arabic origin of the marker *la*, but he further adds that it is possible to imagine a double etymology (Berber and Arabic), at least in the nominal context. The author motivates this hypothesis showing that in one fixed expression *af ulaħħila* (*ula-ħħila* ‘no-thing’, *af ulaħħila* ‘for no reason’), *ula*, instead of *la*, is used to negate a noun. *ula* ‘not even’ is used to negate nouns in other Berber languages too, like the variety spoken in Mzab (Algeria) and in Tamashek, the latter being very little influenced by Arabic (Souag 2013: 209–210).

The marker *ula* is also found in the Berber variety of Wargla (Algeria), in affirmative contexts, for ‘even’: *ula šək* ‘even you’ (Biarnay 1908: 20, transcription and translation mine). Other varieties (Kabyle, Algeria, At Jennad) make a difference between ‘even’ *la* in affirmative contexts and ‘not even’ *ula* in negative contexts, with some exceptions of *la* being used in the negative too (after a negative verb) or *ula* in affirmative contexts (mainly in hypothetical clauses). *la* is also a coordinative marker in Kabyle, used in both affirmative (‘either... or’) or negative (‘neither... nor’) contexts (the latter only after a negative exponent (Brugnatelli 2010: 403)).

In other varieties, both *la* and *ula* can be used in affirmative contexts, with the same meaning ‘even’ (as in the Beni Snous (Algeria) variety, Destaing 1914: 217). Moreover, in Kabyle, *ula* can occur in the composition of the existential negative predicative marker *ulaš* ‘there is not’, as well as other compounds, i.e. *ulaħədd* ‘there is no one’ (Brugnatelli 2010: 401; Mettouchi 2021: 52).

Table 1 summarizes the use of *la* and *ula* in the nominal domain in some Berber varieties. The list is not exhaustive.

Table 1: Functions of *la* and *ula* in the nominal domain

	Function	Language	NEG	AFF
<i>la</i> (d)	scalar focus particle	Beni Snous, Kabyle (At Jennad)		+
<i>la... la</i>	coordinative marker	Kabyle	+	+
<i>ula</i> (d)	scalar focus particle	Kabyle (At Jennad), Mzab, Tamashek Wargla, Beni Snous	+	+

As far as the verb is concerned, *ula* can be used as a postverbal negation, in Eastern Kabyle (as reported by Brugnatelli 2010: 403–404, citing Rahmani 1939, Rabhi 1992) and in some Western varieties of Tasaḥlit (Algeria, among other markers, Garaoun 2019: 28), for example. It can also be a preverbal negative marker, see Western Rif varieties (Morocco, Lafkioui 2007: 234–235, together with *la-*), Wargla (Algeria, Biarnay 1908: 126–132) and the Western varieties of Tasaḥlit (Garaoun 2019: 28), as shown in Table 2.

Table 2: Functions of *la* and *ula* in the verbal domain

preverbal negation	<i>la-</i> -š, <i>la-</i> -šay	Western Rif
	<i>ula</i>	Wargla, Western Tasaḥlit
	<i>ula-</i> -š	Western Rif
postverbal negation	<i>ula</i>	Eastern Kabyle, Western Tasaḥlit

Brugnatelli recognizes the interference that could arise between Arabic and Berber uses of this marker, also because *la...la* is used as an affirmative or negative coordinative marker (‘either... or’; ‘neither... nor’) in some varieties of Berber, as mentioned before, while *la... la... wala* is only used for Arabic negative coordination (Brugnatelli 2010: 403).

He then proposes to analyse *ula* as *u* (negation element) and *la* (fixed form of the verb ‘be’ that, alone, has the meaning of ‘also, even’ and is used in affirmative contexts in some varieties, as we have mentioned before) (Brugnatelli 2010: 404).

Our corpus shows that *ula* is used for negative verb coordination (‘neither... nor’). In negative nominal coordination both *la* and *ula* are only possible if they follow a negative verb or a negative non-verbal predicator. In the nominal domain, *ula* is used only for negative coordination and in some fixed expressions, while *la* is also used as a scalar particle. Contrary to other Berber varieties, *la* (or *ula*) cannot be used in the affirmative domain, probably because of the interference of Arabic, where *la* is only used in negative contexts.

As suggested by Souag, it is likely that Berber and Arabic have both contributed to the establishment of the current system of Siwi negative markers, where Berber *ula* is restricted to some specific contexts and fixed expressions and Arabic *la* is only used in negative contexts.

The negative marker *ačči/qačči* is also considered to have an Arabic origin by Souag. More precisely, he analyses it as *qaṭṭ* ‘not at all, never’ + *šay* ‘thing’ (Souag 2009).

Just to mention some aspects relevant to the comparison with some Berber varieties, we can notice that Siwi lacks specific negative stems such as the negative perfective and the negative imperfective found elsewhere. The negative perfective is indeed attested in many Berber languages, except for Siwi and for some varieties of Tashelhiyt in Morocco, while the negative imperfective is no longer found in Kabyle, Siwi, Tashelhiyt, some varieties in Central Morocco, and others (Kossmann 2012: 41). Another feature of other Berber languages, which is lacking in Siwi, is the change of position of clitics when there is a negative marker: they are shifted from a post-verbal to a pre-verbal position, right after the negative marker. This change of position is not restricted to negation, but also occurs in other environments, such as relative clauses, after the aorist preverbal particle and after some conjunctions. In the majority of the Berber languages, the negative markers are *wər*, *wəl* and *ul*. Some varieties (Kabyle, Aures, Nefusi, among others) have a post-verbal negation marker in some contexts (as in Kabyle, Mettouchi 2009, 2021).

The asymmetries between affirmative and negative domains, in terms of aspect, vary from one language to the other (for an overview of negation in Berber, see Chaker 1996; Mettouchi 2009, 2010, 2012, 2021).

Subject relative clauses in most Berber languages use a special verbal form, traditionally called participle in Berber studies, characterized by a special series of prefixes and/or suffixes. Depending on the varieties, this form can be a unique form or agree in gender, number and person with the head noun. Analogously, in some varieties, the participle undergoes morphological changes when the negative marker is added (apart from the addition of the negative marker) (see Mettouchi 2017). In Siwi no such form is attested, as mentioned in §2.4.

In Berber, there is also a high degree of variation as far as imperative and prohibitive are concerned. The use of the aorist in the former and the imperfective in the latter is also attested in other Berber languages such as Kabyle, Tarifit and Zenaga (as is shown in the survey by Mettouchi 2021: 68–71; see also Lafkioui 1996; Taine-Cheikh 2011).

Many features present in Berber languages are absent in Siwi because of the Arabic influence, which is particularly evident in this domain. For example, the use of the indefinite pronouns or the absence of dedicated negative stems were probably lost due to the strong influence of Arabic (Souag 2013: 212).

5 Summary

This study has provided a synchronic analysis of negation in Siwi, with additional notes on diachronic and comparative aspects. The standard negation system is characterized by a relatively symmetric structure, with the primary distinction between affirmative and negative contexts being the presence of the preverbal marker *la-* in the latter. The same negative marker is used for non-declarative clauses and certain stative predications, such as attributional, possessive, and existential ones. Other nonverbal predications employ a different negative marker, *ačči/qačči*, which is also used for contrastive/metalinguistic negation. There appears to be no significant asymmetry between negation in main and non-main clauses. Negative replies involve the use of *ula*. The presence of both *la* and *ula* in verbal and nominal contexts is noteworthy, especially considering their implications in terms of historical development and contact with Arabic.

Table 3 summarizes the negation strategies found in Siwi and their functions.

Acknowledgments

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Abbreviations

1	first person	DEM	demonstrative
2	second person	DO	direct object
3	third person	EX	existential
ADJ	adjective	F	feminine
AOR	aorist	IDP	independent pronoun
COMP	complementizer	IMP	imperative
DAT	dative	IPFV	imperfective
IRR	irrealis	NEG	negative
JUSS	jussive	REL	relative marker
M	masculine	SG	singular
PFV	perfective	VOC	vocative
PL	plural	VN	verbal noun
POSS	possessive	/	end of a minor prosodic unit
PRAG	pragmatic relevance marker	//	end of a major prosodic unit

Table 3: Summary of negation in Siwi

Marker	Function	Section
<i>la</i>	Negative declarative clauses	§2.1
	Negative non-declarative clauses	§2.2
	Negative attributive, existential and possessive predication	§2.3
	Negative non-main clauses	§2.4
	Negative pro-sentential marker, only when repeated	§3.1
	Negative indefinites and quantifiers	§3.2
	Before nouns, for emphatic negation	§4.4
	Negative coordination (<i>la... la</i>)	§4.5
<i>ačči / qačči</i>	Negative equative, proper attribution and locative predication	§2.3
	Contrastive focus	§4.1
	Metalinguistic negation	§4.6.1
<i>ačči ya</i>	‘indeed’	§4.6.2
<i>nola</i>	Question tag	§2.2
<i>lubah</i>	‘probably not’	§2.5
<i>ula</i>	Pro-sentential marker	§3.1
	Negative coordination (<i>ula... ula</i>)	§4.5
<i>mazal</i>	‘not yet’	§3.2
<i>abdan, maṛṛawahda</i>	‘never’	§3.2
<i>ħədd, ħidda</i>	Negative polarity item, ‘one, person’	§3.2; 4.2; 4.4
<i>bla</i>	‘without’	§3.3
<i>af ula-ħħila, af ula-šra</i>	‘for no reason’	§3.4
<i>qaṭṭ/ qəṭṭ</i>	Negative polarity item, ‘at all’	§4.4
<i>liṣəmməṛ</i>	Negative emphatic existential and possessive predication	§4.4

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Chapter 6

Negation in Lopit

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Negation in Lopit is mostly constructed with the negative verb /ɲa/ ‘not be’ in a complex clausal construction. This verb is often used in the form /ɲɲa/, with the same form for first, second and third person. However, when used with modal verbs and in subordinated clauses, it has the pronominal prefixes normally used in the language. The form /ɲɲa/ appears to be a fused or lexicalised form of the verb /ɲa/, as is the form /xɔɲa/, which is used in coordinated constructions. Most negative constructions comprise the negative verb /ɲa/ and the lexical verb, which is marked with the subordinating prefix and maintains its person marking. The negative verb is clause-initial, and the lexical verb is placed after the subject to give a NEG SVO word order. It is likely that the negative construction originated as a bi-clausal construction. Nearly all negation involves complex clausal constructions. Even when verbless predications are negated, the negative verb is mostly used with a copula verb. The main exception is with non-locative existential predications, which are negated using the negative verb /ɲɲa/ only, with no copula verb. Negative imperative constructions use the verb /idek/, meaning ‘avoid’ or ‘leave’, in combination with a special prefix /xai-/ on the lexical verb. Negative constructions involving an ongoing or persistive activity use the verb, /nei/, which is an alternate form of /ɲa/.

Keywords: verbal negation, Nilotic, stative predications, imperatives, interrogatives.

1 The language

Lopit (ISO: lpx, Glottocode: lopi1242) is an Eastern Nilotic language of South Sudan, spoken by around 50,000 people living in the Lopit Hills, north-east of Torit in Eastern Equatoria province. It is part of the Lotuxo sub-group of the Lotuxo-Maa languages. Until recently, the Lopit language has received little descriptive



attention. Some observations on Lopit were made by authors working on the related Otuho (Lotuko) language (Muratori 1938) and in comparative wordlist data collected by Driberg (1932) and Vossen (1982). Lopit has only been the focus of linguistic description and documentation in more recent years. The language has six different dialects (Ngaboli, Dorik, Ngutira, Lomiaha, Lohutok and Lolongo), and data collected with speakers of a number of these has led to observations on aspects of Lopit phonetics and phonology (Stirtz 2014, Turner 2001) and morphology and syntax (e.g. Ladu et al. 2014). A major study of the phonetics and phonology of the Dorik dialect of Lopit has been carried out by Billington (2017). A grammar of the Dorik dialect of Lopit has been compiled by Moodie & Billington (2020).

The data in this paper come from extensive fieldwork with Lopit speakers now living in Melbourne, Australia, and, to a lesser extent, living in the Kakuma Refugee Camp in Northern Kenya. The examples in this paper are taken from the transcriptions of the recorded sessions and are examples of the Dorik dialect.

In common with most other Eastern Nilotic languages, the basic constituent order is VSO. Lopit has the feature of advanced tongue root (ATR), which is common amongst Nilotic languages. It also has both lexical and grammatical tone. Tone is used, among other things, to mark the nominative case and to mark aspect. Lopit has two classes of verbs, one in which the root is consonant-initial (Class I) and one which has a root-initial close front vowel (Class II). The verbs have a pronominal prefix which marks the number and person of the subject. This pattern is shown in Table 1. The first, second and third person singular markers (/a-/ , /ɪ-/ , /ɛ-/) are widespread in Nilo-Saharan languages (Greenberg 1966: 86). Note that these are [-ATR] in their underlying form but can be realised differently according to ATR vowel harmony and mid-vowel assimilation processes.

Table 1: Number/person marking for subjects

person	singular	plural
1 st	a-	ɛɪ-, eɪ-
2 nd	ɪ-, i-	ɪ-, i-
3 rd	ɛ-, e-, ɔ-, o-	ɛ-, e-, ɔ-, o-

There is no grammatical tense in Lopit. Temporal reference is made with a small range of adverbs or is determined from the discourse context. There are many inflectional and derivational possibilities for the verb in Lopit. Verbs can be marked for person, number, aspect, modality, voice, directionality and the

presence of causative and applicative derivations. In addition, infinitives, interrogatives and imperatives are marked on the verb. A possible template for Lopit verbal morphology is shown in Figure 1.

initial prefixes	pronominal marker	modal prefixes	aspectual prefixes	causative prefix	root	suffixes
<i>x-</i> Q	person and number of subject (and object)	<i>ηai-</i> IRR	<i>(x)ɪ-</i> PFV	<i>iti-</i> CAUS		<i>-a, -o</i> IPFV
<i>x-</i> SEQ		<i>ma-</i> POT	<i>ηa-</i> PFV			<i>-ità</i> CONT
<i>l-</i> SUB		<i>mai-</i> COND	<i>IV-</i> PERSIS			<i>-(V)k</i> DAT/APPL
		<i>tV-</i> OBLIG				<i>-ri, -ije</i> INSTR
						<i>u, -ni</i> VEN
					<i>-ei, -ri</i> ITV	
						<i>-a, -o</i> MID
						<i>-a, -o</i> DTR

Figure 1: A verb morphology template for Lopit

In this paper, I use broad phonetic transcription in glossed examples and tables. Abbreviations used in glosses are given in the abbreviation list at the end of the chapter. The transcription of vowels in any example reflects the results of any harmony and assimilation processes present. The in-text examples are also given in broad phonetic transcription. Square brackets are used to indicate what was transcribed. Where words or stems are discussed in general terms rather than in an extract from a transcription, they are transcribed without tones, as the tones in any particular utterance depend on a number of factors such as case, aspect, and number. The description of negation in Lopit in this chapter is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and the structure of the chapter follows the model given in the questionnaire.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

A declarative verbal main clause is given in (1). Standard negation of this clause is shown in (2). The negative is expressed with the verb /*na*/. The lexical verb is placed after the subject and is prefixed with the subordinate marker /*l-*/, ‘SUB’.¹

¹The prefix /*l-*/ is used on verbs in a number of environments such as the conditional clause, the relative clause, negative constructions, contrastive focus constructions, and interrogatives. In some situations where the verb has the subordinate marker, it will be in a subordinate clause. This is why the term ‘subordinate marker’ and the gloss ‘SUB’ are used. In other situations, the subordinate marker is used in a clause which may not be subordinate. However, in these cases, the lexical verb with the subordinate marker is not in the unmarked clause-initial position (see Moodie 2019: 271, for further discussion).

The lexical verb [láuú] maintains its first person pronominal marking and the subject maintains its nominative case marking, as shown in (1) and (2).

- (1) á-wú nán à=tòrít
 1SG-go 1SG.NOM to=Torit
 ‘I’m going to Torit.’ (MB1-341 00:01:06)
- (2) ɪpà nán l-á-wú à=tòrít
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit
 ‘I’m not going to Torit.’ (lit. ‘I am not (that) I’m going to Torit.’) (MB1-341 00:01:18)

In the simplest form of standard negation, the negative form /ɪpà/ does not follow the normal pronominal marking paradigm which is shown in Table 1. Constructions such as example (3), with the normal first-person pronominal marking, are not possible. The word /ɪpà/ is used for first, second and third person and I gloss it as ‘not.be’. It might be a lexicalised form, possibly coming from the second person form /ɪ-pà/.

- (3) * a-pà nán l-á-wú à=tòrít
 1SG-not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit
 Attempted: ‘I’m not going to Torit.’ (MB1-015 02:03:25)

In some situations, the pronominal marking for /pà/ does follow the normal pronominal marking paradigm. This can happen when the negative verb is used in subordinate clauses, such as conditional or modal constructions (§2.3) or in focussed constructions (§4.1). Sometimes /ɔpà/ is used in negative constructions instead of /ɪpà/. This happens in interrogatives (§2.2.2) and coordination constructions (§4.5). The pronominal marker /ɔ/ is a third person marker.

The negative /ɪpà/ can be regarded as a verb. The root is /pà/ and this verb behaves like other verbs in that it is clause initial; it is marked for person (sometimes); it takes the subordinate and interrogative markers; and it can be marked for (some types) of mode and aspect.

The use of negative verbs is reasonably common in the world’s languages. In WALS Online, Dryer provides examples of languages with negative verbs (2013). He describes them as “negative auxiliary verbs”, which he defines as negative words which occur with the “inflectional morphology associated with verbs in the language” (Dryer 2013).

In Miestamo’s (2005) classification, standard negation in Lopit can be described as asymmetric with a finite negative verb. Miestamo states that the

“negative verb can be an auxiliary or a higher verb taking a clausal complement” and the “finiteness of the lexical verb is lost or at least reduced” (2005: 81). In most of the examples of auxiliary negative verbs given by Miestamo (2005: 81–87), the lexical verb does not have pronominal marking. In Lopit, however, both the negative verb and the lexical verb are finite in that they both show pronominal marking. The only example given by Miestamo where both verbs are finite is an example from the Salishan language Halkomelem (Galloway 1993: 176, 185), shown in (4). The main difference for this example is that the lexical verb is marked for irrealis (subjunctive).

- (4) Halkomelem (ISO: hur, Glottocode: halk1245, Galloway 1993: 176, 185 quoted by Miestamo 2005: 83)

- a. *lém-cəl*
go-1SG
'I go.'
- b. *ʔáwə-cəl lé-m-əl*
NEG-1SG go-1SG.SBJN
'I do/will not go.'

Negative verbs have also been examined by Payne, who groups them into auxiliary negative verbs and higher negative verbs. In the first group, the negative verb “acts as a finite auxiliary to the lexical verb which in turn typically occurs in some non-finite form” (Payne 1985: 207). The Lopit negative verb cannot be regarded as an auxiliary verb since the lexical verb maintains its pronominal marking, i.e. is finite. In Payne’s other group, the negative verbs take a full sentential complement. This is like Miestamo’s second classification of negative verbs, i.e. “a higher verb taking a clausal complement” as presented above. The Lopit negative verb might belong to this group. For example, in (2), ‘I’m not going to Torit’ could be interpreted as something like ‘I am not that I am going to Torit’, where the expression [lávú à=tòrit] could be a complement clause. Note that the subject maintains its nominative case marking when the negative is formed. That means that one could not interpret the construction in (2) as ‘It is not me that am going to Torit’. Nor could it be interpreted as ‘It’s not that I’m going to Lopit’.² In addition, the use of the first-person pronominal marking in the verb /lawu/

²If the two clauses were the equivalent of ‘It’s not’ and ‘I’m going to Lopit’, the second clause would be [nàn lávú à=tòrit] ‘1SG.ABS SUB-1-go to=Torit’. That is, the first person pronoun would be in the absolutive and not the nominative case, since there is “no case before the verb” in marked nominative languages (König 2006).

means that (2) could not be interpreted as ‘I am not the one (who is) going to Torit’.

This kind of construction also occurs with other words that are derived from auxiliary-like verbs. The word /lɔʔ/ (or /laʔ/) is often used to introduce an adverbial clause as in (5), where it can be translated as ‘when’. It is probably derived from the verb /ʔɔ/, ‘say’ and could be glossed as /l-a-ʔɔ/, (SUB-1SG-say), in (5). It is verb-like in that it marks the subject of the subordinate clause. In addition, the word order differs from the normal vso order and could be described as AUX vso word order. The lexical verb in the subordinate clause is prefixed with the subordinate marker and is placed after the subject. The corresponding independent clause would be [áwú nán à=tòrit], ‘I go to Torit’. Thus, the word /lɔʔ/ (or /laʔ/) shows similar verb-like behaviour to the negative verb in terms of person marking, influence on word order and influence on the use of the subordinate marker on the lexical verb.

- (5) [lájó nán l-á-wú à=tòrit] á-bót nán à=bòlis
 when.1SG 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit 1SG-go.direct 1SG.NOM to=police
 ‘When I go to Torit, I will go straight to the police.’ (MB1-160 00:14:20)

In Lopit, both perfective and imperfective aspect are compatible with negation. Imperfective and perfective constructions with the verb /iwus/, ‘drink (hot liquids)’, are shown in (6) and (7) respectively. This is common amongst the world’s languages (Miestamo & van der Auwera 2011).

- (6) ípà nán l-a-íwús-ò faî
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-drink-IPFV tea.ABS
 ‘I’m not drinking tea.’ (MB1-269 00:32:18)
- (7) ípà nán l-a-íwús faî
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-PFV.drink tea.ABS
 ‘I didn’t drink tea.’ (MB1-269 00:32:50)

In Lopit, there is a particular word, /ɔlɔxɔɲa/ or /ɛlɛxɪɲa/, which includes the negative verb /ɲa/. It can be translated as ‘not yet’. It is used in constructions which are similar to standard negation and is normally used in perfective constructions. The word could be glossed as /ɔ-lɔ-x-ɔɲà/ ‘3-PERSIS-SEQ-3-not.be’, where the prefix /lɛ-/ marks the persistive aspect (see §2.5). This would support its interpretation as ‘not yet’ or ‘still not’. Thus, the meaning is still somewhat compositional (STILL NOT), although it can be regarded as having a fused (or formally altered) construction.

This word is illustrated in the following examples. Example (8) is a question and (9) is a possible answer. Note that the clause [ðlòxɔ̀nà nán lát:ɔ̀xɔ̀] has the same structure as standard negation (i.e. NEG S V and the lexical verb is prefixed with the subordinate marker /l-/.

- (8) *x-í-t:òxɔ̀ íjé ìgèm*
 Q-2-finish.PFV 2SG.NOM work.ABS
 ‘Have you finished?’ (MB1-330 00:39:02)
- (9) *ínà ðlòxɔ̀nà nán l-á-t:òxɔ̀*
 not.be not.yet 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-finish.PFV
 ‘No, I haven’t finished yet.’ (MB1-330 00:39:02)

Example (10) is a question which can be answered in two different ways. The answer in (11) uses the /ɔ̀lɔ̀xɔ̀nà/, ‘not yet’, construction. The more general way of answering is given in (12).

- (10) *x-î-cá íjé dè=tòrít*
 Q-2.PFV-dance 2SG.NOM at=Torit.ABS
 ‘Have you danced in Torit?’ or ‘Did you dance in Torit?’ (MB1-142 00:32:12)
- (11) *ɔ̀lɔ̀xɔ̀nà nán l-â-cá dè=tòrít*
 not yet 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG.PFV-dance at=Torit.ABS
 ‘I have not yet danced in Torit.’ (MB1-142 00:34:37)
- (12) *ínà nán l-â-cá dè=tòrít*
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG.PFV-dance at=Torit.ABS
 ‘I have not danced in Torit.’ (MB1-142 00:32:36)

This word is sometimes expressed as [èléxɔ̀nà], as illustrated in (13). The word could be glossed as /è-lé-x-ɔ̀nà/ ‘3-PERSIS-SEQ-not.be’. Both /ɔ̀lɔ̀xɔ̀nà/ and /èléxɔ̀nà/ are often shortened to /ɔ̀lɔ̀nà/ and /èléɔ̀nà/ respectively. The elision of the /x/ prefix in Lopit is common.

- (13) *a-í-j:é-j:énà nán xirò nà lòpít èléxɔ̀nà xàtí nán*
 1SG-II-RED-know 1SG.NOM VN.speak of.F Lopit not.yet however 1SG.NOM
l-a-î-ij:én bìnó
 SUB-1SG-PFV-know very
 ‘I have been learning to speak Lopit, but I have not yet learned much.’
 (MB1-293 00:13:08)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

2.2.1 Negative imperatives

For Class I verbs, standard imperatives use the prefix /tɛ-/ or /tɔ-/ for singular imperatives and the form /ɪtr-/ for plural imperatives. The singular imperative of the Class I verb /bɔt/, ‘go direct’, is shown in (14).

- (14) *tɔ-bòt* *a=xàŋ* *náìtì*
 IMP.SG.go.direct to=home.ABS my.F.ABS
 ‘Go straight to my place!’ (MB1-098 00:41:41)

For Class II verbs, the normal imperative is the same as the verb stem, except that the singular and plural forms have different tonal patterns. An example of the singular imperative with the verb /ɪnak/, ‘repeat’, is shown in (15).

- (15) *ɪnák-xà* *róri* *nàná* *l-í-ǰ* *íjé*
 IMP.SG.repeat-IPFV words.ABS those.F.PL SUB-2-say 2SG.NOM
 ‘Repeat those words you said!’ (MB1-321 00:17:32)

There is a special construction for negative imperatives. It involves the word /idek/ and a verb prefix /xai-/. An example is given with the Class II verb /ɪrɔ/, ‘speak’, in (16). The prefix /xai-/ appears to be a kind of imperative prefix. Unlike standard imperatives, the negative imperative has no distinction between singular and plural. In addition, as shown in (17), the infinitive construction cannot be used.

- (16) *ídèk* *xai-írɔ*
 NEG.IMP NEG.IMP-speak
 ‘Don’t talk!’ (MB1-014 00:36:40)
- (17) * *ídèk* *x-írɔ*
 NEG.IMP INF-speak
 Attempted: ‘Don’t talk!’ (MB1-014 00:36:40)

The negative imperative with a Class I verb is illustrated with the verb /ca/ ‘dance’ in (18).

- (18) *ídèk* *xai-cá* *díxà*
 NEG.IMP NEG.IMP-dance like.that
 ‘Don’t dance like that!’ (MB1-319 00:45:36)

A more complex example is shown in (19) using the verb /isjere/, ‘give’. Note that the use of the second person pronoun (in this case /itei/, ‘2PL’) is possible, but it is not normally used.

- (19) *ídèk (íteí) xai-ísò nàŋ xírínò*
 NEG.IMP (2PL.NOM) NEG.IMP-give 1SG.ABS meat.ABS
 ‘Don’t give me meat!’ (lit ‘Avoid give me meat.’) (MB1-324 00:09:38)

The word /idek/ can be glossed as the imperative form of the verb /idek/, ‘leave’ (i.e. as IMP.leave). It can be translated as ‘avoid’, ‘leave off’, ‘give up’, ‘refrain from’, as illustrated in (20).

- (20) *a-ídék nàŋ rɪpà tɪfi xɪjɔ è-díxà nàŋ xójéxítè*
 1SG-leave 1SG.NOM VN.watch TV COMP 3-ache 1SG.ABS eyes
 ‘I gave up watching TV because it hurts (my) eyes.’ (MB1-020 01:26:14)

The verb /idek/ can also be used in the sense of ‘move away from’ as in (21).

- (21) *a-ídék nàŋ xàŋ àrá móíté?*
 1SG-leave 1SG.NOM home.ABS IMM.PST morning
 ‘I left home this morning.’ (MB1-020 01:28:48)

This verb could be regarded as an auxiliary verb when it is used in negative constructions such as (16), (18), and (19). In these constructions, the lexical verb has a finite form (i.e. no pronominal marking).

2.2.2 Negative interrogatives

Negative polar interrogatives can be formed using the negative verb /pa/ together with the question marker /x-/. A pair of affirmative and negative polar questions is given in (22) and (23). The word order with the negative question verb is similar to the word order in negative declarative clauses. In (23), the subject [íjé], ‘you’, is placed in front of the lexical verb, which maintains its pronominal prefix and is also prefixed with the subordinate marker /l-/. The word [xójà] is glossed as ‘Q-not.be’. This is another generalized pronoun marker where /ɔ-/ is used instead of /ɪ-/ for the first, second or third person.

- (22) *x-í-t:óxò íjé*
 Q-2-finish.N 2SG.NOM
 ‘Have you finished?’ (MB1-330 00:39:02)

- (23) *x-ójà xàtí íjé l-í-t:óxò*
 Q-not.be indeed 2SG.NOM SUB-2-finish
 ‘Haven’t you finished (yet)?’ (MB1-330 00:39:02)

The word /xatí/, ‘but’, ‘however’, ‘indeed’, appears to be always used in negative interrogative constructions and is placed after /xɔɲa/. The word /xatí/ is also used in adversative coordination (Moodie & Billington 2020: 367), although it is not a conjunction. It could be described as an emphatic adverb.

Another example is given with the verb /wu/, ‘go’, in (24).

- (24) *x-ójà xàtí l-í-wú à=xàɲ*
 Q-not.be indeed SUB-2-go to=home.ABS
 ‘Aren’t you going home?’ (MB1-330 00:41:00)

Sometimes /ɲa/ is used instead of /xɔɲa/, as shown in (25). There are insufficient examples to know how common this is.

- (25) *ɲà xàtí l-í-wú à=xàɲ*
 not.be indeed SUB-2-go to=home.ABS
 ‘Aren’t you going home?’ (MB1-341 00:01:53)

The word /xɔɲa/ is also used in tag questions, together with the particle /ifa/, which is normally used to indicate that the event occurred in the past. The interrogative tag, [xójà ífá] is shown in (26). However, unlike English, the tag does not change for polarity (27) or temporal situation (28). Given that the expression [xójà ífá] is used in relation to a future event (as in (28)), it appears to be a lexicalised construction.

- (26) *ò-wú ɲé à=sùk x-ójà ífá*
 3-go 3SG.NOM to=market.ABS Q-not.be PST
 ‘She went to the market, didn’t she?’ (MB1-022 01:04:12)
- (27) *ɲà ɲé l-ò-wú à=sùk x-ójà ífá*
 not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go to=market.ABS Q-not.be PST
 ‘She didn’t go to the market, did she?’ (MB1-022 01:04:26)
- (28) *ò-wú isó ɲé à=sùk x-ójà ífá*
 3-go FUT 3SG.NOM to=market.ABS Q-not.be PST
 ‘She will go to the market, won’t she?’ (MB1-022 01:04:26)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

The morpheme /ɪpa/ is used in all negation in stative predications. Most predications utilize the copula verbs /ra/, ‘be’, and /w:ɔn/, ‘exist’. As will be shown in this section, negatives in stative predications are mostly of the same form as standard negation. The main exception is with non-locative existential predications where the only verb is the negative verb.

Example (29) can be described as an equative predicate nominal (T. E. Payne 1997: 114) or as a referential nominal predicate (Dryer 2007: 233). The copula verb /ra/ has a fused form in most situations. The form /ara/ is used for first, second and third person in these situations. In this paper it is glossed as ‘be’. The other copula verb /w:ɔn/ has normal pronominal marking, as shown in (47).

- (29) *ára xàbò lòrèwâ lití*
 be chief.NOM husband.ABS my.M.ABS
 ‘The chief is my husband.’ (MB1-162 00:15:50)

In some situations, the verb /ra/ has normal pronominal marking. This is illustrated in (30), where it is used with the conditional prefix /maɪ/. Thus, the verbs /ra/ and /ɪpa/ are similar in that they both have fused forms in simple declarative clauses but can have normal pronominal marking in subordinate clauses.

- (30) *ì-maì-rá íjé xábó í-maí-lwáxá-k íjé ijòxoí*
 2SG-COND-be 2SG.NOM chief.ABS 2SG-COND-help-DAT 2SG.NOM 1PL.ABS
 ‘If you could be the chief, you would help us.’ (MB1-010 00:24:00)

The negation of (29) is given in (31). The construction is similar to standard negation. The negative verb is clause-initial, and the subject is placed after the negative verb and before the copula.

- (31) *ípà xàbò l-ára lòrèwâ lití*
 not.be chief.NOM SUB-be husband.ABS my.M.ABS
 ‘The chief is not my husband.’ (MB1-341 00:27:52)

Sometimes, this kind of stative predication is expressed without copula verbs. Demonstratives can be used, as shown in (32). When this verbless copula construction is negated, a copula verb, /ra/, ‘be’, is introduced with the negative verb, as shown in (33). Once again, this is similar to the standard negation construction.

- (32) *xábó il:éη*
 chief.ABS this.M.NOM
 ‘This is the chief.’ (MB1-341 00:26:38)

- (33) *íηà il:éη l-ára xábó*
 not.be this.M.NOM SUB-be chief.ABS
 ‘This is not the chief.’ (MB1-341 00:26:59)

The following two utterances are examples of proper inclusion (Payne 1997: 114) or non-referential nominal predicates, (Dryer 2007: 233). Example (35) is the negation of (34). This construction is also similar to standard negation.

- (34) *ára íηέ xaitíj:énàní*
 be 3SG.NOM teacher.ABS
 ‘He/she is a teacher.’ (MB1-329 00:17:06)

- (35) *íηà íηέ l-ára xaitíj:énàní*
 not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-be teacher.ABS
 ‘He/she is not a teacher.’ (MB1-329 00:17:12)

Attributive construction or property assignment predicates are usually expressed with a stative verb construction (or intransitive verbal predicate), as shown in (36). The same constructions are used for both permanent and temporary property assignment.

- (36) *è-xálàn íηέ bínò*
 3-be.lazy 3SG.NOM very
 ‘He is very lazy.’ (MB1-128 00:37:11)

This kind of expression is negated using standard negation, as shown in (37).

- (37) *íηà nán l-á-xálàn*
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-be.lazy
 ‘I am not lazy.’ (MB1-128 00:36:05)

Standard negation can also be used in locative predicate constructions with the copula verb, /w:ɔn/, ‘exist’, as shown in (38) and (39).

- (38) *ò-w:ón mólóη dè=jàni*
 3-exist baboon.NOM in=tree.ABS
 ‘The baboon is in the tree.’ (MB1-162 00:38:14)

- (39) *íṇà mólóṇ l-ḵ-w:ón dè=jàni*
 not.be baboon.NOM SUB-3-exist in=tree.ABS
 ‘The baboon is not in the tree.’ (MB1-171 00:01:45)

Existential predications can overlap with locative predications in some languages (Dryer 2007: 240). However, in Lopit, there are some existential predicates with no overt attribution of a location. An example of an existential predication is given in (40), where the copula verb /w:ón/, ‘exist’, ‘be available’, is used with a dummy subject. The negative existential predication is given in (41) using the negative verb /íṇà/ with no lexical or copula verb. Here, [íṇà] can be translated as ‘there is not’ or ‘there is no’. Negation of this kind of existential (perhaps described as ‘non-locative existential’) is different from standard negation.

- (40) *ḵ-w:ón xisóṇ xóná l-ḵ-bwòr*
 3-exist cows.ABS of.F.PL SUB-3-be.white
 ‘There are white cows.’ (MB1-341 00:17:51)
- (41) *íṇà xisóṇ xóná l-ḵ-póri*
 not.be cows.ABS of.F.PL SUB-3-be.green
 ‘There are no green cows.’ (MB1-341 00:18:08)

Another example of a non-locative existential is given in (42). Once again, there is no copula verb in the negative construction. However, it is worth noting that, since the negative clause is subordinate, the negative verb has the third person pronominal prefix (referencing a dummy subject). This is discussed in §2.3.

- (42) *l-é-ṇà dáká é-jeí xijò*
 SUB-3-not.be eat.VN 3-die people.NOM
 ‘If there is no food, people die.’ (MB1-341 00:23:35)

A pair of utterances demonstrating a positive and a negative existential with the same forms as (40) and (41) is shown in (43) and (44).

- (43) *ḵ-w:ón xijfôṇ*
 3-exist water.ABS
 ‘There is water.’ (MB1-341 00:21:57)
- (44) *íṇà xijfôṇ*
 not.be water.ABS
 ‘There is no water.’ (MB1-256 00:07:49)

A consultant was asked if one could say the utterance shown in (45). He said that it “will sound incomplete” (MB1-256 00:22:49) and that an utterance like that in (46) would be more acceptable. Example (46) could be regarded as a locative existential construction. This confirms that standard negation is used in locative predicate constructions but not in non-locative existential constructions.

- (45) *ípà xìffôη l-ḡ-w:ón*
 not.be water.ABS SUB-3-exist
 ?‘There is no water.’ (MB1-341 00:22:29)
- (46) *ípà xìffôη l-ḡ-w:ón iní*
 not.be water.ABS SUB-3-exist here
 ‘There is no water here.’ (MB1-341 00:23:03)

Possessive predicate constructions can also be negated with the negative verb. In Lopit, the comitative construction /w:ón xɔ/, ‘exist with’, is often used to express possession, as shown in (47). The negative form is shown in (48).

- (47) *éí-w:ón ijòxoi xò=dòηì?*
 1PL-exist 1PL.NOM with=drums.ABS
 ‘We have drums.’ (lit. ‘We are with drums.’) (MB1-329 00:06:09)
- (48) *ípà ijòxoi l-éí-w:ón xò=dòηì?*
 not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-exist with=drums.ABS
 ‘We have no drums.’ (lit. ‘We are not with drums.’) (MB1-329 00:06:09)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negation in non-main clauses shows some differences from the standard negation construction. Firstly, the range of pronominal inflections seen on most verbs is usually seen on the negative verb in a subordinate construction. In many subordinate clauses in Lopit, the initial verb is marked with the subordinate marker /l-/, glossed as ‘SUB’. If this initial verb is the negative verb, then it will have person marking, unlike the negative verb in a simple declarative clause. This is illustrated in the contrast between [ípà] (49) and [lápà] in (50).

- (49) *ípà náη l-á-jíη-ú à=xàpì*
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go-VEN to=house.ABS
 ‘I didn’t come into the house.’ (MB1-253 00:36:11)

- (50) *á-gílò-k nán xɪɔ í-dáxá íteí bì l-á-ɲà*
 1SG-think-DAT 1SG.NOM COMP 2-eat.N 2PL.NOM indeed SUB-1SG-not.be
nán l-á-ɲí-ú à=xàɲì
 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go-VEN to=house.ABS
 ‘I thought you were eating, so I didn’t come into the house.’ (MB1-253 00:34:07)

In addition, the negative verb can also be marked for modality. An example is given in the conditional clause in (51) (i.e. [áɲaɪɲà nán lámwei] ‘if I were not sick’). The negative verb [áɲaɪɲà] has pronominal marking and the main verb (/mwei/, ‘be sick’) retains its pronominal marking.

- (51) [*á-ɲaɪ-ɲà nán l-á-mwei*]_p [*á-ɲaɪ-ibón nán*
 1SG-IRR-not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-be.sick 1SG-IRR-meet 1SG.NOM
xò=xìjò xóná l-ò-lóɲà]_Q
 with=people.ABS REL.PL SUB-3PL-be.many
 ‘Were I not sick (if I weren’t sick), I would have met many people.’
 (MB1-014 01:25:40)

An example with first-person plural marking is given in (52). It should be noted that the 1PL pronominal marker /ɛɪ-/ is realised as [ɛ] before the prefixes /ɲa-/ and /ɲai-/ as shown in the negative modal construction [ɛɲaɪɲà] in (52).

- (52) *ɛ-ɲaɪ-ɲà íjòxoi l-éí-mwei è-ɲaɪ-ibón íjòxoi*
 1PL-IRR-not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-be.sick 1PL-IRR-meet 1PL.NOM
xò=xìjò xóná l-ò-lóɲà
 with=people.ABS REL.PL SUB-3-be.many
 ‘Were we not sick, we would have met many people.’ (MB1-014 01:28:21)

It is also possible for both the protasis (p) and the apodosis (Q) to be negative clauses. This is illustrated in (53). Here, the negative condition is that the hearer does not go to Torit.

- (53) [*íɲà nán l-á-wú à=tòrit*]_Q [*l-í-ɲá íjé l-í-wú*]_p
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-go to=Torit SUB-2-not.be 2SG.NOM SUB-2-go
 ‘I’m not going to Torit if you don’t go.’ (MB1-163 00:03:55)

It should be noted that some other negative constructions involving modality do not have normal pronominal marking. Constructions involving the obligatory prefix /tɛ-/ use the pronominal marker /ɛ-/ for first, second and third person, as illustrated in (54). This is also the case for most non-negative constructions involving the prefix /tɛ-/.

- (54) *é-tè-ja íjé l-í-mórò xijò*
 3-OBLIG-not.be 2SG.NOM SUB-2SG-abuse people.ABS
 ‘You shouldn’t abuse people.’ (MB1-267 00:55:09)

In complement clauses, the subordinator is not used on the lexical verbs, as is shown in the second clause in (55) with the verb [òlòtú]. Similarly, the negative verb does not have the subordinating prefix /l-/ as shown in (56). Here the negative verb [ínà] is placed after the complementizer and has the same, lexicalised form as the negative verb in independent clauses, as shown in (2).

- (55) *a-íj:én nán xijò ò-lòt-ú íjé*
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM COMP 3-go-VEN 3SG.NOM
 ‘I know that he is coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:00)
- (56) *a-íj:én nán xijò íjà íjé l-ò-lòt-ú*
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM COMP not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
 ‘I know that he is not coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:26)

Negation in relative clauses appears to be straightforward. When the action in the relative clause in (57) is negated, the result is (58). The relative clause in (58) can be compared with the corresponding declarative clause [ínà xiwàrú lòt:òxo-í ikúdò] ‘the leopard didn’t kill the squirrel’ in (59). The changes to form the negative relative clause are similar to those for other relative clauses. That is, the relative marker /na/ is inserted, the common argument [xiwàrú] is omitted and the verb (in this case [lòjá]) is prefixed with the subordinate marker.

- (57) *ó-wòlò íjé xiwàrò [nà l-ò-t:òxo-í ikúdò]*
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS REL.F SUB-3-kill-ITV squirrel.ABS
 ‘He saw the leopard that killed the squirrel.’ (MB1-255 00:28:20)
- (58) *ó-wòlò íjé xiwàrò [nà l-ò-já l-ò-t:òxo-í ikúdò]*
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS REL.F SUB-3-not.be SUB-3-kill-ITV
 squirrel.ABS
 ‘He saw the leopard that didn’t kill the squirrel.’ (MB1-255 00:26:58)
- (59) *ó-wòlò íjé xiwàrò íjà xiwàró l-ò-t:òxo-í ikúdò*
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS not.be leopard.NOM SUB-3-kill-ITV
 squirrel.ABS
 ‘He saw the leopard. The leopard didn’t kill the squirrel.’ (MB1-342 00:39:19)

An example of a sentence where NP_{rel} takes on the object function is given in (60). In this example, the head noun /xiwaru/ ‘leopard’ is relativized as the object of the verb /t:oxo/ ‘kill’. The subject of this verb, [íkùdò], is placed in front of the lexical verb [lòt:òxoí], i.e. in the normal position of a negative clause.

- (60) ó-wòlò íjé xìwàrò [nà l-ò-pá íkùdò
 3-see 3SG.NOM leopard.ABS REL.F SUB-3-not.be squirrel.NOM
 l-ò-t:òxo-í]
 SUB-3-kill-ITV
 ‘He saw the leopard that the squirrel didn’t kill.’ (MB1-255 00:26:58)

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Lopit has several verbs which can express negative concepts without the use of the negative verb. These include the verbs /riŋ/ ‘not know’; /tumo/ ‘not know’, ‘be ignorant of’; /miŋa/ ‘not see’; and /diak/ ‘not complete’ and /ɪwɔɪta/ ‘abstain’, ‘not do’. An example with /tumo/ is given in (61).

- (61) ò-túmó íjé ròrí xòná jàni ìn:á
 3-not.know 3SG.NOM things.ABS of.F.PL tree.ABS this.F
 ‘He doesn’t know anything about this tree.’ (MB1-341 00:29:23)

A positive counterpart to (61) can be expressed using the verb /ɪj:ɛn/, ‘know’, as shown in (62).

- (62) a-íj:én nánj ròrí xòná jàni ìn:á
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM things.ABS of.F.PL tree.ABS this.F
 ‘I know something about this tree.’ (MB1-341 00:30:12)

It should be noted that verbs like /tumo/ can also be negated, as shown in (63).

- (63) íjà nánj l-á-túmó ròrí xòná jàni ìn:á
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1-not.know things.ABS of.F.PL tree.ABS this.F
 ‘I know something about this tree.’ (lit. ‘I’m not ignorant about this tree.’)
 (MB1-341 00:29:57)

An example with the verb /miŋa/, ‘not see’, is given in (64).

- (64) é-xì-rwátà xìj́ó íjé x-í-míŋà-rì
 3-PFV-escape and 2SG.NOM SEQ-2-not.see-ITV
 ‘He escaped and you missed seeing it.’ (MB1-307 00:01:59)

The sense of this utterance can also be expressed using the verb /wolo/ ‘see’, in a negative construction. There is, however, a difference in meaning. In (64), the speaker is saying that the hearer was oblivious or was not paying attention. This meaning is also covered in (65) with the extra possibility that the hearer was, in fact, looking out, but did not see it.

- (65) *é-xì-rwátà x-ò-pá íjé l-í-wóló*
 3-PFV-escape SEQ-3-not.be 2SG.NOM SUB-2-not.see
 ‘He escaped and you didn’t see it.’ (MB1-314 00:16:51)

The verb /rita/, ‘be missing’, is used to convey that someone is not present or able to be found, as shown in (66).

- (66) *ó-rúmá íjé xótójí l-é-rítà tè=xàfì*
 3-find.N 3SG.NOM mother.ABS SUB-3-be.missing from=house.ABS
 ‘He found his mother missing from the house.’ (MB1-284 00:22:13)

An example using the verb /rwɔɪta/, ‘abstain’, ‘don’t do’, is given in (67). The utterance could be made by someone who has just been offered a drink of beer.

- (67) *á-la-íwòítà nánj tè=màtà*
 1SG-PERSIS-abstain 1SG.NOM from=VN.drink
 ‘I’m still not drinking.’ (lit. ‘I’m still having a break from drinking.’)
 (MB1-037 00:51:21)

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

There is another form of negative verb which appears to be a variation of /pa/ ‘not.be’. I am calling it the persistent negative verb, /pei/, in contrast to the “unmarked” negative verb /pa/. An example of the persistent is given in (68) with the verb /fanu/, ‘come.PL’. The prefix /le-/ is used to denote that the action is continuing. The negated form of (68) is given in (69), where /pei/ is used as a higher verb. This construction is similar to standard negation, except that the lexical verb [èlɛ́fánù] does not have the subordinate marker. In addition, in contrast to the verb /pa/, /pei/ has normal third person marking (i.e. /e-/ and not /i-/). It should be noted that, although I have called /pei/ the persistent negative verb, it does not appear to be inflected for the persistent aspect. It could perhaps be called the ‘negative verb associated with the persistent’. It might possibly have been formed from the fusion of /pa/ with the itive suffix /-ei/, although it is hard to see any connection between the itive and the persistent.

- (68) *è-lé-fǎnù xǎjàǎá?*
 3-PERSIS-come.PL flies.NOM
 ‘The flies are still coming.’ (or ‘the flies keep coming’) (MB1-252 00:42:37)
- (69) *è-pei xǎjàǎá? è-lé-fǎnù*
 3-not.be flies.NOM 3-PERSIS-come.PL
 ‘The flies have stopped coming.’ (lit. ‘The flies are not still coming.’)
 (MB1-252 00:43:29)

The construction in (69) can be contrasted with that in (70), where the persis-
 tive form of the negative is not used. The [ɪpà] verb is used, and the lexical verb
 has the subordinate marker, which is the standard negation construction.

- (70) *ípà xǎjàǎá? l-è-fǎnù*
 not.be flies.NOM SUB-3-come.PL
 ‘The flies did not come.’ (or ‘The flies are not coming.’) (MB1-252 00:48:42)

Another set of examples is shown in (71) and (72). They also illustrate the
 contrast between the negative verb /pa/ and the persisitive negative verb /pei/. In
 (72), there is the normal pronominal marker /a-/ ‘1SG’, on the verb /pei/ and no
 subordinate marker on the lexical verb [álámátà] in the main clause.

- (71) *ípà nǎŋ l-á-mát-à kòfí l-ò-lót-ù patrik*
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-drink-IPFV coffee.ABS SUB-3-go-VEN Patrick
 ‘I wasn’t drinking coffee when Patrick came.’ (MB1-319 00:54:14)
- (72) *á-pei nǎŋ á-lá-mát-à kòfí l-ò-lót-ù patrik*
 1-not.be 1SG.NOM 1SG-PERSIS-drink-IPFV coffee.ABS SUB-3-go-VEN Patrick
 ‘I wasn’t drinking coffee anymore when Patrick came.’ (lit. ‘I wasn’t still
 drinking.’) (MB1-319 00:54:29)

It can also be used as a verbal noun, /pei/. As shown in (73), /pei/ can be
 translated as ‘lacking’, or ‘not having’. The noun phrase [peì nà mòt:èjà] ‘lacking
 of friends’, is the subject of the verb /mir/ ‘defeat’. Note that the NP, which
 has absolutive case marking, precedes the verb and the verb is marked with the
 subordinate marker /l-/. This is a fronted construction. This supports the view
 that /pei/ is a noun in this construction.

- (73) *è-sám ípé àrá xàtì peî nà mòt:èjà*
3-be.rich 3SG.NOM however VN.not.be.ABS of.F friends.ABS SUB-3-defeat
l-è-mír ípè
3SG.ABS
'He is rich but suffers from having no friends.' (lit. 'lacking of friends
defeats him') (MB1-273 00:49:38)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The word [ìpà] is used when answering in the negative, as shown in (75), which is an answer to (74).

- (74) *x-î-cá ije dè=jùbà*
Q-2-dance 2SG.NOM in=Juba
'Have you danced in Juba?' (MB1-142 00:28:20)
- (75) *ìpà â-cá nán dè=tòrit íjá xàtì nán*
not.be 1.PFV-dance 1SG.NOM in=Torit not.be however 1SG.NOM
l-á-cá dè=jùbà
SUB-1SG-dance in=Juba
'No, I've danced in Torit, but I haven't danced in Juba.' (MB1-142 00:28:47)

The negative answer [ìpà] is also used to negate negative questions, indicating that it is used to negate the content of the question. This is illustrated in examples (76) and (77).

- (76) *x-ójà xàtí l-í-wú à=xàñ*
Q-not.be indeed SUB-2-go to=home.ABS
'Aren't you going home?' (MB1-330 00:41:00)
- (77) *ìpà á-la-itílá nán mòt:è leítí*
not.be 1SG-PERSIS-wait 1SG.NOM friend.ABS my.M
'No, I'm still waiting for my friend.' (MB1-341 00:12:32)

Another form of negative reply can be made using the word /ɔloxɔɲa/ 'not yet', as shown in (78). This word is discussed in §2.1.

- (78) Q: *x-í-t:àxó íjé ígèm*
 Q-2-finish.PFV 2SG.NOM work.ABS
 ‘Did you finish work?’
 A: *àlèxàpà*
 not.yet
 ‘Not yet.’ (MB1-010 01:16:24)

Lopit distinguishes ‘not’ from ‘never’ using the word /lɪŋ/. Example (80) is an answer to the question in (79). If /lɪŋ/ were omitted in (80) the utterance would be translated as ‘I’m not going to Kapoeta’. Note that /lɪŋ/ can also be placed at the end of the utterance.

- (79) *x-í-wú isó íjé a=kápwoità*
 Q-2-go FUT 2SG.NOM to=Kapoeta
 ‘Will you go to Kapoeta?’ (MB1-341 00:53:16)
- (80) *ípà nán lín l-á-wú a=kápwoità*
 not.be 1SG.NOM IDEO SUB-1SG-go to=Kapoeta
 ‘I’m never going to Kapoeta.’ (MB1-341 00:54:17)

The word /lɪŋ/ can be used in a strongly negative reply as shown in (81). It is probably an ideophone, because its lexical meaning is not clear and its position in the word order in the clause is variable (see Moodie & Billington 2020: 347). (See also §4.4 for more discussion of /lɪŋ/.)

- (81) *lín lín lín*
 IDEO IDEO IDEO
 ‘Never, ever!’ (MB1-341 00:57:08)

3.2 Negative quantifiers and indefinites

Lopit does not have words which correspond to words like ‘nobody’, ‘nothing’, or ‘nowhere’. The equivalent meanings of these words are usually expressed using the negative verb /ŋa/ in combination with words like /nabɔ/ ‘one.F’; /xure/ ‘some.F’; /ŋai/ ‘who’ and /ɲo/ ‘what’. This could be because negation in Lopit appears to be almost exclusively verbal in character and is not observed in affixes or particles.

The Lopit translations of ‘no-one’ or ‘nobody’ can be expressed using the interrogative pronoun /ŋai/ ‘who’ together with the negative verb /ŋpa/. This can

be used when the gender is unknown or if the referents include both males and females. Thus, in (82), /ɲo/ could be interpreted as the indefinite pronoun ‘something’ and, in (83), /ɲai/ could be interpreted as ‘somebody’ or ‘anybody’. The use of interrogatives as indefinite pronouns is cross-linguistically common (Haspelmath 1997: 170–176).

- (82) *ɪpà ɲo l-ò-w:ón dɛ=xàfì*
not.be what SUB-3-exist in=house.ABS
‘There is nothing in the house.’ (MB1-128 00:27:19)

- (83) *á-gí-gíl-ò nán ɪpà ɲaî l-ò-lòtú*
1SG-RED-think-N 1SG.NOM not.be who SUB-3-come
‘I think that nobody is coming.’ (MB1-123 00:22:11)

The following example, (84), shows the use of /xɔlak/, ‘some.M’ together with /ɲa/ to express the equivalent of the English ‘not any’ or ‘no’.

- (84) *ɪpà xɪffôɲ xɔlák*
not.be water.ABS some.M
‘There wasn’t any rain.’ (MB1-123 00:12:29)

If the gender of the referents is known, then the words /nabɔ/, /lobɔ/ can be used with the noun /toxoni/ ‘person’. In the following example, the quantifier is placed in front of the noun to give the phrase [lóbɔ tòxónì]. This is a pragmatically marked position since quantifiers normally follow nouns. This gives special emphasis to the word /lobɔ/ so that the literal translation of (85) is ‘I think (that) not (even) one man is coming.’

- (85) *á-gíl nán ɪpà lóbɔ tòxónì l-ò-lòt-ù*
1SG-believe 1SG.NOM not.be one.M person.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
‘I think that nobody (M) is coming.’ (MB1-335 01:17:54)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Most property concepts in Lopit are expressed using property stative verbs. This means that the property concept can be negated by negating the stative verb. This is illustrated in positive example in (86) and the negative one in (87).

- (86) *ó-múnó xítò leítì*
3-be.happy child.NOM my.M
‘My son is happy.’ (MB1-267 00:51:29)

- (87) *l-é-pá xítò leíti l-ò-múnò ípà nán*
 SUB-3-not.be child.NOM my.M SUB-3-be.happy not.be 1SG.NOM
l-á-múnò
 SUB-1SG-be.happy
 ‘If my son is not happy, I’m not happy.’ (MB1-267 00:53:49)

Adverbial notions are also often expressed using stative verbs. There is a verb /*laita*/ which is used to convey that an event occurred recently. It is difficult to translate directly but conveys something like ‘occurred recently’ or ‘has only recently been in existence’. It is used with a subject, e.g., the nominative form of the pronoun [ínpé] in (88), and always requires a verbal noun or infinitive. The negation of (88) is shown in (89) and uses the standard negation construction.

- (88) *e-laita-k ínpé nàíjòn*
 3-be.recent-DAT 3SG.NOM come.VN
 ‘He came recently.’ (MB1-341 00:46:47)
- (89) *ípà ínpé l-e-laita-k nàíjòn*
 not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-be.recent-DAT come.VN
 ‘He didn’t come recently.’ (MB1-341 00:45:14)

In Lopit, meanings of absence, opposition and antonymy are expressed with verbal negation rather than with affixes on adjectives, nouns and adverbs. An example of how the meaning of absence or lack is expressed is illustrated in example (90). A coordination construction is used (see §4.5) and the sense of ‘without’ is conveyed with the word /xɔ́pá/ (which can be translated as ‘and not’) together with the preposition /xɔ́/, ‘with’.

- (90) *è-ríbó ínpé x-ò-pà xɔ́=báñí*
 3-fight 3SG.NOM SEQ-3-not.be with=fear
 ‘He fights without fear.’ (lit. ‘He fights and not with fear.’) (MB1-342 00:41:51)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Focussed constructions can be expressed in Lopit using cleft constructions. The unmarked vso word order is shown in example (91). When the speaker wants to say that “it was Victor (and no-one else) that I saw”, then an ovs word order is used, as shown in (92).

- (91) *á-wóló nán viktòr*
 1SG-see 1SG.NOM Victor.ABS
 ‘I see Victor.’ (MB1-341 00:33:41)
- (92) *viktòr l-á-wóló nán*
 Victor.ABS SUB-1SG-see 1SG.NOM
 ‘(It is) Victor I see.’ (MB1-341 00:36:13)

A focussed object (e.g. Victor) can be the scope of a negative construction, as shown in (93). Here, the standard negation construction is used, except that the subordinate marker is used on the negative verb [*lápá*], since it has moved from the clause-initial position (as was the case with /*lawolo*/ on example (92)). Note that the negative verb has the first-person marker /a-/.

- (93) *viktòr l-á-pá nán l-á-wóló*
 Victor.ABS SUB-1SG-not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-see
 ‘(It is) Victor I do not see.’ (MB1-341 00:36:39)

In (94), the scope of negation is different to that in (93). In (94), the scope of negation is the whole of the utterance in (92), i.e. [*viktòr l-á-wóló nán*] ‘Victor I see’. Once again, standard negation is used.

- (94) *ípà l-ára viktòr l-á-wóló nán dānjèl l-á-wóló*
 not.be SUB-3be Victor.ABS SUB-1SG-see 1SG.NOM Daniel SUB-1SG-see
nán
 1SG.NOM
 ‘It’s not Victor I see, (it’s) Daniel I see.’ (MB1-341 00:40:21)

4.2 Negative polarity

As mentioned in §3.2, Lopit does not have words equivalent to ‘nobody’, ‘none’, ‘anybody’ etc. The words /*xure?*/ ‘some.F’ and /*xɔlak*/ ‘some.M’, are used in combination with negation to convey the sense of ‘not any’, as shown in (95).

- (95) *ípà íjòxoí l-eí-w:ɔn xò dòni? xùrê?*
 not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-exist with drums.ABS some.F
 ‘We don’t have any drums.’ (lit. ‘We do not exist with some drums.’)
 (MB1-329 00:07:22)

This contrasts with (96), which is a simpler negative expression.

- (96) *íṇà íjòxoí l-eí-w:òn xò dòṇì?*
 not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1PL-exist with drums.ABS
 ‘We have no drums.’ (lit. ‘We do not exist with drums.’) (MB1-329 00:06:38)

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There appears to be no effect of case marking under negation, as illustrated with the object [*faî*] ‘tea.ABS’ in the affirmative and the negative utterances in (97) and (98) respectively. This is not surprising since there are only two cases in Lopit, nominative and absolutive.

- (97) *a-íwús-ò náṇ faî*
 1SG-drink-IPFV 1SG.NOM tea.ABS
 ‘I’m drinking tea.’ (MB1-269 00:29:04)
- (98) *íṇà náṇ l-a-íwús-ò faî*
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-drink-IPFV tea.ABS
 ‘I’m not drinking tea.’ (MB1-269 00:32:18)

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Several means of reinforcing negation have been observed. The first is with ideophonic or emphatic adverbs (see §3.1). The word /*lɪŋ*/, when used in an utterance such as (99), can be translated as ‘really’ or ‘definitely’, although it can also be interpreted as ‘never’ as discussed in §3.1. To add further emphasis, /*lɛfɛ*/ can be combined with /*lɛfɛ*/, as shown in (100).

- (99) *íṇà náṇ líṇ l-á-wák ijè*
 not.be 1SG.NOM IDEO SUB-1SG-like 2SG.ABS
 ‘I really don’t like you.’ (MB1-341 00:54:45)
- (100) *íṇà náṇ l-á-wák ijè léfɛ líṇ*
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-like 2SG.ABS IDEO IDEO
 ‘I most certainly don’t like you.’ (MB1-341 00:55:23)

Another means is with marked word order. A quantifier will normally follow the noun that it modifies, as shown in (101). However, if the quantifier precedes the noun, as in (102), it will add emphasis. The use of marked word order for pragmatic effect is common in Lopit (see Moodie & Billington 2020: 152).

- (101) *íṇà xífṣòṇ xòlák l-ò-w:ón*
 not.be water.ABS some.M SUB-3-exist
 ‘There isn’t any water.’ (MB1-342 00:09:40)

- (102) *íṇà xòlák xífṣòṇ l-ò-w:ón*
 not.be some.M water.ABS SUB-3-exist
 ‘There isn’t any water.’ (MB1-342 00:10:06)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The negative verb /ṇa/ can also be used in clause coordination with the sequential marker /x-/. The sequential marker is prefixed to the verb in the second clause of a pair of coordinated clauses, as shown in (103) with the verb /wolo/, ‘see’. In (104), the sequential marker is prefixed to the negative verb to negate the second clause and provide an adversative coordination construction. In this situation, the pronominal marker /ɔ-/ is used. As discussed in §4.6.3, the form /xɔṇa/ is used in Dorik Lopit and not /xṇa/. The lexical verb in the negated clause, [xòṇà lòwòlò kèrà], is now marked with the subordinating prefix /l-/, as is the case in standard negation. As shown in (105), it is also possible to express the same meaning as (104) using the standard negation form /ṇa/. In this case, coordination is achieved by clause juxtaposition.

- (103) *ò-wòlò nánórúò xísóṇ x-ò-wòlò kèrà*
 3-see.PFV wife.NOM cattle.ABS SEQ-3-see.PFV sheep.PL.ABS
 ‘The wife saw cattle and she saw sheep.’ (MB1-064 01:04:20)
- (104) *ò-wòlò nánórúò xísóṇ x-ò-ṇà l-ò-wòlò kèrà*
 3-see.PFV wife.NOM cattle.ABS SEQ-3-not.be SUB-3-see.PFV sheep.PL.ABS
 ‘The wife saw cattle but didn’t see sheep.’ (MB1-064 01:04:22)
- (105) *ò-wòlò nánórúò xísóṇ íṇà xàtí l-ò-wòlò kèrà*
 3-see.PFV wife.NOM cattle.ABS not.be indeed SUB-3-see.PFV sheep.PL.ABS
 ‘The wife saw cattle; she didn’t see sheep.’ (MB1-064 01:04:10)

Lopit has a type of negation called contrastive negation, which refers to “expressions which are combinations of affirmation and negation in which the focus of negation is replaced in the affirmative part of the expression” (Silvennoinen 2019: 10). These can be negative-first or negative-second constructions. The Lopit examples given here are all negative-second constructions, i.e. [Y not X], where the focus of the affirmative is replaced in the negative part of the expression.

Thus, in (106), the focus of the affirmation is [dè=nàŋ] ‘with me’ and this is changed to [dè=ijè] in the negation expression. In (107), the focus of the affirmation is [dè=xító nà lòmweí], ‘to the girl who is sick’.

- (106) á-gí-gílò nán e-ìfórià ípé dè=nàŋ ipá l-ára
 1SG-RED-think 1SG.NOM 3-be.angry 3SG.NOM with=1SG.ABS not.be SUB-be
 dè=ijè
 to=2SG.ABS

‘I think he is angry with you, not me.’ (MB1-342 00:23:36)

- (107) á-wák ípé x-ìrò dè=xító nà l-ò-mweí ipá l-ára
 3-want 3SG.NOM INF-speak to=child REL.F SUB-3-be.sick not.be SUB-be
 dè=xító nà l-ò-múnò bí
 to=child.ABS REL.F SUB-3-be.happy ATT

‘He wants to speak to the sick girl not to the happy one.’ (MB1-257 00:09:35)

One interesting feature of these constructions is that the negation involves the expression /ipa lara/. The verb /lara/ cannot be omitted, although it is usually shortened to /la/ in normal discourse. The literal translation of (107) could be something like ‘He wants to speak to the sick child, it is not with the happy one’ or ‘He wants to speak to the sick child, it is not that it is with the happy one.’ It appears to be a rather complex construction, perhaps originating from clausal juxtaposition. More research is required to understand it.

Constructions of the type ‘neither nor’ in Lopit have not been observed.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport (neg-raising) can occur in Lopit. Examples are given using the verb /gilo/ ‘believe’. The first example, (108), has a higher-clause negative, which can be interpreted as negating the lower-clause predicate (i.e. negating [òlòtú ípé]). That is, (108) can be interpreted as (109).

- (108) ipá nán l-á-gí-gílò xìfò ò-lòt-ú ípé
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-RED-believe COMP 3-go-VEN 3SG.NOM

‘I don’t think that he is coming.’ (MB1-329 00:22:47)

- (109) *á-gí-gílò nán xìfò ípà ípé l-ò-lòt-ú*
 1SG-RED-believe 1SG.NOM COMP not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
 ‘I think that he is not coming.’ (MB1-329 00:22:26)

However, it appears that few verbs allow this construction. Examples (108) and (109) are repeated in (110) and (111) with the verb /ij:en/ in place of the verb /gilo/. Both examples are acceptable, but they have different meanings. The higher-clause negative in (110) does not negate the lower-clause predicate [òlòtú ípé].

- (110) *ípà nán l-á-ij:én xìfò ò-lòt-ú ípé*
 not.be 1SG.NOM SUB-1SG-know COMP 3-go-VEN 3SG.NOM
 ‘I don’t know that he is coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:47)
- (111) *á-ij:én nán xìfò ípà ípé l-ò-lòt-ú*
 1SG-know 1SG.NOM COMP not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-go-VEN
 ‘I know that he is not coming.’ (MB1-329 00:19:26)

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Two examples of metalinguistic negation have been recorded and are shown in (112) and (113). More research is needed to determine if these types of expressions are common.

- (112) *ípà íjòxoi l-a-wak bálú e-rok íjòxoi bálú*
 not.be 1PL.NOM SUB-1-want beer.ABS 3-love 1PL.NOM beer.ABS
 ‘We don’t like beer, we love it!’ (MB1-342 00:18:18)
- (113) *ípà ípé l-è-jeità òrúò wúník è-jeità òrúò*
 not.be 3SG.NOM SUB-3-have women.ABS three.ABS 3-have woman.ABS
mjèt
 five.ABS
 ‘He doesn’t have three wives, he has five!’ (MB1-342 00:19:14)

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

There is not much data available on how negation in Lopit might have developed. It is possible that the form /ɪpa/ might have been lexicalised from the verb /ja/ with the second person prefix /ɪ-. Lexicalisation commonly occurs with the third-person prefix. This is observed with the form /xɔpa/ used in coordination constructions (§4.5). The alternation of /ɔlxɔpa/ and /ɛlexɪpa/ and the use of

normal pronominal marking in subordinate clauses and negative modal verbs suggests that this lexicalization has only partially taken place or there is some kind of formal division based on different functions or clause types.

Eastern Nilotic languages use several methods for negation, including a separate verb, a negative prefix and a particle. These are shown for a range of languages in Table 2.³ There does not appear to be much in common amongst the forms of negation.

Table 2: Negation in Eastern Nilotic languages

	particle	prefix	verb
Lopit			<i>pa</i>
Otuho			<i>beng</i>
Lokoya	<i>aŋ</i>		
Maa	<i>mme</i>	<i>m-</i>	
Turkana	<i>mamaka</i> (lack)	<i>na-</i> ; <i>pe-</i> ; <i>nyi-</i>	
Ateso	<i>mam</i>		<i>mameun</i> (be absent)
Bari	<i>ti</i> ; <i>tine</i>		

Lopit is not the only Eastern Nilotic language which has a verbal negator. Otuho, a neighbouring language, has the negative verb *beng*, although the two negative verbs appear to be unrelated. The Otuho negative verb has pronominal marking when used in the simple form. Thus, *abeng* in (114) contrasts with [ɪpà] in (2). Although the word order is the same as in Lopit, the Otuho construction differs in the sense that the lexical verb, *alo*, ‘1SG-go’, is not inflected with dependent morphology.

- (114) Otuho (ISO: lot, Glottocode: otuh1238)
a-beng dwo ni a-lo
 1SG-not.be IMM.PST 1SG 1SG-go
 ‘I didn’t go there.’ (Muratori 1938: 339)

5 Summary

Negative constructions and elements are listed in Table 3, together with their respective functions. Negation in Lopit almost always involves a verbal construc-

³References: Otuho (Muratori 1938); Lokoya (Westermann 1944); Maa (Tucker & Mpaayei 1955); Turkana (Dimmendaal 1983); Ateso (Barasa 2017); Bari (Spagnolo 1933)

Table 3: Negative constructions and their functions

construction	function	section
<i>ɪŋa</i> + SUB-LV	negation of declarative clauses	§2.1
	negation of complement clauses	§2.3
	negation of stative property verbs	§2.3, 3.3
SUB-PRO- <i>ŋa</i> + SUB-LV	negation in adverbial, relative and conditional clauses	§2.3
<i>xɔŋa</i> + SUB-LV	negation in coordinated clauses	§4.5
	negation of interrogatives	§2.2.2
PRO-modal.prefix- <i>ŋa</i> + SUB-LV	negation involving modality	§2.3
PRO- <i>ŋei</i> + PRO-PERSIS-LV.root	negation of the persistive aspect	§2.5
<i>idek</i> + <i>xar</i> -verb.root	negative imperatives	§2.2.1
<i>ɪŋa</i> + SUB-copula.verb	negation of most stative predications	§2.3
<i>ɪŋa</i>	negation of non-locative existentials	§2.3
<i>ɪŋa</i> + Q.PRO + SUB-LV	negative quantifier ('nobody', 'nothing')	§3.2
<i>ɪŋa</i> + quantifier + SUB-LV	negative quantifier ('none', 'nobody')	§3.2
<i>ɪŋa</i>	negative answer ('no')	§3.1
<i>liŋ</i>	negative intensifier, never	§3.1, 4.4
<i>ɔlexɔŋa</i> , <i>ɛlexɪŋa</i>	'not yet'	§2.1, 3.1

tion in a complex clause. In declarative, interrogative and subordinate constructions, the verb /*ŋa*/ is used to negate the lexical verb. The construction is bi-clausal in that there are two finite verbs, a 'higher negative' verb and a finite lexical verb. The negative verb is often expressed as /*ɪŋa*/, which is probably a fused form. In some cases (e.g. subordinate constructions) it has normal pronominal marking and it can also be marked for modality. The exact nature of the bi-clausal construction is not clear, but it is similar to other auxiliary-like constructions in the language.

In imperatives, a different construction is used. This involves the verb /*idek*/, 'stop', 'leave', together with the prefix /*xar*-/ on the lexical verb.

In stative predications, the copula verbs /*ra*/ 'be' and /*w:ɔn*/ 'exist' are often used and can be negated with /*ŋa*/. There are also some verbless stative predicates. These are normally negated with the standard negation construction with the introduction of a copula verb. There is one significant exception to this. Non-locative existential predications are negated using the negative verb /*ɪŋa*/ only, with no lexical or copula verb. Locative existential predicates are negated with the negative verb and the copula verb /*w:ɔn*/.

In Lopit, there appear to be no negative quantifiers or indefinites. The equivalent meanings of these kinds of words are usually expressed using negation in combination with positive quantifiers and indefinites. Some indefinites in negative constructions are expressed using the negation and an interrogative pronoun.

Most property concepts in Lopit are expressed using property stative verbs. The property concept can be negated by negating the stative verb. Verbal negation is used rather than affixes on noun, adjectives and adverbs.

Abbreviations

1	first person	ITV	itive
2	second person	LV	lexical verb
3	third person	M	masculine
ABS	absolutive	MID	middle voice
ATR	advanced tongue root	N	neutral
AUX	auxiliary	NEG	negative
CAUS	causative	NOM	nominative
COMP	complementizer	OBLIG	obligative
COND	conditional	PERSIS	persistive
CONT	continuative	PFV	perfective
DAT	dative (applicative)	PL	plural
DTR	detransitivizer	POT	potential
F	feminine	PRO	pronoun
FUT	future	PST	past
IDEO	ideophone	Q	question marker
II	class II	RED	reduplication
IMM	immediate	REL	relative marker
IMP	imperative	SUB	subordinator
INF	infinitive	SEQ	sequential (or narrative)
INSTR	instrumental	SG	singular
IPFV	imperfective	VEN	venitive
IRR	irrealis	VN	verbal noun

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Chapter 7

Negation in Gyeli

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The northwestern Bantu language Gyeli exhibits negation features that are generally little discussed explicitly in the Bantu literature regarding the relationship between affirmative constructions and their negative counterparts. All clausal negation types in Gyeli are asymmetric in Miestamo's (2005, 2007) sense. Constructional asymmetries include tone changes and changes in finiteness, while paradigmatic asymmetries mostly concern TAM neutralization; aspect marking is generally lost under negation (unless it is specifically marked in an embedded clause). The negation pattern in the present tense is distinct from other tense-mood categories in its morphological negation-marking strategy and a higher degree of asymmetries. The present tense-mood category also allows a choice between different negation markers that are linked to information structure and focus marking.

Keywords: TAM systems, tonal morphology, Bantu, negation, information structure.

1 The language

Gyeli (ISO: gyi, Glottocode: gyel1242) is an endangered Bantu A80 language spoken by so-called “Pygmy” hunter-gatherers in the rainforest of southern Cameroon. The language is also known under the names Gyle, Kola, Bagielli, or Bakola, while the speakers call themselves Bagyeli or Bakola depending on the region where they live: in the northern part, the term Bakola is used, in the central and southern part Bagyeli. Speaker numbers are estimated to range between 4,000 and 5,000 (*Ethnologue*, Ngima Mawoung 2001). The speech community is dispersed over a vast area of about 12,500 km² which they share with eight other ethnic groups: Batanga, Bakoko, Basaa, Ewondo, Bulu, Fang, Yasa, and Kwasio.



These groups all speak other Bantu A languages and are all agriculturalists and/or fishermen (rather than forest foragers).

Speakers are currently changing their traditional way of life due to massive changes in the environment. In 2015, the biggest deep sea port for central Africa was inaugurated just off the shore where the Bagyeli live, resulting in a significant increase in infrastructure development which leads to a loss of rainforest and as such loss of the animals that the Bagyeli as hunter-gatherers depend on. As a consequence, the Bagyeli are being forced to give up hunting and rely more on farming just as their neighboring communities do. In the course of this subsistence change, the Bagyeli are also shifting to the languages of other Bantu groups. This shift is reinforced by the low prestige of the language and the marginalization of the Bagyeli within Cameroonian society at large. Different dialects of Gyeli are currently emerging, depending on which language a particular Gyeli group is mostly in contact with. There is no standard variety of Gyeli, which correlates with the lack of an official written language. Instead, Gyeli is currently used orally only. The conventions in Grimm's (2021) description, however, have been informed by speakers' preferences and are potentially a first step towards a written form of Gyeli. In general, everybody in this area, both Bagyeli and other Bantu groups, is multilingual and speaks easily up to five languages. In contrast to the farming Bantu groups of Cameroon, the Bagyeli generally do not speak the colonial language French or speak it less fluently, since Bagyeli children receive less or no schooling.

The main work that exists on the Gyeli language consists of a description of the phonology and nominal morphology in the Kwasio and Basaa contact region by Renaud (1976) and Grimm's (2021) reference grammar of the Gyeli variety spoken in the village Ngolo in the Bulu contact region. A documentary corpus of Gyeli is available in *The Language Archive*, including natural texts and elicitations (Grimm et al. 2020). Data for this paper were obtained during fieldwork in Cameroon between 2010 and 2017 as part of the language documentation and grammar-writing project. A detailed description of consulted speakers and the various methodologies used is provided in Grimm (2021: 28–29).

Linguistically, Gyeli is an S V O (X), head-initial language. It features a gender system with nine agreement classes and six genders.¹ In comparison to eastern and southern Bantu languages, Gyeli is more analytic and has, for instance, a limit of three syllables in verb stems. Also, Gyeli is a tone language, phonologically distinguishing H, L, HL, LH, and toneless tone-bearing units, which encode both lexical and grammatical distinctions.

¹In the examples in this chapter, only agreement classes are indicated in glossing nominal prefixes. In Grimm (2021), I also indicate noun prefix classes in my glosses.

In this paper, following the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]), I first discuss clausal negation in §2, distinguishing standard negation from non-standard negation marking. In §3, I describe aspects of non-clausal negation, including negative replies and the absence of negative indefinites, quantifiers, and derivation. In §4, I address other aspects of negation, such as the scope of negation, negative polarity, and negation in complex clauses. Finally, §5 concludes the chapter.

2 Clausal negation

Following Miestamo (2005: 42) and later accounts of negation typology (van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova 2020), I distinguish standard from non-standard negation strategies. Miestamo (2005: 42) defines standard negation as “the productive and general means of negating declarative verbal main clauses”.

The remainder of this section is structured as follows: in §2.1, I describe standard negation with subsections on constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries between positive verbal clauses and their negative counterparts. Negation in non-declaratives, including questions, imperatives, and subjunctives, is described in §2.2. The negation of stative predications is discussed in §2.3, while non-main clauses and their negation strategies are explored in §2.4.

2.1 Standard negation

In this section, I first introduce the negative markers (§2.1.1). In §2.1.2, I introduce negation asymmetries, presenting constructional asymmetries in detail in §2.1.3 and paradigmatic asymmetries in §2.1.4.

2.1.1 Negative markers

Gyeli has three standard negation markers, each for different tense-mood categories, as shown in Table 1. Regarding the typology of morphological versus syntactic negation marking (Dahl 1979, Payne 1985), most negation markers in Gyeli are auxiliaries and thus of the syntactic type (see Table 5). The only morphological negation marker is found in present tense negation. This marker is a circumfix, consisting of a segmental suffix *-le* and a H tone co-exponent that attaches to the left of the verb, spreading rightwards. The negation auxiliaries are morphologically complex with a final syllable *-le* that seems related to the present negation. Synchronically, however, the auxiliaries cannot be parsed into lexical and negation morphemes. I therefore consider them monomorphemic.

Table 1: Markers of standard clausal negation in Gyeli

Negation marker	Status	Distribution
Standard negation		
H...-lɛ	negation circumfix	present
sàlé/pálé	negation auxiliary	past tenses
kálè	negation auxiliary	future

Examples for each negation marker and its affirmative counterpart are given in (1–3).² The tone rules are explained in §2.1.2. In a nutshell, tone patterns on the preverbal clitic and the verb differ depending on the tense-mood category they encode as well as on a phrase-medial versus phrase-final position of the verb and polarity. They are not conditioned by the lexical tone of the verb.

- (1) a. *bá dé bédéwò*
 ba-H dè-H H\be-déwò
 2-PRS eat-R OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘They eat food.’
- b. *bá délé bédéwò*
 ba-H dè-lɛ H\be-déwò
 2-PRS eat-NEG OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘They don’t eat food.’
- (2) a. *bà dé bédéwò*
 ba dè-H H\be-déwò
 2.REC.PST eat-R OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘They ate food.’
- b. *bà sàlé/pálé dè bédéwò*
 ba sàlé/pálé dè H\be-déwò
 2.REC.PST NEG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘They didn’t eat food.’
- (3) a. *bàà dè bédéwò*
 bàà dè H\be-déwò
 2.FUT eat OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘They will eat food.’

²Further example sentences in §2.1.3 and §2.1.4 illustrate the different types of asymmetries.

- b. *bàà kálè dè bédéwò*
bàà kálè dè H\be-déwò
 2.FUT NEG.FUT eat OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘They won’t eat food.’

2.1.2 Introducing negation asymmetries

Gyeli negation is asymmetric in Miestamo’s (2007) sense with structural differences between affirmatives and their negative counterparts, which mostly play out in the tonal patterns of the verb stem and the preverbal portmanteau morpheme “STAMP”, which encodes subject agreement, tense, aspect, mood, and polarity. These differences are both constructional and paradigmatic, as discussed in detail below.

In order to follow my argumentation on negation asymmetries, it is important to understand how Gyeli encodes tense categories in affirmative basic verbal predicates. The primary marking of tense in affirmative clauses is tonal, unlike negation marking, which is achieved primarily through segmental material (morphological and syntactic markers). The combinations of tonal patterns on the STAMP morpheme, a preverbal clitic, and the verb stem instantiate seven distinct categories, as shown in Table 2.

Table 2: Tonal patterns of affirmative tense-mood categories

Basic distinction	TM category	STAMP	Verb Stem	Verb Tone	Gloss
non-past	PRS	<i>yá</i>	<i>dè</i>	L	‘We eat.’
	INCH	<i>yàá</i>	<i>dè</i>		‘We are at the beginning of eating.’
	FUT	<i>yáà/mèè</i>	<i>dè</i>		‘We/I will eat.’
past	REC.PST	<i>yà</i>	<i>dé</i>	H	‘We ate (recently).’
	REM.PST	<i>yáà</i>	<i>dé</i>		‘We ate (a long time ago).’
tenseless	IMP	(<i>yá</i>)	<i>dê</i>	HL	‘Let’s eat!’
	SBJV	<i>yá</i>	<i>dée</i>		‘May we eat.’

Tense is intrinsically linked to mood marking, distinguishing realis and irrealis. Each tense inherently belongs to either the realis or the irrealis mood. I refer to these categories as “tense-mood” (TM) categories. Mood is marked overtly only for the realis category by an H tone that attaches to the right of the verb stem –

if the verb is not phrase-final. If the verb is phrase-final, mood marking tones do not surface, as I show below. In fact, the only inflection marking on finite verbs is mood marking opposing realis (with H) and irrealis (no H) categories.

The presence of the realis marking H tone is conditioned by the specific TM category and not morphosyntactic material following the verb since all parts of speech following the verb trigger the syntactic tone to surface. This is the case, for instance, in present affirmative clauses, as in (4), where a range of different word classes that follow the finite verb trigger a final H tone on the verb. I gloss this H tone as R for realis.

- | | | | | |
|-----|----|--------------------------|--------------------------|---------|
| (4) | a. | mé gyámbò | ‘I cook.’ | |
| | b. | mé gyámbó bé-kwàndò | ‘I cook plantains.’ | ___N |
| | c. | mé gyámbó byô | ‘I cook it.’ | ___PRO |
| | d. | mé gyámbó ndàà | ‘I cook today.’ | ___ADV |
| | e. | mé gyámbó é kisiní dé tù | ‘I cook in the kitchen.’ | ___PREP |
| | f. | mé gyámbó nà wómbèlè | ‘I cook and sweep.’ | ___CONJ |
| | g. | mé wúmbé gyámbò | ‘They want to cook.’ | ___V |

Table 3 shows which affirmative and negative tense categories are linked to which mood category. Thus, basic verbal clauses in the present, inchoative, recent, and remote past as realis categories always surface with a final H on the finite verb, while finite verbs in the irrealis categories of future, imperative, and subjunctive end in a non-H tone. The surface tones of H versus non-high clearly partition the tense-mood categories into realis/irrealis, constituting a semantic pattern that should not be easily dismissed as an arbitrary phonological pattern. Past negative auxiliaries *sàlé* and *pálé* are in the realis category, just like their affirmative counterparts. Mood category alignment is also found with the irrealis future in both affirmative and negative. Only the present switches from a realis category in the affirmative to irrealis under negation (see §2.1.4 on paradigmatic asymmetries).

Having outlined the tense-mood marking system of basic verbal predicates in affirmatives, I now turn to describing the asymmetries that occur under negation.

2.1.3 Constructional asymmetries

Standard clausal negation is constructionally asymmetric with both the negation circumfix H-...-lé and the negation auxiliaries *sàlé/pálé* and *kálè*, although the nature of the asymmetry differs between the morphological and the syntactic negation strategies.

Table 3: Distribution of realis and irrealis categories

	H tone presence → Realis	H tone absence → Irrealis
Affirmative	present inchoative recent past remote past	future imperative subjunctive
Negative	past negatives	present future negative

With the negation circumfix H...-lɛ in the present tense-mood category, the STAMP changes its tonal pattern (and vowel length) under negation, but only for the first and second person singular and agreement class 1. These person markers receive a long vowel with a rising tone, as shown for the first person singular in (5).

- (5) a. *mé dé bédéwò*
 mɛ-H dè-H H\be-déwò
 1SG-PRS eat-R OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘I eat food.’
- b. *mèé délé bédéwò*
 mèé dè-lɛ H\be-déwò
 1SG.PRS.NEG eat-NEG OBJ.LINK\8-food
 ‘I don’t eat food.’

All other STAMP morphemes (first and second person plural and agreement classes 2 through 9) are not subject to this asymmetry and retain their H tone pattern on the STAMP under negation, as shown with agreement class 2 in (1). In these cases, negation is symmetric.

The asymmetry of negation auxiliaries *sàlé/pálé* in past tenses and *kálè* in the future concerns a change in finiteness. This type of asymmetry is what Miestamo (2007) calls “A/Fin/NegVerb”. In affirmative simple verbal predicates, the lexical verb is also the finite verb, as in (6a). In contrast, under negation, the negation auxiliary becomes the finite element (as seen also above in 2 and 3), while the lexical verb is not inflected for realis marking, as shown in (6b) for the recent past. The remote past and the future are structurally identical to (6b).

- (6) a. *mè* *gyámbo* *bélòlò*
 mɛ *gyámbo*-H H\be-lòlò
 1SG.REC.PST cook-R OBJ.LINK\8-duck
 ‘I cooked ducks.’
- b. *mè* *sàlé* *gyámbo* *bélòlò*
 mɛ *sàlé* *gyámbo* H\be-lòlò
 1SG.PST NEG.PST.R cook OBJ.LINK\8-duck
 ‘I did not cook ducks.’
- c. *mé* *wúmbé* *gyámbo* *bélòlò*
 mɛ-H *wúmbɛ*-H *gyámbo* H\be-lòlò
 1SG-PRS want-R cook OBJ.LINK\8-duck
 ‘I want to cook ducks.’

As negation auxiliaries never occur in isolation, i.e. outside of a complex predicate, their underlying tonal structure cannot be proven. I still argue that negation auxiliaries become the finite verbal element in complex predicates based on their parallel structure to modal auxiliaries such as *wúmbe* ‘want’ in (6c). Modal auxiliaries serve as the finite element in complex predicates, while the realis marking H tone is consistently absent on the lexical verb *gyámbo* ‘cook’.

2.1.4 Paradigmatic asymmetries

All standard negation strategies in verbal clauses are also subject to paradigmatic asymmetries. First, the present tense switches from a realis mood category in affirmative clauses to an irrealis category under negation with the circumfix *H...-lɛ*. Example (7) shows that the realis marking H tone is present in the affirmative clause, but absent in its negative counterpart.

- (7) a. *Àdà* *á* *gyàgá* *mábèlé*
 Àdà a-H *gyàga*-H H\ma-bèlé
 Ø.1.PN 1-PRS buy-R OBJ.LINK\6-kola.nut
 ‘Ada buys kola nuts.’
- b. *Àdà* *àá* *gyàgàlè* *mábèlé*
 Àdà *àá* H-*gyàga*-lɛ H\ma-bèlé
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG NEG-buy-NEG OBJ.LINK\6-kola.nut
 ‘Ada does not buy kola nuts.’

Instead of simply lacking the realis marking H tone, however, the tone assignment rules for the present negation are different than for the affirmative realis/

irrealis distinction. First, the STAMP marker takes a different form in the first and second person singular and in agreement class 1 with a long LH vowel instead of a plain H morpheme, as shown in §2.1.3 for a constructional asymmetry. Second, the surface tone of the verb is determined by the tonal co-exponent of the present negation circumfix /H-...-lé/, leaving no underlyingly toneless tone-bearing Units that could host a realis-marking H tone. Only the radical, i.e. the first syllable within Gyeli verb stems, is specified for a lexical tone, which is either H or L. Second and third syllables are synchronically and/or diachronically extension morphemes³ and underlyingly toneless. They receive their tonal specification through their phonological environment or the attachment of grammatical tone melodies. In the case of negation with H...-lé, the H tone attaches to the left of the verb and spreads rightwards onto the negation suffix -lé. Verbs with a H verb radical thus surface all H, as shown in (8).⁴

- (8) a. H → H
 pê ‘choose’ > pé-lé
 b. H Ø → H H
 símé ‘respect’ > simé-lé
 c. H Ø Ø → H H H
 liyélé ‘show’ > liyé-lé

Verb radicals that are specified L are featurally changed to H. In monosyllabic verbs, this H tone spreads onto the negation suffix, as shown in (9).

- (9) L → H
 dè ‘eat’ > dé-lé

In bi- and trisyllabic verb stems with an L radical, however, only the radical is changed to H. In these cases, the H does not spread to the second and third toneless syllables nor to the negation suffix, as illustrated in (10).

- (10) a. L Ø → H L
 gyàga ‘buy’ > gyága-lè
 b. L Ø Ø → H L L
 vìdèga ‘turn’ > vídègà-lè

³Extension morphemes in Bantu languages occur between the verb root and the final vowel and serve valency-changing purposes, encoding categories such as causative, applicative, reciprocal and passive.

⁴Monosyllabic H verbs as in (8a) surface HL, due to a lowering rule for this specific syllable type.

The realis/irrealis distinction is not generally lost under negation (see Table 3 for the distribution of mood categories). In the case of the past negation markers *sàlé/pálé*, the final H tone marks realis, as shown in (6b). In contrast, the future negation marker *kálè* with its final L tone belongs in the irrealis category, just like its affirmative counterpart, as illustrated in (3b). The present is the only tense-mood category that switches from realis in the affirmative to irrealis under negation. Miestamo (2007) refers to this type as “A/NonReal”.

The second paradigmatic asymmetry concerns the neutralization of all (grammaticalized) aspect categories under negation (except for the non-complete accomplishment (NCA) *síle* ‘finish’). This also includes the inchoative, which formally clusters with tense-mood categories and which is subsumed under the present tense-mood category when negated, as shown in (11).

- (11) a. *yàá dé mántúà*
 yàá dè-H H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.INCH eat-R OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We are at the beginning of eating mangoes.’
 b. *yá/*yàá délé mántúà*
 ya-H dè-lɛ H\ma-ntúà
 1PL-PRS/*1PL.INCH eat-NEG OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We do not eat mangoes.’

Aspect marking in Gyeli is optional and mostly achieved through auxiliary verbs in affirmative constructions. As Table 4 shows, most aspect markers are restricted to a specific tense-mood category. As a result, the form of the STAMP marker is restricted as well, as generally illustrated by the agreement class 2 STAMP marker. For instance, aspect markers that can only occur in the present tense have always an L tone STAMP. Those restricted to past categories allow the STAMP markers for both recent and remote past, illustrated by *bà* and *báà*. The prospective marker *múà* is special in that the STAMP clitic for the first and second person singular and agreement class 1 take an L tone, as shown with *mè* for the first person singular in Table 4, while all others have an H tone, shown by *bá*. The aspect categories that have no tense-mood restriction allow all STAMP forms. Aspect markers without translations in Table 4 have no lexical meaning.

As a consequence of aspect neutralization under negation, the negated sentence is only marked for tense-mood, but not for aspect. The past progressive auxiliary *nzí*, for instance, is lost under negation and replaced by the past negation auxiliary, as in (12).

Table 4: Aspect markers in Gyeli

Status	Aspect marker	STAMP	TM restriction	Function
Grammaticalized verbs	<i>nzíí</i>	<i>bà</i>	PRS	PROG
	<i>nzí</i>	<i>bà, báà</i>	PST	PROG
	<i>nzéé</i>	<i>bà</i>	SUB	PROG
	<i>pá</i> ‘do first’	all forms	none	PRIOR
Verbs with lexical meaning	<i>ló</i> ‘come’	<i>bá</i>	PRS	RETRO
	<i>bwàà</i> ‘have’	<i>bà, báà</i>	PST	PRF
	<i>múà</i> ‘be’	<i>mé, bá</i>	FUT	PROSP
	<i>síle</i> ‘finish’	all forms	none	NCA
Reduplication	stem-stem	<i>bá</i>	PRS	HAB
Postverbal	<i>mò</i>	<i>bà</i>	REC.PST	COMPL

- (12) a. *yà ní dè mántúà*
 ya ní dè H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.PST PROG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We were eating mangoes.’
- b. *yà sàlé/pálé dè mántúà*
 ya.PST sàlé/pálé dè H\ntúà
 1PL.PST NEG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We did not eat mangoes.’

It is impossible to combine aspect and negation markers in a main clause for the reason that more than one grammaticalized auxiliary in a construction, not counting modal semi-auxiliaries, is prohibited (13a). Also with aspect auxiliaries that are restricted to the present tense-mood category, the attachment of the present negation circumfix *H...-le*, as in (13b), is not allowed.

- (13) a. * *yà sàlé/pálé ní/í dè mántúà*
 ya sàlé/pálé ní/í dè H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.PST NEG.PST PROG.PST eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We were not eating mangoes.’

- b. * *yà nzílé dè mántúà*
 ya nzí-lɛ dè H\ma-ntúà
 1PL.PST PROG.PST-NEG eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘We were not eating mangoes.’

Aspect and negation can only be combined through embedded clauses with negation expressed in the matrix and aspect expressed in the dependent clause, as shown in (14).

- (14) *mè sàlé/pálé bè [mè nzéé dè mántúà]*
 mɛ sàlé/pálé bè mɛ nzéé dè H\ma-ntúà
 1SG.PST PST.NEG be 1SG.PST PROG.SUB eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango
 ‘I was not eating mangoes.’ (lit. ‘I was not that I am eating mangoes.’)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Non-declarative sentences comprise questions as well as imperatives and subjunctives. In Gyeli, questions (§2.2.1) follow the standard negation patterns, whereas negated imperatives (§2.2.2) and negated subjunctives (§2.2.3) require non-standard negation strategies.

Imperative and subjunctive constructions are generally expected to behave differently under negation. Nurse (2008) posits that Bantu languages tend to have different negation strategies based on sentence types, commonly opposing negation in main versus dependent and indicative versus subjunctive clauses. While Gyeli imperatives and subjunctives indeed require a non-standard negation strategy, one cannot, however, make a case for a neat dichotomy between imperative/subjunctive and indicative clauses. The reason for this is that both the imperative negation with *tí* and the subjunctive negation with *dúú* are also found in (some) negated main clauses in the present tense-mood category. Both non-standard negation markers are asymmetric, including shifts in finiteness and tonal changes.

2.2.1 Negation in questions

Just like in declarative sentences, the form of the negation marker in questions is determined by the tense-mood category with which it appears (Table 1). Negated questions are also subject to the same constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries described in §2.1.3 and §2.1.4.

The type of question, e.g. polar questions or constituent questions, has no impact on the type of negation strategy. Example (15) shows an example of a

polar question, where only the question marker *nà* indicates that it is not an affirmative sentence.

- (15) a. *nà wé nyé nyê*
 nà wɛ-H nyê-H nyê
 Q 2SG-PRS see-R 1.OBJ
 ‘Do you see him/her?’
 b. *nà wèé nyélé nyê*
 nà wèé nyê-lɛ nyê
 Q 2SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG 1.OBJ
 ‘Don’t you see him/her?’

Constituent questions employ animacy-based interrogative pronouns for all argument types, as for instance an object in a double object construction in (16). The negated counterpart follows the standard negation strategy (§2.1) with different negation markers for different tense-mood categories and both constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries.

- (16) a. *nzá àà vê bɛ̀fùmɓí*
 nzá àà vê H\be-fùmɓí
 who 1.FUT give OBJ.LINK\8-orange
 ‘To whom will s/he give oranges?’
 b. *nzá àà kálè vê bɛ̀fùmɓí*
 nzá àà kálè vê H\be-fùmɓí
 who 1.FUT NEG.FUT give OBJ.LINK\8-orange
 ‘To whom won’t s/he give oranges?’

2.2.2 Non-standard negation with *tí*

The primary use of *tí* is to negate imperatives.⁵ Positive imperatives have three different construction types, as shown in (17). The verbal imperative form is always marked by an HL tone pattern (Table 2). In (17a), the addressee is a single individual and the imperative verb occurs without any person marking. In contrast, if there are multiple addressees, a postverbal plural particle is used, as in (17b). In a cohortative construction, as in (17c), both the first person plural subject marker and the postverbal plural particle are used.

⁵I could not discern any clear lexical meaning for *tí*. Out of context, speakers will translate it as ‘without’, but this is probably because the derived use of *tí* as a privative preposition, as discussed below, is the only case where a lexical translation equivalent can be found.

- (17) a. **dê**
 ‘Eat (SG)!’
 b. **dê** *ngà*
 ‘Eat (PL)!’
 c. *yá* **dê** *ngà*
 ya-H dê nga
 1PL-PRS eat.SBJV PL
 ‘Let’s eat!’

In negated imperatives, as in (18), the lexical verb is preceded by the negative auxiliary *tí*. Negated imperatives are subject to a constructional asymmetry pertaining to finiteness that is shifted from the lexical verb to the auxiliary. This shift in finiteness formally manifests in two ways. First, the HL pattern on positive imperatives is lost and the lexical verb surfaces with its underlying lexical tones. Second, the plural particle follows the auxiliary and not the lexical verb.

- (18) a. **tí** **dè**
 ‘Don’t (SG) eat!’
 b. **tí** *ngá* **dè**
 ‘Don’t (PL) eat!’
 c. *yá* **tí** *ngá* **dè**
 ya-H tí nga dè
 1PL-PRS NEG PL eat
 ‘Let’s not eat!’

The negative auxiliary *tí* is also used in three non-imperative constructions. First, it appears as a negation marker in present tense main clauses. The choice between the standard present tense negation circumfix H...-lɛ (§2.1) and the non-standard negation auxiliary *tí* in present tense main clauses relates to information structure principles and an immediate-after-verb focus position.⁶ If the standard negation circumfix is used, as in (19a), the negation itself, thus the truth value, is in focus. This could be, for instance, as a contradiction to a statement such as ‘You are eating’. In contrast, if *tí* is used, as in (19b), the lexical verb is in

⁶There are two ways to classify *tí* with respect to its status as standard or non-standard negation marker. Since *tí* is a productive means for negating declarative verbal main clauses (in the present tense), it could be analyzed as standard negation. However, since it is part of a special focus construction, it is not the neutral way of negating the present tense, which speaks against treating it as standard negation. I adopt the latter analysis.

focus position. The two constructions therefore serve to disambiguate the scope of negation; more information on scope under negation is provided in §4.1.

- (19) a. *mě́ě* *dě́lé*
 mě́ě *dě-lé*
 1SG.PRS.NEG eat-NEG
 ‘[You are eating.] – I **don’t** eat.’
 b. *mè tí* *dè*
 mɛ tí *dè*
 1SG NEG eat
 ‘I don’t eat [I drink].’

Second, *tí* is used in nominal clauses as the privative preposition ‘without’ (§3.3), and third, *tí* serves as a negative subordinator (§4.5).

2.2.3 Non-standard negation with *dúù*

The second non-standard negation marker *dúù* is a true auxiliary in Gyeli, which is defined by its tense-mood restriction to the present and subjunctive category. This is different from other modal verbs, such as *wúmbe* ‘want’ or *lèmbo* ‘know’, which can occur in every tense-mood category and are thus semi-auxiliaries. The marker *dúù* serves as the negative counterpart of two affirmative constructions. First, it negates the modal verb *yáne* ‘must’ by replacing it, as shown in (20). This construction shows constructional asymmetry in that the modal of the affirmative is replaced by the negative auxiliary. The positive and the negative are aligned, however, in the mood category, as both take the realis-marking H tone.

- (20) a. *bé* *dúú* *vũũ*
 be-H *dúù*-H *vũũ*
 2PL-PRS must.not-R worry
 ‘You (PL) should/must not worry.’
 b. *bé* *yáne* *vũũ*
 be-H *yáne*-H *vũũ*
 2PL-PRS must-R worry
 ‘You (PL) should/must worry.’

Second, the auxiliary *dúù* is also used to negate subjunctive clauses, as in (21). These subjunctive clauses are constructionally asymmetric, since the finiteness is shifted from the lexical verb in the affirmative to the auxiliary under negation.

- (21) a. *bé dúù kè tísònì*
 be-H dúù kè tísònì
 2PL-PRS must.not.SBJV go Ø.7.town
 ‘You (PL) may/should not go to town.’
- b. *bé kéè tísònì*
 be-H kéè tísònì
 2PL-PRS go.SBJV Ø.7.town
 ‘You (PL) may/should go to town.’

The use of *dúù* as negating a modal or the subjunctive is clearly marked by its distinct tonal patterns. In modal negation in (20a), it takes the realis-marking H tone of the present tense-mood category. In subjunctive negation, as in (21a), it surfaces with the subjunctive HL pattern without the realis-marking H tone.

Just like the other non-standard negation marker *tí*, *dúù* is also used in dependent clauses (§2.4).

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Gyeli has four types of non-verbal predications in affirmative present tense clauses, following Payne’s (1997) classification of non-verbal clauses. In Gyeli, the different types are marked by different copulas and/or differences in constituent order. In other tenses than the present and under negation, these copulas are replaced by an inflected form of the verb *bè* ‘be’. There is no difference in the encoding of permanent versus temporary property assignment, neither in affirmative nor negated sentences.

The most frequent copula in present affirmative non-verbal clauses is the “STAMP copula”, which has the same segmental form as long-vowel STAMP clitics (Table 2), marking subject agreement. The STAMP copulas for the first and second person singular and agreement class 1 have an H tone pattern, while all others have an HL pattern. As shown in (22), the STAMP copula marks relations of equation, proper inclusion, attribution, and locative predication between the subject and the predicate. As such, the predicates of a STAMP copula construction include nouns, adjectives, and locative noun phrases. (In other tenses than the present, the specific tense form of the verb *bè* ‘be’ is used for all of these constructions.)

- (22) a. Equation
 Àdà àà sâ wâ
 Ø.1.PN 1.COP Ø.1.father 1-POSS.1SG
 ‘Ada is my father.’

- b. Proper inclusion
Àdà àà ngèlénè
 Ø.1.PN 1.COP Ø.1.teacher
 ‘Ada is a teacher.’
- c. Attribution
Àdà àà mpà
 Ø.1.PN 1.COP good
 ‘Ada is good.’
- d. Locative predication
Àdà àà ndáwò dé tù
 Ø.1.PN 1.COP Ø.9.house LOC inside
 ‘Ada is in the house.’

Negation of these non-verbal predication patterns with standard negation strategies using the verb *bè* ‘be’, as shown in (23).

- (23) a. Equation
Àdà àá bɛ-lɛ sâ wâ
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG Ø.1.father 1-POSS.1SG
 ‘Ada is not my father.’
- b. Proper inclusion
Àdà àá bɛ-lɛ ngèlénè
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG Ø.1.teacher
 ‘Ada is not a teacher.’
- c. Attribution
Àdà àá bɛ-lɛ mpà
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG good
 ‘Ada is not good.’
- d. Locative predication
Àdà àá bɛ-lɛ ndáwò dé tù
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG Ø.9.house LOC inside
 ‘Ada is not in the house.’

Existential clauses are the second type of non-verbal predicates. While they also use the STAMP copula, their predicates are typically adverbs, as in (24a). Under negation, the adverb is dropped. In contrast to the constructions in (23), negated existentials allow for the subject noun to appear either clause-finally, as in (24b), or clause-initially, as in (24c). Example (24b) represents the unmarked

order as either athetic sentence or with the postverbal noun being in the dedicated focus position. If the negated verb appears phrase-finally, the focus is on the negation and thus on the truth value of the clause.

- (24) a. *b-ùdâ báà tè*
 ba.2-woman 2.COP there
 ‘There are women.’
 b. *bá bɛ́-lé b-ùdâ*
 2.PRS be-not 2-woman
 ‘There are no **women** (or thetic).’
 c. *b-ùdâ bá bɛ́-lé*
 2-woman 2.PRS be-NEG
 ‘There **are no** women.’

Third, Gyeli marks identificational clauses with the identificational marker *wé*. In contrast to the STAMP copula, it is invariable and does not agree with the subject. The identificational marker typically links a nominal subject to a demonstrative, as in (25a), or an anaphoric marker, as in (25b), which is uttered at the end of a storytelling.

- (25) a. *ntémbó wâ wé nú*
 Ø.1.younger.opposite.sex.sibling 1-POSS.1SG ID 1.DEM.PROX
 ‘This is my younger brother/sister.’
 b. *kàndá wé ndè*
 Ø.7.proverb ID ANA
 ‘This is the story.’

The negated counterparts of identificational constructions are also encoded by the verb *bè* ‘be’, as shown in (26). As with negated existentials, negated identification clauses with a demonstrative allow for more freedom in constituent order, changing the topic referent. In (26a), the discourse topic is the sibling, while the deictic referent of the demonstrative is in focus position. In (26b), on the other hand, the discourse topic is the deictic referent of the demonstrative, while the nominal complement *ntémbó wâ* ‘my younger brother/sister’ constitutes new information.⁷

⁷The demonstrative in (26b) replaces the STAMP clitic segmentally, but takes the tonal pattern that the STAMP clitic would take in this environment.

- (26) a. *ntémbó* *wâ* *àá* *bé-lé*
 Ø.1.younger.opposite.sex.sibling 1-POSS.1SG 1.PRS.NEG be-NEG
nû
 1.DEM.PROX
 ‘My younger brother/sister is not this one.’
- b. *nú* *bé-lé* *ntémbó* *wâ*
 1.DEM.PRS be-NEG Ø.1.younger.opposite.sex.sibling 1-POSS.1SG
 ‘This is not my younger brother/sister.’
- c. *kàndá* *yí* *bé-lé* *yí-ndè*
 Ø.7.proverb 7.PRS be-NEG 7-ANA
 ‘This is not the story.’

While the anaphoric marker (which is distinct from the proximal and distal demonstratives) can appear bare with the identificational marker *wé* in (25b), it requires an agreement prefix in the negated construction in (26c).

Finally, possessive predication is expressed by the combination of a verb and comitative marker *bè nà* ‘be with’. As such, these constructions generally follow the same pattern as negation in main clauses, as shown in (27). At the same time, they allow a choice between the standard negation form in (27b) and the use of the non-standard privative marker *tí* (§2.2.2 and §3.3), as in (27c), which seems to emphasize the absence of something.

- (27) a. *mé* *bé* *nà* *nkwàno*
 mɛ-H bè-H nà nkwàno
 1SG-PRS be-R COM Ø.3.honey
 ‘I have honey.’
- b. *mé* *bé-lé* *nà* *nkwàno*
 mɛ-H bè-lɛ nà nkwàno
 1SG-PRS be-NEG COM Ø.3.honey
 ‘I don’t have any honey.’
- c. *mè* *tí* *bè nà* *nkwàno*
 mɛ tí bè nà nkwàno
 1SG.SBJ NEG be COM Ø.3.honey
 ‘I’m without honey.’

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Gyeli does not have any dedicated negation strategies that make distinctions between main and non-main clauses. Just like in main clauses (§2.1), non-main

clauses allow for standard and non-standard negation constructions. Thus the dichotomy of different negation types contrasting indicative/subjunctive or main/relative clauses that has been observed in many Bantu languages (Nurse 2008) does not apply in Gyeli. Example (28) shows standard negation in a relative clause with the same constructional and paradigmatic asymmetries described in §2.1.3 and §2.1.4.

- (28) a. *bá dyúwɔ lékélè [lé wé làwɔ]_{REL}*
 ba-H dyúwɔ-H H\lɛ-kélè lé wɛ-H làwɔ
 2-PRS understand OBJ.LINK\5-language 5:ATTR 2SG-PRS speak
 ‘They understand the language that you speak.’
 b. *bá dyúwɔ lékélè [lé wɛɛ*
 ba-H dyúwɔ-H H\lɛ-kélè lé wɛɛ
 2-PRS understand OBJ.LINK\5-language 5:ATTR 2SG-PRS.NEG
 làwɔlɛ]_{REL}
 làwɔ-lɛ
 speak-NEG
 ‘They understand the language that you don’t speak.’

Standard negation is also used in complement clauses with say- or think-verbs, as in (29) and its negative counterpart in (30).

- (29) *ndí wé lèmbó [nâ mbvúndá nyûi bvúda nà mbvúndá]_{COMP}*
 ndí wɛ-H lèmbɔ-H nâ mbvúndá nyûi bvúda nà mbvúndá
 but 2SG-PRS know-R COMP Ø.9.trouble 9.FUT fight COM Ø.9.trouble
 ‘But you know that violence will create more violence.’
 (30) *ndí wé lèmbó [nâ mbvúndá nyûi kálè bvúda nà*
 ndí wɛ-H lèmbɔ-H nâ mbvúndá nyûi kálè bvúda nà
 but 2SG-PRS know-R COMP Ø.9.trouble 9.FUT NEG.FUT fight COM
 mbvúndá]_{COMP}
 mbvúndá
 Ø.9.trouble
 ‘But you know that violence will not create more violence.’

There are non-main clauses with the non-standard negation markers *dúu* and *tí* to mark predication negation. The latter is special in that it can also act as the negative subordinator of an infinitival clause (§4.5). If a complement clause expresses wishes, orders, obligations, or prohibitions, the subjunctive is used, which requires the non-standard negation marker *dúu* under negation, as in (31).

- (31) a. *yî mpindá nâ wé djíwóò bésâ*
yî mpindá nâ wε-H djíwóò H\be-sâ
 7.COP Ø.9.prohibition COMP 2SG-PRS steal.SBJV OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 'It's forbidden that you steal things.'
- b. *yî mpinàgà nâ wé dúú djíwò*
yî mpinàgà nâ wε-H dúú djíwò
 7.COP Ø.3.obligation COMP 2SG-PRS must.not.SBJV steal
bésâ
H\be-sâ
 OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 'It's necessary that you don't steal things.'

Furthermore, *dúú* can negate a modal in dependent clauses, as in (32).

- (32) a. *kálè mè báà kì nâ bá yáné bè bédéwò*
kálè mè báà kì nâ ba-H yánε-H bè H\be-déwò
 NEG 1SG 2.FUT say COMP 2-PRS must-R grow OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 'It's not me, they [= who] will say that they must grow food.'
- b. *kálè mè báà kì nâ bá dúú bè bédéwò*
kálè mè báà kì nâ ba-H dúú-H bè H\be-déwò
 NEG 1SG 2.FUT say COMP 2-PRS must.not-R grow OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 'It's not me, they [= who] will say that they must not grow food.'

In complement clauses with the subjunctive, negation is usually raised from the dependent to the main clause, as shown in (33). Negative raising is possible and frequent with the subjunctive, since the subjunctive in Gyeli inherently relates to volition, as reflected also in the predicate of the main clause. Volition predicates constitute one class of predicates involved in negative raising (Horn 1989). Negative raising with other types of verbs that do not entail a subjunctive form in the dependent clause, such as for instance say-verbs, is not possible as the meaning would change.

- (33) *mèé wúmbélé nâ wé djíwóò bésâ*
mèé wúmbe-le nâ wε-H djíwóò H\be-sâ
 1.PRS.NEG want-NEG COMP 2SG-PRS steal.SBJV OBJ.LINK\8-thing
 'I don't want that you steal things.'

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

Negative lexicalizations in Gyeli are rare. The most common one is the negative modal auxiliary *dúù* ‘must not’. Its main use is in negative subjunctives and therefore discussed in §2.2.3. One may argue that the noun *mpindá* ‘prohibition’ in (31a) is another instance of negative lexicalization, as it generates an implicature that the action in the following complement clause is not to be done. The noun does not, however, perform clausal negation in a syntactic sense.

3 Non-clausal negation

While Gyeli has several negation markers for clausal negation, non-clausal negation is rather restricted. After discussing pro-sentence forms of negative replies in §3.1, I turn to the lack of negative indefinites and quantifiers in §3.2 and the absence of negative derivation in §3.3.

3.1 Negative replies

Gyeli has several pro-sentence forms for agreement and disagreement signal. Example (34) provides a list of pro-forms that signal agreement and that can be used in an answer to any yes/no-question. They have pragmatic differences. For instance, while (34a) is the default form, (34f) is more emphatic.

- (34) a. *éè* ‘yes’
b. *áà* ‘yes’
c. *èè* ‘yes’
d. *éé* ‘yes’
e. *mínín* ‘yes’
f. *èhéé* ‘yes’

There are fewer pro-forms for disagreement than for agreement. The default form is *tòsâ* in (35a), which is derived from the negative polarity item *tò* and the noun *sâ* ‘thing’.

- (35) a. *tòsâ* ‘no’
b. *é’ê* ‘no’
c. *m’m* ‘no’

Semantically, negative replies match the question's polarity, as shown in (36–37). Enfield et al. (2019) refer to this interjection-type answer as a 'yes/no system' (contrasting an 'agree/disagree system' in which the answer relates to the truth value of the proposition).

- (36) Q: *nà wɛ nyé nyê*
 nà wɛ nyê-H nyê
 Q 2SG.REC.PST see-R 1.OBJ
 'Did you see him/her?'
 A1: *ɛ̀ɛ̀* 'yes! [I did see him/her]'
 A2: *tòsà* 'no! [I didn't see him/her]'
- (37) Q: *nà wɛ́ɛ́ nyé́lé nyê*
 nà wɛ́ɛ́ nyê-lɛ nyê
 Q 2SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG 1.OBJ
 'Didn't you see him/her?'
 A1: *ɛ̀ɛ̀* 'yes! [I did see him/her]'
 A2: *tòsà* 'no! [I didn't see him/her]'

Interjection-type answers seem more frequent and the default, but repetition-type answers are also used, which echo the verb of the question. The repeated proposition either occurs by itself or in combination with the interjection-type answer, for instance as in *I didn't see him!* or *No, I didn't see him*. This combination of a 'yes/no' and an 'echo system' is the most frequent among mixed answering systems (Moser 2018). The distribution of different answer types has not been investigated at length in Gyeli, but it seems that repetition-type answers and their combinations with an interjection are linked to emphasis and assertion.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Gyeli does not have any negative indefinite pronouns. Equivalent of *nobody* or *nothing* in English are expressed by bare nouns with the singular form of *mùdì* 'person' for animates and *sà* 'thing' for inanimates, as shown in (38) for these bare nouns in object position.

- (38) *mɛ́ɛ́ nyé́lé mùdì/sà*
 mɛ́ɛ́ nyê-lɛ m-ùdì/sà
 1SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG Ø.1-person/Ø.7.thing
 'I don't see a (the) person/a (the) thing.'

As the translation suggests, this clause is ambiguous as to the referent of the bare noun. The negative polarity item *tò* can optionally be used to clarify when the intended meaning is *anyone/anything*, as discussed in (§4.2).

If these default bare nouns function as the subject, a negated existential construction (§2.3) is used in combination with a relative clause, as in (39).⁸

- (39) a. *bá bélé bùdì [bà ké tísònì]_{REL}*
 ba-H bè-lɛ b-ùdì ba kɛ-H tísònì
 2-PRS be-NEG 2-person 2.REC.PST go-R Ø.7.town
 ‘Nobody went to town.’
- b. *bà bélé bùdì [bà ké tísònì]_{REL}*
 ba bè-lɛ b-ùdì ba kɛ-H tísònì
 2.REC.PST be-NEG 2-person 2.REC.PST go-R Ø.7.town
 ‘There **were** no people who went to town.’

In contrast to the object position, the plural form is preferred with the subject bare noun, although the singular is also possible. In terms of tense marking, the negative clause could also appear in other tense-mood categories, for instance in the past or future. However, the present marking in the negated main clause and potentially a different tense marking in the relative clause is the default. If the main clause was marked for a different tense category, that tense category would be in focus, as in (39b) (while the relative clause keeps the past tense marking as well).

There are also no negative quantifiers such as *no* or *none*. Equivalents of these are either expressed by negated existential clauses, as in (39), or with *tí* constructions, as in (40b).

3.3 Negative derivation

Gyeli lacks the diversity in negation (derivational) affixes found in many Indo-European languages that are associated with semantic categories such as “contradictory negation” (*non-*), “contrary negation” and “reversal” (*un-*), “privative negation” and “removal” (*dis-*), and “opposition” (*anti-*) (Cartoni & Lefer 2011, Joshi 2020). There are only two instances of negative derivation in Gyeli. One is the negative reply *tòsâ* ‘no’, which is a lexicalized form derived from the negative polarity item *tò* (§4.2) and the noun *sâ* ‘thing’.

⁸It is cross-linguistically common to use negative existentials to encode negative indefinites (Haspelmath 1997, Veselinova 2013).

The other is the use of the non-standard negation marker *tí* with nominal heads. While *tí* is primarily used as a negation marker for imperatives (§2.2.2), it has also grammaticalized into a nominal negation marker that drops the verbal elements of an infinitival clause *tí bè nà* ‘not being with’ to serve as a privative preposition *tí* ‘without’, as shown in (40b) – the elements in parentheses are usually omitted.

- (40) a. *mé nyúlé kǎfí nà ngùó*
 mɛ-H nyúlɛ-H kǎfí nà ngùó
 1SG-PRS drink-R Ø.7.coffee COM Ø.7.sugar
 ‘I drink coffee with sugar.’
- b. *mé nyúlé kǎfí tí (bè nà) ngùó*
 mɛ-H nyúlɛ-H kǎfí tí bè nà ngùó
 1SG-PRS drink-R Ø.7.coffee NEG be COM Ø.7.sugar
 ‘I drink coffee without sugar.’

There is one unique case of reversal opposition between *jì* ‘open’ and *jì-bo* ‘close’ (lit. ‘un-open’). The extension suffix *-bo* and its alternate form *-wɔ* cannot, however, be associated with a general reversal meaning (Grimm 2021: 279).

As Gyeli only has a very small class of adjectives, morphologically negated adjectives do not exist; they would be expressed as other non-verbal predicates (§2.3). Further, Gyeli does not have any case marking so that negation phenomena in connection with case do not apply.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

Negation can have scope over all constituents in a sentence. Therefore, a sentence as in (41) is ambiguous with respect to which constituent is being negated.

- (41) *Àdà àá gyámǎbǎlé békǎwǎndò kísínì dé tù*
Àdà àá gyámbo-le H\be-kwǎndò kísínì dé tù
 Ø.1.PN 1.PRS.NEG cook-NEG OBJ.LINK\8-plantain Ø.1.kitchen LOC inside
 ‘Ada doesn’t cook plantains in the kitchen.’

The negation can scope over any NP: the subject (it isn’t Ada, it is Mambi), the object (it isn’t plantains, it is potatoes), and the adjunct (it isn’t in the kitchen, it is outside). It can also negate both the verb (he doesn’t cook the plantains, he grills

them) and the TAM category (he doesn't cook plantains right now, he already cooked them).

There are means to disambiguate the focus of negation, following the language's information packaging principles. The most important means of conveying information structure in Gyeli is word order. Prosody, such as stress, does not play a role. Instead, Gyeli has dedicated information structure positions (Güldemann et al. 2015), with the subject as the default topic and the object as default focus (Grimm forthcoming). Predicate focus is achieved through (pronominal) object fronting as in (42).

- (42) à pálé byô gyámbo
 a pálé byô gyámbo
 1.REC.PST PST.NEG 8.OBJ cook
 'S/he did not **cook** them [the plantains].'

Subject and adjunct focus are expressed by cleft constructions, as exemplified for subject focus in (43).

- (43) yîi pálé Àdà à gyámbo békwàndò
 yîi pálé Àdà a gyámbo-H H\be-kwàndò
 7.COP PST.NEG Ø.1.PN 1.REC.PST cook-R OBJ.LINK\8-plantain
 'It wasn't Ada who cooked the plantains.'

A special focus construction using different negation strategies was discussed in §2.2.2 in example (19).

Negation also has scope effects in terms of narrow and wide scope readings in negated sentences (see also §3.2). In (44a), it is ambiguous whether negation has narrow or wide scope.

- (44) a. mɛ́ɛ nyé́lé bùdì
 mɛ́ɛ nyê-lé b-ùdì
 1SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG 2-person
 'I don't see any/the people.'
- b. mɛ́ɛ nyé́lé tò bùdì
 mɛ́ɛ nyê-lé tò b-ùdì
 1SG.PRS.NEG see-NEG NPI 2-person
 'I don't see any people.'

Gyeli can disambiguate narrow scope readings by using the negative polarity item (NPI) *tò*, as in (44b), as is expected for the function of an NPI: Barker (2018: 483) shows that, "an NPI must always take narrow scope with respect to its licensing context."

4.2 Negative polarity

Gyeli has two negative polarity items (NPI). One is *tò* and disambiguates scope readings under negation, as discussed in §4.1. The other is *lií* ‘yet’, which is licensed under negation of the completive aspect, as shown in (45). For further discussion, please see Grimm (2021: 477). Both NPIS are strictly limited to negative contexts.

- (45) a. *mè pálé lií bâ*
 mɛ pálé líí bâ
 1SG.REC.PST NEG.PST yet marry
 ‘I am not yet married.’
- b. *mè bâ mò*
 mɛ bâ mò
 1SG.REC.PST marry COMPL
 ‘I am already married.’

In contrast to the opposition of English ‘still’ and ‘anymore’, Gyeli does not use an NPI but the same lexical item *ná* ‘still’ in affirmative and negated sentences, as shown in (46) for both the standard and non-standard negation strategy in the present tense. In all cases, the continuous marker *ná* follows the inflected verb form, which is the auxiliary *tí* in (46c).

- (46) a. *líí á sílé dè mántúà á dyúwó ná*
 líí a-H sílé-H dè H\ma-ntúà a-H dyúwɔ-H ná
 when 1-PRS finish-R eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango 1-PRS feel-R still
 nzá
 nzá
 Ø.9.hunger
 ‘When s/he has eaten mangoes, s/he still feels hungry.’
- b. *líí á sílé dè mántúà àá dyúwólé ná*
 líí a-H sílé-H dè H\ma-ntúà àá dyúwɔ-lɛ ná
 when 1-PRS finish-R eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango 1.PRS.NEG feel-NEG still
 nzá
 nzá
 Ø.9.hunger
 ‘When s/he has eaten mangoes, s/he does *not* feel hungry anymore.’

- c. *líní á sílé dè mántúà à tí ná dyúwɔ*
 líní a-H sílé-H dè H\ma-ntúà a tí ná dyúwɔ
 when 1-PRS finish-R eat OBJ.LINK\6-mango 1 NEG still feel
nzà
nzà
 Ø.9.hunger
 ‘When s/he has eaten mangoes, s/he does not feel *hungry* anymore.’

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There is no special marking of NPs in the scope of negation except for the negative polarity item *tò* which may appear in front of a NP to indicate narrow scope (§4.1, §4.2).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Reinforcing negative replies (§3.1) is achieved prosodically through lengthening and increased volume. Also cleft constructions, as described in §4.1, can reinforce negation. Other means of negation reinforcement require future research.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Coordination of affirmative and negated phrases seems generally to be avoided. Speakers use separate sentences or coordination with the opposition coordinator *ndí* ‘but’ instead. Coordination of two negated phrases only requires negation marking on the first verb, while negation also has scope over the second co-ordinand, as in (47).

- (47) *měé gyímbólé nà dyà*
měé gyímbɔ-le nà dyà
 1SG.NEG.PRS dance-NEG CONJ sing
 ‘I don’t dance and sing.’

The negative polarity item *tò* (§4.2) is used as a negative coordinator. It can coordinate both NPs, as in (48a), and non-finite verbs in complex predicates, as in (48b).

- (48) a. *měé kwálèlè tò bèfùmbí tò mànjà*
měé kwàlè-le tò be-fùmbí tò ma-njà
 1SG.NEG.PRS like-NEG NPI 8-orange NPI 6-banana
 ‘I neither like oranges nor bananas.’

- b. *mèé kwálèlè tò dyà tò gyímbò*
mèé kwàlè-lè tò dyà tò gyímbò
 1SG.NEG.PRS like-NEG NPI sing NPI dance
 ‘I neither like to sing nor to dance.’

The non-standard negation marker *tí* (§2.2.2) functions as a negative subordinator in infinitival subordinate clauses, as in (49b). This is different from simply negating the predicate of a dependent clause (§2.4), as verb inflection for tense, aspect, mood, and polarity is generally lost in infinitival dependent clauses. The affirmative counterpart in (49a) either takes another subordinator such as the sequential marker *vèè* or no special subordinator at all.

(49) Context: Depiction of disease roaming in his body.

- a. *gbí-gbì-gbì-gbì-gbì à múà nà bábè [(vèè) wúmbè wè]*
gbí-gbì-gbì-gbì-gbì a múà nà bábè vèè wúmbè wè
 IDEO:roaming 1 PROSP COM Ø.7.illness SEQ want die
 ‘He was about to be sick, wanting to die.’
- b. *gbí-gbì-gbì-gbì-gbì à múà nà bábè [tí wúmbè wè]*
gbí-gbì-gbì-gbì-gbì a múà nà bábè tí wúmbè wè
 IDEO:roaming 1 PROSP COM Ø.7.illness NEG want die
 ‘He was about to be sick, not wanting to die.’

The language does not have negative conjunctions such as *lest*.

5 Summary

Negation in Gyeli is mostly marked through syntactic means of negation auxiliaries, as shown in Table 5, which provides a summary of all negation markers in the language.

In Gyeli clausal negation, both standard and non-standard negation strategies are used, as shown in Table 6.⁹ The distribution of standard versus non-standard negation correlates with a combination of specific tense-mood categories with certain clause types. There is, however, no entirely neat form-to-function mapping of negation markers to single tense-mood categories or clause types. While past tenses and the future only occur with standard negation, present tense negation has several strategies, including standard and non-standard negation.

⁹Negation markers also take STAMP marker forms that are specific to the TAMP category they encode, as described in §2.1.

Table 5: Gyeli negation markers

Negation marker	Status	Distribution
H...- <i>lɛ</i>	negation circumfix	present
<i>sàlé/palé</i>	negation auxiliary	past tenses
<i>kâlè</i>	negation auxiliary	future
<i>dúù</i> ‘must not’	modal negation auxiliary	subjunctive, present
<i>tí</i>	negation auxiliary	imperative, infinitive, present (predicate focus)

Remarkably, the choice of different negation strategies coincides with different focus constructions, differentiating truth value focus and lexical verb focus. Subjunctives and imperatives only have non-standard negation marking. Some clause types are associated with standard and non-standard negation, such as main, relative, and complement clauses. In contrast, non-verbal and existential clauses only take standard negation marking, while infinitival subordinate clauses and NPs only allow non-standard negation.

Table 6: Distribution of clausal negation markers

Negation marker	TM distribution	Clause types	
Standard negation			
<i>-lɛ</i> <i>sàlɛ́/palɛ́</i> <i>kálɛ̀</i>	present past tenses future	main, relative, complement, non-verbal, existential	
Non-standard clausal negation			
<i>dúù</i> ‘must not’ <i>tí</i>	subjunctive, present imperative, infinitive, present (predicate focus)		main, relative, complement main, infinitival clause, NPs

While Gyeli has various strategies and markers for clausal negation, negative derivation is virtually absent. This ties in with the language’s limited set of adjectives.

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Abbreviations

Ø	Ø-noun class	IMP	imperative
*	ungrammatical form	INCH	inchoative
1–9	agreement class 1–9	L	low tone
1SG	first person singular	LOC	locative
2SG	second person singular	N	noun
1PL	first person plural	NCA	non-complete
2PL	second person plural		accomplishment
ADV	adverb	NEG	negation
ANA	anaphoric marker	NPI	negative polarity
ATTR	attributive marker		item
COM	comitative marker	NP	noun phrase
COMP	complementizer	OBJ.LINK	object linking H tone
COMPL	completive	PL	plural
CONJ	conjunction	PN	proper name
COP	copula	POSS	possessor pronoun
DEM	demonstrative	PREP	preposition
FUT	future	PRF	perfect
H	high tone	PRIOR	priorative
HAB	habitual	PRO	pronoun
HL	falling contour tone	PROG	progressive
ID	identificational marker	PROSP	prospective
IDEO	ideophone	PROX	proximal

PRS	present	SEQ	sequential marker
PST	past	SG	singular
Q	question marker	STAMP	subject agreement, tense, aspect, mood,
R	realis mood		polarity clitic
REC	recent		
REL	relative clause	SUB	subordinate
REM	remote	TM	tense-mood
RETRO	retrospective	v	verb
SBJV	subjunctive		

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Chapter 8

Negation in Ngoreme

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This chapter is an overview of various aspects of negation in Ngoreme, a Lacustrine Bantu language spoken in the Mara Region of Tanzania. Ngoreme marks standard negation via verbal morphology, either with the prefix *ta-* following the subject marker (termed post-initial) or the prefix *te-* preceding the subject marker (termed pre-initial). These forms are in free variation in standard negation, reflecting an ongoing process of change from the original post-initial marking to the pre-initial one, likely due to the influence of related languages to the north. We also describe negation in non-main clauses, where only the older post-initial marking can be used, and the use of various negative auxiliaries in certain contexts, such as prohibitives and the *nondum* ('not yet'). We also cover non-verbal negation as well as various other related phenomena such as negative indefinites and reinforcement of negation. Finally, the chapter includes a separate discussion of diachrony.

Keywords: Mara, Bantu, negation, variation, language change.

1 The language

Ngoreme (ISO: ngq, Glottocode: ngur1263), known as *ekéngoreme* in the language, is a Lacustrine Bantu language spoken in the Mara Region of Tanzania by some 55,000 speakers (Hill et al. 2007, LoT 2009). The Mara Region covers an area between Lake Victoria and the Serengeti National Park, and the Ngoreme speakers are found in the central part of the area, neighbouring Kuria in the north, west and east, and the more closely related languages Ikizu, Ishenyi and Nata to the south. There is also a concentration of Ngoreme speakers found in the small town of Mugumu on the eastern edge of the region.

The Mara Region is an area of high linguistic diversity. Some twenty Bantu varieties are spoken in the area, along with the Nilotic languages Datooga (South



Nilotic), Luo (West Nilotic) and Maasai (East Nilotic) (Hill et al. 2007). There are also claims of a historical presence of Cushitic languages in the region (Ehret 1971; Schoenbrun 1994, 1997).

Bantu languages, grouped in the Benue-Congo branch of the Atlantic-Congo phylum, are commonly referred to using a system of alphanumeric codes following Guthrie (1948, 1967–71) and updated by Maho (2003, 2009).¹ Under this system, Ngoreme is classified as JE401 although it is also often thought to constitute a subgroup with other languages under the title of the Mara languages (Nurse 1999: 9; Nurse & Muzale 1999: 519; Nurse & Philippson 2003: 170), specifically along with Ikizu (ikz; JE402), Ikoma Ishenyi, Nata (with shared codes ntk; JE45) and Zanaki (zak; JE44), with which it forms the South Mara branch. The other branch of Mara languages is the North Mara group of Gusii (guz; JE42), Kabwa (cwa; JE405), Kuria (kuj; JE43) and Simbiti (ssc; JE431) (Aunio et al. 2019); the Suguti languages are also spoken in the Mara Region. All of these languages, with the exception of Gusii and Kuria in Kenya, are spoken within the Mara Region. While all of the Mara Bantu languages are classified in the Lacustrine (or Great Lakes) branch of Bantu (Schoenbrun 1994, 1997), it is not clear that they constitute a genealogical grouping (Walker 2013; Roth 2018). However, the unity of the South Mara branch seems to be confirmed, along with Ngoreme's inclusion therein, despite a relatively strong influence from neighbouring Kuria (Roth & Gibson 2019).

Despite it being a relatively small language in terms of the number of speakers, the language is vibrant and spoken by people of all ages. At the latest by the time they reach primary school, Ngoreme-speakers are exposed to Swahili – the official and national language in Tanzania, as well as the medium of instruction in all government primary schools. Swahili is the *lingua franca* used in all official dealings and in inter-ethnic communication. Although Ngoreme is a language of the home and of the village, Swahili may still be preferred as the medium of communication in towns and cities. There is no official Ngoreme language education at any level, nor is the language afforded any formal status in the country.

Two main dialects of Ngoreme have been identified, a southern dialect (Mwibara) and a northern dialect (Rogoro)², which are mutually intelligible. For the

¹This system is based on the division of language into 16 geographic zones, each of which is assigned a letter. This descriptive classification is geographic rather than genetic in nature. In this paper, we make reference to both the Guthrie codes and the ISO coding systems to facilitate use both by those familiar with the Guthrie classification system and those who are used to the ISO system.

²Although *royóro* actually means 'east' in Ngoreme.

most part, dialectal variation is not central to this paper and is only marked when this adds something to the broader discussion.

In phonological terms, Ngoreme is a fairly typical Bantu language. It exhibits a syllable structure in which the most common syllable is the open syllable CV(V) where the vowels are of the same quality (i.e., a long vowel). The consonant inventory is typical for the area and Bantu more generally; a dissimilation process called Dahl's Law (Davy & Nurse 1982) is active, whereby voiceless stops are voiced when the following syllable also has a voiceless consonant (Aunio et al. 2019: 507). The voiced counterpart of /k/ in the system is the fricative /ɣ/, and the reflexes of Bantu **b* and **d* are /β/ and /ɾ/, respectively, unless prenasalized (resulting in /mb/ and /nd/, respectively). There is no /p/. Ngoreme is a tonal language and exhibits a privative tone system, i.e., one with an opposition between H, marked with an acute accent throughout this paper,³ and Ø, left unmarked; the tone bearing unit is the syllable (Aunio 2017: 196).

Ngoreme has a 7-vowel system /i e ε a u o ɔ/, with an ATR distinction in the mid-vowels (Aunio et al. 2019: 503). However, the system seems to be in a state of transition towards a 5-vowel one /i e a u ɔ/, with all mid-vowels being recategorized as –ATR. This can be seen synchronically in the split in the lexicon in which only five vowels are used in verbs, while nouns have seven vowels, reflecting the earlier historic vowel system. There are also inconsistencies in ATR-based vowel harmony processes (Aunio et al. 2019: 506).

Ngoreme exhibits a dominant SVO constituent order and head-marking morphology. Bantu languages are known for their systems of noun classes which function as grammatical genders. Ngoreme is no exception to this and has 19 noun classes. By convention, these noun classes are numbered. In the typical Bantu fashion, classes 1–10 in Ngoreme represent singular-plural pairs. Classes above this include those that form their plurals in other distinct classes (e.g., class 11 which has most of its plurals in class 10, but also a handful in classes 6 and 14; cf. Laine 2023: 61–62). There are also two diminutive classes (classes 12 and 19) and an augmentative class (class 20). Class 15 contains verbal nouns – or infinitives – which similarly have no singular versus plural distinction. Another widespread Bantu feature is the use of locative classes. Ngoreme has three locative classes (16,17,18) which represent specific, general and internal location, respectively.

Nominal forms typically comprise of the noun stem, a nominal prefix (as determined by the noun class) and a pre-prefix. This pre-prefix is also termed the

³There is some variation and fluctuation in the tones in Ngoreme, and the system is not yet fully analysed. The examples in this paper are tone marked according to our best current understanding, but this should be considered a preliminary analysis. We are thankful to Lotta Aunio for her help with the tones.

augment in the wider literature on Bantu – a term that we too will employ here. The augment is glossed AUG, but there is no connection to an augmentative function. Across the language family, the presence of the augment is dependent on a number of factors which often seem to relate to specificity, topicality and definiteness either synchronically or at least diachronically (De Blois 1970; Van de Velde 2019). The augment is also sensitive to negative polarity and focus. Since the augment does not typically appear in negative contexts, it is absent from many of the examples in the current paper (see further discussion in §4.3). The nominal prefix is often phonologically determined with variant forms appearing in different contexts. Nominal dependents such as adjectives, numerals, demonstratives and adnominals also exhibit agreement with the noun class of the nominal they modify.

The Ngoreme verb is constructed in the usual Bantu manner in which not all elements of the verb are obligatorily present, but those that are must appear in a specific order. The verbal complex is agglutinative, and prefixes and suffixes combine with an obligatory verb stem to encode a range of grammatical distinctions such as tense-aspect-mood, polarity and associated motion. The structure of the verb is outlined in Figure 1 below.

Pre-initial – Initial – Post-initial – Pre-radical – Radical – Pre-final – Final – Post-final

Figure 1: Structure of the Ngoreme verb

This structure is exemplified in (1) where the pre-initial marker appears as *te-* and encodes negation, the initial position contains the subject marker *βa-* (which although indexing third person plural, also belongs to noun class 2 – hence the “2” in the glossing) and the pre-radical appears as the past tense marker *á-*. The radical is *-yi* ‘go’ and the final positive hosts the perfective marker *-ire*. Similarly, in (2) the prefix *βa-* appears in the initial position and the imperfective aspectual prefix appears in the pre-radical position. However, in this example, the applicative marker *-er* also appears in the pre-final position.

- (1) *te-βá-á-yi-ire*
NEG-SBJ2-PST-go-PFV
‘They did not go.’
- (2) *βa-ra-sáám-er-a*
SBJ2-IPFV-move-APPL-FV
‘They are moving [to somewhere].’

The language also employs auxiliary forms to encode a range of tense-aspect-mood distinctions (see also §2.2). In auxiliary constructions, an auxiliary form is typically followed (although see also §4.6.4) by a lexical main verb with temporal and aspectual information distributed across the two forms.

Unless otherwise indicated, data from this paper come from original field-based data collection by the three authors in the Mara Region of Tanzania, or by other members of the Mara Project carried out at the University of Helsinki during 2016–2021. The description of negation in Ngoreme in this chapter is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and mirrors its structure.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Standard negation in Ngoreme is achieved by adding a negative prefix to the verb. The prefix is most typically *te-* which appears before all other markers in the verbal complex, preceding the subject marker in the so-called pre-initial position (see Figure 1 above). While affirmative main clause verb forms are commonly – albeit far from necessarily – marked with the focus marker *N-*, this does not appear in negative constructions.⁴ Compare the affirmative and negative examples in (3) and (4) below.

- (3) *m-ba-a-yí-íre* *mwanza*
 FOC-SBJ2-PST-go-PFV Mwanza
 ‘They went to Mwanza.’

- (4) *te-βá-á-yi-ire* *mwanza*
 NEG-SBJ2-PST-go-PFV Mwanza
 ‘They did not go to Mwanza.’

⁴In Ngoreme, the pre-initial prefix *N-* is typically used to convey verb focus or assertion about the event depicted in the (predicate) verb and may be omitted when such criteria are not met. However, there are some affirmative contexts where pre-initial *N-* is obligatorily omitted. These include focus construction where focus is placed on some constituent other than the (predicate) verb (e.g., in content questions and answers), as well as relative and other subordinate constructions (i.e., in non-main clauses). Absence of a focus nasal may also be used to convey modal readings of uncertainty. See Aunio et al. (2019), Roth (2018: 35–36), Bernander & Laine (2020) for more elaboration on pre-initial *N-* and its function(s) in Ngoreme and its closest relatives.

There is, however, an alternative negative marker: a prefix *ta-*, which can occur between the subject and TAM markers in the *post-initial* slot of the verbal complex. Thus, example (4) above can also be formed as in (5):

- (5) *βa-tá-á-yi-ire* *mwanza*
 SBJ2-NEG-PST-go-PFV Mwanza
 ‘They did not go to Mwanza.’

The strategy involving the post-initial marker is the only available means of negating verbs in other South Mara languages, while the pre-initial *te-* (or a related form) is used in the North Mara languages, including Kuria, with which Ngoreme has been in contact. The pre-initial marker thus appears to be an innovation in Ngoreme. The choice of marker in Ngoreme seems to be a matter of free variation: there is no difference in meaning, and the same speakers will alternate between the two forms in similar environments. While speakers are aware of dialectal differences and recognize certain grammatical variations as dialectal, they do not consider the choice of the negative prefix to represent such a variation, and speakers accept both forms.

The idea that the post-initial negation marker in Ngoreme is the older form and the pre-initial one an innovation is further supported by the fact that, of the two prefixes, in negated subordinate clauses, only the post-initial marker may be used (see also §2.2, §2.4 and the discussion in §4.6.3). This is also true of copula verbs (see also §2.3). An additional twist in the position of the pre-initial negative marker in relation to the subject prefix arises when the subject is either 2SG or noun class 1, 3 or 9. In these cases, the subject prefix is a single vowel (*o-*, *a-*, *o-* and *e-*, respectively), and in negative verbs, this fuses with the negative marker resulting in the forms *to-*, *ta-*, *to-* and *te-*. In negative main clauses, these are the only forms available with these subjects. However, in subordinate clauses, these forms will obligatorily separate into a subject marker followed by the post-initial negative *-ta-*: *o-ta-* (SBJ2SG-NEG), etc. (see also §2.4).

The affirmative imperfective prefix is *ra-*,⁵ as in (6). However, in negated forms, an alternative imperfective marker (*V*)*ko*-⁶ is used together with the negative prefix, as in (7).

⁵The /r/ is strengthened to /d/ when prenasalized.

⁶<V> here stands for an unspecified vowel, that is, a vowel which merely lengthens the preceding vowel and lacks a vowel quality of its own. The marker *Vko-* is used for both affirmative and negative imperfectives in Ngoreme’s closest relatives Ikoma, Ishenyi and Nata. The affirmative *ra-* seems to be a Ngoreme innovation, and most likely derived from the progressive *ra-* still found in the other languages. See §2.3 on negative copulas for another instance where Ngoreme preserves an older form in negation.

- (6) *rééro n-dá-yi ku-rem-a*
 today SBJ1SG-IPFV-go INF-farm-FV
 ‘Today I am going farming.’
- (7) *rééro té-η-ko-yi ku-rem-a*
 today NEG-SBJ1SG-IPFV-go INF-farm-FV
 ‘Today I am not going farming.’

Unlike many of its neighbouring languages and the Bantu languages more generally, Ngoreme lacks a morphological progressive form. Instead, a periphrastic progressive with a copular auxiliary is commonly used in the affirmative as in (8). The negated equivalent of this form is most often a negated imperfective as in (9), but it is also possible to negate the auxiliary, in which case auxiliary inversion does not occur (see §4.6.4 for more on inverted auxiliary constructions). There is thus an asymmetric tendency here, but the alternation is not fully grammaticalized; see Table 1 below, along with the accompanying note on paradigmatic asymmetry.

- (8) *η-ko-rjer-a βa-aní*
 FOC-INF-run-FV SBJ2-PRS.COP
 ‘They are running.’
- (9) *te-βá-áko-rjer-a*
 NEG-SBJ2-IPFV-run-FV
 ‘They are not running.’

Perfective aspect in Ngoreme is coded with the marker *-ire/-iri*, a reflex of a common Bantu suffix and the Proto-Bantu form **-ide*. The TAM prefix slot is left empty. The variation in the translation of (10) shows that change-of-state verb like ‘sleep’ (~ ‘fall asleep’) conjugated in this verb form may either gain a perfect(ive) or a (present) resultative reading, depending on clause-external issues of viewpoint or the general context in which the propositions are uttered. See Botne (2025) on this common behaviour of the Bantu perfect(ive) and Roth (2018: 54–70) on Western Serengeti specifically. In negation, either the pre- or post-initial negative prefix may be used, as illustrated in example (11a) and (11b), respectively.

- (10) *m-bá-mis-iri*
 FOC-SBJ2-sleep-PFV
 ‘They have slept.’ (‘They are asleep.’ / ‘They slept.’)

- (11) a. *βa-tá-mis-iri*
 SBJ2-NEG-sleep-PFV
 ‘They have not slept.’
 b. *te-βá-mis-iri*
 NEG-SBJ2-sleep-PFV
 ‘They have not slept.’

The past tense is formed by combining a tense prefix *a-* with the perfective form, as illustrated in examples (12) and (13). The past tense is thus only differentiated from the perfective by vowel length preceding the macrostem: *βatámisiri* ‘they have not slept’, as in (11a), or *βatáámisiri* ‘they did not sleep’.

- (12) *n-a-a-rúy-ire* *e-βj-ákori* *ítfo*
 FOC-SBJ1-PST-cook-PFV AUG-8-food yesterday
 ‘He cooked food yesterday.’
 (13) *tá-á-ruy-ire* *βj-ákori* *ítfo*
 NEG.SBJ1-PST-cook-PFV 8-food yesterday
 ‘I did not cook food yesterday.’

Other morphological TAM categories in Ngoreme include the habitual (*háa-/ráa-*),⁷ the (counterfactive) conditional (*nga-*), the narrative (*Vka-*) and the situative (*ko-*).⁸ Of these, only habitual forms, as in (14) and (15), are found negated in our data: All instances make use of the post-initial marker.

- (14) *βa-ta-ráá-rjer-a*
 SBJ2-NEG-HAB-run-FV
 ‘They don’t run (regularly).’
 (15) *tu-rá-β-a* *tu-ta-ráá-βin-a*
 SBJ1PL-IPFV-be-FV SBJ1PL-NEG-HAB-sing-FV
 ‘We will not be singing (regularly).’

In narrative and situative contexts, other negated forms, mainly the past and imperfective, respectively, are used instead. In conditionals, a negated auxiliary formally similar to the periphrastic progressive is used as in example (16) below.

⁷Ngoreme has two habitual markers, *háa-* and *ráa-*, apparently in free variation. Roth (2018: 73) mentions the possibility that the latter is an emergent form analogically related to the habitual *háa-* and the imperfective *ra-*.

⁸Ngoreme is analysed as having a situative formed with the prefix *ko-* by Roth (2018). See, however, Laine (2023: 171–174) for a critical discussion.

- (16) *ti-n-ááre ko-yí musoma hata kama o-mu-nene*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-PST.COP INF-go Musoma even if AUG-1-fat
a-nga-n-tɔm-íre
 SBJ1-COND-OM1SG-send-PFV
 ‘I would not have gone to Musoma even if the boss had sent me.’

The morphological negatability of Ngoreme TAM categories is summarized in Table 1. As shown, there is quite a bit of paradigmatic asymmetry in Ngoreme (see Miestamo 2005, 2013), particularly in the imperfective domain, where only the habitual and the imperfective proper are regularly negated as such. The periphrastic progressive exhibits some variability; as discussed above, it is typically negated using the morphological imperfective, but the auxiliary verb can be negated instead, retaining the progressive construction. The asymmetry in Ngoreme seems to be a fairly clear case of neutralization of TAM distinctions, the most common situation in asymmetric paradigms (e.g., Miestamo 2005: 54ff).

Table 1: TAM forms that can be morphologically negated in Ngoreme

Category	Marker	Negatability	Most common negative category
Perfective	<i>-ire</i>	yes	Perfective
Past	<i>a-...-ire</i>	yes	Past
Narrative	<i>ka-</i>	-	
Habitual	<i>háá-</i>	yes	Habitual
Imperfective	<i>ra-/Vko-</i>	yes	Imperfective
Situative	<i>ko-</i>	-	
Progressive	<i>N-ko- + COP</i>	(yes)	
Imperative	-	-	Subjunctive
Subjunctive	<i>-e</i>	yes	
Conditional	<i>nga-</i>	-	

As will be returned to in §4.6.4, negation of the present progressive and past progressive is also associated with a change in word order. While the present progressive is formed through an infinitive-based verb-auxiliary construction (17), its negative counterpart exhibits the more typologically expected auxiliary-verb order albeit with the addition to the negative morphology on the auxiliary form (18).

- (17) *rééro ŋ-ko-yi to-oni tarisaraamu*
 today FOC-INF-go SBJ1PL-PRS.COP Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are going to Dar es Salaam.’
- (18) *rééro tu-tá-re ko-yi tarisaraamu*
 today SBJ1PL-NEG-PRS.COP INF-go Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are not going to Dar es Salaam.’

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Ngoreme speakers employ different strategies for expressing negative imperatives, here also referred to as prohibitives. In accordance with a common trait across Bantu (cf. Devos & Van Olmen 2013; Nurse 2008: 191–193; Güldemann 1999), prohibitives are most commonly expressed in Ngoreme with a complex construction consisting of an auxiliary and a full verb occurring in the infinitive form.

As illustrated in (19–21), two different verbs are employed as prohibitive auxiliaries, viz. *-tiy-*, with the source meaning ‘stop, leave off, avoid’, and *-Vĩ-* with the source meaning ‘come’.⁹ When functioning as a prohibitive auxiliary, *-Vĩ-* furthermore contains the standard negative prefix *ta-*.

- (19) *o-tiy-ε ko-rút-a e-siyára*
 SBJ2SG-stop-SBJV INF-pull-FV AUG-9.cigarette
 ‘Don’t smoke (the cigarette)!’
- (20) *tíy-a yw-ikára há-no*
 stop-FV INF-become_seated 16-DEM
 ‘Don’t sit here!’
- (21) *u-tá-átĩ-a ko-r-a e-ńáma*
 SBJ2SG-NEG-come-FV INF-eat-FV AUG-9.meat
 ‘Don’t eat meat!’

Notice that these constructions also differ with regard to the final vowel, the construction with *-tiy-* being variably inflected with the final subjunctive *-ε* (19) or the vowel *-a* of the basic imperative verb form (20), in which case it also lacks

⁹Recall that the <V> here stands for an unspecified vowel, that is, a vowel which merely lengthens the preceding vowel and lacks a vowel quality of its own. Note that the diacritic on /tʃ/ follows IPA convention for an affricate consonant and does not span over the <V>.

subject marking. Whereas the former is typically used for milder and more polite commands and may be used for directives which include performers other than the second person, the latter is used only for second person singular directives and typically conveys a stronger command. This systematization is in accordance with the common division of labour within the affirmative imperative-hortative system in Bantu (cf. Devos & Van Olmen 2013; Nurse & Devos 2019), as illustrated in (22) and (23) below.

- (22) *tuk-á*
dig-FV
'Dig!'

- (23) *βa-tuk-ε*
SBJ2-dig-SBJV
'They should dig.'

The construction with $-V\widehat{t\acute{f}}-$, which employs a morphological construction with the post-initial negator and a final vowel *-a*, formally adheres to what is the basic, negative-imperative verb form SBJ-*ta*-B-verb in Ngoreme's closest Western Serengeti relatives. As further discussed in §4.6.3, however, this is not the case in Ngoreme, where the reflex of this synthetic non-declarative negative verb form has been reinterpreted with "ironic" non-negative readings.

There is a strong tendency of a functional division of labour between the two auxiliaries which revolves around the notion of "retrospective" versus "prospective" negation (cf. van der Auwera 2010). This functional partition is connected to the lexical semantics of the respective etymons of these negative auxiliaries, in line with Hopper's (1991) theory of persistence in grammaticalized (or grammaticalizing) elements. Thus, whereas *-tiy-* typically is used retrospectively for commanding the addressee to stop the continuation of an already initiated activity, as represented in the second infinitive verb, the construction with $-V\widehat{t\acute{f}}-$, with its de-venitive (cf. Dahl 2000), prospective reading, more readily denotes that the addressee should not commence in the event depicted in the full verb altogether. This fact may be illustrated with the minimal pairs shown in (24) and (25) below.

- (24) *o-tíy-ε* *ku-γər-a*
SBJ2sg-stop-SBJV INF-buy-FV
'Don't buy!'
(the addressee is in the shop and s/he has already started buying items)

- (25) *u-tá-átǃ-a* *ku-γɔr-a*
 2sg-NEG-come-FV INF-buy-FV
 ‘Don’t buy!’
 (the addressee has not started the act of buying but is still on his/her way to the shop)

The two negative auxiliaries described in this section are additionally used in other non-standard, or marked clause types, where it would seem that this retrospective-prospective division continue to hold and influence their usage patterns to some extent. This fact is further discussed in §2.4.

As mentioned, it is possible to form a directive construction by the use of the (standard) post-initial negative morpheme *ta-* plus the basic affirmative imperative verb form, a construction which, however, has been reinterpreted with non-negative senses. Notice however, that some Ngoreme speakers contrast this essentially affirmative expression with an actual negative imperative verb form, which includes an additional formative *ka(a)-* attached in a position between the negative prefix and the verb stem (26).

- (26) *u-ta-káá-yi* *na* *a-βá-nto* *a-βa-sinéenu*
 SBJ2SG-NEG-POT-go COM AUG-2-people AUG-2-bad
 ‘Don’t go (~get acquainted) with bad people.’

This prefix does not appear in non-negative constructions in Ngoreme. However, as further discussed in §4.6.3, it is used in several of the languages of the Northern Mara Bantu subgroup as a more general modal ~ irrealis ~ non-indicative marker (hence the glossing as POT = potential).

For some speakers of Ngoreme (possibly exclusively speakers of the northern Rogoro dialect), the prohibitive construction with *-Vtǃ-* once again has to include the additional prefix of the form *ka(a)-*, as in (27). Notice however, that due to Dahl’s Law, a type of voicing dissimilation synchronically productive in Ngoreme (cf. §1 above), the velar plosive of the formative *ka(a)-* becomes a voiced /y/ in this construction. Additionally, the underlying sequence of three vowels yielded by the combination of this form with this verb stem, viz. *°/kaa-Vtǃ-/*, is reduced to a sequence of two vowels in actual speech.

- (27) *u-ta-yá-átǃ-a* *ko-rút-a* *e-siyára*
 SBJ2SG-NEG-POT-come-FV INF-pull-FV AUG-9.cigarette
 ‘Don’t smoke the cigarette.’

Note finally that no special negators exist for interrogative clauses. It may be mentioned, however, that the post-initial strategy is preferred in content interrogation as the predicate is extra-focal in such contexts (see the discussion around example (80) in §4.3).

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Affirmative constructions in the present tense involving equation, proper inclusion and attribution (which have, along with locatives, existentials and possessives, been labeled “stative predications” by e.g. Payne 1997: 111ff; see also Veselina 2014) are all formed the same way in Ngoreme, with the copula *nV=/N-*, as in (28).

- (28) *e-yi-yeso ki-no η=kj-éye*
 AUG-7-knife 7-PROX.DEM COP=7-sharp
 ‘This knife is sharp.’

Locative predication on the other hand requires a fully inflected copula verb agreeing with the subject. There are three copula verbs lending their forms to different temporal reference points: *-Vre*, *-Vni* and *-raβa*¹⁰ for past, present and future, respectively (see Bernander & Laine 2020 for more on the copula verbs in Western Serengeti). The copula verbs take a subject marker, often preceded, like other verbs, by a focus marker. With copula constructions, however, the focus marker (formally similar and historically related to the ascriptive copula) is somewhat more productive, and may often appear on a different constituent as in (29), exemplifying a present tense locative predication.

- (29) *ɲááwa η=kó-mo-te a-aní*
 1a.cat FOC=LOC17-3-tree 1-PRS.COP
 ‘The cat is in the tree.’¹¹

¹⁰The “future copula” is quite transparently the verb ‘to be(come)’ in the imperfective, but it functions as part of the copula paradigm, always has a future reading, and must be used for future stative predications. Incidentally, Ngoreme has no morphological future tense for other verbs. For more on the cross-linguistically common grammaticalization of become-verbs into future markers (see Dahl 2000 and Kuteva et al. 2019: 86–87).

¹¹‘1a’ in this and other glossed examples refers to the so called noun class 1a, comprising a set of nouns “that lack a prefix in the singular [but] trigger class 1 agreement. It typically contains proper names, some kinship terms, personified animals and borrowings.” (Van de Velde 2019: 240).

Other types of stative predications also require a copula verb in the past and future tense. Copula verbs are also used for all stative predications when negated, in which case a negative prefix is added. As with other verbs, either the pre- or post-final negator may be used with copula verbs, and there is no distinction in meaning between, say, *te-ya-re* or *ya-ta-re* ‘it (CL6) is not’. In present and future forms, the copula verb itself changes when negated. The present tense *-Vni* becomes *-re*, as in (30) below, reflecting the fact that the affirmative present tense copula is an innovation in the Western Serengeti languages, and the older *-re* form, reconstructed for Proto-Bantu as **di* (Bastin et al. 2002), is preserved in negatives. In the future form, *-raβa* becomes *-kuβa*, with the affirmative imperfective prefix changing to the corresponding negative marker – again an older one – as with other verbs.

Examples of negated stative predications can be seen in the examples below which show equation (30–31), proper inclusion (32) and attribution (33–34).

- (30) *tʃóóni ta-ré* *mra* *waito*
 John SBJ1.NEG-PRS.COP brother our
 ‘John is not my brother.’ (lit. ‘our brother’)
- (31) *yá-no* *te-yá-re* *ma-hemba*
 6-PROX.DEM NEG-SBJ6-PRS.COP 6-millet
 ‘This is not millet.’
- (32) *eeni té-n-de* *mwánaqfunzi*
 I NEG-SBJ1SG-PRS.COP student
 ‘I am not a student.’
- (33) *eeni té-n-de* *m-támbe*
 I NEG-SBJ1SG-PRS.COP 1-tall
 ‘I am not tall.’
- (34) *e-yi-yesɔ* *kí-no* *te-ké-re* *kj-éye*
 AUG-7-knife 7-PROX.DEM NEG-7-PRS.COP 7-sharp
 ‘This knife is not sharp.’

Negative locative predications are seen in (35–37) below.

- (35) *e-yi-táβ* *te-ké-re* *ko-méza*
 AUG-7-book NEG-7-PRS.COP LOC17-table
 ‘The book is not on the table.’

- (36) *te-βá-re sokoni*
 NEG-2-PRS.COP at_the_market
 ‘They [people] are not at the market.’

- (37) *ɲááwa tá-re ko-mó-te*
 1a.cat SBJ1.NEG-PRS.COP LOC17-3-tree
 ‘The cat is not in the tree.’

In present tense third person singular contexts, subject marking may be left out in favour of the invariable negative copula *tere* (or occasionally *tare*). There is some variation as to whether the form *tere* is deemed acceptable also with human subjects, with some speakers preferring *tare*, marked for noun class 1.¹²

Existentials in Ngoreme are formed and negated with a dedicated existential construction involving the same copula verbs as other stative predications (cf. Bernander & Laine 2020). A type of locative existential is formed by adding a locative pro-form (in the terminology of Bentley et al. 2013 and Bentley 2017) to a plain locational clause, namely the locative verbal clitic *=ho* (class 16) or *=mu* (class 18). These are added to the copula verb, as exemplified in the affirmative existential in (38) and the negated one in (39). Note that the word order in existentials is flexible and plays no role in negation (see Bernander & Laine 2020 for more).

- (38) *βa-ani=hó a-βá-nto a-βa-néne a-βá-áru*
 SBJ2-PRS.COP=LOC16 AUG-2-person AUG-2-fat AUG-2-many
 ‘There are many fat people.’

- (39) *a-má-ntíŋe ya-tá-re=mu mó-ndoa*
 AUG-6-water SBJ6-NEG-PRS.COP=LOC18 LOC18-bucket.9
 ‘There is no water in the bucket.’

Possessive predication most typically utilizes a specific possessive verb *-ɣɔɔte* (from *kuyɔɔta*, ‘to catch, to hold’). This can be seen in the examples below where *-ɣɔɔte* appears with the first person singular marker in (40) and can be negated as shown in (41) where the negative prefix *téé-* also appears. The possessive verb *-ɣɔɔte* can also be used for inanimate possessors, as in (42) and (43).

¹²There is some obscurity with these forms, since *tare* is both a form unmarked for subject with the post-initial negator, and the class 1 form, where the negative prefix (either *te-* or *ta-*) and the subject marker *a-* coalesce into an indivisible whole. On the other hand, *tere*, the non-agreeing form with the pre-initial negator, is homonymous with the form marking a class 9 subject.

- (40) *né-ŋ-gɔɔtɛ e-séése*
 SBJ1SG-have AUG-9.dog
 ‘I have a dog.’
- (41) *té-ŋ-gɔɔtɛ séése*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-have 9.dog
 ‘I don’t have a dog.’
- (42) *e-númba é-no n-é-yɔɔtɛ e-ye-séku*
 AUG-9.house 9-PROX.DEM FOC-SBJ9-have AUG-7-door
 ‘This house has a door.’
- (43) *e-númba é-no te-yɔɔtɛ ye-séku*
 AUG-9.house 9-PROX.DEM SBJ9.NEG-have 7-door
 ‘This house doesn’t have a door.’

Alternatively, a comitative construction with the comitative element *nV*, prefixed with the subject marker, can be used. Both this and the *-yɔɔtɛ* form can be negated with either a pre- or post-final negator. Note the absence of the augment in the negative construction in example (45), in contrast to example (44).

- (44) *níí-ne e-séése*
 1SG-COM AUG-9.dog
 ‘I have a dog.’
- (45) *n-tá-na séése*
 1SG-NEG-COM 9.dog
 ‘I don’t have a dog.’

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Different strategies of non-main clause negation can be found in Ngoreme. The first strategy is simply to use standard morphological negation. For almost all non-main clauses, however, only the post-initial prefix may be employed. For example, the relative clause in (46) contrasts with the negated main clause in (47) where either a pre- or post-initial prefix may be used. (The relativizer originates from a demonstrative as can be seen in example (46) where the identical element occurs twice, representing both meanings.)

- (46) *βí-no ne=e-βj-ákori βí-no n-tá-áyo-tun-a*
 8-DEM COP=AUG-8-food 8-REL SBJ1SG-NEG-IPFV-want-FV
 ‘This is food that I don’t want.’
- (47) *e-βj-ákori βí-no té-η-ko-βe-tun-a*
 AUG-8-food 8-DEM NEG-SBJ1SG-IPFV-OM8-want-FV
 ‘This food, I don’t want (it).’

Relative clauses are in general construed with the post-initial negative prefix. Furthermore, several types of adverbial clause constructions are derived from a relative construction with the locative noun class 16 relativizer *háno*. Consider example (48) which relativizes a locative head noun subject – viz. the generic *ahase* ‘place’, but which could also be analysed as functioning as a locative clause.

- (48) *tu-ra-yí musóma a-há-se há-no tu-ta-mep-ire*
 SBJ1PL-IPFV-go Musoma AUG-16-place 16-REL SBJ1PL-NEG-live-PFV
 ‘We are going to Musoma, a place where (~at which) we don’t live.’

The construction with the locative relativizer recurs in several negated adverbial clause constructions, not only in negative locative clauses or temporal clauses like (52). It also occurs in “anti-circumstantial” clauses – viz., abessive-like ‘without’-constructions (cf. §3.3), but where the absentee is not a nominal referent but an event coded in a dependent clause (cf. Mauri & Sansò 2019; Bernander et al. 2023a) as in (49), as well as (at least some types of) negative conditional clauses, as evident in (50). Being formally equal to relative constructions, these types of adverbial clauses are also negated with the post-initial prefix.

- (49) *te-mú-n-saiy-ire ha-no mu-tá-map-ire*
 NEG-SBJ2PL-OBJ1SG-like-PFV 16-REL SBJ2PL-NEG-know-PFV
 ‘You detest me (lit. don’t like me) without knowing me.’
- (50) *há-no a-ta-n-deh-iire e-náuri*
 16-REL SBJ1-NEG-OBJ1SG-pay-APPL:PFV AUG-9.ticket
te-η-ku-yárək-a ká
 NEG-SBJ1-IPFV-return-FV home
 ‘If he does not pay me for my ticket, I will not go back home.’

As mentioned in §2.1, the subject markers for 2SG and noun classes 1, 3 and 9 fuse with the negative prefix, yielding the opaque forms *to-*, *ta-*, *to-* and *te-*, and in these cases there is no distinction between post- and pre-initial negators.

In relative clauses as well as in other subordinate clauses derived from relatives, however, these fused forms become separated, reflecting the use of post-initial *ta-* in all non-main clause cases, with which it is clearly connected. In example (51), this is illustrated with a canonical verb for class 9, while (52) shows the 2SG prefix separated from the negative prefix on a copula verb.

- (51) *ha-no n=a-há-sɛ ha-no é-ŋ-ka i-tá-áko-ɣwɛm-a*
 16-DEM COP=AUG-16-place 16-REL AUG-9-lion SBJ9-NEG-IPFV-hunt-FV
 ‘This is an area where the lion doesn’t hunt.’
- (52) *n-aa-yí-íre wáátʃo ká ha-no u-ta-aré=ho*
 SBJ1SG-PST-go-PFV yours home 16-REL SBJ2SG-NEG-PST.COP-16.LOC
 ‘I went to your place when you weren’t there.’

Negated reason clauses, indicated with the subordinator *yo kuɓa* not by a relativizer, are an exception to the hegemony of post-initial negative morphology in non-main clauses. As seen in (53), a reason clause may instead be negated with pre-initial negation, probably as it is not derived from a relative clause but more likely is paratactic in origin.

- (53) *ta-a-yu-tór-a kw-ánde-k-a yó kuɓa ta-a-na e-karámu*
 NEG-SBJ1-IPFV-can-FV INF-write-FV for that NEG-SBJ1-COM AUG-9.pencil
 ‘She cannot write because she has no (lit. is not with a) pencil.’

In addition to these instances of morphological negation, the two negative auxiliary verbs (discussed in detail in §2.2) also have an extended use in non-main clauses beyond being prohibitives. The functional retrospective-prospective division between them, as described around examples (24) and (25) in §2.2 above, seems to continue to influence the choice of a particular negative verb here as well. This fact may be illustrated with the following two purpose clauses, where the choice of auxiliary verb depends on the context, i.e., whether the full verb in the dependent clause refers to a prospective or retrospective event. Thus, the proposition in (54) would not be felicitous with *-tiy-* as that would suggest that the participants have already been captured. Following a similar line of reasoning, the construction with *-Vtʃ-* is dispreferred in (55) as the proposition is meant to highlight the termination of a situation which has already started and continues to hold.

- (54) *βa-γá-átŋ-a há-no βa-tá-átŋ-a ku-γɔt-ú na*
 SBJ2-NARR-come-FV 16-DEM 2-NEG-come-FV INF-catch-PASS COM
a-βa-sírikare
 AUG-2-police
 ‘They came here so that they would not get caught by the police.’
- (55) *βa-ra-sáám-er-a há-no musoma βa-tíγ-ε ku-náŋki-βu*
 SBJ2-IPFV-move-APPL-FV 16-DEM Musoma SBJ2-stop-SBJV INF-annoy-PASS
na a-βa-táŋki
 COM AUG-2-state
 ‘They are moving here to Musoma so that they will not be harassed by the state (anymore).’

Affirmative purpose clauses are inflected in the subjunctive form in Ngoreme, as is common across Bantu (see Nurse & Devos 2019; Devos 2008). This is particularly the case when the main clause and the subordinate clause do not refer to the same participant(s), as in (56). The use of non-declarative strategies for the negation of purpose clauses could thus be seen as a direct reflection of the affirmative situation, where the subjunctive is used both for milder commands in the imperative-hortative domain as well as for subordination.

- (56) *n-tw-a-tánw-ire ɔkɔrí taata a-kɔr-ε kw-εγ-i*
 FOC-SBJ1PL-PST-leave-PFV COMP 1a.father SBJ1-do-SBJV INF-sweep-CAUS
 ‘We left so that father could tidy up.’

Note however, that when there is co-referentiality between the subject participant(s) of the main and dependent clause, affirmative purpose clauses may be expressed with the infinitive in Ngoreme. In this sense, examples (54) and (55) above could just as well be argued to illustrate negated non-finite dependent clauses. Compare (54) with the affirmative reason clause in (57) below.

- (57) *βa-γá-átŋ-a há-no ko-níβ-a*
 SBJ2-NARR-come-FV 16-DEM INF-create-FV
 ‘They came here to create a new life (for themselves).’

Thus, non-finite clauses may be negated, but only through the negative (auxiliary) verb strategy (that is, morphological negation is not accepted here). An infinitive functioning as a nominal head of a clause may also be negated, again with negative verbs, as illustrated in (58) and (59). In this case, both verbs occur in the infinitive form. Notice that there is an augment prefix on the negative verb

oyutíya ‘to stop’ and *okwánga* ‘to refuse’ but not on the lexical verbs (cf. §4.3) and furthermore that the adjective agrees with the verbs. Because of the distinct nominal components of the infinitive in these particular constructions, they are here glossed as (noun class) 15, i.e., the noun class that infinitives are associated with.¹³ Interestingly, it seems that the construction with *-Vt̃f̃* cannot be used in this context. Instead, another inherently negative verb, namely *-ang-* ‘refuse’, is used along with *-tiy-*.¹⁴

- (58) *o-yu-tíy-a ko-jó a-ma-ro η=gu-t̃f̃ómu*
 AUG-15-stop-FV INF-drink AUG-6-homebrew COP=15-good
 ‘Not to drink (~not drinking) (locally brewed) beer is good.’

- (59) *o-kw-áng-a yu-sám-a a-má-ro η=gu-t̃f̃ómu*
 AUG-15-refuse-FV INF-try-FV AUG-6-homebrew COP=15-good
 ‘Not to taste (~not tasting) (locally brewed) beer is good.’

A final category of non-main clause negation strategies that occur in Ngoreme is Swahili borrowings (~code-switching). These include *badala (ya)* ‘instead of’ + infinitive verb for the expression of substitutive clauses and *bila (ya)* ‘without’ + infinitive verb which constitute an alternative negative strategy for (anti-) circumstantial clauses (cf. the further discussion on abessive-like constructions in §3.3).¹⁵

Table 2 summarizes the different negative strategies discussed in this section in relation to clause type. Although this list of non-main clause types is non-exhaustive (see, e.g., Thompson et al.’s (2007) typological taxonomy which mentions no less than 12 different subtypes of adverbial clauses alone), it most likely covers the range of variation in negative strategies that are to be found in this domain in Ngoreme. Recall from §2.1 that some morphological TAM categories in Ngoreme associated with subordinate clauses, such as the conditional and the situative, may not be negated.

¹³For more on this dual nature of the Bantu infinitives, see e.g., Schadeberg (2003).

¹⁴The marker *-ang* is also used by some speakers even for expressing negative imperatives (§2.2) and negative subordinates (this section). Its usage in these domains appears to be much more widespread in the other Western Serengeti languages, however.

¹⁵Note that these subordinators have been borrowed into Ngoreme from Swahili which itself had borrowed them from Arabic. It has been argued for Swahili (Lodhi 1994, Wald 2001, Schadeberg 2009) that their incorporation came with a more profound structural re-configuration where more analytic structures consisting of subordinators and nominalized verbs came to replace synthetic structures with negative verbal morphology. These Swahili loans are relatively marginal clause types in Ngoreme but we include them here and in Table 2 in the interests of completeness.

Table 2: Non-main clauses negation strategies (non-exhaustive, generalized overview)

Formal clause type	Functional clause sub-types	Negation strategy
Relatives	relative > locational, temporal, circumstantial, conditional	post-initial prefix <i>ta-</i>
Coordination with <i>yo kuβa</i>	reason	pre-initial prefix <i>ti-/te-</i>
Subjunctive	purpose	negative verbs <i>-tíy-</i> ‘stop’, <i>-Vtí-</i> ‘come’ (+ NEG)
Non-finite clauses	co-referential purpose, as nominalized heads	negative verbs <i>-tíy-</i> ‘stop’, <i>-áŋg-</i> ‘refuse’
Swahili loans	substitutive, circumstantial	negative prepositions <i>badala</i> ‘instead’, <i>bila</i> ‘without’

Before closing this section on negative non-main clauses, it should be pointed out that in §4.6.2 we describe the use of the *nondum* (further discussed in §2.6) for expressing successional ‘before’-clauses, viz. the use of a negative construction for a *non-negative* non-main clausal function.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

We have no examples of lexically idiosyncratic negatives in Ngoreme.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions – the *nondum*

The conceptual category of ‘not yet’, sometimes referred to as a *nondum* (e.g., Veselinova & Devos 2021) is included in the onomasiological grid of phasal polarity, i.e., “structured means of expressing polarity in a sequential perspective” (van Baar 1997: 40; cf. Kramer 2017). Two different constructions may be used (interchangeably, as far as we have been able to tell) to mark this concept in Ngoreme. The constructions are formally linked to the conceptually related positive phasal polarity expressions of ‘still’ and ‘already’ respectively (cf. Kramer 2017, Veselinova & Devos 2021).

As illustrated in (60), one kind of *nondum*-construction in Ngoreme consists of the copula-like form *SBJ-kéére* ‘still’ (consisting of a subject marker and most

likely the persistive prefix **kí-* + copula **-dì*, all parts reconstructible for Proto-Bantu, e.g., Nurse 2008: 246–249) and a full verb occurring in the infinitival form.

- (60) *a-má-ándasi ya-kéére yu-terek-u*
 AUG-6-doughnut SBJ6-still INF-cook-PASS
 ‘The maandazis (~doughnuts) have not been prepared yet.’

Note that there is no explicit negative material used in this nondum-construction, intriguing from a typological perspective as negatives without negators are a rare trait cross-linguistically (cf. Miestamo 2010). It is not clear whether ‘not yet’ is a conventionalized meaning or whether such a negative reading is (still) only inferred from the combination of *kéére* ‘still’ with an infinitive verb, viz. ‘be still to X’ > ‘be not yet X’ (cf. Güldemann 1998; Nurse 2008: 147–148; Veselinova & Devos 2021). One indication that the meaning of SBJ-*keere* is not just compositional is the fact that it conveys a negative interpretation when occurring alone as in the negative answer in (61).¹⁶

- (61) Q: *w-iyoti-ire*
 SBJ2SG-become_satiated-PFV
 ‘Are you full?’
 A: *η-kéére*
 SBJ1SG-still
 ‘Not yet.’

Another kind of nondum-construction in Ngoreme consists of the negated verb *-mar-* ‘finish’ – also used in the conceptually related expression of ‘already’ (see Bernander et al. 2023b), as well as marking ‘before’ (example (90), §4.5) – plus a second verb expressing the main event of the proposition.¹⁷ As shown in examples (62) and (63), both the pre-initial and the post-initial negative prefix may be employed in forming this type of nondum-expression.

- (62) *tu-tá-á-mar-a tu-ȳɔr-a e-ŋɔmbɛ je-re*
 SBJ1PL-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1PL-buy-FV AUG-9.COW 9-DEM
 ‘We haven’t bought this cow yet.’

¹⁶The form *-keere* denotes the positive meaning ‘still’ when operating on finite verbs or non-verbal predicates. The reading of negative or positive continuation thus depends on the constructional context (viz. infinite vs finite) and not the internal phase structure of the predicate (verb), as in some Malayo-Polynesian languages (see Veselinova et al. 2024).

¹⁷Both verb forms in this construction are odd. Most likely they are retentions of synchronically obsolete TA conjugations. SBJ-a-B-a is most likely a remnant of a perfect aspect verb form (and hence tentatively glossed as such) and SBJ-Ø-B-a a (dependent) present tense, found in other Mara languages (e.g. neighbouring Kuria; Cammenga 2004: 286–287).

- (63) *ti-ná-á-mar-a* *m-máɲ-a* *ku-yámb-a*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1SG-(come_to)know-FV INF-speak-FV
e-kí-ingeresa
 AUG-7-English
 ‘I don’t know (lit. haven’t come to know) (how) to speak English yet.’

Finally, it should be mentioned that both markers associated with the expression of ‘not yet’ may be combined, yielding a more emphatic reading of disbelief, irritation and counter-expectation, similar to that of ‘still not’ in English (cf. van Baar 1997: 2). Example (64) is a case in point.

- (64) *róóbi kana o-kéére* *u-tá-á-mar-a*
 Rhobi oh SBJ2SG-still SBJ2SG-NEG-PRF-finish-FV
o-swár-a
 SBJ2SG-wear_clothes-FV
 ‘Oh Rhobi, are you STILL NOT dressed?!’ (I have told you three times already)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

While affirmation *ee* and denial *a-a* are used by Ngoreme-speakers, the language does not have dedicated one-word affirmative or negative replies. As such, answers to polar questions typically require a full sentence in response, as in (65) below.

- (65) Q: *βóóno é-ɲ-ka* *te-eku-ɲɔɔn-a* *he*
 now AUG-9-lion NEG.9-IPFV-roar-FV NEG
 ‘Is the lion not roaring?’
 A: *n-ku-ɲɔɔn-a* *j-eni*
 FOC-INF-roar-FV SBJ9-PRS.COP
 ‘[Yes,] it is roaring.’

As regards replies to negative questions, answering the question in (65) above with *a-a* means that the lion is indeed not roaring; answering with *ee* contrasts the negation in the question, meaning that the lion *is* roaring.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

In line with the broader cross-Bantu pattern, Ngoreme does not have indefinite pronouns; instead, words such as *omónto* ‘person’, *eyénto* ‘thing’ or *aháse* ‘place’ can be used to mean ‘someone’, ‘something’ and ‘somewhere’. The word best translated as ‘somebody’ is *ḡáni*, which refers to a particular, known somebody, as seen in (66). Most likely, this is a borrowing originally from Luo, a West Nilotic language (cf. Tucker 1994: 529).

- (66) *ḡáni a-aní há-áre*
 someone SBJ1-PRS.COP 16-DIST.DEM
 ‘Someone (particular) is there.’

The word *ḡáni* can also be used in a negative context as in (67), but the meaning remains that of a particular someone, and not ‘nobody’.

- (67) *há-áre ḡáni tá-re=ho*
 16-DIST.DEM someone NEG-PRS.COP=LOC16
 ‘(A certain) someone is not there.’

For expressing ‘nobody’, the aforementioned word *omónto* ‘person’ is used with a negative verb, as in (68).

- (68) *mó-nto tá-á-tǽ-ire*
 1-person NEG.SBJ1-PST-come-PFV
 ‘Nobody came.’

Similarly, the word *eyénto* ‘thing’ can be used to mean both ‘something’ and ‘nothing’ as in (69) and (70–71), depending on the polarity of the verb.

- (69) *né-ḡ-gɔɔtɛ e-ye-nto*
 FOC-SBJ1SG-have AUG-7-thing
 ‘I have something ~ I have a/the thing.’
- (70) *té-ḡ-gɔɔtɛ ye-nto*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-have 7-thing
 ‘I don’t have anything.’
- (71) *té-ḡ-gu-tɔr-a ku-rɔr-a ye-nto*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-IPFV-be_able-FV INF-see-FV 7-thing
 ‘I can’t see anything.’

Finally, in (72), the word *aháse* ‘place’ is used to convey the meaning ‘nowhere’. Note that in all of these negated contexts, the augment vowel disappears. It may, however, be used to mark specificity or referentiality even under negation, as in (73), where a reading of ‘nowhere’ is not available. For more on the augment and the scope of negation, see §4.3.

- (72) *tááta tá-á-yi-ire ha-se*
 1a.father NEG.SBJ1-PST-go-PFV 16-place
 ‘My father didn’t go anywhere.’

- (73) *éwe tá-á-yi-ire a-há-se*
 3SG NEG.SBJ1-PST-go-PFV AUG-16-place
 ‘(S)he didn’t go to a (certain) place.’

In §4.4, the reinforcing negative particle *he* is examined. Among its other meanings, it can also have a reading of ‘never’, as shown in (74).

- (74) *e-saariyɔɔkɔ té-éku-rayɔr-a he*
 AUG-9.cock SBJ9.NEG-IPFV-CROW-FV NEG
 ‘The cock never crows.’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Ngoreme does not have special means for achieving negative derivation or abessive-like morphemes. Instead, other phrases or full clauses may be employed. For example, to express an abessive meaning of ‘without something’ a juxtaposed negative possessive clause is used, as in (75).

- (75) *a-βá-nto βa-no βa-ra-rááyɛr-a βa-tá-ána βi-tʃíiko*
 AUG-2-person 2-PROX.DEM SBJ2-IPFV-eat-FV SBJ2-NEG-COM 8-spoon
 ‘These people eat without spoons.’ (lit. ‘These people eat, they do not have spoons.’)

Alternatively, the Swahili preposition *bila* (originally from Arabic *bilā*) is often used for ‘without’: *bila ~ bira βi-tʃíiko* ‘without spoons’. See also §4.5 on negative coordination of the type *neither...nor*.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In Eastern Bantu languages the pre-initial prefix is often portrayed as having scope over the whole proposition whereas the post-initial prefix and negative auxiliaries have scope over the verbal (macro-)stem / lexical complement, marking different types of non-standard negation (Nurse 2008: 193–194; Güldemann 1999). This division is not clear-cut in Ngoreme as the post-initial prefix may also be used in standard negation where it has scope over the whole proposition. The diachronic factors at play that further explains this synchronic situation in Ngoreme are discussed in §4.6.3. See also §4.3 for marking of NPs in the scope of negation. As far as we are aware, prosodic prominence is not employed in the marking of negative scope in Ngoreme.

4.2 Negative polarity

We have not come across any specialized negative polarity items in Ngoreme. The presence versus absence of the augment is a polarity phenomenon discussed in §4.3.

As discussed in §3.2, Ngoreme has no specific indefinite pronouns. Instead, meanings such as ‘someone’, ‘something’ and ‘somewhere’, and their negative counterparts, are expressed through appropriate nouns (‘person’, ‘thing’, ‘place’). While Ngoreme also doesn’t necessarily distinguish between English examples such as ‘we don’t have food’ and ‘we don’t have *any* food (at all)’, a similar reading can be achieved by the reinforcing particle *he* as described in §4.4 below.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

As touched upon already in §1, §3.2 and §4.2, augments – i.e., pre-prefixes attached to nominal class prefixes on nouns – are typically omitted when the nouns appear within the scope of negation. Compare (76) with (77) (see also (69) vs. (70)).

- (76) *o-ra-βúsur-a* *a-ma-hemba*
 SBJ2SG-IPFV-plant-FV AUG-6-millet
 ‘You plant (the) millet.’

- (77) *te-tó-óko-ruy-a* *ma-hemba*
 NEG-SBJ1PL-IPFV-cook-FV 6-millet
 ‘We are not cooking millet.’

However, as has been described for several other Bantu languages (see e.g. Givón 1978, Van de Velde 2019, Miestamo 2014), the augment may be attached to a noun phrase also under negative scope to signal specificity (or referentiality). Consider the two examples below, seen also above in §3.2. While the augment is not normally present under negation as in (78), in (79) it is used for specificity; a reading of ‘anywhere/nowhere’ is not possible here.

- (78) *tááta ta-a-yi-ire ha-se*
 1a.father NEG-PST-go-PFV 16-place
 ‘My father didn’t go anywhere.’
- (79) *éwe tá-á-yi-ire a-há-se*
 3SG NEG.SBJ1-PST-go-PFV AUG-16-place
 ‘(S)he didn’t go to a (certain) place.’

There does not seem to be such strong incompatibility effects between negation and focus in Ngoreme, as described for other (West) African languages, such as Saharan Kanuri (Cyffer 2009; see also Miestamo 2014). The focus nasal marker cannot occur in the pre-initial position of the verb when negated (cf. §2.1). However, a negated verb does seem to be able to co-occur with the nasal when it is used for (term) focus on a (fronted) noun phrase. This is shown in (80a), where ‘father’ is an answer to an information question (and hence inherently focused; cf. e.g. Lambrecht 1994: 282–286). As seen in (80b), negation may also co-occur with a type of alternative focus formation where the nasal is attached to a resumptive pronoun. Notice also that the negation of the verb is conveyed by the post-initial prefix.

- (80) a. *n=tááta a-tá-á-mar-a a-m-tóóri*
 FOC=1.father SBJ1-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1-OBJ1-help
 ‘Father has not helped her yet.’
- b. *tááta n=éwe a-tá-á-mar-a a-m-tóóri*
 1.father FOC=3SG SBJ1-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1-OBJ1-help
 ‘Father has not helped her yet.’
- (Both a and b answer the question: ‘Who has not helped her cleaning yet?’)

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The main element used for reinforcing negation is the particle *he*. It is only used in main clauses where it appears in a clause-final position. At least for some

Ngoreme speakers, it may also have a more specific reading of ‘completeness’. This would link to the etymology proposed by Rose (2001) for a corresponding particle in neighbouring Kuria as being a borrowed Luo completive ideophone. For example, the addition of *he* to the negative existential example (38) – here re-stated as (81) – would imply that there is not a single drop left in the bucket.

- (81) *a-má-ntŕe ya-tá-re=mu mo-ndóá he*
 AUG-6-water SBJ6-NEG-PRS.COP=LOC18 LOC18-bucket NEG
 ‘There is no (~ complete absence of) water in the bucket.’

We have also already seen in (74) (§3.2 above), that *he* may be used to convey ‘never’ – a stronger or more emphatic denial in more general terms. As further discussed in §4.6.3, it appears that *he* in this role as an emphatic negative reinforcer has been enrolled in an ongoing Jespersen’s Cycle-like grammaticalization process.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The most common coordination strategy in Ngoreme is the use of a coordinator *na* (formally identical to the comitative marker). This coordinator is used with both affirmative (82) and negative clauses (83). While the coordinator remains the same regardless of the polarity of the clauses, both verbs in coordinated negative clauses need to be fully inflected. This contrasts with the situation in affirmative cases as in (82), where the latter clause may have an infinitive verb form when the subject and tense-aspect-mood information is shared across in the two clauses.

- (82) *n-tw-a-rí-íre e-βj-ákori no kó-ŋo a-má-ro*
 FOC-SBJ1PL-PST-eat-PFV AUG-8-food and INF-drink AUG-6-alcohol
 ‘We ate food and drank alcohol.’

- (83) *tu-tá-á-raay-ire na tu-tá-á-ŋw-ere*
 SBJ1PL-NEG-PST-eat-PFV and SBJ1PL-NEG-PST-drink-PFV
 ‘We did not eat or drink.’

In (84) two negated clauses with different subjects are coordinated. Example (85) has an affirmative clause followed by a negative one. The coordinator *na* is used in both cases, as above.

- (84) *te-n-áá-mar-a n-duy-a βj-ákori*
 NEG-SBJ1SG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ1SG-cook-FV 8-food
 ‘I have not cooked food’

na a-βá-ána te-βá-á-mar-a βa-raayer-a
 and AUG-2-child NEG-SBJ2-PRF-finish-FV SBJ2-eat-FV
 ‘and the children have not eaten.’

- (85) *n-aa-rú-úre musoma na tááta tá-á-yi-ire ha-se*
 SBJ1SG-PST-leave-PFV Musoma and 1a.father NEG-PST-go-PFV 16-place
 ‘I left Musoma and my father didn’t go anywhere.’

Often, a disjunctive coordinator *au*, borrowed from Swahili, is used instead of the more general coordination marker *na*. Another loanword, *waara* ‘neither’ (from Sw. *wala*, originally from Arabic *wa-lā* ‘and not’) can be used for coordinating negative clauses coordinator (86), although the same meaning could be communicated with *na*.

- (86) *tá-á-hontǝk-ire ika waara tá-á-tem-ire e-síimu*
 NEG.SBJ1-PST-return-PFV home neither NEG.SBJ1-PST-hit-PFV AUG-9.phone
 ‘He didn’t come home, nor did he call.’

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Metalinguistic negation

In (87), we see an example of metalinguistic negation. As can be seen on the basis of this example, it is possible to say that Amani does not have three children when stressing the fact that, in fact, he has more.

- (87) *amááni tá-re βá-ána βa-tato a-yǝǝte, m=ba-ne*
 Amani NEG-PRS.COP 2-child 2-three SBJ1-have COP=2-four
 ‘Amani doesn’t have three children, but four.’

The example is formally interesting. The subject is followed by a negated copula, in turn followed by an affirmative clause (*βáána βatato a-yǝǝte* ‘he has three children’) falling under the scope of negation; the entire sentence is literally something along the lines of “Amani, it is not [that] he has three children, it is four”. Note that the ‘affirmative’ clause shows behaviour typical of negated contexts (see §2.1): the object, *βáána* ‘children’, has no augment vowel, and there is no focus marker on the possessive verb. The negative copula is glossed as having a pre-initial negator alone, but, as mentioned in §2.3, there is an alternative analysis of agreement with the subject, since a form unmarked for subject is homonymous with class 1 agreement.

While interesting, this is an isolated example in our data, and should not be considered definitively indicative of all metalinguistic negation in Ngoreme.

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

As mentioned briefly in §2.2 on negation in non-declaratives, the use of the (standard) post-initial negative morpheme *ta-* plus the basic affirmative imperative verb form does not convey negation in Ngoreme (unlike its Western Serengeti relatives) but has developed a specialized reading. Rather, it functions as a polar, affirmative directive (together with a sense of urging or imploring), roughly translatable as ‘why don’t you X’ ~ ‘do X’. This is illustrated in examples (88) and (89).

- (88) *u-tá-ȳɔr-a* *n-go-ku-ȳáŋ-a* *to-oní*
 SBJ2SG-NEG-buy-FV FOC-INF-OBJ2SG-wait-FV SBJ1PL-PRS.COP
 ‘Go ahead and buy (now), we are waiting for you!’
- (89) *n-da-ku-sáβ-a* *u-ta-tánɔr-a* *o-ru* *há-no*
 SBJ1SG-IPFV-OBJ2SG-beg-FV SBJ2SG-NEG-leave-FV SBJ2SG-go_away 16-DEM
 ‘Please, why don’t you just leave!’

Another case of a non-negative use of a negative construction in Ngoreme relates to temporal-adverbial ‘before’-clauses. As illustrated in (90), these are not expressed with a conjunction but rather an auxiliary construction consisting of the verb *-mar-* (‘finish’) and the post-initial negative prefix, *tá-* in the example below.

- (90) *w-i-ku-ȳɔr-a* *tʃi-ŋaapa* *e-ke-rúútu*
 SBJ2sg-ITV-INF-buy-FV AUG-10.tomatoes AUG-7-darkness
ȳi-tá-á-mar-a *ke-hík-a*
 SBJ7-NEG-PRF-finish-FV SBJ7-arrive-FV
 ‘(You should) go and buy tomatoes before it gets dark.’

Notice that this construction of temporal subordination is in essence formally identical and hence most likely metonymically related to one of the ‘not yet’/nondum-constructions discussed in §2.6, which adheres to a cross-linguistically common pattern of polysemy (van Baar 1997: 275–276, 291) which has also been observed to occur in Bantu (Veselinova & Devos 2021).

4.6.3 Diachronic observations

From a historical-comparative point of view it would seem that the negation system of Ngoreme is in a state of flux relative to its more conservative Western

Serengeti relatives. As indicated above, there are signs of ongoing change in negation strategies associated with both standard and non-standard clauses in Ngoreme.

To begin with, in relation to the pre-initial negator in the standard negation domain, Ngoreme seems to be moving away from its relatives and is instead employing a more canonical Bantu pattern of negation. This pattern can, in a simplified manner, be characterized as consisting of a functional division of labour between a pre-initial negator used for standard clauses and a post-initial negator used for non-standard clauses (cf. Güldemann 1996, 1999; Nurse 2008: 179–201; cf. also the interrelated note on scope in §4.1).¹⁸ Güldemann (1999) distinguishes four specific “distribution patterns” of pre-initial and post-initial negation:

1. Post-initial only, in all clause types
2. Post-initial in all clauses & pre-initial alternations in main clauses
3. Post-initial in non-declaratives + non-main clauses & pre-initial in main clauses
4. Pre-initial only (or at least pre-dominantly)

Note that these four “patterns” are not categorically suggested as (diachronic) stages, but rather as synchronically attested tendencies across the Bantu speaking area. However, given the comparative data from the Lacustrine languages (Güldemann 1996: 288–294, Güldemann 1999: fn. 43), it is clear that pre-initial negation is a newer development in this genealogical group with the variation of distributional patterns detected between the different languages instantiating different stages of maturation. Thus, whereas the Western Serengeti relatives are all still in Stage 1, Ngoreme is to be categorized somewhere between Stage 2 and 3. The in-between status in this language emanates from the facts provided in this paper. That is, on the one hand, the post-initial clearly is the default choice for standard negation in Ngoreme without any pragmatic overtones. On the other, however, there are still cases in the language where the post-initial negative prefix is used for standard negation. One example of this is the use of the post-initial with the auxiliary *-mar-* ‘finish’ for expressing ‘not yet’ (cf. §2.6). Compare Rose (2001) who suggests a similar ‘not-yet’-construction with a post-initial negator

¹⁸Güldemann (1999) suggests that the pre-initial negator is introduced for explicit correction or contradiction of a previous utterance. However, no specific evidence for this has been found for Ngoreme.

in neighbouring Kuria to be a relic exactly along this line of reasoning. In this respect, it is also interesting to note that the nondum-expression with a post-initial negative prefix cannot be used together with the emphatic post-verbal particle *he*. Conversely, the construction with pre-initial negation may not be used in subordinate (temporal adverbial) clauses where *-mar-* + NEG is used for expressing ‘before’ (cf. §4.6.2).

Along with the innovation of pre-initial negation, Ngoreme also seems to have been enrolled in a Jespersen’s Cycle-like process, i.e., the grammaticalization scenario where an element initially introduced for reinforcing negative expressions turns into the negative marker itself (see e.g., van der Auwera 2010, Devos & van der Auwera 2013). Interestingly, this development in Ngoreme adheres to an areal phenomenon, being a shared trait with its North Mara neighbours and even varieties of the Greater Luhya cluster spoken further north in Kenya (cf. Devos & van der Auwera 2013). The strategy of negation with the particle *he* (cf. §4.4) in main clauses in Ngoreme is reminiscent of the inceptive stages of Jespersen’s Cycle where the post-verbal particle is neither obligatory nor neutral but is still used to add a sense of emphasis to the proposition. Ngoreme thus contrasts with its northern neighbours Simbiti (Walker & Overton 2018) and Kuria (e.g., Rose 2001) which have moved further along the cycle of obligatorification and bleaching. For Kuria, Rose (2001) even mentions contexts where the pre-initial negative prefix rather than the negative post-verbal particle is the optional component. An additional indication of the less grammaticalized status of this negative construction in Ngoreme relative to its northern neighbours is the fact that the use of *he* has not spread (i.e., generalized) to non-declarative and non-main clauses.

There are ongoing changes that also seem to take place in the domain(s) of non-standard negation. As seen in §2.2 and §2.4, inherently negative verbs have been recruited into auxiliaries, increasingly replacing the original post-initial negator. This is not surprising from a Bantu perspective as negation in non-declaratives is “a major conduit through which innovation occurs” (Nurse 2008: 191). In this regard, it may further be noticed that as auxiliary constructions of the form found in Ngoreme – i.e., with a finite auxiliary and infinite full verb – move further along the pathway of verb-to-affix grammaticalization, the erstwhile auxiliary tends to end up as a post-initial prefix, and thus re-initiate the same patterns described above (cf. Güldemann 1996: 261–284, 1999; see also Nurse 2008: 194–196).

There is some semantic evidence that the mentioned auxiliaries are dedicated prohibitives and not merely “indirect prohibitive speech acts” (van der Auwera 2010: 89). To begin with, they are back-translated as prohibitives into Swahili (the meta-language during elicitation sessions) by the consultants and thus they are

arguably “harmonic” with a simplex prohibitive verb form. Furthermore, there are indications that these verbs have undergone semantic bleaching/relaxation relative to their etymons. Hence, as negators they may describe non-agentive events and operate on second verbs in direct opposition to their original lexical semantics (e.g. *-Vtɪ-* + ‘go’ or *-tiy-* + a resultative achievement verb like ‘sit’) as well as co-occur with their own lexical etymons, e.g. *tíya kotíya* ‘don’t stop’ (cf. Heine 1993: 60–61, 2002). However, we have encountered little if any formal evidence for these auxiliaries having a more grammatical(ized) status in relation to their lexical sources. Hence, following Heine (1993: 61), they can be seen as (still) being in a “budding stage”.

With regard to etymology, the use of the verb *-tiy-* ‘stop, leave off’ as a prohibitive is not surprising from a typological point of view, given its “inherently negative” cessative lexical meaning (cf. Aikhenvald 2010: 358–359; van der Auwera 2010). The reflex of this specific verb is also a typical source for a prohibitive across the Bantu family (see e.g., Nurse 2008: 183 who lists **-tíg-* as “one of the auxiliaries most involved in negation”), including for several languages closely related to Ngoreme, e.g., Kwaya (kya; JE251; Sillery 1932; Odom 2016). The strategy of forming a prohibitive auxiliary by combining (morphological) negation plus ‘come’ is much rarer, but not unheard of for Bantu (cf. Myene (mye; B11) mentioned by Devos & Van Olmen (2013)) and can be taken to adhere to a general cross-linguistic trend of ‘come (to)’ being recruited to express affirmative directives as well as various grammatical expressions with prospective readings (cf. Kuteva et al. 2019: 92–94, 101–107 and references therein). Examples from Ngoreme’s closest relatives include the cognate ‘come’-verb being recruited into a ‘when’-subordinator in Ikoma (Robinson 2015), and as a future tense marker in Nata (cf. Osa-Gomez del Campo 2014).

It may further be hypothesized that the introduction of prohibitive auxiliary verbs into Ngoreme was connected to the functional lacuna which the reinterpretation of the synthetic negative imperative form as expressing an affirmative proposition gave rise to in the language. In their cross-Bantu study of imperatives and prohibitives, Devos & Van Olmen (2013) note a similar phenomenon in Ngoreme’s neighbour Kuria (kuj; JE43) (see also Cammenga 2004: 293). They also report a similar pattern in Gikuyu (kik; E51) and Kamba (kam; E55), two languages spoken in proximity to the Mara languages. These authors suggest that the polar, affirmative expression can be derived from the conventionalization of an “ironic” use of the negative imperative, an explanation that is plausible also for this feature in Ngoreme.

The bi-morphemic construction combining the negative prefix *-ta-* and the formative *ka(a)-* (derived from a verb meaning ‘can’ according to Rose 2001: 90; cit-

ing Cammenga 1994: 230) seems to be an innovation in the neighbouring North Mara subgroup which most likely spread from there to the adjacent Ngoreme speakers. Ngoreme's two closest neighbours to the north, viz. Kuria and Simbiti, both use the potential in affirmative verb forms. They also regularly form negative imperatives with this prefix included (see Sillery 1936: 23; Walker & Overton 2018: 17). Examples (91) and (91b) below are from Simbiti (ssc; JE431).

(91) Simbiti (North Mara, Tanzania) (Walker & Overton 2018: 17)

a. *to-ta-kaa-bhin-a*

SBJ1PL-NEG-POT-dance-FV

'We shouldn't dance.'

b. Simbiti (North Mara, Tanzania) (Walker & Overton 2018: 17)

n-to-kaa-bhin-a

FOC-SBJ1PL-HYP-dance-FV

'We might dance.'

Notice that a similar construction is, once again, also attested in Gikuyu and Kamba. Devos & Van Olmen (2013: 27) note for these languages that "the [...] basic prohibitive strategy is used not in its regular form but in combination with the andative (or motional) prefix **ka-* (cf. Meeussen 1962: 109)". They go on to suggest that this conventionalization of a bi-morphemic construction gave way to the dedicated ironic-affirmative use of the original prohibitive form (Devos & Van Olmen 2013: 47–48). It may be suspected that these "andative" prefixes are in some way reflexes of the same non-indicative marker presented here for the Northern Mara languages and Ngoreme. Thus, this chain of reanalysis of prohibitive constructions might represent a larger areal trait. More comparative research would be needed, however, in order to draw any firm conclusions on whether these formatives are cognates or not and how to account for the functional and formal (vowel length) discrepancies.

4.6.4 A note on word order

Ngoreme exhibits a typologically and comparatively unusual word order in compound constructions in which the main verb appears before the auxiliary. This is unusual both from a typological perspective where SVO languages are expected to exhibit auxiliary-verb order (Dryer 1992; Greenberg 1966) and from a comparative perspective since Bantu languages overwhelmingly exhibit auxiliary-verb order (Gibson 2019, 2025). This has been observed in the Bantu language Simbiti also spoken in the Mara Region, neighbouring languages Gusii and Kuria, as

well as the central Tanzanian languages Rangi and Mbugwe (Gibson & Marten 2019, Gibson 2019, Roth & Gibson 2019). Of interest for the current discussion is the observation that in Ngoreme, while declarative main clauses exhibit verb-auxiliary order in specific tense-aspect contexts, this word order is reversed in the negative counterparts of these clauses, yielding auxiliary-verb order.

This can be seen on comparison of the examples below which show verb-auxiliary order in the affirmative in example (92) and auxiliary-verb order in its negative counterpart in example (93) (repeated from (17) and (18) above).

- (92) *rééro η-ko-yi too-ni tarisaraamu*
 today FOC-INF-go SBJ1PL-PRS.COP Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are going to Dar es Salaam.’ (Gibson 2019: 278)

- (93) *rééro tu-tá-re ko-yi tarisaraamu*
 today SBJ1PL-NEG-PRS.COP INF-go Dar es Salaam
 ‘Today we are not going to Dar es Salaam.’

5 Summary

The negative constructions in Ngoreme, and their functions, are shown in Table 3, along with the relevant sections of this article. Etymologies or source meanings of non-negative elements are shown in parentheses.

As described above, Ngoreme shows interesting variation in its marking of standard negation on the verb, with a pre-initial marker (before the subject marker) *te-* and a post-initial marker (following the subject marker) *ta-*, in free variation. In subordinate clauses, however, only post-initial *ta-* may be used, contributing to a body of evidence for this being the older form. Along with the post-initial prefix, different negative verbs with inherent negative semantics occur as negators in both subordinate as well as non-declarative contexts. Similar patterns are well known across Bantu languages (see especially Güldemann 1996, 1999). Along with these developments and other diachronic phenomena, such as Jespersen’s Cycle, Ngoreme is an interesting language within the Mara subgroup, and features prominently in other present and future work on the variation and development of negation strategies across the Mara Bantu languages (e.g. Laine 2023, Bernander et al. 2023b).

Table 3: Ngoreme negative constructions

Construction	Function	Section
<i>te</i> -SBJ-TAM-verb	Standard negation	§2.1
SBJ- <i>ta</i> -TAM-verb	Negation of dependent clauses	§2.4
(SBJ-) <i>tiy-a/ε</i> ('stop, avoid')	(Retrospective) prohibitive	§2.2
SBJ- <i>ta-atŷa</i> ('come')	Negation of dependent clauses	§2.4
	(Prospective) prohibitive	§2.2
SBJ- <i>ta-ka(a)</i> -verb	Negative imperative	§2.2
<i>oyutíya</i> + INF-verb ('stop, avoid')	Negation of infinitives	§2.4
<i>okwánga</i> + INF-verb ('refuse')		
<i>te</i> -SBJ-COP	Negation of stative predications	§2.3
SBJ- <i>ta</i> -COP		
<i>tere/tare</i> (COP unmarked for person)	Negation of present tense 3rd person stative predications	§2.3
SBJ- <i>ta</i> -COP=LOC	Negative existential	§2.3
<i>te</i> -SBJ- <i>γɔɔte</i> ('catch')	Negative possessive	§2.3
SBJ- <i>ta-na</i> (COP)		
SBJ- <i>kéére</i> (PERS)	Nondum; negative answer 'not yet'	§2.6
SBJ- <i>ta-mar-a</i> ('finish')	Nondum	§2.6
<i>ti</i> -SBJ- <i>mar-a</i> ('finish')		
<i>he</i>	'never'	§3.2
	Reinforcing negation	§4.4
NEG + <i>monto</i> ('person')	'no one'	§3.2
NEG + <i>yento</i> ('thing')	'nothing'	§3.2
NEG + <i>hase</i> ('place')	'nowhere'	§3.2
<i>badala</i> (Sw.)	'instead of'	§2.4
<i>βira</i> (Sw.)	'without'	§2.4, §3.3
<i>waara</i> (Sw.)	'neither ... nor'	§4.5

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Abbreviations

1	first person	IPFV	imperfective
2	second person	ITV	itive
3	third person	LOC	locative
1, 2, 3, etc	noun class	NARR	narrative
1a	subclass of class 1	NEG	negation
APPL	applicative	OBJ	object marker
ATR	attributive	PASS	passive
AUG	augment	PFV	perfective
CAUS	causative	PL	plural
CL	noun class	POT	potential
COM	comitative	PRS	present
COMP	complementizer	PRF	perfect
COP	copula	PROX	proximal
DEM	demonstrative	PST	past
DIST	distal	REL	relativizer
FOC	focus	SBJ	subject marker
FV	final vowel	SBJV	subjunctive
HAB	habitual	SG	singular
HYP	hypothetical	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
INF	infinitive		

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Chapter 9

Negation in Ruuli

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This paper explores the different aspects of negation in the previously undescribed Great Lakes Bantu language Ruuli (JE.103). It first considers clausal negation. All tense-aspect combinations are negated by means of the prefix *ti-*. Except for the near future tense, the constructions are symmetric. In the negative imperative, the negation prefix *ta-* is used for various constructions which are distinguished in the positive. Thus, we classify Ruuli as a language that has a special negative imperative construction and a special negator in the negative imperative which is not used in standard negation. In non-verbal positive clauses, a range of copulas is used. The negative construction of non-verbal predication depends on the type of predication, as well as on tense-aspect. In addition to the invariable negative copula *ti*, the copulas *li* and *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* are negated by means of the standard negation marker *ti-* in non-present. Furthermore, there is a dedicated negative existential *ndoo*. The article further provides an overview of non-clausal negation and negation in non-main clauses, as well as discusses negative replies, phasal polarity items, and negative indefinites.

Keywords: negation, prohibitive, non-verbal predication, Bantu.

1 The language

This paper deals with negation in Ruuli. It closely follows the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and mirrors its structure. Ruuli (ISO: *ruc*, Glottocode: *ruul1235*, also known as Ruruuli-Lunyala) is a Great Lakes Bantu language (Niger-Congo). Within Great Lakes Bantu, Ruuli belongs



to the Rutara group of the West Nyanza branch (Schoenbrun 1997). Apart from Ruuli, the Rutara group includes such better-described languages as Nkore-Kiga (ISO: cgg and nun) and Haya (ISO: hay). Ruuli is spoken mainly in the Nakasongola and Kayunga districts of the central region of Uganda. The number of ethnic members of the community is over 230,000 (190,122 indicated to be Baruuli, 47,699 indicated to be Banyala, Uganda Bureau of Statistics 2016). The number of Ruuli speakers is difficult to determine, we believe it to be somewhat smaller than the number of people who self-identify as Baruuli or Banyala.

Ruuli is not an official language of Uganda and the orthography has been only recently introduced by SIL. Most speakers are multilingual: They are often fluent in Ganda, the language of the majority in the area, as well as in English, the institutional language of Uganda. Furthermore, many speakers also speak languages of the neighboring ethnic communities, these are closely related Bantu languages, such as Soga and Nyoro.

Ruuli is a typical Bantu language: The dominant constituent order is SVO. Each noun belongs to one of the 20 noun classes. The noun classes are numbered from 1 to 23 corresponding to the reconstructed Proto-Bantu noun classes (Van de Velde 2019: 237–239). Ruuli does not have the correspondences of the noun classes 19 and 21. Most nouns have both a singular and a plural form, which belong to two different classes. As in many other Bantu languages, nouns from a specific class in singular take a plural from a corresponding noun class in plural. The most common pairs (in descending order) are 1/2, 7/8, 9/10, and 3/4. The noun class prefixes on the nouns – even if they are present – are not segmented in the examples, but are indicated in the glosses, as e.g. *Kampala* ‘1.Kampala’ in (3a).

Ruuli nouns frequently carry an augment, also known as pre-prefix or initial vowel (see e.g. Van de Velde 2019: 247–255). The augment precedes the noun class prefix and has the forms *a-*, *o-*, or *e-* depending on the noun class. All augments are glossed as AUG, as e.g. the augment on *o-Kato* ‘AUG-1.Kato’ in (3a). The presence of an augment on the head noun and other elements of a noun phrase is conditioned by a combination of factors, including propositional act (e.g. question vs. assertion), syntactic context, as well as referential properties of the respective argument (cf. Van de Velde 2019: 249). Also negation interacts with the presence of the augment. This effect is discussed in §4.3.

The verbal inflectional morphology is primarily prefixing. Prefixes express such inflectional categories as negation, argument indexing, tense and aspect. Suffixes mark derivational categories, such as the causative and applicative, as well as inflectional categories, such as mood and further tense and aspect categories. The glosses of the argument indexing on the verb follow two conventions: the first and second person arguments are glossed by indicating the person and

number, as in *n-ku-yab-a* (1SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV) ‘I am going’ in (1a). The form of the third person indexes depends on the noun class and this is reflected in the glosses, which only indicate the respective class. That is, if the numeral 1 or 2 in the glosses is used in combination with the indication of number (SG or PL), it refers to the person, when it is used without the indication of number, the gloss indicates the noun class.

Ruuli is a tonal language. The first account of its nominal and verbal tone is given in Kiriggwajjo (2022), however, other aspects of its tone, including, its interaction with negation are still being analyzed. In the examples in this article we indicate surface tone.¹ Though subsequent tone analysis might lead to the modification of some aspects of what is presented below and will definitely enrich the analysis, we are certain that most claims of this paper will remain unaffected.

The data used in the present study come from a corpus of naturalistic speech comprising over 200,000 words (Witzlack-Makarevich et al. 2021), as well as from deliberate elicitations. The corpus was collected in 2017 and 2018 in various locations in Uganda by the team of the project *A comprehensive bilingual talking Luruuli/Lunyara-English dictionary with a descriptive basic grammar for language revitalisation and enhancement of mother-tongue based education* (PI Saudah Namyalo, funded by Volkswagen Foundation).

2 Clausal negation

This section presents clausal negation constructions in Ruuli. §2.1 provides data on standard negation, i.e. negation in declarative verbal main clauses. §2.2 describes negation of non-declarative verbal main clauses. In §2.3 we discuss non-verbal clauses and how they are negated. Finally, §2.4 displays negation in non-main clauses in Ruuli.

This section does not discuss negative lexicalizations for ‘not speak’, ‘not like’, ‘not know’, ‘cannot’ or ‘not want’, as they are not attested in Ruuli. The only lexically idiosyncratic negative is the lexicalized negative existential *ndoo-* discussed in §2.3.

2.1 Standard negation

The system of negation in Ruuli is similar to what has been described for other Bantu languages, which we first outline in what follows. The morphological

¹We are grateful to Anatole Kiriggwajjo for his expertise and support in marking surface tone in the examples in this article.

structure of the Bantu finite verb has been established since Meeussen (1967: 108–111) and is given in Table 1 following Güldemann (1999: 546). Across Bantu, the coding of negation is possible in three slots, viz. pre-initial, post-initial and post-final.

Table 1: Morphological slots of finite verbs in Bantu

pre-initial	initial	post-initial	pre-radical	radical	pre-final	final	post-final
TAM/ NEG	SBJ	TAM/ NEG	OBJ	verbal root	derivation/ TAM	TAM	clause/ object NEG

Many Bantu languages show a regular, syntactically conditioned distribution of pre- and post-initial negatives. These distributional restrictions are of the following type: whereas the pre-initial negation shows a strong tendency to be confined to unmarked main clauses, the post-initial negation strategy is reported to rarely underlie distributional restrictions with regard to major clause types according to Güldemann (1999: 551). A functional explanation of this dichotomy is provided in Güldemann (1996: 305–308) and Güldemann (1999: 570–576).

The verb in Ruuli has an extensive tense-aspect system. At the time of writing, 25 possible tense and aspect combinations have been recognized. All tense-aspect combinations are negated by means of the prefix *ti-*, see (1) for an illustration of negation in the present progressive. The prefix is realized as *t-* before vowels, e.g. before the second person singular subject prefix *o-* in (1d).

- (1) a. *Nkwabâ.*
n-ku-yab-a
1SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
‘I am going.’ (elicited)
- b. *Tíngwâba.*
ti-n-ku-yab-a
NEG-1SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
‘I am not going.’ (elicited)
- c. *Okwabâ.*
o-ku-yab-a
2SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
‘You are going.’ (elicited)

- d. *Tókwâba.*
 ti-o-ku-yab-a
 NEG-2SG.SBJ-PROG-go-FV
 ‘You are not going.’ (elicited)

Except for the near future tense, the negation constructions for all tense and aspect combinations in Ruuli are symmetric in the sense of Miestamo (2005, 2017). In the negative near future, the indicative suffix *-a* – glossed as FV for final vowel, as is common in the descriptions of Bantu languages, see e.g. Nurse (2008: 44) – is replaced by the subjunctive suffix *-e*, as in (2). Thus, the negative near future construction shows A/Cat/TAM asymmetry. This is not the case for any of the other tense and aspect combinations.

- (2) a. *Nayabá.*
 n-a-yab-a
 1SG.SBJ-FUT-go-FV
 ‘I will go (soon).’ (elicited)
- b. *Tínáyabê.*
 Ti-n-a-yab-e.
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-FUT-go-SBJV
 ‘I will not go (soon).’ (elicited)
- c. **ti-n-a-yab-a.*
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-FUT-go-FV
 Intended: ‘I will not go (soon).’ (elicited)

Ruuli makes use of the persistive prefix *kya-* to express the phasal polarity concepts STILL, NOT YET, and NO LONGER (see Kramer 2021 for a theoretical overview and Molochieva et al. 2021 for a description of phasal polarity items in Ruuli). When attached to the main verb, the prefix *kya-* expresses STILL, as in (3a). By adding the standard negator *ti-* to a verb that is marked by the persistive *kya-*, the concept NO LONGER is expressed, as in (3b). The construction denoting NOT YET is a periphrastic construction formed by the combination of a positive infinitive and the auxiliary *li*² which carries the prefix *kya-*, as in (3c). Thus, this is a semantically negative construction built without using the standard negator *ti-*

²The item *li* has two major functions in Ruuli. On the one hand, it serves as a copula for non-verbal predication, as in (2a) and (2b). On the other hand, it surfaces in a range of analytically built tense-aspect forms, as e.g. in (32c). The same holds for *bba* discussed in §2.3, which serves as a copula, as well as an auxiliary, as in (4).

and lacking a direct affirmative counterpart. The use of a periphrastic construction is typical of many Bantu languages, however, in contrast to the majority of Bantu languages with a NOT YET periphrastic construction, this construction in Ruuli does not contain a negation marker (Veselinova & Devos 2021).

There is no dedicated construction for the expression of the corresponding affirmative semantics (i.e. the phasal polarity item ALREADY) in Ruuli.³ Instead, one either uses the adverb (*e*)*irai* with the primary meaning ‘in the past, long ago’ or the periphrastic construction with the complement-taking predicate *mala* ‘finish’ (see Molochieva et al. 2021).

- (3) a. *OKátô akyâli e Kámpálâ.*
 o-Kato a-kya-li e Kampala
 AUG-1.Kato 1SBJ-PERSIS-COP 23.LOC 1.Kampala
 ‘Kato is still in Kampala.’ (elicited)
- b. *OKátô takyâlí e Kámpálâ.*
 o-Kato ti-a-kya-li e Kampala
 AUG-1.Kato NEG-1SBJ-PERSIS-COP 23.LOC 1.Kampala
 ‘Kato is no longer in Kampala.’ (elicited)
- c. *Nkyâli kwabâ.*
 n-kya-li ku-yab-a.
 1SG.SBJ-PERSIS-AUX INF-go-FV
 ‘I have not gone yet.’ (elicited)

Some tense-aspect forms consist of a combination of an auxiliary and the main verb, e.g. the recent past progressive. In these forms, the standard negation marker *ti-* is prefixed to the main verb only. Compare the two examples in (4).⁴

- (4) a. *Abbáiré áikalá mpáni obwômi bwámwé bwónâ.*
 a-bba-ire a-ikal-a mpani obwomi bu-amwe bu-ona
 1SBJ-AUX-PFV 1SBJ-live-FV here 14.life 14-1.POSS 14-all
 ‘He has been living here for all his life.’ (elicited)

³Note that the corresponding affirmative semantics is not expressed by the negation of the construction expressing NOT YET. The construction of a negative persistive is formally possible and has a different meaning than the positive counterpart, but was rejected by the speakers probably because of semantic issues with the English translation.

⁴Note that Ruuli does not have geminate consonants, in the standard orthography <bb>, as in (4a), represents [b], whereas represents [β], see Namyalo et al. (2021: 27–28) for details.

- b. *Emábégâ aBányâlâ babbairé tibátákâ*
 e-mabega a-Banyala ba-bba-ire ti-ba-tak-a
 AUG-6.past AUG-2.Banyala 2SBJ-AUX-PFV NEG-2SBJ-want-FV
kusómâ.
 kusoma
 15.education
 ‘In the past, the Banyala did not want education.’
 (II-N-KYERIMA-170218-NA-8)

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section addresses the non-declarative mood categories of Ruuli viz. imperative, hortative and jussive.

Ruuli has two imperative constructions.⁵ The first one is used for the second person singular imperative. It is formed by the verb stem with optional extensions followed by the final vowel *-a*, as in (5a). It is the only independent verb form in Ruuli that lacks the subject prefix. The second construction is used for the second person plural imperative. It is formed by prefixing the regular second person plural subject prefix to the verb stem and suffixing the subjunctive suffix *-e*,⁶ as in (5b). This imperative construction occurs in a range of Bantu languages, see Devos & Van Olmen (2013).

- (5) a. *Izâ.*
 iz-a
 come-FV
 ‘Come (sg.)!’ (elicited)
 b. *Mwîze.*
 mu-iz-e
 2PL.SBJ-come-SBJV
 ‘You (pl.), come!’ (elicited)

Finally, imperatives with object indexing deviate from the two major patterns discussed above: They take the subjunctive suffix both with a second person

⁵Deviations from these two patterns are observed with reduplicated verbs and lexicalized reflexive verbs.

⁶Both the form and the function of this suffix are similar to the cognate ones in closely related Great Lakes Bantu languages (Nurse & Muzale 1999), as well as in many other Bantu languages (Nurse 2008: 44, 192), for details, see Veselovsky et al. (n.d.). Final **-e* has been reconstructed for proto-Bantu (Meeussen 1967).

singular and plural addressee, compare (6a), which contains a nominal object, with (6b–6c), which contain object indexes. The use of the final vowel *-a* in the imperative construction with object indexes is ungrammatical independent of the addressee's grammatical number, as in (6d–6e).

- (6) a. *Kúbba enkáító zaa'mú!*
 kubb-a enkaito za-amu
 polish-FV 10.shoe 10-2SG.POSS
 'Polish your shoes!' (elicited)
- b. *Zikubbê!*
 zi-kubb-e
 10OBJ-polish-SBJV
 'Polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)
- c. *Múzíku'bbé!*
 mu-zi-kubb-e
 2PL.SBJ-10OBJ-polish-SBJV
 'You (pl.), polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)
- d. **zi-kubb-a*
 10OBJ-polish-FV
 Intended: 'Polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)
- e. **mu-zi-kubb-a*
 2PL.SBJ-10OBJ-polish-FV
 Intended: 'You (pl.), polish them (e.g. shoes)!' (elicited)

In the negative imperative, the post-initial negation marker *ta-* and the final vowel *-a* are used, as in (7a).⁷ The same construction is used with the second person plural addressee, as in (7b), as well as with verb forms with object agreement prefixes, as in (7c).

- (7) a. *Otákúbbâ nkáító zaamú!*
 o-ta-kubb-a nkaito za-amu
 2SG.SBJ-NEG-polish-FV 10.shoe 10-2SG.POSS
 'Don't polish your shoes!' (elicited)
- b. *Mutákúbbâ nkáító!*
 mu-ta-kubb-a nkaito
 2PL.SBJ-NEG-polish-FV 10.shoe
 'You (pl.), don't polish the shoes!' (elicited)

⁷This is in contrast to some other Bantu languages (cf. e.g. Harjula 2004: 101), where negative imperatives always take the subjunctive *-e* instead of the final vowel.

c. *Otázikubbâ!*

o-ta-zi-kubb-a

2SG.SBJ-NEG-10OBJ-polish-FV

‘Don’t polish them (e.g. the shoes)!’ (elicited)

When the imperative construction consists of two verbs, e.g. a verb of motion followed by another verb, the second verb takes the regular second person singular or plural subject prefix and the subjunctive suffix, as in (8a). If the addressee is the second person plural, as expected, also the first verb takes the subject prefix and the subjunctive suffix, as in (8b).

- (8) a. *Izâ ozingululé ólúko’sí!*
 iz-a o-zingulul-e o-lukosi
 come-FV 2SG.SBJ-uncoil-SBJV AUG-11.thread
 ‘Come and uncoil the thread!’ (elicited)
- b. *Mwîzé mwéroo’ré okú músyóli!*
 mu-iz-e mu-eroor-e o-ku musyoli
 2PL.SBJ-come-SBJV 2PL.SBJ-look-SBJV AUG-17.LOC 1.magician
 ‘You (pl.), come and look at the magician!’ (elicited)

The corresponding prohibitive construction is slightly different from the imperative construction with one verb. Whereas the second verb carries a subject prefix and the subjunctive suffix in the affirmative, as in (8), in the prohibitive the infinitive is used instead both with singular and plural addressees, as in (9).

- (9) a. *Otáyábâ kusyómá mai’zí.*
 o-ta-yab-a ku-syom-a maizi
 2SG.SBJ-NEG-go.away-FV INF-fetch-FV 6.water
 ‘Don’t go and bring water.’ (elicited)
- b. *Mutáyábâ kusyómá mai’zí.*
 Mu-ta-yab-a ku-syom-a maizi
 2PL.SBJ-NEG-go.away-FV INF-fetch-FV 6.water
 ‘You (pl.), don’t go and bring water.’ (elicited)

Taking the different types of negative imperatives into consideration, we classify Ruuli as a language that has a special negative imperative construction and a special negator (the post-initial *ta-*) in the negative imperative which is not used in standard negation. Ruuli thus qualifies as a type four language in the typology of van der Auwera & Lejeune (2013), i.e. a language in which “the verbal

construction of the second singular prohibitive is different from that of the second singular imperative, and the negative strategy is different from the sentential negative found in declaratives”.

Note, however, that in addition to the negative imperative construction discussed above, the standard negation form is sometimes used to express directive speech acts, as in (27b). This seems to be the case when the statement is rather an instruction than a command.

Hortative is constructed by affixing the first person plural subject agreement marker and the subjunctive suffix *-e*, which replaces the default final vowel *-a*, to the verb. In the negative hortative construction, the post-initial negation marker *ta-* and final vowel *-a* are used, as in (10a–10b). In order to form a jussive, the same construction as in hortative is used but with a non-first person plural subject, as in (10c–10d).

- (10) a. *Twígále* *olwígê.*
 tu-igal-e o-lwige
 1PL.SBJ-close-SBJV AUG-11.door
 ‘Let’s close the door.’ (elicited)
- b. *Tutáígálâ* *’lwígê.*
 tu-ta-igal-a lwige
 1PL.SBJ-NEG-close-FV 11.door
 ‘Let’s not close the door.’ (elicited)
- c. *Báígále* *’ámádirísâ.*
 ba-igal-e a-madirisa
 2SBJ-close-SBJV AUG-10.window
 ‘Let them close the windows.’ (elicited)
- d. *Batáígálâ* *madirísâ.*
 ba-ta-igal-a madirisa
 2SBJ-NEG-close-FV 10.window
 ‘Let them not close the windows.’ (elicited)

Polar questions in Ruuli do not have any morphological marking, as in (11a).⁸ Negative polar questions are built by using the standard negator *ti-*, as in (11b).

- (11) a. *We owa* *musoló?*
 we o-wa musolo
 2SG 2SG.SBJ-give.FV 3.tax
 ‘You, do you pay taxes?’ (elicited)

⁸At the moment we cannot say whether polar interrogatives have a special intonation.

- b. *We towá* *múso'ló?*
 we ti-o-wa musolo
 2SG NEG-2SG.SBJ-give.FV 3.tax
 ‘You, don’t you pay taxes?’ (ll-N-KYERIMA-170220-FS-7a)

2.3 Negation in non-verbal clauses

As other Bantu languages, Ruuli employs both invariable copulas — showing no agreement with the nominal subject — and inflected copulas, which agree with the subject (see Gibson et al. 2019). There are four copulas in Ruuli: *ni*, *li*, *ta*, and *ti*.⁹ Additionally, the semi-copula *bba* can be used in some of the contexts where the real copulas occur, i.e. in locational clauses and predicative possession. With proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses, the usage of a copula is not required in the present tense with a non-pronominal subject, as in (12a). In non-present tense and with pronominal subjects predication of proper inclusion, equation and attribution requires the copula *li*, as in (12b).

- (12) a. *Omúkali* *musómésya* / *má* *wânge* / *mukóoto*.
 o-mukali musomesya / ma wa-ange / mu-kooto
 AUG-1.woman 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS / 1-big
 ‘The woman is a teacher / my mother / big.’ (elicited)
- b. *Omúkali* *yaalí* *musómésya* / *má* *wânge* /
 o-mukali a-a-li musomesya / ma wa-ange /
 AUG-1.woman 1SBJ-PST-COP 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS /
 mukóoto.
 mu-kooto
 1-big
 ‘The woman was a teacher / my mother / big.’ (elicited)

The copulas *li*, *ta*, and the semi-copula *bba* are used in locative predication, as in (13). The speakers claim that *ta* in most cases is used interchangeably with *li*. *ta* is said to be an archaic form that is still in use in some dialects. Following Pustet (2003: 6), we classify *bba* as a semi-copula since it is not semantically empty but rather adds some meaning to the predicate phrase. The semi-copula can be translated as ‘stay, remain’ in examples of locational predication and as

⁹Note that *li* is glossed as a copula in many examples of this section, whereas in other examples it is glossed as an auxiliary, e.g. in (3c). The differing glosses are chosen to indicate the respective function of *li* in Ruuli.

‘become’ with predication of proper inclusion, equation and attribution. It inherently conveys the aspectual continuative value in the first case and ingressive value in the second, which is not the case for *li* or *ta* (cf. Hengeveld 1992: 35–36, as well as Gibson et al. 2019: 214 on Bantu specifically).

- (13) *Omúsáàle* *‘gúli* / *gutâ* / *gubbâ* *‘mú* *kíbíra*.
 o-musaale gu-li / gu-ta / gu-bba mu kibira
 AUG-3.tree 3SBJ-COP / 3SBJ-COP / 3SBJ-COP 18.LOC 7.forest
 ‘The tree is / is / stays in the forest.’ (elicited)

Bantu languages often encode predicative possession by means of a copula and the comitative preposition/conjunction *na* ‘and, with’ (Creissels 2024). In Ruuli, the most common copula *li* and the preposition *na* are currently being reanalyzed as the verb *lina* ‘have’, as in (14a), which acquired some verbal properties, such as the ability to host locative clitics. Such reanalysis of a copula followed by the comitative preposition has been observed in other Bantu languages (see Creissels 2024 for an overview).

Predicative possession can also be occasionally expressed by means of the less common copula *ta* followed by the preposition *na*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* followed by *na*, as in (14b). The speakers claim that *lina* can be used interchangeably with the copula *ta* and that the preference for one or the other is dialectal, the second option is, however, very infrequent in the corpus. There is no difference between temporary and permanent predicative possession.

- (14) a. *Omúkali* *alina* *ábaana*.
 o-mukali a-lin-a a-baana
 AUG-1.woman 1SBJ-have-FV AUG-2.child
 ‘The woman has children.’(elicited)
 b. *Omúkali* *atá* / *abbá* *n’ábaana*.
 o-mukali a-ta / a-bba na a-baana
 AUG-1.woman 1SBJ-COP / 1SBJ-COP COM AUG-2.child
 ‘The woman has / stays with children.’(elicited)

Existential predication is expressed by a construction with the copula *li*: The copula carries both a locative prefix and a locative enclitic of the noun classes 16, 17, 18, and 23, as in (Table 2). The prefix and the enclitic typically belong to the same locative noun class, as in (15a–15c). However, this is not obligatory, see e.g. (15d). The use of *waliwo* is by far the most common way to express existential predication in the corpus, but other combinations of the copula with a locative prefix and a locative enclitic are attested as well.

Table 2: The locative prefixes and enclitics

class	prefix	enclitic
16	<i>wa-</i>	<i>=wo</i>
17	<i>ku-</i>	<i>=ku</i>
18	<i>mu-</i>	<i>=mu</i>
23	<i>e-</i>	<i>=yo</i>

- (15) a. *Wáliwo* *ómúzimú.*
 wa-li=wo *o-muzumu*
 16SBJ-COP=16.LOC AUG-1.devil
 ‘There is a devil.’ (elicited)
- b. *Kúliku* *omwójô.*
 ku-li=ku *o-mwojo*
 17SBJ-COP=17.LOC AUG-1.boy
 ‘There is a boy.’ (Il-R-WSKAYUNGA-170217-FS-3)
- c. *Múlímu* *omúntú.*
 mu-li=mu *o-muntu*
 18SBJ-COP=18.LOC AUG-1.person
 ‘There is a person.’ (elicited)
- d. *Wáliwo* *ekíntú* *ekíndi.*
 wa-li=yo *e-kintu* *e-ki-ndi*
 16SBJ-COP=23.LOC AUG-7.thing AUG-7-other
 ‘There is another thing.’ (elicited)

The copula *ni* is used when the subject of the clause is focused. In contrast to the other agreeing copulas, *ni* takes a subject agreement suffix (cf. Gibson et al. 2019: 219–202 for similar examples from other Bantu languages). It can stand alone in predications where no copula is required, i.e. in proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses in present tense with a nominal subject, as in (16a). In cases where a copula is required, i.e. in all other cases, *ni* cannot replace another copula but can only be added to the clause, as in (16b–16c).

- (16) a. *Omúkali* *níyê* *musómésyâ* / *má* *wânge* / *mukóoto.*
 o-mukali *ni-ye* *musomesya* / *ma* *wa-ange* / *mu-kooto*
 AUG-1.woman COP-1SBJ 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS / 1-big
 ‘The woman is the one who is a teacher / my mother / big.’ (elicited)

- b. *Omúkali níyê alí 'mú Kámpálâ.*
 o-mukali ni-ye a-li mu Kampala
 AUG-1.woman COP-1SBJ 1SBJ-COP 18.LOC 1.Kampala
 'It is the woman who is in Kampala.' (elicited)
- c. **o-mukali ni-ye mu Kampala.*
 AUG-1.woman COP-1SBJ 18.LOC 1.Kampala
 Intended: 'It is the woman who is in Kampala.'

The Ruuli copula construction with the inflecting *ni* is somewhat unusual in the typology of the Bantu languages, as it is not common for a Bantu language to show an inflecting copula based on *ni* (see Gibson et al. 2019). If there is an inflecting copula, it is in most cases not based on the copula *ni*. In Ruuli, however, there is an inflecting copula which clearly is based on *ni*, as (16) illustrate. In contrast to regular verbs and inflecting copulas, it shows subject agreement via enclitics (similarly to the copula *ndi* in Swahili, see Gibson et al. 2019).

In the negation of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses in present tense and with a non-pronominal subject, the invariable negative copula *ti* is used, as in (17).

- (17) *Ómúka'lí tí músómésya / má wânge / mukóoto.*
 o-mukali ti musomesya / ma wa-ange / mu-kooto
 AUG-1.woman NEG.COP 1.teacher / 1.mother 1-1SG.POSS / 1-big
 'The woman is not a teacher / my mother / big.' (elicited)

In non-present, as in (18a), as well as with pronominal subjects, as in (18b), however, the standard negation marker *ti-* is prefixed to the copula *li*. The same marker is prefixed to the copula *ni* when the subject of the negative statement is focused, compare (18c) with the positive clauses in (16).

- (18) a. *Tikyá'lí k'yangú.*
 ti-ki-a-li ki-angu
 NEG-7SBJ-PST-COP 7-easy
 'It was not easy.' (ll-M-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-3)
- b. *Kubbâ tolí Múgânda.*
 kubba ti-o-li Muganda
 because NEG-2SG.SBJ-COP 1.Muganda
 'Because you are not a Muganda.' (elicited)

- c. *Omúkali tiníyê mukóoto.*
 o-mukali ti-ni-ye mu-kooto
 AUG-1.woman NEG-COP-1SBJ 1-big
 ‘It is not the woman who is big.’ (elicited)

As for the negation of locational predication, as in (13) vs. (19), and predicative possession, as in (14) vs. (20), the copulas *li* and *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* are negated by means of the standard negation marker *ti-*.

- (19) *Omúsáale tigúli / tigútá / tigúbbá ‘mú kibíra.*
 o-musaale ti-gu-li / ti-gu-ta / ti-gu-bba mu kibira
 AUG-3.tree NEG-3SBJ-COP / NEG-3SBJ-COP / NEG-3SBJ-COP 18.LOC 7.forest
 ‘The tree is not / is not / does not stay in the forest.’ (elicited)
- (20) *Omúkali talí / tabbá / tatá n’ ábaa’ná.*
 o-mukali ti-a-li / ti-a-ta / ti-a-bba na baana
 AUG-1.woman NEG-1SBJ-COP / NEG-1SBJ-COP / NEG-1SBJ-COP COM 2.child
 ‘The woman does not have children.’ (elicited)

Existential clauses in Ruuli may be negated by means of the standard negator *ti-*. This strategy seems to be used only in non-present tense, as in (21a). It is infrequently found in the corpus and was never produced in elicitation sessions. The more common strategy includes the dedicated negative existential *ndoo* with one of the locative enclitics, which are also used in the affirmative. This construction is used for both present and non-present, as in (21b–21c). The origin of the negative existential is unclear and a similar form is not available in closely related languages. However, the usage of a special negation construction in at least one type of non-verbal predication is common cross-linguistically (Veselinova 2013, Miestamo 2017).

- (21) a. *Eirá budi tíwá’áliwó sênte.*
 e-irai budi ti-wa-a-li=wo sente
 AUG-long ago in.the.past NEG-16SBJ-PST-COP=16.LOC 9.money
 ‘Long ago there was no money.’ (elicited)
- b. *Nayê ndóowô mugásô.*
 naye ndoo=wo mugaso
 but NEGEX=16.LOC 3.importance
 ‘But there is no importance.’ (ll-N-KIBBAALE-170221-FS-7a)

- c. *Ndóówô* *Múnyálâ*.
 ndoo=wo Munyala
 NEGEX=16.LOC 1.Munyala
 ‘There was no Munyala.’ (ll-N-WSKAYUNGA-170215-NA-2)

Ruuli non-verbal constructions are somewhat unusual from a Bantu perspective in that they employ an inflecting copula based on *ni*. The negation of non-verbal constructions is common for Bantu languages: There is a dedicated negative copula which does not show subject agreement and is formally the same as the negative copula reconstructed for Proto-Bantu (Meeussen 1967: 115). However, *ti* cannot be considered a negative counterpart to the affirmative copula *ni*, as in Proto-Bantu, because its usage is not limited to negation in combination with focus. Finally, there is a dedicated negative existential marker *ndoo* which has not been reported for related Bantu languages, though specialized seemingly unrelated forms exist in closely related languages, e.g. Ganda has the form *mpaa*, which combines with various locative enclitics to produce *mpaa=mu*, *mpaa=wo*, and *mpaa=yo* ‘there is no’ (Ashton et al. 1954), (Murphy 1972: 341); see also Veselinova (2016) on other language families and cross-linguistic commonalities of new forms of negative existentials

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In this section, we will discuss negation strategies in non-main clauses. We focus on three types of non-main clauses viz. clausal complementation in §2.4.1, relative clauses in §2.4.2, as well as temporal and conditional adverbial clauses in §2.4.3. The negation patterns found in other types of non-main clauses do not deviate from the patterns described for main clauses in §2.1.

2.4.1 Clausal complementation

Ruuli distinguishes three major types of complement clauses depending on the complement verb form: indicative complements with the final vowel suffix *-a* on the verb, subjunctive complements with the verb suffix *-e*, and infinitive complements, which are marked by the class 15 prefix *ku-* glossed here as INF. The most frequent and versatile complement type in Ruuli are infinitive complements (see Sørensen & Witzlack-Makarevich 2020 for details).

In indicative complements, the verb form of the complement clause does not differ from the verb form used in independent declarative clauses: There is an obligatory subject agreement and optional object agreement on the verb. Furthermore, the verb can occur with the same TA-categories as verbs in independent

declarative clauses. When the verb in indicative complement clauses is negated, the standard pre-initial negator *ti-* is used, as in (22).

- (22) *Baabóiné* *↓tékyâli* *yà* *mugaso.*
 ba-bon-ire ti-e-kya-li ya mugaso
 2SBJ-see-PFV NEG-9SBJ-PERSIS-COP 9.GEN 3.importance
 ‘They have seen that they are no longer of importance.’
 (II-R-NAKASONGOLA-170225-FS-1a)

The Ruuli subjunctive shows subject agreement but neither marking for tense nor aspect, as in (23). As we discussed in §2.2, the Ruuli subjunctive is used in independent clauses to express jussive and hortative, as in (23a), as well as optative and modal meanings. The subjunctive can also be used in certain types of complement clauses, as in (23b) (see Sørensen & Witzlack-Makarevich 2020 and Veselovsky et al. n.d. for details). The negation of a subjunctive is morphologically possible and occur in other contexts, however, negative subjunctive complements do not occur in the corpus (apart from cases of reported discourse). Instead of negating the subjunctive complement, either the negative infinitive (see (25) below) or a periphrastic construction with the morphologically positive form of one of the inherently negative verbs, such as *leka* ‘leave, stop (doing smth.)’, as in (23c), or *lema* ‘refuse’, is used (see also Güldemann (1999) for examples of periphrastic negation in other Bantu languages).

- (23) a. *Túsóme^hsyé* *ábáana.*
 tu-somesy-e a-baana
 1PL.SBJ-teach-SBJV AUG-2.child
 ‘Let us educate children.’ (II-N-BBALE-170220-FS-2)
- b. *Otáká* *áté* *ó’tééwô* *olú^hwónkô.*
 o-tak-a ate o-ta-e=wo o-lukonko
 2SG.SBJ-want-FV FOC 2SG.SBJ-put-SBJV=16.LOC AUG-11.rift
 ‘You want to cause a rift.’ (II-N-BBALE-170220-FS-2)
- c. *a-a-ba-kob-a-nga* *ba-lek-e* *ku-tiin-a*
 1SBJ-PST-2PL.OBJ-say-FV-HAB 2SBJ-let-SBJV INF-fear-FV
 ‘He used to tell them not to fear.’ (II-X-AniinireAiguru-nd-W-1)

In order to form the infinitive, class 15 prefix *ku-* is added to the verb stem that is followed by the final vowel *-a*. The class prefix is often preceded by the corresponding augment *o-*. The distribution of the augment is conditioned by a range of syntactic and semantic factors and its description goes beyond the

scope of the present study. Suffice it to say that the augment *o-* cannot be used on the infinitive when the complement-taking predicate is negated, as in (24) (cf. Sørensen & Witzlack-Makarevich 2020).

- (24) *Tintáká kú'nywâ isárâ.*
 ti-n-tak-a ku-nyw-a isara
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-like-FV INF-drink-FV 5.stale.brew
 'I don't like drinking stale brew.' (Namyalo et al. 2021: 296)

Infinitives themselves are negated by means of the post-initial negation marker *ta-*. When negated, the infinitive carries the class 14 prefix *bu-* instead of the regular class 15 prefix *ku-*. The class prefix can be preceded by the respective augment *o-*, as in (25). It is not yet clear under which circumstances the speakers prefer to negate the infinitive directly instead of negating the matrix verb. In any case, the pattern with *bu-* is used to negate infinitives also when they do not form a complement.

- (25) *Ómúsaiza ayínzâ óbú'táléétáwô mukalí.*
 o-musaiza a-yinz-a o-bu-ta-leet-a=wo mukali
 AUG-1.man 1SGJ-be.able-FV AUG-14-NEG-bring-FV=16.LOC 1.wife
 'The man may not bring there a wife.' (ll-M-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-2b)

2.4.2 Relative clauses

There are two main relativizing strategies in Ruuli. The construction used to relativize on subjects employs relative prefixes that are formally identical to the augment of the relativized noun, viz. *a-*, *e-* or *o-*, as in (26a). The construction for relativization of non-subjects includes the relative pronouns, as in (26b). With both strategies, the relative clause is negated by means of the post-initial negative prefix *ta-*, as in (26c–26d), and not with the standard negator *ti-*. Other than the use of the negator the structure of positive and negative relative clauses is identical.

- (26) a. *Ekíbírâ ekindiráine kírímu*
 e-kibira e-ki-n-liraine ki-li=mu
 AUG-7.forest REL-7SBJ-1SG.OBJ-be_close_to.PFV 7SBJ-COP=18.LOC
enkémbo.
 e-nkembo
 AUG-10.monkey
 'There are monkeys in the forest which is close to me.'
 (ll-M-KIBBALE-170221-FS-4b)

- b. *Túlína onyónyî gwé 'béeta okísyo.*
 tu-lin-a o-nyonyi gwe ba-yet-a o-kisyo
 1PL.SBJ-have-FV AUG-1.bird 1.REL 2SBJ-call-FV AUG-1.weaver.bird
 'We have a bird called weaver bird.' (Il-M-KIBBALE-170221-FS-4b)
- c. *Nayê ábátaabba'ngá ná kifô nibáyába.*
 naye a-ba-ta-a-bba-a-nga na kifo ni-ba-yab-a
 but REL-2SBJ-NEG-PST-COP-FV-HAB COM 7.place NARR-2SBJ-go-FV
 'But those who didn't have a place went.' (Namyalo et al. 2021: 100)
- d. *Ámáani gá Káncâ gwé ó'tásóbolá*
 a-maani ga kanca gwe o-ta-sobol-a
 AUG-6.power 6.GEN 1.God 1.REL 2SG.SBJ-NEG-can-FV
kú'bónáku.
 ku-bon-a=ku
 INF-see-FV=17.LOC
 'The power of God whom you cannot see.'
 (Il-N-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-1a)

2.4.3 Temporal and conditional adverbial clauses

The most frequent type of adverbial clauses are temporal and conditional clauses marked by the conjunction *nga* 'while, when', as in (27a). The conjunction *nga* is always the first item in the respective adverbial clause.¹⁰ These clauses are negated by means of the pre-initial standard negator *ti-* (see § 2.1), as in (27b).

- (27) a. *Nkumanyisyémú nga*
 n-ku-many-is-y-e=mu nga
 1SG.SBJ-2SG.OBJ-know-CAUS-SBJV=18.LOC when
twiréyo okú bbáíbbúli?
 tu-ire=yo o-ku bbaibbuli
 1PL.SBJ-return.PVF=23.LOC AUG-17.LOC 9.Bible
 'Should I let you know when we return to the Bible?'
 (Il-R-NAKASONGOLA-190801-FS-2)

¹⁰Ruuli has further less common types of adverbial clauses, which are currently being investigated, e.g. the concessive adverbial clause introduced by the conjunction *wade* 'though, even if, although'. For most of these clause types the same pattern of negation as the one observed with *nga*-clauses holds.

- b. *Toyámbángá* *‘mú* *kísokô* *nga* *tokwáite*
 ti-o-yab-a-nga mu kisiko nga ti-o-kwaite
 NEG-2SG.SBJ-go-FV-HAB 18.LOC 7.bush while NEG-2SG.SBJ-hold.PFV
mwígo.
 mwigo
 3.stick
 ‘Never go to the bush without a stick.’ (lit. ‘You never go to the bush while not holding a stick.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 62)

A separate clause often introduced by the conjunction *nga* ‘while, when’ can also be used to express the caritive meaning of *without* + *noun* and *without* + *verb*. For the meaning of *without* + *noun*, as in (28a), the predicative possession construction including the copula *li* merged with the comitative preposition *na* (see §2.3) is used in the *nga*-clause, as in (28a–28b).

- (28) a. *Yaiziréyô* *eyô* *nga* *talínâ* *‘mótóka.*
 a-a-iz-ire=yô eyo nga ti-a-lin-a motoka
 1SBJ-PST-come-PFV=23.LOC 23.LOC while NEG-1SBJ-have-FV 9.car
 ‘He came there without a car.’ (lit. ‘He came there while he does not have a car.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 129)
- b. *Yayabiré* *omú* *írwáaro* *nga* *talínâ* *mugendyá.*
 a-a-yab-ire omu irwaliro nga ti-a-lin-a mugendya
 1SBJ-PST-go-PFV 18.LOC 5.hospital while NEG-1SBJ-have-FV 1.caretaker
 ‘He went to the hospital without a caretaker.’ (Lit. ‘He went to the hospital while he did not have a caretaker.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 129)
- c. *Balyangá* *ómúku’bí* *ndóómû* *muunyú.*
 ba-ly-a-nga omukubi ndoo=mu muunyu
 2SBJ-eat-FV-HAB 3.sauce NEGEX=18.LOC 3.salt
 ‘They used to eat sauce without salt.’
 (II-N-WSKAYUNGA-170216-NA-1)
- d. *Baamubbweeré* *nga* *ndóówô* *bujúurwa.*
 ba-a-mu-bbw-ere nga ndoo=wo bujuurwa
 2SBJ-PST-1OBJ-detain-PFV while NEGEX=16.LOC 14.evidence
 ‘He was imprisoned without any evidence.’ (Namyalo et al. 2021: 172)

In order to express *without* + *verb*, the *nga*-clause has the negated form of the respective verb, as in (29).

- (29) *Nga taliísíryé nkóko yatambwirê mbe.*
 nga ti-a-liisirye nkoko a-a-tambwire mbe
 while NEG-1SBJ-feed.PFV 10.chicken 1SBJ-PST-walk.PFV FOC
 ‘He just walked away without feeding the chicken.’ (lit. ‘While he had not fed the chicken, he just walked away.’) (Namyalo et al. 2021: 130)

3 Non-clausal negation

This section describes negative constructions that do not operate on clause-level, i.e. negative constructions that do not turn affirmative clauses into negative clauses but express negation on another type of constituent (Miestamo 2017: 424). The following sections are devoted to properties of negative replies to polar questions (§3.1), the construction of negative indefinites (§3.2), and negative derivation and case marking (§3.3) in Ruuli.

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies in Ruuli are either expressed by means of a one-word negative reply *bbe* ‘no’, by the repetition of the verb of the question in its negative form or a combination of the two strategies. *Bbe* is a dedicated marker used only to give a negative reply.

In Ruuli, giving a negative reply to a negative question indicates that the speaker disagrees with the polarity but not the propositional content of the question. Thus, answering *bbe* to the negative question in (30Q) is understood as ‘it (the child) is sleeping’ (30A1). Other grammatical responses indicating disagreement are given in (30A2) and (30A3). A combination of *ee* ‘yes’ and the verb in the affirmative is not possible as an answer to a negative question, as in (30A4). *Ee* is the common word for ‘yes’ and not a polarity reversing particle, like German *doch*. The combination of *bbe* ‘no’ and the verb in the negative in the given context is not possible either as in (30A5). However, (30A4) and (30A5) are acceptable answers to a positive question.

- (30) Q. *Ómwána tabbásyá?*
 o-mwana ti-a-bbasy-a
 AUG-1.child NEG-1SBJ-sleep-FV
 ‘Doesn’t the child sleep?’ (elicited)

- A1. *Bbé.*
bbe
no
'No (the child sleeps).' (elicited)
- A2. *ée, tabbásyá.*
ee ti-a-bbasy-a
yes NEG-1SBJ-sleep-FV
'Yes, it does not sleep.' (elicited)
- A3. *Bbé, abbásyâ.*
bbe a-bbasy-a
no 1SBJ-sleep-FV
'No, it sleeps.' (elicited)
- A4. * *ee a-bbasy-a*
yes 1SBJ-sleep-FV
Intended: 'Yes, it sleeps.'
- A5. * *bbe t-a-bbasy-a*
no NEG-1SBJ-sleep-FV
Intended: 'No, it does not sleep.'

3.2 Negative indefinites

In Ruuli, the semantic equivalent of the indefinite pronouns 'something' and 'somebody' are expressed by the use of the generic nouns *kintu* '7.thing', as in (31a), and *muntu* '1.person', as in (31b).

- (31) a. *Asóbólâ okú'kóláwo ekintû.*
a-sobol-a o-ku-kol-a=wo e-kintu
1SBJ-can-FV AUG-INF-do-FV=16.LOC AUG-7.thing
'He can do something there.' (elicited)
- b. *Omúntû n' á'kólá ékíbbi omukobakú.*
o-muntu ni a-kol-a e-ki-bbi o-mu-kobaku
AUG-1.man if 1SBJ-do-FV REL-7-wrong 2SG.SBJ-1OBJ-counsel
'If someone does wrong, you counsel him.' (Namyalo et al. 2021: 412)

Haspelmath (2013) states that languages with generic-noun-based indefinites typically also have generic-noun-based negative indefinites. This is not the case in Ruuli. Instead, a negative existential construction is used to express 'nobody' and 'nothing', as in (32a–32c). Note that (32a) is actually a relative clause in which

the relativizer *e-* is dropped due to the presence of negation, as will be discussed in §4.3. More research on negative indefinites in other Bantu language is needed to assess how typical or atypical this way of expression is.

- (32) a. *Ndóówô* *kíréma*.
 ndoo=wo ki-lem-a
 NEGEX=16.LOC 7SBJ-fail-FV
 ‘Nothing fails.’ (lit. ‘There is nothing that fails.’)
 (II-R-NAKASONGOLA-170225-FS-1d)
- b. *Olina* *kí?* *Ndóówô*.
 o-lin-a ki ndoo=wo
 2SG.SBJ-have-FV COM what
 ‘What do you have? Nothing.’ (elicited)
- c. *Ndóówô* *yaalí* *ánkúbbi⁴ré*.
 ndoo=wo a-a-li a-n-kubb-ire
 NEGEX=16.LOC 1SBJ-PST-AUX 1SBJ-1SG.OBJ-call-PFV
 ‘Nobody has ever called me.’ (II-M-WSKAYUNGA-170218-FS-2b)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

The preposition *nambula* ‘without’ can be compounded with nouns to indicate the lack of the compounded noun. For example, *buculeeri* ‘14.peace’ is compounded with the preposition *nambula*, which results in the adjective *nambulabuculeeri* ‘restless, insecure’, as in (33). The noun *kinambulamugaso* ‘7.useless thing’ consists of the noun *mugaso* ‘3.importance’ and the preposition *nambula* ‘without’. This noun is assigned to class 7 and receives the prefix *ki-*. This noun class also includes the generic noun *kintu* ‘7.thing’. At present, it is difficult to assess the productivity of this process, however, only a small number of negative derivations of the above type is registered in the dictionary and no examples are found in the corpus.

- (33) *Ensí* *egínambulabuculéeri* *tekulaakulaná*.
 e-nsi e-gi-nambulabuculeeri ti-e-kulaakulan-a
 AUG-9.country AUG-9-insecure NEG-9SBJ-develop-FV
 ‘An insecure country does not develop.’ (Namyalo et al. 2021: 81)

4 Other aspects of negation

This section discusses those aspects of negation that operate on neither clausal nor non-clausal level. We provide a short overview of the scope of negation (§4.1) and negative polarity items (§4.2) in Ruuli. §4.3 analyses the marking of noun phrases in the scope of negation. §4.4 presents the strategies used to reinforce Ruuli negation. Negation in sentence coordination is addressed in §4.5.

4.1 The scope of negation

Ruuli is a language that shows verb-dependent negative placement, i.e. it places the negator in relation to the verb instead of the element in focus. Speakers translate the sentence *I don't read the newspaper on Saturday* always as shown in (34) even when different elements, i.e. *read*, *newspaper* or *Saturday*, were put in focus. Probably, prosody is used to narrow the scope of negation to a specific constituent.

- (34) *Tinsómá ámakuru okú Lwámúkáaga.*
ti-n-som-a makuru o-ku Lwamukaaga
NEG-1SG.SBJ-read-FV 6.newspaper AUG-17.LOC 10.Saturday
'I don't read the newspaper on Saturday.' (elicited)

4.2 Negative polarity items

At the current state of language description, we have not been able to identify either positive or negative polarity items. The expression of phasal polarity (the concepts such as YET and ALREADY) is discussed in detail in Molochieva et al. (2021) and does not involve dedicated lexical items (see §2.1 for a brief overview).

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

In Ruuli and other Bantu languages (Miestamo 2014: 80), noun phrases can be effected by the scope of negation: When nouns are preceded by a negative verb form, the augment is typically omitted, as in (35a–35b). The absence of the augment is not only observed on objects, which regularly follow the verb, but also on adjuncts introduced e.g. by the locative noun class markers *ku* '17.LOC' and *mu* '18.LOC'.¹¹ When the negative verb is not directly followed by a noun or when it is followed by a headless noun phrase, the augment is present on either the

¹¹Class 16 locative has the invariable form *e* and does not take an augment.

noun (in the first case) or other modifiers (in the second case), as in (35c). Note that even in complement clauses with infinitive verb forms, the complementation verb never carries the augment when the matrix predicated is negated, as described in §2.4.

- (35) a. *Ibbâ enkáitô!*
 ibb-a e-nkaito
 steal-FV AUG-10.shoe
 ‘Steal the shoes!’ (elicited)
- b. *Otáibbâ nkáitô!*
 o-ta-ibb-a nkaito
 2SG.SBJ-NEG-steal-FV 10.shoe
 ‘Don’t steal the shoes!’ (elicited)
- c. *Nayé lwâki titúsómesya olwáíswê?*
 naye lwaki ti-tu-somesy-a o-lu-aiswe
 but why NEG-1PL.SBJ-teach-FV AUG-11-1PL.POSS
 ‘But why don’t we teach ours?’ (11-N-BBALE-170220-FS-2)

In Ruuli, the class 17 locative enclitic =*ku* can be used to express partitive meaning (see Persohn & Devos 2017 for an overview of the use of locative enclitic to express partitive in Bantu). However, in contrast to the Circum-Baltic languages (see Miestamo 2014), the partitive does not play a role in the marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Several strategies can be used to reinforce negation. First, there are three adverbs that are used to reinforce negation: *kimwei* ‘totally, completely’, *kaakimwei* ‘thoroughly’ and *kakyarumwei* ‘totally, completely’. When used with negative constructions, they are often translated as ‘at all’. However, they express different degrees of reinforcement: *kimwei* adds the least fortification to a negative statement, as in (36b). The reinforcement is strengthened when *kaakimwei* is used, as in (36c). The strongest intensifier of negation is achieved by the use of *kakyarumwei*, as in (36d). With these adverbs, the verb takes an applicative suffix both in negative and in positive forms.

- (36) a. *Tindyá mú'céere.*
 ti-n-ly-a muceere
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-FV 3.rice
 ‘I don’t eat rice.’ (elicited)

- b. *Tindíirá* *kí'mwéi mucéere.*
 ti-n-lya-ir-a kimwei muceere
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-APPL-FV totally 3.rice
 'I don't eat rice at all.' (elicited)
- c. *Tindíirá* *káá'kímwéi mucéere.*
 ti-n-lya-ir-a kaakimwei muceere
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-APPL-FV thoroughly 3.rice
 'I don't eat rice at all.' (elicited)
- d. *Tindíirá* *ká'kyáárúmwê mucéere.*
 ti-n-lya-ir-a kakyarumwei muceere.
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-eat-APPL-FV completely 3.rice
 'I don't eat rice at all.' (elicited)

Note, however, that there is no sign of bleaching of the emphatic meaning of the adverbs. Furthermore, the use of the adverbs in the negative contexts is not conventionalized and they appear more frequently with positive than with negative verb forms in the corpus and are overall relatively We can thus rule out the possibility that the adverbs in combination with the standard negation marker *ti-* form a double negation construction.

Second, similarly to what has been reported for some other Bantu languages (see Devos & van der Auwera 2013, Persohn & Devos 2017), Ruuli also uses a locative enclitic to reinforce negation, e.g. the class 17 =*ku*, as in (37). Note that it is the locative enclitic with the partitive function, see §4.3.

- (37) a. *iswe ti-tu-a-zwal-a-nga=ku mbugo nayenga a-baala*
 we NEG-1PL.SBJ-PST-wear-FV-HAB 10.bark_cloth but AUG-2.girl
 'As for us, apart for the girls, we have never worn bark cloth.'
 (II-N-KIDERA-170221-FS-5a)
- b. *ti-n-bon-a-nga=ku e-ngerí gye*
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-see-FV-HAB=17.LOC AUG-9.way 9.REL
ba-ba-kaly-a=mu o-mu Kinyala
 2SBJ-2OBJ-handle-FV=18.LOC AUG-18.LOC 7.Banyala_culture
 'I have never seen how they are handled in the culture of the Banyala.'
 (II-N-KYERIMA-170218-NA-4)

Finally, the regular focus marker *mbe*, as e.g. in (29), can be used immediately following negated verbs, as in (38). It can be combined with one of the adverbs discussed above, as in (38b).

- (38) a. *naye a-bantu ti-ba-ki-kwaite mbe*
 but AUG-2.person NEG-2SBJ-7OBJ-understand.PFV FOC
 ‘[He taught that thing,] but people did understand it.’
 (II-R-WSKAYUNGA-170217-FS-3)
- b. *ti-mu-ly-a mbe kibuulo kimwei adi*
 NEG-1PL.SBJ-eat-FV FOC 7.meal totally there
 ‘You just don’t eat the same meal there.’
 (II-R-NAKASONGOLA-170224-FS-3b)

4.5 Negation and coordination

Negative coordination of nominals is achieved by means of the particle *gonze* ‘not even’, as in (39a). Note that the augment is only omitted on the nominal that directly follows the negated verb, whereas the nominal following *gonze* can take the augment. Two negative clauses can be coordinated with the same marker, as in (39b). When a negative and a positive clause are coordinated, the coordinators *ate* ‘but’ or *baitu* ‘but’ can be used, as in (39c).

- (39) a. *Tintáká náíbúbyái gonzé enswâ.*
 ti-n-tak-a naibubyai gonze e-nswa
 NEG-1SG.SBJ-like-FV 10.spider not.even AUG-9.flying.termite
 ‘I like neither spiders nor flying termites.’ (elicited)
- b. *Enkómyô tí gíkóoto gonzé ókú’bbáamu*
 e-nkomyo ti gi-kooto gonze o-ku-bba=mu
 AUG-9.prison NEG 9-big not.even AUG-INF-COP=18.LOC
abányágî.
 a-banyagi
 AUG-2.prisoner
 ‘The prison is neither big nor are there many prisoners.’ (elicited)
- c. *Atáká á’bántû baitú oibá wáámwê*
 a-tak-a a-bantu baitu o-iba wa-amwe
 1SBJ-like-FV AUG-2.person but AUG-1.husband 1-1POSS
tatáká ‘bántû.
 ti-a-tak-a bantu
 NEG-1SBJ-like-FV 2.person
 ‘She is friendly, but her husband is unfriendly.’ (lit. ‘She likes people, but her husband does not like people.’) (elicited)

5 Summary

We started this article by considering the clausal negation. All tense-aspect combinations are negated by means of the prefix *ti-*. Except for the near future tense, the negation constructions are symmetric with respect to segmental marking. There might well be tonal differences between the tenses, the area of Ruuli grammar still under investigation.

As discussed in §2.1, many Bantu languages show a regular, syntactically conditioned distribution of pre- and post-initial negatives: whereas the pre-initial negation tends to be used in unmarked main clauses, the post-initial negation strategy is used in more “marked” clause types, such as various subordinate clauses and prohibitives (Güldemann 1996: 261–279, 305–308, 1999: 551–564). The distribution of the pre-initial *ti-* and the post-initial *ta-* in Ruuli follows this trend. Thus, we classify Ruuli as a language that has a special negative imperative construction and a special negator in the negative imperative which is not used in standard negation (see Devos & Van Olmen 2013 on similar patterns in other Bantu languages).

In non-verbal clauses there are three copulas: *ni*, *li*, and *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba*, which can be used in some of the contexts where the real copulas occur, i.e. in locational clauses and predicative possession. In the negation of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses in the present tense, as well as with a non-pronominal subject, the invariable negative copula *ti* is used. In other non-verbal clauses, the copulas *li*, *ta*, as well as the semi-copula *bba* are negated by means of the standard negation marker *ti-*. Furthermore, there is a dedicated negative existential *ndoo*, which to our knowledge has not been reported for closely-related Bantu languages.

The article further provides an overview of other aspects of clausal and non-clausal negation, as well as discusses i.a. the scope of negation, phasal polarity items, and reinforcing negation. A short summary of the different aspects of negation that are discussed in this paper is provided in Table 3.

Authors' contribution

ER wrote her MA thesis under supervision of AWM on the topic of this paper, collected additional data to supplement the available corpus, and lead the preparation of the first manuscript of this paper. All authors contributed to the first manuscript and first review round. SN and AWM revised the paper in the second review the round and finalized the article. SN served as the PI of the project within which the data collection for this article was carried out.

Table 3: Overview of negation strategies in Ruuli

Negation strategy	Functions	Examples	Section
Prefix <i>ti-</i>	Standard negation (all tenses and aspects)	(1–2)	§2.1
	Various non-main clauses	(22), (26c–26d), (27b), (28a–28b)	§2.4
	Negation of non-verbal locational predication	(19)	§2.3
	Negation of non-verbal predication of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses (non-present and with pronominal subjects)	(18)	§2.3
Copula <i>ti</i>	Negation of non-verbal predication of proper inclusion, equative and attributive clauses (present with non-pronominal subjects)	(17)	§2.3
Prefix <i>ta-</i>	Negative imperative, negative hortative	(7), (9–10)	§2.2
Particle <i>ndoo</i>	Negative existential	(21b–21c), (32)	§2.3
Prefix <i>bu-</i>	Negation of infinitives	(25)	§2.4.1
Prefix <i>ti-</i> + prefix <i>kya-</i> ‘PERS’	Phasal polarity	(3)	§2.1
Interjection <i>bbe</i>	Negative reply	(30A1–30A3)	§3.1

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Abbreviations

1, 2, 3, etc.	noun class	INF	infinitive
1SG	first person singular	LOC	locative
2SG	second person	NARR	narrative
	singular	NEG	negative
1PL	first person plural	NEGEX	negative existential
2PL	second person	OBJ	object
	plural	PERSIS	persistent
APPL	applicative	PFV	perfective
AUG	augment	PL	plural
AUX	auxiliary	POSS	possessive
CAUS	causative	PROG	progressive
COM	comitative	PST	past
COP	copula	REL	relativizer
FV	final vowel	SBJ	subject
FOC	focus	SBJV	subjunctive
FUT	future	SG	singular
GEN	genitive	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
HAB	habitual		

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Chapter 10

Negation in Cuwabo

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This chapter provides a descriptive analysis of the negative constructions in Cuwabo (Bantu P34) on both clausal and non-clausal levels. Formal properties such as type, position and number of negative markers are dealt with, as well as the structural differences between affirmatives versus negatives. On the clausal level, distinction is made between declaratives, non-declaratives, verbless predication and non-main clauses. Non-clausal negation, usually poorly described in Bantu grammars, involves negative replies, negative indefinites, and negative derivation. This paper finally addresses several semantic-pragmatic aspects linked with negation. Of particular interest is the recurrent use of ironic negative constructions in order to convey emphatic affirmative statements.

Keywords: negation strategies, (non-)clausal negation, paradigmatic (a)symmetry, ironic negation, Cuwabo (Bantu).

1 The language

Cuwabo (ISO: chw, Glottocode: chuw1238), pronounced /tʃuwabo/, is an Eastern Bantu language, coded as P34 in Guthrie's (1967) referential classification. It is spoken in the Zambézia province of Mozambique by more than one million speakers (Maunze et al. 2019). The number and names of the different Cuwabo varieties differ depending on the sources. The Ethnologue (Lewis et al. 2014)¹ distinguishes five main varieties: central Cuwabo, Karungu, Mayindo, Marale, and Nyaringa, whereas Guérois (2015) excludes Marale (seemingly closer to Sena) and adds Manyawa, spoken around Lugela. The data used in this chapter belong

¹This dialectal census could not be checked in the later editions of the Ethnologue because the access to any informative page have become a paid (and quite expensive!) service.



to the central variety, simply referred to as Cuwabo, and located around Quelimane, the capital city of the Zambézia province. Quelimane corresponds both traditionally and geographically to the homeland of the Cuwabo people.

Central Cuwabo has 31 consonants and a five-vowel system, which distinguishes short and long vowels. In this chapter, I mostly follow the standardized orthographic system adopted in Ngunga & Faquir (2011), where most graphemes are equivalent to the phonemes, except for the following: tt = /t/, dd = /d/, h = /ʔ/, dh = /ð/, ng = /ŋg/, ñg = /ŋ/, and lr = /ɾ/. As conventionally practiced in Bantu studies, the graphemes j and y stand for the palatal stop /ɟ/ and the palatal approximant /j/, respectively. For each example provided in this chapter, the first tier presents a broad phonetic representation written in phonetic symbols. It includes surface morphophonological processes, including resyllabification processes and tonal processes of doubling and spreading. The second tier, written in graphemes, provides the morphological segmentation of each utterance. On this tier, only the underlying High tones are represented.

Cuwabo is a tone language with a binary distinction between High-toned moras (indicated with an acute accent on the segment) and toneless moras (zero-marked). The tone-bearing unit is the mora. Tones are both lexically and grammatically significant. There are two tone rules. The most frequent rule is High-Tone doubling, which consists of copying an underlying H only onto the next mora to the right, both word-internally and across word boundaries. Plateauing whereby at least two toneless moras become H between two underlying H tones word-internally, is the second tone rule.

As most Bantu languages,² Cuwabo has a predominantly head-marking morphology characterized by an extensive system of noun class agreement numbered from 1 to 18. Among them, class 15 prefix *o-* serves to form infinitives. In addition to noun class prefixes, Cuwabo nouns carry an “augment tone” whose presence or absence is mostly conditioned by pragmatic factors, such as referentiality. This issue is discussed in §4.3.

Cuwabo verbal morphology is highly agglutinative. Its verbal complex consists of a string of grammatical morphemes that appear in a strict order organized around a stem nucleus, which is in turn built upon a verbal root optionally hosting one or several derivational suffixes. The elements that appear in these verbal slots convey a range of grammatical information, as can be seen on examination of Table 1. With regard to polarity, three slots are of importance in Cuwabo: the pre-initial slot, the post-initial slot and the final slot.

²Among sources defining what typical Bantu languages are, the reader is referred to general works such as Williamson & Blench (2000: 11–42), Nurse & Philippson (2003) and Van de Velde et al. (2019).

Table 1: The morphological structure of the Cuwabo verb (based on Güldemann's 1999 terminology)

slots	functions	negators
pre-initial	TAM, negation	<i>ka-</i>
initial	subject	
post-initial	TAM, AM, negation	<i>hi- / náá-</i>
pre-radical	object, reflexive	
radical	verb root	
pre-final	derivation, TA	
final	TAM, negation	<i>-i</i>
post-final	plural imperative suffix, locative, comitative/ instrumental, restrictive, intensive, subject pronouns in relatives	

Cuwabo negation is mostly preverbal. In this, it conforms to the universal preference to place negation before the verb stem (Dahl 1979; Dryer 1988, 2011). Pre-stem negative prefixation is the pattern standardly found across Bantu languages, most likely inherited from Proto-Bantu (Westphal 1958; Kamba Muzenga 1981; Güldemann 1999). See §4.6.5 for diachronic observations.

Variation in Bantu negation strategies has been the subject of a number of previous studies (see Westphal 1958; Kamba Muzenga 1981; Contini-Morava 1989; Güldemann 1999; Devos & van der Auwera 2013; Guérois et al. 2024, for comparative studies). This chapter aims to provide an exhaustive and typologically-informed picture of the different negative constructions attested in Cuwabo, on both clausal and non-clausal levels.

The outline of this chapter follows the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]): §2 explores negation on the clausal level, covering both verbal and non-verbal predication; §3 examines non-clausal negation, i.e. negative items or constructions such as negative replies, negative indefinites, and negative derivation; §4 describes other aspects of negation, including the scope of negation, negative polarity, the pragmatics and marking of NPs under the scope of negation, negation reinforcers, negative coordinators, negative transport, metalinguistic negation, ironic negation and diachronic considerations. A summary of the chapter is provided in §5.

Most of the data presented in this paper come from the author's fieldwork, conducted around Quelimane between 2011 and 2013. For each example, the type of

source (story, conversation, image, elicitation) is provided between square brackets. The reader is referred to Guérois (2015, 2019) for a full-fledged description of the language.

2 Clausal negation

This section explores clausal negation constructions in Cuwabo. Following the questionnaire, standard negation, i.e. negation in declarative main clauses, is first described in §2.1, as opposed to negation in non-declarative main clauses, which is covered in §2.2. §2.3 and §2.4 are concerned with negation in non-verbal clauses and negation in non-main clauses, respectively. No discussion of negative lexicalizations (Veselinova 2013a) is provided as they were not observed on the basis of my corpus.

2.1 Standard negation

Negation in declarative verbal main clauses is invariably marked by the pre-initial negator *ka-*. This is seen with the past imperfective *kaálóga* and the past perfective *kaaziwílé* in (1) and the hypothetical *kamugaabélélle* in (2).³

- (1) mwáán' óólle kaálóga. kaaziwíl' óologā
mú-aná ólle ka-á-log-a ka-a-ziw-ile
 1-child 1.DEM.DIST NEG.SBJ1-PST.IPFV-speak-FV NEG.SBJ1-PST-know-PFV
o-log-á
 HTD.15-speak-FV
 'That child did not speak. She was not able to speak.' [Mute.Girl.Story]
- (2) koʔíkálagá koḍó, kamugaabélélle
ka-o-hí-kal-ag-á koddo ka-mu-gaa-abélel-ile
 CNTF-15-NEG-be-HAB-FV HTD.9a.war NEG-SBJ.2PL-HYP-swim-PFV
 'If it was not on account of war, you would not (be able to) swim.'
 [Elicitation]

All declarative TA categories are listed in Table 2, both in their affirmative and negative shapes. Whenever possible, a cross-referenced example is indicated in parentheses.

³Subject prefixes of 3rd person singular and plural are expressed by means of noun classes, hence they are glossed SBJ.1 and SBJ.2. Speech act participants are, in turn, glossed SBJ.1SG/SBJ.2SG/SBJ.1PL/SBJ.2PL.

Table 2: Declarative TA categories

label	Affirmative	Negative
progressive present 'we are Ving'	SBJ- <i>ni-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] (4b)	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>ni-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (57)
(hab.) present 'we V'	SBJ- <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [CJ] (3)	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (38a)
perfective/perfect 'we (have) Ved'	SBJ- <i>hi</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] (4a) SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i> (24b)
past perfective 'we (had) Ved'	SBJ- <i>á</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> (1)
past imperfective 'we Ved/were Ving'	SBJ- <i>a-ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>á</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>á</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (1)
future 'we will V'	SBJ- <i>naa-ilá-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i> (40)
future imperfective 'we will be Ving'	SBJ- <i>gá-ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i>
hypothetical 'we would have Ved'	SBJ- <i>gaa-hí</i> -VB- <i>a</i> [DJ] SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> [CJ]	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>ile</i> (2)
past progressive 'we were Ving'	SBJ- <i>á</i> -AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>á</i> -AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (5)
counter-expectational 'we did V'	SBJ-AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (6)	<i>ka</i> -SBJ-AUX <i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (6)
'not yet'		<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>ná</i> -VB- <i>a</i> (7)

A common typological criterion when dealing with verbal negation is symmetry between affirmative and negative constructions. According to Miestamo (2007: 556), “symmetric negative constructions do not differ from non-negatives in any other way than by the presence of the negative marker(s)”. This is partly the case in Cuwabo. Looking more closely at the affirmative column in Table 2, most declarative TA categories are subdivided into a pair of complementary conjugations, known since Meeussen (1959) as “conjoint” (CJ) and “disjoint” (DJ).⁴ This CJ/DJ alternation is conditioned by information structure. CJ verb forms are used to introduce a focused element, which necessarily occupies the Immediate-After-Verb position and, depending on its grammatical category, loses its (first) underlying High tone, a process glossed as HTD for High Tone Deletion (see §4.3 for more details). This is shown in (3) with the noun *mulobwana* ‘man’ (underlyingly *múlobwana*), which loses its underlying H after the conjoint verb *ddiṁfúná* (see (58a) for another example). In disjoint verb constructions, no special relationship between the verb and the following constituent applies (4a). This means that, unlike conjoint forms, a disjoint verb can stand on its own, as in (4b).

- (3) *supeéyo supeéyo, míyo ddiṁfúná mulobwana*
supeéyo supeéyo míyo ddi-ní-fun-a
 HTD.9a.mirror HTD.9a.mirror PRO1SG SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV
mu-lobwana
 HTD.1-man
 ‘Mirror, mirror, I want a man.’ [Maria.Story]
- (4) a. *múlóbwan’ oókosá: masárápiṭw’ aábále*
mú-lobwana o-hí-kos-á ma-sárapitto ábale
 1-man SBJ1-PFV.DJ-do-FV 6-magic 6.DEM.DIST
 ‘The man made that magic.’ [Mbiri.Story]
- b. *ánófúlá*
á-ni-ó-ful-á
 SBJ2-IPFV.DJ-15-wash-FV
 ‘They are washing.’ [Ddoolrindo.Story]

Negative TAs in Cuwabo do not have the CJ/DJ alternation. Instead, only one form, based on the conjoint morphology and marked by the pre-initial negative

⁴Such a distinction is observed mostly in Eastern and Southern Bantu (see van der van der Wal & Hyman 2017).

marker *ka-*, is used to obtain negative polarity. This means that both CJ/DJ affirmative forms are negated by means of a single negative form. As a result, constructional negation symmetry only applies with conjoint affirmatives: negative verb forms are formally equivalent to the affirmative conjoint verb forms.⁵ The disjoint morphology is lost when negation takes place. The only exception is the progressive present form *ka-SBJ-ni-o-VB-a* ‘we are not Ving’, which functions as the negative counterpart of the disjoint form *SBJ-ni-o-VB-a* ‘we are Ving’ (first line in Table 2). This is most likely due to the aspectual difference between the disjoint present and conjoint present in Cuwabo: whereas the disjoint form is progressive, the conjoint form *SBJ-ni-VB-a* is used to refer to a general or even habitual present. In this sense, the CJ/DJ alternation for present is further specified with aspectual distinctions as compared with the six other TAs displaying the alternation.

The absence of CJ/DJ alternation in negatives underlies a paradigmatic asymmetry between affirmative and negative declarative TA categories. More precisely, this case of syncretism where two (or more) affirmative paradigms share a common negative counterpart is referred to by Miestamo (2005) as “paradigmatic A/Cat asymmetry”. The last three declarative TA categories in Table 2 do not have the CJ/DJ alternation. Both past progressive (5) and counter-expectational⁶ (6), built upon the auxiliary *ila* (grammaticalized from *ila* ‘say/do’), show symmetry with their affirmative equivalent.

- (5) *íyééné kaál’ uuṭolon’ úkó kéél’ oofulá?*
íyeéne ka-á-li o-ttolo=ni óko
 PRO3SG NEG.SBJ1-PST.IPFV-be HTD.17-well=LOC 17.DEM.REF
ka-á-ila o-ful-á
 NEG.SBJ1-PST.IPFV-AUX HTD.15-wash-FV
 ‘Wasn’t she there at the well, wasn’t she washing?’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]
- (6) A: *múkwáníya óyéví?áwa ḍaáwo?*
mú-kwaní=ya ó-yev-ih-a=wa dhaáwo
 3-greenery=DEF 15-be.small-CAUS-FV=DEF15 like.that.II
 ‘(Why) so little greenery?’

⁵If the symmetry invariably holds on the segmental level, in certain TAMs, tonal differences between affirmatives and negatives occur on the supra-segmental level. See Kisseberth & Guérois (2014) for more details on melodic High tones in Cuwabo verbs.

⁶Counter-expectational, commonly attested in narrative texts, is used to express unexpected or unplanned events, in both affirmative and negative polarities. It is aspectually close to the perfective, since the event is seen as a whole, but unlike the perfective, the counter-expectational involves a surprising effect.

- B: *kaɗjíl' óogula, ɗjíl' óóvá?íwa*
ka-ddi-íla o-gul-á ddi-lá ó-vah-íw-a
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE HTD.15-buy-FV SBJ.1SG-CNTE 15-give-PASS-FV
 'I did not buy it, I was given it.' [Elicitation]

As for 'not yet', which combines *ka-* with the counter-expectational prefix *ná-* as in (7), it has no affirmative equivalent. There is no dedicated morpheme to express the concept 'already' in the language, although perfective verb forms may convey such meaning (Guérois 2021). Notably, the counter-expectational prefix *ná-* is also attested with the post-initial negator *hi-* in non-main clauses to express 'before Ving'. Such polysemy is common for *nondum* constructions (Veselinova et al. 2024). This is further discussed in §2.4.2.

- (7) *oɲmála wóóda. só kanákwa*
o-hi-mál-a ó-odd-á só ka-ná-kw-a
 SBJ1-PFV.DJ-finish-FV 15-be.thin-FV but NEG.SBJ1-CNTE-die-FV
 'She has turned thin, but she had not died yet.' [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

This section is concerned with negation in non-declaratives. Negation in interrogative sentences does not differ from negation in other clause types; see, for instance, examples (5), (52), (57), (67). It is worth noting that question tags are expressed by means of the non-verbal negator *kahíye ~ kahíyo* discussed at length in §3.3 below. An example is given in (8) with the variant *kahíyo*. This pro-sentential use of negative existential is cross-linguistically very common (cf. Veselinova 2013b).

- (8) *Aíssa ooɬúkúla ɲpíka, kaáyo?*
Aíssa o-hi-ttúkul-a mu-píka kahíyo
 Aíssa SBJ1-PFV.DJ-take-FV 3-bucket NVB.NEG
 'Aíssa took the bucket, didn't she?' [Elicitation]

The rest of this section is concerned with imperative and other modality-linked notions such as hortative, jussive, optative and desiderative.

Commands in the second person singular or plural are expressed by means of the pre-initial imperative prefix *ka-*, i.e. a grammaticalized form of the associated motion marker *ka-* (Guérois et al. 2021).⁷ This is illustrated in (9). As in many

⁷A second form of imperative, consisting of a bare stem (e.g. *gulá!* 'buy!' < *ógulá* 'to buy'), also exists in Cwabo, but has largely fallen into disuse.

Bantu languages (Nurse 2008: 192), there is no formal negative counterpart to the imperative in Cuwabo. The only strategy to express negative commands or prohibitives is the use of the negative subjunctive. As in most Bantu languages, the subjunctive in Cuwabo is marked by the final vowel *-e* (Nurse 2008: 261). Remarkably, there are three different ways of negating subjunctives in Cuwabo, two of which are attested in non-declaratives (see §2.4.1 for a discussion of the third negator). The first strategy involves the pre-initial negator *ka-*, the same as used in standard negation. This is illustrated in (10), where *ka-* is merged with the second person singular subject prefix *o-*, resulting in *ku-*. The second strategy consists in prefixing the post-initial negator *náa-*, as in (11) for second person plural or (13a) for second person singular. According to my main consultant, these two strategies are interchangeable. Research through my corpus seems to confirm their occurring in similar contexts.

- (9) *kaḏówá vatákûlu!*
ka-dhów-a va-tákulu
 IMP-go-FV 16-9a.home
 ‘Go (sg) home!’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]
- (10) *kulime mund’ áwó muzógwé aʔirúbwîle*
ku-lim-e mú-ndda ó-awo mu-zógwe
 NEG.SBJ.2SG-cultivate-SBJV 3-field AGR3-POSS2SG 1-rain
a-hi-rúbw-ile
 SBJ1-NEG-rain-PFV.SEQ
 ‘Do (2sg) not farm your field if it has not rained.’ [Elicitation]
- (11) *kááʔiyeṇna áányā. munééye!*⁸
ká-a-ttiy-e=ní=na á-anyá mu-náa-iy-e
 IMP-OBJ2-leave-FV=PL.ADDR=COM 2-owner SBJ.2PL-NEG-steal-SBJV
 ‘Leave (2pl) it for/with the owners. Do not steal!’ [Elicitation]

The lack of paradigmatic symmetry between (positive) imperatives and prohibitives is commonly observed cross-linguistically (van der Auwera 2006).

Other non-declarative verbal clauses in Cuwabo are all built on the subjunctive morphology, in both affirmative and negative polarities. Apart from its recurrent use in complement clauses (see §2.4.1), the subjunctive found in non-declaratives

⁸Note in (11) that when an object prefix is added to an affirmative imperative verb form, as in *kááʔiyeṇna*, the final vowel *-a* changes to *-e*. This is a regular change in Eastern Bantu (see also Ruppert et al. 2025).

may be used as a suggestion or mild imperative (12a), an optative/desiderative (12b), or a hortative/jussive (12c). The negative equivalents are provided in (13).

- (12) a. muróme ókúpút' óotákúlúwa, mwiinávólowa mucélánímwa
mu-róm-e *ó-kupútt-a o-tákulúwa*
 SBJ.2PL-start-SBJV 15-scrub-FV 17-9a.courtyard
mu-hi-ná-volow-a *mu-céla=ní=mwa*
 SBJ.2PL-NEG-CNTE-enter-FV 18-well=LOC=DEF18
 '(You should) Start scrubbing the courtyard before getting into the well.' [Elicitation]
- b. ðikáló w' oomárí?a
ddi-kál-e *o-a* *o-márih-a*
 SBJ.1SG-be-SBJV AGR1-CONN 15-finish-FV
 'May I be the last one.' [Mbílri.Story]
- c. ñóów' óóťólóni ñóówé náfulé
ni-dhów-e *o-ttólo=ni* *ni-dhów-e* *ni-á-ful-e*
 SBJ.1PL-go-SBJV 17-well=LOC SBJ.1PL-go-SBJV SBJ.1PL-AMOT-wash-SBJV
 'Let's go to the well, let's go and wash (do the laundry).'
- (13) a. onáávégé wiíko, ookálá anyákôko
o-náa-veg-e *o-íko* *o-hi-kál-a* *a-nyákoko*
 SBJ.2SG-NEG-play-SBJV 17-river SBJ17-PFV.DJ-be-FV 2-crocodile
 'You should not play at the river, there are crocodiles.' [Elicitation]
- b. kaðikale w' oomárí?a
ka-ddi-kal-e *o-a* *o-márih-a*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-be-SBJV AGR1-CONN 15-finish-FV
 'May I not be the last one.' [Elicitation]
- c. kaniðow' ooťólóni
ka-ni-dhow-e *o-ttólo=ni*
 NEG-SBJ.1PL-go-SBJV 17-well=LOC
 'Let's not go to the well.' [Elicitation]

The pre-initial *ka-* is also used in non-declaratives to express incapacity, as in (14).

- (14) ódó ñládá kagaye!
 óddo ni-láda **ka**-gay-e
 1.DEM.REF 5-hand NEG.SBJ1-balance-SBJV
 ‘That Mr. Hand cannot balance itself!’ [Body.Story]

The morphological formulae of both affirmative and negative non-declarative mood categories are summarized in Table 3.

Table 3: Non-declarative mood categories

label	affirmative	negative
imperative	<i>ka</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	x
subjunctive	SBJ-VB- <i>e</i>	ka -SBJ-VB- <i>e</i> SBJ- náa -VB- <i>e</i>

As explained above, negating the imperative involves subjunctive morphology. The lack of inherent negative construction makes imperative paradigmatically asymmetrical. In contrast, both negative subjunctives are symmetric to their affirmative equivalent on the segmental level: either the pre-initial negator *ka*- or the post-initial *náa*- is added. However, tone patterns differ on each of these constructions. Affirmative subjunctives have an underlying H on the first mora of the stem in case of bimoraic stems (as in (12)), or on the second mora with trimoraic stems. *ka*- negative subjunctives are all low, whereas *náa*- negative subjunctives are subjected to tone plateauing (if no further prosodic constraints apply, see Guérois 2019: 739) starting from the negator (e.g. *munáávégé* in (13a)).

In terms of distribution, *ka*- is restricted to main clauses only, whereas *náa*- may be used in both main clauses, as shown in this section, and complement clauses (see §2.4.1), but with a very limited distribution, as it is restricted to the subjunctive mood.

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Cuwabo has two distinct non-verbal negators. The first, *kahíye* (with *kahíyo* as a free variant), is invariable and translated in English as ‘(there/it) is not’. Apart from the initial negative marker *ka*-, the rest of the underlying morphological structure is difficult to identify synchronically. The segment *hi*- might represent the perfect(ive) marker, commonly used in Cuwabo to express a result state. The origin of the final segment *yo* ~ *ye* is unknown. Another puzzle is that no verb

root is discernible. Since they are not morphologically transparent, these forms are glossed ‘NVB.NEG’. As several examples in this section show, *kahíye-kahíyo* may also be produced on the surface as *kaáye* and *kaáyo*, respectively, whereby *hí-* totally assimilates with the preceding low vowel.

The second non-verbal negator derives from *kahíye-kahíyo*, but inflects for subject marking and also contains one of the three locative clitics. The resulting shape is as follows: *ka-SBJ-hí=LOC*. This negator is limited to the context of locative-existential predication, hence it is glossed ‘NEGEX’.

An alternative strategy to these existential negators is the copula verb *li* ‘be’ used in its negative form.⁹ As shown throughout this section, its use is broad and it often comes as a free alternative to one of the two existential negators. The copula verb *li* ‘be’, reconstructed to Proto-Bantu as *di, is highly defective: it does not take the default final vowel and only occurs in (zero-marked) present and *a-* past.

Affirmative non-verbal predication is in turn expressed in three different ways. The first, restricted to class 1/2 third-person subjects, involves the deletion of the augment tone on the predicate. For instance, in *Maríyá muyaná* ‘Marie is a woman’, the citation form *múyaná* (HØH) surfaces as *muyaná* (ØØH). High-Tone Deletion triggers a predicative interpretation. The second strategy consists in using class-inflected copulas, such as class 1 *ddi*, class 2 *ba*, class 3 *bu*, etc., grammaticalized from demonstrative pronouns (Guérois 2019: 762; Gibson et al. 2019).¹⁰ Finally, the copula verb *li* ‘be’ appears as the third recurrent strategy. Multiple examples for each strategy are provided along the section. The reader is also referred to Guérois (2025) for a detailed study of non-verbal predication in Cuwabo.

This section explores negation in non-verbal predicates along their different subtypes, i.e. equational (§2.3.1), ascriptive (§2.3.2), locative-existential (§2.3.3) and possessive (§2.3.4).

2.3.1 Equational predication

Equational predicates establish a relation of identity between two referential NPs. This is commonly expressed in Cuwabo by means of the copula verb *li* ‘be’, as seen in (15). In (15), speaker A speaks in the first person singular and asserts she is Maria. Speaker B denies it. Two negation strategies are observed:

⁹In many Bantu languages, *li* has a suppletive negative form *si* ‘not to be’. This is not the case in Cuwabo.

¹⁰More specifically, the copula is formally identical to the proximate demonstrative stems (with the exception of the class 1 copula form *ddi*).

the negated copula verb *kulí* (where the negative marker *ka-* is merged with the second singular subject prefix *o-*) is used in a context of contrastive negation, while the non-verbal negator *kahíye~kahíyo* (henceforth *kahíye* for simplicity) is used in a non-focus context. It remains to be checked whether the selection of negation strategy is necessarily determined by information structure. Notably, *kahíye* is located between the subject and the predicative complement, leading to constructions that can literally be interpreted as ‘X, it is not Y’.

- (15) A: *míyó ðili Mariya*
míyo ddi-li Mariya
 PRO1SG SBJ.1SG-be Maria
 ‘I am Maria.’
 B: *wéyó kulí Máriya, kúzivale, Mariyá káyí’ wéyo*¹¹
wéyo ku-lí M. kú-zival-e M. kahíye wéyo
 PRO2SG NEG.SBJ.2SG-be M. NEG.SBJ.2SG-lie-SBJV M. NVB.NEG PRO2SG
 ‘You are not Maria, do not lie, Maria (it) is not you.’ [Maria.Story]

Affirmative equational predication is also expressed by means of class-inflected copulas, such as class 1 *ddi* in (16), or by the loss of the augment tone through High-Tone Deletion, as in (17) with *rapaási* ‘is a boy’ (versus *rápaási* in citation form). In this example, which constitutes a typical way to open stories in Cuwabo, the predicate *rapaási* expresses a contrastive focus as opposed to the specific but indefinite referent *óddo* ‘that one’ introduced (again) by the existential negator *kaáye* (where *kaáye* is a reduced form of *kahíye*).

- (16) *ońlógá ði míyo Férnáânda*
o-ní-log-á ddi míyo Férnaánda
 AGR1-IPFV-speak-FV.REL COP1 PRO1SG Fernanda
 ‘The one speaking is me Fernanda.’ [Ddingí.Story]
 (17) *weéǵlé kááy’ ðo, weéǵlé rapaási...*
o-ér-ilé kaáye óddo o-ér-ilé
 AGR1-do/say-PFV.REL NVB.NEG 1.DEM.REF AGR1-do/say-PFV.REL
rapaási
 HTD.1a.boy
 ‘There once was a boy...’ (lit. ‘the one who did/said (it) is not that one, the one who did/said is a boy’) [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

¹¹The segment *hi* in *kahíye* in example (15) is most frequently heard with the palatal approximant/glide (here noted as /y/) rather than with the glottal stop /ʔ/.

2.3.2 Ascriptive predication

Predicates that ascribe a property to an individual or an entity are known as ‘ascriptive’ (Hengeveld 1990, 1992). This property can be a character trait, a physical or intrinsic property of an individual or an entity.¹² Adjective as a grammatical category is almost non-existent in Cuwabo, as typical for many Bantu languages. Only a handful of adjectival items are attested in the language. Instead, the semantic content of ascriptive predication is conveyed by an infinitive verb or by a noun in adnominal possessor function introduced by the genitive linker *a* (aka “connective” in Bantu studies, cf. Van de Velde 2013), itself preceded by a class-inflected copula.¹³ This is illustrated in the examples (18) to (20).

- (18) míyó ɖa mwaaaná
 míyo **ddi-a** **mu-aná**
 PRO1SG COP1-CONN HTD.1-child
 ‘I am a child.’ [Elicitation]
- (19) músóro wa mwááná ódu b’ oolápa
 mú-solro o-a mú-aná óddu **bu-a** **o-láp-a**
 3-head AGR3-CONN 1-child 1.DEM.PROX COP3-CONN 15-be.big-FV
 ‘The head of this child is big.’ [Elicitation]
- (20) bírííkw’ iísí sa wóóru
 bíriínku ési **si-a** **ó-oru**
 10a.earring 10.DEM.PROX COP10-CONN 11-gold
 ‘These earrings are (made) of gold.’ [Elicitation]

As already said above, class 1/2 third-person subjects do not need a copula item between the subject and the predicative complement. However, the latter is necessarily subjected to High-Tone Deletion, as seen in both (21) with the adjective *munddimúwa*, and (22) with the noun *namapuja*.

¹²Result states, which ensue from a prior event giving rise to them, as well as certain physical properties (e.g. *ókóddéla* ‘be beautiful’) are in turn expressed by perfect(ive)-inflected verbs (see Guérois 2015: 363–365).

¹³Notably, in this construction, the connective lacks the expected agreement marker co-referring to the head noun, as in e.g. (19) with *wa* referring to class 3 *músolro* ‘head’. Such absence, which might be viewed as an instance of haplology, points to a grammaticalization process of this construction. A comparative analysis would be needed to reach some historical explanation.

- (21) Mosambíki mundímúwa
Mosambíki mu-nddimúwa
 1a.Mozambique HTD.AGR1-big
 ‘Mozambique is big.’ [Elicitation]
- (22) namárogoló namapuja
namárogolo namapuja
 1a.hare HTD.1a.joker
 ‘The hare is a joker.’ [Ddingí.Story]

Similarly to equational predicates, ascriptive predicates are negated by using the non-verbal negator *kahíye* located between the subject and the predicative complement. This is shown in (24a), (25), (26) and (27). These constructions show how the use of non-verbal negators has extended into predicative copular constructions. The presence of the copula-connective *dda* in (23a), leading to an existential-copular sequence, is not clear. Such a sequence, however, seems to be restricted to speech act participants. Again, the negated copula verb *li* can be used as an alternative. This is shown in (23b), (26b) and (27b). Interestingly, my main consultant interprets (26a) and (26b) differently. More specifically, (26b) may be conceived as the denial of a previous statement asserting the country’s greatness. It could then easily be completed by ‘it is weak’. In contrast, the same consultant does not denote any difference in meaning in the pairs of sentences provided in (23) and (27), and if the use of the copula verb *li* in both (23b) and (27b) may originally be associated to contrastive negation, its synchronic use does not seem to be restricted to specific pragmatic contexts. Conversely, it may be that negative-inflected *li* is specializing as a contrastive negator due to the pervasiveness of the non-verbal negator *kahíye* in copular constructions. Another distinction between these paired sentences is the presence versus absence of the augment tone: HTD only occurs on the predicative complement that follows negative-inflected *li*. Finally, when the modifier is a verb, the latter may also receive a result state reading through perfect(ive) inflection (24b). Here too, there is no difference in meaning between the two constructions.

- (23) a. míyó kayíyé ɖa mwááná
míyo kahíye ddi-a mú-aná
 PRO1SG NVB.NEG COP1-CONN 1-child
 ‘I am not a child.’

- b. míyó kaḍilí mwaaná
míyo ka-ddi-lí mu-aná
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-be HTD.1-child
 ‘I am not a child.’ [Elicitation]
- (24) a. músóro wa mwáaná ódu kayiy’ oolápa
mú-solro o-a mú-aná óddu kaḥiye o-láp-a
 3-head AGR3-CONN 1-child 1.DEM.PROX NVB.NEG 15-be.big-FV
 ‘The head of this child (it) is not big.’ [Elicitation]
- b. músóro wa mwáaná ódu kulápile
mú-solro o-a mú-aná óddu ku-láp-ile
 3-head AGR3-CONN 1-child 1.DEM.PROX NEG.SBJ3-be.big-PRF
 ‘The head of this child is not big.’ [Elicitation]
- (25) bíríḡkw’ iísí ḍiḍḡgúlélle wóó:, kaa’ ḍa wóóru?
bíriṅku ési dhi-ddi-gúl-el-ile wéyo
 10a.earring 10.DEM.PROX AGR10-OBJ1SG-buy-APPL-PFV.REL PRO2SG
kaaye dhi-a ó-oru
 NVB.NEG AGR10-CONN 11-gold
 ‘These earrings you bought me, aren’t they made of gold?’ [Mbílri.Story]
- (26) a. Pórtugáli kayiyé múnḍímúwa
Pórtugáli kaḥiye mú-nddimúwa
 1a.Portugal NVB.NEG AGR1-big
 ‘Portugal (it) is not big.’
- b. Pórtugáli kalí múnḍímúwa
Pórtugáli ka-lí mu-nddimúwa
 1a.Portugal NEG.SBJ1-be HTD.AGR1-big
 ‘Portugal is not big.’ (Interpreted as ‘Portugal is no longer respected/ powerful.’) [Elicitation]
- (27) a. namárogoló kayiye namápùja
namárogolo kaḥiye namápuja
 1a.hare NVB.NEG 1a.joker
 ‘The hare (it) is not a joker.’ [Elicitation]
- b. namárogoló kalí namapuja
namárogolo ka-lí namapuja
 1a.hare NEG.SBJ1-be HTD.1a.joker
 ‘The hare is not a joker.’ [Elicitation]

2.3.3 Locative-existential predication

The negative locative-existential *ka*-SBJ-*hí*=LOC is formally very similar to *kahíye*: both constructions have the negative marker *ka*- and the (seemingly) perfect(ive) prefix *hi*-. However, the former is more transparent than the latter in that it clearly inflects for subject marking and also contains one of the three locative clitics (class 16 = *vo*, class 17 = *wo*, class 18 = *mo*). The full paradigms are provided in Table 4.

Table 4: Inflected negative locative-existentials

Person/class	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>hí</i> =LOC16 'is not here'	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>hí</i> =LOC17 'is not there'	<i>ka</i> -SBJ- <i>hí</i> =LOC18 'is not inside'
1SG	<i>kaddihívo</i>	<i>kaddihíwo</i>	<i>kaddihímo</i>
2SG	<i>kawihívo</i>	<i>kawihíwo</i>	<i>kawihímo</i>
1PL	<i>kanihívo</i>	<i>kanihíwo</i>	<i>kanihímo</i>
2PL	<i>kamwiívo</i>	<i>kamwihíwo</i>	<i>kamwihímo</i>
1	<i>kaávo</i>	<i>kaáwo</i>	<i>kaámo</i>
2	<i>kaávo</i>	<i>kaáwo</i>	<i>kaámo</i>
3	<i>kawihívo</i>	<i>kawihíwo</i>	<i>kawihímo</i>
4	<i>kadhihívo</i>	<i>kadhihíwo</i>	<i>kadhihímo</i>
5	<i>kanihívo</i>	<i>kanihíwo</i>	<i>kanihímo</i>
6	<i>kaávo</i>	<i>kaáwo</i>	<i>kaámo</i>
9	<i>kayihívo</i>	<i>kayihíwo</i>	<i>kayihímo</i>
10	<i>kadhihívo</i>	<i>kadhihíwo</i>	<i>kadhihímo</i>
11, 14	<i>kawihívo</i>	<i>kawihíwo</i>	<i>kawihímo</i>
16	<i>kavihívo</i>		
17		<i>kawihíwo</i>	
18			<i>kamwihímo</i>

This locative-existential negator is used for both locative predication 'is not here' and existential predication 'there is no'. In both interpretations, the spatial reference is contained in the locative enclitic. In pragmatically-neutral contexts, the subject-referent to which the location is assigned is preverbal, as in (28). However, in the case of a sentence-focus construction, i.e. when both the predicate and the subject are new information, VS order applies, as in (29). In suchthetic sentences, the postverbal element is subjected to HTD, be it the subject NP (29a) or—more unexpectedly—the (headless) subject relative (29b).

- (28) a. *naámbédʒ* oónójúwáávi, ma namárógolo kaawó!
naámbedde ó-ni-o-j-uw-á=vi mas namárogolo
 1a.maize SBJ1-IPFV.DJ-15-eat-PASS-FV=RESTR but 1a.hare
kaá=wo
 NEGEX.SBJ1=LOC17
 ‘Maize keeps being eaten, but the hare is not here!’ [Ddingí.Story]
- b. *mwááǎíye kaávo, ánááye kaávo, ǎóóbó ǎaye kaǎiyívo*
mú-adví=ye kaá=vo á-aná=ye
 1-wife=POSS3SG NEGEX.SBJ1=LOC16 2-child=POSS3SG
kaá=vo dhi-óbo dhi-aye kadhihi=vo
 NEGEX.SBJ2=LOC16 10-furniture AGR10-POSS3SG NEGEX.SBJ10=LOC16
 ‘His wife is not here, his children are not here, his furniture is not here.’ [Maria.Story]
- (29) a. [elábw’ ééjǐ y’ ooténe] kaávó mbava w’ oopíta míyo.
kaá=vo mu-bava o-a o-pítt-a míyo
 NEGEX.SBJ1=LOC16 HTD.1-thief AGR1-CONN 15-surpass-FV PRO1SG
 ‘[In this whole place], there is no thief better than me.’ [Maria]
- b. *kaávó oǎílewó:*
kaá=vo o-dh-ile=wo
 NEGEX.SBJ1=LOC17 AGR1-come-PFV.REL.HTD=LOC17
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘There is not who came there.’ / ‘He is not here the one who came here.’) [Elicitation]

Again, the copula verb *li* ‘be’ may also serve to express locative-existential predication. In this case, it always appears inthetic VS constructions, but unlike inflected negative locative-existentials as in (29), the postverbal subject does not control verb agreement. Instead, class 16 subject prefix *va-* appears as default agreement. Three examples are provided in (30). Again, the postverbal subject is subjected to HTD.

- (30) a. *nně:, ápa kávalǐ mwá?a*
nně ápa ká-va-lǐ mwaha
 no 16.DEM.PROX NEG-SBJ16-be HTD.3.reason
 ‘No, here there is no problem.’ [Maria]

- b. kavalí vogó: vaṇrórómeleya asúpâyi
ka-va-lí vogo va-ni-róromel-ey-a
 NEG-SBJ16-be HTD.16.somewhere AGR16-IPFV-believe-N-FV
a-súpâyi
 2-policeman
 ‘Nowhere are the policemen trustworthy.’ [Elicitation]
- c. ápató kaval’ ísavi
ápa=to ka-va-lí e-savi
 16.DEM.PROX=then NEG-SBJ16-be HTD.9-relish
 ‘Here then, there is no relish.’ [Elicitation]

Affirmative equivalents to locative-existential predication are based on the copula verb *li* ‘be’, for both locative (31a) and existential predication (31b). Another common strategy is to use the semi-copula verb *kála* ‘be, live’, especially as part ofthetic sentences (32).

- (31) a. mwámúna Mariya, ol’ úumabásâni
mwámúna Mariya o-lí o-ma-bása=ni
 1.husband Maria SBJ1-be 17-6-work=LOC
 ‘Maria’s husband is at work.’ [Maria.Story]
- b. [weeḗlégé keeḗlégé ḗaweene,] waáli Máda: Érugúlú: na Manyálo.
o-á-li má-da é-rugulu na ma-nyálo
 SBJ1-PST-be 6-hand 9-belly and 6-foot
 ‘[Once upon a time,] there were Mr. Hands, Mr. Belly and Mr. Feet.’
 [Body.Story]
- (32) oṭólón’ uúkúl’ ookálá fúlóór’ iiníibá
o-ttólo=ni ókule o-hi-kála fúloóri e-ní-ib-á
 17-well=LOC 17.DEM.DIST SBJ17-PFV.DJ-be 9a.flower AGR9-IPFV-sing-FV.REL
 ‘There at the well there is a flower which sings.’ [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

2.3.4 Possessive predication

Two ‘have’ verb stems exist in Cuwabo: *káana* and *na*. Etymologically, the first, *káana*, can be analysed as the verb stem *kála* ‘be, live’ + the comitative preposition *na* ‘with’. This combination was reanalyzed as a full-fledged verb, lending itself to normal TAM marking around the root *kaan*. The second, *na* ‘have’, also involves the reanalysis of the comitative preposition *na* but in association with a subject index and a deleted copula. Albeit more restricted than *káana* in terms

of inflectional marking, *na* may still host the pre-final habitual suffix *-ag*, which supports its reanalysis as an irregular verb base.

- (33) a. *míyô maásikiní dikaánê dálá ðaaví, ójà múkucé:ʔ ɲnéé:!*
míyo maásikiní ddi-kaán-e dála dhaavi ó-j-a
 PRO1SG even.if SBJ1-have-SBJV 9a.hunger how 15-eat-FV
mú-kucé ɲne
 3-leftover no
 ‘I am very hungry, but to eat the leftovers? No way!’ [Elicitation]
- b. *kaázíwá dí ɲbáaláwa óllé waánága péle*
ka-á-ziw-á ddi mú-baali-áwa ólle
 NEG.SBJ2-PST.IPFV-know-FV COP1 1-sister-POSS3PL 1.DEM.DIST
o-á-naga péle
 AGR1-PST.IPFV-have.HAB.REL 1a.scabies
 ‘They did not know she was their sister, the one who had scabies.’
 [Maria.Story]

‘Not have’ simply requires the addition of a verbal negator, either *ka-* or *hi-* depending on the type of clause. The verb *na* seems to be used by default (34b). The only negative form of *káana* available in my database is provided in (34a).

- (34) a. *muʔinákáan’ éébaribará munááváʔe koóbíɕiða*
mu-hi-ná-káaná e-baribari mu-náa-vah-e
 SBJ.2PL-NEG-CNTE-have HTD.9-truth SBJ.2PL-NEG-give-SBJV
koóbilri=dha
 10a.money=10.DEF
 ‘As long as you are not sure, do not give the money.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *íyééne kaáná maare mééna oókósā*
íyééne ka-á-na ma-are má-ina a-a
 PRO3SG NEG.SBJ1-PST.IPFV-have HTD.6-idea 6-other AGR6-CONN
ó-kos-á
 15-do-FV
 ‘She had nothing else to do.’ [Maria.Story]

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

In this section, negation is discussed in three types of non-main clauses: clausal complementation (§2.4.1), temporal and condition adverbial clauses (§2.4.2), and relative clauses (§2.4.3)

2.4.1 Clausal complementation

Complement clauses are of three types in Cuwabo: they can be subjunctive, indicative or infinitive. Subjunctive and indicative complements are typically introduced by the complementizer *wíilá* ‘that’ (often shortened to *wii* or *wi* in oral speech), which constitutes a grammaticalized form derived from the verb *wíilá* ‘say, do’. Its main function is to introduce a subordinate clause.

Subjunctive complements are typically used as purpose clauses. When negated, one of the two post-initial negators is required, either *hi-* (35) or *náa-* (36). Recall that *náa-* is restricted to the subjunctive mood and is also used in non-declaratives (see §2.2). The absence of the complementizer in (36b) shows that it is not mandatory.

- (35) oodíkúkusela owáninyu wíi dī?ikwenté:?!
o-hi-ddi-kukus-el-a owáninyu wíi
 SBJ.2SG-PFV-OBJ.1SG-take-APPL-FV 17.at.home.POSS2PL COMP
ddi-hi-kwent-e
 SBJ.1SG-NEG-copulate-SBJV
 ‘You took me to your house to not have sex?!’ [Elicitation]
- (36) a. amosambikánó awúúbúwéla wáátamagí?a ázúgu wíilá anáátólócémó
 ðoorééla ðé?u
a-mosambikano a-hi-ubuwél-a ó-a-ttamag-ih-a
 2-Mozambican SBJ2-PFV.DJ-think-FV 15-SBJ2-run-CAUS-FV
á-zugu wíilá a-náa-toloc-e=mo dhi-oréela
 2-white.person COMP SBJ2-NEG-destroy-SBJV=LOC18 10-belonging
dhi-éhu
 AGR10-POSS1PL
 ‘The Mozambicans expelled the whites so that they do not destroy our belongings.’ [Image 01_Gui]
- b. Rósa ónótápwapwáteða náma, enáálúle
Rósa ó-ni-o-ttápwapwattedh-a náma e-náa-lul-e
 Rosa SBJ1-IPFV.DJ-15-cook-FV 9a.meat SBJ9-NEG-spoil-SBJV
 ‘Rosa is cooking the meat in salty water, so that it does not spoil.’
 (Festi & Valler 1994: 317, my glosses)

The subjunctive is also used as the complement of the volitional verb *ófuná* ‘to want’ in order to convey wishes. While this construction occurs frequently in my corpus with affirmative verb forms, the negative examples in (37) were elicited.

- (37) a. ábále míyó dǵímfúná dǵíyaʔukule
ábale míyo ddi-ní-fun-á
 2.DEM.DIST PRO1SG SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV
ddi-hi-a-ttukul-e
 SBJ.1SG-NEG-OBJ2-take-SBJV
 ‘Those ones, I don’t want to take them.’ [Elicitation]
- b. ǵaáfúna dǵimwe múróbo óbu
ddi-á-fun-a ddi-hi-mw-e mú-robo
 SBJ.1SG-PST.IPFV.CJ-want-FV SBJ.1SG-NEG-drink-SBJV 3-medicine
óbu
 3.DEM.PROX
 ‘I didn’t want to take this medicine (but I did).’ [Elicitation]

In indicative complements, the verb form of the complement clause exhibits the same TA categories as verbs in declarative main or independent clauses. As a result, they use the same negation strategy as that found in standard negation, i.e. through the pre-initial standard negator *ka-*. This is illustrated in (38a) with present, and in (38b) with hypothetical.

- (38) a. pa ápa vañlógííʔu wíílá mǵrála ǵa anámwáʔuno kaǵiñgónééla
pa ápa va-ní-log-á=ehu wíílá mí-rala
 COP16 16.DEM.PROX SBJ16-IPFV-say-FV.REL=PRO1PL COMP 4-home
dhi-a a-námwahuno ka-dhi-ní-goneél-a
 AGR4-CONN 2-young.generation NEG-SBJ4-IPFV-last-FV
 ‘This is how we say that young couples do not last long.’
 [Wedding.Story]
- b. kuulogúwága ǵaábaála dǵíziw’ wi kádǵigaataábúwile
ka-o-log-úw-ag-a ddi-a-hí-baál-a
 CNTF-15-tell-PASS-HAB-FV SBJ.1SG-PST-PFV.DJ-give.birth-FV
ddi-hí-ziw-a wi ka-ddi-gaa-taábuw-ile
 SBJ.1SG-PFV.DJ-know-FV COMP NEG-SBJ.1SG-HYP-suffer-PFV
 ‘If I had children, I know that I would not suffer (i.e. they would sustain me).’ [Elicitation]

Finally, infinitive complements are negated by means of the post-initial negator *hi-*, which follows the class 15 infinitive prefix *o-*, as shown in (39).

- (39) oówóḏá oʔímútela mútáamb' úúlle
o-hí-wodh-á o-hí-mu-tel-a mú-ttaambi ólle
 SBJ1-PFV.DJ-succeed-FV 15-NEG-OBJ1-marry-FV 1-liar 1.DEM.DIST
 'She succeeded in not marrying that liar.' [Elicitation]

2.4.2 Temporal and conditional adverbial clauses

Five TA categories relate to temporality and/or conditionality: situative, counter-expectational, sequential, narrative and counterfactual. These categories are summarized in Table 5 in both their affirmative and negative shapes. As can be seen, all are invariably negated by the post-initial marker *hi-*. The situative further employs the final vowel *-i*, which replaces *-a*. Counter-expectational expressing *before* sentences as in (42) has no affirmative counterpart.¹⁴ The last three TA categories, i.e. sequential, narrative and counterfactual, display constructional and paradigmatic symmetry with their affirmative equivalents. Each category is discussed in more detail after the table.

Table 5: Temporal/conditional TA categories

Label	Affirmative	Negative	English
situative	SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>a</i> SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- <i>a</i> - hi -VB- i SBJ- <i>ga(a)</i> - hi -VB- i	'if/when we V'
'before' counter- expectational	-	SBJ- hi - <i>na</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	'before we V'
sequential	<i>ba</i> -SBJ-VB- <i>a</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>ba</i> -SBJ- hi -VB- <i>a</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ- hi -VB- <i>ile</i> <i>ba</i> -SBJ- <i>ga(a)</i> - hi -VB- <i>a</i>	'and we V/Ved' 'when/while we are Ved' 'while Ving'
narrative	<i>o</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>o</i> - hi -VB- <i>a</i>	'and we Ved'
counterfactual	<i>ka-o</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	<i>ka-o</i> - hi -VB- <i>a</i>	'if we (had) Ved'

The situative is used to express a logical or temporal precondition, best translated in English by if/when-clauses. Two situative markers exist in the language:

¹⁴ *Before* counter-expectational differs from the counter-expectational expressing 'not yet' declaratives (discussed in §2.1) which is constructionally symmetric (see Table 2).

the inherited prefix *a-* (40) and the borrowed prefix *gaa-* (41) (Guérois 2017). The negative counterpart to the situative consists of the negative post-initial prefix *hi-* and the final vowel *-i*, which substitutes the default final vowel *-a*.

- (40) *d̥aaʔirintigí kabálayá:, bwendéná kaṇnáálíbe*
ddi-a-hí-rint-ig-i *kabála=ya bwenddé=na*
 SBJ.1SG-SIT-NEG-weave-HAB-NEG 9a.rope=DEF 5a.mat=DEF5
ka-ni-náa-lib-e
 NEG-SBJ5-FUT-be.strong-FV
 ‘If I do not weave this rope, this mat will not be strong.’ [Elicitation]
- (41) *mugaʔíðów’ oomusiká:, kamunááje*
mu-gaa-hí-dhow-i *o-mu-siká ka-mu-náa-j-e*
 SBJ.2PL-SIT-NEG-go-NEG 17-HTD.3-market NEG-SBJ.2PL-FUT-eat-FV
 ‘If you do not go to the market, you will not eat.’ [Elicitation]

In these forms, it is difficult to decide whether *-i* should be analyzed as a final negative marker or rather as a tense marker. Since this high final vowel only appears in the context of negative situatives and not affirmative situatives, I choose here to analyze it as a negative marker. This means that the situative is the only TAM category in Cuwabo whose negation is marked twice.

The counter-expectational prefix *ná-* (already discussed in ‘not yet’ declaratives of the shape *ka-sbj-ná-VB-a*, see §2.1), when combined with the negator *hi-* serves to express ‘before Ving’ or ‘as long as + NEG’ temporal clauses. This is very much in line with functions of ‘not yet’ expressions cross-linguistically (van Baar 1997; van der Auwera 1998; Plungian 1999). Two examples can be found in (12a) and (34a) above, and a third one is provided in (42).

- (42) *kapíyáni mímbw’ íísó ðiinányâla*
ka-píy-a=ni mí-imbu éso dhi-hi-ná-nyal-a
 IMP-cook-FV=PL.ADDR 4-pod 4.DEM.REF SBJ4-NEG-CNTE-wither-FV
 ‘Cook these peas before they fade away (as long as they are not withered).’ [Elicitation]

The sequential is recurrently heard in narratives to mark subsequent actions. When the sequential marker *ba-* is used on its own, it is best translated as ‘and he Ved’, as in (43). When combined with the perfect(ive) suffix *-ile*, it refers to a simultaneous state in the past (44). Simultaneity is also conveyed with sequential situatives, but with a progressive reading translated as ‘while Ving’ (45).¹⁵

¹⁵Sequential is part of the TA categories where class 1 subject prefix *o-* surfaces as *a-*. The resulting sequence *ba-a-* may then merge and surface as short *ba-*, but this is not systematic.

- (43) baakumbiṛa baaʔiḏawo
ba-a-kumbilr-a ba-a-hi-dh-a=wo
 SEQ-SBJ1-ask-FV SEQ-SBJ1-NEG-come-FV=LOC17
 ‘And he asked not to come here.’ (lit. ‘And he asked and he did not come here.’) [Conversation.05]
- (44) wáámpambíy’ óod̥ikoséla áje, ókú bad̥iimutéʔlle
ó-a-ni-pamb-ih-a o-ddi-kos-él-a
 SBJ.2SG-PST-IPFV.DJ-worry-CAUS-FV HTD.15-OBJ.1SG-do-APPL-FV
áje óku ba-ddi-hi-mu-tél-ile
 9a.jealousy 1.DEM.PROX SEQ-SBJ.1SG-NEG-OBJ1-marry-PFV
 ‘You were preoccupied in making me jealous (lit. ‘you were preoccupied it is making me jealous’), when/while I was not engaged with you.’
 [Elicitation]
- (45) bagávirávó:, багаʔílôga
ba-gá-vir-á=vo ba-ga-hí-log-a
 SEQ.SBJ1-SIT-pass-FV=LOC16 SEQ.SBJ1-SIT-NEG-talk-FV
 ‘As he was going, he was not talking.’ [Elicited from Mbílri.Story]

Like the sequential, the narrative is frequently used in a sequence of events, once the time frame was overtly marked on the first verb form. In this sense the narrative is dependent on the temporal context previously established. Morphologically, the narrative is a non-finite verb form, segmentally identical to the infinitive, but supra-segmentally different: in narrative forms, the first underlying High tone (historically the augment tone), does not surface. Thus, *ohimugulihédha* in (46), interpreted as ‘I did not sell (it) to him’ differs in tones from the negative infinitive *ohímúguli-hédha* ‘to not sell (something) to someone’. While affirmative narrative is frequently heard, negative narrative seems much rarer.¹⁶

- (46) muḏaákúlelíyé kámbo, míyó oʔimuguliyéḏa
mu-ddi-ákul-el-é=iye kámbo míyo
 AGR18-OBJ.1SG-answer-APPL-PFV.REL=PRO3SG 9a.insult PRO1SG
o-hi-mu-gul-ih-édh-a
 NARR-NEG-OBJ1-buy-CAUS-APPL-FV
 ‘When he replied (to me) by an insult, I did not sell (it) to him.’
 [Elicitation]

¹⁶Cross-linguistically, it is common for non-finite forms to occur in a variety of dependent clauses performing different functions (Cristofaro 2003).

Finally, the counterfactual is found in speculative conditional sentences known to be false or contrary to the facts. It is formally composed of the counterfactual prefix *ka-* followed by the infinitive verb. The negator *hi-* is placed between the infinitive prefix and the verbal stem, as shown in (47).

- (47) *kooʔígúl’ ooba kavagaajúwe*
ka-o-hí-gúl-a o-ba ka-va-gaa-j-úw-(il)e
 CNTF-15-NEG-buy-FV HTD.11-fish NEG-SBJ16-HYP-eat-PASS-PFV
 ‘If I had not bought fish, there would be no meal at home.’ [Elicitation]

2.4.3 Relative clauses

Cuwabo exhibits a relativization strategy, also attested in certain North-Western Bantu languages (Nsuka-Nkutsi 1982), where relativized verb forms look like participial modifiers and retain all verbal properties except subject agreement. Thus, the initial verbal slot dedicated to subject marking in independent clauses is occupied by a pronominal prefix in relative clauses, which expresses agreement with the head noun, just like any modifier in the language (see Guérois & Creissels 2020). This is illustrated in the non-subject relative in (48), where the relativized verb *dhiṁfúná* agrees with class 10 noun *guwo* ‘clothes’.

- (48) *oðówé wágulé guwóðáwo ðiṁfúná wéyo*
o-dhów-e o-á-gul-é guwó=dhi-awo
 SBJ.2SG-go-SBJV SBJ.2SG-AMOT-buy-SBJV 10a.cloth=AGR10-POSS2SG
dhi-ní-fun-á wéyo
 AGR10-IPFV-want-FV.REL PRO2SG
 ‘Go and buy (your) clothes that you want.’ [Women.Duty]

Not all TAM categories can be relativized in Cuwabo. In fact, only the seven TAMs which display the CJ/DJ alternation (discussed in §2.1 above) have relative equivalents. From a morphological perspective, affirmative relative verbs are on the surface identical to conjoint forms, but differ in their distribution: relative verbs may appear sentence-finally, whereas conjoint verbs cannot. Furthermore, in the case of transitive constructions, conjoint forms trigger HTD on the following (nominal) constituent as already seen in (3) above, whereas the object following a relative verb appears in its citation form, e.g. *balilo* ‘wood poles’ in (49).

- (49) *ńpule mu-mu-ttátti mu-náa-rem-e=iwe*
 18.DEM.DIST 18-3-mangrove AGR18-FUT-cut-FV.REL=PRO2SG
balílo
 10a.wood.pole
 ‘There in the mangrove, where you are going to cut wood poles.’
 [House.Building]

Another distinction between conjoint verb forms and affirmative relatives is the way they encode negative polarity. Conjoint verb forms function as independent TA forms and consequently resort to the pre-initial negative marker *ka-* (see Table 2). Their relative counterparts are dependent and encode negation via the negator *hi-*. Both affirmative and negative relative forms are provided in Table 6.

Table 6: TA categories available for relative clauses

Label	Affirmative	Negative
REL present	SBJ- <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- <i>hi</i> - <i>ni</i> -VB- <i>a</i>
REL perfective	SBJ-VB- <i>ile</i>	SBJ- <i>hi</i> -VB- <i>ile</i>
REL past perfective	SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>ile</i>	SBJ- <i>a</i> - <i>hi</i> -VB- <i>ile</i>
REL past imperfective	SBJ- <i>a</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- <i>a</i> - <i>hi</i> -VB- <i>a</i>
REL future	SBJ- <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i>	SBJ- <i>hi</i> - <i>náa</i> -VB- <i>e</i>
REL future imperfective	SBJ- <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i>	SBJ- <i>hi</i> - <i>gá</i> -VB- <i>a</i>
REL hypothetical	SBJ- <i>gaa</i> -VB- <i>ile</i>	SBJ- <i>gaa</i> - <i>hi</i> -VB- <i>ile</i>

Symmetry operates perfectly on both constructional and paradigmatic levels: each affirmative form has a corresponding negative form, and there is a one-to-one formal match between the two paradigms. An example of a negative relative construction is provided in (50).

- (50) *kaáíya muṭu óđówá otélá ńlógó ni?ińziwééye*
ka-á-ttiy-a mu-ttu ó-dhow-á o-tél-a ni-lógo
 NEG.SBJ2-PST.IPFV-leave-FV HTD.1-person 15-go-FV 15-marry-FV 5-family
ni-hi-ní-ziw-á=eye
 AGR5-NEG-IPFV-know-FV.REL=PRO3SG
 ‘One would not leave someone marry some unknown family.’ (lit. ‘family that they do not know of’) [Marriage.Tradition]

An alternative strategy to express negation in relatives is to use the auxiliary verb stem *koódda* ‘refuse’ followed by the main verb in its infinitive form. This is shown in (51).

- (51) a. *káǰíva?eðé sábaá eekoódǰíl’ oosígí?íwá*
ká-ddi-vah-edh-é sábaá e-a-koódd-ile
 IMP-OBJ.1SG-give-APPL-FV 9a.SOAP AGR9-PST-refuse-PFV.REL
o-sígih-iw-á
 15-apply-PASS-FV
 ‘Give me the soap which has not been used.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *eǰkóódǰéliim’ úwáákulá:, [...]*
e-ní-koódd-él-a=imi o-ú-akul-á
 AGR9-IPFV-refuse-APPL-FV.REL=PRO1SG 15-OBJ2SG-reply-FV
 ‘If I do not reply to you, ...’ [Elicitation]

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to polar questions may be expressed in two different ways. The default strategy consists in repeating the inflected verb in its negative form, that is the ‘echo system’ in Sadock & Zwicky’s (1985) typology.¹⁷ This is seen in (52) where the negative verb form *kanuwíidhi* ‘we don’t know you’ is first used to answer the affirmative question *munóddíziwá?*¹⁸ ‘do you know me?’. Still in (52), *kanuwíidhi* is repeated again, but this time in echo with the negative question *kamuddíidhi?* ‘don’t you know me?’, so as to confirm the content of the question. Affirmative replies to polar questions require the same strategy, as shown in (53), where *ǰíwííwa* ‘I heard’ is used as an affirmative reply to *owííwá?* ‘did you hear?’.

- (52) *Maríy’ óowáávuúza: “míyó munóǰíziwá:?”*
Maríya o-hí-a-vuúz-a míyo
 Maria SBJ1-PFV.DJ-OBJ2-ask-FV PRO1SG
mu-ni-ó-ddi-ziw-a
 SBJ.2PL-IPFV.DJ-15-OBJ.1SG-know-FV
 ‘Maria asked them: “Do you know who I am?”’

¹⁷ See Enfield et al. (2019) and Moser (2019) for more recent typologies.

¹⁸ Two lexical verb stems for ‘know’ exist in Cuwabo: the regular root *ziw* and the defective verb *idhi*.

áwééne: “yíí! kanuwííðí”
 áwééne yíí **ka-ni-ú-idhi**
 PRO3PL INJ NEG-SBJ.1PL-OBJ.2SG-know
 They: “We don’t know you.”

“míyó kamuđííðí?”
 míyo **ka-mu-ddí-idhi**
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.2PL-OBJ.1SG-know
 [Maria] “You don’t know me?”

belá: “kánuwííðí”
 ba-il-á **ka-ni-ú-idhi**
 SEQ.SBJ1-do/say-FV NEG-SBJ.1PL-OBJ.2SG-know
 [They] “We don’t know you.”’ [Maria.Story]

- (53) “owííwá Mariyá?” Mariya: “điwííwa”
 o-hí-iw-á **Mariya Mariya ddi-hí-iw-a**
 SBJ.2SG-PFV.DJ-hear-FV Maria Maria SBJ.1SG-PFV.DJ-hear-FV
 “Did you hear, Maria?” Maria: “I did” (lit. ‘I heard’).’ [Maria.Story]

Less frequently, one-word replies to polar questions are used, matching Sadock & Zwicky’s (1985) ‘yes/no system’. Three negative particles are attested in Cuwabo, *nada*, *nne* and *não*, which all serve as ‘no’. The most common and spontaneously used in discourse is *nada*, borrowed from Portuguese *nada* ‘nothing’. It usually stands on its own, as the two naturalistic examples below show.

- (54) owáávuúz’ áábál’ aálivo.
 o-hí-a-vuúz-a **ábale a-á-li=vo**
 SBJ1-PFV.DJ-OBJ2-ask-FV 2.DEM.DIST SBJ2-PST-be=LOC16
 ‘He asked those who were there:
 “ósál’ uúb’ úpātúwa?” múkwááye: “náda!”
 ó-salu óbu o-hi-pátuw-a **mú-kwe=aye nada**
 11-thread 11.DEM.PROX SBJ11-PFV.DJ-break-FV 1-friend=POSS3SG no
 “Did this thread break?” His friend: “No!”’ [Mbílri.Story]

- (55) A: ókúléwa ókúle munofiyâwo?
 ókule=wa ókule **mu-ni-o-fíy-a=wo**
 17.DEM.DIST=DEF 17.DEM.DIST SBJ.2PL-IPFV-15-arrive-FV=LOC17
 ‘There, are you going to arrive there?’

- B: nada, nínga múkwáága kanáða kaḍinónile
nada nínga mú-kwe=aga ka-ná-dh-a
 no like 1-friend-POSS1SG NEG.SBJ1-CNTE-come-FV
 ka-ddi-nón-ile
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-know-PFV
 ‘No, as my friend has not arrived yet, I don’t know.’ [Conversation.3]

The negative particle *nne* is not attested in my naturalistic data. Examples in (56–57) were elicited. Comparing (56) and (57), we see that *nne* ‘no’ disagrees with the content rather than with the polarity of the question. In both (56) and (57), answering *nne* ‘no’ means that the woman is not cultivating. On the other hand, answering *ndde* ‘yes’ functions as a positive answer, i.e. the woman *is* cultivating. In this sense, *nne* and *ndde* have the same connotation as in English: they refer to the confirmation or negation of the content, and thus do not function as polarity reversing particles (Holmberg 2015).

- (56) A: múyaná ónólimá?
 mú-yaná ó-ni-ó-lim-a
 1-woman SBJ1-IPFV.DJ-INF-cultivate-FV
 ‘Is the woman cultivating?’
 B1: nnê:
nne
 no
 ‘No!’
 B2: ndê:
ndde
 yes
 ‘Yes!’
- (57) A: muyáná kánólimá?
 mú-yaná ká-ni-ó-lim-a
 1-woman NEG.SBJ1-IPFV.DJ-INF-cultivate-FV
 ‘Isn’t the woman cultivating?’
 B1: nnê:
nne
 no
 ‘No! (= she is not)’

- B2: ndê:
ndde
 yes
 ‘Yes! (= she is)’

The use of the negative particle *não* (< Portuguese *não* ‘no’) appears very marginal in Cuwabo. The only naturalistic occurrence in my corpus is an example of ironic negation, provided in (88) below (see §4.6.4).

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Cuwabo does not have indefinite pronouns such as ‘somebody’, ‘something’ or ‘somewhere’. The same holds for their negative counterparts ‘nobody’, ‘nothing’ and ‘nowhere’, respectively. Instead, generic nouns denoting ‘person’, ‘thing’ and ‘place’ are used together with clausal negation. The absence of negative indefinite pronouns and the construction whereby affirmative (pro)nouns occur with negated verbs seems to be a widespread feature in African languages (Cyffer 2009: 2). Thus, the noun *múttu* ‘person’ is used to express both ‘somebody’ and ‘nobody’. The interpretation ‘somebody’ is obtained with affirmative polarity (58a), while ‘nobody’ requires negation marking on the verb and the resulting construction is usually athetic sentence with VS word order (58b).

- (58) a. dɪnɪ́mfuná mútʃ uunʒíwá wíiyá vadʒííqɪ
ddi-ní-mu-fun-á ***mu-ttu*** *o-ní-ziw-á*
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-OBJ1-want-FV HTD.1-person SBJ1-IPFV-know-FV
ó-iy-á vaddíddi
 15-steal-FV much
 ‘I want someone who steals a lot.’ [Maria.Story]
- b. kaðílévó muʃu
ka-dh-íle=vo ***mu-ttu***
 NEG.SBJ1-come-PFV=LOC16 HTD.1-person
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘s/he did not come here someone’) [Elicitation]

Alternatively, the use of a cleft construction combining a negative existential and a free relative clause also serves to express ‘nobody’. In (59), *kaáwó odhileewó*, literally translated as ‘there is not who came’, is semantically equivalent to *kad-hilévó muttu* in (58b).

- (59) kaáwó oðileewó:

kaá=wo o-dh-ile=wo

NEGEX.SBJ1=LOC17 AGR1-COME-PFV.REL.HTD=LOC17

‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘there is not who came here’) [Elicitation]

While the use of a generic word (equivalent to strategy 1 in Kahrel’s (1996) typology) is a widespread alternative in substitution for indefinite pronouns cross-linguistically (Haspelmath 1997: 53), the negative existential construction as in (59) (Kahrel’s strategy 5) seems less reported worldwide and mostly attested in Oceanic languages (see Haspelmath 1997: 52–57 and Veselinova 2013b: 118–123) for discussion).

The concept ‘something’ is expressed through the noun *élôbo* (or its reduced variant *élo*) ‘thing’. Similarly to ‘somebody/nobody’, its negative interpretation ‘nothing’ is obtained by means of negative verb forms, as illustrated in (60).

- (60) a. míyó kaḍináálógé: ḍihiváʔiwe elobo

míyo ka-ddi-náa-log-e ddi-hi-váh-iw-e

PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-FUT-speak-FV SBJ.1SG-NEG-give-PASS-SBJV

e-lobo

HTD.9-thing

‘I will not speak if I am not given anything.’ [Elicitation]

- b. kaḍiṁfún’ éelo

ka-ddi-ní-fun-á e-lo

NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-see-FV HTD.9-thing

‘I do not want anything.’ [Elicitation]

Three locative nouns exist to express the meaning ‘somewhere’: class 16 *vógo* ‘somewhere *at* some place’, class 17 *wógo* ‘somewhere *to* some place’ (61a), and class 18 *mógo* ‘somewhere *in* some place’ (61b). Again, their negative counterpart, ‘nowhere’, is obtained through negative polarity on verbs integrated intothetic sentences (61c).

- (61) a. ḍaáḍówá wógó: waáḍamana na bára

ddi-á-dhow-á wogo o-áddam-an-a na

SBJ.1SG-PST.CJ-go-FV HTD.17.somewhere 15-be.next.to-REC-FV with

bára

5a.sea

‘I went somewhere near the sea.’ [Elicitation]

- b. *ḑoóbó: oṭiyilé mógo gaani?*

dhi-óbo o-ttiy-ilé mogo gaani

10-basket SBJ1-leave-PFV.CJ HTD.18.somewhere which

‘In which place did he leave the baskets?’ [Elicitation]

- c. *kavalí vogó: vaṇrórómeleya asúpâyi*

ka-va-lí vogo va-ni-róromel-ey-a

NEG-SBJ16-be HTD.16.somewhere AGR16-IPFV-trust-N-FV.REL

a-súpayi

2-policeman

‘Nowhere are the policemen trustworthy.’ (lit. ‘there is no place where policemen are trustable’) [Elicitation]

All the affirmative lexical items presented so far in this section have otherwise retained affirmative polarity uses in the language, which means that when they occur without negation, they never acquire a negative interpretation all by themselves (in the way *personne* ‘person’ in French has for instance, by acquiring the parallel interpretation ‘nobody’). As an expected result, they cannot function as an elliptic answer ‘Nobody!’, ‘Nothing!’ or ‘Nowhere!’ to questions ‘Who came?’, ‘What did you eat?’ or ‘Where did you go?’, respectively.

Finally, the time frequency value ‘never’ is most commonly associated with the counter-expectational TAM category, expressed by means of the prefix *ná-*. Counter-expectational conveys both unexpectedness and perfect aspectual meaning. In (62), the described event ‘go to the beach’ has so far never occurred, and appears as some surprising and unexpected piece of information.

- (62) *míyó kaḑináḑówag’ oobara*

míyo ka-ddi-ná-dhow-ag-a o-bara

PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE-go-HAB-FV HTD.17-9a.sea

‘I have never been at the beach.’ [Elicitation]

More rarely, a dedicated temporal adverb in the shape of *cípo* is used to express ‘never’. It can be found in addition to counter-expectational TAM-marking (63a), but may also easily be associated with other TAM categories, such as present imperfective (63b) or future (64). This temporal adverb is inherently negative, but still requires to be embedded in a negative polarity context, provided by verbal negative markers. Unlike the ‘nobody/nothing/nowhere’ constructions discussed above, where negation is formally and semantically expressed once, the constructions based on *cípo* ‘never’ are marked by a negative concord in the sense of Zanuttini (1997: 9), i.e. one single negative meaning is expressed twice, through

the default negation marker (in the shape of a negative affix in Cuwabo) and through an inherently negative pronoun or adverb. In transitive constructions (64), *cípo* may be located clause-initially or clause-finally, but cannot emerge between the verb and the postverbal object. All the examples below were elicited.

- (63) a. *kaḍinápíyága cípo*
ka-ddi-ná-piy-ag-a cípo
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE-cook-HAB-FV never
 ‘I have never cooked.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *kaḍimpiya cípo*
ka-ddi-ni-píy-a cípo
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-cook-FV never
 ‘I never cook.’ [Elicitation]
- (64) (*cípó*) *kaḍinnáátágí?e* (**cípo*) *ebáribariya* (*cípo*)
 (*cípo*) *ka-ddi-mu-náa-tagih-e e-báribari=ya* (*cípo*)
 never NEG-SBJ.1SG-OBJ1-FUT-repeat-FV 9-truth=DEF never
 ‘I will never tell him the truth.’ [Elicitation]

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

Case marking, including abessive, caritive or privative, does not exist in Cuwabo, and only some remnants of negative derivation are attested synchronically. The equivalent of English ‘un-’ is expressed lexically through dedicated verbs, most of which are historically derived by means of the (no longer productive) suffix *-ul*, which is a reflex of the reconstructed Proto-Bantu form **-ʊd*, interpreted as a ‘reversive’ (Meeussen 1967: 87, 92) or ‘separative’ (Schadeberg 1982, 2003). In all cases, the original underived verb is no longer attested in the language, hence each pair of verbs in (65) displays different roots.

- (65) *ókosá* ‘to do’ vs. *ógujúla* ‘to undo’
ókuneéla ‘to cover’ vs. *ópumbunúla* ‘to uncover’
osásánya ‘to build’ vs. *ógújúla* ‘to unbuild’
okúna/ofúnya ‘to fold’ vs. *otápúula* ‘to unfold’
ómagá ‘to tie’ vs. *otápúula* ‘to untie’

English ‘without’ or ‘-less’ is rendered through the adposition *sé* (< Portuguese *sem* ‘without’), used both with nouns (66) and infinitive forms of verbs (67).

- (66) *íyééne waáli sé guwo*
íyééne o-á-li sé guwo
 PRO3SG SBJ1-PST.IPFV-be without HTD.10a.cloth
 ‘He remained without clothes.’ [Elicitation]
- (67) A: *niigúmána mas sssssh, yaaká ngáasi niigumánile?*
ni-hi-gúman-a mas sssssh e-aká ngáasi
 SBJ.1PL-PFV.DJ-meet-FV but INJ 9-year how.many
ni-hi-gumán-ile
 SBJ.1PL-NEG-meet-PFV
 ‘We have already met, but ooooh, how many years without meeting each other?’
- B: *s’ óógúmána*
sé ó-gumán-a
 without 15-meet-FV
 ‘Without meeting each other.’ [Conversation.7]

4 Other aspects of negation

This section explores other aspects of negation, which are more directly concerned with semantic and pragmatic issues. The discussion covers the scope of negation (§4.1), negative polarity items (§4.2), the marking of NPs in the scope of negation (§4.3), the reinforcement of negation (§4.4), negation in sentence co-ordination (§4.5) and other aspects of negation (§4.6).

4.1 The scope of negation

The scope of negation represents the area semantically affected by a negation cue, i.e. all the negated concepts. On the clausal level, negation cues and scopes are discontinuous: while negation is invariably marked on the verb (highlighted in bold in (68)), the scope further operates on the different clause constituents, indicated between square brackets in (68). Among these constituents, the one immediately following the verb (here the object *attu* ‘people’) is marked by High Tone Deletion (HTD), as further discussed in §4.3. The other constituents under negation scope are not subjected to any particular prosodic marking.

- (68) ogaaʔiléejeleg' aaʔu mmúruđááni kuɲlémééliwa
 [o]-gaa-**hí**-[lejeel]-ege [a-ttu] [mu-mú-ruddá-ni]
 SBJ.2SG-SIT-NEG-greet-FV.HAB HTD.2-person 18-3-village-LOC
 ku-ní-lemeél-iw-a
 NEG.SBJ.2SG-PRS-adapt-PASS-FV
 'If you do not greet the people of the community, you will not be
 integrated.' [Elicitation]

It is also possible to narrow the scope of subject constituents by inverting the canonical order SV to VS, as in (69), repeated from (58). In this construction too, the postverbal element, here the subject *muttu* 'person', is marked by HTD.

- (69) kaðilévó muʔu
 ka-dh-íle=vo mu-ttu
 NEG.SBJ1-come-PFV=LOC16 HTD.1-person
 'Nobody came.' (lit. 's/he did not come here someone') [Elicitation]

4.2 Negative polarity items

Items restricted to negative polarity are very limited in Cuwabo. These consist of the two non-verbal negators discussed and illustrated in §2.3, i.e. the general non-verbal negator *kahíye* and the negative locative-existential *ka*-SBJ-*hí*=LOC.

On the basis of my corpus, the verb *koodda* 'refuse' (in combination with a main infinitive verb) qualifies as another example of items that only occur in negative polarity contexts. This was shown in relative constructions such as (51). In the question in (70), two negative independent clauses follow each other: while the second exhibits standard negation in *ka*-, the first illustrates *koodda* + infinitive negation.

- (70) ogákóod' oóða kunámál' oōsínínáári:
o-gá-koodd-a ó-dh-a ku-ná-mal-a
 SBJ.2SG-FUT.IPFV.CJ-refuse-FV 15-come-FV NEG.SBJ.2SG-CNTE-finish-FV
 ó-sintinaári
 15-defecate
 'Are you not coming, are you not done yet with your necessities?'
 [Páaká.Story]

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

It is cross-linguistically well-established that negation may have an effect on the marking of grammatical categories in NPs (see Miestamo 2014 for a typological survey). For instance, indefinite NPs under the scope of negation tend to be interpreted as non-referential, and in some languages this new interpretation is grammatically marked, either through explicit non-referential marking or through partitive. In a number of Bantu languages, the semantic-pragmatic category of referentiality is morphologically encoded by what Bantuists call the “augment”. The augment is a grammatical morpheme that most commonly appears as a vowel-shaped pre-prefix attached onto nouns and certain nominal modifiers. Very pervasive in Bantu, the augment is often considered as a determiner, a default marker for referentiality. Overall, augmented nouns assert the existence of the referent: ‘a/the (particular, individual) X’, ‘a (specific) X’. Augmentless nouns do not assert such existence (without, however, denying it) and tend to express ‘any, anything like, anything that can be classified as X’. It is however difficult to obtain a uniform picture on the use(s) of the augment throughout Bantu, as considerable cross-linguistic variation prevails (Van de Velde 2019). A common trend, however, is that augmentless forms tend to appear in syntactic environments where referentiality is not aimed at. The reader is referred to De Blois (1970) and Van de Velde (2019) for more comprehensive accounts of the Bantu augment.

In Cuwabo, the augment is not realized segmentally as typically observed in Bantu languages, but merely by means of tones, with two anchoring positions depending on the presence versus absence of a lexical H tone on nominal stems. In the absence of lexical H, the augment tone anchors onto the first mora of the stem, i.e. the mora following the noun class prefix, as in (71a). In the presence of lexical H (invariably assigned to the penultimate mora or the ultimate in case of bimoraic stems), the augment tone cannot appear on the stem and instead retracts onto the noun class prefix, as shown in (71b), where the lexical H is bolded.

- (71) a. Nouns without lexical H
- | | |
|------------------------|-------------|
| e- <u>rú</u> ru | ‘chin’ |
| ni- <u>gó</u> goddo | ‘bone’ |
| mu- <u>kó</u> lrófitto | ‘loincloth’ |
- b. Nouns with lexical H
- | | |
|------------|---------|
| ní-fuló | ‘anvil’ |
| mú-káátte | ‘jug’ |
| é-sarááaro | ‘rope’ |

In Cuwabo, four different contexts trigger the deletion of the first H tone (HTD), i.e. the tone historically associated with the augment. Augmentless nouns appear: i) in non-verbal predication (see §2.3); ii) when used as vocatives (see examples (3) and (93)); iii) after conjoint verb forms (3); and iv) under the scope of negation. For ease of reading, the three aforementioned examples (50), (60) and (62) illustrating HTD after negation (context iv) are repeated below. In all these examples the postverbal object is non-referential. *muttu* ‘person’ in (72) may denote any human being; *elobo* ‘thing’ in (73) denotes any type of thing; and *obara* ‘at the beach’ in (74) refers to any place that can be classified as a beach. All these items are interpreted as negatively quantified and the resulting constructions can be understood as ‘NEG-V any NP’.

- (72) *kaáŋya muŋu óðówá otélá ɲlógó ni?iŋziwééye*
ka-á-ttiy-a mu-ttu ó-dhow-á o-tél-a ni-lógo
 NEG.SBJ2-PST.IPFV-leave-FV HTD.1-person 15-go-FV 15-marry-FV 5-family
ni-hi-ní-ziw-á=eye
 AGR5-NEG-IPFV-know-FV.REL=PRO3SG
 ‘One would not let someone marry some unknown family.’ (lit. ‘family that they do not know of’) [Marriage.Tradition]

- (73) *míyó kaɲinaálógé: ɲihivá?íwe elobo*
míyo ka-ddi-náa-log-e ddi-hi-váh-iw-e
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-FUT-speak-FV SBJ.1SG-NEG-give-PASS-SBJV
e-lobo
 HTD.9-thing
 ‘I will not speak if I am not given anything.’ [Elicitation]

- (74) *míyó kaɲináðówag’ oobara*
míyo ka-ddi-ná-dhow-ag-a o-bara
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-CNTE-go-HAB-FV HTD.17-9a.sea
 ‘I have never been at the sea (meaning: any sea).’ [Elicitation]

However, in (most?) cases where the postverbal NP is meant as definite/specific, the augment tone remains present. In (75), *mwámúni* ‘husband’ is unambiguously made definite by the context and spontaneously translated with the possessive by my consultant; in (76), *koóbilri* ‘money’ is overtly marked for definiteness; and in (77), repeated from (39), *múttaambí* ‘liar’ is followed by the demonstrative. All these augmented NPs clearly refer to particular individuals or entities.

- (75) mwááǎíye kaáǎvǎ?a mwámúni
mú-adhí=ye ka-á-mu-váh-a mwámuni
 1-wife=POSS3SG NEG.SBJ1-PST.IPFV-OBJ1-give-FV 1.husband
 ‘His wife did not give (it, i.e. food) to her husband.’ [Mbílri.Story]
- (76) mu?inákáan’ éébaribará munááǎvǎ?e koóbíǎǎ
mu-hi-ná-kaaná e-baribari mu-náa-vah-e
 SBJ.2PL-NEG-CNTE-have HTD.9-truth SBJ.2PL-NEG-give-SBJV
koóbilri=dha
 10a.money=DEF10
 ‘As long as you are not sure, do not give the money.’ [Elicitation]
- (77) oówóǎǎ o?ímútelá mútǎamb’ úúǎle
o-hí-wodh-á o-hí-mu-tel-á mú-ttaambi
 SBJ1-PFV.DJ-succeed-FV HTD.15-NEG-OBJ1-marry-FV 1-liar
óǎle
 1.DEM.DIST
 ‘She succeeded in not marrying that liar.’ [Elicitation]

Notably, the presence of a modifier is not a sufficient condition to obtain a definite/specific reading. In (78), albeit *guwo* ‘cloth’ is understood as belonging to a particular individual through possessive modification, no reference to a particular/specific cloth is made and in this context the NP is better interpreted as ‘any cloth of his’, hence the augment omission.

- (78) aga?ífúlege guwo ǎaáyé: agǎǎnuka
a-gaa-hí-ful-eg-e guwo dhi-áye
 SBJ1-SIT-NEG-wash-HAB-FV HTD.10a.cloth AGR10-POSS3SG
a-gǎ-ni-nuk-a
 SBJ1-FUT.IPFV-IPFV.DJ-smell.bad-FV
 ‘If he does not wash (any of) his clothes, he will smell bad.’ [Elicitation]

The absence of the augment under the scope of negation is attested in several other Bantu languages, such as Zulu (Doke 1961; Buell 2006), Luganda (Hyman & Katamba 1990), Ruuli (Ruppert, Namyalo & Witzlack-Makarevich this volume), and seems to always be (originally) associated with non-referentiality.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

The invariable morpheme *wéene* or its agreeing cliticized form *=ene* are frequently attested in Cuwabo to express an intensive (‘INTS’) meaning. They may appear

on different constituents, including verbs. When these are marked for negation, *wéene* ~ *=ene* reinforces negation and assumes an adverbial function best translated in English as ‘really’. Compare (79b) with (79a). As a general intensifier, *wéene* ~ *=ene* also functions in affirmative contexts, e.g. to express ‘the meat is *really* cooked’. Cuwabo has no dedicated adverb to reinforce negation, such as English ‘at all’. Instead the language resorts to the negative particle *nne* ‘no’ (see §3.1), either before or after the verb, as shown in (79c). In this context, as well as with one-word negative replies to polar questions, the borrowed variant *nada* ‘no’ (< Portuguese *nada* ‘nothing’) may substitute *nne*. The use of *nne* or *nada* as reinforcers of negation remains infrequent in the language (but see §4.6.4 for ironic negation).

- (79) a. *námá kipiýéyile*
 náma ki-píy-ey-ile
 9a.meat NEG.SBJ9-cook-N-PFV
 ‘The meat is not cooked.’
- b. *námá kipiýéyile wéene*
 náma ki-píy-ey-ile wéene
 9a.meat NEG.SBJ9-cook-N-PFV INTS
 ‘The meat is really not cooked.’
- c. *námá ínné: kipiýéyile ~ kipiýéyile ínnê:*
 náma nne ki-píy-ey-ile
 9a.meat no NEG.SBJ9-cook-N-PFV
 ‘The meat is not cooked at all.’ [Elicitation]

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negative coordinators ‘neither... nor...’ are rendered by *nne... nne...* (negative counterpart of *óbe* ‘or’). Most often, *nne* coordinates two nouns as in (80). Note that negative polarity is also obligatorily marked on the verb.

- (80) *kađĩńfúná omuṭeba nne Ęrúgúlú, nné viínagwíya Máda*
 ka-ddi-ní-fun-á o-mu-tteb-a nne é-rugulu nne
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV HTD.15-OBJ1-carry-FV nor 9-belly nor
 viína-gwíya má-da
 too-again 6-hand
 ‘I do not want to carry neither Mr. Belly, nor Mr. Hand.’ [Body.Story]

The particle *nne* may also function as a clause coordinator (81a), albeit such constructions are more commonly expressed by clause juxtaposition, with optional addition of the adverb *viina* ‘too’ (81b).

- (81) a. *ka-ddi-ní-fun-á* *o-suńz-a* ***nne*** *ó-gon-á*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV HTD.15-study-FV NEG 15-sleep-FV
 ‘I don’t want to study, nor do I want to sleep.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *ka-ddi-ní-fun-á* *o-suńz-a* *viina*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV HTD.15-study-FV too
ka-ddi-ní-fun-á *o-gon-á*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV HTD.15-sleep-FV
 ‘I don’t want to study, nor do I want to sleep.’ [Elicitation]

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

Negative transport, whereby negation formally marked in a first (higher) clause semantically applies to the second (lower) clause predicate (see, e.g., Lakoff 1969; Lindholm 1969; Horn 1989), does occur in Cuwabo with different kinds of predicates. Starting with verbs of feeling, the raised version ‘I don’t hope he comes’ in (82b) is semantically tantamount to ‘I hope he does not come’ in (82a), where negation is in the lower clause.

- (82) Context: ‘Oh no, your husband is annoying!’
- a. *djinojéédéla wi kanáádéwo*
ddi-ni-o-jéedh-el-a *wi* ***ka-náa-dh-e=wo***
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV-15-hope-APPL-FV COMP NEG.SBJ1-FUT-come-FV=LOC17
 ‘I hope he doesn’t come.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *ka-ddi-ni-jéedh-el-a* *wi* *o-ni-ó-dh-a=wo*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-hope-APPL-FV COMP SBJ1-IPFV-15-come-FV=LOC17
 ‘I don’t hope he comes.’

The same cases of anticipated negation are observed with verbs of volition (83) and verbs of opinion (84).

(83) Context: ‘I appreciate your company.’

- a. *ḍiṃfúná oʔiðowe*
ddi-ní-fun-á *o-hi-dhow-e*
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-want-FV SBJ.2SG-NEG-go-SBJV.HTD
 ‘I want you not to go.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *kaḍiṃfúná wí oðówe*
ka-ddi-ní-fun-á *wí* *o-dhów-e*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-want-FV COMP SBJ.2SG-go-SBJV
 ‘I don’t want you to go.’

(84) Context: ‘It is late.’

- a. *ṇnóóná wí kanááðewo*
ddi-ní-on-á *wí* *ka-náa-dh-e=wo*
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-see-FV COMP NEG.SBJ1-FUT-come-FV=LOC17
 ‘I think they are not coming.’ [Elicitation]
- b. *kaḍinóónámó wí anoóða*
ka-ddi-ní-on-á=mo *wí* *a-ni-ó-dh-a*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-see-FV=LOC18 COMP SBJ1-IPFV-15-come-FV
 ‘I don’t think they are coming.’

Cuwabo has no verbs of perception such as ‘seem’, ‘appear’, ‘look like’, ‘sound like’, or ‘feel like’. Instead, the comparison adverb *nínga* ‘like, as’ is used, as illustrated in (85).

(85) Context: ‘This land is dry.’

- nínga karúbíle muzógwe*
nínga ka-rúb-ile *mu-zógwe*
 like NEG.SBJ1-rain-PFV 1-rain
 ‘It seems it did not rain.’ ~ ‘It does not seem it rained.’ [Elicitation]

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation is a marked use of negation conveying reactive and corrective speech act. In Horn’s terms (1989: 363), it consists in “objecting to a previous utterance on any grounds whatever, including the conventional or conversational implicata it potentially induces, its morphology, its style or register, or its phonetic realization”. Typically, an utterance involving metalinguistic negation is followed by a rectifying assertion that not only contrasts with the corrected

segment, but also provides or clarifies the motivation for the objection. In Cuwabo, metalinguistic negation does not differ from ordinary/descriptive negation employed on verbs. In (86), the verb stem *zíveliwa* ‘like’ used twice is negated in the first clause, then repeated in the second clause, but affirmatively and along with the emphatic adverb *vaddiddi* ‘much’. This metalinguistic use of negation marks a reassessment supported by an overbid: the speaker does more than like coconut water: s/he loves it, literally translated as ‘like very much’.

- (86) *míyó kadĩnzíveliwa ɲlanya, dinozíveliwa vadjĩĩdĩ!*
míyo ka-ddi-ni-zíveliw-a ni-lanya
 PRO1SG NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-like-FV HTD.5-COCO.water
ddi-ni-o-zíveliw-a vaddiddi
 SBJ.1SG-IPFV.CJ-15-like-FV much
 ‘I don’t like coconut water, I love it!’ [Elicitation]

4.6.3 Phasal polarity

Phasal polarity in Kramer’s (2021) terms involves two positive and two negative concepts. The negative ones are ‘not yet’ and ‘no longer’. The first combines the counter-expectational prefix *ná-* with one of the two main negators, *ka-* in declarative verbal main clauses (§2.1) and *hi-* in temporal adverbial clauses (§2.4.2). The second concept ‘no longer’ marks the end of a situation which used to hold before the changing point. In Cuwabo, it is expressed by means of the adverb *viina* ‘too, as well’ used together with standard negation, as exemplified in (87). See Guérois (2021) for a detailed analysis of phasal polarity in Cuwabo.

- (87) *ɲníngó neetéeɛne kaneéddíle víina*
ni-níngo ni-eté=ene ka-ni-édd-ile víina
 5-body 5-all=INTS NEG-SBJ5-walk-PFV too
 ‘The whole body no longer worked (lit. ‘walked’).’ [Body.Story]

4.6.4 Non-negative uses of negatives

It is common in discourse that negative verbal and non-verbal forms are used to express emphatic affirmative clauses. This deliberate use of language which states the opposite of the truth serves the communicative goal of irony. When applied to negative constructions, this rhetoric device accentuates affirmative/positive connotation. Resulting constructions read as negative statements but in actual fact mean the opposite. In (88), ironic negation is used with the negative

copula *kayíye*, supplemented with the negative particle *não* (see §3.1), although *nne* ‘no’ is also possible in this context.

- (88) A: oótélá. áyaná oná gwée!

o-hí-tel-á á-yaná o-ná gwée
 SBJ1-PFV.DJ-marry-FV 2-woman SBJ1-have many
 ‘He got married. Women, he has lots of them.’

B: *yii!*

INJ

(Surprise)

- A: *kayíye áyaná não. niimwálána*

kayíye á-yaná não ni-hi-mwálan-a
 NVB.NEG 2-woman NEG SBJ.1PL-PFV.DJ-break.up-FV
 ‘He has very many women. We broke up already.’ (lit. ‘There are no women no.’) [Conversation.7]

According to my main consultant, the presence of the negative particle is obligatory. *Kayíye áyaná* would be interpreted literally as ‘There are no women (but only men, for instance)’. Double negation, originally used as a reinforcing device (see §4.4), thus seems to have semantically evolved into an emphatic affirmative marker. However, the two ironic negative constructions in (89) and (90) do not exhibit double negation. Albeit my main consultant still prefers the presence of a final negative particle in these contexts, these two examples, produced by two different Cuwabo story tellers, clearly illustrate that double negation is not a mandatory condition to convey ironic negation.

- (89) áťú kayíyo ódów’ óotólon’ uúkúle kayíy’ óópítáála

á-ttu kahíyo ó-dhow-á o-ttólo=ni ókule kahíyo
 2-person NVB.NEG 15-go-FV 17-well=LOC 17.DEM.DIST NVB.NEG
ó-pitaál-a
 15-hide-FV

‘People went to that well and hid themselves.’ (lit. ‘People are not to go to that well, are not to hide.’) [Ddoolrinddo.Story]

- (90) rapáriga dábunó kayíy’ óókálá ðiiðo:

rapáriga ddabunó kahíyo o-kál-a dhiidho
 1a.girl then NVB.NEG 15-be-FV naked

‘Then the mistress remained naked.’ (lit. ‘The mistress then is not to be naked’) [Mbílri.Story]

The conditions for the presence of the negative particle *nne* ~ *não* are equally unclear with verbal predicates. While it is considered necessary in (91), which is semantically equivalent to the affirmative *ddinozíveliwa vaddiíiddi* ‘I like [it] a lot’ in (86) above, its addition in both (92) and (93) is unaccepted, even by my main consultant.

- (91) *kađínóziveliwa íně:!*
ka-ddí-ni-o-ziv-el-iw-a *nne*
 NEG-SBJ.1SG-IPFV-15-be.tasty-APPL-PASS-FV NEG
 ‘[I don’t like coconut water,] I love it!’ (lit. ‘I don’t like/love it no’)
 [Elicitation]
- (92) a. *ḍaáḍuwaála kí máánpjé kâgubúllé:, maḅándwéyá kaḍaareyíle.*
ddi-a-hí-dduwaál-a *kí* *má-anjé ka-gubúl-ile* (**nne*)
 SBJ.1SG-PST-PFV.DJ-forget-FV EMPH 6-water NEG.SBJ6-rise-PFV NEG
ma-ngánddwe=ya ka-ddi-a-rey-íle
 6-fish.trap=DEF NEG-SBJ.1SG-PST-set-PFV
 ‘I had forgotten, the tide rose (lit. ‘the tide didn’t rise’) and I had not set up the fish traps.’ [Elicitation]
- b. Affirmative alternative:
máánpjé aágúbúla
má-anjé a-hí-gubúl-a
 6-water SBJ6-PFV.DJ-rise-FV
 ‘the tide rose’
- (93) a. *ḅbwaná! múgódó, eḅzíveliwééye! woóne: kimálle!*
mu-bwaná mú-goddo e-ni-zível-iw-a=íye
 HTD.1-friend 3-rice.cake AGR9-IPFV-please-PASS-FV.REL=PRO3SG
o-ón-e *ki-mál-ile* (**nne*)
 SBJ.2SG-see-SBJV NEG.SBJ9-finish-PFV NEG
 ‘Friend! The rice cake, it’s something he likes! Look, it’s all finished!’
 (lit. ‘Look, it’s not finished’) [Conversation.2]
- b. Affirmative alternative:
woóne: eemála!
o-ón-e *e-hi-mál-a*
 SBJ.2SG-see-SBJV SBJ9-PFV.DJ-finish-FV
 ‘Look, it’s finished!’

The examples above show that the presence or absence of the negative particle may in certain cases be indicative of intra-speaker variation (examples (89) and (90)). In other cases, it may reveal an ongoing process whereby the negative particle would preferably be added to avoid any pragmatic ambiguity (examples (88) and (91)). However, it is difficult at this stage to understand why examples such as (92) and (93) preclude the presence of the negative particle. More research is needed.

Ironical negative constructions are not freely expressed with any TAM category. In addition to already-illustrated habitual present (91) and perfective (92–93), only present progressive (94a), past progressive (95a) and counter-expectational (96a) seem to authorize ironical negative constructions. On the other hand, negation used in past imperfective (97a) and future (98a) may only be interpreted as face value, and the expression of an emphatic positive statement may only obtain through affirmative polarity, as seen in (97b) and (98b). Further research is required to figure out exactly how ironical negation and TAMs do interact. It may be that the future, as an irrealis, blocks the effect of the pragmatic device. The restriction observed with the past imperfective remains, however, more puzzling. All the examples below were elicited.

- (94) a. João kánózivala ñnê:!
 João *ká-ni-o-zival-a* *nne*
 João NEG.SBJ1-IPFV-15-lie-FV NEG
 ‘João is lying a lot!’ (lit. ‘John is not lying no’)
- b. João onozívála vadídi!
 João *o-ni-o-zival-a* *vaddíddi*
 João SBJ1-IPFV-15-lie-FV much
 ‘João is lying a lot!’ (Affirmative alternative)
- (95) a. João kéél’ ozivala ñnê:!
 João *ka-á-ila* *o-zival-a* *nne*
 João NEG.SBJ1-PST.IPFV-AUX HTD.15-lie-FV NEG
 ‘João was lying a lot!’ (lit. ‘John wasn’t lying no’)
- b. João wééloozívála vadídi!
 João *ó-a-ila* *o-zíval-a* *vaddíddi*
 João SBJ1-PST.IPFV-AUX 15-lie-FV much
 ‘João was lying a lot!’ (Affirmative alternative)

- (96) a. João keél' ózivala ínnê:
 João *ka-íla* *o-zival-a* **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ1-AUX HTD.15-lie-FV NEG
 'João (unexpectedly) lied.' (lit. 'John didn't (unexpectedly) lie no')
- b. João olóóziválá vadíđi!
 João *o-íla* *o-zival-a* *vaddíđdi*
 João SBJ1-AUX HTD.15-lie-FV much
 'João (unexpectedly) lied.' (Affirmative alternative)
- (97) a. João kaázivalaga ínnê:
 João *ka-á-zival-ag-a* **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ1-PST.IPFV-lie-HAB-FV NEG
 *'João lied/used to lie a lot!' → 'João did not lie.'
- b. João wáánzivalaga vadíđi!
 João *ó-a-ni-zival-ag-a* *vaddíđdi*
 João SBJ1-PST-IPFV-lie-HAB-FV.DJ much
 'João lied/used to lie a lot!'
- (98) a. João kanááziválége ínnê:
 João *ka-náa-zival-eg-e* **nne**
 João NEG.SBJ1-FUT-lie-HAB-FV NEG
 *'João will lie a lot!' → 'João will never lie.'
- b. João agáńzivala vadíđi.
 João *a-gá-ni-zival-a* *vaddíđdi*
 João SBJ1-FUT.DJ-IPFV-lie-FV much
 'João will lie a lot!'

While ironic negative constructions such as 'he's not very bright' used in the sense 'he's stupid' may easily be perceived as a common rhetoric device cross-linguistically (albeit they have not been the subject of much investigation), ironic negative constructions such as those found in Cuwabo, which point to an emphatic affirmative state of affairs reversing a literally negative phrasing ('he's not bright' = 'he's very bright'), are certainly more exceptional. Similar constructions exist in French, as illustrated in (99), but these represent very colloquial expressions, where: i) the innovated negative particle *pas* is the single negator in the sentence, as commonly heard in verbal speech; ii) informal contractions are overtly pronounced (*chuis* < *je suis*, *t'es* < *tu es*, *z'êtes* < *vous êtes*); iii) very informal words are used (*merde*, *chiant*, *veinard*); iv) a specific prosody applies, which unambiguously underlines irony.

- (99) a. *Chuis pas dans la merde!*
 PRO1SG.be.PRS NEG in DEF shit
 ‘I am in big trouble!’ (lit. ‘I’m not in trouble.’)
- b. *T’es pas chiant!*
 PRO2SG.be.PRS NEG boring
 ‘You’re boring!’ (lit. ‘You’re not boring.’)
- c. *Z’êtes pas des veinards!*
 PRO2PL.be.PRS NEG INDF.PL lucky.person.PL
 ‘You’re lucky people!’ (lit. ‘You’re not lucky people.’)

In contrast, Cuwabo ironic negative constructions do not differ formally, prosodically and stylistically from truth-functional negative constructions. Only situational factors may help in realizing that the negative sentence is ironic. These are clear cases whereby the meaning of a sentence cannot be exhaustively interpreted on the basis of the literal meaning of its constituents.

4.6.5 Diachronic observations

Diachronically, the two pre-stem negators *ka-* and *hi-* have been reconstructed to Proto-Bantu as **ka-* and **ti-*, respectively (Meeussen 1967). The final vowel *-i*, not uncommon through (Eastern) Bantu, has also been observed by Meeussen (1967), but not reconstructed. The post-initial *náa-* (restricted to the subjunctive mood in Cuwabo) is most likely related to the form *na-*, which is a recurrent negative marker in zone P languages (Kamba Muzenga 1981: 115), i.e. Bantu languages spoken in south Tanzania and north Mozambique.

Both non-verbal negators *kahíye* and *ka-SBJ-hí=LOC*, discussed in §2.3, are based on the initial negative marker *ka-*. The use of standard negation places Cuwabo onto stage A of the model of the Negative Existential Cycle as set out by Croft (1991) and retaken in Veselinova (2013b, 2014, 2016). This conforms to the tendency observed across Bantu, where the majority of existential negators belong to the earlier stages of the cycle (Bernander et al. 2022), as well as to the cross-linguistic generalizations provided in Croft’s and Veselinova’s typologies.

5 Summary

Table 7 summarizes all the negative constructions of Cuwabo discussed in this chapter, as well as the contexts in which they appear.

Table 7: Summary of Cuwabo negative items/constructions

Negator/Construction	Function	Section
<i>ka-</i>	standard negation	§2.1
<i>ka-</i> (with subjunctive)	non-declarative main clauses	§2.2
<i>na' a-</i> (with subjunctive)	non-declarative main clauses	§2.2
	complement clauses	§2.4.1
<i>kahíyo ~ kahíye</i>	non-verbal predication	§2.3.1 & §2.3.2
NEG + copula verb <i>li</i>	non-verbal predication	§2.3
<i>ka-SP-hí=LOC</i>	negative locative-existential	§2.3.3
<i>hi-</i>	non-main clauses (default marker)	§2.4
<i>hi-</i> + FV negator <i>-i</i>	situative TA category	§2.4.2
echo system negative particles <i>nada~nne~não</i>	negative replies	§3.1
generic noun + NEG-V existential construction + free relative	negative indefinites	§3.2
adposition <i>sé</i> 'without'	negative derivation	§3.3
<i>koodda</i> 'refuse' + infinitive	negative polarity	§4.2
drop of augment	marking of NPs after negation	§4.3
adverb <i>weéne</i> or particle <i>nne</i>	reinforcing negation	§4.4
<i>nne... nne...</i>	negative coordinators	§4.5

Two areas of Cuwabo negation in particular require further research. First, it would be interesting to dig deeper into the connection between negation and the marking of referentiality on the postverbal constituent through the presence or absence of the augment tone, and then relate the results with other grammatical contexts involving augmentless forms. The existence of ironic negative constructions in order to postulate an emphatic affirmative statement is a second fascinating aspect of Cuwabo negation. This pragmatic device is recurrently attested in natural speech, and does not appear as colloquial as ironic negation observed in a language like French. Particularly interesting in these constructions is the possible role played by double negation, as well as the interaction with TAM categories.

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Abbreviations

1, 2, 3, etc	noun class	CJ	conjoint
1a, 5a, 9a, 10a	subclasses of classes 1, 5, 9, 10	COM	comitative
1SG	first person singular	COMP	complementizer
2SG	second person singular	CONN	connective
3SG	third person singular	COP	copula
1PL	first person plural	DEF	definite
2PL	second person plural	DEM	demonstrative
3PL	third person plural	DIST	distal
ADDR	addressee	DJ	disjoint
AGR	agreement prefix	EMPH	emphatic
AMOT	associated motion	FUT	future
APPL	applicative	FV	final vowel
AUX	auxiliary	H	high tone
CAUS	causative	HTD	(first) high tone deletion
CNTE	counter-expectational	HAB	habitual
CNTF	counterfactual	HYP	hypothetical
		IMP	imperative

INDF	indefinite	PRF	perfect
INF	infinitive	PRO	pronoun
INTS	intensive/intensifier	PROX	proximal
INJ	interjection	PRS	present
IPFV	imperfective	PST	past
LOC	locative	RECP	reciprocal
NARR	narrative	REF	referential
NEG	negative	REL	relative
NEGEX	existential negation	RESTR	restrictive
N	neuter	SBJ	subject prefix
NVB	non-verbal	SBJV	subjunctive
OBJ	object prefix	SEQ	sequential
PASS	passive	SIT	situative
PFV	perfective	TA(M)	tense-aspect(-mood)
PL	plural	VB	verbal base
POSS	possessive		

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Chapter 11

Negation in Kam

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This chapter provides a comprehensive analysis of the negation system of Kam, a Niger-Congo language spoken in central-east Nigeria. The analysis is based on data from various sources, including elicitation, narratives and conversations. It follows the same structure as all other chapters in this volume, treating negation in different types of simple clauses, in complex clauses (including questions of scope and Neg-raising), and negative replies. Some notable features of negation in Kam are the following. Morphological tone plays a major role in expressing negation, as it does in other aspects of Kam. Negation interacts in complex ways with tense and aspect, showing a clear distinction under negation between future and non-future tense which is rare in the area where Kam is spoken. Negation is also expressed differently in clauses with an object and clauses without an object. There is a special intensity construction, which features the clausal negator used expletively, expressing an emphatically positive meaning instead. In other areas, e.g. in non-verbal predication, Kam shows common typological patterns. The chapter also discusses related constructions, including nondum and discontinuative constructions. The conclusion gives a brief overview of most markers that are discussed. Some markers and syntactic devices appear to be optional and require more research.

Keywords: Negation, Kam language, Niger-Congo, Adamawa languages, Grammatical tone.

1 The language

Kam (ISO: kdx, Glottocode: kamm1249) is spoken in central-east Nigeria by the Kam ethnic group. The name of the language in Kam is *àngwòm* and the speakers call themselves *nyí ngwòm* ‘Kam people’. *Kam* is probably an exonym, but the



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Kam have adopted it and their oral tradition states that it was coined by a Kam person. Most speakers live in around thirty villages in Bali Local Government Area in Taraba State, in an area bounded by the Kamajim mountain to the east and the Kam river to the south. The largest of these villages is Mayo Kam. There are also communities of Kam speakers in large Nigerian towns and cities such as Lagos, Abuja and Jalingo, the state capital of Taraba. I estimate that in 2020 there were between 8,000 and 15,000 speakers of Kam (Lesage 2020: 6-7).

Kam has been classified as an Adamawa language, but published evidence for this claim is meager, based on 100 words published in the early 20th century (Meek 1931: 547–550, Greenberg 1963, Boyd 1989). In the absence of more convincing evidence, Kam is better considered an unclassified Niger-Congo language. Its Niger-Congo membership is fairly well established (Lesage 2019). In the past, Kam was in close contact with one or more Central Jukunoid languages (Jukun Takum or Wapan, Benue-Congo, Niger-Congo). It shows minimal lexical links with Mumuye and the Yendangic languages (Adamawa, Niger-Congo) such as Wam and Nyesam (Lesage 2019). Hausa (Chadic, Afro-Asiatic) is the lingua franca of the region and Fulfulde (Atlantic, Niger-Congo) has been a politically important language for some centuries due to past Islamic conquests initiated by Fula leaders and due to British indirect rule. The Kam associate closely with the Jirim, who are considered preferred marriage partners and who participate in some traditional Kam ceremonies. The Jirim speak a language closely related to Chamba Daka (Benue-Congo, Niger-Congo).¹

Most Kam speakers are multilingual. Apart from Kam, they speak at least Hausa. Many also speak Jirim, and some speak Nigerian Pidgin and/or English. Others speak Mumuye, Jukun Takum or Wapan, Fulfulde and other languages spoken in the wider area such as Tiv (Benue-Congo, Niger-Congo).

Most Kam speakers live in small communities. The Kam people have little representation in the state government. More urban areas (such as Mayo Kam) show a tendency for language shift to Hausa. One might therefore consider Kam a vulnerable language. It will likely be affected by demographic changes currently happening in the region. This is particularly relevant considering the rapid rate of population growth and urbanization in Nigeria as well as the presence of Boko Haram in the north-east of the country, which has led to an influx of refugees among the welcoming Kam community.

¹ISO 639-3 codes and Glottocodes for languages mentioned are the following: Jukun Takum: jbu, juku1254, Wapan : juk, wapa1235, Mumuye : mzm, nucl1240, Wam or Kugama : kow, kuga1239, Nyesam : pbn, kpas1242, Hausa : hau, haus1257, Adamawa Fulfulde : fub, adam1253, Jirim : dir, diri1253, Nigerian Pidgin : pcm, nige1257, English : eng, stan1293, Tiv : tiv, tivv1240.

Lesage (2020) provides the most up-to-date grammatical description of Kam. Its basic constituent order is SVO. Kam has prepositions and modifiers always follow heads in the noun phrase. Kam has cross-linguistically rare features such as labial-velar stops (/kp/ and /gb/), logophoric pronouns, tense-aspect-negation marking on subject pronouns, clause-final negation, and a plural word. Other features of Kam are a prevalence of multi-verb constructions and tonal morphology. Many of these typological features are characteristic of the linguistic area called the Macro-Sudan Belt (Güldemann 2008, 2018) that covers large parts of West and Central Africa, including the area where Kam is spoken. Segmental inflectional morphology is scarce and Kam does not have gender agreement, an otherwise widespread feature of Niger-Congo languages. Repetition and reduplication play a striking role in different aspects of Kam grammar, including future tense constructions (see §2.1.2). As this chapter will illustrate, many constructions in Kam involve multiple grammatical markers (and tones) simultaneously marking the same grammatical category in different places in the clause. Tones are essential to negation in Kam and to the interpretation of the examples presented in this chapter. For this reason, I briefly introduce the properties of tone that are most relevant here. Kam has three tone levels: L (*à*), M (*ā*) and H (*á*). M and H tones spread one position to the right, regardless of morpheme boundaries (1).^{2,3}

- (1) M tone: *ncā* # *àtār* → *ncā ātār* [star stone] ‘star of stone’
 H tone: *àlib* # *dinà* → *àlib dínà* [head mosquito] ‘head of mosquito’

Occasionally, a floating L tone occurs: a L tone that follows the segmental form of a morpheme and only surfaces on the following syllable. A floating L tone does not surface when the morpheme in question is prepausal, as in (2), where the floating L tone marking the possessive pronoun *ú^L* ‘3SG:POSS’ remains unassigned. The second line in the example displays the underlying lexical tones. Superscript ^L indicates a floating L tone.

- (2) *àná* *ú.*
 àná *ú^L*
 father 3SG-POSS
 ‘His/her father.’

²Tone spread is optional: in careful speech, tones do not always spread, and it is more prominent in some speakers’ speech than in others.

³When a tone spreads to a prepausal syllable, this results in a falling HL, HM or ML contour tone, as both the spreading tone and the tone originally attached to the targeted syllable are realized on this syllable. HL contour: *àlib* # *nyì* → *àlib nyì* [head thing] ‘something’s head’; HM contour: *àlib* # *yō* → *àlib yō* [head PL] ‘heads’.

A ^L-tone may affect the realization of the following syllable. When a ^L-tone precedes a H or M tone, it causes downstep, lowering the pitch of the following and all subsequent tones (3). I indicate downstep with a downstep arrow [↓]. When a ^L-tone follows a H or M tone, it blocks tone spread.

- (3) *ngmgbàb àná ú 'kǎ̀ b̀ùn.*
 ngmgbàb àná ú-^L kǎ̀ à̀b̀ùn
 shoot father 3SG-POSS INS arrow
 ‘Shoot his father with an arrow.’⁴

When a H or M tone spreads over a L tone, or a H tone spreads over a M tone, this L or M tone is delinked, or ‘pushed’ rightwards, and acts as a floating ^L-tone, causing downstep (4).

- (4) *sírà # à̀lìb → sírà á̀lìb* [hair head] ‘head hair’

Morphological tone (or *replacive* tone) occurs widely across Kam negation constructions. When a morpheme carries morphological tone, the glosses indicate this with a backslash (\). In the second line of examples, a backslash is followed by the tonal morpheme in question (H, M, L). In the third line, a backslash is followed by the abbreviation for the grammatical category expressed. (5) shows the verb *gòm* ‘pay’ marked by H tone as a negative future verb.

- (5) ... *góm* ú ...
 gòm\H ú
 pay\NEG.FUT 3SG
 ‘(It will) not pay him ...’

This chapter follows the structure of the negation questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). I describe clausal negation in §2, which covers standard verbal negation (§2.1), negative imperatives and questions (§2.2), negation in stative predications (§2.3), and negation in subordinate clauses (§2.4). The section on non-clausal negation (§3) contains information on negative replies in §3.1. I discuss negative indefinites (§3.2) and negative derivation (§3.3) very briefly, since these topics are not prominent in Kam. Other aspects of negation (§4) I discuss briefly are the scope of negation (§4.1), negative polarity items

⁴An initial *à-* in nouns is typically reduced to *à* or can be dropped altogether in utterance-internal positions. When a H tone precedes and would spread an *à*-prefix, and the *à* is dropped because of this rule, this H-spread does not surface anywhere, as in the realization of *à̀b̀ùn* ‘arrow’ in (3).

(§4.2), reinforcing negation (§4.4), negative transport (§4.5), metalinguistic negation (§4.6.1), and an emphatic affirmative construction that features the clause-final negator *hñ* without expressing negative meaning (§4.6.2). Finally, §5 provides an overview of negative markers in the clause. Where a cross-linguistically interesting construction is not present in Kam, or where there's not enough data to make claims on a topic, I mention this in the relevant sections. Research on Kam is ongoing and further research may change some of the findings presented in this paper.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Introduction

Standard negation interacts in complex ways with tense and aspect in Kam. Most affirmative constructions have no simple negative counterpart. In other words, there is constructional asymmetry between affirmative and negative constructions. Conversely, most negative constructions cannot straightforwardly be transformed into an affirmative construction. Some tense and aspect distinctions in affirmative constructions disappear under negation: there is paradigmatic asymmetry. These asymmetries are summarized in Table 1 below (see also Miestamo 2005). Future constructions provide a good example of constructional asymmetry. One type of affirmative future construction optionally repeats the main verb after an object, as in (6).

- (6) *ì jùt ù jūtī.*
 2PL give:FUT 3SG give
 'We gave it to him.' (2023-01-23, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Negating this statement yields a construction that is asymmetric with the affirmative construction: there is no repetition but there are two markers that have no affirmative equivalents (as in (7); note that the second marker is optional, cf. §2.1.2 below).

- (7) *ì rǎ 'jút ú rǎ hñ.*
 1PL NEG.FUT give:NEG.FUT 3SG NEG.FUT NEG
 'We will not give it to him.' (2023-01-23, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Negation, tense and aspect values are generally marked by more than one marker in the clause. I give an overview of all negation markers in §5 below. The only marker that consistently recurs in standard negation constructions is the clause-final marker *hn̩*. Apart from *hn̩*, (a) there is replacive tone on verbs (see Table 3 below), (b) there are preverbal markers, (c) there is a marker that follows the object and (d) there are separate sets of negative 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns (see Table 2). The negative pronouns qualify as STAMP-morphs, which simultaneously mark the subject, tense, aspect, mood and polarity of a clause (cf. Anderson 2016). Because Kam only has these for 1SG and 2SG categories and they occur in the subject pronoun slot in the clause, I refer to them as pronouns. 1SG and 2SG (and 1PL) subject pronouns cannot occur independently.

The next sections give an overview of the different affirmative and corresponding negative constructions in declarative clauses. The basic distinctions relevant to declarative verbal negation in Kam are the following:

- Tense: future vs. non-future tense
- Aspect: perfective vs. imperfective aspect
- The presence of an object vs. the absence of an object
- Polarity: positive vs. negative polarity

The third point, presence or absence of an object, does not only involve the difference between transitive and intransitive clauses. It also distinguishes transitive clauses where the object is expressed from those where the object is not expressed. There are no third person inanimate pronouns in Kam. As a result, inanimate objects are often left unexpressed (see examples (23), (25) and (66)).

Nondum and discontinuative constructions are variations on standard negation constructions but have some important differences. For this reason, I discuss them as other clausal negation constructions in §2.6.

2.1.2 Future tense constructions

There are two affirmative future constructions in Kam. Which one is used depends on whether there is an object in the clause or not. There is only one negative future construction, which does not distinguish object-less from object-having clauses. The negative future construction is very different from the positive future constructions.

The positive future with an object is expressed by the structure in (8), where *N̂* and *á* are the first and second person singular subject pronouns.

- (8) Future tense construction with an object
 Ñ, á or NP^{Subject} + V^L + NP^{Object} (+ V-i)

In other words, this construction involves a H tone 1SG or 2SG subject pronoun (or any other noun phrase in subject function with its lexical tone), a floating ^L tone after the main verb, and optional repetition of the verb after the object. The repeated verb carries the final vowel -i if its stem ends in a consonant, as in (9).⁵

- (9) *ń búg à bŭg-ī.*
 Ñ bŭg-^L á bŭg-i
 1SG.SBJ.FUT pinch-FUT 2SG.OBJ pinch-FV
 ‘I will pinch you.’ (session_345, Danjuma Bello, elicitation)

Object-less future tense clauses (10) have the same H tone 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns. Instead of full repetition of the verb, however, the verb is partially reduplicated. This reduplication involves an initial copy of the first syllable of the verb with a prespecified high vowel (original *a*, *e* and *ε* become *i*; original *ɔ* and *o* become *u*). There is no replacive tone. The final vowel -i is added to the reduplicated verb if its stem ends in a consonant (e.g. in (11)).

- (10) Future tense construction without an object
 Ñ, á or NP^{Subject} + V~V(-i)
- (11) *ń síssàrí.*
 Ñ sàrí~sàrí
 1SG.SBJ.FUT FUT~peel
 ‘I will peel (it).’ (session_345, Danjuma Bello, elicitation)

The negative future construction (12–14) is formed by the same H tone pronouns found in affirmative future constructions. However, it involves a H melody on verbs instead of the lexical tone or a floating ^L tone, a preverbal marker *rə*^L and an optional clause-final marker *rà*. The negator *hn* is placed at the end of the clause. There is no repetition or reduplication and there is no final vowel -i on the verb.

- (12) Negative future tense construction
 Ñ, á or NP^{Subject} + *rə*^L + V\H + NP^{Object} (+ *rà*) + *hn*

⁵This final vowel obligatorily occurs in a wide range of constructions, including on deverbal attributive adjectives, on speech and thought reporting verbs in reported speech constructions, in the intensity construction with partial reduplication (see §4.6.2). Sometimes it occurs without a clear function (Lesage 2020: 246–251).

- (13) *ń rǎ ʔút ú rǎ hn̩.*
ń rǎ^L jùtí\H ú rǎ hn̩
 1SG.NEG.FUT NEG.FUT give\NEG.FUT 3SG NEG.FUT NEG
 ‘I will not give it to him/her.’ (2023-01-23, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (14) *rǎ ʔábrí rǎ hn̩.*
rǎ^L kàbrí\H rǎ hn̩
 NEG.FUT break\NEG.FUT NEG.FUT NEG
 ‘(Whatever you put in this bag,) (it) will not break.’ (session_290, David Mark, elicitation)

2.1.3 Non-future tense constructions

Affirmative declarative clauses in Kam specify future tense, perfective aspect or imperfective aspect. Under negation, however, aspectual distinctions are neutralized: only the future-non-future distinction remains. There are two negative non-future constructions, differentiated by the tone on the verb. One construction marks negative non-future clauses with an expressed object, the other construction marks negative non-future clauses without an expressed object. This distinction is not apparent in affirmative non-future constructions. I present the two affirmative non-future constructions first, and then describe the two negative non-future constructions.

Perfective aspect is encoded by the schema in (15), where *ń* and *á* are the 1SG and 2SG pronouns. *à* is an optional post-verbal perfective marker (16). It is not always present, especially when there is adverbial modification (17) and sometimes in multi-verb constructions (where its tone may still be present on or after the first verb, blocking H tone spread (18)).⁶ It does not occur in imperfective aspect constructions and in future tense constructions.

- (15) Perfective aspect construction
ń, á or NP^{Subject} + V\H + NP^{Object} (+ *à*)
- (16) *ń fá kúmé à.*
ń fà\H kúmé à
 1SG.SBJ.PFV raise\PFV chicken PFV
 ‘I raised chickens.’ (session_365, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

⁶An alternative explanation for the floating ^L tone after *pǎ* in (18) is that *pǎ* does not carry aspect marking but simply carries a H tone that spreads from the preceding syllable (*wú*), which delinks the lexical L tone of *pǎ* which then acts as a floating ^L tone. Lesage (2020: 309) follows this analysis. This issue requires further work.

- (17) *ú ngmgbáb ú ká b̀̀n.*
ú ngmgbàb\H ú ká à̀̀n
 3SG shoot\PFV 3SG INS arrow
 ‘He shot him with an arrow.’ (session_048, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)
- (18) *àwú ṕ́ yī lū bì.*
àwú p̀̀\H à? yī lù à̀̀bì
 3SG come\PFV PFV? arrive lie down
 ‘He came and lay down.’ (session_181, Babangida Audu, narrative)

Imperfective aspect is expressed by L tone 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns and the pre-verbal marker *r̀̀*. There is no replacive tone on verbs, see (19–21).

- (19) Imperfective aspect construction
 $\hat{N}, \grave{a} \text{ or } NP^{\text{Subject}} + r̀̀ + V + NP^{\text{Object}}$
- (20) *à r̀̀ b́́n ántḗ.*
 2SG.SBJ.IPFV IPFV say truth
 ‘You are telling the truth.’ (session_159, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)
- (21) *̀̀ r̀̀ b́́nī nyé́.*
 1SG.SBJ.IPFV IPFV cross go
 ‘I am crossing (the road).’ (session_311, Danjuma Bello, elicitation)

The distinction between perfective and imperfective aspect is neutralized under negation. Independent from this, there are two negative non-future constructions. One construction negates clauses with an expressed object (26–28), the other negates clauses without an expressed object (22–25). Both constructions have L tone 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns (as opposed to H tone in affirmative perfective constructions) and the clause-final negator *h̀̀n*. There is also an optional pre-verbal negative marker *m̀̀g* (see below). Only the tone on the verb is different: in the object-less construction, there is no grammatical tone and the verb is left with its lexical tone (22). In the construction with an object, the verb is marked with a replacive H tone (26). Neither construction can carry the preverbal affirmative imperfective marker *r̀̀* or the postverbal affirmative perfective marker *à*.

- (22) Negative non-future construction without object: no replacive H tone on verbs
 $\hat{N}, \grave{a} \text{ or } NP^{\text{Subject}} (+ m̀̀g) + V + h̀̀n$

- (23) *ɲg* *gòm* *hɲ*.
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT pay NEG
 ‘I did not pay.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (24) *à* *pà* *hɲ*.
 2SG.sbj.NEG.NFUT come NEG
 ‘You did not come.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (25) *ì* *dóg* *hɲ*.
 1PL see NEG
 ‘We did not see (it).’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (26) Negative non-future construction with object: replacive H tone on verbs
Ñ, *à* or NP^{Subject} (+ *màg*) + V\H + NP^{Object} + *hɲ*
- (27) *ɲg* *góm* *ú* *hɲ*.
Ñ *gòm\H* *ú* *hɲ*
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT pay\NEG.NFUT 3SG NEG
 ‘I did not pay him.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)
- (28) *nyò gbéb* *ú* *hɲ*.
nyò gbèb\H *ú* *hɲ*
 2PL beat\NEG.NFUT 3SG NEG
 ‘You people did not beat him.’ (session_364, David Mamuda, elicitation)

Negative non-future constructions may feature an optional pre-verbal negator *màg*, as in (29–32).⁷ It does not change the semantics of a proposition when inserted or left out. One could hypothesize that it serves an important function in those clauses where the only obligatory negation marking is the clause-final marker *hɲ*. Some (but not all) of my consultants said that *màg* is never obligatory but that it is always preferable, yet in elicited clauses it only occasionally occurs. Its frequency in natural discourse remains to be assessed. I observed *màg* mostly in perfective contexts: there is only one example in my data where it occurs with an imperfective reading (32). There is no evidence that *màg* sets apart perfective from imperfective constructions.

⁷An alternative pronunciation, *má*, elides the final velar. This pronunciation is homophonous with the Hausa word *mà* ‘also, too’, which is also often found in Kam discourse (e.g. (68)). When my consultants were confronted with this pronunciation in a clause in isolation, they often could not tell for certain which *mà* was intended when not presented with the English translation.

- (29) *m̃* (màg) *ním* àfàm nág *hñ*.
 Ñ (màg) nìm\H àfàm nág *hñ*
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT (NEG.NFUT) eat\NEG.NFUT meat cow NEG
 ‘I did not eat cow meat.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (30) *Gàmbó (màg)* *kím* *ńfàm ú* *hñ*.
 Gàmbó (màg) kìm\H m̀fàm ú-^L *hñ*
 Gambo (NEG.NFUT) chew\NEG.NFUT meat 3SG-POSS NEG
 ‘Gambo did not eat his meat.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (31) *àwú (màg)* (‘)pó *līlē* *hñ*.
 àwú (màg) pò\H àlīlē *hñ*
 3SG (NEG.NFUT) come\NEG.NFUT yesterday NEG
 ‘He did not come yesterday.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (32) *(màg)* *sín* *á* *hñ* *yí?*
 (màg) sìn\H á *hñ* *yí?*
 NEG.NFUT do\NEG.NFUT 2SG.OBJ NEG Q
 ‘Isn’t it doing (it for) you?’ (i.e. ‘Aren’t you satisfied?’) (session_271, Anonymous, conversation)

2.1.4 Summary

Table 1 summarizes the tense, aspect, and negation values that are obligatorily expressed in Kam clauses, referring to relevant examples in the preceding text.

Table 1: Tense, aspect, and negation values in declarative clauses

Polarity value	With or without object	Future	Non-future	
			Perfective	Imperfective
Positive polarity	With object	(9)	(16), (18)	(20), (21)
	Without object	(11)		
Negative polarity	With object	(13), (14)		(29)
	Without object			(25)

Table 1 also highlights some paradigmatic asymmetries (cf. Miestamo 2005): aspectual distinctions (perfective vs. imperfective aspect) are lost under negation, as well as the distinction between an object-having and an object-less future. One grammatical distinction is relevant in negative constructions but is neutralized in affirmative constructions: the distinction between object-having vs. object-less non-future clauses.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Kam imperatives are expressed by the bare stem of the verb without added markers or morphology: *lù* ‘sleep!’, *jērī* ‘look!’. Negative imperatives are formed by a discontinuous negation construction involving a pre-verbal marker *ká* and a clause-final marker *gà*. This construction is used for 2SG addressees and 2PL addressees alike. When the 2PL pronoun *nyò* occurs, it precedes the preverbal marker *ká*, as in examples (33–35).

- (33) *ká lú gá!*
 NEG.IMP sleep NEG.IMP
 ‘Don’t sleep!’ (session_137, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (34) *ká jērī núng gá!*
 NEG.IMP look bird NEG.IMP
 ‘Don’t look at the bird!’ (session_137, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (35) *nyò ká nyéb ‘nggwóg wàn nè gá!*
 2PL NEG.IMP go house chief EMPH NEG.IMP
 ‘Don’t go to the house of the chief!’ (to more than one person)
 (Tope_Bitrus_06, Garba Abubakar Bako, elicitation)

Negative polar questions can be used to ask rhetorical questions or to ask for confirmation of a suspicion. There are two kinds of polar questions in Kam: those with the clause-final interrogative marker *yí* (36) and those that are marked by a clause-final H tone (37). The question marker *yí* is placed after the negative clause that is questioned.

- (36) *lém nyó hn yí?*
 be.good:NEG.NFUT 2PL NEG Q
 ‘(They are helping, and you are still complaining.) Isn’t it good for you people?’ (session_271, Anonymous, conversation)

A question marked by a clause-final H tone causes the L tone of the clause-final negator *hn* to be realized as H, as in (37).

- (37) *àkpó ‘ngwún, àkpó ‘ngwún á hn?*
àkpó òngwún àkpó òngwún á hn\H
 twenty five twenty five PRST NEG\Q
 ‘One hundred, isn’t it one hundred?’ (session_034, Isa Sarkin Dawa, conversation)

Negative content questions of the type ‘who/what/... did not do X’ are expressed by relative clauses of the type ‘who/what/where/how is it that did not do X?’ (see §2.4). Grammatically, there is no difference between a negative content question, where the negation targets the propositional content of the clause as a whole, and a content question containing a negated relative clause, where the negation targets only the relative clause ((38), cf. §4.6.2).

- (38) *ànyí mínā màg kím búwú hñ à?*
 person which:REL NEG.NFUT chew:NEG.NFUT one:3SG:POSS NEG REL
 ‘Who did not eat their piece?’ or ‘Who is the person that did not eat their piece?’ session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

2.3 Negation in stative predications

2.3.1 Negation of equation and proper inclusion

Affirmative nominal predication is expressed by simple juxtaposition of the subject noun phrase and the predicate noun phrase. The predicate noun phrase is marked by a clause-final presentative marker *á*. There are no tense and aspect distinctions in equation and proper inclusion constructions.

Nominal predication is negated by the regular clause-final verbal negator *hñ* (39–41). Other than this, there is no difference between affirmative nominal predication constructions and negative nominal predication constructions. The other negative markers available in verbal clauses cannot occur in the nominal predication construction: there is no verb, there are no grammatical tense or aspect distinctions, and the 1SG and 2SG pronouns in nominal predication constructions are independent pronouns (*nyim* ‘1SG.IDP’, *nyà* ‘2SG.IDP’), which do not mark different tense, aspect and negation values.

- (39) Negative nominal predication construction
 NP^{VERBLESS.SUBJECT} + NP^{COMPLEMENT} + *á* + *hñ*
- (40) *Jón, àwú málám á hñ, àwú nyí nyí ‘ibārī á.*
 John 3SG teacher PRST NEG 3SG person thing farm:ADJZ PRST
 ‘John, he is not a teacher, he is a farmer.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (41) *ànyàgbàn à mē m ‘á hñ. àngwán m ‘á.*
 woman PROX mother 1SG:POSS PRST NEG in.law 1SG:POSS PRST
 ‘This woman is not my mother. She’s my (mother-)in-law.’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

2.3.2 Existential, locative and possessive negation

The copula *dá* ‘to be, to exist’ expresses existence and location. In existential clauses (but not usually in locational clauses), *dá* is usually followed by the emphatic marker *bhá*, which elsewhere also functions as a presentative marker. There are no tense and aspect distinctions in copula constructions (see 42–43).

- (42) *nyìsīrī dá bhá*
 money **be** EMPH
 ‘There is money.’

- (43) *ànggwóg á ‘dá léb àshé*
 house PROX **be** inside bush
 ‘The house is in the bush.’ (Tope_Bitrus_06, Garba Abubakar Bako, elicitation)

Speakers use the negative existential *sirí* combined with the clause-final marker *ríg* to say that something does *not* exist or that something is *not* in a specific place. *ríg* has an emphatic function in affirmative clauses (e.g. (66)). I did not find the presentative marker *bē* in negative existential clauses (see 44–45).

- (44) *ànggwóg sirí léb áshé rīg.*
 house **be.NEG** inside bush **NEG**
 ‘The house is not in the bush.’ (2024-11-03-Rahab, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

- (45) *nyì sirí rīg.*
 thing **be.NEG NEG**
 ‘There is nothing.’ (session_253, Anonymous, narrative)

There are two predicative possession constructions in Kam. The first construction is similar to locational predication constructions in Kam, but instead of a locational prepositional phrase (*léb áshé* ‘in the bush’ in (44)), the possessive construction has a comitative prepositional phrase (*rà wó* ‘with a dog’ in (46)).

- (46) *ń dá rá ‘wó*
 1SG.SBJ **be** COM dog
 ‘I have a dog.’ (session_071, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)

This construction is negated by the same negative copula *sirí* and the clause final negator *ríg*, as in locative predications. Usually, there is no comitative marker in the negative construction (47). Occasionally, it still occurs, as in (48).

- (47) *àwú sírí 'nggwóg ríɡ.*
 3SG be.NEG house NEG
 'He does not have a house.' (session_208, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (48) *Áúdú sírí rí cì càr ríɡ.*
 Audu be.NEG COM child three NEG
 'Audu doesn't have three children.' (session_287, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Predicative possession can also be expressed by the regular verb *kàr* 'to keep, to have'. This construction is negated by standard negation, including negative subject pronouns, pre-verbal negators, replacive tone, post-verbal negators and the clause-final negator *hñ* (see §2.1 and (69)).

The expression of predicative possession and its negation in Kam completely aligns with cross-linguistic patterns that are already very well studied in the typological literature, e.g. Stassen (2009); Heine (1997); Kuteva et al. (2019), and Veselinova (2013).

2.3.3 Negation of adjectival predication (attribution)

Affirmative predicative adjectives in Kam are derived from verbs by means of partial reduplication ((49), see also Lesage 2020: 264–265).

- (49) *kág* 'to crunch' → *kíkkág* 'to be crunched'
būm 'to spoil' → *būmbūm* 'to be spoiled'
sòngí 'to make tasty' → *sùnsó'ngí* 'to be tasty (of food)'

To mark tense or aspect distinctions or to negate adjectival predication constructions, speakers use the simplex verb instead of the reduplicated form (50–51). Standard negation constructions are used (see §2.1). One could say that the stative/dynamic distinction is lost under negation.

- (50) *míngkángá dág hñ.*
 water be.cold NEG
 'The water is not cold.' (session_163, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)
- (51) *àtábé bá lēm k-ánīmī hñ*
 fish PROX be.good ADVZ-eat:ADJZ NEG
 'This fish is not good to eat.' (lit: 'This fish is not good as food.')
 (session_169, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

If a reduplicated form of the adjective is used in combination with *hn̄*, the result is a completely different construction with an emphatically positive meaning rather than a negative meaning. I discuss this construction in §4.6.2 below.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Relative clauses in Kam follow the noun and involve two relativizers: the marker *ā*, which follows the noun and precedes the relative clause, and the marker *à* which follows the relative clause. Relative clauses are negated like main clauses, by the clause-final negator *hn̄* and any other negators enclosed by the two relativizers. The relative clause in (52) involves standard negation in a non-future tense construction (cf. §2.1.3). The relative clause in (53) involves negation of property assignment (cf. §2.3.3).

- (52) *ànyí mínā màg kím búwú hn̄ à?*
 person which:REL NEG.NFUT chew:NEG.NFUT one:3SG:POSS NEG REL
 ‘(Who is) the person that did not eat their piece?’ (session_285, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

- (53) *àcì gbéb wó yág ‘ká kwí ā nād hn̄ à.*
 child beat:PFV dog carry INS stick REL be.thick NEG REL
 ‘The child beat the dog with a thin stick (a stick that is not thick).’
 (session_342, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)

Subordinate clauses, including relative clauses, adverbial clauses, and complement clauses, are negated like main clauses. If a subordinate clause involves the standard clause-final negator *hn̄*, it occurs at the end of the complete sentence. The scope of negation is apparent from non-final negators and other markers when these are present (viz. subject pronouns, pre-verbal markers, post-object markers and replacive tone on the verb). §4.1 and §4.5 contain more discussion and examples of negation in complex sentences involving subordinate clauses.

Conditional clauses in Kam are expressed by a clause-final conditional marker *kā*. When a negated clause is expressed as a condition (54–55), *kā* simply follows the whole clause, including the negator *hn̄* in verbal clauses, and the emphatic marker *rīg* in existential or locational clauses (56).

- (54) *nyí nánī hn̄ kā...*
 people be.many NEG COND
 ‘If people aren’t many, (then what do they say)?’ (session_034, Samuel U. Adams, conversation)

- (55) *nyò dóg nyí 'inīmī hñ kǎ...*
 2PL see:NEG.NFUT thing eat:ADJZ NEG COND
 'If you people do not see food ... (you people will not go to school).'
 (session_271, Anonymous, conversation)
- (56) *àkpò sirí ríḡ kǎ...*
 food be.NEG NEG COND
 'If there is no food ... (you people will not go).' (session_292, David Mark, elicitation)

The negative conditional coordinator *sikā* has an apprehensive reading similar to English 'lest' in some of its occurrences. It contrasts with the coordinator *ànyá'lib* that simply translates as polarity-neutral 'because'. In (57), *sikā* may simply be translated as 'if not': the king would be caught if he were not hidden. In (58) only an apprehensive 'lest' reading is possible.

- (57) *ì wóg àwàn à, sikā í pǎ 'cúḡ áwàn...*
 1PL hide\FUT king REL lest 3PL come\FUT catch king
 '(that) we will hide the king, lest they will come and catch (our) king.'
 (session_271, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)
- (58) *í tín gǎpsí, sikā àyí sámri kòm sámri.*
 LOG move separate, lest 3PL spoil:FUT place spoil
 '(The Kam say that) they moved away, lest they (the Jukun) will ruin the place.' (session_271, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)

In (58), there is no logical connection between the Kam leaving and the Jukun ruining the place. It is assumed that the Jukun will ruin the place in any case, and the Kam want to leave to avoid this ruin.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

The only inherently negative lexical verb in Kam is the negative existential copula *sirí* 'not to be', which is not marked for tense or aspect. It is always accompanied by the negative existential marker *ríḡ* (see §2.3.2). The marker *ríḡ* has a negative existential meaning in existential and locational predication, but it has an emphatically affirmative meaning in other contexts (e.g. (66)). This polysemy requires more discussion in further research.

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

It is not within the scope of this chapter to provide a complete treatment of phasal polarity constructions in Kam.⁸ Two values, however, are relevant to negation in Kam and are expressed differently to other negation constructions. These values are *nondum* ('not yet', cf. Veselinova & Devos 2021) and the discontinuative ('no longer') (van der Auwera 1998), which are viewed as negative tenses in some languages (Veselinova 2017). Van der Auwera (1998) calls *nondum* constructions *negative continuative*, but because this term is very similar to *discontinuative* ('no longer') and is also used with other functions elsewhere, I follow Veselinova & Devos' (2021) terminology.

2.6.1 Clause-final *nondum* marker: *jèn* 'not yet'

jèn, the clause-final *nondum* marker, is semantically related to such adverbs as *tàncòng* 'still' and *kpàn* 'always, usually'. Such adverbs can also occur in other positions and can occur as minimal clauses on their own. *jèn* only occurs clause-finally, however, and can be considered a grammatical marker rather than an adverb.

Unlike standard negation clauses, *nondum* clauses can combine with the different affirmative aspect and future constructions without constructional asymmetries. (59) is an imperfective *nondum* clause. Standard negation constructions do not distinguish perfective and imperfective aspect (§2.1).

- (59) *Ráháb rǎ ǵbání Gárinhāmzà jèn.*
Ráháb rǎ gbán-i Gárinhāmzà jèn
 Rahab IPFV arrive-FV Garin.Hamza NDUM
 'Rahab is not yet arriving in Garin Hamza.' (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

(60) is a future *nondum* construction. Standard negative future constructions would have a preverbal negative future marker *rǎ*⁴, which is absent in this case. Standard negative future verbs have a replacive H tone instead of the floating ^L tone in (60) that is characteristic of affirmative future tense constructions.

⁸The continuative ('still') is expressed by different adverbs: *tàncòng* 'still, always', *kpòng* 'always, usually', or *kpàn* 'always, usually'. Inchoative constructions ('already') may be left unmarked or expressed by a coordinated clause with *cànrí* 'to finish' or *lògrí* 'to end'. See Lesage (2020: 334–337).

- (60) *Ráháb gbán-i Gárinhāmzà pʰókáng jén.*
Ráháb gbánL-i Gárinhāmzà pʰókáng jèn
 Rahab arrive\FUT-FV Garin.Hamza tomorrow NDUM
 ‘Rahab will not yet arrive in Garin Hamza tomorrow.’ (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

While imperfective and future nondum clauses do not follow the standard negation pattern, perfective nondum clauses do. Perfective nondum clauses contain negative subject pronouns (*m̃* ‘1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT’ in (61)) and the optional preverbal negator *màg* (in both (61) and (62)). In these cases, *jèn* may be considered as a sub-type of clause-final negator, since it occupies the slot usually taken by the negator *hñ*.

- (61) *m̃ màg dóg ú dúd’dógí jén.*
m̃ màg dóg\H ú dóg~dóg-i jèn
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT NEG:NFUT see\NEG.NFUT 3SG EXP~see-EXP NDUM
 ‘I have never seen him until now.’ (Literally: ‘I have never seen him yet.’)
 (session_271, Danjuma Bello, conversation)
- (62) *àyí mág ‘dóg òtèkù jèn.*
àyí màg dóg\H òtèkù jèn
 3PL NEG.NFUT see\NEG.NFUT toad NDUM
 ‘They haven’t seen the toad yet.’ (session_181, Babangida Audu, narrative)

2.6.2 Discontinuative: *nàng hñ/nàng ríg* ‘no longer’

A discontinued action is expressed by regular negation constructions with a marker *nàng* preceding the clause-final negator *hñ* (63–64). *nàng* is only found elsewhere as part of the adverb *nàngkò* ‘first’, and nowhere else. It is not clear what the function of *-kò* is in this adverb and the exact function and full distributional properties of *nàng* are matter for further research. It is not clear whether *nàng* should be considered a fully grammaticalized discontinuative marker or a lexical item.

- (63) *Mérí ním nyí nàng hñ.*
 Mary eat:NEG.NFUT thing DISCNT NEG
 ‘Mary is no longer eating.’ (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)
- (64) *Déyvíd cúg ónyág nàng hñ.*
 David do:NEG.NFUT work DISCNT NEG
 ‘David is no longer working.’ (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

nàng also occurs in negative existential and locational negation constructions, preceding the clause-final negator *ríg* ((65), cf. §2.3.2).

- (65) *Bàbànggídá sírì Jàlìngò nàng rìg.*
 Babangida be.NEG Jalingo DISCNT NEG
 ‘Babangida is no longer in Jalingo.’ (session_288, Solomon Ahmadu, elicitation)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Kam has two synonymous positive response words that can be used to respond positively to a question: *m* and *ooy*.⁹ Both are toneless but usually occur with a relatively high pitch. Both words are considered ‘proper Kam’ and not borrowed by speakers though *m* also occurs in other languages in the area. *ooy* seems to be more exclusive to Kam. Added to a proper name, *ooy* also functions as a vocative marker. Elsewhere it can be used as a call to attract attention or as a greeting from a distance. To respond negatively to a question, a reduplicated form of either positive response words is used, with a glottal stop separating the copy from the reduplicated segment: *mʔm* or *oʔo*. Note that *oʔo* does not have the final glide of its affirmative counterpart. The negative response words are also toneless and are found with all possible melodies.

Kam has a truth system for negative and positive replies: a positive reply signals agreement with the polarity of the question; a negative reply signals disagreement with the polarity of the question (cf. Holmberg 2015; Moser 2018). Response words do not indicate agreement or disagreement with the proposition in the question. In (66), a positive reply to the question “They cannot speak English?” acts as confirmation that “they” indeed do not speak English (A1). A negative reply expresses that, contrary to the negative polarity value of the question, “they” *do* speak English (A2).

- (66) Q: *àyí bén túráncì màsí hń ‘yí?*
 3SG speak:NEG.NFUT English know NEG Q?
 ‘They cannot speak English?’
 A1: *ń, àyí bén màsí hń.*
 yes 3SG speak know NEG
 ‘Indeed, they cannot speak English.’

⁹For this part of the chapter, I collected data with the questionnaire from Moser (2018).

- A2: *mʔm, àyí bén māsí rīg.*
no 3SG speak:PFV know EMPH
 ‘No, they *can* speak (it).’ (session_304, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

A negative response to a negative question often includes the emphatic marker *rīg* to emphasize the reversed positive polarity value of the reply, as in (66, A2).

Another way of responding positively or negatively to a question is to simply repeat the proposition with the correct polarity value, as in (67). Reply words are not obligatory.

- (67) Q: *kòm sísób nà yí?*
 place PRED:be.hot today Q
 ‘Is it hot today?’
 A1: *(mʔm,) kòm sób hñ.*
(no,) place be.hot NEG
 ‘(No,) it is not hot today.’ (session_304, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

The expression *màsīrī* is an emphatic negative reply roughly equivalent to English *never*. It indicates that a time someone just asked about does not exist (68–69). While it is not synchronically possible to segment the expression into smaller parts, it may derive from a combination of the optional negative marker *màg* used in non-future constructions and the adverb *sīrī* ‘completely’, or the existential negator *sīrē* (§2.3.2).

- (68) Q: *á zúz/zúbí dúd/dógí kòm gómnátí yí?*
 2SG.SBJ.FUT FUT:steal EXP place government Q
 ‘Would you ever steal from the government?’
 A: *màsīrī, mà àyí rá ‘cúg m rá hñ kã.*
never, also 3SG NEG.FUT catch:NEG.FUT 1SG.OBJ NEG.FUT NEG if
 ‘Never, (not) even if they would not catch me.’ (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (69) Q: *ká bórí mīnā, nyí Sérkíndáwá rà nìmsí nág á ‘yí?*
 TEMP time which:REL people Sarkin.Dawa IPFV feed cow REL Q
 ‘At what time do the people of Sarkin Dawa feed their cows?’
 (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

A: *màsīrī*, *nyí* *Sérkíndáwá* *màg* *kár* *nág hñ*.
never people Sarkin.Dawa NEG.NFUT have:NEG.NFUT cow NEG
 ‘Never, the people of Sarkin Dawa don’t have cows.’ (session_286,
 Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Kam speakers use other response words, but these are not considered proper Kam by speakers. Speakers identify the following responses as Hausa, although they are probably much more widespread than Hausa:

- $\epsilon\epsilon$ (no associated tone); positive response word
- $aʔa$ (no associated tone); negative response word
- $\epsilon\downarrow$ (voiceless ingressive ϵ ; can also be other sounds, sometimes $m\downarrow$, a voiceless ingressive bilabial nasal; both eyebrows are raised while inhaling, and the head is tilted lightly backwards for a moment); positive response word
- χ (back-released uvular click with closed lips); positive response word (cf. Lionnet 2020)
- $\chi\chi$ (two back-released uvular clicks with closed lips); negative response word

3.2 Negative indefinites

Negative indefinites and negative quantifiers do not exist as separate categories in the language. To express the corresponding meanings, variations of clausal negation constructions are used.

Negative location is encoded by clausal negation and an indefinite noun phrase in the negated clause (70).

(70) *m* *màg* *nyéb* *kóm mí* *Yùròb hñ*.
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT NEG.NFUT go:NEG.NFUT **place some** Europe NEG
 ‘I have not been to a\some place in Europe.’, ‘I have been nowhere in Europe.’ or ‘I have not been anywhere in Europe.’ (session_286,
 Babangida Audu, elicitation)

Negative time, is expressed by standard negation constructions (71). It can also be expressed by the negative response word *màsīrī* ‘never’ but then it forms an utterance of its own and does not act as an adverbial modifier (§3.1).

- (71) *kùrùkí* ⁴*vég* *hñ*.
 God die NEG
 ‘God does not die.’ or ‘God never dies.’ (whatsapp_01, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

3.3 Negative derivation

I did not find any instances of negative derivation. Equivalent meanings are rendered by negators on the clause level. As exemplified in (53), the equivalent of English negative adjectives (e.g. ‘un-happy’ or ‘un-true’) is expressed by a relative clause using the regular negator *hñ* (‘a story that is not true’).

Privative constructions, are expressed by clausal negation constructions, negating a clause with a comitative prepositional phrase (72).

- (72) *à* *cúg* *á*⁴*nyág rá* *nyìm* *hñ*.
 2SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT do:NEG.NFUT work COM 1SG.IDP NEG
 ‘You did not work with me.’ or ‘You worked without me.’ (session_354, Rahab Garba Precious, elicitation)

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

The scope of negation over noun phrases can be indicated by cleft constructions. Cleft constructions indicate focus in Kam, including contrastive focus (Lesage 2020: 375–378). In (73), the patient (‘fish’) is in focus, which in a pragmatically unmarked clause would follow the verb. The cleft construction moves the patient into a focus position at the beginning of the utterance. In (74), the agent role (‘the man’) is brought into focus with a cleft construction.

- (73) *àtábí á* ⁴*nyí* ⁴*ván á* *cùg* *hñ*, *núng á*.
 fish REL person male PROX catch NEG bird PRST
 ‘It is not a fish that the man caught, it is a bird.’ (lit. ‘It is a fish that the man did not catch, it is a bird.’ (2023-01-31, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (74) *ànyí* ⁴*ván á* ⁴*míná* *cúg* *àtábí hñ*, *ànyà gbàn á*, *ú* *cúg*
 person male REL like.this catch fish NEG person female PRST 3SG catch
*á*⁴*tábí*.
 fish
 ‘It is not the man who caught the fish, it is the woman, she caught the fish.’ (2023-01-31, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

In my data and elicitation attempts, I found no way to restrict the scope of negation to a verb or to tense or aspect markers in a simple clause. I also did not detect a differences in prosodic prominence or intonation that could mark the scope of negation.

In complex sentences involving subordinate clauses, the main clause and dependent clause can be negated separately, or both clauses can be negated simultaneously. In all cases, the standard negator *hñ* is placed just once at the end of the complete sentence. As such, it does not disambiguate which of the clauses is negated. Non-clause-final markers and constructional asymmetries for different tense-aspect combinations may, then, indicate the scope of negation (cf. §2.1). In (75), for example, the matrix clause ('I don't know.') is negative and the subordinated clause ('He will come.') is affirmative. That the matrix clause is negated is apparent from the negative subject pronoun (*m̃* '1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT'). That the dependent clause is affirmative is apparent from the future construction with the reduplicated verb *pá'pári*, which only marks future tense in affirmative clauses.

- (75) *m̃* *mási kô* *ú* *pá'pári* *hñ*.
 1SG.SBJ.NEG.NFUT know COMP 3SG FUT~come NEG.
 'I don't know if he will come.' (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

§2.1.3 describes the optional preverbal non-future negator *màg*. In complex constructions, *màg* may acquire a disambiguating function. Since both affirmative perfective and negative non-future verb forms are marked by a replacive H tone, and the clause-final negator *hñ* does not indicate whether just one or both clauses are negative, (76) is in principle ambiguous between having an affirmative matrix clause ('He said that he will not come.') or a negative matrix clause ('He did not say that he will not come.').

- (76) *àwú béní* *íyí* *'rǎ* *'pǎ* *rǎ* *hñ*.
 àwú bén\H-i *íyí^L-í^L* *rǎ^L* *pǎ^H* *rǎ* *hñ*
 3SG say\NEG.NFUT-QUOT QUOT-LOG NEG.FUT come\NEG.NFUT NEG.FUT NEG
 say\PFV-QUOT
 'He did not say that he will not come.' or 'He said that he will not come.'
 (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

To resolve this ambiguity, the marker *màg* can be used to mark that the matrix clause is negative. (77) shows *màg* in a disambiguating position. In (77), where *màg* is used, the main clause is negated. In (78), where *màg* is absent, the main clause is not negated. Note also that the clause-final perfective marker *à* in (78) indicates that the subordinated clause is affirmative, since *à* does not occur under

negation (cf. §2.1.3). The absence of *à* in the subordinate clause in (77) signals that it is negative.

- (77) *àwú mág lèg íyí jénéréytòr sámr á yī hñ.*
 3SG NEG.NFUT hear QUOT generator spoil:PFV PFV stand NEG
 ‘He did not hear that the generator had exploded.’ (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

- (78) *ń dóg jénéréytòr sámrí yí hñ.*
 1SG.SBJ.PFV see:PFV generator spoil:NEG.NFUT stand NEG
 ‘I saw that the generator had not exploded.’ (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

When the scope of negation is restricted to a relative clause, the negator is enclosed in the relative clause and is followed by the clause-final relativizer *à* (see §2.4).

4.2 Negative polarity

The discontinuative marker or adverb *nàng* (see §2.6.2) has an unclear meaning elsewhere in the language and can be considered a negative polarity item, since it is not a negator by itself but only occurs in negative contexts. Elsewhere, *nàng* only occurs as part of the adverb *nàngkò* ‘first’. More research is needed to understand whether it occurs anywhere else.

The conditional conjunction *sīkā* ‘if not/lest’ (§2.4) carries inherently negative meaning. The clauses it connects are not negated with standard negation, however. As such, it is not a typical negative polarity item, but could be considered related to negative polarity.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

Kam noun phrases do not behave differently under negation. Information structure has not yet been studied in detail, so it is possible that special constructions or restrictions will be discovered in the future.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Not all negative markers are fully obligatory in Kam. In negative future tense constructions, for example, there is an optional negative marker *rà* that comes right before the clause final negator *hñ* (see §2.1.2). In negative non-future tense

constructions, there is an optional pre-verbal negator *màg* (see §2.1.3), which can also be used to indicate the scope of negation in a complex clause (see §4.1). It is not clear whether these markers can also be used to reinforce negation or whether they have other information structural functions. Information structure and emphasis are not yet well understood in Kam (see Lesage 2020: 375–386). More research is needed to understand how negation may be reinforced.

§3.1 mentions the emphatic negative response word *màsīrī* ‘never’, which reinforces negative answers.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Negation in complex clauses is similar to negation in simple clauses. The clause-final negator *hñ* comes at the end of the complex sentence and the other markers of negation (negative pronouns, pre-verbal negators, replacive tone, post-verbal markers) mark negation in the constituent clauses. Examples (75) to (78) above illustrate how negation works in complex sentences.

The constituent clauses in a complex sentence may be ambiguous between an affirmative and a negative reading. This happens in perfective object-having clauses without 1SG or 2SG subject pronouns that do not have the optional preverbal negator *màg*. The replacive tone on the verb for both an affirmative perfective clause and a negative nonfuture clause is H, so it does not allow disambiguation. (79) is an elicited example and does not contain enough context to disambiguate between different readings for the main clause.

- (79) *àwú béní íyí ʔá ʔá rá hñ.*
 àwú bèn\H-i íyí^L-í^L rá^L pə\H rə hñ
 3SG say\NEG.NFUT-QUOT QUOT-LOG NEG.FUT come\NEG.FUT NEG.FUT NEG
 say\PFV-QUOT

‘He did not say that he will not come.’ or ‘He said that he will not come.’
 (session_286, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

The current data does not contain examples of coordinated clauses in which only the first clause is negative or in which both clauses are negative. Coordination typically involves parataxis and in some cases the coordinators *àmā* ‘and/ but’ and *kō* ‘or’, both borrowed from Hausa. In all cases, the constituent clauses behave identical to other clauses in Kam. There do not appear to be any special negative coordinators or coordination-specific negation constructions.

Sometimes, the syntactic scope of negation is narrower than its semantic reach. What happens in Kam is related to the phenomenon that has been called Negative

Transport(ation) or Neg-raising: negation on one level of a complex clause is ‘transported’ or ‘raised’ to another level of the clause (Horn 2001: 312–313). In (80), the negation within the relative clause semantically targets the whole sentence rather than just the relative clause. The intended meaning is ‘We do not want bad things to happen.’, where the negation semantically covers the verb ‘want’. The literal interpretation of the sentence, however, is that ‘We want what is not bad.’

- (80) *ì wúrá 'sámrí hò à.*
 1PL want:PFV:REL bad NEG REL
 ‘We don’t want something bad (‘that which is bad’).’ (lit. ‘We want what is not bad.’) (session_051, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)

Examples (81), (82), (83) like (79) above, illustrate how negators in Kam are often not syntactically bound to one level of a complex clause. In isolation, (81), (82), (83) would be ambiguous. It is not clear which of the clauses is negated or whether they are both negated. However, the context provides enough information to decide that the reading is not ‘we **don’t** want that blood does **not** drip on the ground’. In principle, the clause remains ambiguous between ‘we **don’t** want that blood drips on the ground’ and ‘we want that blood does **not** drip on the ground’.

- (81) *ì wúrí ká bá wò nyár ábí à rə hò.*
ì wūrī\H ká bá wò nyàr\H àbí à rə hò
 1PL want\NEG.NFUT TEMP REL blood drip\PFV ground REL EMPH NEG
 lit. ‘We don’t want that blood drips down.’

- (82) *ì wúrí ká bá wò nyár ábí à rə hò.*
ì wūrī\H ká bá wò nyàr\H àbí à rə hò
 1PL want\PFV TEMP REL blood drip\NEG.NFUT ground REL EMPH NEG
 lit. ‘We want that blood does not drip down.’

- (83) *ì wúrí ká bá wò nyár ábí à rə*
ì wūrī\H ká bá wò nyàr\H àbí à rə
 1PL want\NEG.NFUT TEMP REL blood drip\NEG.NFUT ground REL EMPH
hò.
hò
 NEG
 lit. ‘We want that blood does not drip down.’

(free translation for (81), (82), (83): ‘We don’t want there to be bloodshed.’; in isolation this could also mean ‘We don’t want there not to be bloodshed.’) (session_191, Isa Sarkin Dawa, narrative)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Metalinguistic negation

Metalinguistic negation follows the normal rules of negation in the language. No different behavior has been observed. (84) features the regular negative possession construction, for example (§2.3.2)

- (84) *Áúdú sìrí rǎ cì càr rǐg. àwú dá rǎ cì ònár.*
 Audu be.NEG COM child three NEG 3SG be COM child four
 ‘Audu doesn’t have three children. He has four children.’ (session_287, Babangida Audu, elicitation)

4.6.2 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

There is an *intensity construction* in Kam that involves the standard negator *hñ* but is emphatically affirmative instead of negative. It features a partially reduplicated form of the verb that is followed by the final vowel -i.¹⁰ The verb receives a replacive HM tone. I only found this construction in elicited data so far. Its functions are not well understood and require more consideration in a larger corpus of natural language use. The construction can be schematized as in (85). See examples (86–88).

- (85) Intensity constructions
 NP + ~V\HM-i + *hñ*
- (86) *ànggwóg á ‘tíntām-ī hñ.*
ànggwóg à tám~tám\HM-i hñ
 house PROX INTS~grow\INTS-FV NEG
 ‘The house is very big.’ (not ‘The house is not big’) (session_071, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)

¹⁰Such reduplicated forms of verbs also occur in affirmative (but not negative) future constructions without an object (see §2.1.2 above) and in the perfective forms of some verbs expressing bodily functions (e.g. *gúg’gúrí* ‘vomit’, *kpi’kpíri* ‘cough’). See Lesage (2020: 266–268).

- (87) ànyìvǎn á dùb hñ, àmā, àwú dúddūb-ī hñ.
 ànyìvǎn ā dùb hñ àmā àwú dùb~dùb\HM-i hñ
 man PROX be.tall NEG but 3SG INTS~be.tall\INTS-FV NEG
 ‘This man is not (just) tall, but he is very tall.’ (session_287, Babangida Audu, elicitation)
- (88) ànggwóg mō ā díddāg-ī hñ.
 ànggwóg á^Lmō à dág~dág\HM-i hñ.
 house good PROX INTS~cold\INTS-FV NEG
 ‘The good house is very cold.’ (not ‘The good house is not cold.’)
 (session_342, Isa Sarkin Dawa, elicitation)

At least two possible diachronic scenarios may explain the structure of this construction.

The negator *hñ* may have originally been an intensity marker that was used with other negators in the clause (for example, the optional pre-verbal negator *màg* discussed in §2.1.3). The marker *hñ* could then, over time, have acquired a negative meaning. The intensity construction may be a rare instance preserving an earlier non-negative meaning which may have been something like ‘really, truly, absolutely’. This scenario would be an example of the Jespersen Cycle, observed in many other languages, where intensifying markers evolve into negation markers over time (e.g. Jespersen 1917, Dahl 1979, van der Auwera 2009).

This construction could also derive from an ironic negative construction where a negative clause was used to express an emphatically affirmative proposition. This ironic negative construction could then have grammaticalized into an emphatic affirmative construction and lost its negative meaning altogether. See Shmelev (2016) on the conventionalization of irony and other pragmatic effects.¹¹

I did not encounter other instances of expletive negation. Complex sentences have sometimes been difficult to elicit, however. And relevant constructions may be fairly rare in the Kam corpus. Future research may uncover more data relevant to this topic.

¹¹See also the Lingtyp discussion on Ironic negative constructions in January 2020 at <http://listserv.linguistlist.org/pipermail/lingtyp/2020-January/007568.html>.

5 Summary

Tone plays a role in negative marking in declarative verbal negation constructions. Different tones on 1SG and 2SG subject pronouns (Table 2) as well as on lexical verbs (Table 3) signal different tense, aspect, and negation values.

Table 2: Negative and affirmative pronouns

Tense/aspect value		Positive polarity	Negative polarity
Non-future	Perfective	H (1sg: $\acute{N}$, 2sg: $\acute{a}$)	L (1sg: $\grave{N}$, 2sg: $\grave{a}$)
	Imperfective	L (1sg: $\grave{N}$, 2sg: $\grave{a}$)	
Future		H (1sg: $\acute{N}$, 2sg: $\acute{a}$)	

Table 3: Replacive tone on verbs

Tense/aspect value		Positive polarity	Negative polarity	
			with object	without object
Non-future	Perfective	H	H	lexical tone ($\emptyset$)
	Imperfective	Lexical tone ($\emptyset$)	H	lexical tone ($\emptyset$)
Future		Lexical tone + ^L	H	H

The eight segmental markers and one copula involved in negation in simple clauses in Kam are summarized in Table 4 according to the position they occupy in a clause. Optional markers are written between brackets.

Other relevant markers, not included in Table 4, are the negative conditional and apprehensive conjunction *sīkā* ‘lest’ (§2.4) and *m?m* and *o?o*, the negative response words (§3.1).

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Table 4: Negative markers in Kam

Slot	Clause-initial	Pre-verbal	Verb or copula	After OBJ and multi-verb constructions	Clause-final	After negator
non-future	Subject 1SG: <i>Ń</i> ; 2SG: <i>à</i>	(<i>màg</i>)	with OBJ: VB\H without OBJ: VB	-	<i>hñ</i>	
future	Subject 1SG: <i>Ń</i> ; 2SG: <i>à</i>	<i>rǎ^L</i>	VB\H	(<i>rǎ</i>)	<i>hñ</i>	<i>kā</i> (conditional) <i>yī</i> (question)
imperative	2PL: <i>nyò</i> or nothing	<i>kǎ</i>	VB	-	<i>gà</i>	
nondum	Either: (1) a negative non-future clause, or (2) an affirmative declarative clause				<i>jèn</i>	
existential	Subject	-	<i>sirí</i>	-	<i>ríg</i>	

Abbreviations

1	first person	IPFV	imperfective
2	second person	^L	floating low tone
3	third person	L	low tone
ADJZ	adjectivizer	LOG	logophoric pronoun
ADVZ	adverbializer	M	mid tone
COM	comitative	N	homorganic nasal
COMP	complementizer	NEG	negator
COND	conditional	NFUT	non-future
DISCNT	discontinuative	NDUM	nondum
EMPH	emphasis	NP	noun phrase
EXP	experiential	OBJ	object
FUT	future	PFV	perfective
M	mid tone	PL	plural
FV	final vowel	POSS	possessive
H	high tone	M	mid tone
IDP	independent pronoun	PRED	predicative
IMP	imperative	PROX	proximal
INS	instrumental	PRST	presentative
INTS	intense	Q	question marker

QUOT	quotative	STAMP	subject, tense, aspect,
REL	relativizer		mood, polarity
SBJ	subject	TEMP	temporal
SG	singular	V	verb

Special characters

↓	downstep
-	affix boundary
#	potential pause
()	optional
.	gloss boundary but no morpheme boundary
...	omitted text from example
:	composed of multiple morphemes but not segmented in this example
\	replacive tone in gloss
~	reduplication in gloss
∅	not marked

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Chapter 12

Negation in Northwest Gbaya

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In Northwest Gbaya there is a single dedicated negative marker *ná* which is reconstructed in Proto-Gbaya. It is placed after the verb, in the very last position of the verb phrase. For standard negation, negative verbal constructions are symmetric in realis mood, as the negator is simply added with no changes, but there is a paradigmatic asymmetry as perfective forms are blocked in the negative. The paradigm of the imperfective forms is narrowed to three forms. In the virtual mood, both perfective and imperfective forms carry the negator, but these paradigms are narrowed to the two neutral forms. Attributive verbal predication can be negated but this is not frequent. In the command mood, the construction is the same as in Realis mood, but there are two new forms dedicated to negative commands (vetitive and prohibitive). All non-verbal predications (identificational, locative, existential and presentative) add the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ when negated. This potential verb carries the negator which is placed clause-finally. Finally, there is a constituent negator to negate any element except a predicate.

Keywords: negation, verbal predication, non-verbal predication, Niger-Congo, Gbaya .

1 The language

Northwest Gbaya (ISO: gya, Glottocode: nort2775) is part of the main linguistic group Gbaya-Mandja-Ngbaka, an Ubangian language family (a branch of the Niger-Congo phylum, Adamawa Ubangi). It is spoken in the northwest of the Central African Republic (CAR) and in the central-eastern part of Cameroon. It is subdivided in six dialects: four in CAR, referred to as [bòdòè, bòkpàn, bònìnà, b̀̀g̀̀g̀̀], and usually collectivley named Gbaya-Kara, and two in Cameroon [b̀̀ỳ̀ỳ̀] and [ỳ̀ỳ̀ỳ̀ẁ̀è]. In 1996, there were 265,000 speakers: 200,000 in the western



part of CAR and 65,000 in the central-eastern part of Cameroon. This paper, which deals with the Gbáyá Bòdòè, a Northwest Gbaya dialect spoken in the Central African Republic, is based on a corpus of spontaneous speech collected in the field between 1970 and 2013. The statistics are drawn from my current 4.5-hour oral corpus.

Gbaya is the mother-tongue of all the inhabitants of the region under study. It is used in the home and for all interactions of daily life. Most of the men and women can speak Sango, the national and official language of CAR, but it is not used in everyday life. They can also speak some Fulfulde when meeting Mbororo people (nomadic cattle-herders, a subgroup of the Fulani ethnic group). Gbaya is mainly a spoken language, although there is a Bible translation in the Yaayuwee dialect (Glottocode yaay1238).

Gbaya verbs are always the expression of a process since there are no verbs of quality. Verbs have no lexical tones, so tones on the verb are grammatical elements. Depending on the aspect-mood (AM) constructions, the verb attests a bare form *VB* and two bound forms *VB_i* and *VB_a*, which will be simply glossed as *VB* in the word-for-word examples. The Gbaya verbal paradigm consists of 21 constructions whose semantic (or conceptual) domain is structured on two axes, mood and aspect (AM). Verbs do not indicate temporal reference. There are three moods (realis, virtual and command) and two aspects (perfective and imperfective). The AM constructions are complex forms including a tonal scheme. Most often they appear in pairs combining an imperfective form and a perfective form, depending on the chosen perspective. Furthermore, some AM constructions (in italics in Table 1) are linked forms that identify the clause they predicate as a subordinate clause without any subordinate conjunction.

In the glosses, the names of conjugated forms (AM constructions) are most often compound nouns, the mention of the aspect being systematically added for all those which have an aspectual opposition (PROG.IPFV, PROG.PFV, VRT.IPFV, VRT.PFV, etc.). Only the neutral forms of the realis mood are reduced to the mention of the aspect (IPFV and PFV), whereas the mention of the aspect is not indicated for those which have only one aspectual form (KNOW, HYPO, CONS, INCH). Additionally, note that AM is sometimes marked by tone only, either on the verb, or on both the verb and preceding personal pronoun.

In addition to these AM markers placed before and on the verbal base (*VB*),¹ the verb may have other optional markers which are placed in strict order after the verb. Among these, the negative morpheme is always in the very last position of

¹To keep the preverbal position of the AM markers and the associated tonal pattern, instead of a *VB_{LH}-a^H* notation I chose the *^{LH}VB_a^H* notation.

Table 1: The 21 AM categories of verb paradigms in affirmative clauses

Moods	AM constructions		Aspects	
	Names	Glosses	IPFV	PFV
Realis	Neutral	Ø	^H VB	^{LH} VBa ^H
	Progressive	PROG	bítí- ^L VB	ḡònáá- ^L VB... ~ ^{LH} VBì}
	Inchoative	INCH	bítí-(mɛ)- ^L VB	
	Known	KNOWN		^L VB
	Permanent	PERM	bàá- ^L VB	
	<i>Temporal condition</i>	COND	^H VB ^L VB	^H VB tɛɛ- ^L VB
	<i>Hypothetical</i>	HYPO		nɛ- ^{LH} VBa ^H
	<i>Consecutive</i>	CONS		nɛ- ^L VB
Virtual	Neutral	VRT	tɛ- ^L VB	tɛɛ- ^L VB
	Imminent	IMN	dé-mɛ- ^L VB	dɛɛ-mɛ- ^L VB
	<i>Contingent</i>	CTG	mɛ- ^L VB	mɛ-tɛɛ- ^L VB
Command	Neutral	IJT	PERS ^L ^H VB	PERS ^L ^L VB
	Imperative	IMP	[PERS = Ø] ^H VB	[PERS = Ø] ^L VB

the verb phrase in clause final position, eventually being followed only by some sentence particles, adverbs and interrogatives, as mentioned earlier.

Gbaya is an isolating language with very little morphology and no agreement at all. The word order is very strict. It is an SVO language which also makes use of non-verbal predication. It has verbs, non-verbal predicates, nouns and four categories of adjectives. The verbal system is organized in three moods (realis, virtual and command) and two aspects (perfective and imperfective) (see Roulon 1975, Roulon-Doko 1993). Verbs always express a process where the obligatory subject is either external to the process (transitive construction = transitive voice) or included in the process (intransitive construction = middle voice). It is a tonal language with two levels and four tones. The high tone can mark grammatical distinctions (functioning as a supra-segmental marker, TM, in glosses). It occurs between various elements. When it occurs between two elements, it modifies the tonal melody of the first element. How the tones are realized depends on the tone of the second element. Gbaya phonology has 3 glottalized consonants, 3 labio-velars and a complete range of nasals and semi-nasals; it has nasal vowels too.

The paper is organized according to the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]). In §2, I present clausal negation first in verbal clauses, then in non-verbal clauses. In §3, I focus on non-clausal negation in-

cluding negative replies and a discontinuous negation. In §4, I address pragmatic phenomena and specific devices used in connection with negation. A summary in §5 concludes the chapter.

2 Clausal negation

Gbaya has a single dedicated negative marker, the morpheme *ná* (NEG). It was reconstructed in Proto-Gbaya showing its great stability throughout the Gbaya-Manza-Ngbaka group (Moñino 1995). This negative morpheme occurs with verbs only. It is always placed after the verb, in the very last position of the verb phrase, and after all the complements and adverbs following the verb, if there are any. This clause-final position may be shared with some other morphemes that can follow the negative morpheme *ná* in strict order, as (i) two adverbs, a restrictive one and an additive one (cf. §4.4), (ii) sentence particles which manifest the attitude of the speaker towards the utterance and the addressee, and in the last position, (iii) some interrogative particles (cf. §4.5). This brief characterization is given here just to put into perspective the clause-final position of the negative morpheme. There are different constructions used to express negation according to the type of clause, verbal clause opposed to non-verbal clause.

2.1 Standard negation

2.1.1 Negation in the realis mood

In the realis mood, aspect serves to differentiate between a non-delimited process for the imperfective and a delimited process for the perfective. The perfective AM categories (PFV) cannot be negated; the verb must be in an imperfective form to be negated. So there is asymmetry in the paradigm as all perfective forms are blocked in the negative. Furthermore, only two imperfective forms can be negated (the neutral and the permanent); the others (the progressive, the inchoative, and the temporal condition) are only used in affirmative clauses. The negative marker is added to a corresponding affirmative construction and placed in clause-final position. So in both cases the constructions are symmetric.

The neutral realis imperfective is the most frequent form, attested in 48,8% of all the realis AM forms in my corpus. As the perfective form is blocked, the negative clause (1) corresponds to both the imperfective and perfective forms that the speaker can use in affirmative as (2) and (3) to express his\her point of view. Such a choice is not possible in negative clauses; the opposition perfective / imperfective is neutralized. The structure of the negative clause (1) is symmetric to the

corresponding imperfective positive construction (2) and the negative marker *ná* is simply added in clause-final position.

- (1) *Nàá-ngòdĩ bá sóyó kǐí ná*
 PN IPFV:take seat of:LOG.SG NEG
 ‘Naa-ngòdĩ does not take her seat.’
- (2) *ʔèé Nàá-ngòdĩ bá sóyó kǐí*
 and:TM PN IPFV:take seat of:LOG.SG
 ‘Then Naa-ngòdĩ takes her seat [and sits down on the side of the road].’
- (3) [Context: The speaker has convinced the man to enter her house.]
ká Nàá-ngòdĩ bàà sóyó kǐí
 then PN PFV:take:TM seat of:LOG.SG
 ‘Then Naa-ngòdĩ takes her seat [and they enter the house].’

For some verbs in an intransitive construction such as *gasi* ‘grow’ the English translation as a verb of quality can be misleading. Such verbs also refer to a process and their perfective forms express the result of the process that can be a quality as in (4). This is especially the case of verbs from which verbal adjectives are derived and whose resultative process corresponds to a quality. These verbs can be negated, but when they are negated they still refer to processes as in (5)². They are not stative verbs. Stative constructions would be expressed with the stative verb *ʔo* ‘be’, or with constructions without any dedicated predicate (see §2.3.2).

- (4) *sààyé hẹ̀ gàsá*
 village PROX PFV:grow
 ‘This village is big.’ (lit. ‘has grown’)
- (5) *sààyé hẹ̀ gásí ná*
 village PROX IPFV:grow NEG
 ‘This village is not big.’ (lit. ‘has not grown’)

The permanent, which has only an imperfective form, can be negated without any change. The permanence of the process meaning “always having” for

²A note on the placement of diacritics is in order. In this chapter, nasal diacritics appear under vowels, tone diacritics are placed above the vowels.

the affirmative value (6) becomes “never having” for the negative value (7). The permanent is used with negation very seldom, most probably because of its very specific meaning; it has 0,1% of all its occurrences in my corpus, that is, 7 occurrences, only one of which is negated.

- (6) *ʔéí bàá-ḳ ḳéí ʔó bóíbémáà*
 LOG.SG PERM-want as_for:LOG.SG PL boy:DEF
 ‘He always wanted boys.’

- (7) *ʔéí bàá-ḳ ḳéí ʔó bóíbémáà ná*
 LOG.SG PERM-want as_for:LOG.SG PL boy:DEF NEG
 ‘He never wanted boys.’

Within the linked AM forms of realis mood, only the hypothetical can be negated. Since in the affirmative the hypothetical ‘HYPO’ *né^{-LH}vba^H* is always a perfective form (a process that is considered delimited), see (8), there is no corresponding imperfective form to carry the negative morpheme. However, it is possible to hypothesise a negated process, and for this purpose a special form is created, *né^{-L}VB*, as in (9). This form reuses the form of the consecutive, highlighting a usual practice in Gbaya syntax: one form used with different meanings in two mutually exclusive contexts. I call this special form hypothetical negative ‘HYPO.NEG’. This form could fill the empty place of the imperfective form of the Hypothetical in Table 1. However, as it is only attested in negative clauses, it cannot be opposed to the perfective form in the affirmative and is therefore only mentioned in Table 2. In my corpus, the hypothetical negative has 4 occurrences, i.e. 0.06%, while in affirmative clauses the hypothetical has 44 occurrences, i.e. 0.6%. Both therefore represent 0,66% of all AM forms.

- (8) *ḳàà né-ḳám*
 when:3SG HYPO-want:1SG
 ‘If he loves me [let him get a dowry to marry me].’
- (9) [Context: The two girls ask him to marry them.]
ʔá ḳòmè né-ḳ ná
 and_now when:2SG HYPO.NEG-want NEG
 ‘And if you do not want (= love us) [choose the one you love].’

To sum up, in the realis mood, the constructions are symmetric as the negator is simply added with no further structural changes. All perfective forms are blocked in the negative and so there is a paradigmatic asymmetry. Moreover, the

paradigm of the imperfective forms which can carry the negative morpheme is narrowed to three forms, the neutral form being the most frequent. These imperfective forms represent 91,3% of all negative predications in my corpus (see Table 3).

2.1.2 Negation in the virtual mood

The virtual mood in Gbaya contrasts with the realis by encoding, for example, plans or possibilities. In this mood, aspect distinguishes between events that may be realized (possible) using imperfective forms (11) or will not be realized (irrealis) using perfective forms (13). Both can be negated just by adding the negative morpheme at the end of the clause. So in both cases the constructions are symmetric.

Only the neutral form of the virtual mood is attested in negative clauses. The other forms (the imminent and the contingent as mentioned in Table 1) are not possible because of their semantic nature. The imminent focuses on the short time frame leading up to the action. The contingent is a linked form expressing the process as a final purpose or a possibility to be taken into account. Both the imminent and the contingent are only used in affirmative clauses. In the virtual mood the paradigm of the negative forms is narrowed to the two neutral forms, imperfective (10) and perfective (12).

- (10) *ʔéí té-fè ná*
 LOG.SG VRT.IPFV-die NEG
 ‘He will not die.’
- (11) *ʔéí té-fè kóí ʔín ʔá yè*
 LOG.SG VRT.IPFV-die for:LOG.SG COM:TM 3SG finally
 ‘As for him, he finally will die with her.’
- (12) *Wàntò tèé-kpà mà mbûl ná*
 PN VRT.PFV-find INDF spider_web NEG
 ‘[If it hadn’t been like that] Wanto would not find some spider web.’
- (13) *ʔám tèé-kpà kàà wí ʔém néné*
 1sg VRT.PFV-find RPT.ADD person help:NMLZ:1SG going
 ‘[If possible] I would find someone to go with me.’

To sum up, in the virtual mood, both imperfective and perfective AM categories can be negated, but the paradigm is limited to neutral perfective and imperfective forms. They represent 4,8% of all negative predications in my corpus.

2.1.3 Negation in serial verb constructions

In serial verb constructions (SVC) the negative morpheme is always attached to the first conjugated serialized verb. The second serialized verb has an infinitive form. There are three forms of the infinitive: an imperfective ‘INF.IPFV’, a perfective ‘INF.PFV’ and a virtual ‘INF.VRT’. Most often SVCs are affirmative clauses. In my corpus, SVCs that carry negation can have any verb as their first serialized verb when the second serialized verb has a perfective infinitive form (14). But when the second serialized verb has an imperfective infinitive form, only the modal verb *kɛ* ‘want’ is attested in the corpus as the first serialized verb, see (15). Finally, when the second serialized verb has a virtual infinitive form, only the verbs *kɛ* ‘want’ and *ɲem* ‘be suitable to’ are attested as the first serialized verbs in the corpus (16), as summarized in Table 2. While in such affirmative SVCs the first serialized verb can have an imperfective or a perfective realis form, in the negative counterpart only the neutral imperfective is attested for this verb that falls under the scope of the negation.

Table 2: Types of verbs in negated SVCs

VB ₁ + IPFV	VB ₂ +			in final position
	INF.PFV	INF.IPFV	INF.VRT	
any verb	x ^a	—	—	+ <i>ná</i> NEG
<i>kɛ</i> ‘want’	x	x	x	+ <i>ná</i> NEG
<i>ɲem</i> ‘be suitable to’	x	—	x	+ <i>ná</i> NEG

^ax = attested; — = unattested

- (14) *sósɔ̀ hɛ ʔá né zók pɛr ná*
 today here 3SG IPFV:go INF.PFV:see trap NEG
 ‘Today he is not going to visit his traps.’

- (15) *ʔá kɛ gíí gbòlò wó ná*
 3SG IPFV:want INF.IPFV:cook Corchorus really NEG
 V1 V2
 ‘She really does not want to cook gooey leaves.’

- (16) *ʔám kɛ mɔ́-tɔ̀ tò ná*
 1SG IPFV:want INF.VRT-say tale NEG
 ‘I do not want to tell a tale.’

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

In the command mood, imperfective forms are used to encode commands that are either feasible or not feasible to be carried on by the hearer. This is in contrast with the performative command, which is interpreted as already realized and thus belongs to the perfective aspect. As for realis mood, all perfective forms are blocked in the negative.

Within imperfective command forms, only the impersonal form i.e. the imperative can be negated by adding the negative morpheme at the end of the clause without any change (17–18). The construction is symmetric. Such a form is common after a vocative.

- (17) *ʔó nókó húí yíkné ná*
 POL maternal_uncle IMP:open eye:2POL NEG
 ‘Uncle, do not open your eyes.’

- (18) *húí yíkné*
 IMP.IPFV:open eye:2POL
 ‘Open your eyes.’

But most often, there are two new forms dedicated to negative commands: the vetitive or injunctive negative (IJT.NEG), and a stronger form, the prohibitive (PROH).

The vetitive, constructed in the same way as all the personal forms of the command mood, is encoded by both the verbal base and the personal pronoun that precedes it. The verbal base has a low tonal scheme as the injunctive perfective, and the personal pronoun has a low tonal scheme as for both injunctive forms, to which is added a vowel with an identical vocal quality and a high tone: PERS^L[^HV] ^HVB (19). This construction is the most common one to express a negative command. It corresponds, in the affirmative, to the injunctive imperfective (20), but the constructions are not symmetric. The vetitive is glossed as injunctive negative ‘IJT.NEG’.

- (19) *wòóyèé mǝ́ hǝ́ kǝ́ ná*
 no 2SG:IJT.NEG IJT.NEG:pour tears NEG
 ‘No, do not cry.’

- (20) *mǝ́ héí kǝ́*
 2SG:IJT IJT.IPFV:pour tears
 ‘Cry.’

The prohibitive uses the verb *yak* ‘leave’ as an auxiliary verb. It is followed by the temporal coordinative *ká* ‘then’ (21), or by the noun *tê* ‘entity, body’ (22) carrying the high tone of the tonal marker *tê^H*, or by the quality noun *tí* ‘identity, front’. Any of these terms (*ká*, *tê^H* or *tí*) precede the verb which has the low tonal scheme [^LVB] and is regularly in a non-finite form used for any verb in complex forms and for the nominalization of a verb within a nominal phrase (23). The prohibitive has thus three variants: (i) *yak-ká^L*VB, (ii) *yak-tê^H^L*VB and (iii) *yak-tí^L*VB. The auxiliary verb is attested with three AM markers: a high tonal scheme for IMP.IPFV, IJT.IPFV, and a low tonal scheme for IJT.NEG.

- (21) *yák-ká-t̃* wèn ná
IMP.IPFV-PROH-say speech NEG
‘You must not say anything.’

- (22) *ʔàm yák-tê-kùr ná*
1SG:IJT IJT.IPFV-PROH-get_up NEG
‘I must not get up.’

- (23) [Context: The squirrel pretends to be ill and commands the lion not to disturb him.]
ʔènèé yák-ká-sǎm géè ná
2POL:IJT.NEG IJT.NEG-PROH-disturb:1SG needlessly NEG
‘You must not disturb me for any reason.’

To sum up, in the command mood, as in the realis mood, only the imperfective forms can be negated; all the perfective forms are blocked. For the imperative-imperfective, the negative construction is symmetric, but most often two new forms dedicated to negative command, the vetitive and the prohibitive, are used within non-symmetric constructions. All these forms represent 3,9% of all negative predications in my corpus.

In the case of negation in an interrogative sentence, where the question marker *ndé* is always placed at the absolute end of the sentence, the negation morpheme *ná* is positioned at the end of the clause, just before the question marker, as illustrated in §4.6.4 (see 100–101).

To sum up this presentation of AM categories in verbal clauses, Table 3 shows the negative counterpart of AM categories for affirmative clauses shown in Table 1. The specialized forms dedicated to carry negation are in bold in Table 3.

Table 3: The 7 AM categories of the verbal paradigm in negative clauses

Moods ↓	AM forms ↓		IPFV	PFV	frequency
Realis	Neutral	∅	${}^H\text{VB}$		91,3%
	Permanent	PERM	$b\acute{a}\acute{a}\text{-}^L\text{VB}$		
	Hypothetical negative	HYPO.NEG	$n\acute{e}\text{-}^L\text{VB}$		
Virtual	Neutral	VRT	$t\acute{e}\text{-}^L\text{VB}$	$t\acute{e}\acute{e}\text{-}^L\text{VB}$	4,8%
Command	Imperative	IMP	$\text{PERS} = \emptyset \text{ }^H\text{VB}$		3,9%
	Injunctive negative	IJT.NEG	$\text{PERS}^L[\text{}^H\text{V}] \text{}^H\text{VB}$		
	Prohibitive negative	PROH	$yak\text{-}\{k\acute{a} \sim t\acute{e}^H \sim t\acute{i}\}\text{-}^L\text{VB}$		

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Gbaya stative predications are divided into several types presented below. They include identificational, locative, existential and presentative predications, which have a dedicated term each (see §2.3.1). Possessive, similitive, qualitative, adverbial and numeral predications are encoded by juxtaposition with no dedicated predicates. Adding the potential verb to carry the negative morpheme is the dedicated negative construction common to all non-verbal clauses. They represent a quarter of all negated clauses in my corpus (see §2.3.2). Predication of property is also encoded by clauses where the copular element is a position verb (see §2.3.3). The negation of each of subtype of stative clauses is discussed in the respective sections.

2.3.1 Clauses with a non-verbal predicate

There are four types of clauses whose predicate is non-verbal: identificational, locative, existential and presentative.

In affirmative clauses, identificational predication uses a dedicated predicate: the identifier *né* ‘ID’ that most often links two noun-phrases within a three-constituent clause NP *né* NP (24). It can also sometimes be reduced to a two-constituent clause *né* NP that refers to an impersonal construction, often in response to (26). For the negation of this construction, the potential verb *be* ‘can

Table 4: Negation of clauses with a non-verbal predicate

Predications	in affirmative clauses	in negative clauses	with a non-verbal predicate
Identificational	[NP] <i>né</i> NP	[NP] <i>bé né</i> NP <i>ná</i>	<i>né</i> ID
Presentatives	NP <i>ʔáá</i>	NP <i>bé ʔáá ná</i>	<i>ʔáá</i> PRST-LOC
	NP <i>ʔá-híí</i>	NP <i>bé ʔá-híí ná</i>	<i>ʔá-híí</i> PRST-CONS
Locative	NP <i>ʔá</i> NP	NP <i>bé</i> locative NP <i>ná</i>	<i>ʔá</i> LOC
Existential	NP <i>ʔá-sènéné</i>	NP <i>bé ná</i>	<i>ʔá-sènéné</i> LOC-inside/EX

be’ is placed just before the identifier and the negation morpheme is placed, like in verbal predications, clause-finally (25, 27).

- (24) *mé né bêm*
 2SG ID child
 ‘You are a child.’
- (25) *mé bé né bêm ná*
 2SG IPFV:can_be ID child NEG
 ‘You are not a child.’
- (26) *né tùà kóm*
 ID house of:1SG
 ‘It’s my house.’
- (27) *bé né tùà kóm ná*
 IPFV:can_be ID house of:1SG NEG
 ‘It’s not my house.’

Among the presentatives which are placed after the term they present (28), only two of them, the locative ‘be here’ *ʔáá* PRST.LOC and the consecutive ‘be like that’ *ʔá-híí* PRST.CONS are attested in a negative clause. The anaphoric locative ‘be there’ *ʔáí* PRST.ANAPH is not attested in a negated sentence. For the negation of these constructions, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ is placed just before the presentatives and the negation morpheme is placed, like in verbal predications, clause-finally, in the same way as for the identifier (29–31).

- (28) *bêm ʔáá*
 child PRST.LOC
 ‘Here is the child.’

- (29) *bēm bé ʔāā ná*
 child IPFV:can_be PRST.LOC NEG
 ‘The child is not there.’
- (30) *wí héí mǝ-ʔǝ ʔin bé ʔāā ná*
 person to:LOG.SG CTG.IPFV-lay COM IPFV:can_be PRST.LOC NEG
 ‘Someone you can sleep with cannot be this one here.’
- (31) *wēi kéi ndèi péi ʔínà bé*
 husband of.LOG.SG REL.LOG.SG IPFV:revenir COM.TM.3SG IPFV:can_be
ʔā-hǝ ná yè
 PRST-CONS NEG finally
 ‘My husband, with whom I have returned, cannot be like that after all.’

In affirmative clauses, locative predication uses a dedicated predicate: the locative predicate *ʔā* ‘Loc’ to introduce a noun phrase referring to a location (32). For the negation of this construction, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ replaces the locative predicate *ʔā* ‘Loc’ and the negative morpheme is, like in verbal predications, placed clause-finally (33).

- (32) *béi ʔā kútùà*
 people LOC house
 ‘People are in the house.’
- (33) *béi bé kútùà ná*
 people IPFV:can_be house NEG
 ‘People are not in the house.’

In affirmative clauses, the dedicated predicate to express an existential is a compound term: *ʔā-sènέ* (LOC-inside), literally ‘is inside’, which follows the NP (34). For the negation of this construction, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ replaces the existential predicate as it does for the locative predicate (35). The negative morpheme is placed, like in verbal predications, clause-finally.

- (34) *wèn ʔā-sènέ*
 word LOC-inside
 ‘There is a problem.’
- (35) *wèn bé ná*
 word IPFV:can_be NEG
 ‘There is no problem.’

2.3.2 Clauses with no dedicated predicate

In Gbaya the mere juxtaposition of two specific constituents encodes predication. The first constituent is always a NP, and the second one is either a prepositional noun phrase or a simple term. These constructions express various predications such as possessive (36), similitive, qualitative, and numeral predications. For the negation of these constructions, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ is placed between the two constituents. It hosts the negative morpheme *ná*, which is placed in clause-final position. The addition of the potential verb is comparable to what happens with the locative predicate and the existential predicate which are not used in negative statements. In addition, adverbial predications, which have only one constituent that functions as a predicate, are negated in the same way, the potential verb being placed before the adverb and the negative morpheme after it. The potential verb which is added in all these clauses is negated by the standard negator *ná* (see Table 5).

Table 5: Negation of clauses with no dedicated predicate

Predications	in affirmative clauses	in negative clauses	with preposition
Possessive	NP <i>nè</i> NP	NP <i>bé nè</i> NP <i>ná</i>	<i>nè</i> ‘with’
Attributive	NP <i>nè</i> ADJ. MNLZ	NP <i>bé nè</i> ADJ. NMLZ <i>ná</i>	<i>nè</i> ‘as’
Similitive	NP <i>hé màá gá</i>	NP <i>bé hé màá gá ná</i>	<i>hé...</i> <i>gá</i> ‘like’
Numeral	NP NUM	NP <i>bé</i> NUM <i>ná</i>	—
Adverbial	ADV	<i>bé</i> ADV <i>ná</i>	—

In the possessive, similitive and attributive clauses the second constituent is a prepositional noun phrase as in the examples below. Possessive clauses are common (36–38).

- (36) [Context: He is trying to find out if anyone has goats in the village.

Somebody warns him.]

Singà nè dùa

PN with goat

‘Singa has goats.’

- (37) *Singà bé nè dùa ná*

PN IPFV:can_be with goat NEG

‘Singa has no goats.’

- (38) *té mà ngìmbì ʔám bé nè tùà ná*
 by:TM INDF time 1SG IPFV:can_be with house NEG
 ‘At that time I didn’t have a house.’

Attribution is a domain most often used affirmatively (39, 41) and relatively seldom negatively (40, 42). Attributive clauses are not frequent. In this construction the adjectives are nominalized and introduced by the preposition *nè* used here with a comparative sense ‘as’. Here the use of *nè* as a comparative marker introducing adjectives (39)–(41) is different from the *nè* ‘with’ which is part of the predicative possessive construction (36)–(38). I present two examples, one with a verbal adjective *dúrá* ‘long’ and one with an adjective *tór* ‘raw’.

- (39) *wáŋá hẹ nè dúráà*
 leaf PROX as long:NMLZ
 ‘This leaf is long.’
- (40) *wáŋá hẹ bé nè dúráà ná*
 leaf PROX IPFV:can_be as long:NMLZ NEG
 ‘This leaf is not long.’
- (41) *sàdî hẹ nè tóràà*
 animal PROX as raw:NMLZ
 ‘This meat is raw.’
- (42) *sàdî hẹ bé nè tóràà ná*
 animal PROX IPFV:can_be as raw:NMLZ NEG
 ‘This meat is not raw.’

Similitive clauses encode similarity between two constituents, the second one being surrounded by the discontinuous similitive adposition *hé...gá* ‘SIMV...SIMV’ (44). Only similitive clauses where the second constituent is the reciprocal pronoun *màá* ‘RECP’ and which express a comparison of equality are negated in the corpus, (43).

- (43) *yíkwà bé hé màá gá ná*
 face:TM:3PL IPFV:can_be SIMV RECP SIMV NEG
 ‘Their faces are not the same.’ (lit. ‘not like one to the other’)
- (44) *yíkwà hé màá gá fét*
 face:TM:3PL SIMV RECP SIMV all
 ‘Their faces are exactly the same.’ (lit. ‘like one to the other’)

In numeral clauses the second constituent is always a numeral (46, 48), and the negative construction is common (45, 47).

- (45) *tòyó bé náár ná*
dog IPFV:can_be four NEG
'The dogs are not four.'
- (46) *tòyó náár*
dog four
'The dogs are four.'
- (47) *bêm kɔ̀ɔ̀ bé tààr ná*
child of:3SG IPFV:can_be three NEG
'He doesn't have three children.' (lit. 'his children are not three')
- (48) *bêm kɔ̀ɔ̀ tààr*
child of:3SG three
'He has three children.' (lit. 'his children are three')

There are only a few adverbs that are used predicatively, either as the second element in a juxtaposition construction, or alone in a holophrastic use. Most of these adverbs in a predicative function are found in affirmative constructions, and some are found in interrogative constructions. Only the adverb *hɔ̀gɔ̀* 'like this' is observed with negation in my corpus (49–50). This adverb is very commonly negated.

- (49) *bé hɔ̀gɔ̀ ná*
IPFV:can_be like_that NEG
'It is not like that.'
- (50) *hɔ̀gɔ̀*
like_that
'It is like that.'

To sum up, under negation the locative predicate *ʔá* and the existential predicate *ʔá-sènɛ* are replaced by the potential verb *bé* 'can be' and the standard negator *ná* in clause-final position. In all other stative predications, the potential verb *bé* 'can be' is placed before the non-verbal predicate or between the two constituents in a juxtaposition construction. With adverbial predications, the potential verb *bé* and the standard negator *ná* surround the adverb as in (49).

In all cases the negative morpheme is placed clause-finally and the potential verb *bé* 'can be' is negated by standard negation. Thus adding it to carry the negative morpheme is the dedicated negative construction for non-verbal clauses.

2.3.3 Attributive verbal predication

Gbaya uses the verb *ʔɔ* ‘stand, lay’ with adjectives in a predicative function. In this context, *ʔɔ* is the stative verb ‘be’. This verb can carry the negative morpheme in the same way as all the processive verbs, but such negative clauses are rather rare (51).

- (51) *Nàná ʔɔ dɛngbɛ̀n ná*
 PN IPFV:be slow NEG
 ‘The river Nana does not flow slowly.’ (lit. ‘is not slow’)

The negative morpheme *ná* is simply added to the corresponding affirmative clause (52), as in the example below about the belly of an animal after being cooked (53)³.

- (52) *zàṇáà ʔɔ bɔ̀lbɔ̀l*
 belly:TM:3SG IPFV:be soft
 ‘Its belly is soft.’ (= ‘fully cooked’)
- (53) *zàṇáà ʔɔ bɔ̀lbɔ̀l ná*
 belly:TM:3SG IPFV:be soft NEG
 ‘Its belly is not soft.’ (= ‘not cooked enough’)

To sum up, attributive verbal predications constructed with the verb *ʔɔ* ‘be’ introducing an adjective can be negated, but this is not frequent. Conversely, it is common for properties that correspond to a resultative process to be supported by verbs that are negated in the same way as all verbs (cf. §2.1.1).

2.4 Negation in non-main-clauses

Subordinate clauses (SC) introduced by a conjunction can be negated by standard negation, but the possibility of negation of the SC depends on the position of the SC in front of or behind the main clause.

When a SC is in front of the main clause, it can be negated by standard negation (54). The negative morpheme is placed in final position of the SC and the main clause follows it.

³Words such as *bɔ̀lbɔ̀l* (52)–(53), *zɛ̀nbgé́zɛ̀nbgé́* ‘fragile’ (60), *yàkàìyàkàì* ‘silly’ (103), *pálpál* ‘clean’ (104) are historically reduplications. However, in Modern Northwest Gbaya, the elements they consist of have no referential meaning which is why reduplication is not considered operational on a synchronic level.

- (54) *kòmè ʔó nù ná kómé Wàntò kàdà ʔé*
 when:2SG IPFV:lay ground NEG then:2SG PN PFV:finish:TM yet
 ‘If you don’t lie down then it will be the end of you, Wanto.’

When a SC follows the main clause, the negative morpheme always scopes over the verb of the main clause; the SC cannot be negated, see (55).

- (55) *ʔéí ʔém kèi ʔá yù ʔín f̣ṛò ná*
 LOG.SG IPFV:be_able so_that:LOGS IPFV:put race COM:TM elephant NEG
 ‘He is not able to race with the elephant.’

- (56) *ʔám ʔíŋ kóm mà mò há mój-dè s̄n*
 1SG IPFV:know as_for:1SG INDF thing so-as-to CTG.IPFV-do in:TM
ʔòyáà ná
 remainder:DEF NEG
 ‘Personally, I don’t know what I will do to correct this mistake.’

- (57) *ʔám gbé sàḍḷ há kòò kóm ʔój ná*
 1SG IPFV:kill animal so-as-to wife of:1SG IPFV:eat NEG
 ‘I did not kill any animal to feed my wife.’

Purpose SC as (56) and (57) above, which is placed behind the main clause, can be negated by changing the conjunction. To introduce a negative purpose clause, there is a new conjunction specific to negation *tá ~ té* ‘so as not to’ or ‘lest’ that replaces the conjunction *há* ‘so-as-to’ of the affirmative counterpart. In this use, the negative morpheme *ná* which is placed clause-finally at the very end of the sentence always and refers to the verb of the SC, is optional. Most often the negative morpheme is absent (59), and its presence is redundant with the negative purpose conjunction (58).

- (58) *ʔà bón nù ʔínàm h̄ t̄q̄*
 3SG IPFV:remain ground COM:TM:1SG here so_as_not_to:3SG
sí ná
 IPFV:go_away NEG
 ‘She stays here with me so that she does not leave.’

- (59) *wà h̄p̄à n̄n̄wà tá kòrò ŋmáwá*
 3PL PFV:detach:TM foot.3PL so_as_not_to rain IPFV.hit.3PL
 ‘They hurried so that the rain did not get them wet.’

The linked AM forms that create dependence without any conjunction do not accept negation, except for the Hypothetical form. The negative hypothetical clause is always placed in front of the main clause as it has been presented (cf. (8) and (9)).

A relative clause (RC), which, in Gbaya, is always introduced by the relative marker *nè* REL, can be negated. As for any subordinate clause, it depends on the position of the RC within the main clause. When the noun that the RC modifies is the subject of the main verb, the RC is placed in front of the main clause verb and the negative morpheme is placed at the end of the RC. The RC is negated by standard negation (60). Most often the antecedent of the relative marker is the subject of the main clause verb, but it may also be a topicalized term placed before the verb of the main clause (61).

- (60) *mà làà nè ndótí ná ʔó zéngbézéngbé*
 INDF garment REL IPFV:thicken NEG IPFV:be fragile
 ‘A garment which is not thick is fragile.’ [antecedent = subject]

- (61) *ndàyá mò nè dilà zéí gér yéré náíí ʔá-nàm*
 bottom:TM thing REL lion IPFV:hear voice buffalo NEG:ANAPH TOP-1SG:TM
dé-mé-tɔ̃
 IMN-IPFV-say
 ‘The reason why the lion does not hear the voice of the buffalo I am about to say.’ [antecedent = topicalized object]

But when the noun the RC modifies is placed behind the verb of the main clause, as for any SC in the same position, the negative morpheme placed at the very end of the sentence refers to the verb of the main clause (62–64).

- (62) *ʔá ʔín fàrà nàá yàkà sí sèné ná ʔòé*
 3SG IPFV:know place REL:3SG PFV:leave:TM INF.PFV:go inside NEG too
 ‘He does not even know in which place he went.’

- (63) *ʔám zéí wèn kómé nèmè tɔ̃íí ná*
 1SG IPFV:hear speech of:2SG REL:2SG:TM IPFV:say:ANAPH NEG
 ‘I do not understand what you are saying.’

- (64) *ʔám ʔín tí mò nè dém ná*
 1SG IPFV:know identity thing REL IPFV:do:1SG NEG
 ‘I do not know what is happening to me.’

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There are two verbs, *mbosi* ‘be absent, be missing’ (68) and *ndaŋ* ‘miss, lack’ (66) (in relation to the numeral *ndaŋ* ‘one’) that express a lack. They can, however, be negated by standard negation (65, 67).

- (65) *sàdì ndáŋ ná*
 animal IPFV:miss NEG
 ‘[After checking] No game is missing.’
- (66) *kàfě̀ ndàngám mó tútùyè*
 coffee PFV:miss:TM:1SG in morning
 ‘I did not get coffee this morning.’
- (67) *yák-té-mbòsì mé mòósá ná*
 IMP.PFV-PROH-be_absent in tomorrow NEG
 ‘You must not be absent tomorrow.’
- (68) *wànyé mbòsá*
 chief PFV:be_absent
 ‘The village chief is absent.’

2.6 Other clausal negation constructions

Gbaya uses a complex clause to express impossibility. The main clause with the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ is followed by a subordinate clause introduced by the conjunction *kà* ‘so that’ expressing a consequence (55). The negative morpheme is clause-final. In such constructions, the two clauses have the same subject that is mentioned before each verb and the potential verb always takes a realis neutral imperfective form: *S₁ bé kà S₁ VB ná* (69–71).

- (69) *ʔám bé kàm né ná*
 1SG IPFV:can_be so_that:1SG IPFV:go NEG
 ‘I cannot go.’
- (70) *ʔéé bé kě̀ b́ wéi ná*
 2PL IPFV:can_be so_that:2PL IPFV:take husband NEG
 ‘We cannot get married.’
- (71) *ʔà bé kàà yák ná*
 3SG IPFV:can_be so_that:3SG IPFV:leave NEG
 ‘He can’t leave.’

Sometimes, the subject of the main clause is not mentioned in the SC, and the construction becomes a set phrase *bé kà* (72). This construction shows low frequency.

- (72) *mé bé kà bá ná*
 2SG IPFV:can_be so_that IPFV:take NEG
 ‘You cannot take it.’

It is interesting to point out that unlike Gbaya Bodoë, in Gbaya Yaayuwée, another Northwest Gbaya language, such a set phrase, *bé kà*, is the only construction used. So in Gbaya Yaayuwée this set phrase has become a verbal marker of impossibility *bé-kà*, which is not the case in Gbaya Bodoë (see Noss 1981).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Negative replies to polar questions are not related to the negative morpheme *ná*. There are two negative replies: *wòóyèé* ~ *òóyèé*, *ʔúúʔú* meaning ‘no’ which are interjections in Gbaya. They correspond to the affirmative replies *ʔíí* ~ *ʔúú*, *híí* meaning ‘yes’. In response to a question, these negative replies always disagree with the content of the question and never with its polarity.

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

There are no negative indefinites and quantifiers in Gbaya. To say ‘nobody’ (73) or ‘nothing’ (74) Gbaya uses the nouns *béí* ‘person’ and *mò* ‘thing’ in a negative clause, most often with the indefinite determiner *mà*.

- (73) *béí té ná*
 person IPFV:come NEG
 ‘Nobody comes.’
- (74) *mà mò bé kútùà hê ná*
 INDF thing IPFV:can_be house PROX NEG
 ‘There is nothing in this house.’

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

No negative derivation is attested in Gbaya, which has very little derivation but very productive compounding. There is no adposition ‘without’ either, but there are a lot of adjectives-adverbs (AA) to express lack. These AA are original terms corresponding to derived terms in other languages: *béngéé* ‘ineffective, without result’, *wálásáyá* ‘without stopping’, *fâû-fâû* ‘nonstop’, *kpáká-kpáká* ‘thoughtless, without thinking’, *dók-dók* ‘speechless’, etc. This way of expressing lack takes in account a lot of contexts as for example ‘noiseless’: *ʔíyóó* (standing or walking), *yòkòkò-yòkòkò* (specific to the way you put your foot on the ground), *gédééŋ* (gait of an animal), *yékét* (quiet), *yélélé* (acting slowly). So negative meaning expressing lack is lexicalized into specific AAs. Verbal expressions of absence are discussed in §2.5.

There is also a new conjunction specific to negation, *tá ~ té* ‘so as not to’ or ‘lest’, that replaces the conjunction *há* ‘so as to’ of the affirmative counterparts (see §2.4).

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In clausal negation the predicate is always in the scope of negation whether it is the verb of the clause (see §2.1 and §2.2) or the potential verb for non-verbal predications (see §2.3.1 and §2.3.2).

To narrow the scope of negation to a specific constituent, Gbaya creates a discontinuous negation that reuses the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ into a fixed set where this verb has no longer any predicative function. In this construction, the potential verb, which has an imperative imperfective form carrying the polar tone of insistence modality (*béè* [$\emptyset$ ^H *be*.INS]), is in clause-initial position and the negative morpheme is in clause-final position. This construction *béè...ná*, which surrounds the clause and which can target any element except the predicate, functions as a constituent negator. This discontinuous negation objects to something else but not to the content of the verb, whatever is the AM form of the verb in the clause. Depending on the context, the constituent in the scope of this negation is most often an adverb (75–76); an oblique object (77–78); a way to point out, in case of a verb in realis neutral perfective, that is a delimited process has to be put in perspective (79), or an element topicalized or focalized (80–81).

- (75) *bée ʔà ʔiŋá mò fét ná*
 NEG 3SG PFV:know:TM thing all NEG
 ‘She does not know everything.’ (lit. ‘She knows things but not all.’)
- (76) *bée ʔám té-nè bí mbàbì fèrè ná*
 NEG 1SG VRT.IPFV-go INF.PFV:play dice near NEG
 ‘I will go play dice not nearby.’
- (77) *nè bée Wàntò gbòó tè già zǎŋbéé ná wó*
 SO NEG PN PFV:go_out:TM in:TM hunting bush NEG really
 ‘So Wanto went in the bush but not really to hunt.’
- (78) *nè bée ʔéí tèè kéí wěŋ wà ná*
 SO NEG LOG.SG PFV:come:TM as_for:LOG.SG because_of:TM 3PL NEG
 ‘So he came not for them.’
- (79) *ʔá Kàpátà bée pèpá ná*
 and_now PN NEG PFV:be_distant NEG
 ‘And [the mount] Kapata is not very far away.’ (lit. ‘is far away but not very far away’)
- (80) *bée mǎrá mò mó ʔè ʔám tèé-zòk ná*
 NEG sort:TM thing APPOS this_one 1SG VRT.PFV-see NEG
 ‘[If I was gone], such a thing I will not have seen.’

When the topicalized term is a modified noun as in (81), *bée* is repeated surrounding the topic and *ná* placed clause finally while a personal pronoun (*téwà*) fills the empty place (note that there is another variant for *mòó*: *mò ʔá*).

- (81) *bée dilà ndèè té ʔin hè bée mà mòó*
 NEG lion REL:1PL:TM IPFV:come COM here NEG INDF thing:LOC
téwà ná
 body:TM:3POL NEG
 ‘The lion I come here with is unable to do something.’ (lit. ‘there is nothing in himself’)

In addition, I want to mention the role that perfective forms play in some cases to relate the negation to another verb. As we recall, perfective forms are blocked in the negative. The discussion in §2.4 explains that when a negative morpheme is placed at the end of a sentence, it is linked to the verb of the main clause if

the main clause appears before a subordinate or relative clause. However, this linkage is blocked if the verb of the main clause is in the realis perfective, as this form cannot support negation. In such cases, if a relative clause follows the main clause, the negation at the end of the sentence will instead apply to the verb of the relative clause (82). Another case of incompatibility between the perfective and negation is observed between coordinated clauses sharing the subject of the first clause; the negation at the end of the second clause cannot apply to its verb if that verb is in the realis perfective. Therefore, negation scopes over the verb of the first clause, see (83).

- (82) *ʔéné zòkà bée yàrà yíitòò nè kàm bír ná.*
 2PL PFV:see:TM person day two REL cassava_dough IPFV:pass NEG
 ‘You have seen someone who hasn’t eaten for two days.’

- (83) *mà bée mbíí kùtí mò séká pùú gúá*
 INDF person IPFV:sweep first:TM thing and_then PFV:throw:TM firewood
nù ná
 ground NEG
 ‘Nobody sweeps the place and then throws firewood on the ground.’

4.2 Negative polarity

No negative polarity items have been found in Gbaya.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

The marking of NPs is not affected by negation in Gbaya.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

In a negative clause, unlike all the other adverbs, two adverbs *ʔòé ~ ʔòí* ‘also’ and *ʔèá* ‘only’ can be placed right after the negative morpheme. The sequence *ná ʔòé* ‘neither, not also’ (84–85) is more frequent than the sequence *ná ʔèá* ‘not even’ (86–87), but both are well-attested in my corpus.

- (84) *ʔéí kpá tí sàdî ná ʔòé*
 IMPS IPFV:find entity:TM animal NEG also
 ‘There is no game either.’

- (85) *mà tórsì bé ná ʔòé wá*
 INDF electric_torch IPFV:can_be NEG also unfortunately
 ‘Unfortunately, he does not have a flashlight either.’
- (86) *mò ndèi ʔíŋ ndàyá mò ná ʔèá*
 thing REL:LOG.SG IPFV:know bottom:TM thing NEG only
 ‘Something you do not even know anything about...’
- (87) *zòòmí kéí bá kòò héí ná ʔèá*
 elder_brother of:LOG.SG IPFV:take wife to:LOG.SG NEG only
 ‘His elder brother didn’t even get a wife for him.’

We can compare the regular order *ʔèá ná* (attested only for *ʔèá*, but impossible for *ʔòé*) to the opposite order *ná ʔèá*, in order to bring out the difference of meanings: *ʔèá ná* (only NEG) means ‘not only’ (88), and *ná ʔèá* (NEG only) means ‘not even’ (86–87).

- (88) *ʔàm dé nè tòm kòfè h́gǔ fàà ʔèá ná*
 1SG IPFV:do CIRC work:TM son-in-law like_that always only NEG
 ‘I will not keep on doing the son-in-law’s work like that forever.’

Placed after the negative morpheme, the scope of these two adverbs seems to refocus on the negative morpheme and no longer on the verb of the clause.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Only for subordinate purpose clauses, there is a new conjunction specific to negation *tá ~ té* ‘so as not to’ or ‘lest’ that replaces the conjunction *hǎ* ‘so-as-to’ of the affirmative counterparts (see §2.4).

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

In Gbaya, there is no negative transport. When a subordinate clause follows the main clause it cannot be negated (see §2.4).

4.6.2 Metalinguistic negation

No examples of metalinguistic negation have been found in the data.

4.6.3 Non-negative uses of negatives and expletive negation

In an isolating language like Gbaya, word order is very important and changing the place of an item can lead to giving it a new function and a new signification, as described in §2.1.1 for the AM forms of the hypothetical-negative and the consecutive. When the negative morpheme *ná* is not placed clause-finally, it is used with two functions: (i) a discourse particle or (ii) an element of quantifier adverbs.

(i) There are two contexts where *ná* is a discourse particle, depending on its position in the clause: after a noun or after a verb. First, when the negative morpheme *ná* is no longer placed clause-finally but right after a noun, it becomes a discourse marker that identifies this noun as the addressee (89–90). Doing so, it keeps its negative semantic feature that contributes to the identification of the addressee as not being the person who speaks, but the person to whom something is said. As a discourse marker, *ná* is an affirmative item, ‘ADRE’ in the glosses (see Roulon-Doko 2008).

- (89) *wà ná wà dé gìmà kpók kpók kpók.*
 3PL ADRE 3PL:INJ INJ.IPFV:do song one one
 ‘They are told to sing one by one.’

- (90) *kó kào Dàà mí ná ?ám dúk.*
 then:POL maternal_uncle PN 1SG ADRE 1SG IPFV:stay
 ‘Then uncle Dàà told me to stay.’

Secondly, *ná* can be placed after the verbs *zei* ‘hear’ and *zək* ‘see’ in a specific construction of two clauses, which is different from complement clauses. In Gbaya, complement clauses follow the verb as a direct object without any conjunction. In the first clause these verbs are followed by the neutral direct object *mò* ‘thing’ while the second one is a coordinate clause introduced by *ká* ‘then’. In both cases *ná* keeps its negative semantics. With the verb *zək* ‘see’, *ná* indicates the possibility of seeing X or being aware of the presence/coming of X as in (91); when used with the verb *zei* ‘hear’, *ná* does not indicate hearing but rather understanding as in (92).

- (91) [Context: She is with her older sister who takes care of her.]
?ám zók mò ná kó dàà tèà
 1SG IPFV:see thing DISC then:POL older_sister PFV:come
 ‘I become aware that the older sister comes [to warn me].’

In the next example (92), the first clause is a temporal subordinate and the main clause a coordinate clause. Compare with a clause without *ná* (93).

- (92) [Context: She decides to go to her older sister's house because her husband is never at home.]
kàm té-zòk mò ná wó kàà gbòò nè tútùyè
 when:1SG VRT.IPFV-see thing DISC really then:3SG PFV:go_out in morning
dòṇám
 after:TM:1SG
 'When I realize that he has arrived in the morning at home (= behind me).'
- (93) [Context: They all think that the older sister is dead. The family is eating.]
ṛá-nè bé kàyáíí kàà zók mò wó ká
 and_now small eldest:ANAPH when:3SG IPFV:see thing really then
ṛáá téíí
 3SG:TOP IPFV:come:ANAPH
 'Then, as the eldest child looks up, there she is, coming back.'

I would like to point out that there are some other discourse markers based on the negative morpheme *ná* and the interrogative marker *ndé* that function alike but will not be discussed in this paper.

(ii) There are seven quantifier adverbs that are compound words. All of them include the negative morpheme *ná* as the last element of the compound. The first element of these compound adverbs may be an adverb, a nominal phrase or, only in one case (*ṛém-ná*), a verb which is followed by the negative morpheme, see Table 6 for a full listing of these expressions.

Most of the forms cited in Table 6 keep a negative semantic feature that contributes to their literal meaning but the reading is a positive one, as mentioned previously. For three of them the negative semantic feature is no longer present (94–95) and, in addition, two of these have a variant without the negative morpheme with the same meaning.

- (94) *ṛéé dèé tòṁ dèkná*
 2PL PFV:do:TM work a_lot
 'We worked hard.'
- (95) *há kési bémòná*
 so_that IPFV:dry a_little
 '[He puts locusts next to the fire] so that they dry a little.'

Table 6: The compound quantifier adverbs

Adverbs	Component stems	Literal meaning	Meaning
<i>gèdèk-ná/dék-ná</i>	(a little-NEG)	‘not a little’	‘a lot’, ‘very’
<i>sór-mò-ná</i>	(DIM-thing-NEG)	‘not a very small thing’	‘very little’
<i>zǝm-mò-ná</i>	(AUG.TM-thing-NEG)	‘not that big’	‘very much’
<i>ɲém-ná</i>	(IPFV.suit-NEG)	‘not suitable’	‘very much’, ‘too much’
<i>bé-mò-ná</i>	(small-thing-NEG)	no negative meaning	‘a little’
<i>bé-dàŋ-ná/bé-dàŋ</i>	(small-bad-NEG/small-bad)	no negative meaning	‘a little’
<i>bé-nàŋ-ná/bé-nàŋ</i>	(small-?-NEG/small-?)	no negative meaning	‘a little’

In this section, I presented the non-negative uses of the negative morpheme. They illustrate a common syntactic and pragmatic feature of Gbaya that highlights the polyfunctionality of the negative morpheme.

4.6.4 Elements that can follow the negative marker

There are seven sentence particles which, in affirmative as in negative clauses, are placed clause-finally, just after the negative morpheme and the adverbs *ʔéá* or *ʔóé* when appropriate (88). These particles show the point of view of the speaker, or of the actor of the event (96–98).

- (96) *ʔá tǝ ná wá*
 3SG IPFV:say NEG unfortunately
 ‘Unfortunately, she does not say anything.’
- (97) *mà mò bé kútùà hǝ ná wó*
 INDF thing IPFV:can_be house LOC.ANAPH NEG really
 ‘There is really nothing in that house.’

- (98) *ʔéí tɛ̀-dɛ̀ tɔ̀à ná yè*
 LOG.SG VRT.IPFV-do house NEG finally
 ‘[Since there is a cave] finally I will not build a house.’

In negative clauses too, sentence particles can combine like they usually do in affirmative clauses (99).

- (99) *sàdī mɔ́ ʔɛ̀ ʔéné ʔóŋ ná ʔòé wó yè*
 animal APPOS this_one 2PL IPFV:eat NEG also really indeed
 ‘Indeed, this animal you do not actually eat either.’

The interrogative marker *ndé* glossed ‘Q’ is always at the last position of a clause; nothing can follow it. In negative clauses too, it is placed after the negative morpheme and put at the last position, clause-finally (100–101). For negative interrogatives, see §2.2.

- (100) *ʔéné zɔ́káà ná ndé?*
 2PL IPFV:see:3SG NEG Q
 ‘Have you not seen him?’
- (101) *zúà tɛ̀-gbà ná ndé?*
 head:TM:3SG VRT.IPFV-split NEG Q
 ‘Won’t he have a headache?’

Two other interrogative adverbs *hége* ‘how’ (102) and *wɛ̀n-gɛ̀* ‘why’ have the same clause-final position.

- (102) *ʔám tɛ̀-tɛ̀ bɔ̀ɔ̀ ná hége?*
 1SG VRT.IPFV-say thus NEG how
 ‘Why would I not say it?’

There are some cases of right detachment when an adjunct is placed outside the boundaries of the clause, i.e. after the negative morpheme. It may be an adjective (104), an adverb (103) or a NP that adds *a posteriori* some clarifications to the content of the clause (105). In Gbaya, this is not a device for topicalization (Creissels 2006: 120).

- (103) *mé ʔín ʔòó mò ná yàkàiyàkài géé*
 2SG IPFV:know remainder:TM thing NEG silly simply
 ‘You do not know anything, you are simply silly.’

- (104) *kánánjáà bá ndīn ná pálpál*
 ankle:TM:3SG IPFV:take dirty NEG clean
 ‘His ankles are not dirty, they are clean.’
- (105) *?á gbó kṣà zān bō ná mó-dè tòṁ kó wányé*
 SG IPFV:go_out as_for:3SG bush again NEG INF.VRT-do work of chief
 ‘He no longer goes to the bush to work for the chief.’

5 Summary

In Gbaya, only verbs can be negated by the negative morpheme *ná*. Most often the constructions are symmetric, but there is an asymmetry in the paradigm in the realis and command moods, as all perfective forms are blocked in the negative. There are different forms in non-declaratives, i.e. the command mood. In order to negate stative predications, the potential verb *be* ‘can be’ has to be used. There is a constituent negator that negates any element except a predicate. The systematic clause-final position of the negative morpheme and its last position in the verbal phrase characterizes the negation system in Gbaya. The negation strategies of this language are summarized in Table 7.

Abbreviations

1	first person	CTG	contingent
2	second person	DEF	definite
3	third person	DIM	diminutive
Ø	empty place	DISC	discourse marker
AA	adjective-adverb	EX	existential
ADD	additive	H	high tone
ADJ	adjective	HYPO	hypothetical
ADRE	addressee	ID	identificator
ADV	adverb	IJT	injunctive
AM	aspect-mood	IMN	imminent
ANAPH	anaphoric	IMP	imperative
APPOS	appositive preposition	IMPS	impersonal pronoun
AUG	augmentative	INCH	inchoative
CIRC	circumstantial	INDF	indefinite
COM	comitative	INF	infinitive
COND	condition	IPFV	imperfective
CONS	consecutive	KNOWN	known

Table 7: Summary of negative strategies in Gbaya

Negation strategy	Function	Chapter	Examples
negative morpheme <i>ná</i> in clause-final position	realis mood 2 forms (IPFV, PERM)	§2.1.1	(1), (5), (7), (9)
	Virtual mood 2 forms (VRT)	§2.1.2	(10), (12)
	HYPO-NEG	§2.1.2	(9)
	Command mood (IMP-IPFV)	§2.2	(20)
	<i>Vetitive</i> IJT-NEG	§2.2	(22)
	<i>Prohibitive</i> PROH	§2.2	(24), (25), (26)
verb <i>be</i> add to the predicate	Stative verb ?ɔ (IPFV, VRT)	§2.2	(17), (19)
	Identificational	§2.3.1	(28), (30)
potential verb <i>be</i> + negative morpheme <i>ná</i> in clause-final position	?áá PRST-LOC, ?á-hií PRST-CONS	§2.3.1	(32), (33), (34)
	Presentatives		
	?á LOC	§2.3.1	(36)
	?á-sêné EX	§2.3.1	(38)
	Locative		
	Existential		
verb <i>be</i> replace the predicate	NP nê NP	§2.3.2	(39), (42)
	NP nê ADJ.NMLZ	§2.3.2	(41), (44)
	NP hé NP gá	§2.3.2	(46)
	NP NUM	§2.3.2	(48), (50)
	Possessive		
	Attributive		
verb <i>be</i> between the two juxtaposed elements	Simulative		
	Numeral		
	Adverbial	§2.3.2	(55)
	Adv (= hǫǫǫ)		
	holophrastic use		
	P1 + verb potential <i>be</i> kà P2 + negative morpheme <i>ná</i>	§2.6	(69–72)
fixed set: <i>béé C ná</i>	Impossibility		
	targeting any constituent (C) except the verb	§4.1	(75–81)
Negative lexicalizations <i>mbosi</i> <i>ndaŋ</i> conjunction <i>tá ~ tɛ</i> <i>wóóyéé ~ ?óóyéé, ?uú?u</i>			
	'be absent, be missing'	§2.5	(65)
	'miss, lack'		(67)
	'so as not to' or 'lest'	§2.4	(58), (59)
	negative replies 'no'	§3.1	

L	low tone	PRST	presentative
LH	low-high tone	Q	interrogative particle
LOC	locative	RC	relative clause
LOG	logophoric	RECP	reciprocal
NEG	negation, negative	REL	relative
NMLZ	nominalizer, nominalization	RPT	repetitive
PN	proper name	SC	subordinate clause
NUM	numeral	SG	singular
PERM	permanent	SIMV	similative
PERS	personal pronoun	SVC	serial verb construction
PFV	perfective	TM	tonal marker
PL	plural	TOP	topic
POL	polite form	V	vowel
PROG	progressive	VB	verbal base
PROH	prohibitive	VRT	virtual
PROX	proximal		

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Chapter 13

Negation in Mankanya

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This chapter investigates the field of negation in Mankanya, a Bak language (Atlantic group) spoken in Guinea-Bissau, Senegal and Gambia. The analysis follows the framework developed by Miestamo and Veselinova, which allows to study negation from a typological point of view. Like the other Atlantic languages, Mankanya has a very rich verbal morphology, and negation tends to be integrated into the TAM-system. Negation in Mankanya shows two major types of asymmetry: the first one concerns the marking of TAM, and the second concerns the marking of subject. Negation also involves a specific intonation pattern. This chapter provides a systematic study of negation, analysing the correspondences between affirmative and negative clauses, as well as the interaction between TAM and negation.

Keywords: Negation, verbal morphology, Atlantic, Bak.

1 The language

Mankanya (ISO: knf-SEN, Glottocode: mank1251), is a Bak language from the Atlantic family (Niger-Congo phylum). Originally spoken in Guinea-Bissau, it is nowadays spoken from the north of Guinea-Bissau to the south of Senegal (in Casamance); there are also some large communities around the Senegalese cities of Dakar and Thiès, and in Gambia. In 2016, there were about 50,000 speakers in Guinea-Bissau, and around 85,200 speakers in totality (Eberhard et al. 2019).

The first overview of the Mankanyan grammar has been provided by Trifcović (1969). Then, Maliman (2005) and Bayèpar (2013) have led phonological and morphological studies. Recently, Gaved (2007, 2015, 2020) produced the most complete analysis on Mankanya, and Montébran (2021) included Mankanya in a comparative study of negation in the Atlantic languages with regard to tense aspect and mood (TAM).



There are two main varieties of Mankanya; this chapter focuses on the Hula variety, named after the city Bula (Guinea-Bissau) where it was originally spoken. The varieties of Mankanya (Hula and Co) are mutually intelligible; the differences are principally phonological and related to a small amount of lexemes. It is noteworthy that Mankanya has been strongly influenced by the local Portuguese Creole (see Bayèpar 2013 for more details), but also by Mandinka (Mande) and Wolof (Atlantic), depending on the area.

Although a written official standard has been set up for Mankanya in Senegal since 2005, the language remains mostly spoken and the majority of speakers do not manage the writing system. Moreover, Mankanya is only used in restricted domains (within the family, but not in professional life). French is prominent at school, and Wolof is used as a vehicular language in Senegal; English in Gambia and in Guinea-Bissau the vehicular language is the Portuguese Creole. Thus, young people leaving villages for the city to get a job are slowly losing the use of the language. This phenomenon is also accelerated with exogamous marriages.

Mankanya is an agglutinative language. The word order (SVO) is very strict and the modifiers follow the head word. It is a non-tonal language, even though the prosody has an important role including in the TAM system. The verb obligatorily agrees with its subject (the agreement marker is prefixed); if the subject is not an NP, the agreement marker can be the sole subject. Similarly to other Atlantic languages, Mankanya has very rich and complex verbal morphology. The verbal system includes three moods (indicative, injunctive, and irrealis) and an infinitive form of the verb (marked by a prefix *p-*). Within the indicative mood, the main opposition concerns the perfective and imperfective aspects. These two aspects are mostly distinguished by the intonation pattern. Concerning the tenses: present is unmarked whereas past and future are marked by auxiliaries. The structure of the TAM system massively employs auxiliary verbs, which appear in serial verb clauses. In these structures, where several verbs are sharing the same subject (typically the auxiliary verb and the main verb), the first verb takes the standard subject agreement marker, and the other verbs have the serial agreement prefix *a-*. These features are listed in Table 1.

To sum-up, the finite verbal stem (VB) always has a subject agreement marker (SBJ) prefixed and may have TAM markers suffixed. A pronominal object (OBJ) will be suffixed after the TAM marker and in a few cases, may amalgamate with the TAM marker. In serial verb constructions, the auxiliary has the standard subject agreement prefix and the main verb has the serial subject agreement prefix. The main verb may also have the imperfective prefix. The linear structures of the main clauses is SBJ-VB-TAM-OBJ. In subordinate clauses, a marker *-un* is suffixed to the verb of the non-main clause.

Negation is marked by a prefix occurring between the subject agreement prefix and the stem of the finite verb in the perfective; the linear structure of the clause being SBJ-NEG-VB. In imperfective negative clauses, the aspect is marked by a prefix which appears immediately before the finite verb stem, after the subject agreement marker and the negation marker: SBJ-NEG-IPFV-VB.

Table 1: TAM markers and constructions

Mood	Tense-aspect	Marked by
Indicative	Perfective	Morphologically unmarked, prosody: slightly rising
	Imperfective	Morphologically unmarked, prosody: neutral In serial verb constructions: prefix <i>k-</i> In negative clauses: prefix <i>k-</i>
	Past	Auxiliary verb <i>p-bi</i> + perfective
	Future	One of the three auxiliary verbs (<i>p-bi</i> , <i>p-ia</i> or <i>p-luŋ</i>) + imperfective
	Durative	Reduplication of the verbal stem
	Habitual	Auxiliary verb <i>p-ji</i>
	Ingressive	Auxiliary verb <i>p-do</i> + past
Injunctive	Imperative	Suffix <i>-an</i> ~ <i>-ni</i> ~ <i>-n</i>
	Obligative	The copula <i>p-wo</i> ‘be’ followed by a serial verb construction
Irrealis	Conditional	Conjunction <i>wol</i> + auxiliary verb <i>p-šaŋ</i> or the morpheme <i>le</i>

The data¹ used for this chapter were mainly collected during field trips in Goudomp (Senegal), which took place in 2015, 2016 and 2017, and were especially dedicated to the study of negation.² The consultants were interviewed, following the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]), and Dahl’s TAM questionnaire (Dahl 2000). Some texts were also collected, but do not reflect the entire negative system. In addition to the elicited data, some of the examples also come from observed spontaneous speech. Lastly, some examples are from Gaved (2004, 2007, 2020).

¹In the near future, the collected material will be archived on the platform CorpOrAn (<https://corporan.huma-num.fr/>)

²The examples collected in the field will be mentioned as (Montébrun, fieldnotes).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard Negation

In declarative main clauses, negation is encoded by a verbal prefix -VN-, in which V is a vowel determined by the vowel of the preceding subject agreement marker and N a homorganic nasal consonant.³ This prefix appears between the subject agreement marker and the verbal root.

Negation in declarative main clauses shows three types of asymmetries: one concerning the marking of imperfective aspect, a second concerning subject agreement marking for 1SG⁴, and a third concerning the intonation pattern.

In negative clauses, the subject agreement marker for 1SG is the prefix *m-* (glossed 1SG.NEG), whereas in affirmative clauses the prefix *d-* occurs. The vowel of the negation marker is determined by the vowel of the subject agreement marker, which may on the surface appear as a long vowel: 2SG has an agreement marker *i-*, so the negation marker is *iN-*; 3SG and the serial marker (occurring in serial verb constructions keeping the same subject for all verbs of the series) have an agreement marker *a-*, so the negation marker is *aN-*. 2PL and 3PL have an agreement marker ending with the vowel *a*, so the negation marker is also *aN-*. If the subject agreement marker does not end with a vowel (1SG and 1PL), the negation marker is *əN-*.

Concerning the subject agreement marker, it is noteworthy to add that 1SG, 2SG, 3SG, 1PL, 2PL, 3PL, all refer to human subjects. For non-human 3SG and 3PL, the agreement marker is based on the noun class prefix, which may already end with a vowel (*a* for the classes 1, 1a, 3, 4, 5 or *u* for class 2) but if it ends with a consonant (classes 6, 7, 8, 9 and 10), a vowel *a* will be added. Therefore, the negation marker is *aN-* or *uN-*. These features are summarized in Table 2.

The asymmetry concerning the marking of imperfective aspect, can be explained as follows: in affirmative clauses, perfective and imperfective are morphologically unmarked and are prosodically distinguished. But in negative clauses, both perfective and imperfective have the same intonation pattern (a specific negative one) and the distinction between the aspects is morphological: a prefix *k-* occurs in the imperfective, whereas the perfective remains morphologically unmarked.

³The homorganic nasal consonant is articulated based on the consonant that it is followed by: *m* before *m*, *p*, *b*; *n* before *n*, *t*, *d*; *ŋ* before *k*, *g* etc.

⁴Asymmetries concerning the TAM system are entering into the category A/Cat/TAM and asymmetries concerning person marking into the category A/Cat/PNG in Miestamo's (2005) terminology.

Table 2: Subject agreement marking and negation

	affirmative subject agreement marker	Negative subject agreement marker followed by the negation marker
1SG	d-	m-əN-
2SG	i-	i-iN-
3SG	a-	a-aN-
3SG non-human	CL-(a)	CL-(a)-a/uN-
1PL	ŋ-	ŋ-əN-
2PL	na-	na-aN-
3PL	ba-	ba-aN-
3PL non-human	CL-(a)	CL-(a)-a/uN-
Serial	a-	a-aN-

The linear structure of the minimal perfective clause is SBJ-VB,⁵ with a slightly rising intonation pattern. In negative perfective clauses, the subject agreement marker is followed by the negation prefix VN-. The subject agreement marker for 1SG changes to *m-* under negation. The linear structure of the verb is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-VB. Negative perfective clauses are also marked by a specific intonation pattern (rising and falling, stressing the negation morpheme). Thus, negation of the perfective presents A/Cat/PNG asymmetry restricted to 1SG as well as an asymmetry in the intonation pattern. Examples (1–4) show the affirmative-negative opposition for perfective.

- (1) *d-de taakal.*
 1SG-eat yesterday
 ‘I ate yesterday.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (2) *d-de-i.*
 1SG-eat-COMPL
 ‘I ate.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

⁵It is noteworthy to add concerning the affirmative perfective main clauses that if an intransitive verb occurs without any complement (including time or locative adverbs for example) in prepausal positions (typically before the end of the clause or sentence), a completive suffix *-i* occurs systematically on the verbal stem (for more details, see Gaved 2020: 80).

- (3) *m-ən-de taakal.*
1SG.NEG-NEG-eat yesterday
'I did not eat yesterday.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (4) *m-ən-de-i.*
1SG.NEG-NEG-eat-COMPL
'I did not eat.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

In simple declarative main clauses, the imperfective aspect is morphologically unmarked and has a neutral intonation pattern. The structure of the imperfective verb is SBJ-VB. The negation morpheme is the prefix *-VN-* and the specific negative intonation pattern (rising and falling, stressing the negation morpheme) also arises in negative imperfective clauses; thus intonation does not distinguish imperfective and perfective in negative clauses. The 1SG subject agreement marker also changes from *d-* (in affirmative sentences) to *m-* (in negative sentences). Negative imperfective clauses are systematically morphologically marked for aspect by the morpheme *k-* occurring immediately before the verb root. The linear structure of the verb is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-VB. Since the negation morpheme always precedes the prefix *k-* and contains a homorganic nasal *N*, it systematically appears as a *Vŋ-*. Thus, negation of the imperfective presents A/Cat/TAM, A/Cat/PNG (restricted to 1SG) and intonational asymmetries. Examples (5) and (6) show the affirmative-negative opposition for the imperfective.

- (5) *d-de.*
1SG-eat
'I eat.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (6) *m-əŋ-k-de.*
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-eat
'I do not eat.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

To sum up, the negation of both the perfective and the imperfective uses the same negation morpheme, the prefix *VN-*. The negation of the perfective shows two types of constructional asymmetry: A/Cat/PNG for 1SG and the intonation pattern; and the negation of the imperfective exhibits three types of constructional asymmetry: A/Cat/PNG for 1SG, A/Cat/TAM and the intonation pattern. Both of these aspects show patterns which occur in the majority of the other indicative paradigms.

Past tense is marked by a periphrastic construction employing the auxiliary verb *p-bi* 'come' in the perfective aspect, such as in example (7). The structure of

the clause is SBJ-PST VB. In these clauses, the main verb does not agree with the subject (only the auxiliary does). In negative past clauses, the standard negation morpheme is prefixed to the auxiliary. The structure of the negative clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-PST VB, with the same asymmetries as in the negative perfective, such as in example (8).

- (7) *a-bi lɛmp.*
 3SG-PST work
 ‘He worked.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (8) *a-am-bi lɛmp.*
 3SG-NEG-PST work
 ‘He did not work.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Mankanya has three future tenses, all periphrastic constructions, using one of the following auxiliary verbs *p-ia* ‘go’ (immediate future), *p-bi* ‘come’ (probability or possibility in the future) or *p-lun* ‘swing’ (assertive future). These periphrastic constructions are serial verb constructions and the main verb is morphologically marked for imperfective by the prefix *k-* followed by a serial agreement marker *a-*. The structure of the clause is SBJ-FUT IPFV-SER-VB. Future tenses are negated by the standard negation morpheme, associated with the negative intonation pattern. Since the finite verb is the auxiliary, it takes the negation marker and the imperfective prefix. The structure of a negative future clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-VB. Thus, in the negation of the future, the same asymmetries show up as in the imperfective negative. Examples (9–14) show the affirmative-negative opposition for the three future paradigms.

- (9) *d-ia k-a-lɛmp.*
 1SG-FUT IPFV-SER-work
 ‘I will work (this afternoon).’ (Montébran, fieldnotes).
- (10) *m-əŋ-k-ia k-a-lɛmp.*
 1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-work
 ‘I will not work (this afternoon).’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (11) *d-bi k-a-lɛmp.*
 1SG-FUT IPFV-SER-work
 ‘I will work (probably).’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (12) *m-əŋ-k-bi* *k-a-ləmp*.
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-work
'I will not work (probably).' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (13) *d-luŋ* *k-a-ləmp*.
1SG-FUT IPFV-SER-work
'I will work (certainly).' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (14) *m-əŋ-k-luŋ* *k-a-ləmp*.
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-work
'I will not work (certainly).' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The durative is characterized by the reduplication of the verb, following the structure SBJ-VB-VB, such as in example (15). The negative counterpart has the following structure SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-VB-VB, and shows the same asymmetries as in the negative imperfective, such as in example (16).

- (15) *a-ləmp-ləmp*.
3SG-work-work
'He is working.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (16) *m-əŋ-k-ləmp-ləmp*.
1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-work-work
'I am not working.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The habitual is a periphrastic construction, marked by the auxiliary verb *p-ji* 'say', but the grammaticalisation process is not complete: not only the auxiliary but also the main verb has a subject agreement prefix. However, this agreement marker has specific features depending on the person (for details see Gaved 2020: 178–179). Table 3 sums up the subject agreement marker in habitual.

The habitual follows the structure SBJ-HAB SBJ.HAB-VB. The negative counterpart has the following structure SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-HAB SBJ.HAB-VB; the same asymmetries show up as in the negative perfective. Examples (17) and (18) show the affirmative-negative opposition for the habitual.

- (17) *d-ji* *ka-ləmp*.
1SG-HAB 1SG.HAB-work
'I usually work.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (18) *m-ən-ji* *ka-ləmp*.
1SG.NEG-NEG-HAB 1SG.HAB-work
'I do not work usually.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Table 3: Subject agreement marker for habitual

Subject type	Subject agreement marker	
	on the auxiliary	on the main verb
Human 1SG	standard	prefix <i>ka-</i>
Human 2SG	standard	prefix <i>k-</i>
Human 3SG	standard	zero prefix
Human plural (1PL, 2PL or 3PL)	standard	standard
Non-human (SG and PL)	standard	standard

The meaning of ‘not yet’ is the negative counterpart of the ingressive construction (marked by the auxiliary *p-do* ‘do’ and the past tense marker *bi-*. Again, only the auxiliary verb agrees with the subject and uses the standard negation morpheme. The structure of the clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-INGR PST VB. In this negation, the same asymmetries appear as in the negative perfective, see examples (19) and (20).

- (19) *ba-do bi lemp.*
 3PL-INGR PST work
 ‘They already have worked.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (20) *ba-an-do bi lemp.*
 3PL-NEG-INGR PST work
 ‘They have not worked yet.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2 Negation in non-declarative clauses

2.2.1 Prohibitive

For the second and third persons (singular and plural) the verb is marked by an imperative suffix *-an* (*-n* or *-ni*, depending on the structure of the verbal stem). The second person singular has a zero subject agreement marker, whereas the other persons present the regular subject agreement marker. The linear order of the verb is SBJ-VB-IMP. For the first person plural, the verb does not take the imperative suffix, the construction is unmarked SBJ-VB.

There are two types of prohibitive clauses in Mankanya. The first one is periphrastic, employing the imperative form of the negative auxiliary *p-wut* ‘leave’ followed by the main verb marked for the imperfective and prefixed by the serial

subject marker. This construction is used by older speakers, or in formal speech. Examples (21–25) show the affirmative-negative opposition for imperative and formal prohibitive.

- (21) *ø-tan-an!*
2SG-tie-IMP
'Tie!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (22) *η-tan!*
1PL-tie
'Let us tie!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (23) *na-tan-an!*
2PL-tie-IMP
'You tie!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (24) *ø-wut-an k-a-de wa!*
2SG-leave-IMP IPFV-SER-eat CL.3.SG.OBJ
'Do not eat it!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (25) *na-wut-an k-a-de wa!*
2PL-leave-IMP IPFV-SER-eat CL.3.SG.OBJ
'Do not eat it!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The second prohibitive construction, used in common speech, has a structure SBJ-IPFV-VB, see examples (26–28). This construction appears (also from the speakers' point of view) as a shortened form of the periphrastic prohibitive. There is no overt negative marker in this clause.

- (26) *ø-k-tan!*
2SG-IPFV-tie
'Do not tie!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (27) *na-k-tan!*
2PL-IPFV-tie
'Do not tie!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (28) *ba-k-tan!*
3PL-IPFV-tie
'Do not let them tie!' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

To sum up the prohibitive: a specific negation morpheme occurs (the prohibitive auxiliary *p-wut* ‘leave’), and since the same person-number distinctions are made in the prohibitive and the affirmative imperative, there is no paradigmatic asymmetry. The main verb loses its finiteness with the introduction of a new finite element.

There is a specific impersonal prohibitive construction employing the infinitive of the verb *p-wut* ‘leave’ followed by the infinitive of the main verb, as in examples (29) and (30). There is no affirmative equivalent of this structure, which is a paradigmatic asymmetry.

- (29) *p-wut p-fumaar ti.*
 INF-leave INF-smoke here
 ‘Smoking is not allowed here.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (30) *p-wut p-haabus u-janel.*
 INF-leave INF-open CL.2.SG-window
 ‘Do not open the window.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2.2 Negative obligative

Obligatives are built with the copula *p-wo* followed by a verb marked for imperfective and with a serial subject agreement marker. The structure of the clause is SBJ-COP IPFV-SER-VB, as in example (31). The negative counterpart of obligatives applies the standard negation morpheme on the copula; the structure of the clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-COP IPFV-SER-VB, as in example (32). In the negative obligative, the same asymmetries appear as in the negative perfective.

- (31) *i-wo k-a-lɛmp.*
 2SG-COP IPFV-SER-work
 ‘You must work.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (32) *i-in-wo k-a-win-a.*
 2SG-NEG-COP IPFV-SER-see-3SG.OBJ
 ‘You must not see him.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2.3 Hypothetical constructions

The marker for hypothetical is *p-šan*. Semantically, this auxiliary means that the process should have been done, but was prevented. The clause follows the structure SBJ-HYP SER-VB, as in example (33). There is no dedicated negative marker

for the hypothetical: the standard negation morpheme occurs with the same asymmetries as in the negative perfective. The structure of the negative clause is SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-HYP SER-VB, as in example (34).

- (33) *i-şan a-łemp.*
2SG-HYP SER-work
'You should have worked.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (34) *i-in-şan a-łemp.*
2SG-NEG-HYP SER-work
'You should not have worked.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.2.4 Negative questions

Overt questions are marked by the particle *i* occurring at the end of the clause. Interrogative clauses do not have a specific verbal construction, therefore, the negation depends on the paradigm used. There is no dedicated negation morpheme, the standard negation morpheme also occurs in negative questions, see examples (35) and (36). The negative subject agreement marker for 1SG and the negative intonation pattern always occur (rising then falling, stressing the negation marker, and rising at the end of the clause for the question), in some cases (imperfective or future clauses) also TAM marking asymmetry.

- (35) *na-ntohi a-an-daan biere i?*
CL.1.SG-old_man 3SG-NEG-drink beer Q
'Hasn't the old man drunk beer?' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (36) *i-iŋ-k-ia p-win şaaş i?*
2SG-NEG-IPFV-FUT INF-see father Q
'Will you not see your father?' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.3 Negation in stative predication

2.3.1 Possession

Predicative possession is expressed by a verbal predication using the verb *p-ka* 'have', which is normally inflected in the affirmative and the negative, as shown in examples (37) and (38). The same asymmetries arise as in declarative clauses.

- (37) *Dama a-ka na-poŋ.*
PN 3SG-have CL.1.SG-child
'Dama has a child.' (Gaved 2020: 125)

- (38) *Dama a-aŋ-ka na-poŋ.*
 PN 3SG-NEG-have CL.1.SG-child
 ‘Dama does not have children.’ (Gaved 2020: 125)

2.3.2 Attribution clauses

Attributive clauses are standard verbal constructions using the copula *p-wo* ‘be’, which is normally inflected in the affirmative and in the negative, as in examples (39) and (40). The standard negation morpheme occurs on the copula.

- (39) *m-aŋ-wo na-hula.*
 1SG.NEG-NEG-COP CL.1.SG-hula
 ‘I am not hula (Mankanya).’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (40) *i-in-wo na-jukan.*
 2SG-NEG-COP CL.1.SG-teacher
 ‘You are not teacher.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

2.3.3 Existential and locative predication

Existential and locative clauses use the copula *p-wo* ‘be’ which is normally inflected in the affirmative and in the negative, as shown in examples (41–44).

- (41) *ŋi da-wo na ba-poŋ.*
 here CL.9.SG-COP PREP CL.1.PL-children
 ‘There are children here.’ (lit. ‘Here is with children.’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (42) *ŋi da-an-wo na ba-poŋ.*
 here CL.9.SG-NEG-COP PREP CL.1.PL-children
 ‘There are no children here.’ (lit. ‘Here is not with children.’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (43) *ba-poŋ ba-wo ŋi.*
 CL.1.PL-children CL.1.PL-COP here
 ‘Children are here.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (44) *ba-poŋ ba-an-wo ŋi.*
 CL.1.PL-children CL.1.PL-NEG-COP here
 ‘Children are not here.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The second existential construction is based on the verb *p-ka* ‘have’ in an impersonal use *uka* (*u-ka* CL.2.SG-have; the subject agreement marker is *u-* which can be bound to *u-ko* ‘something’.⁶) This impersonal construction is exemplified in (45). This has a negative counterpart *uŋka* (*u-ŋ-ka* CL.2.SG-NEG-have) which may occur in a nominal clause or negative verbal clause, see examples (46) and (47).

- (45) *u-ka* *du u-kalabus...*
 CL.2.SG-have LOC CL.2.SG-prison
 ‘There was in the prison...’ (Gaved 2020: 209)
- (46) *Uŋka na-duttur ʈi u-ntabaŋka.*
 NEG.EX CL.1.SG-doctor LOC CL.2.SG-village
 ‘There is no doctor in the village.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (47) *Uŋka ŋaany a-an-hil-uŋ p-do u-ko wi.*
 NEG.EX someone 3SG-NEG-can-SUB INF-do CL.2.SG-thing DEM
 ‘Nobody can do that.’ (lit. ‘There isn’t a person able to do that.’)
 (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Presentative constructions are marked by the reduplication of demonstrative articles, as shown in example (48). The negation morpheme occurring in these clauses is *měnt*, which is added to the affirmative clauses without other modifications, such as in example (49).

- (48) *ba-buk naan biki biki.*
 CL.1A.SG-children POSS.1SG DEM DEM
 ‘Here are my children.’ (Gaved 2020: 124)
- (49) *měnt ba-buk naan biki biki.*
 NEG.NML CL.1A.SG-children POSS.1SG DEM DEM
 ‘These are not my children.’ (Gaved 2020: 126)

Locative constructions use the copula *p-wo* ‘be’ which is normally inflected in the affirmative and in the negative. There is no specific negative morpheme dedicated to locative predications, the standard negation morpheme occurs on the copula, as shown in example (50). States or permanent properties are encoded lexically by a verb, and are thereby negated by the standard negation strategy. The verbal encoding of property predications is cross-linguistically common (51).

⁶For more details see Gaved (2020: 208)

- (50) *b-maŋa ba-an-wo ʈi b-lay.*
 CL.7.SG-mango_tree CL.7.SG-NEG-COP LOC CL.5.SG-yard
 ‘The mango tree is not in the yard.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (51) *ŋ-ya u-ʈeeh woli b-nuur ba-an-yiik-i*
 1PL-go CL.2.SG-field if CL.7.SG-sunlight CL.5.SG-NEG-be_hot-COMPL
 ‘We’re going to the field if it’s not hot’ (Gaved 2020: 121)

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

There is no specific negation dedicated to non-main clauses; the standard negation marker (with the negative subject agreement marker for 1SG and the negative intonation pattern) also occurs in relative and complement clauses. In the negative, imperfective and future clauses are marked by the prefix *k-*.

Negation in relative clauses involves the copula *p-wo*, which takes the negation marker. It is noteworthy that the suffix *-uŋ* indicating non-main clauses occurs on the finite verb of the dependent clause in the affirmative and on the copula in negative clauses. The verb loses its finiteness, as for example between the sentences (52) and (53).

- (52) *u-buʂ, u-ʈoo-uŋ, u-joʈ-i.*
 CL.2.SG-dog CL.2.SG-seat-SUB CL.2.SG-be_nasty-COMPL
 ‘The seated dog is nasty.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (53) *u-buʂ, u-un-wo-uŋ u-uŋ-ʈoo, u-joʈ-i.*
 CL.2.SG-dog CL.2.SG-NEG-COP-SUB CL.2.SG-NEG-seat
 CL.2.SG-be_nasty-COMPL
 ‘The dog, which is not seated, is nasty.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Negation of complement clauses depends on the paradigm employed (perfective or imperfective), as shown in examples (54) and (55).

- (54) *a-ji kē i-im-bi taakal.*
 3SG-say COORD 2SG-NEG-come yesterday
 ‘He says that you did not come yesterday.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (55) *d-ji kē i-iŋ-k-bi faan.*
 1SG-say COORD 2SG-NEG-IPFV-come tomorrow
 ‘I say that you will not come tomorrow.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

Conditional clauses are initiated by the conjunction *wol*. There are perfective and imperfective conditional clauses.

In perfective conditional clauses, negation proceeds the same way as in the negation of perfective indicative. A/Cat/PNG asymmetry for 1SG and the specific negative intonation pattern arise.

Imperfective conditional clauses are introduced by the conjunction *wol* and closed with the morpheme *le*. Negation proceeds the same way as the negation of imperfective indicative. Asymmetry appears in the TAM marking, specifically A/Cat/TAM, with subject agreement A/Cat/PNG, and in the intonation pattern.

Examples (56) and (57) show the negative construction for the conditional, perfective and imperfective.

- (56) *wol m-an-lem-p-i...*
COND 1SG.NEG-NEG-WORK-COMPL
'If I have not worked...' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (57) *wol m-an-k-lem le [...]*
COND 1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-WORK COND
'If I do not work [...]' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

The interjection meaning 'no' is *?a?a* (*aa* means 'yes'). Strictly speaking, *?a?a* means disagreement with the polarity of the question and *aa* means agreement with the polarity of the question. Both can be followed by a negative clause, such as in examples (58) and (59).

- (58) 'Is she back home?'
?a?a a-an-do bi tiiş.
no 3SG-NEG-INGR PST come_back
'No, she did not come back yet.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

- (59) 'She is not back home yet?'
aa a-an-do bi tiiş.
yes 3SG-NEG-INGR PST come_back
'Yes, she did not come back yet.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

3.2 Negative indefinites

Negative indefinites are based on the negation morpheme *niin*: *niin ñaaŋ* ‘no-one, nobody’, *niin u-ko* ‘nothing’, *niin u-ko u-loŋ* ‘nothing, anything’. These negative indefinites occur in affirmative sentences, as in example (60).

- (60) *p-wala ka-temp pa-an-wo niin u-ko*
 INF-come_down CL.3.SG-circumcision CL.3.SG-NEG-be NEG CL.2.SG-thing
u-loŋ.
 CL.2.SG-INDF
 ‘To be circumcised is nothing.’ (Gaved 2020: 142)

3.3 Negative derivation

Negative derivation has not been found in Mankanya.

Gaved (2007: 12) also notes that in some cases, a perfective verb may appear as qualifier in an attributive clause to express some properties of the subject. This verb may be in the negative perfective (with all characteristics of the negation of the perfective), as in example (61).

- (61) *ba-wo ba-am-buk-i.*
 3PL-COP 3PL-NEG-bear-COMPL
 ‘They are without children.’ (Gaved 2007: 12)

4 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

In Mankanya, the negative marker always occurs immediately before the negated constituent.

The negation of the focused subject or object is realised with the morpheme *měnt* appearing clause initially and followed by the subject or the object. This morpheme *měnt* is typically used as an anaphoric demonstrative (62), but in this specific construction it occurs as a negative marker, as shown in the opposition between (63) and (64).

- (62) *u-ko mẽnt u-de Şompi maakan.*
 CL.2.SG-think that CL.2.SG-eat PN very
 ‘This thing worried Shompi a lot.’ (Gaved 2020: 125)

- (63) *nji d-wo-uŋ ʔi.*
1SG.INDEP 1SG-COP-SUB here
'It is me living here.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (64) *měŋʔ nji d-wo-uŋ ʔi.*
NEG.NML 1SG.INDEP 1SG-COP-SUB here
'It is not me living here.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The focused object (negated or not) appears at the beginning of the clause, it is followed by a relative clause (note that in these specific relative clauses the first person subject appears as a homorganic nasal *N-*), such as in examples (65) and (66)⁷.

- (65) *ka-hot ki ŋ-kit-iŋ.*
CL.3.SG-leg REL 1SG.REL-break-SUB
'It is my leg that is broken.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (66) *měŋʔ ka-hot ki ŋ-kit-iŋ.*
NEG.NML CL.3.SG-leg REL 1SG.REL-break-SUB
'It is not my leg that is broken.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

4.2 Negative polarity

Negative polarity items have not been found in the data so far.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation.

No effects on the marking of NPs have been found in the data.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Mankanya has a particle *i*, used to reinforce the obligative construction (see example 67), which may also occur in negation, as in example (68).

- (67) *i-wo i k-a-win-a.*
2SG-COP RENF IPFV-SER-see-3SG.OBJ
'You absolutely must see him.' (Montébran, fieldnotes)

⁷Editorial note: Sadly, the author passed away during the final revision process of this chapter. While all efforts have been made to ensure its quality, the glossing of (65) and (66) has not been verified by the author.

- (68) *i-in-wo i k-a-win-a.*
 2SG-NEG-COP RENF IPFV-SER-see-3SG.OBJ
 ‘You absolutely must not see him.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The negative morphemes *měnt* and *niin* occur in the negation of nominal constituents of the clause, namely to negate a focused subject or object; or with the meaning ‘neither... nor...’, in this case, they occur in negative clauses. If it concerns the subject, the structure is similar to the negation of emphatic clauses, and the negative morpheme *měnt* occurs, as in example (69).

- (69) *měnt papa a, mēnt nni a, bukal*
 NEG.NML father 3SG.INDEP.OBJ NEG.NML mother 3SG.INDEP.OBJ 3PL.INDEP
bti ba-těb ba-am-bi-i.
 all CL.1.PL-two CL.1.PL-NEG-come-COMPL
 ‘Neither my father nor my mother came.’ (lit. ‘Neither my father, nor my mother, all the two of them did not come.’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)

If the negation concerns the object, without any emphasis, the negative morpheme will be *niin*, as in example (70).

- (70) *m-ən-du niin papa niin nni.*
 1SG.NEG-NEG-call NEG father NEG mother
 ‘I did not call neither my father nor my mother.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

The verbal emphasis in affirmative sentences is realised by stressing the verb. The negative counterpart uses the standard negation construction, and is stressed by negative intonation. This construction is mostly used in contrastive sentences (as in examples (71) and (72)), but may also be used as answers.

- (71) *m-ən-leir-i, d-piit-piit.*
 1SG.NEG-NEG-read-COMPL 1SG-write-write
 ‘I did not read, I was writing.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)
- (72) *m-əŋ-k-ia k-a-de, d-daan-daan.*
 1SG.NEG-NEG-IPFV-FUT IPFV-SER-eat 1SG-drink-drink
 ‘I will not eat, I am drinking.’ (Montébran, fieldnotes)

4.6 Other aspects of negation

One occurrence of expletive negation has been found in the data. It is a nominal clause, with the negation morpheme *měnt*, used as an answer to the question ‘who did that?’. The answer expresses the certainty of the speaker, despite the use of negation, as in example (73). Even more, the use of negation reinforces the certainty of the speaker, even if it may be perceived as ironic.

- (73) *měnt ul a!*
 NEG.NML 3SG.INDEP 3SG
 ‘That’s him!’ (lit. ‘That is not him!’) (Montébran, fieldnotes)

5 Summary

To conclude, we observed that there are five negation morphemes in Mankanya, summarized in Table 4. Two of them occur in verbal clauses, the other three in nominal clauses. The standard negation morpheme is a verbal prefix *VN-*, which negates all verbal structures, including existential, stative and possessive ones, except prohibitive constructions. These are negated by the negative auxiliary *p-wut*.

Verbal clauses always present a subject agreement marker. In negative clauses (except in the prohibitive, which is defective), the subject agreement marking differs for 1SG.

In Mankanya, the aspectual marking differs between affirmative and negative clauses. Intonation patterns distinguish perfective and imperfective constructions in affirmative clauses, but are always identical in negative clauses. Negative clauses with the standard negation morpheme are characterized by a specific intonation pattern. In negative clauses, perfective and imperfective are morphologically distinct (imperfective is marked by a prefix *k-*, perfective is unmarked), whereas both are morphologically unmarked in affirmative clauses.

Prohibitive is a specific negative counterpart to imperatives and commands. There are two possible forms for the prohibitive: a longer one used in formal speech, and a shortened one, more commonly used. The negation morpheme used to negate commands and imperatives is a negative auxiliary. This paradigm is defective and has no 1SG form.

Negation of nominal elements has three specific markers *měnt*, *niin*, and *uŋka*. The use of each of them is clearly defined. *Měnt* occurs in focused contexts, and not *niin*. Negation of stative prediction mostly uses standard negation, in the case of existential negation another morpheme (*uŋka*) may arise. Table 4 sums-up on the characteristics of each of the paradigms.

Table 4: The negative constructions of Mankanya

Negative marker	Negative construction	Used for
VN-	SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-VB	Perfective, past, habitual, obligative
VN-	SBJ(.NEG)-NEG-IPFV-VB	Imperfective, future, durative
<i>p-wut</i>	SBJ-leave-IMP IPFV-SER-VB	Prohibitive
∅	SBJ-IPFV-VB	Prohibitive (shortened)
<i>mēnt</i>	NEG.NML SBJ	Presentative, focused subject or object
<i>uŋka</i>	NEG.EX SBJ	Negative existential
<i>niin</i>	immediately before the negated constituent	neither... nor
<i>?a?a</i>	<i>?a?a</i>	negative reply

Abbreviations

1–10, 1A	number of noun class	EX	existential
1SG	first person singular	FUT	future
2SG	second person singular	HAB	habitual
3SG	third person singular	HYP	hypothesis
1PL	first person plural	IMP	imperative
2PL	second person plural	INDEP	independent subject marker
3PL	third person plural	INDF	indefinite
CL	noun class	INF	infinitive
COND	conditional	INGR	ingressive
COORD	coordination	IPFV	imperfective
COP	copula	LOC	locative
COMPL	completive	NML	nominal
DEM	demonstrative	NEG	negation

NP	noun phrase	RENF	reinforcement particle
OBJ	object	SBJ	subject
PST	past	SER	serial subject agreement
PL	plural		marker
PN	proper noun	SG	singular
POSS	possession	SUB	subordinate
Q	question marker	TAM	tense, aspect, mood
REL	relative	VB	verb

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Chapter 14

Negation in Mano

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This paper describes the negation system in Mano, a Southern Mande language. Negation in declarative, non-verbal and non-main clauses in Mano is asymmetric both because negation involves a change in the TAM constructions (constructional asymmetry) and because the inventory of negative constructions is reduced with respect to the inventory of affirmative constructions (paradigmatic asymmetry). In non-declarative constructions, several negative constructions do not have affirmative counterparts, resulting in paradigmatic asymmetry. Mano indefinite quantifiers distinguish between full and partial negation. Another unusual feature is a dedicated negative particle *gǝǝ* which is used only in conditional constructions. Mano does not have any negative derivation or negative coordinators and just one negative polarity item, *fɛi* ‘nothing’.

Keywords: negation, Mano, Mande, asymmetric negation, quantifiers.

1 The language

Mano (or mááwè, Ethnologue: Maan, ISO: mev, Glottocode: mann1248) counts 370 000 speakers in Guinea and Liberia. Mano belongs to the Southern branch of the Mande language family, which has a debated status within the Niger-Congo phylum (Vydrin 2016; Dimmendaal & Storch 2016).

Mano is spoken in South-Eastern Guinea and Northern Liberia. Guinean Mano counts about 66 000 speakers being one of 34 indigenous languages spoken in Guinea (Bah & Bangoura 2017). In Liberia, Mano is spoken by about 305 000 people, it is the fifth, out of 27, most spoken indigenous language of the country. In Guinea, three Mano dialects are distinguished: Zaan (*zǝǝ*), the easternmost dialect spoken around the Bossou town, Maa (*mǝǝ*), the central dialect spoken in



the city of Nzérékoré and to the south of it, and Kpeinson (*kpéɲsɛ́*), the Western dialect spoken around the Diécké town. In Liberia, there are also three dialects: the Northern dialect, Maalaa (*máá láā*), spoken around Sanniquellie, the Central dialect, Maazein (*máá zèŋ*) spoken around Ganta, and the Southern dialect, Maabei (*máá bèi*), spoken around Saklepea. It is likely that there are several other varieties spoken to the south of Saklepea. Guinean and Liberian dialects are mutually understandable. While there is some variation between them, especially in the domain of phonology and lexicon (Khachaturyan 2018), there is much less variation in morphosyntax and no attested variation in the negation system, which is the main topic of this paper. Most of the data is drawn from the central Guinean dialect, Maa.

The work on Mano is based on fifteen months of fieldwork conducted by the author between 2009 and 2019. Many examples are drawn from natural examples from a spoken corpus, but a small portion is elicited, all examples are marked correspondingly (nat. and el.). Some examples coming from the Bible translation (UBS 1978) are marked (UBS) and were checked with a native speaker for grammaticality and natural sounding. A grammar can be found in Khachaturyan (2015), some typological findings were exposed in Khachaturyan (2014a, 2020). The paper is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors of this volume (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and follows its structure.

Mano is characterized by a fixed S-O-V-X word order, where X stands for all oblique arguments and adverbs. The word order in the noun phrase is Gen – N – Adj, followed by number words, quantifiers, and demonstratives, respectively. While Mano segmental morphology is relatively poor, it has a rich system of tonal morphemes, especially on the verb and on the auxiliary (see Appendices with sample paradigms and §2.1 for a discussion of the use of the forms).

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Mano predications are divided into two major types: predicator clauses, where the head is an invariable predicator, and constructions with auxiliaries which function as a site of subject indexation. The word order in the latter is S-AUX-O-V, where AUX is an auxiliary. The subject NP is optional, so the subject may be expressed solely by a person and number index on the auxiliary. The list of auxiliaries is given in the Appendix (Table 6). When the direct object is expressed by a 3sg pronoun, a portmanteau form of the auxiliary is typically used, although

a combination of a non-portmanteau form and a pronoun is also possible; such portmanteau forms are marked with >3SG (1).

- (1) *māà mā.*
 1SG.PRF>3SG understand
 ‘I have understood it.’ (nat.)

The auxiliaries are not the only markers of TAM. As is typical for languages of Sub-Saharan Africa (Welmers 1973: 343), in Mano, TAM values, including negation, are not expressed by specific markers: they are rather expressed by a construction as a whole which contains auxiliaries together with particles (such as the negative particle *gbā* used in the negative aorist (5); *néh* ‘not yet’ used in the negative perfect (7); or *dō* ‘once, never’ used in the affirmative and negative experiential (12, 13)) and verbs in a particular morphological form (for a sample of verbal forms, see Appendix, Table 7).

In declaratives, there is only one negative auxiliary series (glossed by NEG) which, combined with different grammatical means, is used to form constructions of negative imperfective (3), aorist (5), and perfect (7), while in the affirmative zone, there are three dedicated auxiliaries used for these purposes. Thus, affirmative imperfective is formed with the imperfective auxiliary (2), affirmative aorist is formed with the past auxiliary (4) and affirmative perfect is formed with the perfect auxiliary (6).

- (2) Affirmative imperfective
ňň nàà à ká.
 1SG.IPFV love:IPFV 3SG with
 ‘I want that.’ (nat.)
- (3) Negative imperfective
ňň nāā nèŋwò gèà ká.
 1SG.NEG love lie say.GER with
 ‘I don’t like lying.’ (nat.)
- (4) Affirmative aorist
ē túó.
 3SG.PST be.afraid
 ‘She got scared.’ (nat.)

- (5) Negative aorist

ḡḡ gbā wì zē.

1SG.NEG NEG animal kill

‘I did not kill an animal.’ (nat.)

- (6) Affirmative perfect

āà kā ló kā sḡḡ gbùò ká.

3SG.PRF 2PL buy 2PL price big with

‘He has bought you with a big price.’ (nat.)

- (7) Negative perfect (,not yet‘)

Zézú lèé nū nḡḡ.

Jesus 3SG.NEG come yet

‘Jesus has not come yet.’ (nat.)

In addition to the aforementioned basic constructions, Mano has future and imperfect constructions (affirmative and negative). The future construction derives from the imperfective construction: the auxiliary verb *ló* ‘go’ is put in the imperfective, followed by the content verb in the gerund form (8–9). The imperfect derives from the aorist construction: the auxiliary verb *kē* ‘be, do’ is put in the aorist, followed by the content verb in the infinitive (10–11).

- (8) Affirmative future

lèé lō yé-è ē zí.

3SG.IPFV go:IPFV break-GER 3SG.REFL back

‘He will come back.’ (nat.)

- (9) Negative future

lèé lō wāā bèlà yī.

3SG.NEG go suffering eat.GER there

‘She will not suffer there.’ (nat.)

- (10) Affirmative imperfect

péné ē kē gáá-pèlè.

sun 3SG.PST do drag-INF

‘The day (of the festivities) was approaching.’ (nat.)

- (11) Negative imperfect

lèé gbā kē ló-pèlè ē mḡḡ.

3SG.NEG NEG do go-INF 3SG.REFL behind

‘He was not going back.’ (nat.)

The experiential affirmative construction is formed by adding the particle *dō* ‘once’ to the perfect construction (12). The negative experiential construction is formed by replacing the particle *néŋ* ‘not yet’ with *dō* ‘once’ in the negative perfect construction (13).

- (12) Affirmative experiential
wāà gè dō.
 3PL.PRF>3SG see once
 ‘They have once seen it.’ (nat.)

- (13) Negative experiential
kòó mī dò gè dō zèē.
 1PL.NEG person INDF see once here
 ‘We have never seen anyone here.’ (nat.)

The final declarative construction is prospective (14), which cannot be negated.

- (14) Prospective
yèlè é kpìlì kē.
 3SG.PROSP 3SG.CNJV feast do
 ‘He is going to organize a feast.’ (nat.)

In addition, imperfective and resultative constructions are formed on non-verbal models. Affirmative imperfective is based on the existential auxiliary and affirmative resultative is based on the affirmative predicator *lē*, while the negative imperfective and the negative resultative are based on the general stative negator, the copula *wí*. These constructions are properly introduced in §2.3. Table 1 compares affirmative and negative declarative verbal clauses.

To conclude this section, negation in Mano is asymmetric (in the sense proposed by Miestamo 2005) both because negation involves a change in the TAM constructions (constructional asymmetry) and because the inventory of negative constructions is reduced with respect to the inventory of affirmative constructions (paradigmatic asymmetry). The main marker for standard negation is the negative auxiliary series.

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

Just like in declarative constructions, in non-declaratives, including directives, Mano employs specific TAM constructions which differ from one another in the choice of the auxiliary (and sometimes in the construction-initial particle), the

Table 1: Declarative verbal clauses

	affirmative	negative
imperfective	SBJ-AUX.IPFV-VB:IPFV (2)	SBJ-AUX.NEG-VB (3)
future	SBJ-AUX.IPFV- <i>ló</i> (‘go’):IPFV-VB-GER (8)	SBJ-AUX.NEG- <i>ló</i> (‘go’)-VB-GER (9)
aorist	SBJ-AUX.PST-VB (4)	SBJ-AUX.NEG- <i>gbā</i> -VB (5)
imperfect	SBJ-AUX.PST- <i>kē</i> -VB-INF (10)	SBJ-AUX.NEG- <i>gbā-kē</i> -VB-INF (11)
perfect	SBJ-AUX.PRF-VB (6) experiential: SBJ-AUX.PRF-VB- <i>dō</i> (12)	‘not yet’: SBJ-AUX.NEG-VB- <i>néḡ</i> (7) experiential: SBJ-AUX.NEG-VB- <i>dō</i> (13)
prospective	SBJ-AUX.PROSP-AUX.CNJV-VB (14)	N/A

verb typically remaining in its lexical form. Thus, the imperative and the basic optative constructions employ a subjunctive auxiliary (15); in the second person singular imperative, the auxiliary is not expressed. The prohibitive construction employs the prohibitive auxiliary series (16).

(15) Imperative

kà gó sàḡ ḡwò gènè.

1PL.SBJV leave character problem:CNSTR in.front.of

‘Stop behaving badly!’ (lit. ‘Go away from the problem of behavior!’)
(UBS)

(16) Prohibitive

báá wéè mā.

2PL.PROH>3SG speech hear

‘Don’t listen to him!’ (lit. ‘Don’t hear his speech!’) (nat.)

Optative and prohibitive constructions can also be formed with a subjunctive auxiliary together with dedicated optative (*fǝkē*, (17)) or prohibitive (*yékè*, (18)) construction-initial particle. The prohibitive particle is also used in purpose constructions (‘so that X doesn’t do Y’).

(17) Optative

fǝkē kó ló à pié yī̀ bà zàá.

OPT 1PL.CNJV go 3SG at dream in in

‘We should come to him in the dream.’ (nat.)

(18) Prohibitive

yékè ó ló ō mèn̄ Hél̄ píé.

PROH 3PL.CNJV go 3PL behind Herod at

‘They should not return to Herod.’ (UBS)

Another prohibitive construction is formed with a paraphrase, literally meaning ‘I am not telling you to do X’ Its exact pragmatic value is unknown, however, because of its non-explicit form, it could be connected to the politeness function of hedging and avoiding direct commands (19).

(19) Prohibitive

ñ̄ñ gèē ká gbóó bō!

1SG.NEG>3SG say 2PL.CNJV crying implement

‘Don’t cry!’ (lit. ‘I am not telling you to cry.’) (nat.)

There are no dedicated hortative constructions, but imperatives, optatives and prohibitives may have a hortative interpretation. Thus, (17) can be read as a mutual encouragement: the spirits of a person’s deceased parents are encouraging one another to come to him in a dream.

A particular modal construction – the dubitative – is used without an inverse polarity counterpart. It could be interpreted as a negative polarity construction, as it means that an event occurred from the perspective of the subject, but the external observer disagrees that it indeed took place. Thus, the construction expresses a negation, from an outsider’s perspective, of the state of affairs as seen by the protagonist whose point of view is expressed (20).

(20) Dubitative

àá lā wéé-pè wē yìè mā gbāābō.

3SG.DUB 3SG.POSS speak-thing:CNSTR DEM good hear now

‘She thought that she heard her beautiful musical instrument (but in fact it was a fish).’ (nat.)

To sum up, Mano non-declaratives show constructional asymmetry patterns: there is a negative optative periphrastic without an affirmative counterpart; there is also a dubitative construction which is also implicitly negative. Non-declarative clauses are summarized in Table 2.

Table 2: Non-declarative clauses

	affirmative	negative
directive	AUX.SBJV; <i>fǝkē</i> AUX.CNJV	AUX.PROH; <i>yékè</i> AUX.CNJV; <i>ǝǝ gèē</i> AUX.CNJV
dubitative	N/A	AUX.DUB

2.3 Negation in non-verbal predications

Most stative non-verbal predications in the present are formed with an existential auxiliary.¹ In contrast to other auxiliary constructions, there is no verb in non-verbal constructions with existential auxiliaries (21). In the past, however, an overt verb *kē* ‘be’ is used as part of the aorist construction (22). The verb can also be used in the sense ‘become’, used in non-stative functions and put in the perfect (23) or imperfective construction (24). Examples below illustrate the proper inclusion function, but the same patterns can apply to other functions expressed by non-verbal construction listed further below in this section.

- (21) *à dàā lē dōmì ká.*
 3SG father 3SG.EX chief with
 ‘His father is a chief.’ (el.)
- (22) *à dàā ē kē dōmì ká.*
 3SG father 3SG.PST be chief with
 ‘His father was a chief.’ (nat.)
- (23) *à dàā āā kē dōmì ká.*
 3SG father 3SG.PRF be chief with
 ‘His father has become a chief.’ (el.)
- (24) *à dàā léè kè dōmì ká.*
 3SG father 3SG.IPFV be:IPFV chief with
 ‘His father becomes a chief.’ (el.)

All negative stative non-verbal predications in the present are formed with a general negative stative copula *wó* (26b) (Veselinova 2013). Non-stative and/or non-present non-verbal predications are negated according to the models of standard negation given in §2.1. For example, negative stative predication in the past is formed like negative aorist (25).

¹More details in non-verbal predication in Mano can be found in Khachaturyan (2023).

- (25) à dàā lèé gbā kē d̄mì ká.
 3SG father 3SG.NEG NEG be chief with
 ‘His father was not a chief.’ (el.)

Stative non-verbal constructions as listed in Veselinova (2014), that is, equation, proper inclusion (also called classification, Haspelmath 2025), attribution, locative and possessive predications are given below with their affirmative and negative counterparts (26–30).

(26) Equation

- a. ḡó wē lē ŋ d̄ē ká
 man:H DEM 3SG.EX 1SG husband with
 ‘This man is my husband.’ (el.)
- b. ḡó wē wó ŋ d̄ē ká
 man:H DEM COP.NEG 1SG husband with
 ‘This man is not my husband.’ (el.)

(27) Proper inclusion

- a. Sèé lē kàlà mòò ká.
 Se 3SG.EX teacher with
 ‘Se is a teacher.’ (el.)
- b. Sèé wó kàlà mòò ká.
 Se COP.NEG teacher with
 ‘Se is not a teacher.’ (el.)

(28) Attribution

- a. ḡó ṽn éé vò ò tííkpé.
 cat PL 3PL.EX small
 ‘Cats are small.’ (el.)
- b. ḡó ṽn éé vò wó tííkpé.
 cat PL COP.NEG small
 ‘Cats are not small.’ (el.)

(29) Location

- a. *ī kēì.*
2SG.EX house.LOC
'You are in the room.' (el.)
- b. *ḥī wó kēì.*
2SG.EMPH COP.NEG house.LOC
'You are not in the room.' (el.)

(30) Possession

- a. *gǝṇṇéé vò ò ḥ kèlè.*
cat PL 3PL.EX 1SG hand
'I have cats.' (lit. 'Cats are in my hand.') (el.)
- b. *gǝṇṇṇéé vò wó ḥ kèlè.*
cat PL COP.NEG 1SG hand
'I don't have cats' (lit. 'Cats aren't in my hand.') (el.)

Proper inclusion construction is formed, in addition to the argument and the auxiliary (or the copula), with a postpositional phrase with a comitative postposition *ká* expressing the set into which the subject NP is included. In some affirmative proper inclusion constructions, however, the set NP can be put in the argument position, while the definite NP, the argument of the predication, is put in the postpositional phrase, such as in (31). Such constructions have the predicator *lé* instead of the existential auxiliary (more details on the predicator can be found below). The difference between these two types of proper inclusion constructions most likely pertains to the level of information structure, as reflected in the translation of (31) and (32). For more detail on argument-predicate reversal, see Khachaturyan (2023).

- (31) *mouchoir lé mí tǝṣ ká.*
handkerchief[FR] ATT person:H DEM.VIS with
'It is a handkerchief, this thing (lit. person).' (nat.)
- (32) *mí tǝṣ lē mouchoir ká.*
person:H DEM.VIS 3SG.EX handkerchief[FR] with
'This thing (lit. person) is a handkerchief.' (el.)

In addition to the constructions predicating location, classification, or an attribute of a referent, Mano also has constructions predicating existence. These

constructions have functions of predicating existence, the function dubbed *hyparctic* by Haspelmath (2025). Like other non-verbal constructions, in the affirmative, they are formed with the existential auxiliary (33), and in the negative (34), with the copula *wó*. They also contain an existential particle *bē~wē*.

(33) Affirmative hyparctic predication

bīē vò ō bē.
elephant PL 3PL.EX EX
'Elephants exist.' (el.)

(34) Negative hyparctic predication

bīē vò wó bē.
elephant PL COP.NEG EX
'Elephants do not exist.' (el.)

Another type of constructions with only one argument are used for referent identification or presentation (Killian 2022). These two functions have a lot of overlap and cannot be clearly delineated. One of the ways to pull the functions apart is based on the referent's properties, whether it is physically available at the interactive scene. In identifying constructions, the referent does not need to be physically present. In the affirmative, identifying constructions are formed with the predicator² *lē* (35) and in the negative, with the copula *wó* and a postpositional phrase with the postposition *ká* and dummy 3SG pronoun *à* (36). The 3SG existential auxiliary *lē* and the predicator *lē* are homonymous, but the predicator is used with arguments of all persons and numbers (35), while the auxiliary is used only with a 3SG argument (27a): the 3PL subject requires the 3PL auxiliary *ō* (28a).

(35) Affirmative identification

kō gǔà vò lē.
1PL man.PL PL IDENT
'It is us, men.' (nat.)

²A note on terminology. I consider copulas a type of predicators which indicate "the stative link between the two argument positions of a nonverbal clause" (Haspelmath 2025: 9). Only the copula *wó* corresponds to this definition, as it obligatorily has two syntactic arguments, including in identification constructions where semantically, there is only one argument. Predicators *lé*, *lē*, *gǔ* and *wó* are typically used with only one argument – the subject, although they may occasionally take a locative argument. For this reason, they are not considered to be copulas.

- (36) Negative identification

à líésimìà wáá ká.
BRIDG chief.PL COP.NEG>3SG with
'It is not the chiefs.' (nat.)

Wó (37) and *gè* (38) are typically used in presentative constructions which serve to orient to physically available referents. *Gè*, deriving from the verb *gè* 'to see', is used with objects visible to both the speaker and addressee, while *wó* does not have that restriction. There is no negative equivalent of presentative constructions.

- (37) Presentative with predicator *wó*

yē wó ò.
3SG.EMPH PRES DEM
'There he is!' (nat.)

- (38) Presentative with predicator *gè*

dìì dōó gè, bū wélé òó dōó gè.
cow one PRES.VIS rice bone bag one PRES.VIS
'Here is one cow, here is one bag of rice.' (nat.)

Presentative constructions can also be used to predicate location, in which case a locative argument is added after the predicator, as in (39).

- (39) Presentative and locational with predicator *wó*

gítàà bíí wó dìñ yā.
guitar[FR] image PRES there DEM
'There is the image of the guitar.' (nat.)

Predicator *lé* is used both with physically available and non-available referents and, therefore, for presentation and identification. Its general function is drawing attention to a referent; as examples below and in §2.4 demonstrate, it can also be used as a focalizer or a relativizer (more on the link between these functions, see Khachaturyan & Ozerov 2021). In example (40), presentation is implicit as the speaker is referring to the village where he resides and where he is located at the moment of speech.

- (40) Identification/presentative with predicator *lé*

à kē sèlè diè lé wē.
3SG do village:CNSTR true ATT DEM
'(We lie a lot), but this is the true village of liars.' (lit. 'The true village of doing it is.') (nat.)

Predicators *lé* and *wó* are obligatorily followed by a demonstrative or a spatial adjunct. Whenever a demonstrative is used, the affirmative predictor *wó* can be distinguished from the negative predictor *wó*, but the examples where *wó* is followed by a locative adjunct are potentially ambiguous between a presentative reading and a negative location reading.

Presentative and identifying functions can be combined with the hyparctic function, when the existence of an object is predicated at the same time when the referent is presented or identified. In such cases, the predictor *gè* or *lé* is used, followed by the existential marker *bē~wē*. The context of example (41) is that a careless driver hits a motorist. He visits him in the hospital, most possibly, for negotiations of damage reimbursement. He brings relatives or friends with him. By uttering (41), the speaker does not only present the people, but also communicates the very fact that he has brought some people with him.

- (41) *ɲ mīā gè bē.*
 1SG.POSS person.PL PRES.VIS EX
 ‘Here are my people.’ (nat.)

Whether or not the existence of the object demonstrated is predicated depends on the existing presuppositions and the referent’s status in the common knowledge of discourse participants. Thus, simple presentative constructions, such as (40), can be interpreted as hyparctic, as well. In (40), the demonstrative can be replaced by the existential marker *bē*.

Identifying and presentative predictors (*lé*, *wó*, *gè* but not *lē*) can be followed by a clause (typically with a final demonstrative, which, however, can be omitted, as in (42), the contexts of omission are not clear). The clause may serve to facilitate identification.

- (42) *yē lé ē kīē zē kpá.*
 3SG.EMPH ATT 3SG.PST chimpanzee kill long.time.ago
 ‘(The man that is here, it is my son,) It is him who killed the chimpanzee in the times past.’ (nat.)

Constructions with a clause can also be used in the focus function, which is a cross-linguistically rather typical extension of identification constructions (Killian 2022). A common case arethetic (all-new) utterances where one NP – typically the subject – is framed with a demonstrative predictor. Example (43) is a response to the question, who wants my goat. Usually, big animals are needed in times of big events, most often funerals, so implicitly, the question is, whose

funeral is the goat needed for. By saying “It is my in-law who has died”, the speaker of (43) responds to that implicit question. At the same time, the whole utterance in (43) is new information and functions as athetic utterance. See also (53) as an example of focalization of a locative adjunct and (77) as an example of direct object focalization.

- (43) *mā lē, ħ yóò lé à gā-à lē ē.*
 1SG.EMPH IDENT 1SG in.law ATT 3SG die-GER IDENT DEM
 ‘It is me, my in-law died.’ (lit. ‘It is my in-law that its dying is.’)

Negative identification can also be combined with a clause in the cleft function (44).

- (44) *néfú tóò wáá ká kē é làà wē kpó ē*
 child DEM.VIS COP.NEG>3SG with PURP 3SG.CNJV knife DEM put 3SG.REFL
sónó.
 near
 ‘It is not the child who puts the knife near himself.’

In contrast with affirmative identification constructions (42, 43), in negative identification constructions an indicative construction is not used, a purpose construction with a conjunctive auxiliary is used instead (44). There is no negative equivalent of presentative constructions. For more detail on identifying and presentative constructions, see Khachaturyan (2023).

As mentioned in §2.1, imperfective and resultative constructions are also formed on non-verbal models. The imperfective construction in (45–46) is formed based on the locative construction (and indeed, the infinitive suffix *-pèlè* derives from the noun *pélé* ‘place’ in a low-tone construct form).

- (45) Affirmative imperfective
sāqā lē ló-pèlè líé.
 work 3SG.EX go-INF front
 ‘The work is advancing.’ (nat.)
- (46) Negative imperfective
mā wó ló-pèlè lūú.
 1SG.EMPH COP.NEG go-INF bush
 ‘I am not going to the bush.’ (nat.)

Resultative constructions derive from identifying constructions where the subject position is occupied by a VP nominalization with a gerund (47–48).

- (47) Affirmative resultative
 à b̃ṣ-ḍ l̃ē.
 3SG leave-GER IDENT
 ‘He has left.’ (lit. ‘His leaving is.’) (el.)
- (48) Negative resultative
 à b̃ṣ-ḍ wáá ká.
 3SG leave-GER COP.NEG>3SG with
 ‘He has not left.’ (lit. ‘His leaving isn’t with it.’) (el.)

Table 3 summarizes affirmative and negative non-verbal clauses.

Table 3: Non-verbal clauses

	affirmative	negative
equation, attribution, locative, possessive	AUX.EX	COP.NEG
proper inclusion	AUX.EX or ATT	COP.NEG
hyparctic	AUX.EX	COP.NEG
identifying	IDENT, ATT	COP.NEG
presentative	PRES, PRES.VIS, ATT	N/A
resultative	IDENT	COP.NEG
imperfective	AUX.EX	COP.NEG

Non-verbal predications manifest both constructional and paradigmatic asymmetry. Constructional asymmetry arises from the fact that all non-verbal predications in the affirmative are formed with an existential auxiliary, with the exception of presentative constructions which are formed with presentative predicators and identification constructions which are formed with the identification or attention-drawing predicator. The negative equivalents, however, are all formed with the copula. Paradigmatic asymmetry is manifested by the lack of negative equivalent of presentative constructions.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

By default, negation in non-main clauses is formed along the patterns of standard negation. Some non-main clauses in Mano do not have a negative counterpart. This is the case of the conjoint construction used to express a sequence of events in a narrative or simultaneously occurring events (49). When sequences of events are negated, the usual negative construction is used as in (50).

- (49) *ē nū wàà sōō sì pēlēí.*
 3SG.PST come 3PL.CJ yelling take:CJ village
 ‘He came and they (immediately) started to yell in the village.’ (nat.)
- (50) *léè gbóó fō tó làá zú ó*
 3SG.IPFV sobbing implement:IPFV and 3SG.NEG>3SG accept 3PL.CNJV>3SG
nēēnēé.
 console
 ‘Rachel is weeping and refuses (lit. does not accept) to be comforted.’
 (UBS)

Similarly to directive constructions in the main clause (see §2.2), affirmative and negative purpose clauses are both formed with the conjunctive auxiliary. The affirmative construction also includes the initial purpose particle *kē* (51) and the negative construction includes the prohibitive particle *yékè* (52).

- (51) *monpère dò wó kō fèñ kē é làmésà*
 priest[FR] INDF COP.NEG 1PL between PURP 3SG.CNJV Mass[FR]
sàlà fō.
 sacrifice:CNSTR implement
 ‘There is no priest among us to celebrate the Mass.’ (lit. ‘There is no priest among us so that he implements the sacrifice of the Mass.’) (nat.)
- (52) *óò lō ō kò yà ī wì yékè ī gà é gũ.*
 3PL.IPFV go:IPFV 3PL hand sit 2SG under PROH 2SG foot 3SG.CNJV hurt
 ‘They will support you (lit. put their hands under you) so that your foot does not hurt.’ (nat.)

In relative clauses and focus constructions, the relativized or the focused constituent is framed by the predicator *lé* and its variants, *té*, *né*, used after a nasal vowel or a syllable starting with a nasal consonant, and a floating high tone. In these constructions, the imperfective auxiliary is replaced by the subjunctive auxiliary both in the imperfective and in the future constructions (53). Negative relative clauses keep their negative auxiliary, which is another instance of paradigmatic asymmetry. Indeed, in the affirmative, there is a contrast between an imperfective construction used in the main and in the relative clause (or in a focus construction) and in the negative, there is no such contrast as shown in (54).

- (53) [lè lé ò bò kònò yī ā] yē lé è lélé
 place ATT 3PL.SBJV goat stick:IPFV there DEM 3SG.EMPH ATT 3SG.SBJV leaf
 bèlè yī ā.
 eat:IPFV there DEM
 ‘Where you attach the goat, this is where it eats the leaves.’ (nat.)
- (54) [mí né lélé bā ē bēē yīè ká ā] gbòò
 person:H ATT 3SG.NEG bear.fruit 3SG.REFL fruit good with DEM axe
 lē kpàá yílí gáná yí.
 3SG.EX put.GER>with tree root in
 ‘The person who does not bear good fruit, the axe is already put at the roots.’ (nat.)

Some dependent clauses can take a non-finite form: this is the case of purpose constructions which can contain a gerund if the subjects of the dependent and the main clauses corefer (55). Yet negative purpose clauses are expressed only by finite prohibitive constructions (56).

- (55) kò lō dē vō-ò ī ηwéh.
 1PL.SBJV go:IPFV divination send-GER 2SG because.of
 ‘Let’s go to make a divination for you.’ (nat.)
- (56) í gó lē wē mò, yékè í ī gà gbè sélé mésià
 2SG.CNJV leave place DEM on PROH 2SG.CNJV 2SG foot put ground holy
 wē yí.
 DEM in
 ‘You must leave so that you don’t put your feet on the holy ground.’ (nat.)

Conditional clauses are particularly interesting with respect to negation. There is a dedicated negative conditional marker *gòá* which is used in negative protasis (real, (59), and counterfactual, (61–62)) and in counterfactual negative apodosis (62). In addition, there are dedicated conditional verbal forms (two different tonal forms combined with the conditional suffix *-á*) used only in affirmative protasis, real (57) and counterfactual (60), as well as a counterfactual form *-à* used in negative protasis (real, (59), and counterfactual, (61–62), as well as in counterfactual apodosis (affirmative, (60–61), and negative, (62)). As all these examples show, there is a large array of dedicated conditional forms and constructions. The only cases where usual declarative constructions are used are real apodosis, which features imperfective and future constructions in the affirmative (57) and in the negative (58).

- (57) Real conditional, affirmative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [ká mǎ-á ā] kǎà lō yéí sí-à.
 2PL.CNJV>3SG hear:COND-COND DEM 2PL.IPFV go:IPFV laughter take-GER
 ‘If you hear it, you will laugh.’ (el.)
- (58) Real conditional, affirmative protasis, negative apodosis
 [í gēlē dà bēē bēē ā yí ā,] lēē lō dō pēē.
 2SG.CNJV rock fall also bag DEM in DEM 3SG.NEG go once tear.GER
 ‘Even if you put a rock in the bag, it will not tear apart.’ (el.)
- (59) Real conditional, negative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [í gǎǎ kē-ē ē] mū dō gbēē lēē lō á
 2SG.CNJV COND.NEG do-CNTF DEM person INDF different 3SG.IPFV go 3SG
 kē-ē.
 do-GER
 ‘If you don’t do it, nobody else will do it.’ (nat.)
- (60) Counterfactual conditional, affirmative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [bà kǎ-ǎ yǎlá ā] báá gǎ-à jéné pèlē
 2SG.SBJV>3SG cut:IRR-COND yesterday DEM 2SG.PROH die-CNTF sun two
 píé.
 to
 ‘If you had cut it, you would have died in two days.’ (el.)
- (61) Counterfactual conditional, negative protasis, affirmative apodosis
 [è gǎǎ kē-ē ī ká ā] máá wǎā bēlè-à.
 3SG.SBJV COND.NEG do-CNTF 3SG with DEM 1SG.PROH suffering eat-CNTF
 ‘Without you (lit. if it hadn’t been you) I would have suffered.’ (el.)
- (62) Counterfactual conditional, negative protasis, negative apodosis
 [è gǎǎ pé bē sí-à ā] lēē gǎǎ
 3SG.SBJV COND.NEG thing:H DEM take-CNTF DEM 3SG.NEG COND.NEG
 fēlà gbāā.
 become.clear.CNTF now
 ‘If she hadn’t taken this thing, her skin (lit. she) would not have become so fair.’ (el.)

Note also that the meaning ‘without’ in (61) is expressed by a periphrastic construction: ‘without you’, lit. ‘if it hadn’t been you’.

Another interesting part are cases of polarity mismatch: the prohibitive auxiliary occurs in the construction of counterfactual affirmative apodosis (60). In addition, the subjunctive auxiliary occurs in the counterfactual protasis, both affirmative (60) and negative (61). Conjunctive auxiliary, too, occurs in both affirmative (57–58) and negative (59) real protasis, but this type of polarity mismatch is reminiscent of directive strategies, where the conjunctive auxiliary can be used in both imperative and prohibitive constructions.

Negation in non-main clauses manifests constructional asymmetry in directive constructions: while affirmative directive construction is non-finite, the negative one is finite. In addition, with the exception of counterfactual protasis, all other non-main clauses have different auxiliaries in the affirmative and in the negative, which is another manifestation of constructional asymmetry. There is no paradigmatic asymmetry. Table 4 compares affirmative and negative non-main clauses.

Table 4: Non-main clauses

	affirmative	negative
sequence, simultaneity	AUX.CJ VB:CJ	AUX.NEG VB
imperfective in relative clauses, focus	AUX.SBJV VB	AUX.NEG VB
directive in dependent clauses, coreferential subjects	VB-GER	<i>yékè</i> AUX.CNJV VB
conditional		
real protasis	AUX.CNJV (VB, (57) or VB.COND, ^a (58))	AUX.CNJV <i>gɔ́ǎ</i> VB-CNTF (59)
counterfactual protasis	AUX.SBJV VB.IRR (60)	AUX.SBJV <i>gɔ́ǎ</i> VB-CNTF (61)
real apodosis	AUX.IPFV VB:IPFV (57)	AUX.NEG VB (58)
counterfactual apodosis	AUX.PROH VB-CNTF (60, 61)	AUX.NEG <i>gɔ́ǎ</i> VB-CNTF (62)

^aHere, a gloss with a colon (vb:IPFV) denotes a tonal form and a gloss with a hyphen (vb-CNTF) denotes a form with a suffix. A gloss with a point (vb.COND or vb.IRR) denotes a complex form consisting of a tonal form and a suffix.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There are no other negative lexicalizations other than the negative stative predicator *wó* (§2.3) and the ‘not yet’ particle *néŋ* (§2.1).

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

Polar questions are formed with the same pattern as the declarative clause but with vowel lengthening at the end. Negation can be contained in the question. Negative response (*kpàāò* ‘no’) indicates the reversal of the polarity value in the question and positive response (*ŋŋ* ‘yes’) indicates its confirmation. In other words, a “no” response to a question with an affirmative construction implies negation (63), while a positive answer to a question containing negation confirms the negation (64).

- (63) A: *kō kò nòò kènèi kú-pèlè sèè?*
1PL.EX 1PL.POSS child.PL small take-INF well.Q
‘Do we treat our small children well?’
B: *kpàāò.*
no
‘No (we don’t treat them well).’ (nat.)

- (64) A: *lèé wii bèlèè?*
3SG.NEG meat eat.Q
‘She doesn’t eat meat?’
B: *ŋŋ.*
yes
‘Correct (she doesn’t eat meat).’ (nat.)

3.2 Negative indefinites and quantifiers

Negative and indefinite quantifiers in Mano belong to the class of determinatives and are always part of a noun phrase. They can be used with generic nouns, such as *mī* ‘person’ or *pē* ‘thing’ (65).

- (65) *yé kò mī dò kṣāā kē ŋwó dò kē-piè...*
when 1PL.IP person INDF 1PL.EX do thing INDF do-INF
‘If we are doing something with someone...’ (lit. ‘We and somebody we do something’) (nat.)

There are four indefinite quantifiers: *dò* which has the same distribution as *gbēē*, but also *dōódōó* and *gbúú* whose distribution differs in minor details. All of them can be used in affirmative contexts with specific referents, in irrealis non-specific contexts, in conditionals (as in (65)), as well as in negation, indirect (66–67) and direct (68–69).

- (66) *ɲɲ yí dō ékēá mī dò nū-à lē.*
 1SG.NEG>3SG interior know if person INDF come-GER IDENT
 ‘I do not know if anybody came.’ (el.)

- (67) *ɲɲ yí dō ékēá mī gbúú nū-à lē.*
 1SG.NEG>3SG interior know if person some come-GER IDENT
 ‘I do not know if anybody came.’ (el.)

Crucially, while *dò* and *gbēē* are used in the context of direct full negation (68), meaning that there does not exist a referent with a property X, *dōódōó* and *gbúú* are used in the context of direct partial negation (69), meaning that there exist referents which do not have a property X.

- (68) Direct full negation
mī dò lēé gbāā nū.
 person INDF 3SG.NEG NEG come
 ‘Nobody came.’ (lit. ‘There doesn’t exist a person who came.’) (el.)

- (69) Direct partial negation
mī gbúú lēé gbāā nū.
 person some 3SG.NEG NEG come
 ‘Somebody did not come.’ (lit. ‘There exist at least one person who did not come.’) (el.)

The full semantic map of Mano quantifiers based on Tatevosov (2002) and Haspelmath (1997) is given in Figure 1. The Mano data is interesting for the typology of quantifiers as it calls for new contrasts on the semantic map, in addition to full vs partial direct negation: full vs partial comparative and free choice in imperative vs in non-imperative. In addition, the Mano data violates the adjacency principle. On Mano quantifiers, see Khachaturyan (2014b).

Mano also has a dedicated negative quantifier *fēi~fēi* ‘nothing’ which can be reinforced *fēifēifēi* ‘absolutely nothing’. It is used in the contexts of direct full negation (70).

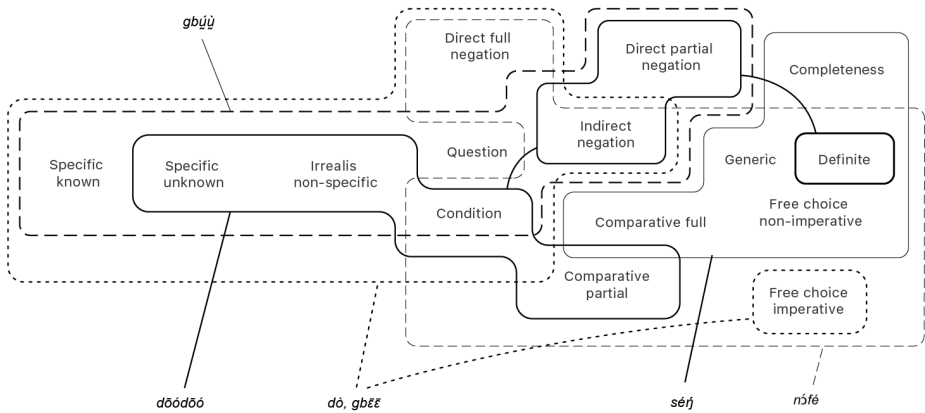


Figure 1: Quantifiers in Mano

- (70) *fěi wáá kèlè.*
nothing COP.NEG>3SG hand
'He has nothing.' (nat.)

Fěi can be used in exclamations meaning 'nonsense!' (71).

- (71) *à lĩ diè nì wáà gèè kéēé: fěi!*
3SG elder.sibling EMPH PL 3PL.CJ>3SG say:CJ that nonsense
'(A child wanted to go fishing with his brothers and sisters.) His elder
siblings said: nonsense! (Go back home!)' (nat.)

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

There is no negative derivation in Mano. There is no dedicated word for 'without' either, the meaning is expressed by a periphrastic construction (see (61)).

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 Scope of negation

Focus constructions in Mano (VP, argument focus orthetic constructions) are formed with the marker *lě:* for example, with argument focus, the focalized NP

is placed at the beginning of the utterance, followed by *lé*, followed by the predication where the syntactic position of the focalized constituent is filled with a pronoun (or an auxiliary, in case of subject focalization). Polarity does not have an effect on focus constructions, except for the choice of the auxiliary discussed in §2.3 and §2.4. (72) illustrates focalization in a negative utterance. See also (44), a negative focus construction.

- (72) *Rosalie lé lèé fàā Mado léè fàā.*
 Rosalie ATT 3SG.NEG grow Mado 3SG.IPFV grow:IPFV
 ‘It is Rosalie who does not grow, Mado grows.’ (nat.)

The effects of quantifiers on the scope of negation are discussed in §3.2. The quantifier *dò* is used in contexts of full negation, meaning that there does not exist a referent with a property X, while *dōódōó* and *gbúú* are used in the context of direct partial negation, meaning that there exist referents which do not have a property X.

4.2 Negative polarity items

Negative polarity items include the quantifier *fèi~fèi* ‘nothing’ which can be reinforced *fèifèifèi* ‘absolutely nothing’. See §3.2 for illustrations.

4.3 Marking of NPs in the scope of negation

There are no differences in marking of NPs in the scope of negation. Mano does not have case, so negation does not affect it.

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Negation can be reinforced with the quantifier *fèifèifèi* ‘absolutely nothing’. See §3.2 for illustrations.

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

Clausal coordination in Mano proceeds by coordinating full clauses, there is no argument reduction. Consider coordinated affirmative clauses (73–74).

- (73) *kēē ō dò ō ō kò yà à wì éé ō ō zò dō*
 but 3PL INDF 3PL.PST 3PL hand sit 3SG under and 3PL.PST 3PL heart install
à mō.
 3SG on
 ‘But some of them accepted him and they believed in him.’

- (74) *gɔ̃ yāā lèè wèè ɛ̃ɛ léé ā lèè wèè.*
 man DEM 3SG.IPFV speak:IPFV and woman DEM 3SG.IPFV speak:IPFV
 ‘The man and the woman speak.’ (lit. ‘The man speaks and the woman speaks.’)

Similarly, in negative coordination, the full clauses have to be repeated, there is no ‘neither... nor’ equivalent (75–76).

- (75) *lèé gbā zú é ō kpílì kē, lèé gbā bɛ̃ɛ ō bɪlí*
 3SG.NEG NEG agree 3SG.CNJV 3PL feast do 3SG.NEG NEG too 3PL dead.body
gɛ̃.
 see
 ‘He neither accepted to organize their funerals, nor saw their corpses.’ (lit. ‘He did not accept to organize their funerals, he did not see their corpses.’) (nat.)

- (76) *donc gɔ̃ wɔ̃ bē, ɛ̃ɛ lēē wɔ̃ bē kē é lēē*
 so[FR] man COP.NEG EX and woman COP.NEG EX PURP 3SG.CNJV woman
nɛ́fú wē pá gbāā.
 child:CNSTR DEM hit now
 ‘So there is no man nor woman (lit. there is no man and there is no woman) to hit the girl.’ (nat.)

There is no construction for contrastive negation. Again, a full predication must be repeated (77).

- (77) *ɲɲ gbā bū dà mī mɔ̃, wìl lé mā zē ē.*
 1SG.NEG NEG gun fall person on meat ATT 1SG.PST>3SG kill DEM
 ‘I did not shoot at a person but at an animal.’ (lit. ‘I didn’t shoot at a person, it was an animal that I killed.’) (nat.)

There is a dedicated prohibitive particle *yékè*, see §2.2. A dedicated negative auxiliary *gɔ̃á* is used in conditional clauses, see §2.4.

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

This section will focus on the phenomenon known as the reversal of polarity. In informal conversations, especially in questions, affirmative utterances are sometimes used when a negative polarity is intended, and negative utterances are

sometimes used when an affirmative polarity is intended. Such pragmatic reversal of polarity can be interpreted as a friendly mockery when the interlocutors have enough common ground to understand that they mean the inverse of what they say. For example, (78) is an affirmative question pragmatically implying a reading that would be a negative declarative with the same content. Conversely, (79) is a negative question pragmatically implying an affirmative declarative reading.

- (78) *zèē kónó bèē, léē tōō?*
 here food too 3SG.IPFV stay:IPFV.Q
 ‘(A woman’s sister in law complains that the former started to prepare a festival dish late. The former woman says:) The food here, does it last?’
 (meaning: of course it doesn’t, it will always be eaten, whenever we cook it).’ (nat.)
- (79) *òó gèē zéní ká ló-pèlè Gúú kèè?*
 3PL.NEG say still 2PL.EX go-INF Goo isn’t.it
 ‘(A woman observes that her sister in law is preparing to cook fish. She knows that the latter’s mother, who lives in the Goo village, likes fish a lot.) Don’t they say furthermore that you are going to the Goo village?’
 (nat.)

Negative imperfective constructions are also used as a directive strategy (80).

- (80) *bàá nō mōŋ tīá ŋ lèēē?*
 1SG.NEG>3SG give so yet 1SG to.Q
 ‘Give it to me for now!’ (lit. ‘Don’t you give it to me for now?’)

There are two polarity reversal cases in conditional clauses. First, the affirmative counterfactual apodosis construction employs a negative polarity auxiliary, namely, the prohibitive. Second, the subjunctive auxiliary, which is affirmative, is used for affirmative, but also for negative counterfactual protasis. For a fuller discussion, see §2.4.

A paraphrastic directive strategy, where the speaker, instead of issuing a command ‘do X’, says ‘I am not telling you to do X’. could be considered a case of negative transport (see §2.2).

Metalinguistic negation is not covered in this paper because of lack of data.

5 Summary

Negation in Mano is highly asymmetric (in the sense proposed by Miestamo 2005) both because negation involves a change in the TAM constructions (constructional asymmetry) and because the inventory of negative constructions is reduced with respect to the inventory of affirmative constructions (paradigmatic asymmetry). Thus, in declaratives, there is only one negative auxiliary which, combined with different lexical and grammatical means, is used to form constructions of negative habitual, negative aorist, and negative perfect, while in the affirmative zone, there are three different auxiliaries used for these purposes. The prospective construction exists only in the affirmative. For negative non-verbal constructions there is only one predicator, the negative copula *wó*, while affirmative non-verbal clauses contain either an existential auxiliary or either of the three available affirmative predicators *lě*, *wó* or *gě*, and presentative constructions exist only in the affirmative polarity. Yet in non-declaratives, the paradigmatic asymmetry favors the negative domain: there is a periphrastic prohibitive with no imperative equivalent ('I am not saying that you do X', meaning 'Don't do X') and a dedicated dubitative construction with negative pragmatics.

One of the striking features of negation in complex clauses are constructions used in conditional clauses since they employ a special negative particle *gòú* which is used only in real and counterfactual negative protasis and in counterfactual negative apodosis.

Table 5 summarizes differences between affirmative and negative constructions, focusing on the auxiliaries and predicators.

Another interesting feature concerns quantification. The semantic map of quantifiers in Mano violates the adjacency principle predicted by the quantification typology. Moreover, indefinite quantifiers differ with respect to the scope of direct negation: for some, such as the most commonly used indefinite quantifier *dò*, the whole predication is under the scope of negation ('nobody came'), while for others, such as the quantifier *gbúú*, the negation is partial ('some people did not come').

Mano does not have any negative derivation nor dedicated negative coordinators. Negative polarity items are limited to *fěi* 'nothing'.

More information on negation in Southern Mande languages can be found in Vydrine (2009). On negation, and in particular, negative final particles, in some other Mande languages, see Idiatov (2012, 2015). On negation in several other West African languages, see Cyffer et al. (2009).

Table 5: Auxiliaries and predictors

Marker	Function	Section	Examples
Clausal negation			
AUX.NEG	auxiliary series used to negate most verbal predications	§2.1	3, 5, 7, 9, 11, 13
COP.NEG	negative copula used to negate non-verbal predications, including a) imperfective b) resultative	§2.3	26b, 27b, 28b, 29b, 30b, 34, 36, 44 46 48
AUX.PROH	auxiliary series used in prohibitive constructions	§2.2	16
AUX.DUB	auxiliary series used in dubitative constructions	§2.1	20
<i>yékè</i>	clause-linking marker used in negative directive	§2.2	18
<i>ɲɲ gèè</i>	expression used in negative directives (lit.: ‘I do not say’)	§2.2	19
<i>gbā</i>	negative predictor, used in negative aorist and imperfect	§2.1	5, 11, 25
<i>néɲ</i>	negative predictor, used in ‘not yet’ perfect	§2.1	7
<i>gɔ́á</i>	negative predictor, used in a) negative protasis b) negative counterfactual apodosis	§2.4	59, 61, 62 62
Non-clausal negation			
<i>kpàāò</i>	negative interjection, indicates reversal of polarity of the question	§3.1	63
<i>dò, gbēē, dōódōó,</i> <i>gbúú</i>	indefinite quantifiers used in particular in negation	§3.2	65-69
<i>fèì fèì,</i> <i>fèìfèìfèì</i>	negative quantifier (‘nothing’)	§3.2	70
<i>fèì</i>	interjection (‘nonsense!’)	§3.2	71

Appendix

Table 6: Mano auxiliaries

	1SG	2SG	3SG	1PL	2PL	3PL
I existential	<i>ḡ (māā)</i>	<i>ī (bāā)</i>	<i>lē-ē (lāā)</i>	<i>kō (kōāā)</i>	<i>kā (kāā)</i>	<i>ō (wāā)</i>
II past	<i>ḡ (mā)</i>	<i>ī (bā)</i>	<i>ē (ā)</i>	<i>kō (kōā)</i>	<i>kā</i>	<i>ō (wā)</i>
III perfect	<i>māā</i>	<i>bāā</i>	<i>āā</i>	<i>kōāā</i>	<i>kāā</i>	<i>wāā</i>
IV imperfective	<i>ḡḡ</i>	<i>ī (bāā)</i>	<i>lē (lēā~lāā)</i>	<i>kō (kōō~kōā)</i>	<i>kāā</i>	<i>ōō</i>
vb conjoint	<i>māā</i>	<i>bāā</i>	<i>āā</i>	<i>kōāā</i>	<i>kāā</i>	<i>wāā</i>
VI negative	<i>ḡḡ</i>	<i>ī (bāā)</i>	<i>lē (lāā)</i>	<i>kōō</i>	<i>kāā</i>	<i>ōō</i>
VII conjunctive	<i>ḡ</i>	<i>ī (bā)</i>	<i>ē (ā)</i>	<i>kō</i>	<i>kā</i>	<i>ō</i>
VIII prohibitive	<i>māā</i>	<i>bāā</i>	<i>āā</i>	<i>kōāā</i>	<i>kāā</i>	<i>wāā</i>
IX subjunctive	<i>ḡ</i>	<i>ī (bā)</i>	<i>ē (ā)</i>	<i>kō~kākō</i> (<i>kō~kākō~kōā</i>)	<i>kā</i>	<i>ō</i>
X prospective	<i>mōlō~mōnō</i>	<i>bōlō</i>	<i>yēlō</i>	<i>kōlō</i>	<i>kāwōlō</i>	<i>wōlō</i>
XI dubitative	<i>māā</i>	<i>bāā</i>	<i>āā</i>	<i>kōō</i>	<i>kāā</i>	<i>wāā</i>

The marker in parentheses is a portmanteau marker and represents an auxiliary fused with the non-subject pronoun of the third person singular which can occupy the position of the direct object (in this case, the portmanteau auxiliary will represent the result of the fusion with the direct object), as well as in the position of the possessor of inalienably possessed noun. If a given cell does not contain any marker in parentheses (for example, in the series of the perfect, III, and in the prohibitive series VIII), it means that the marker in the cell can be used in both transitive and intransitive contexts without the pronominalized direct object of the third person singular being made explicit.

Table 7: Morphological paradigm of verbs

Basic form	<i>félé</i> ‘become clear’	<i>pā</i> ‘fill’	<i>nìā</i> ‘turn’
Imperfective	<i>fèlè</i>	<i>pā</i>	<i>nìā</i>
Conjoint form / nominalized form	<i>fèlè</i>	<i>pà</i>	<i>nìā</i>
Real protasis	<i>fèléā~fèlā</i>	<i>pāā</i>	<i>nìā</i>
Counterfactual protasis	<i>fèlēā~fèlā</i>	<i>pāā</i>	<i>nìā</i>
Gerund / Counterfactual apodosis	<i>fèlā</i>	<i>pāā</i>	<i>nìā</i>
Infinitive	<i>fèlèpèlè</i>	<i>pāpèlè</i>	<i>nìāpèlè</i>
Gerund + <i>kā</i>	<i>fèlā</i>	<i>pāā</i>	<i>nìā</i>

Abbreviations

1	first person	IRR	irrealis
2	second person	CJ	conjoint
3	third person	LOC	locative
ATT	attention drawing	NEG	negative
AUX	auxiliary	OPT	optative
BRIDG	marker of bridging	PL	plural
CNSTR	construct form	POSS	possessive
CNTF	counterfactual	PRED	predicative
COND	conditional	PRES	presentative
CNJV	conjunctive	PRF	perfect
COP	copula	PROH	prohibitive
DEM	demonstrative	PROSP	prospective
DUB	dubitative	PST	past
EMPH	emphatic	PURP	purpose
EX	existential	Q	question
[fr]	French	RED	reduplication
GER	gerund	REFL	reflexive
H	high tone	SBJ	subject
IDENT	identifier	SBJV	subjunctive
INF	infinitive	SG	singular
INDF	indefinite	VB	verb
IP	inclusory pronoun	VIS	visual
IPFV	imperfective		

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Chapter 15

Negation in Afrikaans

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This chapter is a description of negation in Afrikaans. We cover its standard negation construction (*nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ 'not'), which is used for subordinate clause negation and interrogative negation among other things too, as well as its dedicated strategies for imperative negation (*moenie*₁ ... *nie*₂ 'don't!') and certain types of negative stative predication (*geen* ... *nie*₂ 'no'). Attention is also paid to phenomena such as negative indefinites (e.g. *nooit* ... *nie*₂ 'never'), negative polarity items (e.g. *veel* 'much'), response particles (e.g. the use of *nee* 'no' to deny the questioner's presumed concerns), negative derivation (e.g. *-loos* '-less'), the reinforcement of negation (e.g. *glad nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ 'not at all') and expletive negation (e.g. in clauses headed by *tensy* 'unless').

Keywords: Afrikaans, two-part negation, negative imperative, negative stative predication, negative indefinite, expletive negation.

1 The language

Afrikaans (ISO: afr, Glottocode: afri1274) is primarily spoken in South Africa and Namibia. It is also the language of small minorities in many other Southern African countries, including Botswana and Zambia, and of immigrant communities in, for instance, Australia, Canada and even Argentina (see Du Toit 1995). In South Africa, where it is one of the eleven official languages, it is spoken as a first language by approximately 6,740,000 people, making up 12% of the population (Statistics South Africa 2016), and as a second language by an estimated further ten million (Webb 2002: 78). Afrikaans has a strong literary tradition as well as its own news and media outlets, is widely used in education (although it



has been losing ground to English, particularly in the tertiary sector) and has arguably witnessed something of a revival in movies and music in recent times. In Namibia, where it is recognized as one of eight national languages alongside the official language of English, it is the mother tongue of circa 180,000 individuals or 8% of the entire population (United Nations 2014). It also often serves as the only lingua franca between speakers of other languages.

In genealogical terms, Afrikaans may be described as a sister of Present-day Dutch or, in other words, as Indo-European and (West) Germanic. It is this genus's "contact language par excellence" (McWhorter 2007: 72), though. Arriving in the Cape in 1652, Early Modern Dutch began interacting with the indigenous Khoisan languages (e.g. *dagga* 'cannabis') and with languages like Malay and Creole Portuguese (e.g. *baie* 'a lot, very' and *mielie* 'corn'), spoken by the Asian and African slaves brought to the region (as well as with the languages of other early European migrants, such as French and German). It came into contact with the Bantu languages in the rest of Southern Africa later on (e.g. *babelas* 'hangover') and has been in a relationship of mutual influence with English since the advent of the British in 1795 (e.g. *worrie* 'worry').

The role that these interactions, especially the initial ones, played in the development of Afrikaans (grammar) has been and remains a topic of much debate (see van der Auwera & Van Olmen 2017: 249, 257–258), mainly as to whether the language is a creole or not. A plausible compromise is that Afrikaans, whose standardization and codification started some sixty years before it became an official language of South Africa in 1925, is the product of two opposing forces. The Dutch spoken and passed on by the people of European descent and serving as the Cape's superstrate formed a more conservative force. A more progressive one, involving morphological simplification and substrate influence, was the Dutch that the Khoi and the slaves learned "imperfectly" and most of them eventually switched to. Actually, the varying impact of Settler Dutch, Khoisan and Malay still manifests itself in the three dialects that are typically distinguished for Present-day Afrikaans – i.e., respectively, Eastern Border Afrikaans, Gariep Afrikaans (also known as Orange River Afrikaans) and Cape Afrikaans (for a detailed history of the language, see Van Rensburg 2012). The focus here will be on General Afrikaans (see Van Huyssteen 2020) and the way that it is used both formally and informally.¹

The rest of the present chapter will take the basic facts of Afrikaans grammar for granted (see Donaldson 1993 and Landsbergen et al.'s 2014 *Taalportaal* web-

¹There is evidence of dialectal variation in negation. Roberge (2000: 165), for instance, observes that the second element of the normal two-part negation of the general language "is facultative in Orange River Afrikaans" (see also Stell 2009).

site for a comprehensive description). One of these is that the language is V2 in main clauses (and complementizer-less subordinate clauses). This fact means that: first, the finite verb occupies second position, like *het* ‘has/have’ in (1a) or (1b); second, the subject usually precedes it, as in (1a), or immediately follows it if another constituent is in initial place, as in (1b); third, any non-finite verb (or any separable verb particle) appears in clause-final position, like *gesien* ‘seen’ in (1a) or (1b); and, fourth, the object normally occurs between the finite and non-finite slots, like *die kar* ‘the car’ in (1a) or (1b). In subordinate clauses, Afrikaans is SOV, as (1c) shows.

- (1) a. *Sy het die kar gesien.*
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS DEF car see.PST.PTCP
 ‘She saw the car.’
 b. *Gister het sy die kar gesien.*
 yesterday have.PRS 3SG.F.SBJ DEF car see.PST.PTCP
 ‘Yesterday, she saw the car.’
 c. ... *dat sy die kar gesien het.*
 COMP 3SG.F.SBJ DEF car see.PST.PTCP have.PRS
 ‘... that she saw the car.’

Another essential fact concerns the general lack of inflection. The language does not indicate case or gender on nouns and, in its pronominal system, such distinctions are restricted to the singular (e.g. *hy/hom* ‘he/him’ and *sy/haar* ‘she/her’ versus *hulle* ‘they, them’). There is differential object marking, though, with the preposition *vir* ‘for’, which seems preferred with proper nouns, optional with human or animate nouns and with pronouns and unacceptable with inanimate nouns. Compare (1a) and (2).

- (2) *Sy het vir Henk gesien.*
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS for Henk see.PST.PTCP
 ‘She saw Henk.’

Verb inflection is limited too. They show no agreement and tend to have just a base form and a past participle form (e.g. *gaan* ‘go’, *gegaan* ‘gone’). Only the modal auxiliaries and ‘know’, ‘be’ and ‘have’ (still) have a preterite (e.g. *is* ‘am/are/is’, *was* ‘was/were’). The final two verbs are also the sole ones in the language with a distinctive infinitive form (e.g. *wees* ‘be’, *hê* ‘have’).

Note that all examples in this chapter are based on earlier research, internet queries (for which we used the Google search engine and relied on factors such

as context, authors' names and dates of publication to assess the relevance of the results) and on actual corpus attestations (from the numerous corpora available and searchable on the Virtuele Instituut vir Afrikaans's 2019 corpus portal – with recent data from blogs, books, newspapers and plays, among other things). For reasons of space and presentation, they have, however, typically been shortened and/or slightly altered (though native speakers have always been consulted to check their grammaticality). So most examples are constructed to at least some extent and no reference can/will be provided for them. For examples taken from secondary sources or reproduced verbatim from other sources, we will obviously give precise references. The description of negation in Afrikaans in this chapter is based on the questionnaire provided by the editors (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) and the structure of the chapter follows the model given in the questionnaire.

2 Clausal negation

2.1 Standard negation

Negating a declarative verbal main clause is typically achieved through two identical particles, as in (3). The first *nie*, glossed as NEG₁, is clause-medial and comes after the subject, the finite verb slot and, if present, sentential adverbs like *waarskynlik* 'probably' in (3a). In focus-neutral circumstances, it precedes the object, as in (3b), unless this object is a pronoun without *vir*, as in (3c). The second *nie* or NEG₂ is clause-final and normally even follows subordinate clauses, like in (3d), and extraposed constituents after the non-finite verb slot.

- (3) a. *Die bestuurder-s verkoop waarskynlik nie kaart-jie-s nie.*
 DEF driver-PL sell probably NEG₁ card-DIM-PL NEG₂
 'The drivers probably do not sell tickets.'
- b. *Jy het nie die kar gesien nie.*
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ DEF car see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 'You did not see the car.'
- c. *Jy het hom nie gesien nie.*
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS 3SG.M.NSBJ NEG₁ see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 'You did not see him.'
- d. *Ek het nie gesê (*nie) dat die kar stukkend*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ say.PST.PTCP NEG₂ COMP DEF car broken

was nie.

be.PST NEG₂

‘I did not say that the car was broken.’

The two particles differ from each other in several respects (see Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 3–4). Only *nie*₁ can be modified, for instance, as in (4a). It is also *nie*₁ through which negation is primarily expressed: (4a) without *nie*₂, though ill-formed, will still be interpreted as a negative clause. In the same vein, it is *nie*₁ that is replaced when a more emphatic negator is required or a negative indefinite is included. *Nie*₂ stays put in either case, as (4b) shows.² What the markers have in common is the ability to cliticize onto the preceding word in very colloquial language. Example (4c), coming from the hip hop group *Die Antwoord*’s lyrics, is a case in point.

- (4) a. *Sy wil (glad) nie eet (*glad) nie.*
 3SG.F.SBJ want.PRS altogether NEG₁ eat altogether NEG₂
 ‘She does not/(NOT) want to eat at all.’
 b. *Hy wil niks/geensins eet nie.*
 3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS nothing/in.no.way eat NEG₂
 ‘He does not want to eat anything/at all.’
 c. *Ek weet=ie waar ek iss=ie.*
 1SG.SBJ know=NEG₁ where 1SG.SBJ be.PRS=NEG₂
 ‘I do not know where I am.’³

As to (a)symmetry à la Miestamo (2005), this discontinuous two-part negation can be described as fully symmetric. Deleting *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ from the sentences in (3), for example, produces the positive ones in (5).

- (5) a. *Die bestuurder-s verkoop waarskynlik kaart-jie-s.*
 DEF driver-PL sell probably card-DIM-PL
 ‘The drivers probably sell tickets.’
 b. *Jy het haar gesien.*
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS 3SG.F.NSJB see.PST.PTCP
 ‘You saw her.’

²Because of these differences, Afrikaans linguistics tends to analyze *nie*₁ as a negative adverb, i.e. the true negator, and *nie*₂ as a negative particle (e.g. the Taalportaal grammar). A similar distinction can be found in much generative work on the phenomenon (e.g. Oosthuizen 1998).

³<https://l-hit.com/en/433108>, accessed 2021-11-02.

- c. *Jy het die kar gesien.*
 2SG.SBJ have.PRS DEF car see.PST.PTCP
 ‘You saw the car.’
- d. *Ek het gesê dat die kar stukkend was.*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS say.PST.PTCP COMP DEF car broken be.PST
 ‘I said that the car was broken.’

Afrikaans standard negation thus exhibits constructional symmetry. There also exist no differences between positive and negative declarative verbal main clauses in, inter alia, finiteness or tense-aspect-mood marking, making *nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ paradigmatically symmetric as well.

The above account of the two particles’ distribution needs to be qualified in a number of ways. First, *nie*₂ is ungrammatical when all slots after *nie*₁ are empty and *nie*₁ is in final position (see Biberauer 2007: 31 on a syntactic haplology mechanism in Afrikaans). This situation arises in clauses consisting only of a subject and a finite verb, as in (6a) (which would be interpreted as ‘they don’t not sing’ with *nie nie*). It also occurs in clauses with an additional pronominal object preceding *nie*₁, as in (6b), where the modifier *glad* ‘altogether’ indicates that the single negator is indeed *nie*₁ rather than *nie*₂. This aversion to consecutive cases of *nie* extends to clauses that might have been expected to end in *nie*₂ *nie*₂. In (6c), for example, one could have envisaged the occurrence of a first *nie*₂ for the main clause negation and a second *nie*₂ for the subordinate clause negation but only one *nie*₂ appears. If *nie*₁ in structures like (6a) and (6b) is substituted by a negative indefinite, as in (6d), *nie*₂ is optional (just like when negative indefinites are used as short replies to questions).

- (6) a. *Hulle sing nie (*nie).*
 3PL sing NEG₁ NEG₂
 ‘They do not sing.’
- b. *Die kind-ers verstaan my glad nie (*nie).*
 DEF child-PL understand 1SG.NSBJ altogether NEG₁ NEG₂
 ‘The children do not understand me at all.’
- c. *Hulle het nie gesê dat jy nie werk nie*
 3PL have.PRS NEG₁ say.PST.PTCP COMP 2SG.SBJ NEG₁ work NEG₂
 (**nie*).
 NEG₂
 ‘They did not say that you do not work.’

- d. *Hy eet niks (nie).*
 3SG.M.SBJ eat nothing NEG₂
 ‘He does not eat anything.’

Second, *nie*₂ can be omitted in certain genres. These include poetry, signs and newspaper headlines (see Deumert 2017: 105). The headline from the national news publication *Beeld* in (7) can serve as an example.

- (7) *AfriForum mag nie appelleer oor ou vlag.*
 AfriForum may.PRS NEG₁ appeal about old flag
 ‘AfriForum may not appeal about old flag.’⁴

Third, as (8a) shows, *nie*₁ can be left out too, with a very specific effect. According to Biberauer (2007: 5), the difference from the two-particle equivalent (8b) is that, in the former, the object “is necessarily interpreted as old information” while, in the latter, it is “part of the information focus, either independently as new/focused information or as part of an all-rhematic structure”.

- (8) a. *Ek ken hier-die boek nie.*
 1SG.SBJ know here-DEF book NEG₂
 ‘I do not know this book.’
 b. *Ek ken nie hier-die boek nie.*
 1SG.SBJ know NEG₁ here-DEF book NEG₂
 ‘I do not know this book.’

Fourth, and finally, in informal language, *nie*₂ sometimes appears ahead of extraposed constituents, especially when they are quite heavy (probably for reasons of processing; see Molnárfi 2001: 117). In such cases, there would not normally be a second *nie*₂ at the end. Compare (9) to (3d).

- (9) *Sy het nooit gesê nie dat mens net so gelukkig*
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS never say.PST.PTCP NEG₂ COMP human just so happy
is soos jou ongelukkig-ste kind.
 be.PRS as 2SG.NSBJ unhappy-SUPL child
 ‘She never said that one is only as happy as one’s unhappiest child.’

⁴<https://www.network24.com/network24/nuus/hof/afriforum-mag-nie-appelleer-oor-ou-vlag-20190920>, accessed 2021-11-02

2.2 Negation in non-declaratives

The negation of interrogatives, which are formed by inverting the subject and the finite verb, is governed by the same principles as standard negation. Consider the respective counterparts of (3b), (3d), (4b) and (6a) in (10) and notice, *inter alia*, the two-part negation in (10a), the truly clause-final position of *nie*₂ in (10b), the replacement of *nie*₁ by a negative indefinite in (10c) and the ungrammaticality of *nie nie* in (10d).

- (10) a. *Het jy hom nie gesien nie?*
have.PRS 2SG.SBJ 3SG.M.NSBJ NEG₁ see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
‘Did you not see him?’
- b. *Het jy nie gesê dat die kar stukkend was nie?*
have.PRS 2SG.SBJ NEG₁ say.PST.PTCP COMP DEF car broken be.PST
NEG₂
‘Did you not say that the car was broken?’
- c. *Hoekom wil hy niks eet nie?*
why want.PRS 3SG.M.SBJ nothing eat NEG₂
‘Why does he not want to eat anything?’
- d. *Sing hulle nie (*nie)?*
sing 3PL NEG₁ NEG₂
‘Do they not sing?’

It should therefore not come as a surprise that interrogative negation is also entirely symmetric. Deleting the two negators in (10a), for instance, results in a sentence with the meaning ‘did you see him?’. As to the type of answer expected, the negative polar questions in (10a), (10b) and (10d) may function in a neutral manner but they are often biased toward a positive answer (see Holmberg 2015: 40).

Imperative negation is more complex. As (11a) and (11b) make clear, the imperative cannot be negated in the standard way. The construction in (11c) is employed instead. It features *moenie* ‘don’t!’ rather than *nie*₁ and has the main verb in the non-finite rather than the finite slot (thus belonging to van der Auwera & Lejeune’s 2013 [–imperative verb] [–standard negation] type). This loss of finiteness manifests itself here in the behavior of the separable verb particle *weg* ‘away’. In the imperative in (11a), the stem *gaan* ‘go’ is in the finite slot and, hence, *weg* occupies the non-finite slot, just like in declarative main clauses such as (11d).

In the negative imperative in (11c), by contrast, *weg* is attached to *gaan*, which the declarative main clause in (11e) indicates is characteristic of verbs in the non-finite slot.

- (11) a. *Gaan weg!*
 go away
 ‘Go away!’
- b. **Gaan nie weg nie!*
 go NEG₁ away NEG₂
 ‘Do not go away!’
- c. *Moenie weg-gaan nie!*
 must.not.PRS away-go NEG₂
 ‘Do not go away!’
- d. *Ons gaan ’n bietjie weg.*
 1PL go INDF little.bit away
 ‘We are going away for a little bit.’
- e. *Ons wil nie weg-gaan nie.*
 1PL want.PRS NEG₁ away-go NEG₂
 ‘We do not want to go away.’

The constructional asymmetry in finiteness (see Miestamo 2005: 73–96) between (11a) and (11c) can be attributed to the auxiliary origin of *moenie*. This marker is a combination of *moet* ‘must’ and *nie*₁. In fact, the two components can be separated, for example, by a pronoun without *vir* taking up its ordinary place between the finite slot and *nie*₁, as in (12a). *Moet* can occur on its own as well, when a negative indefinite or an emphatic negator substitutes for *nie*₁, as in (12b). Still, object pronouns without *vir*, which are ordinarily found before the first negator in other clause types (cf. (3b)), actually tend to follow rather than precede it in the negative imperative, facilitating the fusion of *moet* and *nie* in (12c). This fact is suggestive of some degree of univerbation and grammaticalization (for more details, see Van Olmen 2010: 500–501).⁵

- (12) a. *Moet jou nie ontstel nie!*
 must.PRS 2SG.NSUBJ NEG₁ trouble NEG₂
 ‘Do not trouble yourself!’

⁵The fused form is not actually limited to negative imperatives. It can also be used for non-performative expressions of negative obligation such as *Piet moenie worrie nie* ‘Pete should not worry’.

- b. *Moet niks eet nie!*
must.PRS nothing eat NEG₂
'Do not eat anything!'
- c. *Moenie hom dood-maak nie!*
must.not.PRS 3SG.M.NSBJ dead-make NEG₂
'Do not kill him!'

Moenie can also have a more specific negative imperative sense: when it directly introduces a complementizer clause as in (13a), it expresses the meaning 'don't let'. A function that it does not fulfill is the negation of non-addressee-oriented or "non-canonical" (Aikhenvald 2010: 47) imperatives. They require the auxiliary *laat* 'let' and adhere to the standard way of negating, as (13b) illustrates.

- (13) a. *Moenie dat hulle jou bang-maak nie!*
must.not.PRS COMP 3PL 2SG.NSBJ scared-make NEG₂
'Do not let them scare you!'
- b. *Laat ons (nie) vergeet (nie)!*
let 1PL NEG₁ forget NIE₂
'Let's (not) forget!'

2.3 Negation in stative predications

Some types of stative predication (see Veselinova 2014: 1386–1389) can only be negated in the standard, symmetric manner. These are equation, attribution and locative predication, as in (14a) to (14c) respectively.

- (14) a. *Hy is (nie) my pa (nie).*
3SG.M.SBJ be.PRS NEG₁ 1SG.NSBJ dad NEG₂
'He is (not) my dad.'
- b. *Hulle is (nie) braaf (nie).*
3PL be.PRS NEG₁ brave NEG₂
'They are (not) brave.'
- c. *Die kar is (nie) in die motorhuis (nie).*
DEF car be.PRS NEG₁ in DEF garage NEG₂
'The car is (not) in the garage.'

The negation of the other types may be similar, as possessive predication in (15a) shows, but it is also possible to use the negative determiner *geen* 'no' (or

its informal variant *g'n* instead of *nie*₁. If it precedes an indefinite singular noun phrase, as in (15b), the article '*n* 'a(n)'' from the corresponding positive clause is lost. *Nie*₂ is optional here.

- (15) a. *Ek het (nie) 'n foon (nie).*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ INDF phone NEG₂
 'I (do not) have a phone.'
- b. *Ek het geen foon (nie).*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS no phone NEG₂
 'I have no phone.'

This variation is found with proper inclusion too, as in (16), and with locative-existential and purely existential predication, as in (17) and (18) respectively, both of which employ the construction *daar is* 'there is/are'. Existential predication can also be expressed by *bestaan* 'exist', however, and this verb is negated in the standard way, as in (18c).

- (16) a. *Henk is (nie) 'n onderwyser (nie).*
 Henk be.PRS NEG₁ INDF teacher NEG₂
 'Henk is (not) a teacher.'
- b. *Henk is geen onderwyser nie.*
 Henk be.PRS no teacher NEG₂
 'Henk is no teacher.'
- (17) a. *Daar is (nie) tran-e in die hemel (nie).*
 there be.PRS NEG₁ tear-PL in DEF heaven NEG₂
 'There are (no) tears in heaven.'
- b. *Daar is geen tran-e in die hemel nie.*
 there be.PRS no tear-PL in DEF heaven NEG₂
 'There are no tears in heaven.'
- (18) a. *Daar is (nie) spok-e (nie).*
 there be.PRS NEG₁ ghost-PL NEG₂
 'There are (no) ghosts.'
- b. *Daar is geen spok-e nie.*
 there be.PRS no ghost-PL NEG₂
 'There are no ghosts.'

- c. *Spok-e bestaan (nie).*
ghost-PL exist NEG₁
‘Ghosts (do not) exist.’

According to Donaldson (1993: 413), the two variants are interchangeable but it is likely that, as in other Germanic languages, which exhibit considerable variation in this area, the choice of one over the other is determined by a variety of factors. They include but are not limited to the type of stative predication, the complexity of the verb phrase, the scope of negation, the old versus new information status of the proposition and the conventionalized character of phrases (e.g. Peters 2008, Bordal 2017, Burnett et al. 2018, Wallage 2020). An in-depth study of their potential impact falls outside the scope of the present chapter, though. Let it suffice to say that the variant with *nie*₁ seems to occur much more often than that with *geen* in Present-day Afrikaans.⁶ This fact is interesting from the perspective of Dutch, where only *geen* is grammatical in possessive predication, proper inclusion and (locative-)existential predication.⁷ The suggestion therefore is that Afrikaans has extended the standard negation pattern to all types of stative predication. Note, finally, that (14) to (18) also demonstrate that no grammatical differences exist between generic and specific predicates or between temporary and permanent property assignment.

2.4 Negation in non-main clauses

Negating subordinate clauses happens in much the same way as standard negation and the negation of stative predication. There are, in other words, no special negators or negative non-finite forms. The subordinate finite equivalents of the standard negation in (3a) and the negated stative predicates in (18a) and (18b) are given in (19). They show that negation is, essentially, completely symmetric here too.

- (19) a. *Jy beweer dat hulle (nie) kaart-jie-s verkoop (nie).*
2SG.SBJ claim COMP 3PL NEG₁ card-DIM-PL sell NEG₂
‘You claim that they (do not) sell tickets.’

⁶This claim is based on Google searches and an exploratory examination of the Taalkommissiekorpus (Virtuele Instituut vir Afrikaans 2019), a large reference corpus of present-day written language.

⁷As one reviewer rightly points out, Dutch *niet* ‘not’ may still appear with these predication types in contrastive contexts. Taking (16b) as a starting point, if one wanted to communicate ‘Henk is not a teacher but a professor’, one could say *Henk is niet onderwijzer maar professor*. See also §4.1.

- b. *Hulle sê dat daar (nie) spok-e is (nie).*
 3PL say COMP there NEG₁ ghost-PL be.PRS NEG₂
 ‘They say that there are (no) ghosts.’
- c. *Hulle sê dat daar (geen) spok-e is (nie).*
 3PL say COMP there no ghost-PL be.PRS NEG₂
 ‘They say that there are (no) ghosts.’

The word order in finite subordinate clauses is normally SOV, with *nie*₁ (or some negative indefinite or emphatic negator) appearing before the verb and *nie*₂ after the verb. This syntax has as a result that consecutive occurrences of *nie* are impossible. Main clauses with only *nie*₁ thus acquire a second negator when they are turned into subordinate clauses. The comparison of (6b) to (20a) can serve as an example. The complementizer *dat* ‘that’ is often omitted, though (see Van Rooy & Kruger 2016), in which case the subordinate clause has V2 word order and *nie*₂ is again blocked, as in (20b).

- (20) a. *Ek dink dat die kind-ers my glad nie verstaan*
 1SG.SBJ think COMP DEF child-PL 1SG.NSBJ altogether NEG₁ understand
nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘I think that the children do not understand me at all.’
- b. *Ek dink die kind-ers verstaan my glad nie (*nie).*
 1SG.SBJ think DEF child-PL understand 1SG.NSBJ altogether NEG₁ NEG₂

‘I think that the children do not understand me at all.’

The general requirement for two negators extends to cases where, in the main clause, only *nie*₂ is found because the object is old information, as in (8a), repeated here as (21a). Its subordinate counterpart in (21b) has *nie*₁ coming after the object. When the object is part of the information focus, as in (21c), *nie*₁ precedes it (see Biberauer 2008: 106–107).

- (21) a. *Ek ken hier-die boek nie.*
 1SG.SBJ know here-DEF book NEG₂
 ‘I do not know this book.’
- b. *... dat ek hier-die boek nie ken nie.*
 COMP 1SG.SBJ here-DEF book NEG₁ know NEG₂
 ‘... that I do not know this book.’

- c. ... *dat ek nie hier-die boek ken nie.*
 COMP 1SG.SBJ NEG₁ here-DEF book know NEG₂
 ‘... that I do not know this book.’

The negation of non-finite subordinate clauses, like that of finite ones, tends to behave in fairly straightforward ways, as (22) makes clear. Of note in (22a) is that *nie*₂ is placed not at the end of the entire sentence but directly after the preposed purpose clause. In (22b), it is the position of *nie*₁ after *om* ‘for’ that makes the subordinate clause negative. If it precedes *om*, it negates the main verb, as in (22c).

- (22) a. *Ten einde sak-e (nie) te kompliseer (nie), volg ons die advies.*
 in order thing-PL NEG₁ to complicate NEG₂ follow 1PL DEF advice
 ‘In order (not) to complicate things, we are following the advice.’
 b. *Sy vra julle om (nie) te sing (nie).*
 3SG.F.SBJ ask 2PL for NEG₁ to sing NEG₂
 ‘She is asking you (not) to sing.’
 c. *Sy vra julle nie om te sing nie.*
 3SG.F.SBJ ask 2PL NEG₁ for to sing NEG₂
 ‘She is not asking you to sing.’

For non-finite complement clauses with bare infinitives, it seems necessary to make a distinction between verbs of perception like *sien* ‘see’ and *hoor* ‘hear’ and verbs like *help* ‘help’ and *leer* ‘teach’. The former can be negated in just one structural way, as in (23a), and it is normally understood as applying to the main verb. To get the (admittedly awkward) interpretation where only the subordinate clause is negated, the negation has to be stressed, as in (23b).⁸ With the latter verbs, as in (23c), the simple addition of *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ produces the same meaning as in (23a), namely the negation of the main verb.⁹ To solely negate the complement clause, the bare infinitive needs to be turned into an *om te* ‘for to’ infinitive, as in (23d).

⁸The generative literature (e.g. Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 4) indicates that only *nie*₁ is stressable. The native speakers consulted for the present chapter disagree and maintain that, in particular contexts, like (23b), *nie*₂ is able/needs to be emphasized as well.

⁹In line with the description in §2.1, *nie*₁ follows the pronoun (without *vir*) in (23a) and (23c). *Nie*₁ before *haar* and *jou* would be a marked order. In keeping with the earlier discussion too, *nie*₁ would precede a lexical replacement of these pronouns in (23a) and (23c) and the reversed order would be marked.

- (23) a. *Ek sien haar (nie) kom (nie).*
 1SG.SBJ see 3SG.F.NSBJ NEG₁ come NEG₂
 ‘I (do not) see her come.’
- b. *Ek sien haar NIE kom NIE.*
 1SG.SBJ see 3SG.F.NSBJ NEG₁ come NEG₂
 ‘I see her not come.’
- c. *Dit leer jou nie kop-hou nie.*
 3SG.N teach 2SG.NSBJ NEG₁ head-hold NEG₂
 ‘This does not teach you to stay calm.’
- d. *Dit leer jou om nie kwaad te word nie.*
 3SG.N teach 2SG.NSBJ for NEG₁ angry to become NEG₂
 ‘This teaches you not to get angry.’

See also §3.3 about (non-)finite subordinate clauses introduced by *sonder* ‘without’ and §4.1 about the scope of negation in complex clauses.

2.5 Negative lexicalizations

There are no negative lexicalizations in Afrikaans, with the possible exception of *moenie* ‘must not’, which is discussed in §2.2 (see footnote 5 too). A potential test for the presence of inherently negative verbs such as ‘not exist’, ‘not want’ and ‘not know’ (see Veselinova 2013) would be the compulsory use of *nie*₂ in clauses in which they occur. To our knowledge, no verb exhibits this behavior.¹⁰

¹⁰Oosthuizen (1998: 79) and Biberauer (2008: 116) do mention the ability of verbs with a contradictory meaning such as *weier* ‘refuse’, as well as of intrinsically negative adverbs such as *nouliks* ‘barely’, to be followed by *nie*₂ in colloquial language. Examples like (i) and (ii) are, however, almost consistently judged to be unacceptable by native speakers, as Potgieter’s (2018: 58–60) experimental data shows.

- (i) *Ek weier om saam te kom nie.*
 1SG.SBJ refuse for together to come NEG₂
 ‘I refuse to come along.’ (Biberauer 2008: 116)
- (ii) *Ek kan my nouliks in-hou nie.*
 SG.SBJ can.PRS 1SG.NSBJ barely in-hold NEG₂
 ‘I can barely contain myself.’ (Biberauer 2008: 116)

3 Non-clausal negation

3.1 Negative replies

To disagree with the polarity of a positive polar question like (24), Afrikaans uses the particle *nee* ‘no’. To agree with its polarity, the particle *ja* ‘yes’ is employed. The replies to a negative polar question like (25) are more complex. *Nee* can serve to express agreement with the interrogative’s negative polarity on its own. By contrast, *ja* in isolation will, as Holmberg’s (2015: 143) informant for Afrikaans points out, “almost certainly result in confusion if it isn’t accompanied by some form of disambiguating intonation or other paratactic device which the hearer can draw on to expand ‘yes’ in the required way”. *Ja* as a reply to the negative polar question in (25) could, in other words, be interpreted as either ‘the dog is indeed not barking’ or ‘but the dog is barking’.¹¹ Adding *hy blaf (nie)* ‘he is (not) barking’ after *ja* can help to make the reply clearer, though.¹²

- (24) Q: *Blaf die hond?*
bark DEF dog
‘Is the dog barking?’
A1: *Nee.*
no
‘No(, the dog isn’t barking).’
A2: *Ja.*
yes
‘Yes(, the dog is barking).’
- (25) Q: *Blaf die hond nie?*
bark DEF dog NEG₁
‘Isn’t the dog barking?’
A1: *Nee.*
no
‘No(, the dog isn’t barking).’

¹¹To express the latter meaning, Dutch has a dedicated particle *jawel* ‘but yes’. There exists no equivalent of this particle in Afrikaans.

¹²Following a reviewer’s suggestion, we also want to mention *(h)aikona* ‘no way!’ here. It is a relatively common borrowing from the Nguni languages in colloquial Afrikaans (and South African English) and serves, among other things, to convey shock or disbelief and to express emphatic disagreement.

A2: ?*ja*.
 yes
 ‘Yes(, the dog is(n’t) barking).’

Interestingly, *nee* does occasionally occur in replies expressing agreement with the polarity of positive polar interrogatives, as in (26). In such cases, it fulfills not its regular function but the intersubjective one of denying the concerns that the addressee is presumed to have. It can even be used in this way in replies to content questions, as (27) shows.

(26) Q: *Is jy okay?*
 be.PRS 2SG.SBJ okay
 ‘Are you okay?’

A: *Nee, ek is reg.*
 no 1SG.SBJ be.PRS alright
 ‘No, (do not worry,) I am alright.’ (Biberauer et al. 2017: 79)

(27) Q: *Hoe gaan dit?*
 how go 3SG.N
 ‘How are you doing?’

A: *Nee, goed.*
 no good
 ‘No, (do not worry,) well.’ (Biberauer et al. 2017: 79)

Another peculiarity of *nee* is its frequent combination with *ja*, as in (28). *Ja-nee* has essentially the same meaning as *ja* in (24) but the sense of agreement is always qualified in some manner (e.g. reluctance, enthusiasm, resignation; see Biberauer et al. 2017: 76–77). It seems to be used more for confirming statements than for replying to questions, though.

(28) Q: *Dink jy hier-die boek is belangrik?*
 think 2SG.SBJ here-DEF book be.PRS important
 ‘Do you think that this book is important?’

A: *Ja-nee, ek dink so.*
 yes-no 1SG.SBJ think so
 ‘Yeah, well, I think so.’

3.2 Negative indefinites

The list of negative indefinites in the language includes *niemand* ‘nobody’, *niks* ‘nothing’, *nooit* ‘never’, *nêrens* ‘nowhere’ and *geen/g’n* ‘no’ (see Huddleston 2010). As discussed in §2.1, they usually take the place of *nie*₁, as in (29a), although they can appear before the finite verb as well. When they do, as in (29b), the clause does not feature *nie*₁ but still calls for the presence of *nie*₂ (see Van Olmen & Breed 2015: 237).¹³ This requirement is relaxed only when the negative indefinite occupies the clause-final position or serves as a short reply to a question. In these circumstances, *nie*₂ is optional, as in (29c). Note also that, in informal language, negative indefinites can actually co-occur with *nie*₁. Sentences (29d) and (29e) are cases in point (see also Biberauer 2009: 102–103).

- (29) a. *Hy wil niks eet nie.*
 3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS nothing eat NEG₂
 ‘He does not want to eat anything.’
 b. *Niemand het haar gesien nie.*
 nobody have.PRS 3SG.F.NSBJ see.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘Nobody saw her.’
 c. *Hy eet niks (nie).*
 3SG.M.SBJ eat nothing NEG₂
 ‘He does not eat anything.’
 d. *Ons sal hulle nooit nie vergeet nie.*
 1PL shall 3PL never NEG₁ forget NEG₂
 ‘We will never forget them.’
 e. *Ons sal niemand nie vergeet nie.*
 1PL shall nobody NEG₁ forget NEG₂
 ‘We will forget nobody.’

When a negative clause contains multiple indefinites, the first one is normally negative and the subsequent ones non-negative, like *nooit* and *êrens* ‘somewhere’ or *iemand* ‘someone’ in (30a) and (30b). Two negative indefinites in the same sentence cancel each other out, in formal language and according to prescriptive

¹³Note, for the sake of completeness, that the slot before the finite verb is not limited to subjects in a V2 language like Afrikaans (see §1). In *ons sal hulle nooit vergeet nie* ‘we will never forget them’ (cf. (29d)), *nooit* ‘never’ appears in its “normal” position and the clause conforms to the pattern in (29a). With *nooit* in initial position, as in *nooit sal ons hulle vergeet nie* ‘never will we forget them’, the clause has the same pattern as (29b).

tradition. Example (30c) thus receives the interpretation of ‘she hurt someone at some point’. Yet, in informal language, it is not uncommon for negation to spread to all indefinites in the clause, without resulting in any mutual cancelation of negative meanings or implying a more emphatic negation. So, colloquially, (30c) signifies the same as (30b). In fact, experimental research by Huddleston & de Swart (2014) indicates that clauses such as (30c) are almost always understood as plainly negative by native speakers.

- (30) a. *Hulle gaan nooit êrens kom nie.*
 3PL go never somewhere come NEG₂
 ‘They are never going to get anywhere.’
 b. *Sy het nooit iemand seer-gemaak nie.*
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS never someone pain-make.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘She never hurt anyone.’
 c. *Sy het nooit niemand seer-gemaak nie.*
 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS never nobody pain-make.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘She hurt someone at some point.’ or ‘She never hurt anyone.’

The pattern in (30b) occurs much more often than that in (30c), though, at least in writing (see Huddleston 2010: 139). The only exception to this trend is when *g’n* precedes another indefinite. Combinations of *g’n* and a negative indefinite, as in (31a), are more frequent than those of *g’n* and a non-negative indefinite, as in (31b) (see Huddleston 2010: 137).¹⁴ Now consider (31c) and (31d).

- (31) a. *Ons het g’n niemand op-getel nie.*
 1PL have.PRS no nobody up-count.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘We did not give anyone a lift.’
 b. *Ons het g’n iemand op-getel nie.*
 1PL have.PRS no someone up-count.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘We did not give anyone a lift.’
 c. *Hulle het geen/g’n kind-ers nie.*
 3PL have.PRS no child-PL NEG₂
 ‘They do not have any children.’

¹⁴As pointed out in §4.4, *g’n* may also serve as a colloquial equivalent of *nie*₁. With emphasis on *niemand* (31a) can therefore be interpreted as ‘we didn’t NOT give anybody a lift’ as well. Similarly, in the right context, (31b) can function as a strong denial too, meaning ‘we certainly did not give anyone a lift’.

- d. *Ons het geen niemand op-getel nie.*
 1PL have.PRS no nobody up-count.PST.PTCP NEG₂
 ‘We did not give anyone a lift.’

As simple negative determiners, like in (31c), *geen* and *g’n* are interchangeable, with the former being the more formal or written variant. In combinations with negative indefinites, as in (31d), however, *geen* is generally considered much less acceptable than *g’n* (see Huddleston 2010: 167, as well as §4.4).

The negative indefinites’ non-negative counterparts – i.e. *iemand*, *iets* ‘something’, *ooit* ‘ever’ and *êrens* ‘somewhere’ – can clearly occur in negative clauses when a negative indefinite is present. On their own, they are essentially restricted to what Haspelmath (1997: 31–52), for his semantic map of indefinites, calls specific-known, specific-unknown, irrealis-non-specific, conditional, question and indirect negation contexts, which are illustrated in (32a) to (32f) respectively.

- (32) a. *Ek het iemand ontmoet; sy is ’n navorser.*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS someone meet 3SG.F.SBJ be.PRS INDF researcher
 ‘I met someone; she is a researcher.’
 b. *Hy het iemand ontmoet maar ek weet nie wie*
 3SG.M.SBJ have.PRS someone meet but 1SG.SBJ know NEG₁ who
nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘He met someone but I do not know who.’
 c. *Gaan iets lekker-s doen!*
 go something nice-GEN do
 ‘Go and do something nice!’
 d. *As jy ooit Potch toe kom, ...*
 if 2SG.SBJ ever Potch to come
 ‘If you ever come to Potch, ...’
 e. *Gaan julle êrens heen?*
 go 2PL somewhere from.here
 ‘Are you going somewhere?’
 f. *Ek dink nie dat hulle iets gesien het nie.*
 1SG.SBJ think NEG₁ COMP 3PL something see.PST.PTCP have.PRS NEG₂
 ‘I do not think that they saw anything.’

For Haspelmath's (1997) comparative and free-choice uses, the non-negative indefinites need to combine with *enige* 'any', as in (33a) and (33b) respectively (see §4.2 for more about the negative polarity item *enige*).¹⁵

- (33) a. *Die seun hardloop vinnig-er as enige iemand anders.*
 DEF boy run fast-CMPR as any someone else
 'The boy runs faster than anyone else.'
- b. *Hier-die probleem kan deur enige iemand opgelos word.*
 here-DEF problem can by any someone solve.PST.PTCP become
 'This problem can be solved by anyone.'

3.3 Negative derivation and case marking

It will come as no surprise that Afrikaans, as a language that makes case distinctions in singular personal pronouns only, does not have any "negative case marking". Abessive meaning at the phrasal level is expressed by the preposition *sonder* 'without', as in (34a).¹⁶ This marker can also introduce a finite subordinate clause, when followed by *dat*, or a non-finite one, as in (34b) and (34c) respectively.

- (34) a. *Ons was sonder kos en water.*
 1PL be.PRS without food and water
 'We were without food and water.'
- b. *Julle het dit gedoen sonder dat julle ons geraadpleeg het.*
 2PL have.PRS 3SG.N do.PST.PTCP without COMP 2PL 1PL
 consult.PST.PTCP have.PRS
 'You did it without consulting us.'
- c. *Julle het dit gedoen sonder om ons te raadpleeg.*
 2PL have.PRS 3SG.N do.PST.PTCP without for 1PL to consult
 'You did it without consulting us.'

Negative derivation is somewhat under-researched in Afrikaans and an exhaustive study of the phenomenon goes beyond the scope of the present chapter in any case. Let the following comments therefore suffice (but see also Van

¹⁵For the contexts in (33), Afrikaans can actually also use the more grammaticalized combinations *enigiets* 'anything at all' and *enigiemand* 'anybody at all'.

¹⁶In non-native Afrikaans, *nie*₂ is sometimes added to sentences like (34a).

Huyssteen 2019 and the Afrikaans dictionaries available via the Virtuele Instituut vir Afrikaans 2019).

The language seems to have a range of negative prefixes at its disposal but few negative suffixes. The affix *-loos* ‘-less’, which turns nouns such as *bodem* ‘bottom’ into adjectives such as *bodemloos* ‘bottomless’, may be the only one – although *vry* ‘free’, which can combine with a noun like *vet* ‘fat’ to make an adjective like *vetvry* ‘fat-free’, could potentially be considered here too. The list of prefixes includes *on-* ‘un-’ and *nie-* ‘not-’, which can attach to both nouns and adjectives without changing their word classes. The former signifies lack of the quality conveyed by the stem. *(On)trou* ‘(un)faithfulness’ and *(on)gesond* ‘(un)healthy’ are cases in point. The latter expresses exclusion from what the stem refers to, like in *(nie-)roker* ‘(non-)smoker’ and *(nie-)christelik* ‘(non-)Christian’. Another prefix, for which it is hard to provide a single translation, is *wan-*. It signifies that what the stem conveys is inadequate or wrong, as in *(wan)besteding* ‘(inappropriate) spending’ and *(wan)smaak* ‘(bad) taste’.

There also exist a number of prefixes that come from other languages. *In-* ‘un-’, for instance, is found with adjectives (and nouns derived from them), like *(in)formeel* ‘(in)formal’, and frequently varies with *on-*, as *(in)stabiel* ‘(in)stable’ and *(on)stabiel* ‘(un)stable’ show. *Non-* ‘non-’ is attested occasionally too, as an alternative to *nie-*, as in *(non)figuratief* ‘(non-)figurative’. Other examples are *kontra-* ‘contra-’ and *anti-* ‘anti-’, in nouns like *(Kontra)reformasie* ‘(Counter-)Reformation’ and adjectives like *(anti)fascisties* ‘(anti-)fascist’, where they have the meaning of ‘opposed to’. This last marker can express the sense of ‘reverse of’ as well, as in *(anti)klimaks* ‘(anti-)climax’. Two more mainly nominal or adjectival prefixes that are borrowed are *eks-* ‘ex-’ and *a-* ‘a-’. The first one, as in *(eks-)burgemeester* ‘(ex-)mayor’, means ‘former’ whereas the second one, as in *(a)moreel* ‘(a)moral’, signifies unrelatedness to what the stem conveys.

Affixes that seem to operate primarily – though not exclusively – in the verbal domain, finally, are *dis-* ‘dis-’ and *ont-* ‘un-’. The former turns the meaning of a verb into its opposite, as in *(dis)kwalifiseer* ‘(dis)qualify’, but is not very productive. The latter has a variety of functions (which will not all be discussed here). It can, for instance, combine with verbs to convey the reverse of their original semantics, as in *(ont)laai* ‘(un)load’ and *(ont)koppel* ‘(dis)connect’. The prefix may also be attached to a noun, with the resulting verb expressing the act of removing what the stem denotes, as in *ontkurk* ‘uncork’ and *onthoof* ‘decapitate’. It can be employed to derive verbs from adjectives as well. The meaning produced this way is that of undoing the quality conveyed by the stem. *Ontrond* ‘unround’ (e.g. when pronouncing a sound) is a case in point and so is *ontgroen* ‘haze’ (e.g.

during an initiation ceremony), i.e. making someone not or less green in the metaphorical sense.

4 Other aspects of negation

4.1 The scope of negation

If negation has scope over only one constituent, for instance, for contrastive purposes, *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ can just surround the constituent in question, as in (35a). To express such a contrast in a coordination construction, *nie*₁ can move from its ordinary place in (35b) and directly precede the constituent in focus, as in (35c) (see Robbers 1992: 231–232). This change in position has a similar effect in (35d) and (35e).

- (35) a. *Adri, nie Daniel nie, is verantwoordelik.*
 Adri NEG₁ Daniel NEG₂ be.PRS responsible
 ‘Adri, not Daniel, is responsible.’
- b. *Daniel is nie verantwoordelik nie, maar Adri.*
 Daniel be.PRS NEG₁ responsible NEG₂ but Adri
 ‘Daniel is not responsible but Adri.’
- c. *Nie Daniel is verantwoordelik nie, maar Adri.*
 NEG₁ Daniel be.PRS responsible NEG₂ but Adri
 ‘Not Daniel is responsible but Adri.’
- d. *Daniel mag dit nie sê nie.*
 Daniel may.PRS 3SG.N NEG₁ say NEG₂
 ‘Daniel is not allowed to say that.’
- e. *Daniel mag nie dit sê nie.*
 Daniel may.PRS NEG₁ 3SG.N say NEG₂
 ‘Daniel is not allowed to say *that*.’

Another area of interest for issues of scope is adverbs (see Biberauer 2008: 122–124). If negation ranges over them, *nie*₁ comes before them, as in (36a). If an adverb has scope over negation, however, *nie*₁ follows it, for which (36b) can serve as a (somewhat marked) example. Not surprisingly therefore, sentential adverbs like *waarskynlik* normally always precede *nie*₁, as in (36c) (*nie waarskynlik* ‘not probably’ would be acceptable, though, when contrasted to *maar beslis* ‘but definitely’).

- (36) a. *Hy lag nie altyd vir my grap-pie-s nie.*
 3SG.M.SBJ laugh NEG₁ always for 1SG.NSBJ joke-DIM-PL NEG₂
 ‘He does not always laugh at my jokes.’
- b. *Hy lag altyd nie vir my grap-pie-s nie.*
 3SG.M.SBJ laugh always NEG₁ for 1SG.NSBJ joke-DIM-PL NEG₂
 ‘He always does not laugh at my jokes.’
- c. *Hulle kom waarskynlik nie Potch toe nie.*
 3PL come probably NEG₁ Potch to NEG₂
 ‘They are probably not coming to Potch.’

A final phenomenon relevant to the scope of negation is the position of *nie*₂ in complex clauses. As mentioned in §2.1, it is usually found at the end of the entire sentence, including any subordinate clause that the negation ranges over – such as the complement clause in (3c), repeated here as (37a), and the relative clause in (37b).

- (37) a. *Ek het nie gesê dat die kar stukkend was*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ say.PST.PTCP COMP DEF car broken be.PST
nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘I did not say that the car was broken.’
- b. *Dit is nie die plek waar sy begrawe is*
 3SG.N be.PRS NEG₁ DEF place where 3SG.F.SBJ bury.PST.PTCP be.PRS
nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘This is not the place where she is buried.’

Still, when a subordinate clause falls outside the scope of negation, *nie*₂ appears at the end of the main clause and not at the end of the whole sentence. In (38a), for instance, the subordinate clause provides a “positive” reason for the “negative” state of affairs in the main clause and *nie*₂ occurs before the conjunction *aangesien* ‘because’.¹⁷ Conversely, when the negation applies only to the

¹⁷The issue of scope with conjunctions meaning ‘because’ is interesting. *Want* ‘because’ is a coordinator and the clause that it introduces therefore always falls outside the scope of a preceding clause’s negation. Only the pattern in (38a) – and (38c) – is possible. By contrast, like *aangesien*, *omdat* ‘because’ is a subordinator and the clause headed by it may be inside the scope of a foregoing clause’s negation in particular contexts. For instance, if one wanted to say ‘he does not want to eat because he is ill but because ...’, the reason would fall within the scope of the main clause negation. In that case, *nie*₂ would follow the first subordinate clause: *hy wil nie eet omdat hy siek is nie maar omdat ...*

subordinate clause, *nie*₂ is placed at the end of that clause and not at the end of the complete sentence. In (38b), for example, the main clause makes a “positive” claim, about people who are defined “negatively” in the relative clause, and *nie*₂ occurs after *drink* ‘drink’ rather than *vreemd* ‘weird’. Similarly, when a negative clause is followed by a coordinated positive clause, as in (38c), *nie*₂ is found at the end of the first clause and not at that of the complex clause.

- (38) a. *Hy wil nie eet nie aangesien hy siek is.*
 3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS NEG₁ eat NEG₂ because 3SG.M.SBJ ill be.PRS
 ‘He does not want to eat, because he is ill.’
 b. *Mens-e wat nie drink nie, is vreemd.*
 human-PL what NEG₁ drink NEG₂ be.PRS weird
 ‘People who do not drink are weird.’
 c. *Sy lees nie boek-e nie en hy is ’n skrywer.*
 3SG.F.SBJ read NEG₁ book-PL NEG₂ and 3SG.M.SBJ be.PRS INDF writer
 ‘She does not read books and he is a writer.’

See also §2.4 about issues of scope in non-finite subordinate clauses.

4.2 Negative polarity

The inventory of negative polarity items includes the modal auxiliaries *hoef* ‘need’ and *durf* ‘dare’. The former expresses absence of necessity in negative clauses, as in (39a), but can be employed in other negative polarity contexts too, such as polar questions and clauses with the restrictive adverb *net* ‘only’, as (39b) and (39c) respectively show. Its use in a plainly positive clause like (39d) is not grammatical, however.

- (39) a. *Ons hoef nie die wet-te te gehoorsaam nie.*
 1PL need NEG₁ DEF law-PL to obey NEG₂
 ‘We do not need to obey the laws.’
 b. *Hoef ons die wet-te te gehoorsaam?*
 need 1PL DEF law-PL to obey
 ‘Do we need to obey the laws?’
 c. *Ons hoef net die wet-te te gehoorsaam.*
 1PL need only DEF law-PL to obey
 ‘We only need to obey the laws.’

- d. *?Ons hoef die wet-te te gehoorsaam.*
 1PL need DEF law-PL to obey
 ‘We need to obey the laws.’

Durf exhibits the same behavior, as (40) aims to suggest: (40a) would be unacceptable without the negators and the conditional in (40b) is yet another type of negative polarity context.

- (40) a. *Ek durf dit nie sê nie.*
 1SG.SBJ dare 3SG.N NEG₁ say NEG₂
 ‘I dare not say it.’
 b. *As jy durf lag, moer ek jou.*
 if 2SG.SBJ dare laugh hit 1SG.SBJ 2SG.NSBJ
 ‘If you dare laugh, I will hit you.’

Another negative polarity item is *veel* ‘much’ (see also Kotzé & Breed 2019). It can appear in the negative clause in (41a) but has to be replaced by *baie* ‘much’ (a borrowing from Malay) in its positive equivalent in (41b) (see Kotzé & Breed 2018). *Veel* serves as a(n often rather marked) negative polar alternative to *baie*, which is always possible too, in a variety of contexts – such as with count and mass nouns like (41a), with eventive verbs like (41c) and in comparatives like (41d) (see Berghoff 2016: 23–24, the inspiration for the examples). With gradable adjectives, as in (41e), *veel* is simply not acceptable, though.

- (41) a. *Daar is nie veel/baie skade nie.*
 There be.PRS NEG₁ much damage NEG₂
 ‘There is not much damage.’
 b. *Daar is baie/*veel skade.*
 there be.PRS much damage
 ‘There is much damage.’
 c. *Sy reis nie veel/baie nie.*
 3SG.F.SBJ travel NEG₁ much NEG₂
 ‘She does not travel a lot.’
 d. *Gys is (nie) veel/baie slim-mer as Piet (nie).*
 Gys be.PRS NEG₁ much smart-CMPR as Piet NEG₂
 ‘Gys is (not) much smarter than Piet.’
 e. *Jan is (nie) baie/*veel snaaks (nie).*
 Jan be.PRS NEG₁ much funny NEG₂
 ‘Jan is (not) very funny.’

Importantly, in (41d), *veel* can even occur without negation. Other positive contexts in which it can be found are the excessive and equative constructions in (42a), where *baie* would be very marked, and questions like (42b) as *hoeveel* ‘how much’, where *baie* is impossible. The likely reason why *veel* is found in these positive environments is that phrases like *te veel* ‘too much’ and *ewe veel* ‘as much as’, which are occasionally joined up in writing, conventionalized as units before it became a negative polarity item (*veel* is not negatively polar in Dutch).

- (42) a. *Louise het te(/ewe) veel/?baie geld (as Henk).*
 Louise have.PRS too/as much money as Henk
 ‘Louise has too(/as) much money (as Henk).’
 b. *Hoe-veel/*-baie geld het jy?*
 how-much money have.PRS 2SG.SBJ
 ‘How much money do you have?’

The last item to be considered here is *enige* ‘any’ (see Donaldson 1993: 159–160 too). As mentioned in §3.2, it can appear in Haspelmath’s (1997) comparative and free-choice uses, of which (43a) is another example. It can also occur in conditional, interrogative and indirect negation contexts, as in (43b) to (43d) respectively, but not in specific-known, specific-unknown and irrealis-non-specific ones. Sentence (43e) is a case in point.

- (43) a. *Enige student kan hier-die klas-se by-woon.*
 any student can.PRS here-DEF class-PL at-reside
 ‘Any student can attend these classes.’
 b. *As jy enige vra-e het, is nou jou kans.*
 if 2SG.SBJ any question-PL have.PRS be.PRS now 2SG.NSBJ chance
 ‘If you have any questions, now is your chance.’
 c. *Lees jy op die oomblik enige boek?*
 read 2SG.SBJ on DEF moment any book
 ‘Are you reading any book at the moment?’
 d. *Ek dink nie dat julle enige moeite hier-mee sal hê*
 1SG.SBJ think NEG₁ COMP 2PL any difficulty here-with shall have.INF
nie.
 NEG₂
 ‘I do not think that you will have any difficulty with this.’

- e. **Ek het enige boek-e.*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS any book-PL
 ‘I have some books.’

Enige can be attested under direct negation as well. In this context, it acquires the meaning of ‘any ... at all’, though, as (44) shows.

- (44) *Ek het nie enige foon nie.*
 1SG.SBJ have.PRS NEG₁ any phone NEG₂
 ‘I do not have any phone at all.’

4.3 Marking of noun phrases in the scope of negation

To our knowledge, there are no changes in, for instance, case or focus marking for noun phrases within the scope of negation in Afrikaans. The only exception seems to be when *geen* heads a singular indefinite noun phrase and the article ‘*n*’ disappears (see §2.3, as well as Ponelis 1979: 124).

4.4 Reinforcing negation

Afrikaans has various ways of reinforcing negation (see also §4.2 about *enige* under direct negation). One can, for instance, insert adverbs such as *glad* ‘altogether’, *geheel* ‘wholly’ and *hoegenaamd* ‘whatsoever’ before *nie*₁, as in (45a) (see Ponelis 1968: 26). Another strategy is the use of *geensins* ‘in no way’ instead of *nie*₁, as in (45b), or that of *niks* and *nooit*, with their literal meanings still somewhat present, when *nie*₁ would technically have sufficed, as in (45c) and (45d) respectively (see Biberauer 2008: 109–110).

- (45) a. *Hy wil glad/geheel/hoegenaamd nie eet nie.*
 3SG.M.SBJ want.PRS altogether/wholly/whatsoever NEG₁ eat NEG₂
 ‘He does not want to eat at all.’
 b. *Sy wil geensins eet nie.*
 3SG.F.SBJ want.PRS in.no.way eat NEG₂
 ‘She does not want to eat at all.’
 c. *Hulle het niks verander nie.*
 3PL have.PRS nothing change NEG₂
 ‘They have not changed a thing.’ (i.e. ‘They have not changed at all.’)

- d. *Hulle is vegetaries; hulle eet nooit vleis nie.*
 3PL be.PRS vegetarian 3PL eat never meat NEG₂
 ‘They are vegetarian; they never eat meat.’ (i.e. ‘They do not eat meat at all.’)

In informal language, it is also possible to use *niks* (*nie*) to reinforce negation in circumstances where the meaning of ‘nothing’ is entirely bleached, as in (46). Another option in this register is *g’n* (*nie*) – though not *geen* (*nie*) – but only to strongly deny “an activated, salient, discourse-old proposition” (Huddleston 2010: 3). The dialogue in (47) can serve as an illustration. One more informal strategy involves the collocation *g’n niks* (*nie*),¹⁸ as in (48).¹⁹

- (46) *Sy is niks (nie) tevrede nie.*
 3SG.F.SBJ be.PRS nothing NEG₁ satisfied NEG₂
 ‘She is not remotely satisfied.’ (Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 11)
- (47) A: *Jy is my vriend.*
 2SG.SBJ be.PRS 1SG.NSBJ friend
 ‘You are my friend.’
 B: *Ek is g’n jou vriend nie.*
 1SG.SBJ be.PRS no 2SG.NSBJ friend NEG₂
 ‘I am NOT your friend.’ (Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 9)
- (48) *Dit is g’n niks (nie) so moeilik nie.*
 3SG.N be.PRS no nothing NEG₁ so difficult NEG₂
 ‘It is NOT so difficult.’ (Biberauer & Cyrino 2009: 12)

4.5 Negation, coordination and complex clauses

The way that negation behaves in complex clauses, both coordinate and subordinate ones, has been discussed at some length (see §2.4 and 4.1). Important things

¹⁸Note, for the sake of completeness, that this combination can be employed for other purposes than strong standard negation. As Huddleston (2010: 265, 269) points out, *g’n* can also function as a reinforcer of *niks* as a genuine negative indefinite, resulting in the meaning ‘nothing at all’, and as a negator canceling out the negation of indefinite *niks*, producing the meaning ‘not nothing’.

¹⁹As one of the reviewers points out, negation may also be mitigated, of course. One way in which Afrikaans can do this is by putting an adverb like *eintlik* ‘actually’ or *rêrig* ‘really’ after *nie*. The mitigated equivalent of (45a) would thus be: *hy wil nie eintlik/rêrig eet nie* ‘he does not really want to eat’.

to add here are that Afrikaans does not have any special negative subordinators such as ‘lest’ and that the language possesses no dedicated constructions for contrastive negation (see Silvennoinen 2019), to our knowledge. Examples of this last type of negation have been given in (35a) to (35c). Two more comments are in order. First, the special negative coordinator in Afrikaans is *nóg* ‘nor’. As (49a) shows, it does not allow *nie*₂ and, as (49b) makes clear, it can also link phrases and occur only before the second conjunct.

- (49) a. *Nóg sy het ons gehelp, nóg haar ma*
 nor 3SG.F.SBJ have.PRS 1PL help.PST.PTCP nor 3SG.F.NSBJ mum
 het iets gedoen.
 have.PRS something do.PST.PTCP
 ‘Neither did she help us nor did her mum do anything.’
 b. (*Nóg*) *jy, nóg ek moet gaan.*
 nor 2SG.SBJ nor 1SG.SBJ must.PRS go
 ‘(Neither) you nor I should go.’

Second, the language has an intriguing construction where a negative clause is coordinated by *of* ‘or’ with a positive clause and, semantically, the former serves as a restrictive positive subordinate clause for the latter. The literal translation of (50) is ‘you cannot move or they gossip’ but its meaning is ‘as soon as you move, they gossip’ (see also Ponelis 1968: 29, for further discussion).

- (50) *Jy kan nie jou roer nie of hulle skinder.*
 2SG.SBJ can.PRS NEG₁ 2SG.NSBJ stir NEG₂ or 3PL gossip
 ‘As soon as you move, they gossip.’ (Ponelis 1968: 29)

4.6 Miscellaneous aspects of negation

4.6.1 Negative transport

The phenomenon also known as negative raising is attested in the language, though it does not appear to have been studied in any detail yet. Compare the “non-raised” case in (51a) featuring the negation in the finite complement clause, with its “raised” counterpart in (51b), where the main verb is negated instead but the meaning is more or less the same. Examples with a non-finite subordinate clause are given in (51c) and (51d).

- (51) a. *Ek dink dat ons nie ’n keuse het nie.*
 1SG.SBJ think COMP 1PL NEG₁ INDF choice have.PRS NEG₂
 ‘I think that we do not have a choice.’

- b. *Ek dink nie dat ons 'n keuse het nie.*
 1SG.SBJ think NEG₁ COMP 1PL INDF choice have.PRS NEG₂
 'I do not think that we have a choice.'
- c. *Ek beplan om nie lank hier te wees nie.*
 1SG.SBJ plan for NEG₁ long here to be.INF NEG₂
 'I plan not to be here long.'
- d. *Ek beplan nie om lank hier te wees nie.*
 1SG.SBJ plan NEG₁ for long here to be.INF NEG₂
 'I do not plan to be here long.'

An exploration based on Horn's (1989: 323) and Popp's (2016: 51) lists of predicates suggests that negative raising can occur with at least: the attitude predicates *die indruk kry* 'feel, get the impression', *dink* 'think', *glo* 'believe' and *hoop* 'hope'; the perception predicates *klink asof* 'sound like' and *lyk asof* 'look like'; the volition predicates *beplan* 'plan' and *wil* 'want'; and the judgment predicates *aanraai* 'advise', *dit is gewens* 'it is desirable' and *voorstel* 'suggest'. More in-depth (corpus) research is needed, though, to get the full picture.

4.6.2 Expletive negation

The literature discusses a number of situations in which negation is overtly expressed but does not actually contribute to the meaning. Verbs with contradictory semantics like *weier* 'refuse' and inherently negative adverbs like *nouliks* 'barely' have been mentioned in this context. The expletive use of *nie*₂ with such items is, however, almost consistently seen as unacceptable by native speakers (see footnote 10). Expletive negation in conditional clauses with *tensy* 'unless' and *voordat* 'before' receives a more – though still not generally – positive reception (see Potgieter 2018: 60–63). In informal language, the subordinate clauses in (52) can (but need not) be negated in spite of the fact that their meaning remains positive.²⁰

- (52) a. *Jy kan nie gaan voordat jou werk nie klaar is*
 2SG.SBJ can.PRS NEG₁ go before 2SG.NSBJ work NEG₁ ready be.PRS
nie.
 NEG₂
 'You cannot go before your work is done.' (Donaldson 1993: 405)

²⁰Biberauer (2009: 102) adds that *nie*₁ may not be compulsory in the types of expletive negation discussed so far but that it is yet unclear what the difference is between the cases with *nie*₁ and *nie*₂ and those with just *nie*₂.

- b. *Tensy jou werk nie klaar is nie, kan jy nie gaan nie.*
 unless 2SG.NSBJ work NEG₁ ready be.PRS NEG₂ can.PRS 2SG.SBJ NEG₁
 go NEG₂
 ‘Unless your work is done, you cannot go.’ (Donaldson 1993: 405)

Exclamatives are another context where the input of negation, whose occurrence there is widely accepted (see Potgieter 2018: 63–64), is not entirely clear: the cases in (53) are essentially both expressions of, for instance, surprise at or emotion toward a positive state of affairs.

- (53) a. *Hoe vinnig gaan die lewe (nie) verby (nie)!*
 how fast go DEF life NEG₁ past NEG₂
 ‘How fast life passes us by!’ (Biberauer & Potgieter 2017: 3)
- b. *Is dit nie alte fraai nie!*
 be.PRS 3SG.N NEG₁ all.too beautiful NEG₂
 ‘Isn’t that beautiful!’ (Biberauer & Potgieter 2017: 3)

In fact, in so-called wh-exclamatives, like (53a), the negation can quite easily be dropped with little change in meaning. The difference has to do with the discourse status of the information. A positive wh-exclamative conveys new information whereas a negative one expresses a reaction to known information. In what are termed polar exclamatives, like (53b), by contrast, the negation is not optional. Deleting it would result in something that looks like an interrogative with an interpretation of ‘is it all too beautiful?’.

In a request such as (54), finally, the addition of negation also has little impact on the act performed with the sentence. It functions as a call on the addressee to close the door with or without *nie*₁ ... *nie*₂. The information’s discourse status is again different, however. With the negation, the information is presented as known, which may make the request more insistent – implying, for instance, that the door should have been closed already. Still, in other situations, it may also have a mitigating effect.

- (54) *Kan jy (nie) asseblief die deur toemaak (nie)?*
 can.PRS 2SG.SBJ NEG₁ please DEF door close NEG₂
 ‘Could(n’t) you close the door please?’

4.6.3 Diachronic notes and observations

The origin of the two-part negation is a matter of much debate in Afrikaans linguistics, to which the present section cannot really do justice. It will therefore

only provide a brief description of this and other diachronic issues and point to some relevant literature. As to the two-part negation (see §2.1), some scholars have argued that it comes directly from particular Dutch dialects with a similar phenomenon while others maintain that it is an innovation of Afrikaans (e.g. *nie*₂ as deriving from a clause-final resumptive negator). Among the latter, there is disagreement about whether its development was autonomous or whether contact with, for example, the indigenous Khoisan languages in the Cape played a role. The evidence for any single one of these positions seems to be quite scarce, however. A fairly comprehensive overview of the entire debate is given in Roberge (2000). Other important references are Den Besten (1986), Bell (2001), Deumert (2017), Van Rensburg (2018).²¹

There is also some discussion on the origin of *moenie* in negative imperatives (see §2.2). It has, for instance, been argued to be a calque of some eighteenth-century Portuguese Pidgin or Creole construction. It could also be the product of an independent process of grammaticalization for which the politeness strategy of deontic declaratives (i.e. *jy moet nie ...* ‘you should not ...’) was the source. Relevant research includes Den Besten (2004) and Van Olmen (2010).

As regards the negation of stative predication (see §2.3), the comparison with Dutch and German, where the negative determiner construction is the only acceptable option for certain types of stative predicate, suggests that the grammaticality in Afrikaans of *nie*₁ ... *nie*₂ in all types results from an extension of the standard negation construction.

Finally, contrasting the language with Dutch also indirectly supports Donaldson’s (1988: 232) and Hoeksema’s (2010: 843) claim that the use of *enige* in comparative and free-choice contexts (see §3.2 and §4.2) is due to English influence. Unlike *any* and Afrikaans *enige*, Dutch *enig* cannot be used in this way.

5 Summary

Table 1 gives an overview of the most prominent negative constructions in Afrikaans, together with their functions. For details, we refer to the relevant sections in this chapter.

²¹An issue that, to our knowledge, has not been taken into account fully in the debate about the two-part negation’s origin is the syntactic position of *nie*₁. As one of the reviewers rightly points out, its unmarked position in a clause meaning ‘I have not seen the house’ is before the lexical object *die huis* ‘the house’: *ek het nie₁ die huis gesien nie₂*. In (Present-day) Dutch, *niet* ‘not’ comes after *het huis* ‘the house’: *ik heb het huis niet gezien*. This difference (possibly of a diachronic nature) needs to be explained in any scenario linking Afrikaans negation to Dutch negation.

Table 1: Negation in Afrikaans

Construction	Functions	Notes
<i>nie</i> ₁ ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'not ... not'	standard negation interrogative negation non-canonical imperative negation negation of stative predication subordinate clause negation contrastive negation	<i>nie</i> ₁ is clause-medial <i>nie</i> ₂ clause-final <i>nie</i> ₂ can be omitted in certain, very specific contexts the negation is entirely symmetrical
<i>moenie</i> ₁ ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'must.not ... not'	canonical imperative negation	the negation exhibits constructional asymmetry in finiteness
<i>moenie</i> ₁ <i>dat</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'must.not that ... not'	'don't let (someone do something)!'	
<i>geen/ (nie)</i> <i>g'n</i> ... 'no ... not'	negation of possessive predication negation of proper inclusion (locative-)existential negation	standard negation is more common in these types of stative predication <i>g'n</i> is the informal variant
<i>nee</i> 'no'	disagreement with positive polar questions agreement with negative polar questions denying a questioner's presumed concerns	
<i>ja</i> 'yes'	agreement with positive polar questions	as a reply to negative polar questions, it is vague vis-à-vis (dis)agreement
<i>ja-nee</i> 'yes-no'	subjectively qualified agreement	
<i>niemand</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'nobody ... not' <i>niks</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'nothing ... not' <i>nooit</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'never ... not' <i>nêrens</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ 'nowhere ... not'	negative indefinites	<i>nie</i> ₂ is optional in certain, very specific contexts <i>nie</i> ₁ can be added in colloquial language with more than one indefinite, only the first one is normally negative in informal language, multiple negative indefinites are possible without negations canceling each other out <i>niks</i> and <i>nooit</i> may be used simply to reinforce a standard negation in particular contexts

Construction	Functions	Notes
<i>iemand</i> 'someone' <i>iets</i> 'something' <i>ooit</i> 'ever' <i>êrens</i> 'somewhere'	Indefinites	they require <i>enige</i> 'any' in comparative and free-choice contexts
<i>sonder</i> 'without'	abessive meaning	it can be followed by a noun phrase and a finite or non-finite subordinate clause
<i>-loos</i> '-less'	forming adjectives from nouns, with abessive meaning	
<i>on-</i> / <i>in-</i> 'un-'	lack of quality denoted by stem	<i>on-</i> is more frequent
<i>nie-</i> / <i>non-</i> 'not- / non-'	exclusion from what stem denotes	<i>nie-</i> is more frequent
<i>anti-</i> 'anti-'	'opposed to', 'reverse of'	
<i>kontra-</i> 'contra-'	'opposed to'	
<i>eks-</i> 'ex-'	'former'	
<i>a-</i> 'a-'	unrelatedness to what stem denotes	
<i>ont-</i> 'un-'	reverse of action denoted by verbal stem removal of referent of nominal stem undoing of quality denoted by adjectival stem	
<i>hoef</i> 'need' <i>durf</i> 'dare'	modal verbs	they can only occur in negative polarity contexts
Construction	Functions	Notes
<i>veel</i> 'much'	negatively polar alternative to <i>baie</i> 'much'	it can also be found in interrogative, excessive and equative constructions
<i>enige</i> 'any'	negative polarity item	it can occur in comparative, free-choice, conditional, interrogative and (in)direct negation contexts

Construction	Functions	Notes
<i>hoegenaamd</i> / <i>glad</i> / <i>geheel</i> / <i>nie</i> ₁ ... <i>nie</i> ₂ ‘whatsoever / alto- gether / wholly not ... not’	reinforcing negation	
<i>geensins</i> ... <i>nie</i> ₂ ‘in.no.way ... not’	reinforcing negation	
(<i>nóg</i>)... <i>nóg</i> ... ‘neither ... nor ...’	negative coordination	
<i>tensy</i> ‘unless’ <i>voordat</i> ‘before’	conjunctions with a (potentially) conditional meaning	the subordinate clauses that they introduce may feature expletive negation in informal language

Abbreviations

1	first person	M	masculine
2	second person	N	neuter
3	third person	NEG	negation
CMPR	comparative	NSBJ	non-subject
COMP	complementizer	PL	plural
DEF	definite	PRS	present
DIM	diminutive	PST	past
F	feminine	PTCP	participle
GEN	genitive	SBJ	subject
INDF	indefinite	SG	singular
INF	infinitive	SUPL	superlative

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Negation in the world's languages I

The three-volume work *Negation in the world's languages* constitutes a major step forward in the comparative study of negation. It includes 43 chapters describing the negation system of one language each, following a typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire. The questionnaire is a comparative tool organized according to functional subdomains of negation. It highlights aspects of negation that have been found salient in typological research, such as standard negation, negation in non-declaratives, negation of stative predications and negative indefinite pronouns. At the same time it aims at a comprehensive coverage of the domain of negation and also allows room for language specific features to be highlighted. By using the questionnaire, the chapters have produced comparable datasets of the negation systems of a wide variety of languages from different families and areas. The contributions are also good examples of the fruitful cooperation between typologists and descriptive linguists in the context of diversity linguistics. On the one hand, typological knowledge is essential for language description as it helps descriptive linguists see their data in a broader perspective, ask new questions and come up with new analyses. On the other hand, typologists are crucially dependent on work done by descriptive linguists for their data collection.

The selection of languages is mainly a result of the response to an open call for papers, originally launched for the workshop on negation organized in connection with the *Syntax of the World's Languages VIII* conference in Paris in 2018. To balance the representation of different continents, authors working on languages from the areas that were initially least covered were invited to take part. The languages are distributed across the three volumes according to geography, following the macroareal divisions in the *Glottolog*. The first volume includes languages from Africa, the second one covers languages from Eurasia, and the third one brings together languages from Papunesia, Australia, North America and South America.